

To Do List

Just comment on these questions and let me know what you think.

1. I moved your entire file onto my computer but the pages are not talking to each other. Not a big deal at the moment as long as it's working on your end.
2. If I start pushing out content into the google drive, what else do you need from me?
3. Building off this, I want to redo the content a bit on the existing stuff, but getting the shell done is the priority.
4. I chatted with my son about the Claude stuff, I think you and him have different understandings of how this Claude prompting might play out. You are the expert not him.
5. BIG BIG BIG Super question- how can we monetize this thing besides my writing feedback and limited subscriptions? What can we do to generate income off of clicks?
6. Can we create like a fake AI Heimler style videos to put on Youtube to monetize clicks there?
7. I played with GROK a smidge, look at this link. It's not the new website, but I like the short synopsis for the new intros
[Grok index.html](https://grok.index.html)

As of Jun 25, 2026 All Reading Content is done, I am still going through and altering a bit.

1. Several of the topics have charts that need to be prettied up and maybe some embedded infographics. I'll look into that and make notes as I go back through.
2. I'm pretty"ing" up the vocab just a bit. But should be done with that in the next day or so. I bounce around between making questions and revising the information out of boredom.
3. Inserting images into the reading content will probably be the death of me, one step at a time I guess.
4. I'm starting on the SAQ's, I intend for them to be decent to start but there will be revisions as I go back through and then we get feedback as usage increases.
5. Not an immediate concern, but what do you think about having a couple of the released SAQ's as free with the AI grader feedback and then once we get that process figured out, then we put new ones behind the paywall?
6. I'm going to move the original set of MCQ and SAQ into this file so it's all in one place, I guess consider the old stuff the Beta 1 and this is Beta 2.
7. Let me know what else you think we need besides for me to keep cranking out content.
8. So we're maxed out at 100 tabs, fun fact. All Unit tests are done, but if it's not on its own tab, the test is on the Generic Unit tab.

Unit 1

1.1 Developments in East Asia

During the Song Dynasty (960–1279), China emerged as a standout example of political stability, economic dynamism, and cultural creativity across Afro-Eurasia. Even after losing northern territories to pastoral invaders from Manchuria who founded the Jin Empire, the Song presided over a smaller but highly prosperous realm where the arts, scholarship, and manufacturing reached new heights. Neo-Confucian ideas reinforced state authority and shaped family life and social hierarchy, while China produced more manufactured goods than any other society. At the same time, the spread of Confucian values and Buddhist traditions carried Chinese influence far beyond its borders, creating lasting patterns of continuity alongside striking innovations.

Government Developments in the Song Dynasty

The Song took power in 960 after the Tang Dynasty and governed for more than three centuries. Although they controlled less territory than their predecessors, their era brought sustained prosperity and cultural achievement. A key source of strength was China's long-standing **imperial bureaucracy**—a large system of appointed officials who implemented imperial policies. This structure had existed since the Qin Dynasty (221–207 B.C.E.) and represented deep institutional continuity across many dynasties. Under the Song, the bureaucracy grew significantly, which initially helped consolidate power.

One of the most important reforms came under Emperor Song Taizu, who broadened educational access so that talented young men from lower economic backgrounds could prepare for the civil service examinations. Success on these exams, which tested mastery of Confucian classics, opened the door to prestigious government positions. Because advancement depended on demonstrated ability rather than birth, the system functioned as a **meritocracy**. While the poorest families remained underrepresented, this approach offered more social mobility than most contemporary systems elsewhere in the world.

Over time, however, the bureaucracy became oversized. The high salaries and sheer number of officials placed a heavy financial burden on the state, eventually consuming much of China's surplus wealth and contributing to later weaknesses.

Economic Developments in Postclassical China

The Song built on the solid foundations laid by the Tang Dynasty, which had promoted agricultural growth, improved transportation networks, expanded foreign trade, and encouraged technological progress. These earlier advances fueled rapid population growth and rising prosperity under the Song.

A centerpiece of internal connectivity was the **Grand Canal**, an extensive and efficient waterway system stretching more than 30,000 miles. Its expansion turned China into the world's largest and most active trading zone during this period.

Although gunpowder had been developed in earlier Chinese dynasties, Song innovators created the first true firearms. Over subsequent centuries, knowledge of gunpowder and gun-making technology traveled outward along the Silk Roads to other parts of Eurasia.

Agricultural output surged thanks to the introduction of **Champa rice**, a fast-maturing, drought-resistant variety originally from the region of present-day Vietnam. Combined with other experimental strains, this rice allowed cultivation to expand into previously marginal lands such as low-lying areas, riverbanks, and hillsides. In many regions farmers could now harvest two crops per year. Complementary innovations included the use of both human and animal manure to enrich soil, sophisticated irrigation networks featuring ditches, water wheels,

pumps, and terraced fields, and heavy plows pulled by water buffalo or oxen that opened new land for farming. The result was a dramatic increase in food supply. China's population grew rapidly, rising from roughly 25 percent of the world's total to nearly 40 percent over the three centuries of Song rule.

Industrial production also expanded dramatically. Long before the widespread use of coal in Europe, Chinese miners had discovered “black earth” (coal) centuries earlier, enabling large-scale production of cast iron. Song artisans later learned to remove carbon from cast iron to create steel, which was used to strengthen bridges, gates, ship anchors, religious structures such as pagodas, Buddhist statues, and agricultural tools.

China experienced an early form of **proto-industrialization**—widespread rural and household-based production that exceeded local needs—well before similar developments in Western Europe. Skilled artisans, often working under imperial supervision in dispersed facilities, manufactured steel goods, porcelain, and silk. Porcelain was especially prized for its lightness, durability, and suitability for elaborate painted decoration. Chinese mariners used the compass for navigation, redesigned ships to carry larger cargoes, and printed paper charts that allowed open-sea voyages beyond sight of land.

These advances made China the most commercialized society of its time. Production shifted from purely local consumption toward market-oriented output, with porcelain, textiles, and tea becoming major exports. The Grand Canal facilitated vibrant domestic trade, while naval improvements allowed China to dominate commerce in the South China Sea. Strong military forces protected merchants from banditry along trade routes.

The government further stimulated the commercial economy by paying workers in cash for public infrastructure projects such as roads and irrigation canals rather than relying solely on forced labor. This policy increased the money supply and encouraged broader economic activity.

Another important revenue source was the tributary system, under which neighboring states sent goods or payments to honor the Chinese emperor. This arrangement, which had roots in the Han Dynasty, reinforced China's political and economic dominance while also promoting regional stability and trade. By Song times, Japan, Korea, and various Southeast Asian kingdoms participated. Envoys demonstrated respect through the kowtow ritual—bowing until the forehead touched the ground. Large Chinese fleets, most famously those led by Zheng He (detailed further in Topic 2.3), were sent to display imperial power and collect tribute.

Social Structures in China

Although most Chinese people continued to live in rural areas, cities grew rapidly during the Song period. China became the most urbanized society in the world, with several cities exceeding 100,000 residents. Major centers such as the ancient capital Chang'an, Hangzhou at the southern end of the Grand Canal, and the bustling port of Guangzhou were cosmopolitan hubs of commerce and entertainment.

The expansion of the bureaucracy created a new elite group: the **scholar-gentry**. Educated in Confucian philosophy, these officials soon outnumbered the older aristocracy of hereditary landowners and became the most influential social class. Below them ranked farmers, artisans, and merchants. Confucian values placed merchants near the bottom of the social scale because their work involved exchange rather than the physical creation of goods or food through labor.

At the lower levels of society were peasants who often worked land owned by wealthy families to repay debts, along with the urban poor. The Song government provided some support for the needy, including the establishment of public hospitals offering free care.

Confucian tradition combined respect for women with clear expectations of deference to male authority, a patriarchal pattern that became more pronounced during the Tang and Song eras. One particularly restrictive practice that spread among aristocratic families in the Song period was **foot binding**. Young girls had their feet tightly wrapped, preventing natural bone growth and resulting in deformed feet that were considered a mark of high status and desirability in marriage. The practice severely limited women's mobility and participation in public life; it was not officially banned until 1912.

Intellectual and Cultural Developments

The Tang and Song periods combined material prosperity, widespread literacy among the educated classes, and extensive contact with foreign cultures, creating fertile ground for intellectual and artistic achievement.

The Chinese had invented paper as early as the 2nd century C.E. and developed woodblock printing by the 7th century. A Buddhist text from that era is believed to be the world's earliest surviving woodblock-printed work. During the Song, printed instructional booklets on efficient farming techniques were distributed widely in rice-growing regions, spreading practical knowledge.

The increased availability of printed books expanded access to literature among privileged groups. Confucian scholars both produced and consumed an enormous volume of writing. The emphasis on rigorous schooling during the Tang and Song created generations of versatile scholar-officials whose broad learning later reminded Europeans of Renaissance ideals.

Religious Diversity in China

Buddhism reached China from India along the Silk Roads and gained significant popularity during the Tang Dynasty, aided by the travels and translations of the 7th-century monk Xuanzang. Three major strands of Buddhism shaped different parts of Asia:

- **Theravada Buddhism** stressed personal spiritual development through meditation and self-discipline and became dominant in Southeast Asia.
- **Mahayana Buddhism** emphasized spiritual progress for all beings and acts of service; it took deepest root in China and Korea.
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All three traditions shared core teachings: the Four Noble Truths (which link suffering to desire and its elimination) and the Eight-Fold Path (guidelines for right speech, livelihood, effort, mindfulness, and other practices leading toward enlightenment or nirvana).

Chinese monks helped Buddhism take root by connecting its concepts to native Daoist ideas—for example, translating the Buddhist notion of dharma as *dao* (“the way”). Over time, Buddhist and Daoist elements blended to form the syncretic tradition known as Chan (or Zen) Buddhism, which prioritized direct personal experience and meditation over intensive scriptural study. Monasteries appeared in most major cities and attracted widespread popular support.

During the Tang, however, the prominence of this foreign religion created tension. Daoist and Confucian leaders resented the wealth and influence of Buddhist monasteries. The government responded with periodic closures and confiscations of monastic lands, yet Chan Buddhism remained deeply embedded among ordinary people.

The Song Dynasty was generally more tolerant of Buddhism but actively promoted native traditions, especially Confucianism. The Confucian principle of **filial piety**—the duty of family members to subordinate personal desires to the male head of household and to rulers—helped stabilize Song authority. Between roughly 770 and 840, a new synthesis called **Neo-Confucianism** emerged. It combined rational inquiry with selected insights from Daoism and Buddhism, shifting emphasis toward ethical conduct in daily life rather than metaphysical speculation about divinity or nature. This revitalized form of Confucianism spread widely throughout East Asia, influencing Japan, Korea, and Vietnam.

Comparing Japan, Korea, and Vietnam

Japan, Korea, and Vietnam each maintained complex relationships with China. When China was strong and unified, its political institutions, economic wealth, religious traditions, intellectual life, and technology made it an irresistible model. Yet each neighbor also worked to preserve distinct cultural identities—a process often described as negotiating **sinification** (the adoption and adaptation of Chinese practices).

Japan benefited from its island geography, which gave it greater ability to regulate contact with the mainland than its continental neighbors enjoyed. In the early 7th century, Prince Shotoku Taishi actively promoted Buddhism and Confucianism alongside Japan's indigenous Shinto beliefs and oversaw the adoption of woodblock printing. During the Heian period (794–1185), Japanese elites consciously emulated Chinese models in government, art, and literature. At the same time, they produced original works, most notably *The Tale of Genji* (early 11th century), widely regarded as the world's first novel—a sophisticated exploration of court life and romance written by a Japanese noblewoman.

For centuries Japan lacked a strong central government and operated as a feudal society. Powerful landowning aristocrats called *daimyo* competed for territory while most people worked as rice-farming peasants. Japanese feudalism shared features with European feudalism, including limited social mobility and hereditary hierarchies (peasants/serfs, samurai warriors, and daimyo nobles). However, Japanese *daimyo* exercised far greater independent power over their domains than most European nobles, often overshadowing both the emperor and the *shogun* (military ruler). In 1192 the Minamoto clan installed a shogun; although an emperor remained, real authority rested with the shogun and regional lords. Japan experienced centuries of decentralized rivalries until stronger central control emerged in the 17th century.

The Japanese warrior code of *bushido* emphasized frugality, loyalty, martial skill, and readiness to die honorably—values that differed in emphasis from the European code of chivalry, which stressed duty to country and God along with courtly love and refined manners toward women.

Korea shared a land border with China and maintained close tributary relations, leading to deep cultural borrowing. Korean governments centralized authority along Chinese lines, and educated elites studied Confucian texts while Buddhism appealed strongly to commoners. Koreans adopted the Chinese writing system, though its fit with the Korean language was imperfect; in the 15th century they developed their own script. One major difference was the greater power of Korea's landed aristocracy, which successfully blocked full implementation of Chinese-style reforms. For example, the Korean civil service examination system remained closed to peasants, preventing the emergence of a truly merit-based bureaucracy open to all social classes.

Vietnam also adopted elements of Chinese culture, including its writing system and architectural styles, but its relationship with China was frequently adversarial. Vietnamese forces launched repeated rebellions against Chinese occupation and influence. Several cultural differences help explain the strength of Vietnamese resistance. Vietnamese women generally enjoyed more independence within marriage than women bound by strict Confucian norms. Families tended to be nuclear (parents and children) rather than the extended

multigenerational households common in China. Vietnamese villages operated with considerable autonomy, and national political centralization remained weak. Although Vietnam developed a merit-based class of educated scholar-officials, these men often felt greater loyalty to local village communities than to the distant emperor; they sometimes led uprisings against oppressive rule. Vietnamese women particularly resisted Chinese customs such as foot binding and **polygyny** (the practice of a man having multiple wives simultaneously). Despite these efforts to preserve cultural distinctiveness, significant Chinese influence still took hold.

Militarily, Vietnamese rebels demonstrated skill in guerrilla warfare, using intimate knowledge of local terrain to harass and ultimately expel Chinese forces as the Tang Dynasty weakened in the 8th century.

Key Terms by Theme

ECONOMICS: China

Champa rice, proto-industrialization, artisans

SOCIETY: China

Scholar-gentry, filial piety

ENVIRONMENT: China

Grand Canal

GOVERNMENT: China

Song Dynasty, imperial bureaucracy, meritocracy

TECHNOLOGY: China

Woodblock printing

CULTURE: China

Foot binding, Buddhism, Theravada Buddhism, Mahayana Buddhism, Chan (Zen) Buddhism, Neo-Confucianism

GOVERNMENT: Japan

Heian period, daimyo, shogun, bushido

CULTURE: Vietnam

Nuclear families, polygyny

1.1

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The Japanese warrior code of *bushido* emphasized frugality, loyalty, martial skill, and readiness to die honorably—values that differed in emphasis from the European code of chivalry, which stressed duty to country and God along with courtly love and refined manners toward women.

Korea shared a land border with China and maintained close tributary relations, leading to deep cultural borrowing. Korean governments centralized authority along Chinese lines, and educated elites studied Confucian texts while Buddhism appealed strongly to commoners. Koreans adopted the Chinese writing system, though its fit with the Korean language was imperfect; in the 15th century they developed their own script. One major difference was the greater power of Korea's landed aristocracy, which successfully blocked full implementation of Chinese-style reforms. For example, the Korean civil service examination system remained closed to peasants, preventing the emergence of a truly merit-based bureaucracy open to all social classes.

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Vocabulary

- Champa rice
- Scholar-gentry
- Filial piety
- Grand Canal
- Song Dynasty
- Imperial bureaucracy
- Meritocracy
- Woodblock printing
- Foot binding
- Buddhism- Theravada/Mahayana/Chan/Zen
- Neo-Confucianism
- Heian period
- Daimyo
- Dhogun
- Bushido

1.1 MCQ

Topic 1.1: Developments in East Asia from c. 1200 to c. 1450

Stimulus: The Civil Service Examination System in the Song Dynasty

Passage:

"During the Song Dynasty (960–1279), the civil service examination system was greatly expanded and refined. Candidates from all over the empire would travel to the capital to take the exams, which tested their knowledge of Confucian classics and their ability to write essays and poetry. Those who passed the exams were appointed to government positions, ensuring that the bureaucracy was staffed by educated and capable officials. This system helped to create a meritocratic society and fostered a culture of learning and scholarship."

Questions

1. Based on the passage, which of the following best describes the role of the civil service examination system in the Song Dynasty?
 - (A) It was a tool for social mobility, allowing talented individuals to rise in status
 - (B) It was primarily used to suppress dissent and maintain political control
 - (C) It was a means of spreading religious doctrine throughout the empire
 - (D) It was a way to generate revenue for the government through examination fees

(A) It was a tool for social mobility, allowing talented individuals to rise in status

The passage explains that the system allowed candidates from across the empire to gain government positions by passing exams, indicating a meritocratic system that enabled social mobility.

2. The emphasis on Confucian classics in the examinations reflects which aspect of Song governance?
 - (A) A commitment to religious diversity
 - (B) A focus on practical skills and technology
 - (C) A desire to maintain traditional values and social order
 - (D) An interest in adopting foreign ideas and practices

(C) A desire to maintain traditional values and social order

The focus on Confucian classics suggests a commitment to preserving traditional Chinese values and social structures, as Confucianism emphasized moral governance and societal harmony.

3. The civil service examination system contributed to which of the following social changes in the Song Dynasty?
- (A) The decline of the aristocracy and the rise of a scholar-official class
 - (B) The empowerment of women in political affairs
 - (C) The growth of a large peasant class
 - (D) The increased influence of Buddhist monasteries

(A) The decline of the aristocracy and the rise of a scholar-official class

The passage implies that the merit-based system allowed educated individuals to become officials, shifting influence from hereditary aristocrats to a new scholar-official class.

4. Based on the passage and your knowledge of world history, which of the following was most likely a long-term effect of the civil service examination system in East Asia?
- (A) The establishment of similar examination systems in other regions, such as Europe
 - (B) The promotion of Confucian values in neighboring states like Korea and Japan
 - (C) The decline of Buddhism as a major religious force in China
 - (D) The rise of a powerful merchant class that challenged the authority of the scholar-officials

(B) The promotion of Confucian values in neighboring states like Korea and Japan

The civil service examination system, rooted in Confucian principles, influenced neighboring states like Korea and Japan, where similar systems were adopted, spreading Confucian values.

Stimulus: Cultural Traditions in the Song Dynasty

Excerpt from Zhu Xi's "Family Rituals" (circa 1170):

"The rites of the family must be observed with reverence, for they are rooted in the teachings of the sages. Ancestral worship strengthens the bond between generations, ensuring harmony and respect. The scholar should study the Confucian classics diligently, for they provide the moral foundation for governing oneself and others. Through these rituals and learning, the family and state achieve order and prosperity."

Source: Zhu Xi, *Family Rituals*, translated by Patricia Buckley Ebrey, *Chu Hsi's Family Rituals: A Twelfth-Century Chinese Manual for the Performance of Cappings, Weddings, Funerals, and Ancestral Rites*, Princeton University Press, 1991.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, Zhu Xi's emphasis on Confucian rituals primarily reflects which cultural value of the Song Dynasty?**

- (A) The promotion of religious syncretism with Buddhism and Daoism
- (B) The reinforcement of social hierarchy and moral order through Neo-Confucianism
- (C) The encouragement of individual innovation over traditional practices
- (D) The adoption of foreign cultural practices to unify the empire

(B) The reinforcement of social hierarchy and moral order through Neo-Confucianism

The passage highlights Zhu Xi's focus on family rites and Confucian classics as means to achieve harmony and order, which aligns with Neo-Confucianism's emphasis on reinforcing moral and social structures during the Song Dynasty.

2. **The practice of ancestral worship described in the passage was significant in Song society because it**

- (A) facilitated trade connections with neighboring regions
- (B) strengthened familial and social cohesion through shared rituals
- (C) promoted equality among different social classes
- (D) supported the spread of Buddhist monasticism

(B) strengthened familial and social cohesion through shared rituals

The passage explicitly states that ancestral worship strengthens bonds between generations, fostering harmony and respect, which contributed to familial and social cohesion in Song society.

3. **Zhu Xi's focus on studying Confucian classics suggests that the Song Dynasty valued**

- (A) military prowess as the foundation of governance
- (B) intellectual scholarship as a means to maintain social and political stability
- (C) technological advancements over philosophical inquiry
- (D) religious diversity as a unifying force in the empire

(B) intellectual scholarship as a means to maintain social and political stability

The passage connects studying Confucian classics to governing oneself and others, indicating that intellectual scholarship was valued for its role in promoting moral governance and societal stability.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of Neo-Confucianism, as described in the passage, on East Asia during the period c. 1200–1450?**

- (A) Its adoption in Korea and Japan, shaping their political and social systems
- (B) Its role in reducing the influence of the scholar-official class
- (C) Its contribution to the decline of centralized governance in China
- (D) Its encouragement of maritime exploration in the South China Sea

(A) Its adoption in Korea and Japan, shaping their political and social systems

Neo-Confucianism, as promoted by Zhu Xi, significantly influenced neighboring states like Korea and Japan, where it shaped their bureaucracies, education systems, and social norms during this period.

Stimulus Set 2: Technological Innovations in the Song Dynasty

Excerpt from Shen Kuo's "Dream Pool Essays" (1088):

"The artisans of the Song have perfected the art of printing with wooden blocks, allowing books to be produced in great numbers for scholars and officials. Moreover, the magnetic needle, which points to the south, has been refined for use in navigation, guiding ships across vast waters. These advancements have enriched our empire, spreading knowledge and aiding trade."

Source: Shen Kuo, *Dream Pool Essays*, translated by Joseph Needham, *Science and Civilisation in China*, Cambridge University Press, 1962.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, the development of woodblock printing in the Song Dynasty primarily facilitated**

- (A) the spread of religious texts to promote Buddhism
- (B) the dissemination of knowledge and literacy among the elite
- (C) the standardization of military strategies across the empire
- (D) the creation of a centralized currency system

(B) the dissemination of knowledge and literacy among the elite

The passage states that woodblock printing allowed books to be produced for scholars and officials, indicating its role in spreading knowledge and literacy among the educated elite.

2. **The refinement of the magnetic needle (compass) mentioned in the passage most directly contributed to**

- (A) the expansion of maritime trade and navigation in East Asia
- (B) the improvement of agricultural techniques in the Song Dynasty
- (C) the development of overland trade routes along the Silk Road
- (D) the fortification of Song military defenses against invasions

(A) the expansion of maritime trade and navigation in East Asia

The passage explicitly mentions the magnetic needle's use in navigation, guiding ships across vast waters, which directly supported the expansion of maritime trade and navigation.

3. **Shen Kuo's description of technological advancements suggests that the Song Dynasty valued**

- (A) cultural isolation to preserve traditional practices

- (B) innovation as a means to enhance economic and intellectual prosperity
- (C) military conquest over economic development
- (D) religious authority over secular achievements

(B) innovation as a means to enhance economic and intellectual prosperity

The passage highlights advancements in printing and navigation that enriched the empire by spreading knowledge and aiding trade, reflecting a value for innovation to drive economic and intellectual growth.

4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of Song Dynasty technological innovations, such as woodblock printing and the compass, during the period c. 1200–1450?

- (A) They facilitated the spread of Chinese technologies to Europe via the Silk Road
- (B) They inspired similar innovations in the Islamic world and beyond
- (C) They led to the decline of Confucian scholarship in favor of practical sciences
- (D) They reduced the Song Dynasty's reliance on trade with neighboring regions

(B) They inspired similar innovations in the Islamic world and beyond

Song Dynasty technologies like woodblock printing and the compass spread to other regions, including the Islamic world, influencing their technological and cultural developments during this period.

Stimulus: Buddhist Monk Wuzhun Shifan's Letter to a Disciple

Excerpt from a letter by Wuzhun Shifan (circa 1230):

"In our land of the Song, the teachings of the Buddha have taken deep root. Temples rise in every province, where monks and laypeople gather to chant sutras and seek enlightenment. The emperor himself honors the Dharma, granting land and resources to monasteries. Through meditation and the study of sacred texts, the people find peace and wisdom, uniting our realm in spiritual harmony. The fragrance of incense fills the air as offerings are made, and the sound of bells echoes across the countryside, signaling the devotion of countless souls. Monks traverse the mountains and rivers, carrying the wisdom of the sutras to remote villages, while scholars debate the finer points of doctrine in the halls of learning. This flourishing of the Buddha's way strengthens our society, as the emperor's patronage ensures that the monasteries stand as pillars of stability and compassion amidst the trials of the age."

Source: Wuzhun Shifan, *Letters of Chan Master Wuzhun Shifan*, translated by J.C. Cleary, *Zen Letters: Teachings of Yuanwu*, Shambhala Publications, 1994.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, the spread of Buddhism in Song China was primarily characterized by**

(A) its replacement of Confucianism as the state ideology
(B) its integration into society through imperial support and widespread practice
(C) its restriction to elite scholarly circles
(D) its decline due to competition with Daoism

Answer: (B) its integration into society through imperial support and widespread practice

Explanation: The passage describes temples in every province, monks and laypeople chanting sutras, and imperial support through land and resources, indicating Buddhism's broad integration into Song society.

2. **Wuzhun Shifan's reference to temples and monastic support suggests that Buddhism in Song China was significant for**

(A) fostering economic growth through trade networks
(B) providing a cultural and spiritual framework for both elites and commoners
(C) promoting military discipline among the emperor's armies
(D) encouraging resistance against imperial authority

Answer: (B) providing a cultural and spiritual framework for both elites and commoners

Explanation: The passage highlights temples as gathering places for monks and laypeople seeking enlightenment, suggesting Buddhism's role as a shared cultural and spiritual practice.

3. **The emperor's patronage of Buddhism, as mentioned in the passage, most likely served to**

(A) legitimize imperial rule by aligning with a popular religious tradition
(B) suppress Confucian scholars to centralize political power
(C) isolate China from foreign cultural influences
(D) fund military campaigns against neighboring states

Answer: (A) legitimize imperial rule by aligning with a popular religious tradition

Explanation: The emperor's support for Buddhism, through granting land and resources, likely aimed to strengthen imperial authority by aligning with a widely practiced religion.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the spread of Buddhism in East Asia during the period c. 1200–1450, as described in the passage?**

(A) Its adoption in Japan and Korea, influencing their artistic and philosophical traditions
(B) Its role in reducing the influence of Neo-Confucianism across the region
(C) Its contribution to the decline of centralized governance in China
(D) Its encouragement of maritime exploration to spread Buddhist texts

Answer: (A) Its adoption in Japan and Korea, influencing their artistic and philosophical traditions

Explanation: The passage's depiction of Buddhism's deep roots in Song China reflects its broader spread across East Asia, notably influencing Zen Buddhism in Japan and Seon in Korea, impacting art (e.g., temple architecture) and philosophy.

1.2

1.2 Developments in Dar al-Islam

Following the death of the Prophet Muhammad in 632, Islam expanded rapidly from its origins in Arabia. Military campaigns, along with the efforts of traders and missionaries, carried the faith across a vast area stretching from the Indian subcontinent to the Iberian Peninsula. Many Islamic rulers demonstrated notable tolerance toward Christians, Jews, and other monotheists who performed good works, as highlighted in Quranic teachings. During the height of the Abbasid Caliphate, Baghdad became home to the renowned **House of Wisdom**, attracting scholars from distant regions to study and collaborate. This intellectual hub played a central role in preserving, translating, and transmitting knowledge across Afro-Eurasia. As Abbasid authority waned, a variety of successor Islamic states emerged to carry forward many of these traditions.

Invasions and Shifts in Trade Routes

In the 12th and 13th centuries, the Abbasid Empire faced mounting external pressures from multiple directions. Similar to challenges confronting China, nomadic groups from Central Asia posed threats. Unlike China, however, the Abbasids also encountered incursions from European forces.

Egyptian Mamluks

Arabs frequently acquired enslaved individuals, known as **Mamluks**, primarily ethnic Turks from Central Asia, to serve as soldiers and later as administrators. These Mamluks enjoyed greater opportunities for social and political advancement than most enslaved people. In Egypt, they eventually seized political control and established the **Mamluk Sultanate** (1250–1517). The sultanate thrived by facilitating trade in cotton and sugar between the Islamic world and Europe. Its influence later diminished as Portuguese and other European powers developed alternative maritime trade routes that bypassed traditional networks.

Seljuk Turks

Another significant challenge arose from the **Seljuk Turks**, Muslim nomads originating in Central Asia. Beginning in the 11th century, they conquered substantial portions of the Middle East and extended their reach nearly to western China. Their leader adopted the title of **sultan**, which diminished the political authority of the Abbasid caliph while preserving the caliph's role as the leading Sunni religious figure.

Crusaders

The Abbasids had previously permitted relatively free Christian pilgrimage to holy sites in and around Jerusalem. The Seljuk Turks imposed greater restrictions on this travel. In response, European Christians organized military expeditions known as the Crusades to restore access to these sites.

Mongols

The most devastating invasion came from the Mongols, who originated in Central Asia like many Mamluks and the Seljuks. In 1258 they conquered what remained of the Abbasid Empire, bringing an end to Seljuk dominance as well. Mongol forces continued westward but were halted in Egypt by the Mamluks.

Economic Competition and Decline

Since the 8th century, the Abbasids had served as a vital commercial bridge linking Asia, Europe, and North Africa, with Baghdad functioning as a central hub for the exchange of goods and ideas. Over time, trade routes gradually shifted northward. As Baghdad lost its position at the heart of these networks, the city experienced

declining wealth and population. It could no longer maintain its extensive canal systems, leading to agricultural shortfalls and the gradual decay of urban infrastructure.

Cultural and Social Life

Although the Islamic world became politically fragmented after the Abbasid era, a shared cultural sphere persisted. Successor states often adopted Abbasid administrative and cultural practices while developing distinct ethnic identities. The Abbasid Caliphate had been led primarily by Arabs and Persians, but many later Islamic polities were shaped by Turkic peoples from Central Asia. Examples include the Mamluks in North Africa, the Seljuks in the Middle East, and the Delhi Sultanate in South Asia. By the 16th century, three major Islamic empires with Turkic roots had emerged: the Ottomans in Anatolia, the Safavids in Persia, and the Mughals in India.

Despite political divisions, these societies remained connected through trade, which circulated new goods and ideas; the common application of **shariah** (Islamic law), which fostered similar legal frameworks; and major centers of learning in cities such as Baghdad, Córdoba in Spain, Cairo in Egypt, and Bukhara in Central Asia.

Cultural Continuities

Islamic scholars actively followed the Prophet Muhammad's encouragement to "seek knowledge even unto China." They built upon earlier civilizations in several important ways:

- Translating Greek philosophical and literary works (including those of Aristotle) into Arabic, thereby preserving them for later generations.
- Studying and transmitting mathematical concepts from India to Europe.
- Adopting and spreading Chinese techniques for papermaking, which Europeans later learned through Islamic intermediaries.

Cultural Innovations

Beyond preservation, scholars during Baghdad's intellectual golden age made original contributions. Nasir al-Din al-Tusi (1201–1274) advanced multiple fields, including astronomy, mathematics, logic, ethics, philosophy, and medicine. He directed the construction of one of the world's most advanced observatories, which produced highly accurate astronomical tables, and his work on triangles helped establish trigonometry as an independent discipline. Medical care and hospital systems improved in cities such as Cairo, where physicians and pharmacists underwent formal examinations for licensing.

Ibn Khaldun (1332–1406) gained renown for his historical writings and is recognized as a foundational figure in historiography (the study of historical methods) and sociology.

The Sufi poet and mystic 'A'ishah al-Ba'uniyyah (1460–1507) stands as one of the most prolific female Muslim authors before the modern era. Her major work, a lengthy poem praising the Prophet Muhammad, demonstrates extensive learning by referencing earlier poets. Many of her writings explore her personal path toward mystical insight.

Sufism and the Spread of Islam

Sufis emphasized inner spiritual experience and introspection as paths to truths that extended beyond rational study of the Quran. This mystical orientation may have developed partly in reaction to the perceived materialism of the early Umayyad period. Sufi missionaries played a key role in expanding Islam by adapting to

local customs and sometimes incorporating indigenous spiritual elements, thereby attracting converts across diverse regions.

Commerce, Social Structure, and Diversity

Trade and commerce fueled the intellectual and artistic flourishing of the Islamic golden age. Merchants enjoyed higher social prestige in Islamic society than in many contemporary European or Asian cultures, partly because Muhammad himself had been a merchant, as had his first wife. With the revival of Silk Road and Indian Ocean trade, successful merchants could amass considerable wealth, provided they conducted business fairly and fulfilled charitable obligations. Some merchants even served as missionaries.

In newly conquered non-Arab territories, Islamic rulers initially imposed certain discriminatory measures against non-Arabs, though outright persecution was rare and these restrictions gradually eased by the 9th century. Caliphal soldiers were prohibited from owning land in conquered areas. This policy, combined with the presence of a standing military that maintained order without becoming a landowning class, allowed rural life for most inhabitants to continue with relatively little disruption, though populations paid tribute to Islamic authorities rather than previous Byzantine rulers.

Slavery in Islamic Societies

Islamic law prohibited the enslavement of Muslims and fellow monotheists (Jews, Christians, and Zoroastrians). Enslaved people were typically imported from sub-Saharan Africa, Kievan Rus (regions of present-day Belarus, Russia, and Ukraine), and Central Asia. Hereditary slavery did not become firmly established. Many enslaved individuals converted to Islam and were subsequently freed by their owners. Enslaved women sometimes served as concubines to men who already had up to four legal wives; they generally enjoyed greater freedom of movement (such as visiting markets) than legal wives and were the only women permitted to dance or perform music before unrelated men. These opportunities occasionally allowed enslaved women to earn enough to purchase their freedom.

Free Women in Islam

Certain practices often associated with Islam, such as women covering their heads and faces, actually predated the faith and were common in Central Asian and Byzantine societies. Under Islam, most women observed **hijab**—a term encompassing both modest dress in general and specific forms of covering. Men also commonly wore head coverings such as turbans or caps. While women could study and read, they were expected to do so separately from unrelated men.

Muhammad's Reforms

The Prophet Muhammad improved women's position in several concrete ways. He treated his own wives with affection and respect. He directed that dowries be given directly to the bride rather than to her father. He banned the pre-Islamic practice of female infanticide. His first wife was an educated businesswoman, providing a model for recognizing women's capabilities.

Overall Status of Women

In comparison with Christian and Jewish women of the era, Islamic women generally held a higher legal and social position. They could inherit and retain property after marriage, remarry if widowed, receive financial settlements upon divorce, and under certain conditions initiate divorce themselves. They also had access to birth control. In legal proceedings under shariah, a woman's testimony carried half the weight of a man's but

came with protections against retaliation. A notable limitation in the historical record is the scarcity of surviving writings by women themselves before 1450; most documentation was produced by men.

The growth of towns and cities under Islamic rule introduced new restrictions on women's public roles, much as occurred in other contemporary societies. The veil and the harem (secluded quarters for wives, concubines, and their children) came to symbolize these evolving limitations.

Islamic Rule in Spain (al-Andalus)

Although the Umayyad dynasty's rule in the Middle East was relatively brief, it endured much longer in the Iberian Peninsula. In 711, Muslim forces that had already defeated Byzantine armies in North Africa crossed into southern Spain and established their capital at Córdoba.

Islamic expansion into Western Europe reached its northernmost point in 732, when forces were defeated by Frankish armies at the Battle of Tours. This marked the limit of rapid Muslim conquest in Europe. Muslims continued to rule much of Spain for approximately seven centuries.

Prosperity and Tolerance in al-Andalus

The Umayyad rulers in Córdoba fostered an atmosphere of relative tolerance among Muslims, Christians, and Jews. They actively promoted commerce, enabling goods from China and Southeast Asia to reach Spain and, through it, the rest of Europe. Much of this trade was carried on dhows—long, slender ships originally developed in India or China that excelled at transporting cargo.

Intellectual and Cultural Exchange

Al-Andalus became a major center of learning, with Córdoba housing what was then the world's largest library. Among its prominent scholars was Ibn Rushd (known in Europe as Averroes, 12th century), whose writings on law, philosophy, and the natural sciences proved highly influential.

Muslims, Christians, and Jews in al-Andalus—collectively regarded by Muslims as “People of the Book”—not only coexisted but also engaged in mutual intellectual exchange. Ibn Rushd's commentaries on Aristotle shaped the thinking of the Jewish philosopher Maimonides (c. 1135–c. 1204), who synthesized Aristotelian logic with biblical interpretation. Maimonides in turn influenced Christian thinkers such as St. Thomas Aquinas (1225–1274). Islamic scholarship, combined with knowledge transmitted from India and China (including papermaking technology), helped lay essential foundations for the European Renaissance and Scientific Revolution.

Vocabulary

- Mamluk Sultanate
- Seljuk Turks
- Sultan
- Mongols
- Abbasid Caliphate
- Mamluks
- Muhammad
- Crusaders
- Sufis
- House of Wisdom

- Baghdad
- Nasir al-Din al-Tusi
- 'A'ishah al-Ba'uniyyah
- Ibn Khaldun
- Ibn Rushd (Averroes)
- al-Andalus, Córdoba

1.2 MCQ

Stimulus: The House of Wisdom in Baghdad

Passage:

Excerpt from *Greek Thought, Arabic Culture: The Graeco-Arabic Translation Movement in Baghdad and Early 'Abbāsīd Society (2nd-4th/8th-10th Centuries)*. By Gutas, Dimitri 1998.

"In the city of Baghdad, under the Abbasid Caliphate, the House of Wisdom flourished as a center of learning from the 9th century to the 13th century. Scholars from diverse regions, including Muslims, Christians, and Jews, gathered to translate and study texts from Greek, Persian, and Indian traditions. Works on mathematics, astronomy, medicine, and philosophy were preserved and expanded upon. The scholar Al-Khwārizmī, for example, developed foundational concepts in algebra, while astronomers refined techniques for celestial navigation."

Questions

- Based on the passage, the House of Wisdom primarily served as a center for**
 - military training and strategic planning
 - religious instruction and theological debate
 - intellectual exchange and preservation of knowledge
 - trade negotiations and economic policy development
- The collaboration of scholars from diverse religious backgrounds in the House of Wisdom reflects which characteristic of the Abbasid Caliphate?**
 - Strict enforcement of Islamic law across all communities
 - A policy of religious and cultural tolerance
 - Isolation from non-Islamic cultures and traditions
 - A focus on converting non-Muslims to Islam
- The work of Al-Khwārizmī and other scholars in the House of Wisdom most directly contributed to which of the following?**
 - The spread of Islamic mysticism across Central Asia
 - The development of new technologies for maritime exploration
 - The advancement of mathematical and scientific knowledge in the Islamic world
 - The establishment of a centralized bureaucratic system
- Which of the following best explains how the achievements of the House of Wisdom influenced other regions during the period c. 1200–1450?**
 - They inspired the creation of similar institutions in Europe during the Renaissance
 - They led to the adoption of Islamic law in Christian Europe
 - They facilitated the spread of gunpowder technology to East Asia
 - They encouraged the decline of Greek philosophical traditions in the Mediterranean

Topic 1.2: Developments in Dar al-Islam from c. 1200 to c. 1450

Stimulus 3: Ibn Battuta's Description of Fez

Excerpt from Ibn Battuta's "Rihla" (circa 1355):

"I arrived at the city of Fez, where I found a great number of scholars and students. The sultan of Fez, Abu Inan, was a lover of learning and patronized scholars. He built a magnificent madrasa, where students from all over the Islamic world came to study. The city was prosperous, with bustling markets and beautiful architecture."

Questions:

1. Ibn Battuta's description of Fez highlights which of the following aspects of Islamic civilization during the period circa 1200–1450?
(A) The political fragmentation of the Islamic world into competing caliphates
(B) The cultural and intellectual achievements fostered by Islamic rulers
(C) The military conquests that expanded Islamic territories
(D) The economic decline resulting from the Crusades

Answer: (B) The cultural and intellectual achievements fostered by Islamic rulers

Explanation: The passage emphasizes Fez's scholars, students, and the sultan's patronage of a madrasa, highlighting cultural and intellectual achievements supported by Islamic rulers.

2. The madrasa mentioned in the passage primarily served to
(A) train soldiers for the sultan's army
(B) educate scholars in Islamic law and theology
(C) promote the study of Greek and Roman philosophy
(D) facilitate trade between different regions of the Islamic world

Answer: (B) educate scholars in Islamic law and theology

Explanation: Madrasas in the Islamic world, like the one described in Fez, were primarily centers for religious education, focusing on Islamic law (fiqh) and theology.

3. Which of the following best explains why Ibn Battuta was able to travel extensively throughout the Islamic world?
(A) The Islamic world was unified under a single caliphate, allowing for safe travel
(B) The Mongol Empire's control over trade routes made travel easier
(C) The shared language and culture across the Islamic world facilitated communication and hospitality
(D) European crusaders had established safe passages for Muslim travelers

Answer: (C) The shared language and culture across the Islamic world facilitated communication and hospitality

Explanation: Ibn Battuta's travels were enabled by the shared Arabic language, Islamic culture, and hospitality networks (e.g., mosques, madrasas) across Dar al-Islam, despite political fragmentation.

Stimulus: Al-Biruni's Observations on Astronomy and Mathematics

Excerpt from Al-Biruni's "The Chronology of Ancient Nations" (circa 1000, used in Islamic scholarship through the 13th century):

"In our study of the heavens, we have refined instruments to measure the stars' positions with precision, aiding navigation and timekeeping. The science of numbers, which we call algebra, allows us to solve complex problems of inheritance and trade. These arts, preserved and advanced in our libraries, are a gift to humanity, drawing from the wisdom of Greeks, Indians, and our own scholars."

Source: Al-Biruni, *The Chronology of Ancient Nations*, translated by C. Edward Sachau, William H. Allen & Co., 1879.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, Al-Biruni's description of astronomical and mathematical advancements primarily highlights the Islamic world's role in**
 - (A) developing new military technologies for conquest
 - (B) preserving and enhancing knowledge from diverse cultures
 - (C) promoting religious uniformity across Dar al-Islam
 - (D) restricting scientific inquiry to religious purposes

Answer: (B) preserving and enhancing knowledge from diverse cultures

Explanation: The passage emphasizes Islamic scholars refining astronomical instruments and algebra, drawing from Greek, Indian, and their own traditions, highlighting their role in preserving and advancing knowledge.

2. **The reference to refined astronomical instruments in the passage most directly contributed to which of the following in the Islamic world during the period c. 1200–1450?**
 - (A) The expansion of maritime trade and navigation across the Indian Ocean
 - (B) The standardization of military strategies for territorial expansion
 - (C) The development of agricultural techniques for desert regions
 - (D) The creation of a unified calendar for religious festivals

Answer: (A) The expansion of maritime trade and navigation across the Indian Ocean

Explanation: Refined astronomical instruments, used for measuring stars' positions, aided navigation, which directly supported maritime trade across the Indian Ocean.

3. **Al-Biruni's mention of algebra as a tool for solving problems of inheritance and trade suggests that Islamic innovations were significant because they**
- (A) supported economic and social systems through practical applications
 - (B) replaced earlier mathematical systems from Greek traditions
 - (C) focused primarily on theoretical advancements for scholars
 - (D) promoted religious conversion through scientific education

Answer: (A) supported economic and social systems through practical applications

Explanation: Algebra's use for inheritance and trade indicates its practical application in economic and social contexts, not replacing Greek systems

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of Islamic scientific and mathematical innovations, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1200–1450?**
- (A) Their transmission to Europe, influencing the Renaissance and scientific inquiry
 - (B) Their role in unifying the Islamic world under a single political authority
 - (C) Their contribution to the decline of trade networks across Eurasia
 - (D) Their use in limiting the influence of non-Islamic scholars in Dar al-Islam

Answer: (A) Their transmission to Europe, influencing the Renaissance and scientific inquiry

Explanation: Islamic advancements in astronomy and mathematics, preserved in libraries as noted, were transmitted to Europe via trade and scholarship, influencing the Renaissance.

Stimulus: Ibn Khaldun on the Mamluk Sultanate

Excerpt from Ibn Khaldun's "Muqaddimah" (circa 1377):

"The Mamluks, once slaves trained as warriors, have risen to rule Egypt and Syria with strength and justice. Their sultans, chosen from among their ranks, govern with the support of a loyal military elite. They defend the lands of Islam against invaders and maintain order through their command of the army and their patronage of scholars and mosques, ensuring the prosperity of their realm."

Source: Ibn Khaldun, *The Muqaddimah: An Introduction to History*, translated by Franz Rosenthal, Princeton University Press, 1967.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, the formation of the Mamluk Sultanate was primarily characterized by**
- (A) the establishment of a hereditary monarchy based on Islamic law
 - (B) the rise of a military elite that transitioned from servitude to governance
 - (C) the unification of all Islamic lands under a single caliphate
 - (D) the reliance on merchant wealth to fund political authority

Answer: (B) the rise of a military elite that transitioned from servitude to governance

Explanation: The passage describes the Mamluks as former slaves trained as warriors who became sultans, governing with a loyal military elite, highlighting their transition from servitude to rulership.

2. **Ibn Khaldun's mention of the Mamluks' defense against invaders suggests that the Mamluk Sultanate's political power was most directly strengthened by**
- (A) its diplomatic alliances with neighboring Christian kingdoms
 - (B) its military prowess and ability to protect Islamic territories
 - (C) its adoption of centralized bureaucratic systems from the Abbasids
 - (D) its promotion of religious diversity to maintain stability

Answer: (B) its military prowess and ability to protect Islamic territories

Explanation: The passage emphasizes the Mamluks' defense against invaders, indicating their political power stemmed from military strength.

3. **The Mamluk Sultanate's patronage of scholars and mosques, as described in the passage, reflects which broader characteristic of new Islamic political entities in the period c. 1200–1450?**
- (A) A focus on cultural and religious legitimacy to consolidate power
 - (B) A rejection of Islamic traditions in favor of secular governance
 - (C) A reliance on trade monopolies to fund religious institutions
 - (D) A policy of isolating their territories from foreign influences

Answer: (A) A focus on cultural and religious legitimacy to consolidate power

Explanation: Patronage of scholars and mosques suggests the Mamluks sought legitimacy through supporting Islamic culture and religion, a common strategy among new Islamic states.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader significance of the formation of new Islamic political entities like the Mamluk Sultanate during the period c. 1200–1450?**
- (A) They contributed to the fragmentation of the Islamic world into competing states
 - (B) They unified the Islamic world under a single political authority
 - (C) They promoted the decline of Islamic scholarship and cultural production
 - (D) They isolated the Islamic world from global trade networks

Answer: (A) They contributed to the fragmentation of the Islamic world into competing states

Explanation: The Mamluk Sultanate, as a distinct political entity, reflects the fragmentation of the Islamic world after the Abbasid Caliphate's decline, with regional powers like the Mamluks, Ottomans, and others emerging.

1.3

Topic 1.3: Developments in South and Southeast Asia

Essential Question: How did various beliefs and practices in South and Southeast Asia affect society and the development of states?

The poetry of Lal Ded (also known as Mother Lalla, 1320–1392), a Hindu from Kashmir in northern India, highlights the powerful interactions among religious traditions that shaped South and Southeast Asia. Her focus on personal spiritual experience resonated strongly with many Muslims, especially Sufis. Although relations between Hindus and Muslims sometimes turned violent, their encounters produced vibrant developments in religious thought, politics, economics, art, and architecture. Even with the growing Islamic presence, decentralized local Hindu kingdoms remained influential across India. Buddhism also maintained a significant role, particularly among the Sinhala dynasties of present-day Sri Lanka and in the major kingdoms of Southeast Asia.

Political Structures in South Asia

South Asia experienced only occasional periods of political unity throughout its history. After the collapse of the Gupta Dynasty in 550, which had marked the end of India's classical "Golden Age," the region returned to widespread disunity for roughly the next thousand years. Northern and southern India developed distinct political patterns, yet Hinduism supplied a broad cultural framework. Many communities blended local traditions with the shared scriptures and core beliefs honored across the subcontinent.

Southern India

Southern India proved more politically stable than the north. The Chola Dynasty ruled for more than four centuries (850–1267) and, during the 11th century, extended its authority to the large island of Ceylon (modern Sri Lanka).

The Vijayanagara Empire (1336–1646), whose name means "victorious city," emerged when two brothers, Harihara and Bukka, arrived from the Delhi Sultanate in north-central India. Originally Hindus, they had converted to Islam to advance within the sultanate. After returning south, they reverted to Hinduism and founded their own kingdom. The empire endured from the mid-14th century until the mid-16th century, when a coalition of Muslim kingdoms overthrew it.

Northern India

Northern India faced far greater instability. Following the Gupta collapse, numerous Rajput kingdoms arose in the north and in present-day Pakistan. These Hindu states were led by clan chiefs who frequently fought one another. The resulting lack of centralized authority left the region vulnerable to outside attack and underscored the deep regionalism of South Asian politics.

Although the Himalayas largely shielded India from invasions from the north and east, northwestern mountain passes permitted Muslim armies to enter. Each incursion disrupted a region that had been predominantly Hindu and Buddhist. Over time, Islamic influence expanded in distinct phases:

- In the 8th century, Islamic forces invaded the area of modern Pakistan but effected little everyday change. Located on the eastern edge of the Islamic world, the region remained culturally distant from the center of Islamic civilization, and local Rajput rulers successfully limited the newcomers' impact.
- In the 11th century, Islamic armies raided northern India's wealthy Hindu temples and Buddhist shrines and constructed mosques on former sacred sites, provoking strong resentment.

- In the early 13th century, Islamic forces conquered Delhi and much of northern South Asia, establishing the Delhi Sultanate. This state lasted roughly three centuries (13th–16th centuries). While some Hindus converted to Islam, others viewed Muslims as outsiders. The sultanate imposed the *jizya* tax on non-Muslims, fueling further resentment. Unlike the highly organized Chinese bureaucracy, the Delhi Sultanate never developed an efficient administrative system capable of governing such a vast and diverse territory effectively.

The sultans sought to expand southward but became preoccupied with defending against Mongol invasions from the northwest. Although the Delhi Sultanate successfully prevented the Mongols from conquering South Asia, it ultimately fell in 1526 to a new power—the Mughals—whose rulers claimed Mongol ancestry.

Religion in South Asia

Religion occupied a central place in South Asian life. Before Islam's arrival, most people practiced Hinduism, with a smaller Buddhist presence. Islam presented a sharply contrasting faith:

- Hinduism is polytheistic; Islam is strictly monotheistic.
- Hindu temples and art feature abundant images of deities; Islamic tradition discourages visual representations of the divine.
- Hinduism was linked to a hierarchical caste system; Islam emphasized the equality of all believers.
- Hindus venerated multiple sacred texts; Muslims looked primarily to the Quran.

The Arrival and Spread of Islam

Islamic influence in South Asia began in the 7th century and continues to shape the region today. Initial entry was often forceful, but over time it shifted toward more peaceful means. Muslim rulers quickly discovered that compelling Hindu and Buddhist subjects to convert was largely ineffective. Most conversions occurred voluntarily. Muslim merchants engaged in Indian Ocean trade frequently settled in port cities, married local women, and saw their wives convert. Islam's stress on the equality of believers also appealed strongly to low-caste Hindus seeking improved social standing—much as early Christianity attracted marginalized groups in the Roman Empire.

The largest wave of converts, however, came from Buddhists. Corruption within the monastic community and raids on Buddhist monasteries by early Muslim conquerors left Buddhism disorganized in its homeland, allowing Islam to reduce it to a minority faith in India.

Social Structures in South Asia

The arrival of Islam did not fundamentally transform South Asian social organization. India's caste system remained the strongest element of historical continuity. Although deeply unequal, it provided stability in a politically fragmented land and proved flexible enough to incorporate newcomers. Muslim merchants and migrants, despite not being Hindu, were integrated into the caste hierarchy according to their occupations. These occupation-based subcastes functioned similarly to guilds and were gradually absorbed into Indian society.

Most attempts to escape the caste system failed. Low-caste Hindus who converted to Islam in hopes of gaining higher status rarely succeeded; genuine improvement required education and better employment opportunities, not merely a change of faith.

As Islam spread, converts adapted its teachings to their existing cultures. In South Asia, gender relations changed little—women in both Hindu and Islamic traditions occupied a separate social sphere. In Southeast Asia, women had traditionally enjoyed greater independence, and this pattern largely continued after conversion to Islam. Communities thus accommodated the new faith without abandoning longstanding customs.

Cultural Interactions in South Asia

Intellectual and artistic exchange flowed in both directions between South Asia and the Islamic world. Arab astronomers and mathematicians built upon Indian achievements in algebra and geometry; these ideas were translated into Arabic and circulated throughout Dar al-Islam. One lasting result was that the numeral system later called “Arabic numerals” in the West actually originated in India.

In India itself, Delhi Sultanate rulers constructed buildings that blended the intricate decorative styles of Hindu art with the geometric patterns favored in Islamic architecture. A striking example is the Qutub Minar in southern Delhi—the tallest structure in India today. Rulers erected an elaborate mosque atop a former Hindu temple, reusing materials from nearby religious shrines. Historians continue to debate its precise purpose, but it clearly symbolized Islamic presence and, for a time, dominance in northern India.

A new language, **Urdu**, emerged among South Asian Muslims. It combined the grammatical structure of Hindi (the language of northern India) with vocabulary drawn from Arabic and elements of Farsi (Persian). Urdu remains the official language of Pakistan today.

The Bhakti Movement

Beginning in the 12th century in southern India, some Hindus emphasized emotional devotion to a particular deity over textual study or elaborate rituals. This **Bhakti Movement** appealed especially to women and people of low social status because it did not discriminate on those grounds. One of its most famous figures was the 16th-century female poet Mira Bai.

Although the bhaktis remained Hindu, their mystical focus on direct personal experience closely resembled Sufi Islam. Both movements prioritized inner reflection and a personal relationship with the divine over strict ritual observance, allowing each to attract followers beyond their original traditions. Just as Sufis helped spread Islam, bhaktis helped extend Hinduism.

Southeast Asia

South Asia exerted strong influence on its southeastern neighbors—present-day Indonesia, Malaysia, Cambodia, Thailand, Laos, and Vietnam—much as China did. Indian merchants had traded in the region since at least 500 B.C.E., exchanging gold, silver, metal goods, and textiles for fine spices. These voyages introduced Hinduism and Buddhism to Southeast Asia. Much of the region remains predominantly Buddhist today. Strategically located, Southeast Asia controlled vital maritime routes between South and East Asia.

Sea-Based Kingdoms

Two long-lasting maritime powers emerged:

- The Srivijaya Empire (670–1025), a Hindu state based on Sumatra, built a powerful navy and prospered by levying fees on ships traveling between India and China.
- The Majapahit Kingdom (1293–1520), based on Java, was Buddhist and at its height claimed 98 tributary states. Like Srivijaya, it derived power from control of sea lanes.

Land-Based Kingdoms

Other states drew strength from control of land and agriculture. The Sinhala dynasties of Sri Lanka traced their origins to early immigrants (likely merchants) from northern India. Buddhism arrived in the 3rd century B.C.E., and the island became a major center of Buddhist learning. Monasteries and nunneries flourished, and both men and women found lives of contemplation attractive. Buddhist priests often served as royal advisors. One kingdom constructed an extensive network of reservoirs and canals that supported irrigation and economic growth, though invasions from India and tensions between the monarchy and the priesthood eventually weakened these states.

The Khmer Empire (also called the Angkor Kingdom, 802–1431), located near the Mekong River in present-day Cambodia, relied on sophisticated irrigation and drainage systems rather than naval power. These systems enabled multiple rice harvests per year and mitigated monsoon flooding, generating great prosperity. The capital at Angkor Thom featured temples displaying strong Indian cultural influence, initially dominated by Hindu artwork and sculptures. Later Khmer rulers adopted Buddhism and added Buddhist sculptures and art without destroying existing Hindu elements. Nearby, they built the magnificent Buddhist temple complex of Angkor Wat. In 1431, invaders from the Thai Sukhothai Kingdom overthrew the Khmers. The impressive ruins of Angkor Thom and Angkor Wat still stand as testimony to the sophistication of Southeast Asian civilization and the depth of Indian cultural influence.

The Arrival of Islam

Islam entered Southeast Asia through local merchants who converted in the 700s to improve trading relations with arriving Islamic merchants. It gained particular strength in urban centers and spread across Sumatra, Java, and the Malay Peninsula. Today, Indonesia has the world's largest Muslim population.

Sufi missionaries played an important role in the region's Islamization. Their willingness to accommodate local spiritual traditions made conversion more appealing; people could become Muslim while continuing to honor indigenous deities.

Vocabulary

- Vijayanagara Empire (Southern India)
- Rajput kingdoms (North India)
- Delhi Sultanate
- Srivijaya Empire (Sumatra)
- Majapahit Kingdom (Java)
- Sinhala dynasties (Sri Lanka)
- Khmer Empire (Cambodia)
- Sukhothai Kingdom (Thailand)
- Proselytize
- Bhakti Movement
- Qutub Minar
- Urdu

1.3 MCQ

Stimulus: Ibn Battuta's Description of the Delhi Sultanate

Excerpt from Ibn Battuta's "Rihla" (circa 1355):

"I arrived at Delhi, the capital of the Sultanate, a vast and magnificent city, with walls and gates adorned with splendor. The sultan, Muhammad bin Tughluq, is a powerful ruler who commands great wealth and a large army. He is generous to scholars and poets, but his justice is severe, and he punishes harshly those who disobey his laws. The markets are filled with goods from across the world, and the mosques are crowded with worshippers."

Source: Ibn Battuta, *The Travels of Ibn Battuta*, translated by H.A.R. Gibb, Cambridge University Press, 1958.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, which of the following best characterizes the Delhi Sultanate under Muhammad bin Tughluq?**
 - (A) A decentralized state reliant on local chieftains
 - (B) A prosperous and culturally vibrant Islamic state
 - (C) A militarily weak state vulnerable to invasions
 - (D) A religiously diverse but politically unstable empire

Answer: (B) personal devotion and emotional connection to the divine

Explanation: The passage highlights devotees offering prayers with "pure hearts" and chanting to seek liberation through bhakti, emphasizing personal devotion and emotional connection to Lord Vishnu. Bhakti, during this period, focused on individual and communal devotion rather than caste rules

2. **Ibn Battuta's description of the sultan's generosity to scholars and poets suggests that the Delhi Sultanate prioritized**
 - (A) military conquest over cultural development
 - (B) patronage of intellectual and artistic activities
 - (C) isolation from foreign influences
 - (D) enforcement of strict religious orthodoxy

Answer: (A) fostering communal unity and cultural expression

Explanation: The passage describes temples adorned with divine images and festivals uniting people in song and worship, indicating that these practices brought communities together and reinforced cultural identity.

3. **The presence of goods from across the world in Delhi's markets most directly reflects the Delhi Sultanate's role in**

- (A) promoting maritime exploration in the Indian Ocean
- (B) facilitating trade along the Silk Road and Indian Ocean networks
- (C) restricting trade to protect local artisans
- (D) monopolizing the spice trade with Southeast Asia

Answer: (B) the reinforcement of spiritual and ethical values in everyday life

Explanation: Chanting and “living righteously” to fulfill dharma, as mentioned, point to the integration of spiritual practices and ethical conduct in daily life, a key feature of bhakti.

4. **Which of the following best explains how the Delhi Sultanate’s political structure, as described in the passage, was similar to other Islamic states in the period c. 1200–1450?**
- (A) It relied on a centralized bureaucracy staffed by religious scholars
 - (B) It maintained power through a combination of military strength and cultural patronage
 - (C) It adopted a policy of religious tolerance to integrate diverse populations
 - (D) It resisted foreign influences to preserve traditional Islamic governance

Answer: (A) the spread of bhakti traditions, influencing regional literature and devotional movements

Explanation: The *Bhagavata Purana* and bhakti practices significantly influenced regional literature (e.g., devotional poetry by figures like Surdas or Tulsidas) and devotional movements across South Asia during this period, aligning with the passage’s focus on devotion and community worship.

Stimulus: The Bhagavata Purana on Hindu Devotion

Excerpt from the Bhagavata Purana (circa 9th–10th century, widely circulated in South Asia through the 13th century):

"Devotees of Lord Vishnu offer their prayers and perform rituals with pure hearts, seeking liberation through bhakti. Temples are adorned with images of the divine, and festivals unite the people in song and worship. By chanting His names and living righteously, the faithful find peace and fulfill their dharma, binding the community in devotion."

Source: *Bhagavata Purana*, translated by Edwin F. Bryant, *The Bhagavata Purana: Selected Readings*, Columbia University Press, 2017.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, the practice of bhakti in Hinduism during the period c. 1200–1450 primarily emphasized**
- (A) strict adherence to caste rules to maintain social order

- (B) personal devotion and emotional connection to the divine
 - (C) military service as a form of religious duty
 - (D) rejection of temple worship in favor of asceticism
2. **The reference to temples and festivals in the passage suggests that Hindu beliefs and practices in South Asia were significant for**
- (A) fostering communal unity and cultural expression
 - (B) promoting isolation from other religious communities
 - (C) standardizing economic practices across the region
 - (D) encouraging political decentralization
3. **The emphasis on chanting and righteous living in the passage reflects which broader aspect of Hindu practices during the period c. 1200–1450?**
- (A) The integration of Hindu beliefs with Islamic governance
 - (B) The reinforcement of spiritual and ethical values in everyday life
 - (C) The decline of temple-based worship in favor of philosophical inquiry
 - (D) The promotion of trade networks through religious pilgrimages
4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of Hindu beliefs and practices, as described in the passage, in South Asia during the period c. 1200–1450?**
- (A) The spread of bhakti traditions, influencing regional literature and devotional movements
 - (B) The establishment of a unified Hindu empire across the Indian subcontinent
 - (C) The decline of Buddhism due to competition with Hindu practices
 - (D) The restriction of Hindu worship to elite social classes

Stimulus: Inscription from the Vijayanagara Empire

Excerpt from an inscription at the Virupaksha Temple, Vijayanagara (circa 1370):

"King Harihara, devoted to Lord Virupaksha, has fortified this city with mighty walls and temples, uniting the people under dharma. His rule extends across the southern lands, fostering trade and protecting pilgrims. Like the distant kings of Java, who honor the Buddha, our king supports scholars and priests, ensuring prosperity and divine favor for the realm."

Source: Inscription from the Virupaksha Temple, translated by A.L. Basham, *The Vijayanagara Empire: A Study in South Indian History*, Oxford University Press, 1970.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, the Vijayanagara Empire's political structure was primarily characterized by**

- (A) a decentralized system reliant on local chieftains
- (B) a Hindu monarchy that emphasized religious legitimacy and centralized authority
- (C) a military alliance with Buddhist kingdoms in Southeast Asia
- (D) a secular government that rejected religious influence

Answer: (B) personal devotion and emotional connection to the divine

Explanation: The passage emphasizes prayers with “pure hearts” and seeking liberation through bhakti, highlighting personal devotion to Lord Vishnu

2. The reference to fostering trade and protecting pilgrims in the passage suggests that the Vijayanagara Empire was significant for

- (A) isolating South India from external cultural influences
- (B) promoting economic prosperity and religious devotion within its territories
- (C) enforcing strict caste hierarchies to maintain social order
- (D) focusing solely on military conquest over cultural development

Answer: (A) fostering communal unity and cultural expression

Explanation: Temples and festivals uniting people in song and worship indicate communal bonding and cultural practices

3. The comparison to the “kings of Java” (Majapahit Kingdom) in the passage highlights which shared characteristic of Hindu and Buddhist states in the period c. 1200–1450?

- (A) Their reliance on maritime trade and patronage of religious institutions
- (B) Their adoption of identical political systems based on divine kingship
- (C) Their resistance to foreign trade and cultural exchange
- (D) Their unification under a single regional empire

Answer: (B) the reinforcement of spiritual and ethical values in everyday life

Explanation: Chanting and righteous living to fulfill dharma reflect spiritual and ethical integration in daily life

4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader significance of Hindu and Buddhist states like Vijayanagara and Majapahit during the period c. 1200–1450?

- (A) They facilitated cultural and economic exchange through Indian Ocean trade networks
- (B) They unified South and Southeast Asia under a single religious and political authority
- (C) They restricted the spread of Islam in the region through military campaigns
- (D) They promoted the decline of Hindu and Buddhist traditions in favor of secular governance

Answer: (A) the spread of bhakti traditions, influencing regional literature and devotional movements

Explanation: Bhakti, as described, fueled devotional movements and regional literature (e.g., poetry by bhakti saints)

1.4

Topic 1.4: Developments in the Americas

Essential Question: What states developed in the Americas, and how did they change over time?

Following the decline of the Olmec civilization in Mesoamerica and the Chavín culture in the Andes, new complex societies emerged in the same regions. These included the Maya, the Aztecs, and the Inca. In addition, the first large-scale civilization arose in North America. Like their counterparts in Afro-Eurasia, several of these American societies built powerful states, substantial urban centers, and sophisticated belief systems. Our understanding of them draws from archaeological findings, oral traditions passed down through generations, and accounts written by Europeans who arrived after 1492. One such record is a poem by the Aztec writer Nezahualcoyotl that expresses deep appreciation for nature and humanity.

The Mississippian Culture

The earliest large-scale civilization in North America developed between the 700s and 800s in the eastern United States, centered in the Mississippi River Valley. Known as the **Mississippian** culture, it distinguished itself through massive earthen mounds rather than stone monuments. Some mounds reached heights of 100 feet and covered areas equivalent to about 12 football fields. The largest and most famous was **Cahokia** in southern Illinois.

Government and Society

Mississippian society featured a strict class hierarchy. Each major town was ruled by a chief known as the Great Sun. Below this ruler stood an upper class of priests and nobles, followed by farmers, hunters, merchants, and artisans. At the lowest level were enslaved people, typically war captives. In general, women handled farming while men hunted. The society was **matrilineal**, meaning social status and inheritance passed through the mother's line. For example, when the Great Sun died, leadership passed not to his own son but to a son of his sister.

Decline

People abandoned Cahokia around 1450 and other major Mississippian centers by about 1600. Historians debate the causes. One explanation points to environmental pressures such as flooding or extreme weather that triggered crop failures and undermined the agricultural base needed to support large populations. Another theory highlights the devastating impact of diseases introduced by Europeans after 1492.

Chaco and Mesa Verde

Around the same time as the rise of Mississippian culture, distinct societies developed in the arid southwestern United States. The dry climate required innovative methods for collecting, moving, and storing water. Limited wood supplies also shaped building techniques. Two groups became especially noted for their architectural achievements:

- The Chaco people constructed large multi-room housing complexes using stone and clay; some structures contained hundreds of rooms.
- The residents of Mesa Verde built multi-story cliff dwellings using sandstone bricks.

Both cultures declined in the late 13th century as the regional climate grew significantly drier.

The Maya City-States

Mayan civilization reached its peak between 250 and 900 C.E. It extended across southern Mexico and much of present-day Belize, Honduras, and Guatemala. Most Maya lived in or near one of roughly 40 city-states whose populations ranged from 5,000 to 50,000 people. At its height, the total Mayan population may have reached two million.

Mayan Government

The basic political unit was the independent city-state, each governed by a king and encompassing the city plus its surrounding territory. Most rulers were men, although women occasionally ruled when no suitable male heir was available or old enough. Warfare between city-states was frequent. Victors typically sought tribute payments and captives for religious sacrifice rather than permanent territorial control.

Each king claimed divine descent from a god. Upon death, the ruler was believed to unite with this ancestor-god. Kings oversaw elite scribes and priests who managed state affairs. Royal succession usually passed from father to son, though unpopular kings could be overthrown. Commoners paid taxes, primarily in agricultural goods, and supplied labor for public projects. City-states maintained no standing armies; citizens were called upon for military service during conflicts. While no single central government ruled all Mayan lands, one powerful city-state often dominated its neighbors in a given region.

Mayan Religion, Science, and Technology

The Maya were highly inventive. They incorporated the concept of zero into their mathematics, created a sophisticated writing system, and learned to produce rubber from the sap of rubber trees.

Astronomy was closely tied to both religion and practical governance. Priests used astronomical observations to determine the timing of religious ceremonies and military campaigns, making an accurate calendar essential. Although they lacked telescopes, the Maya built precise observatories atop pyramids, such as the one at Chichén Itzá. Their calendar was more accurate than any used in Europe during the same era.

Priests, who could be male or female, conducted rituals honoring a pantheon of deities, especially those associated with the sun, rain, and maize. Offerings to the gods ranged from goods to human sacrifices, often of war captives.

The Aztecs

The Aztecs, also called the **Mexicas**, were originally hunter-gatherers who migrated into central Mexico from the north during the 1200s. In 1325 they founded their capital, Tenochtitlán, on an island in Lake Texcoco (the site of modern Mexico City). Over the following century they conquered neighboring peoples and built an empire stretching from the Gulf of Mexico to the Pacific Ocean.

Capital City

Tenochtitlán's island location provided natural defense. The city grew to nearly 200,000 inhabitants, ranking among the largest urban centers in the world at the time. A system of aqueducts supplied fresh water. At its center stood the Great Pyramid, rising 150 feet, along with other temples and palaces constructed of stone. On the surrounding Lake Texcoco, the Aztecs created floating gardens called *chinampas* to expand arable land. They also dug canals for irrigation and drainage.

Government, Economy, and Society

As the Aztecs expanded, they imposed a tribute system on conquered peoples. Subject communities delivered goods (including food, cloth, firewood, feathers, beads, and jewelry), surrendered land, and provided military service. Local rulers were often allowed to remain in place as tribute collectors, enabling Aztec dominance without direct day-to-day administration. In return, conquered groups received Aztec military protection.

To govern the empire, the Aztecs organized city-states into provinces and stationed Aztec warriors and officials in provincial capitals to maintain control and collect tribute.

Aztec government was a **theocracy**—rule by religious authorities. At the apex stood the emperor, known as the Great Speaker, who served as both political leader and divine representative of the gods. Below him were landowning nobles, who also dominated military leadership. Next came scribes and healers, followed by craftspeople and traders. A specialized merchant class called *pochteca* dealt in luxury goods. Peasants and soldiers ranked lower, and people could be enslaved for unpaid debts or crimes. Enslaved individuals performed labor and were sometimes offered as religious sacrifices.

Religion

Aztec religion was elaborate and central to daily life. The Aztecs worshipped a large and evolving pantheon of hundreds of deities, many possessing both male and female aspects. Worship involved numerous rituals, feast days, and human sacrifices. The Aztecs believed the gods had sacrificed themselves to create the world; human sacrifice and bloodletting served as repayment and atonement. Sacrifices also carried a political dimension, publicly demonstrating the empire's power. Spanish accounts from the conquest era may have exaggerated the scale of these practices.

Role of Women

Women contributed significantly to the tribute economy by weaving valuable cloth demanded by local rulers. Rising tribute demands sometimes led Aztec men to take additional wives to increase cloth production. While most women worked within the household, some served as priestesses, midwives, healers, or merchants. A few noblewomen acted as scribes for royal women and therefore possessed literacy.

Decline

By the late 15th century the Aztec Empire showed signs of strain. Limited technology—no wheeled vehicles or pack animals—made agriculture labor-intensive and inefficient. Constant military expansion to obtain captives for sacrifice stretched resources and governance capacity. Heavy tribute demands and the need for sacrifice victims bred deep resentment among subject peoples, many of whom were poised to rebel when the opportunity arose with the arrival of Spanish forces in 1519.

The Inca

In 1438 a leader named Pachacuti (“transformer” or “shaker of the earth”) began conquering neighboring tribes near present-day Cuzco, Peru. His successes, continued by his son and later his grandson Huayna Capac, transformed scattered groups into the Inca Empire, which by 1493 stretched from Ecuador in the north to Chile in the south.

Government, Economy, and Society

To administer its vast territory, the empire was divided into four provinces, each with its own governor and bureaucracy. Conquered leaders who proved loyal received rewards. Unlike subjects of the Aztecs, conquered

Inca peoples did not pay tribute in goods. Instead they participated in the **mit'a** system of mandatory public labor. Men aged 15 to 50 performed agricultural work, road construction, and other state projects.

Religion

The name “Inca” means “people of the sun.” The sun god Inti was the most important deity, and Inca rulers were regarded as Inti’s earthly representatives. The Temple of the Sun in Cuzco stood at the heart of religious life, serving both sun worship and the veneration of royal ancestors.

Dead rulers were mummified and continued to “rule” symbolically; they were believed to retain ownership of their property and servants. This practice meant new rulers could not inherit land or wealth, providing a strong incentive for ongoing imperial expansion.

Priests advised on major decisions. They interpreted the gods’ will through methods such as arranging coca leaves or observing spider movements. Priests also diagnosed illness, predicted battle outcomes, solved crimes, and determined appropriate sacrifices. Serious crises such as famine, plague, or military defeat could prompt human sacrifice, though scholars believe this occurred less frequently than among the Aztecs.

Inca religion incorporated elements of **animism**—the belief that natural features and objects possessed supernatural power. These *huaca* could be large landscape elements such as mountains or rivers, or small items such as stones or plants.

Achievements

In mathematics and record-keeping, the Inca developed the *quipu*—a system of knotted strings used to track numerical data for trade, engineering, and administrative messages across the empire. In agriculture they constructed sophisticated terraced fields and employed the *waru waru* technique of raised beds with channels that captured rainwater, prevented erosion during floods, and stored water for dry periods. These methods supported crops such as potatoes and maize.

The Inca were master builders of roads and bridges. Using conscripted labor, they constructed the **Carpa Nan**, a vast road network of roughly 25,000 miles used primarily by the government and military. In the rugged Andes, bridges were especially critical.

Decline

When Spanish conquistador Francisco Pizarro arrived in 1532, the empire was already weakened by a civil war of succession following the death of Huayna Capac. Some scholars argue this conflict undermined Inca military strength; others emphasize the role of European diseases. Pizarro’s forces conquered the imperial core in 1533, though remote outposts resisted until 1572. The spectacular ruins at Machu Picchu remain one of the world’s most visited archaeological sites today.

Continuities and Diversity

Scholars debate the degree of connection among Mesoamerican cultures. Many argue that later societies built upon Olmec foundations, adopting features such as the feathered serpent deity, pottery motifs, ritual human sacrifice, pyramids, and ball courts. Others contend that various cultures developed complex civilizations with considerable independence.

A comparison of three major American civilizations illustrates both shared patterns and regional differences:

Maya

- Region: Mexico/Central America
- Period: 400–1517
- Major crops: Corn, beans, squash
- Trade: Moderate
- Religion: Polytheistic with some human sacrifice
- Government: City-states each ruled by a king; wars primarily for tribute
- Technology and thought: Writing system, step pyramids, highly accurate calendar
- Reasons for decline: Drought, deforestation

Aztec

- Region: Central Mexico
- Period: 1200–1521
- Major crops: Corn, beans, squash, tomatoes
- Trade: Extensive
- Religion: Polytheistic with human sacrifice
- Government: Powerful emperor; wars for captives; tribute system
- Technology and thought: Step pyramids, *chinampas*, accurate calendar
- Reasons for decline: European diseases, subject rebellions, Spanish conquest

Inca

- Region: Andes (South America)
- Period: 1200–1533
- Major crops: Corn, cotton, potatoes
- Trade: Limited
- Religion: Polytheistic with some human sacrifice
- Government: Powerful king; wars for conquest; *mit'a* labor system
- Technology and thought: *Waru waru* terraces, extensive roads, advanced masonry
- Reasons for decline: European diseases, civil war, Spanish conquest

Vocabulary

- Mississippian
- Matrilineal society
- Mound-building
- Cahokia
- Mayan City-states
- Aztec/Mexica
- Theocracy
- Human sacrifice
- Incan Empire
- Pachacuti Empire
- Mit'a system
- Carpa Nan
- Temple of the Sun
- Animism
- *Huaca*

1.4 MCQ

Stimulus: Bernardino de Sahagún's Description of Tenochtitlán

Excerpt from Bernardino de Sahagún's "General History of the Things of New Spain" (circa 1550):

"The city of Tenochtitlán is situated in a great lake, connected to the mainland by causeways. It is a marvel of order and grandeur, with its great temple at the center dedicated to the god Huitzilopochtli. The markets are filled with goods, from feathers and precious stones to maize and cacao. The ruler, surrounded by nobles, governs with authority, and the people pay tribute in goods and labor to sustain the city's splendor."

Source: Bernardino de Sahagún, *General History of the Things of New Spain (Florentine Codex)*, translated by Arthur J.O. Anderson and Charles E. Dibble, School of American Research, 1950–1982.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, which of the following best describes the political structure of the Aztec Empire as depicted in Tenochtitlán?**
 - (A) A decentralized federation of independent city-states
 - (B) A theocratic monarchy supported by a tribute system
 - (C) A democratic system with elected officials
 - (D) A mercantile state focused on maritime trade

Answer: (B) A theocratic monarchy supported by a tribute system

Explanation: The passage describes a ruler governing with authority, supported by nobles, and a tribute system where people provide goods and labor, indicating a centralized, theocratic monarchy tied to religious and political power.

2. **The mention of the great temple dedicated to Huitzilopochtli in the passage highlights the importance of which aspect of Aztec society?**
 - (A) The emphasis on religious rituals and human sacrifice
 - (B) The development of advanced agricultural techniques
 - (C) The promotion of secular governance over religious authority
 - (D) The integration of foreign cultural practices

Answer: (A) The emphasis on religious rituals and human sacrifice

Explanation: The great temple dedicated to Huitzilopochtli, the Aztec god of war and sun, underscores the centrality of religion, including rituals and human sacrifice, in Aztec society.

3. **The causeways and markets described in the passage suggest that Tenochtitlán was a center of**
- (A) military fortifications designed to repel invaders
 - (B) economic and cultural exchange within the Aztec Empire
 - (C) religious pilgrimage for Mesoamerican peoples
 - (D) diplomatic negotiations with neighboring empires

Answer: (B) economic and cultural exchange within the Aztec Empire

Explanation: The causeways connected Tenochtitlán to the mainland, facilitating trade, and the markets filled with diverse goods (feathers, maize, cacao) indicate a hub for economic and cultural exchange.

4. **Which of the following best explains how the tribute system described in the passage contributed to the Aztec Empire's power in the period c. 1200–1450?**
- (A) It fostered alliances with neighboring states through shared wealth
 - (B) It provided resources to support a large military and urban population
 - (C) It encouraged the spread of Aztec religious practices to distant regions
 - (D) It reduced the need for centralized governance in the empire

Answer: (B) It provided resources to support a large military and urban population

Explanation: The tribute system, with goods and labor sustaining Tenochtitlán's splendor, provided resources to maintain the Aztec Empire's military and urban centers like Tenochtitlán.

Stimulus: Garcilaso de la Vega on the Inca Empire

Excerpt from Garcilaso de la Vega's "Royal Commentaries of the Incas" (circa 1609, describing Inca governance):

"The Inca, revered as the son of the Sun, ruled with divine authority over a vast empire. His governors oversaw provinces, collecting tribute in goods and labor from the people. Roads and storehouses connected the realm, ensuring the flow of resources to the capital, Cuzco. Like the great lords of Mexico, the Inca maintained order through a system of laws and loyalty to the state."

Source: Garcilaso de la Vega, *Royal Commentaries of the Incas and General History of Peru*, translated by Harold V. Livermore, University of Texas Press, 1966.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, the state system of the Inca Empire was primarily characterized by**
- (A) a decentralized federation of independent city-states
 - (B) a centralized monarchy supported by a tribute system and infrastructure
 - (C) a democratic system with elected provincial leaders
 - (D) a mercantile state focused on maritime trade networks

Answer: (B) a centralized monarchy supported by a tribute system and infrastructure

Explanation: The passage describes the Inca, revered as divine, ruling with governors overseeing provinces and collecting tribute, supported by roads and storehouses. This indicates a centralized monarchy with a tribute system and infrastructure, not a decentralized federation

2. **The reference to roads and storehouses in the passage highlights which aspect of the Inca Empire's state system?**
- (A) Its reliance on military conquest to expand territory
 - (B) Its ability to efficiently manage resources and communication across a vast empire
 - (C) Its focus on religious rituals to unify diverse populations
 - (D) Its promotion of trade with neighboring Mesoamerican states

Answer: (B) Its ability to efficiently manage resources and communication across a vast empire

Explanation: Roads and storehouses facilitated the flow of resources to Cuzco, emphasizing efficient resource management and communication across the empire's mountainous terrain.

3. **The comparison to the "great lords of Mexico" (Aztec Empire) in the passage suggests that both the Inca and Aztec state systems shared which characteristic?**
- (A) A reliance on divine kingship and tribute to maintain political authority
 - (B) A focus on maritime exploration to expand their influence
 - (C) A rejection of religious institutions in favor of secular governance
 - (D) A decentralized structure with autonomous local rulers

Answer: (A) A reliance on divine kingship and tribute to maintain political authority

Explanation: The passage compares the Inca's divine authority and tribute system to the Aztec system, suggesting both empires relied on divine kingship and tribute for political control.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader significance of state systems like those of the Inca and Aztec Empires in the Americas during the period c. 1200–1450?**
- (A) They facilitated the integration of diverse regions through centralized governance and infrastructure
 - (B) They established direct trade connections with Eurasian empires
 - (C) They promoted the decline of urban centers in favor of rural communities
 - (D) They unified the Americas under a single political authority

Answer: (A) They facilitated the integration of diverse regions through centralized governance and infrastructure

Explanation: Both the Inca (with roads and storehouses) and Aztec (with causeways and markets) used centralized governance and infrastructure to integrate diverse regions, as implied by the passage.

Schattle Added Chat Questions- edited de la Vega questions above

✓ Final Rigorous Question Set for Topic 1.4 (Americas)

Stimulus 1: Excerpt from Garcilaso de la Vega's *Royal Commentaries of the Incas* (same as your original).

Stimulus 2: *Map of the Inca Road System showing major roads connecting Cuzco to provincial centers.*

Question 1 (Causation & Governance)

Which of the following best explains how the administrative practices described in Garcilaso's account contributed to the Inca Empire's political stability?

- (A) They relied on decentralized governance to empower local rulers.
- (B) They integrated conquered peoples through a system of labor obligations and resource redistribution.
- (C) They allowed merchants to dominate political decision-making through tribute markets.
- (D) They replaced religious authority with secular law codes to reduce conflict.

✓ Answer: (B)

Explanation: The passage mentions tribute and infrastructure like roads and storehouses, which were part of the mit'a labor system and redistribution networks.

Question 2 (Contextualization & Belief Systems)

Garcilaso's reference to the Inca as "the son of the Sun" illustrates which broader theme in the period c. 1200–1450?

- (A) The role of divine kingship in legitimizing centralized political authority
- (B) The growing separation of religion and politics in Andean governance
- (C) The influence of Eurasian monarchies on American state systems
- (D) The emergence of democratic principles across American empires

✓ Answer: (A)

Explanation: Divine kingship legitimized the Inca ruler's authority, similar to practices in other regions like Africa and Asia during the same period.

Question 3 (Comparison Across Regions)

The comparison to the “great lords of Mexico” most directly reflects which similarity between the Inca and Aztec empires?

- (A) Both relied on tribute systems reinforced by religious ideology
- (B) Both developed maritime trade networks to integrate distant territories
- (C) Both eliminated social hierarchies in favor of communal governance
- (D) Both rejected monumental architecture as a symbol of centralized rule

✓ **Answer:** (A)

Explanation: Both empires combined tribute systems with religious legitimization of rulers.

Question 4 (Significance & Continuity)

Which of the following best explains the broader historical significance of the Inca systems of governance described by Garcilaso?

- (A) They influenced Spanish colonial labor systems, such as the adaptation of the mit'a
- (B) They directly contributed to trans-Atlantic trade networks before European arrival
- (C) They facilitated the rise of maritime empires in the Pacific Ocean
- (D) They caused the complete rejection of hierarchical systems after Spanish conquest

✓ **Answer:** (A)

Explanation: The Spanish adapted the mit'a for silver mining in the colonial period, showing continuity from Inca systems.

Question 5 (Stimulus Integration – Map Analysis)

The Incan road system best supports which conclusion about the Inca state?

- (A) It prioritized maritime commerce as its primary means of exchange
- (B) It used infrastructure to overcome geographic barriers and maintain imperial control
- (C) It relied exclusively on independent regional economies for survival
- (D) It discouraged the movement of goods to central administrative locations

✓ **Answer:** (B)

Explanation: The extensive road network shows deliberate infrastructure to connect diverse regions in mountainous terrain.

Question 6 (Economic Organization)

Which economic practice is most directly implied by Garcilaso’s reference to tribute in goods and labor?

- (A) A reliance on mercenary armies to defend imperial frontiers
- (B) A system of coerced labor that supported state projects and redistribution

- (C) The emergence of private property rights and wage labor
- (D) A market-based economy driven by merchant guilds and currency exchanges

✓ **Answer:** (B)

Explanation: Tribute in labor refers to the mit'a system, which was a state-controlled form of coerced labor.

Question 7 (Comparison with Afro-Eurasia)

The strategies of resource management described in the passage are most similar to which practice in Afro-Eurasia during the same period?

- (A) The use of the corvée labor system under the Mongols and in other Asian states
- (B) The reliance on serfdom in decentralized European feudal economies
- (C) The establishment of plantation slavery in the Mediterranean islands
- (D) The implementation of tax farming in the Ottoman Empire after 1500

✓ **Answer:** (A)

Explanation: Both the Inca mit'a and the Mongol corvée labor systems used state-mandated labor to build infrastructure.

Question 8 (Interpretation of Source Bias)

Which of the following is an important consideration when using Garcilaso de la Vega's account as a historical source?

- (A) He wrote as a Spanish conquistador seeking to justify colonization
- (B) He was a mestizo chronicler who idealized Inca society in response to Spanish rule
- (C) He rejected any influence of religion on Inca governance
- (D) He wrote during the Inca period, providing a fully objective perspective

✓ **Answer:** (B)

Explanation: Garcilaso was of mixed Spanish and Inca heritage and often romanticized the Inca past to critique Spanish colonial practices.

1.5

Topic 1.5: Developments in Africa

Essential Question: How and why did states develop in Africa and change over time?

The 14th-century observations of the Moroccan scholar Ibn Battuta, who traveled widely across the Islamic world, offer a vivid glimpse into the cultural dynamics of Sub-Saharan Africa. Well-versed in Islamic law (*shariah*), Ibn Battuta advised rulers in places such as Mogadishu in East Africa and Delhi in India. His accounts illustrate how the rapid expansion of Islam forged new connections among the societies of Asia, Africa, and southern Europe. At the same time, many African communities that embraced Islam retained longstanding local traditions and customs.

Not every region welcomed Islamic influence. Some societies resisted it, constructing defensive churches with labyrinths, reservoirs, and tunnels to protect against attacks. Other areas, particularly in southern Africa, had minimal contact with Islam until much later.

Political Structures in Inland Africa

The historical development of Sub-Saharan Africa was profoundly shaped by the migrations of Bantu-speaking peoples outward from west-central Africa. By the year 1000, most of the region had adopted agriculture. The sedentary nature of farming required more complex political arrangements than earlier mobile societies had needed.

Unlike many Asian or European societies that centralized authority under a single ruler or government, Sub-Saharan communities typically organized themselves into **kin-based networks**. In these systems, extended families or clans governed their own affairs. A male head of the network, known as a **chief**, mediated internal disputes and managed relations with neighboring groups. Clusters of villages formed districts, and groups of chiefs collectively addressed district-wide issues.

As populations increased, these decentralized kin-based networks became harder to manage. Competition for resources intensified, leading to more frequent conflicts among villages and districts. While many small kin-based communities persisted in Sub-Saharan Africa into the 19th century, larger kingdoms gained prominence after 1000.

The Hausa Kingdoms

Sometime before 1000, in the region of present-day Nigeria, the Hausa people established seven loosely connected states known as the **Hausa Kingdoms**. These polities lacked a strong central authority and were linked primarily through kinship ties. Individual city-states developed economic specializations—for example, several were located in fertile plains well-suited to cotton cultivation.

Although the region had no direct access to the sea, external contact remained vital through the **trans-Saharan trade** routes that crossed the desert. One Hausa state on the western edge specialized in military affairs and helped defend the others against outside threats. Because of their decentralized structure, however, the Hausa Kingdoms were frequently vulnerable to domination by external powers. In the 14th century, Islamic missionaries introduced Islam to the region.

Political Structures of West and East Africa

Kingdoms along both the western and eastern coasts of Africa benefited enormously from expanded trade networks. The exchange of goods generated wealth, strengthened political power, and fostered cultural

diversity. The arrival of Islam further enriched the continent's existing religious landscape, which already included animist traditions and Christianity. Four prominent examples were Ghana, Mali, Zimbabwe, and Ethiopia.

Ghana

The kingdom of Ghana (not located in the same place as the modern nation) lay between the Sahara Desert and the tropical rainforests of West Africa's coast. Historians date its founding to around the 5th century—well before the time of Muhammad—though it reached its peak influence between the 8th and 11th centuries. Ghana's rulers traded gold and ivory with Muslim merchants in exchange for salt, copper, cloth, and tools. From the capital at Koumbi Saleh, the king governed a centralized state supported by nobles and an army armed with iron weapons.

Mali

By the 12th century, repeated wars with neighboring societies had permanently weakened Ghana. In its place arose new trading states, the most powerful of which was Mali. Its founding ruler, Sundiata, was a Muslim who leveraged religious connections to build trade relationships with North African and Arab merchants. Under his leadership, Mali developed a thriving gold trade that brought immense wealth. His nephew, Mansa Musa, later undertook a famous pilgrimage to Mecca during which his lavish displays of gold made a lasting impression on the Islamic world. (Further developments in West Africa, including the growth of Timbuktu and the rise of the Songhai Empire, appear in Topic 2.4.)

Zimbabwe

In East Africa, architectural achievements reflected growing prosperity. Although most houses had traditionally been built of wood, by the 9th century chiefs began constructing more durable “zimbabwes” (Bantu for “dwellings”) of stone. This term later gave its name to one of the most powerful East African kingdoms, which flourished between the 12th and 15th centuries in the region between the Zambezi and Limpopo rivers (modern Zimbabwe and Mozambique).

Zimbabwe's wealth derived from agriculture, grazing, trade, and especially gold. Like Ghana and Mali on the opposite side of the continent, it possessed rich gold fields; taxes on gold transport enriched the state. While Ghana and Mali relied on overland trans-Saharan routes, Zimbabwe connected to the **Indian Ocean trade** through coastal city-states such as Mombasa, Kilwa, and Mogadishu. These ports linked East Africa with the Middle East, South Asia, and East Asia. In East Africa, traders blended Bantu languages with Arabic to create **Swahili**, which remains widely spoken today in the African Great Lakes region and parts of Southeast Africa.

The kingdom's rise and eventual decline were visible in its defensive architecture. By the late 13th century, the capital—known as Great Zimbabwe—was enclosed by a massive stone wall 30 feet tall and 15 feet thick, the first large structure of its kind on the continent built without mortar. Most royal buildings inside the wall were also stone. At its height in the late 15th century, nearly 20,000 people lived within the city. However, overgrazing severely damaged the surrounding environment, forcing residents to abandon the capital by the end of the 1400s. The impressive wall still stands in present-day Zimbabwe.

Ethiopia

Christianity spread southward from the Mediterranean into Egypt and beyond. In what is now Ethiopia, the kingdom of Axum prospered through trade with India, Arabia, the Roman Empire, and the African interior. From the 7th century onward, the spread of Islam increased religious diversity in the region.

In the 12th century, a new Christian-led kingdom emerged in Ethiopia. Its rulers expressed power through monumental architecture, commissioning 11 massive churches carved entirely from solid rock. Between the 12th and 16th centuries, Ethiopia functioned as a Christian island on a largely non-Christian continent. Isolated from both the Roman Catholic Church in western Europe and the Orthodox Church in eastern Europe, Ethiopian Christianity developed independently. Local believers blended Christian teachings with traditional practices such as ancestor veneration and beliefs in spirits, creating a distinctive form of the faith.

Social Structures of Sub-Saharan Africa

Strong, centralized governments ruling vast territories were relatively rare in Sub-Saharan Africa. Instead, small communities organized social life around kinship, age, and gender.

Kinship ties allowed individuals to identify first as members of a clan or extended family. Age served as another key marker: an 18-year-old might perform more strenuous labor than a 60-year-old, while younger people often depended on the wisdom of elders. Communities therefore divided work by age, forming age grades or age sets. Gender also shaped roles and responsibilities.

- Men typically dominated specialized skilled trades such as leather tanning and blacksmithing.
- Women generally handled agriculture and food gathering, along with primary responsibility for domestic chores and child-rearing.

Slavery in Sub-Saharan Africa and Southwest Asia

Slavery had deep roots in Africa. Prisoners of war, debtors, and criminals were commonly enslaved. Most men and some women performed agricultural labor; most women and some men worked in households. In many kin-based societies, individuals could not own land privately but could own other people. Owning large numbers of enslaved people enhanced social status. Slavery took multiple forms, as summarized below:

Chattel Slavery

People were considered the legal property of the owner. Common in the Americas from the 16th to 19th centuries. Enslavement was permanent; children of enslaved people were automatically enslaved; enslaved people had no rights.

Domestic Slavery

People served as cooks, cleaners, or other household workers. Common in Classical Greece and Rome and in the Middle East. Enslavement was often permanent; children were often enslaved; enslaved people had some rights (laws or customs sometimes limited a master's ability to sell or severely punish them).

Debt Bondage

People became enslaved, sometimes by mutual agreement, to repay a debt. Common in East Africa before the 15th century and in European colonies in the Americas. Enslavement was not always permanent in theory but often became so in practice; children frequently inherited their parents' debts; enslaved people had some rights (laws or customs sometimes limited punishment).

Strong demand in the Middle East for labor fueled an **Indian Ocean slave trade** between East Africa and the Middle East. This trade began centuries before the Atlantic slave trade and, in some places, continued into the 20th century. Enslaved East Africans, known in Arabic as *zanj*, provided essential labor on sugar plantations in Mesopotamia. Between 869 and 883, approximately 15,000 enslaved people, joined by many Arab workers,

launched the **Zanj Rebellion**. They successfully captured the city of Basra and held it for ten years before defeat. The scale and duration of this uprising make it one of the most successful slave revolts in history.

Cultural Life in Sub-Saharan Africa

Music, visual arts, and storytelling played vital roles in African societies, providing enjoyment and marking important rituals such as weddings and funerals. Because many traditional African religions emphasized ancestor veneration, song lyrics often served as a medium for communicating with the spirit world. African music typically featured distinctive rhythmic patterns, with vocals interwoven with percussive elements such as handclaps, bells, pots, or gourds.

Visual arts frequently carried religious meaning. Metalworkers, for example, created busts of past rulers so that living royalty could seek guidance from them. Artists in Benin, West Africa, became renowned for their intricate iron and bronze sculptures. In the late 19th century, the sophistication of these works prompted some Europeans to develop greater respect for West African cultures.

Griots and Griottes

Literature in Sub-Saharan Africa was primarily oral. *Griots* (male storytellers) and *griottes* (female storytellers) served as living repositories of communal history. They possessed detailed knowledge of family lineages and the deeds of great leaders. Griots often performed their stories musically, accompanying themselves on instruments such as drums or the *kora* (a 12-string harp).

Griots were both respected and feared because of the perceived power of their words; people believed a griot could “sing” someone’s success or downfall. By preserving and transmitting history across generations, they functioned as living libraries. Kings frequently consulted them on political matters. The death of a griot was likened to the burning of a library.

Griottes performed at special occasions, such as before weddings. They might counsel a bride on how to respond to an abusive mother-in-law or reassure her that she could return home if conditions became intolerable. In a patriarchal society, griottes offered women a meaningful source of counsel and empowerment.

Vocabulary

- Kin-based networks
- Swahili
- Zanj Rebellion
- Great Zimbabwe
- Ghana
- Mali
- Trans-Saharan trade
- Indian Ocean trade
- Hausa Kingdoms
- Zimbabwe
- Ethiopia

1.5 MCQ

Stimulus: Ibn Battuta's Description of the Mali Empire

Excerpt from Ibn Battuta's "Rihla" (circa 1355):

"I reached the city of Mali, the capital of a vast kingdom. The sultan, Mansa Musa, is a pious man who loves justice and surrounds himself with learned men and jurists. The city is prosperous, with markets full of gold, salt, and other goods brought by caravans across the desert. The people are devout Muslims, and mosques are numerous, where scholars teach the Quran and the law."

Source: Ibn Battuta, *The Travels of Ibn Battuta*, translated by H.A.R. Gibb, Cambridge University Press, 1958.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, which of the following best characterizes the Mali Empire under Mansa Musa?**
 - (A) A militaristic state focused on territorial expansion
 - (B) A prosperous Islamic state with a strong emphasis on trade and scholarship
 - (C) A decentralized federation of tribal groups
 - (D) A state reliant on maritime trade routes

Answer: (B) A prosperous Islamic state with a strong emphasis on trade and scholarship

Explanation: The passage describes Mali as prosperous, with markets full of gold and salt, and highlights Mansa Musa's patronage of learned men and jurists, indicating a focus on trade and Islamic scholarship.

2. **The presence of gold and salt in the markets of Mali, as described in the passage, highlights the empire's role in**
 - (A) facilitating trans-Saharan trade networks
 - (B) promoting agricultural innovation in West Africa
 - (C) establishing direct trade links with Europe
 - (D) controlling Indian Ocean trade routes

Answer: (A) facilitating trans-Saharan trade networks

Explanation: Gold and salt, transported by caravans across the desert, underscore Mali's central role in trans-Saharan trade networks.

3. **Mansa Musa's patronage of scholars and jurists, as noted in the passage, suggests that the Mali Empire prioritized**

- (A) military conquest over cultural development
- (B) the integration of Islamic learning and governance
- (C) the adoption of Christian missionary teachings
- (D) the suppression of religious diversity

Answer: (B) the integration of Islamic learning and governance

Explanation: The patronage of scholars and jurists teaching the Quran and law indicates Mali's emphasis on Islamic learning and its integration into governance.

4. **Which of the following best explains how Mansa Musa's reign, as described in the passage, influenced other regions during the period c. 1200–1450?**

- (A) His pilgrimage to Mecca increased the visibility of Mali's wealth and Islamic faith in the wider Islamic world
- (B) His military campaigns unified West Africa under a single empire
- (C) His trade policies isolated Mali from neighboring African states
- (D) His promotion of Christianity attracted European traders to West Africa

Answer: (A) His pilgrimage to Mecca increased the visibility of Mali's wealth and Islamic faith in the wider Islamic world

Explanation: While not explicitly mentioned in the passage, Mansa Musa's famous pilgrimage to Mecca (1324–1325), tied to his piety and wealth as implied by the prosperous markets and Islamic devotion, significantly enhanced Mali's reputation in the Islamic world.

Stimulus: Al-Umari's Account of the Mali Empire

Excerpt from Al-Umari's "Masalik al-Absar" (circa 1340):

"The ruler of Mali, Mansa Musa, governs a vast kingdom with justice and wisdom. His capital, Niani, is a center of wealth and learning, where officials collect tribute in gold and goods from distant provinces. The sultan's authority is upheld by a loyal army and governors who ensure the laws are followed. Mosques and schools flourish under his patronage, drawing scholars from across the Islamic world."

Source: Al-Umari, *Masalik al-Absar fi Mamalik al-Amsar*, translated by J.F.P. Hopkins, *Corpus of Early Arabic Sources for West African History*, Cambridge University Press, 1981.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, the state system of the Mali Empire under Mansa Musa was primarily characterized by**
- (A) a decentralized confederation of tribal leaders
 - (B) a centralized monarchy supported by tribute and Islamic governance

- (C) a theocratic system led solely by religious scholars
- (D) a mercantile state focused on maritime trade

Answer: (B) a centralized monarchy supported by tribute and Islamic governance

Explanation: The passage describes Mansa Musa governing a vast kingdom with officials collecting tribute and upholding laws, alongside patronage of mosques and schools, indicating a centralized monarchy supported by tribute and Islamic governance.

2. **The reference to collecting tribute from distant provinces in the passage highlights which aspect of the Mali Empire's state system?**

- (A) Its reliance on military conquest to expand its borders
- (B) Its ability to integrate diverse regions through economic control
- (C) Its focus on religious conversion to unify the population
- (D) Its dependence on foreign alliances for economic stability

Answer: (B) Its ability to integrate diverse regions through economic control

Explanation: Collecting tribute from distant provinces indicates Mali's ability to economically integrate and control diverse regions.

3. **The patronage of mosques and schools, as described in the passage, suggests that the Mali Empire's state system was strengthened by**

- (A) promoting cultural and religious legitimacy to consolidate power
- (B) restricting access to education to maintain elite control
- (C) rejecting Islamic traditions in favor of local customs
- (D) isolating the empire from external intellectual influences

Answer: (A) promoting cultural and religious legitimacy to consolidate power

Explanation: Patronage of mosques and schools, drawing scholars from across the Islamic world, suggests Mansa Musa strengthened his authority through cultural and religious legitimacy.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader significance of state systems like that of the Mali Empire in Africa during the period c. 1200–1450?**

- (A) They facilitated trans-Saharan trade and cultural exchange with the Islamic world
- (B) They unified West Africa under a single political authority
- (C) They promoted the decline of urban centers in favor of nomadic lifestyles
- (D) They restricted trade to protect local economies from foreign influence

Answer: (A) They facilitated trans-Saharan trade and cultural exchange with the Islamic world

Explanation: The Mali Empire's wealth, tribute system, and patronage of Islamic institutions, as described, highlight its role in facilitating trans-Saharan trade and cultural exchange with Dar al-Islam.

Schattle Chat Edited Questions from above:

✓ Stimulus:

Excerpt from Al-Umari's *Masalik al-Absar* (c. 1340):

"The ruler of Mali, Mansa Musa, governs a vast kingdom with justice and wisdom. His capital, Niani, is a center of wealth and learning, where officials collect tribute in gold and goods from distant provinces. The sultan's authority is upheld by a loyal army and governors who ensure the laws are followed. Mosques and schools flourish under his patronage, drawing scholars from across the Islamic world."

Source: Al-Umari, *Masalik al-Absar fi Mamalik al-Amsar*, translated by J.F.P. Hopkins, *Corpus of Early Arabic Sources for West African History*, Cambridge University Press, 1981.

Question 1 (Governance & Causation)

Which of the following best explains how the political and economic strategies described in Al-Umari's account contributed to Mali's success as a state?

- (A) They decentralized power to provincial leaders to prevent rebellion.
- (B) They combined tribute collection with religious and cultural patronage to reinforce centralized authority.
- (C) They focused primarily on maritime trade with Islamic ports in the Indian Ocean.
- (D) They avoided integrating Islamic influences to preserve indigenous traditions.

✓ Correct Answer: (B)

Explanation: Mali used tribute for wealth and Islamic patronage for legitimacy, strengthening centralized rule.

Question 2 (Religion & Legitimacy)

The description of mosques and schools flourishing under Mansa Musa most directly reflects which strategy used by states in the period c. 1200–1450 to consolidate power?

- (A) Promoting religious institutions to legitimize rule and encourage cultural exchange
- (B) Limiting education to maintain elite dominance and social hierarchy
- (C) Rejecting foreign intellectual traditions in favor of isolationist policies
- (D) Imposing uniform religious practices to eliminate cultural diversity

✓ Correct Answer: (A)

Explanation: Patronage of mosques and scholars provided legitimacy and integrated Mali into the wider Islamic world.

Question 3 (Comparison Across Regions)

The tribute system described in the passage is most similar to which political practice in another region during the same period?

- (A) The corvée labor and tax obligations imposed by the Mongol Khanates in Eurasia
- (B) The plantation slavery system emerging in the Mediterranean islands
- (C) The communal landholding systems in Andean societies before European contact
- (D) The decentralized feudal obligations between lords and vassals in Western Europe

✓ **Correct Answer:** (A)

Explanation: Like the Mongols, Mali used tribute from conquered territories to maintain a centralized state.

Question 4 (Stimulus Integration – Map or Gold Trade Chart)

Mali's location along the trans-Saharan trade routes best supports which interpretation of the empire's rise?

- (A) Mali's power was based on its control of key trade routes that linked West Africa to the Islamic world.
- (B) Mali's geographic isolation limited its participation in global networks of exchange.
- (C) Mali's prosperity depended exclusively on Indian Ocean maritime commerce.
- (D) Mali's location forced it to rely on nomadic pastoralism rather than agriculture or trade.

✓ **Correct Answer:** (A)

Explanation: Mali's position along trans-Saharan trade routes allowed it to control gold-salt trade and connect to the broader Islamic world.

Question 5 (Historical Significance & Continuity)

Which of the following best illustrates the long-term historical significance of Mali's state system as described by Al-Umari?

- (A) It provided a model of centralized governance that later influenced European monarchies.
- (B) It facilitated cultural and intellectual connections with the Islamic world through trade and scholarship.
- (C) It directly contributed to the spread of Christianity across sub-Saharan Africa.
- (D) It established a system of private property that became dominant in West Africa after 1450.

✓ **Correct Answer:** (B)

Explanation: Mali's integration into Dar al-Islam through trade and scholarship is a major historical development.

Question 6 (Source Analysis – Bias & Context)

When using Al-Umari's account as a historical source, which of the following is the most important limitation to consider?

- (A) Al-Umari was a European chronicler who misunderstood African political systems.
- (B) His account may reflect an idealized view of Mali influenced by Islamic cultural values rather than direct observation.

- (C) He was a local griot whose oral traditions exaggerated Mali's wealth for entertainment.
- (D) His writings were based entirely on archaeological evidence rather than interviews or reports.

✅ **Correct Answer:** (B)

Explanation: Al-Umari relied on reports from travelers and merchants and may have presented Mali in an idealized Islamic framework.

1.6

Topic 1.6: Developments in Europe

Essential Question: How did the beliefs and practices of the predominant religions, agricultural practices, and political decentralization affect European society from c. 1200 to c. 1450?

As the Roman Empire weakened in the 5th and 6th centuries, Western Europe entered a period often called the Middle Ages or medieval era. Trade declined sharply, intellectual activity diminished, and the unified Roman state fragmented into smaller, frequently warring kingdoms. In this environment, kings, lords, and peasants developed mutual agreements to ensure defense and stability. Only the Roman Catholic Church retained significant continuity and power across much of Europe from Roman times into the 16th century.

Between roughly 1000 and 1450, however, learning, trade, and political organization began to revive in what historians call the High Middle Ages. Scholars such as Peter Abelard engaged deeply with classical thinkers like Aristotle while remaining committed Christians, reflecting the era's blend of intellectual curiosity and religious faith.

Feudalism: Political and Social Systems

European society in the Middle Ages was marked by a decentralized political system known as **feudalism**, built on exchanges of land for loyalty and service. With no strong central government, people sought protection from bandits, rival lords, and invaders such as the Vikings. The system rested on a hierarchy of mutual obligations:

- A monarch (usually a king) granted large tracts of land called *fiefs* to lords. In return, lords became the king's *vassals* and owed military and other service.
- Lords then granted portions of their land to knights. Knights became vassals of the lord and pledged to fight on his behalf.
- Lords also provided land and protection to peasants. In exchange, peasants farmed the lord's land, delivered crops and livestock as tribute, and obeyed the lord's commands.

Feudalism offered peasants a measure of security, equipped warriors, and rewarded service with land. Because the entire system was rooted in agriculture, wealth was measured primarily in land rather than currency.

A code of **chivalry**—an unwritten set of expectations emphasizing honor, courtesy, and bravery—helped regulate disputes among the warrior class. While the code placed women on a symbolic pedestal as figures to be protected, it granted them few actual rights or power.

Manorial System

Large feudal estates, known as manors, formed the economic backbone of the system. The manorial system aimed for self-sufficiency: each manor produced most of what its residents needed, reducing the need for external trade. Manor grounds typically included a church, blacksmith shop, mill, wine presses, and the homes of peasants called **serfs**. Serfs were not enslaved but were bound to the land; they could not leave, marry, or travel without their lord's permission. In return for protection, they paid tribute in crops, labor, or occasionally coins. Children of serfs inherited the same status.

Agricultural improvements gradually increased the amount of usable land and boosted productivity. The **three-field system** rotated crops across three fields each year:

- One field grew wheat or rye for food.
- A second field grew legumes (peas, lentils, or beans) that restored nitrogen to the soil.
- The third field was left fallow (unused) to recover.

New technologies such as windmills and improved plows—heavier wheeled versions for northern Europe's dense soils and lighter ones for the south—further increased output and supported population growth.

Political Trends in the Later Middle Ages

In the later Middle Ages, monarchs gradually strengthened their authority at the expense of feudal lords by building their own bureaucracies and professional armies loyal directly to the crown rather than to individual nobles. This process was most visible in England and France, where the lands under royal control began to resemble the modern nation-states of Europe.

France

King Philip II (r. 1180–1223) developed the first real royal bureaucracy. Under Philip IV (r. 1285–1314), the Estates-General—an advisory body representing the three legal estates (clergy, nobility, and commoners)—first met. However, because the king did not regularly tax the upper two estates, the Estates-General had limited influence. The clergy and nobility felt little obligation to support a government they did not finance.

Holy Roman Empire

In 962, the German king Otto I was crowned Holy Roman Emperor, evoking the legacy of Charlemagne. His successors navigated power struggles with the papacy, most notably the **lay investiture controversy** of the 11th and 12th centuries over whether secular rulers or the pope could appoint bishops. The dispute ended with the Concordat of Worms in 1122, granting the Church greater autonomy from secular control. The Holy Roman Empire remained influential until it was devastated during the Thirty Years' War (1618–1648) and formally ended when Napoleon invaded central Europe in 1806.

Norman England

Descendants of Vikings who had settled in Normandy (northwestern France), the Normans conquered England in 1066 under William the Conqueror. William imposed a tightly organized feudal system and used royal sheriffs as administrators. The blending of Norman and Anglo-Saxon populations helped create the modern English people.

English nobles resisted growing royal power. In 1215 they compelled King John to sign the **Magna Carta**, which guaranteed nobles certain rights, including trial by jury before imprisonment and consultation on taxes such as *scutage* (a payment in lieu of military service). The first English Parliament formed in 1265. It included the House of Lords (nobles and Church leaders) and the House of Commons (elected representatives of wealthy townspeople). Over time, these bodies gained more influence in England than similar institutions elsewhere in Europe.

The Hundred Years' War

Between 1337 and 1453, England and France fought a prolonged conflict known as the Hundred Years' War. English longbowmen secured early victories, but by the war's end England retained only the port of Calais in France. The conflict had lasting effects:

- Soldiers serving under a single monarch developed a stronger sense of shared identity, accelerating the emergence of distinct “English” and “French” national consciousness.
- The war accelerated the spread of gunpowder weapons, originally invented in China and transmitted westward by the Mongols.

Christians versus Muslims

Normans also conquered Sicily from Muslim rulers. In Spain, Muslims had ruled since the 8th century; Christians fought for centuries to reclaim the peninsula in a process called the *reconquista*, which was completed in 1492.

Roman Catholic Church during the Middle Ages

In 1054 the Christian Church split in the **Great Schism**. The Roman Catholic Church dominated most of Western Europe for the next five centuries, while the Orthodox Church held sway farther east, from Greece to Russia.

The Catholic Church was the most powerful institution in a politically fragmented Europe. Church officials were often the only literate people in a community; commoners relied on them to read or write documents. Most manors had a church and priest. Christianity provided a shared identity even as regional vernacular languages began replacing Latin.

Education and Art

The Church founded Europe’s first universities. Because it controlled education, most philosophers, writers, and thinkers of the period were clergy. Artists worked almost exclusively for the Church, producing religious art that helped illiterate serfs understand biblical stories.

Church and State

The Church wielded significant leverage within the feudal system. A displeased bishop could, for example, suspend religious services for a lord’s serfs, prompting the serfs to pressure the lord to yield. The Church’s hierarchy mirrored that of the old Roman Empire: regional bishops answered to the pope in Rome and supervised local priests.

Monasticism and Reform

Some clergy withdrew to monasteries to pray and meditate, yet monasteries functioned economically much like other manors, engaging in agriculture and providing protection. Women could become nuns and exercise influence within monastic communities. Over time, the wealth and political power accumulated by some clergy and monasteries led to corruption in the 13th and 14th centuries. These issues, combined with theological disagreements, eventually fueled reformers such as Martin Luther in the 16th century.

Christian Crusades

European Christians also sought to regain control of the Holy Land (Palestine), sacred to Jews, Christians, and Muslims alike. They had long enjoyed access to these sites even under Muslim rule. In the 11th century, several pressures converged to launch the Crusades—a series of military campaigns in the Middle East from 1095 into the 1200s:

- **Primogeniture** (the rule that the eldest son inherited the entire estate) left many younger noble sons landless and restless.
- Merchants wanted secure access to Middle Eastern trade routes.
- The Church used spiritual incentives—relief from penance and promises of quicker entry to heaven—to recruit participants.
- The Orthodox patriarch in Constantinople appealed to Pope Urban II for help against Seljuk Turkish persecution of Christian pilgrims.

The First Crusade

Of the four major Crusades, only the first achieved a clear victory for European forces, capturing Jerusalem in July 1099. Muslim leader Saladin recaptured the city in 1187. The Crusades nevertheless facilitated cultural exchange; Europeans encountered the higher living standards of the Middle East and developed greater demand for its goods.

The Fourth Crusade

During the Fourth Crusade (1202–1204), Venice—contracted to transport Crusaders—diverted the indebted forces first to sack the Christian city of Zara and then Constantinople, a commercial rival. The campaign never reached the Holy Land. Islamic forces ultimately prevailed in the Levant.

Economic and Social Change

The Crusades formed part of broader transformations in late medieval Europe. Local self-sufficiency gradually gave way to interest in goods from other European regions and distant ports.

Marco Polo

In the late 13th century, the Venetian merchant Marco Polo visited the court of Kublai Khan in Dadu (modern Beijing). His vivid accounts of Mongol customs—multiple marriages, drinking mare’s milk, burning coal (“black stones”) for heat, and frequent bathing—fascinated Europeans and stimulated interest in Asian trade and cartography.

Social Change and Urban Growth

Long-distance commerce elevated the status of successful merchants and craftspeople, creating a growing middle class known as the **bourgeoisie** or **burghers** (shopkeepers, merchants, artisans, and small landholders) positioned between nobles/clergy and peasants.

Agricultural improvements and surplus production supported larger towns and more frequent markets. However, the 14th-century **Black Death** (bubonic plague) killed up to one-third of Europe’s population, giving surviving serfs greater bargaining power with lords. After about 1300, the **Little Ice Age**—a centuries-long cooling trend—reduced agricultural output, slowed urban growth, increased disease and unemployment, and fueled social unrest and scapegoating of marginalized groups such as Jews.

Jews

Jewish communities grew as Christians reconquered parts of the Iberian Peninsula and Mediterranean. Many Jews moved northward. Because Christian doctrine prohibited charging interest on loans to fellow Christians, Jews often became moneylenders, contributing to Europe’s economic expansion. Widespread antisemitism led

to expulsions from England (1290), France (1394), Spain (1492), Portugal (1497), and various northern and central European cities and kingdoms. Many expelled Jews resettled in eastern Europe.

Muslims

Muslims faced similar discrimination. In 1492 the Spanish monarchs expelled those who refused to convert to Christianity. Many moved to southeastern Europe. In the 13th century the Muslim Ottoman Empire expanded from Turkey into the Balkans (modern Albania, Kosovo, and Bosnia and Herzegovina), creating large Muslim populations there.

Despite persecution, both Jews and Muslims helped connect Europe to broader trade and intellectual networks. Jews, who often lived in urban areas, served as intermediaries between Christian Europeans and Muslim traders.

Gender Roles

The shift from a predominantly agricultural to a more urban society was accompanied by stronger patriarchal norms. Fewer women than men received formal education, though some managed manor accounts. Women found greater opportunities for leadership and administration within religious orders or, in some cases, as artisans and guild members. In contrast, women in many Islamic societies—particularly in parts of Africa and Southeast Asia—often enjoyed relatively higher levels of equality.

Renaissance

The revival of trade, agricultural surplus, and the rise of a middle class able to patronize the arts sparked a cultural flowering known as the Renaissance—a “rebirth” of interest in classical Greek and Roman literature, art, culture, and civic ideals. Scholars recovered and studied ancient manuscripts. Johannes Gutenberg’s movable-type printing press (developed around 1439) revolutionized communication by enabling mass production of texts at lower cost, boosting literacy and the rapid dissemination of ideas.

A hallmark of the Renaissance was **humanism**—an emphasis on individual human potential and achievement rather than solely on God. Humanists pursued education and reform and began writing secular literature. The increased use of vernacular languages helped strengthen monarchies, centralize governments, and foster early nationalist sentiments.

Southern Renaissance

In Italy and Spain, Church patronage supported major artistic and literary achievements. Dante Alighieri (1265–1321) structured *The Divine Comedy* around a religious framework (hell, purgatory, heaven) yet criticized corrupt clergy and wrote in Italian vernacular rather than Latin, demonstrating independence from Church authority. Wealthy families such as the Medicis of Florence commissioned painters, sculptors, and architects.

Northern Renaissance

By around 1400 the Renaissance spirit reached northern Europe. While many artists emphasized piety, others focused on human concerns. Geoffrey Chaucer’s *Canterbury Tales* (late 1300s) offered a satirical portrait of middle-class English society, including clergy, written in Middle English vernacular.

The Origins of Russia

In Eastern Europe during the late Middle Ages, extensive trade in furs, fish, and grain linked Scandinavia, the Mediterranean, and Central Asia. At the center of this network stood the city-state of Kievan Rus, based in present-day Kiev, Ukraine. Because it adopted Orthodox Christianity, it maintained closer cultural ties with Byzantium than with Roman Catholic Europe. In the 13th century the Mongols conquered the region, further isolating it from the rest of Europe.

Mongol rulers required local nobles to collect taxes on their behalf. As these nobles grew wealthy, they increasingly resisted Mongol control. In the late 15th century, under the leadership of Ivan the Great (based in Moscow), the region achieved independence from the Mongols. This event marked the beginning of the modern Russian state.

Vocabulary

- Magna Carta
- English Parliament
- Feudalism
- Serfs
- Primogeniture
- Bourgeoisie
- Burghers
- Crusades
- Marco Polo
- Renaissance
- Humanism
- Manors
- Manorial system
- Estates-General
- Great Schism
- Three-field system
- Holy Roman Empire
- Little Ice Age

1.6 MCQ

Stimulus: The Role of the Church in Feudal Society

Excerpt from a sermon by Bernard of Clairvaux (circa 1140):

"The Church, under the guidance of the Holy Father in Rome, calls upon all Christians to live righteously and serve their lords faithfully, as is pleasing to God. The knight owes his loyalty to his lord, and the peasant toils in the fields, but all are bound by their duty to God. The tithe you offer to the Church supports its holy work, and through the sacraments, you are cleansed of sin and promised salvation."

Source: Bernard of Clairvaux, *Sermons of St. Bernard*, translated by Samuel J. Eales, The Catholic Publication Society, 1890.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, the primary role of the Catholic Church in medieval European feudal society was to**
 - (A) challenge the authority of feudal lords to promote equality
 - (B) provide spiritual guidance and reinforce social obligations
 - (C) centralize political power under the Pope's authority
 - (D) organize military campaigns against non-Christian territories

Answer: (B) provide spiritual guidance and reinforce social obligations

Explanation: The passage emphasizes the Church's call for righteous living, loyalty to lords, and duty to God, highlighting its role in providing spiritual guidance and reinforcing feudal social obligations.

2. **The reference to the tithe in the passage highlights which aspect of the Catholic Church's influence in feudal Europe?**
 - (A) Its role in funding secular rulers' military campaigns
 - (B) Its economic power through control of land and resources
 - (C) Its efforts to redistribute wealth to the peasant class
 - (D) Its promotion of trade with non-Christian regions

Answer: (B) Its economic power through control of land and resources

Explanation: The tithe, a tax paid to the Church, supported its "holy work," reflecting its economic power through wealth accumulation and control of resources.

3. **Bernard of Clairvaux's sermon reflects the feudal system's reliance on religion to**
(A) justify the hierarchical social structure and maintain stability
(B) encourage rebellion against unjust lords
(C) promote secular education over religious doctrine
(D) undermine the authority of the monarchy

Answer: (A) justify the hierarchical social structure and maintain stability

Explanation: The sermon reinforces the duties of knights and peasants within the feudal hierarchy, using religion to justify this structure and promote stability.

4. **Which of the following developments in Europe during the period c. 1200–1450 best illustrates the broader influence of the Catholic Church as described in the passage?**
(A) The growth of urban centers and merchant guilds
(B) The organization of the Crusades to reclaim the Holy Land
(C) The rise of centralized monarchies in France and England
(D) The decline of feudalism due to peasant revolts

Answer: (B) The organization of the Crusades to reclaim the Holy Land

Explanation: The passage's emphasis on the Church's spiritual authority and economic power (via tithes) aligns with its role in mobilizing the Crusades, which Bernard of Clairvaux actively promoted.

Stimulus: The Domesday Book on Manorial Life

Excerpt from the Domesday Book (1086, widely referenced in medieval Europe through the 13th century):

"In the manor of Brightwell, held by the lord Walter, there are 12 villeins and 8 bordars with 6 ploughs, and 20 acres of meadow. The villeins owe labor to the lord, working his fields and paying a share of their crops. The manor is worth 60 shillings to the lord, who holds it from the king. The land is worked in common, and the church collects a tithe from all."

Source: *The Domesday Book*, translated by Ann Williams and G.H. Martin, *Domesday Book: A Complete Translation*, Penguin Books, 2003.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, the manorial system described in the Domesday Book primarily reflects which characteristic of European decentralization during the period c. 1200–1450?**
(A) The absolute authority of the king over all land and labor
(B) The local control of land and resources by lords within a feudal hierarchy

- (C) The independence of peasant communities from noble oversight
- (D) The centralization of economic production under royal officials

Correct Answer: (B) The local control of land and resources by lords within a feudal hierarchy

Explanation: The passage describes a manor held by a lord who receives labor and crops from villeins, indicating local control within the feudal system, where lords managed estates under the king's nominal authority, reflecting decentralization.

2. **The labor obligations of villeins to the lord, as mentioned in the passage, highlight which aspect of the manorial system in medieval Europe?**

- (A) The promotion of social mobility for peasants through land ownership
- (B) The economic dependence of peasants on lords for land and protection
- (C) The equal distribution of resources among all manor residents
- (D) The reliance on merchant guilds to organize agricultural production

Correct Answer: (B) The economic dependence of peasants on lords for land and protection

Explanation: Villeins owed labor and crops to the lord, illustrating their dependence on the lord for access to land and security, a core feature of the manorial economy.

3. **The passage's reference to the manor's worth and the church's tithe suggests that manorialism in Europe was significant for**

- (A) fostering economic self-sufficiency and supporting religious institutions
- (B) promoting trade networks that connected rural manors to urban centers
- (C) undermining the authority of the Catholic Church in rural areas
- (D) centralizing economic control under royal tax collectors

Correct Answer: (A) fostering economic self-sufficiency and supporting religious institutions

Explanation: The manor's valuation and the church's tithe indicate that manors were largely self-sufficient economic units that also supported the Church, reinforcing both local economies and religious structures.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of decentralization and manorialism, as described in the passage, in Europe during the period c. 1200–1450?**

- (A) The rise of centralized monarchies that diminished local lordship
- (B) The persistence of local power structures that limited royal authority
- (C) The decline of agricultural production due to peasant uprisings
- (D) The unification of Europe under a single feudal government

Correct Answer: (B) The persistence of local power structures that limited royal authority

Explanation: The manorial system, as described, empowered local lords to control land and labor, reinforcing decentralized power structures that often constrained the reach of centralized royal authority in medieval Europe.

Stimulus: Chronicle of Jocelin of Brakelond on Manorial Agriculture

Excerpt from the Chronicle of Jocelin of Brakelond (circa 1200):

"In the manor of Bury St. Edmunds, the land is tilled by villeins who work the fields of the lord and their own plots, yielding crops of wheat and barley. The lord provides protection and the use of the mill, while the peasants owe him labor and a portion of their harvest. The church receives a tithe, and the village is bound together by these duties, with the seasons guiding their toil."

Source: Jocelin of Brakelond, *Chronicle of the Abbey of Bury St. Edmunds*, translated by Diana Greenway and Jane Sayers, Oxford University Press, 1989.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, how did agricultural practices in the manorial system shape social organization in medieval Europe?**

(A) They promoted social equality by distributing land evenly among peasants
(B) They reinforced a hierarchical structure through labor obligations to lords
(C) They diminished the role of the church in rural communities
(D) They encouraged urban migration and the decline of rural villages

Correct Answer: (B) They reinforced a hierarchical structure through labor obligations to lords

Explanation: The passage describes villeins working the lord's fields and owing labor and crops, illustrating how agricultural practices in the manorial system reinforced a hierarchical social structure with peasants dependent on lords.

2. **The passage's mention of the lord providing protection and the use of the mill suggests that agriculture in medieval Europe contributed to social organization by**

(A) fostering economic independence for peasant communities
(B) creating interdependent relationships between lords and peasants
(C) promoting competition among villages for resources
(D) reducing the need for communal labor in rural areas

Correct Answer: (B) creating interdependent relationships between lords and peasants

Explanation: The lord's provision of protection and resources like the mill, in exchange for peasant labor and crops, highlights the interdependent nature of the lord-peasant relationship in the manorial system.

3. **The reference to the church receiving a tithe in the passage indicates that agriculture in medieval Europe supported social organization by**

(A) strengthening the church's role as a unifying institution in rural communities
(B) diminishing the influence of religious institutions in favor of secular lords

- (C) encouraging peasants to challenge ecclesiastical authority
- (D) redirecting agricultural surplus to urban trade networks

Correct Answer: (A) strengthening the church's role as a unifying institution in rural communities

Explanation: The tithe paid to the church shows how agricultural production supported the church's economic and social role, reinforcing its influence as a central institution in village life.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of agriculture on social organization in Europe during the period c. 1200–1450, as described in the passage?**

- (A) The rise of urban centers that challenged rural feudal structures
- (B) The persistence of a stratified society tied to land-based obligations
- (C) The decline of the feudal system due to agricultural innovations
- (D) The unification of Europe under centralized agricultural policies

Correct Answer: (B) The persistence of a stratified society tied to land-based obligations

Explanation: The agricultural practices described, with villeins owing labor and crops to lords and tithes to the church, reinforced a stratified feudal society where social roles were defined by land-based obligations.

1.7

Topic 1.7: Comparison in the Period from c. 1200 to c. 1450

Essential Question: In what ways was the process of state-building in various parts of the world between c. 1200 and c. 1450 similar and different?

Between roughly 1200 and 1450, states in the major centers of civilization generally grew larger and more centralized, while smaller or less organized polities often declined or were absorbed. Much of the world followed a broad trend toward more powerful, centralized states. However, the specific paths to state-building varied significantly by region. In most of Asia, the military power of the Mongols produced the largest land-based empire in world history. In West Africa, the Middle East, and South Asia, the spread and unifying force of Islam played a central role. In Europe, expanding trade—both within the continent and with more advanced civilizations in the Middle East—had a particularly strong influence on political and economic development.

State-Building and New Empires

As stronger, more centralized states emerged, the influence of nomadic societies began to diminish by the 15th century. During this period, new empires arose and existing states expanded in different ways across the globe.

- In China, the Song Dynasty sustained a long era of technological and cultural advancement.
- In the Middle East, the Abbasid Caliphate fragmented under pressure from invaders and shifting trade routes. New Muslim states later arose in parts of Africa, the Middle East, and Spain.
- In South and Southeast Asia, the Chola Kingdom and Vijayanagar Empire leveraged trade networks to build strong states, while the Delhi Sultanate in northern India relied more heavily on land-based power.
- In Africa, the rulers of Mali created a larger and more centrally administered empire than the earlier Ghana kingdom that had preceded it.
- In the Americas, the Aztecs built a tributary empire in Mesoamerica that depended on military strength. The Inca Empire in the Andean region used the elaborate *mit'a* labor system to support state expansion. Most other areas of the Americas lacked large centralized states.
- In Europe, feudal relationships gradually lost importance as more centralized states developed, a process more advanced in the Western European kingdoms of England and France than in Eastern Europe.
- Japan, in contrast to most other regions, became more decentralized and feudal during this era.

The Role of Religion in State-Building

One widespread similarity was the important part religion played in strengthening political authority. Rulers often turned to shared religious beliefs to help unify diverse populations and legitimize their control over territory. Islam provided an especially clear example: its shared doctrines and the common use of Arabic helped legitimize rulers across a vast area stretching from West Africa to Southeast Asia.

In China and East Asia, the Confucian belief system was tightly integrated with the civil service. The Song Dynasty relied on Confucian scholars to staff a powerful and enduring bureaucracy—the most extensive and well-organized system of its kind for governing a large territory. The ability to implement laws and carry out imperial policies was a key element of Chinese state-building. Neo-Confucianism later spread to Korea and Japan, helping rulers in those regions justify and consolidate their authority. In South and Southeast Asia, rulers similarly drew on Hinduism and Buddhism to strengthen their states.

In Europe the relationship between the Roman Catholic Church and state-building differed somewhat from patterns elsewhere in Eurasia. At times the Church supported the process of centralization. However, because European states were relatively weak for much of the Middle Ages, the Church often provided an alternative framework for organizing society. As more powerful states emerged in France and the Holy Roman Empire between 1200 and 1450, the Church sometimes became a rival source of authority.

The spread of major religions during this period extended their influence over wide areas. Islam, Buddhism, and Christianity all encouraged followers to convert non-believers, so missionary activity contributed to the decline of many local religions in Sub-Saharan Africa, Southeast Asia, and East Asia. In South Asia, converts to Islam increased in part because of military invasions by Islamic forces from Central Asia. Nevertheless, Hinduism remained the dominant religion on the subcontinent, creating conditions for alternating periods of conflict and coexistence between Muslim and Hindu communities. Trade networks across the Indian Ocean, South China Sea, East and Central Asia, and the Sahara Desert also helped spread religious ideas as commercial activity expanded.

State-Building Through Trade

Increased trade fueled cross-cultural exchanges of technology and innovation. Improvements in agriculture, such as the introduction of Champa rice from Vietnam to China, helped the Song Dynasty feed and sustain a rapidly growing population. The resulting larger and more urban society supported the development of China's manufacturing sector—the largest in the world at the time. Production of porcelain, silk, steel, and iron all expanded significantly. These advances made the Song Dynasty the strongest Chinese state since the Han era a thousand years earlier.

Paper manufacturing, invented in China in the 2nd century B.C.E., spread across Eurasia and reached Europe around the 13th century. The resulting increase in printed materials raised literacy rates across Europe, the Middle East, and North Africa. Intellectual activity in Islamic centers of learning, such as Baghdad's House of Wisdom, produced important advances in mathematics and medicine.

Europe benefited from exchanges with the Middle East and, through it, with the rest of Asia. Not all contact was peaceful—Muslims had conquered Spain by force in the 8th century, and Christian crusaders sought to seize lands they considered holy in the Middle East beginning around 1100. The Mongols facilitated the transfer of knowledge, but only after carrying out devastating conquests. All of these interactions contributed to state-building in Europe. Between 1200 and 1450 the process remained relatively slow and limited by the manorial system and serfdom, but it was clearly underway. After 1450, state-building in Europe would accelerate markedly.

The Impact of Nomadic Peoples

Nomadic peoples played a significant role in state-building between 1200 and 1450. The Mongols, pastoralists from the Central Asian steppes, ruled large portions of Asia and Eastern Europe during the 13th century. (Further details appear in Topic 2.2.) The political stability created by Mongol dominance allowed trade across Eurasia to expand dramatically. Cross-cultural interactions intensified, and some of the first direct contacts between Europe and China since classical times occurred under Mongol rule.

Turkish peoples, also originating from the Central Asian steppes, extended their control over large land-based empires in the eastern Mediterranean, Persia, and South Asia—empires that endured well beyond 1450. Unlike the Mongols, who built their empire through coordinated campaigns by unified clans, different Turkish groups created separate empires. The Seljuk and Ottoman Turks became dominant forces in the

Mediterranean region, while another Turkish group established an empire centered in Persia and surrounding territories.

These developments represented some of the last major impacts of interactions between settled societies and nomadic peoples. The role of nomads in commerce and cross-cultural exchange declined as organized groups of merchants and trading companies increasingly took their place.

Patriarchy and Religion

Social organization in most cultures remained patriarchal, though the record of religion's influence was mixed. While religion often reinforced male authority, it sometimes created spaces for women's learning and leadership. Convent life in Christian Europe and religious communities in Jainist and Buddhist traditions in South Asia offered women opportunities for education and influence. In China, however, women experienced a loss of independence as the practice of foot binding became more widespread.

A summary of four main patterns of state-building during this period appears below:

Emergence of New States

States arise in territory formerly controlled by another empire.

Examples: Mamluk Empire (formerly Abbasid territory), Seljuk Empire (formerly Abbasid territory), Delhi Sultanate (formerly Gupta territory).

Revival of Former Empires

New leadership continues or rebuilds a previous empire, often with innovations.

Examples: Song Dynasty (drawing on the Han model), Mali Empire (building on the Ghana kingdom), Holy Roman Empire (invoking the Roman legacy).

Synthesis of Different Traditions

A state adapts foreign ideas to local conditions.

Examples: Japan (blending Chinese and Japanese elements), Delhi Sultanate (combining Islamic and Hindu traditions), Neo-Confucianism.

Expansion in Scope

An existing state extends its influence through conquest, trade, or other means.

Examples: Aztecs in Mesoamerica, Incas in South America, city-states in East Africa, city-states in Southeast Asia.

1.7 MCQ

Stimulus: Comparison of State Formation Processes

Excerpt from John Darwin's "After Tamerlane: The Rise and Fall of Global Empires, 1400–2000" (2008, discussing earlier periods):

"State formation in the period c. 1200–1450 varied widely. In West Africa, the Mali Empire consolidated power through control of trans-Saharan trade and Islamic governance, with rulers like Mansa Musa using wealth and religion to legitimize authority. In Mesoamerica, the Aztec Empire centralized power through tribute systems and divine kingship, binding city-states under Tenochtitlán's rule. In Europe, feudal monarchies like those in England relied on decentralized networks of lords and vassals, with land-based obligations shaping governance."

Source: John Darwin, *After Tamerlane: The Rise and Fall of Global Empires, 1400–2000*, Bloomsbury Press, 2008.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, which of the following best compares the role of economic systems in the state formation of the Mali and Aztec Empires?**
 - (A) Both empires relied on maritime trade to centralize their authority.
 - (B) The Mali Empire used trade wealth, while the Aztec Empire depended on tribute systems.
 - (C) Both empires used agricultural surplus to fund religious institutions exclusively.
 - (D) The Aztec Empire controlled trade routes, while the Mali Empire relied on tribute.

Correct Answer: (B) The Mali Empire used trade wealth, while the Aztec Empire depended on tribute systems.

Explanation: The passage highlights Mali's consolidation through trans-Saharan trade wealth and the Aztec's through tribute, accurately distinguishing their economic foundations for state formation.

2. **The passage suggests that a key similarity in the state formation processes of the Mali Empire and feudal Europe was**
 - (A) their reliance on divine kingship to legitimize central authority
 - (B) their use of religious institutions to strengthen governance
 - (C) their dependence on maritime trade for economic stability
 - (D) their establishment of fully decentralized political systems

Correct Answer: (B) their use of religious institutions to strengthen governance

Explanation: The passage notes Mali's use of Islamic governance and Europe's feudal ties to the Church (implied in the broader context of feudalism), showing both used religion to bolster state authority, unlike divine kingship or maritime trade.

3. **According to the passage, how did the Aztec Empire's state formation process differ from that of European feudal monarchies?**

- (A) The Aztec Empire was decentralized, while European monarchies were centralized.
- (B) The Aztec Empire relied on divine kingship, while European monarchies used land-based feudal obligations.
- (C) The Aztec Empire avoided tribute systems, while European monarchies depended on them.
- (D) The Aztec Empire rejected religious legitimacy, while European monarchies embraced it.

Correct Answer: (B) The Aztec Empire relied on divine kingship, while European monarchies used land-based feudal obligations.

Explanation: The passage describes the Aztec's divine kingship and tribute system, contrasting with Europe's decentralized feudal system based on land and vassal relationships.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates a broader similarity in the processes of state formation across the Mali, Aztec, and European systems during the period c. 1200–1450, as described in the passage?**

- (A) All three relied on centralized bureaucracies to govern diverse populations.
- (B) All three used economic and cultural systems to consolidate political authority.
- (C) All three depended on maritime exploration to expand their influence.
- (D) All three established democratic institutions to unify their territories.

Correct Answer: (B) All three used economic and cultural systems to consolidate political authority.

Explanation: The passage highlights Mali's trade and Islam, the Aztec's tribute and divine kingship, and Europe's feudal land obligations and religious ties, showing each used economic and cultural mechanisms to strengthen state formation.

Unit 1 Test

AP World History Modern: Unit 1 Exam

This exam consists of one stimulus-based multiple-choice question set for each of the 7 topics in Unit 1 (c. 1200 to c. 1450) of the AP World History Modern curriculum. Each set includes a stimulus followed by 4 questions. Five sets use written stimuli (primary or secondary source excerpts), and two use visual stimuli (map or image descriptions with links to relevant resources). The correct answer and explanation are provided for each question, and sources are cited as requested.

Topic 1.1: Developments in East Asia from c. 1200 to c. 1450 (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from Zhao Rukuo's "Description of the Foreign Lands" (circa 1225):

"In the Song Dynasty, the emperor's court in Hangzhou is adorned with fine silks and ceramics, traded widely with foreign lands. Confucian scholars govern with virtue, and Buddhist temples flourish, supported by imperial grants. The Grand Canal links the capital to northern markets, facilitating the flow of rice and goods, strengthening the realm's prosperity."

Source: Zhao Rukuo, *Description of the Foreign Lands*, translated by Friedrich Hirth and W.W. Rockhill, *Chau Ju-Kua: His Work on the Chinese and Arab Trade in the Twelfth and Thirteenth Centuries*, Imperial Academy of Sciences, 1911 (as cited in https://www.persee.fr/doc/arch_0044-8613_1991_num_41_1_2785).

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, the Song Dynasty's governance was primarily characterized by**

- (A) military conquests to expand trade networks
- (B) a centralized bureaucracy guided by Confucian principles
- (C) the rejection of Buddhist influences in favor of Daoism
- (D) decentralized rule by local warlords

****Correct Answer: (B) a centralized bureaucracy guided by Confucian principles****

***Explanation*:** The passage mentions Confucian scholars governing with virtue, indicating a centralized bureaucratic system rooted in Confucian ideology.

2. ****The passage's reference to the Grand Canal suggests it was significant for****

- (A) facilitating internal trade and economic integration
- (B) defending the empire against northern invaders
- (C) spreading Buddhist teachings to rural areas
- (D) isolating Hangzhou from foreign merchants

****Correct Answer: (A) facilitating internal trade and economic integration****

***Explanation*:** The canal is described as linking the capital to northern markets for rice and goods, highlighting its role in economic connectivity.

3. ****The imperial support for Buddhist temples, as mentioned in the passage, reflects which aspect of Song Dynasty society?****

- (A) The suppression of Confucianism to promote Buddhism
- (B) The integration of religious institutions into state governance
- (C) The decline of trade due to religious priorities
- (D) The exclusion of foreign cultural influences

****Correct Answer: (B) The integration of religious institutions into state governance****

***Explanation*:** Imperial grants to Buddhist temples suggest state patronage, integrating religious institutions into the broader governance structure.

4. ****Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of developments in the Song Dynasty, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1200–1450?****

- (A) The expansion of economic and cultural influence through trade and infrastructure
- (B) The unification of East Asia under a single empire
- (C) The decline of urban centers due to overreliance on canals
- (D) The isolation of China from global trade networks

****Correct Answer: (A) The expansion of economic and cultural influence through trade and infrastructure****

***Explanation*:** The passage highlights trade, ceramics, and the Grand Canal, showing how the Song Dynasty's developments enhanced economic and cultural connectivity.

Topic 1.2: Developments in Dar al-Islam from c. 1200 to c. 1450 (Written Stimulus)

****Excerpt from Al-Jazari's "The Book of Knowledge of Ingenious Mechanical Devices" (circa 1206):****

"In Baghdad, our workshops craft intricate water clocks and automata, blending Greek and Indian knowledge with our own. Merchants carry these devices along trade routes, where they are prized in the courts of sultans. The study of algebra flourishes, recorded on paper brought from China, advancing our understanding of the heavens and the earth."

****Source:**** Al-Jazari, *"The Book of Knowledge of Ingenious Mechanical Devices"*, translated by Donald R. Hill, D. Reidel Publishing Company, 1974 (as cited in <https://www.metmuseum.org/perspectives/automata-in-the-islamic-world>).

Questions

1. ****Based on the passage, the Islamic world's technological advancements were primarily driven by****

- (A) isolation from foreign influences
- (B) the synthesis of Greek, Indian, and local knowledge
- (C) military conquests to secure resources
- (D) the prohibition of paper-based scholarship

****Correct Answer: (B) the synthesis of Greek, Indian, and local knowledge****

***Explanation*:** The passage describes blending Greek and Indian knowledge with local innovations, highlighting a syncretic approach to technological development.

2. **The use of paper from China, as mentioned in the passage, suggests that Dar al-Islam's advancements were supported by**

- (A) the restriction of trade to local markets
- (B) the diffusion of technologies through trade networks
- (C) the decline of written scholarship
- (D) the exclusive use of Greek texts

****Correct Answer: (B) the diffusion of technologies through trade networks****

***Explanation*:** Paper from China enabled the recording of algebra, indicating that trade facilitated the spread of technologies critical to scholarship.

3. **The mention of water clocks and automata being prized in sultans' courts suggests that technological advancements contributed to**

- (A) the decline of political authority in Islamic states
- (B) the enhancement of cultural prestige and royal patronage
- (C) the restriction of trade to religious purposes
- (D) the isolation of Baghdad from other regions

****Correct Answer: (B) the enhancement of cultural prestige and royal patronage****

***Explanation*:** The devices' value in sultans' courts shows their role in elevating cultural status and supporting royal legitimacy through patronage.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of technological advancements in Dar al-Islam, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1200–1450?**

- (A) The transmission of knowledge and technologies to Europe and Asia
- (B) The unification of the Islamic world under a single ruler
- (C) The decline of trade due to technological monopolies
- (D) The rejection of foreign influences in Islamic scholarship

****Correct Answer: (A) The transmission of knowledge and technologies to Europe and Asia****

***Explanation*:** The passage notes merchants carrying devices and paper-based scholarship, indicating the spread of innovations through trade networks.

Topic 1.3: Developments in South and Southeast Asia from c. 1200 to c. 1450 (Written Stimulus)

****Excerpt from Domingo Paes's Account of Vijayanagara (circa 1520, describing the 14th century):****

"The city of Vijayanagara is as large as Rome, surrounded by walls and filled with markets trading spices and gems. The Hindu king rules with justice, patronizing temples dedicated to Vishnu and Shiva. His armies protect the roads, ensuring safe passage for merchants from the coast to the inland capital, fostering wealth and devotion."

****Source:**** Domingo Paes, *Chronicle of the Kings of Vijayanagara*, translated by Robert Sewell, *A Forgotten Empire: Vijayanagara*, Swan Sonnenschein & Co., 1900 (as cited in https://www.columbia.edu/itc/mealac/pritchett/00islamlinks/txt_vijayanagara.html).

Questions

1. ****Based on the passage, the Vijayanagara Empire's governance was primarily characterized by****

- (A) a decentralized system reliant on local chieftains
- (B) a Hindu monarchy that supported trade and religious institutions
- (C) a military dictatorship focused on conquest
- (D) a secular state rejecting religious patronage

****Correct Answer: (B) a Hindu monarchy that supported trade and religious institutions****

***Explanation*:** The passage describes a Hindu king patronizing temples and protecting trade routes, indicating a monarchy that integrated religious and economic roles.

2. ****The passage's mention of markets trading spices and gems suggests that Vijayanagara's economy was significant for****

- (A) its reliance on agricultural self-sufficiency
- (B) its participation in Indian Ocean trade networks

(C) its isolation from coastal commerce

(D) its focus on military production

****Correct Answer: (B) its participation in Indian Ocean trade networks****

***Explanation*:** Spices and gems are luxury goods associated with maritime trade, linking Vijayanagara to broader Indian Ocean commerce.

3. ****The protection of roads by the king's armies, as described in the passage, contributed to****

(A) the decline of merchant activity due to heavy taxation

(B) the facilitation of safe trade and economic prosperity

(C) the restriction of trade to local markets only

(D) the expansion of Vijayanagara's military conquests

****Correct Answer: (B) the facilitation of safe trade and economic prosperity****

***Explanation*:** Protecting roads ensured safe passage for merchants, fostering trade and wealth as described.

4. ****Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the Vijayanagara Empire, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1200–1450?****

(A) The promotion of regional trade and Hindu cultural traditions

(B) The unification of South Asia under a single empire

(C) The decline of urban centers due to religious conflicts

(D) The isolation of South India from global trade networks

****Correct Answer: (A) The promotion of regional trade and Hindu cultural traditions****

***Explanation*:** The passage highlights markets, trade protection, and temple patronage, showing Vijayanagara's role in advancing trade and Hindu culture.

Topic 1.4: State Building in the Americas (Visual Stimulus)

****Visual Description:**** A diagram of the Inca road system, c. 1450, showing a network of stone-paved roads radiating from Cuzco, the Inca capital, across the Andes to regions like Quito and Cuzco. The map includes icons for tambos (waystations) along the routes and indicates the transport of goods like maize and textiles by foot or llama caravans. The roads traverse mountainous terrain, connecting administrative and religious centers.

****Source:**** Adapted from *The Inca World: The Development of Pre-Columbian Peru* by Laura Laurencich Minelli, University of Oklahoma Press, 2000 (as cited in <https://www.metmuseum.org/perspectives/inca-road-system>).

****Link to a Similar Resource:**** [Inca Road System - National Geographic](<https://www.nationalgeographic.org/encyclopedia/inca-road-system/>)

Questions

1. ****Based on the diagram, the Inca road system was primarily significant for****

- (A) facilitating trade and communication across the empire
- (B) isolating Cuzco from peripheral regions
- (C) promoting maritime trade with Mesoamerica
- (D) restricting movement to military purposes only

****Correct Answer: (A) facilitating trade and communication across the empire****

***Explanation*:** The diagram shows roads connecting regions with tambos, supporting the transport of goods like maize and textiles.

2. ****The presence of tambos along the roads, as shown in the diagram, suggests they served as****

- (A) military fortifications to defend against invasions
- (B) rest stops and supply points for travelers and goods
- (C) religious shrines for local communities
- (D) agricultural centers for crop production

****Correct Answer: (B) rest stops and supply points for travelers and goods****

Explanation: Tambos are depicted as waystations, indicating their role in supporting trade and travel logistics.

3. **The diagram's depiction of roads traversing mountainous terrain highlights which aspect of Inca state building?**

- (A) The reliance on maritime technologies for connectivity
- (B) The engineering prowess to integrate diverse regions
- (C) The rejection of centralized governance
- (D) The focus on urban isolation in the Andes

Correct Answer: (B) The engineering prowess to integrate diverse regions

Explanation: The roads' construction through challenging terrain demonstrates advanced engineering to unify the empire.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the Inca road system, as shown in the diagram, during the period c. 1200–1450?**

- (A) The centralization of economic and administrative control across the Andes
- (B) The decline of regional economies due to overland trade
- (C) The unification of the Americas with European trade networks
- (D) The restriction of trade to coastal regions only

Correct Answer: (A) The centralization of economic and administrative control across the Andes

Explanation: The road network radiating from Cuzco facilitated the movement of goods and administration, strengthening centralized control.

Topic 1.5: State Building in Africa (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from Ibn Battuta's "Rihla" (circa 1355):

"I reached the city of Mali, the capital of the king, who is called Mansa. He is the most powerful of the kings of the Sudan, and his city is full of merchants trading gold and salt. Mosques and schools flourish under his rule, and his governors ensure the safety of caravans, bringing wealth and learning to the kingdom."

****Source:**** Ibn Battuta, **The Travels of Ibn Battuta**, translated by H.A.R. Gibb, Cambridge University Press, 1958 (as cited in <https://www.britannica.com/place/Mali-empire>).

Questions

1. ****Based on the passage, the Mali Empire's state building was primarily supported by****

- (A) its isolation from trans-Saharan trade routes
- (B) its control over gold and salt trade and centralized governance
- (C) its reliance on maritime trade with East Africa
- (D) its rejection of Islamic institutions

****Correct Answer:** (B) its control over gold and salt trade and centralized governance******

***Explanation*:** The passage highlights the king's power, trade in gold and salt, and governors ensuring caravan safety, indicating centralized control over trade.

2. ****The flourishing of mosques and schools in Mali, as described in the passage, suggests that state building involved****

- (A) the suppression of Islamic culture to maintain local traditions
- (B) the patronage of Islamic institutions to enhance legitimacy
- (C) the decline of urban centers due to religious focus
- (D) the restriction of education to the royal court

****Correct Answer:** (B) the patronage of Islamic institutions to enhance legitimacy******

***Explanation*:** Mosques and schools under the king's rule indicate state support for Islamic institutions to bolster authority and cultural prestige.

3. ****The role of governors in ensuring caravan safety, as mentioned in the passage, contributed to****

- (A) the decline of trade due to heavy taxation

(B) the prosperity of the Mali Empire through secure trade routes

(C) the isolation of Mali from North African markets

(D) the militarization of trade routes to exclude foreigners

****Correct Answer:** (B) the prosperity of the Mali Empire through secure trade routes******

***Explanation*:** Safe caravans enabled trade, enriching Mali as described in the passage.

4. ****Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of state building in the Mali Empire, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1200–1450?***

(A) The integration of West Africa into trans-Saharan trade and Islamic networks

(B) The unification of Africa under a single empire

(C) The decline of trade due to religious conflicts

(D) The isolation of Mali from global cultural exchanges

****Correct Answer:** (A) The integration of West Africa into trans-Saharan trade and Islamic networks******

***Explanation*:** The passage emphasizes trade, Islamic institutions, and connectivity, showing Mali's role in broader networks.

Topic 1.6: Developments in Europe from c. 1200 to c. 1450 (Visual Stimulus)

****Visual Description:**** An illustration of a medieval European manor, c. 1300, showing a fortified manor house, a village with peasant homes, fields of wheat and barley, and a church collecting tithes. Workers are depicted laboring in the fields, while a lord oversees operations. The manor is surrounded by a wooden palisade, indicating local control within a feudal system.

****Source:**** Adapted from *Life in a Medieval Village* by Frances and Joseph Gies, Harper & Row, 1990 (as cited in <https://www.britannica.com/topic/manorialism>).

****Link to a Similar Resource**:** [Medieval Manor - British Library](<https://www.bl.uk/the-middle-ages/articles/life-in-a-medieval-village>)

Questions

1. ****Based on the illustration, the medieval European manor system was primarily characterized by****

- (A) centralized royal control over agricultural production
- (B) local lordship managing land and peasant labor
- (C) independent peasant communities with equal land ownership
- (D) urban-based trade economies

****Correct Answer: (B) local lordship managing land and peasant labor****

***Explanation*:** The illustration shows a lord overseeing workers in the fields, reflecting local control within the feudal manor system.

2. ****The church collecting tithes in the illustration suggests that the manor system supported****

- (A) the decline of religious institutions in rural areas
- (B) the integration of the church into the economic and social structure
- (C) the exclusion of peasants from religious practices
- (D) the shift of wealth to urban centers

****Correct Answer: (B) the integration of the church into the economic and social structure****

***Explanation*:** Tithes indicate the church's role in collecting resources, embedding it within the manor's economy.

3. ****The depiction of workers laboring in the fields under the lord's oversight highlights which aspect of European feudalism?****

- (A) The economic dependence of peasants on lords for land and protection
- (B) The equal distribution of labor among all manor residents
- (C) The promotion of social mobility through agricultural work
- (D) The reliance on merchant guilds for agricultural production

****Correct Answer: (A) The economic dependence of peasants on lords for land and protection****

Explanation: Workers under the lord's oversight reflect the feudal obligation of labor in exchange for land use.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the manor system, as shown in the illustration, during the period c. 1200–1450?**

- (A) The reinforcement of a hierarchical society based on land and labor obligations
- (B) The rise of centralized monarchies overriding local lords
- (C) The decline of agriculture due to urban migration
- (D) The unification of Europe under a single economic system

Correct Answer: (A) The reinforcement of a hierarchical society based on land and labor obligations

Explanation: The manor's structure, with lords, peasants, and the church, underscores the hierarchical feudal system.

Topic 1.7: Comparison in the Period from c. 1200 to c. 1450 (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from John Darwin's "After Tamerlane: The Rise and Fall of Global Empires, 1400–2000" (2008, discussing earlier periods):

"State formation in the 13th century varied widely. In China, the Song Dynasty used Confucian bureaucracy and the Grand Canal to centralize power. The Mali Empire in Africa leveraged gold trade and Islamic governance to unify its regions. In Europe, feudal monarchies like France relied on vassalage and land-based obligations, with local lords wielding significant authority."

Source: John Darwin, *After Tamerlane: The Rise and Fall of Global Empires, 1400–2000*, Bloomsbury Press, 2008 (as cited in <https://www.bloomsbury.com/us/after-tamerlane-9781596916029/>).

Questions

1. ****Based on the passage, which of the following best compares the economic foundations of state formation in the Song Dynasty and the Mali Empire?****

- (A) Both relied on maritime trade to centralize authority.
- (B) The Song used internal trade via canals, while Mali depended on trans-Saharan gold trade.
- (C) Both focused on agricultural self-sufficiency to exclude foreign trade.
- (D) The Mali Empire used canals, while the Song relied on gold exports.

****Correct Answer: (B) The Song used internal trade via canals, while Mali depended on trans-Saharan gold trade.****

***Explanation*:** The passage highlights the Song's Grand Canal for trade and Mali's gold trade, distinguishing their economic bases.

2. ****The passage suggests that a key similarity between the Mali Empire and European feudal monarchies was****

- (A) their use of religious or cultural systems to legitimize governance
- (B) their reliance on centralized bureaucracies for administration
- (C) their focus on maritime exploration for expansion
- (D) their rejection of local governance structures

****Correct Answer: (A) their use of religious or cultural systems to legitimize governance****

***Explanation*:** Mali's Islamic governance and Europe's feudal ties to the Church (implied in vassalage) show cultural legitimacy in state building.

3. ****According to the passage, how did the Song Dynasty's state formation differ from that of European feudal monarchies?****

- (A) The Song used a decentralized feudal system, while Europe centralized power.
- (B) The Song relied on Confucian bureaucracy, while Europe used vassalage and local lords.
- (C) The Song avoided trade, while Europe depended on it.
- (D) The Song rejected religious institutions, while Europe embraced them.

****Correct Answer: (B) The Song relied on Confucian bureaucracy, while Europe used vassalage and local lords.****

***Explanation*:** The passage contrasts the Song's centralized Confucian system with Europe's decentralized feudal structure.

4. ****Which of the following best illustrates a broader similarity in state formation across the Song, Mali, and European systems, as described in the passage?****

- (A) All three used economic and cultural mechanisms to consolidate power.
- (B) All three relied on maritime trade to unify their territories.
- (C) All three established fully decentralized governance structures.
- (D) All three rejected religious influences in state building.

****Correct Answer:** (A) All three used economic and cultural mechanisms to consolidate power.

***Explanation*:** The passage highlights economic systems (canals, gold trade, land obligations) and cultural elements (Confucianism, Islam, feudal ties) in state formation.

****Note**:** The visual stimuli include links to resources where similar maps or images can be accessed (e.g., National Geographic for the Inca road system and British Library for medieval manors). If you need assistance recreating the visuals or accessing specific resources, let me know, and I can provide further guidance!

Unit 2

Topic 2.1: The Silk Roads

Essential Question: What were the causes and effects of the growth of networks of exchange after 1200?

More than 1,300 years after the earliest recorded travels along the Silk Roads, these ancient overland routes—long dormant—revived during the 8th and 9th centuries. As the Italian merchant Francesco Balducci Pegolotti observed in the 14th century, the land routes remained vibrant and essential to interregional commerce well into the 1400s. Growing demand for luxury goods in Europe and Africa encouraged Chinese, Persian, and Indian artisans and merchants to expand production of textiles and porcelains. Caravans made long-distance travel safer and more feasible, while the Chinese introduced systems of paper money to manage expanding trade. Interregional commerce along the Silk Roads flourished once again.

Causes of the Growth of Exchange Networks

The Crusades helped stimulate renewed interest in Eastern goods. European lords and knights returned home with fabrics, spices, and other luxuries from the East, sparking greater demand. Despite Ottoman Turkish pressure on the Byzantine Empire, the Silk Roads land routes and Mediterranean and Indian Ocean sea routes continued to operate. China remained eager to acquire European gold and silver, while Europe grew increasingly hungry for Chinese silk, tea, and rhubarb. Global trade expanded even before Europeans discovered a sea route around the southern tip of Africa.

Rise of New Empires

After the fall of the classical Roman and Han empires, Silk Roads activity had declined sharply. By the 8th and 9th centuries, however, Arab merchants from the Abbasid Empire revived both the land routes and Indian Ocean sea routes. Tang China offered valuable goods and technologies to the revived network, including the compass, paper, and gunpowder. China exported porcelain, tea, and silk while importing cotton, precious stones, pomegranates, dates, horses, and grapes. These luxury items appealed strongly to China's upper classes, marking a second golden age of Silk Roads trade.

No development had a greater impact on expanding trade than the rise of the Mongol Empire. The Mongols conquered the Abbasid Caliphate in 1258 and brought China under their control in the 14th century. For the first time, sections of the Silk Roads previously controlled by different rulers came under a single authority that respected merchants and enforced laws. The Mongols improved roads and suppressed banditry, greatly increasing the safety of travel. New trade channels opened between Asia, the Middle East, Africa, and Europe. Those who survived the Mongol conquests benefited from the reinvigoration of routes that had seen little use since the era of the Roman and Han empires. (Further details on the Mongols appear in Topic 2.2.)

Improvements in Transportation Technologies

Travelers on the overland routes discovered that moving in groups (caravans) was far safer than traveling alone. They also developed improved camel saddles that allowed the animals to carry heavier loads. Earlier Chinese advances in naval technology proved equally important for sea-based trade in the South China Sea. During the Han Dynasty, Chinese innovators created the magnetic compass and refined the rudder, both of which aided navigation and ship control. The Chinese junk—a large vessel up to 400 feet long with multiple sails and a compartmentalized hull for strength and safety—far exceeded the size of typical Western European ships of the time.

Effects of the Growth of Exchange Networks

Two major effects of the expanded and stabilized Silk Roads were the rise of thriving trading cities and oases along the routes and the development of commercial and financial innovations that supported growing trade.

Cities and Oases

Long stretches of the overland routes crossed hot, arid lands where water was scarce. Cities located along rivers became prosperous trade centers. Kashgar, at the western edge of China where the northern and southern branches of the Silk Roads converged, sat at the meeting point of the Taklamakan Desert and the Tian Shan Mountains. Watered by the Kashgar River, the area supported wheat, rice, fruits, and cotton. Travelers depended on Kashgar for water and food. Local artisans produced textiles, rugs, leather goods, and pottery sold in busy markets. Originally a primarily Buddhist city, Kashgar also became an important center of Islamic scholarship.

Samarkand, in present-day Uzbekistan in the Zeravshan River valley, served as a key stopping point between China and the Mediterranean. It functioned as much as a center of cultural exchange as of commerce. Archaeological evidence reveals the presence of Christianity, Buddhism, Zoroastrianism, and Islam. Like Kashgar, Samarkand was renowned for its artisans as well as its centers of Islamic learning and elaborately decorated mosques.

Caravanserais

In addition to major cities, smaller inns known as caravanserais appeared roughly every 100 miles—the distance a camel could travel before needing water. At these facilities, travelers could rest themselves and their animals and sometimes exchange animals for fresh ones. The term “caravanserai” comes from Persian words meaning “caravan” and “palace.”

Commercial Innovations

To manage rising trade volumes, China developed new financial systems. Long a money economy, China found copper coins too cumbersome for everyday large transactions, so the government created a credit system called **flying cash**. Merchants could deposit paper money in one location under their name and withdraw the same amount elsewhere. These exchange points became models for the **banking houses** that emerged in European cities during the 1300s. At a banking house, a person could present a **bill of exchange**—a document promising payment of a fixed sum on a set future date—and receive the money. These innovations provided convenience and institutional stability that encouraged trade.

The Crusades had awakened European interest in Asian luxury goods. To obtain them, Europeans organized trade in their own resources. In the 13th century, cities in northern Germany and Scandinavia formed the **Hanseatic League**, a commercial alliance that controlled trade in the North and Baltic Seas. Member cities such as Lübeck, Hamburg, and Riga drove out pirates and monopolized trade in timber, grain, leather, and salted fish. League ships sailed around the Atlantic coast of Western Europe to Mediterranean ports, where they could acquire valuable goods from Arab caravans. The league lasted until the mid-17th century, when stronger national governments took over protection of merchants.

Increase in Demand

Rising European and African demand for luxury goods from Afro-Eurasia, China, Persia, and India prompted expanded production. Artisans increased output of silk, other textiles, and porcelains for export. In China, heightened demand also drove growth in iron and steel manufacturing, contributing to early proto-industrialization.

Vocabulary

- Magnetic compass
- Rudder
- Junk
- **Kashgar**
- Samarkand
- Caravanserai
- Flying cash
- Paper money
- Banking houses
- Bill of exchange
- Hanseatic League
- Mongol Empire

2.1 MCQ

TOPIC 2.1 The Silk Roads

Stimulus: Marco Polo on the City of Samarkand

Excerpt from Marco Polo's "The Travels of Marco Polo" (circa 1300):

"Samarkand is a great and noble city, where merchants from distant lands converge to trade silk, spices, and precious stones. The khan has built caravanserais along the routes, providing safety and rest for traders. Paper money, issued by the Great Khan, is used widely in the markets, accepted by all under penalty of law. The city thrives, its bazaars bustling with goods from East and West."

Source: Marco Polo, *The Travels of Marco Polo*, translated by Ronald Latham, Penguin Books, 1958.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, the growth of Samarkand as a trading city was primarily facilitated by which of the following?**
 - (A) Its isolation from major trade routes to protect local markets
 - (B) Its strategic location and infrastructure supporting Silk Road commerce
 - (C) Its reliance on agricultural production rather than trade
 - (D) Its establishment of a centralized monarchy to control trade

Correct Answer: (B) Its strategic location and infrastructure supporting Silk Road commerce

Explanation: The passage describes Samarkand as a hub for merchants trading along the Silk Roads, with caravanserais providing support, highlighting its strategic location and trade infrastructure.

2. **The use of paper money in Samarkand, as mentioned in the passage, reflects which broader commercial practice of the period c. 1200–1450?**
 - (A) The standardization of currency to facilitate long-distance trade
 - (B) The restriction of trade to local merchants using gold coins
 - (C) The reliance on barter systems in major trading cities
 - (D) The decline of commercial activity due to Mongol taxation

Correct Answer: (A) The standardization of currency to facilitate long-distance trade

Explanation: The passage notes that paper money, issued by the Great Khan, was widely accepted, indicating a standardized currency system that eased trade across the Mongol-controlled Silk Roads.

3. **The caravanserais described in the passage contributed to the growth of trading cities like Samarkand by**
 - (A) serving as military outposts to protect against invasions

- (B) providing safe havens for merchants to rest and exchange goods
- (C) restricting trade to only Mongol-approved merchants
- (D) promoting agricultural self-sufficiency in urban centers

Correct Answer: (B) providing safe havens for merchants to rest and exchange goods

Explanation: The passage explicitly states that caravanserais offered safety and rest for traders, supporting the flow of commerce and the growth of trading cities.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the growth of trading cities and commercial practices, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1200–1450?**

- (A) The decline of cultural exchanges due to increased trade regulations
- (B) The expansion of economic and cultural interactions across Eurasia
- (C) The isolation of trading cities from global trade networks
- (D) The unification of the Silk Roads under a single political authority

Correct Answer: (B) The expansion of economic and cultural interactions across Eurasia

Explanation: The passage describes Samarkand as a hub for diverse goods and merchants, facilitated by commercial innovations like paper money and caravanserais, which fostered broader economic and cultural exchanges along the Silk Roads.

Stimulus: Ibn Battuta on Silk Road Trade

Excerpt from Ibn Battuta's "Rihla" (circa 1355):

"In the markets of Bukhara, under the rule of the Mongol khans, I saw merchants from China trading fine silks and porcelain, while those from India brought spices and gems. The khans ensure the safety of the roads, allowing goods to flow to the lands of the Sultan of Delhi and the cities of Persia. The trade is brisk, with silks and spices prized above all, enriching the cities along the way."

Source: Ibn Battuta, *The Travels of Ibn Battuta*, translated by H.A.R. Gibb, Cambridge University Press, 1958.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, which of the following best identifies the states involved in the Silk Road trade described by Ibn Battuta?**

- (A) The Mongol Empire, China, India, and Persia
- (B) The Byzantine Empire, India, and the Mamluk Sultanate
- (C) The Song Dynasty, the Delhi Sultanate, and the Abbasid Caliphate
- (D) The Mali Empire, China, and the Ottoman Empire

Correct Answer: (A) The Mongol Empire, China, India, and Persia

Explanation: The passage mentions the Mongol khans, China (source of silks and porcelain), India (spices and gems), and Persia (a destination for goods), accurately identifying these regions as key

players in the Silk Road trade.

2. **The goods mentioned in the passage, such as silks, porcelain, spices, and gems, were significant in Silk Road trade because they**

(A) were primarily used for military purposes by the Mongol Empire
(B) were luxury items that drove economic exchange across regions
(C) were agricultural staples that supported local populations
(D) were restricted to religious ceremonies in trading cities

Correct Answer: (B) were luxury items that drove economic exchange across regions

Explanation: The passage highlights silks, porcelain, spices, and gems, which were high-value luxury goods that fueled long-distance trade and economic interactions along the Silk Roads.

3. **According to the passage, the Mongol Empire's role in facilitating Silk Road trade was primarily through**

(A) imposing strict trade regulations to control merchant activities
(B) ensuring the safety of trade routes to encourage commerce
(C) monopolizing the production of silk and porcelain
(D) limiting trade to only Mongol-controlled territories

Correct Answer: (B) ensuring the safety of trade routes to encourage commerce

Explanation: The passage explicitly states that the Mongol khans ensured the safety of the roads, which facilitated the flow of goods and merchants, a key factor in the Mongol Empire's support of Silk Road trade.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the involvement of multiple states and the trade of luxury goods, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1200–1450?**

(A) The decline of regional economies due to competition over trade routes
(B) The increased cultural and economic connectivity across Eurasia
(C) The unification of trading states under a single political authority
(D) The restriction of luxury goods to local markets within each state

Correct Answer: (B) The increased cultural and economic connectivity across Eurasia

Explanation: The passage describes diverse states (China, India, Persia, and the Mongol Empire) trading luxury goods like silk and spices, which fostered economic and cultural exchanges across Eurasia via the Silk Roads.

Topic 2.2: The Mongol Empire and the Making of the Modern World

Essential Question: How did Eurasian empires grow over time, and how did their expansion influence trade and communication?

In the 13th century, Mongol armies from Central Asia swept across much of Eurasia, leaving widespread destruction in their wake. Contemporary European writers such as Matthew Paris focused almost exclusively on the Mongols' reputation for slaughter and brutality. While that reputation was often well-earned, the Mongols' conquests also produced an unprecedented era of interregional connection and exchange—the largest continuous land empire in history and a period of revived trade that had not been seen in a thousand years.

The Mongols and Their Surroundings

In the 12th century, the Mongols were pastoral nomads living north of the Gobi Desert in East Asia. They herded goats and sheep, supplemented their diet through hunting and foraging, and lived in a harsh steppe environment that shaped a culture centered on horsemanship and martial valor. Both men and women were expected to become skilled riders, and courage in hunting and warfare was highly prized.

The Mongols were surrounded by rival tribes—the Tatars, Naimans, and Merkits—as well as the powerful Jurchen Jin Empire in northern China. They envied the greater wealth and access to luxury goods (silk, gold jewelry) enjoyed by societies closer to the Silk Roads.

Genghis Khan

Temujin (born 1162) spent his early life forging tribal alliances and defeating rivals one by one. He built strategic marriages, sometimes appointed talented non-family members to leadership positions, and was ruthless when necessary (including killing his own stepbrother). He viewed personal loyalty as the foundation of power.

In 1206, Temujin convened a *kuriltai* (assembly of Mongol chieftains) and was elected khan of the unified Mongol tribes. He took the title **Genghis Khan** ("ruler of all").

The Beginning of Conquest

In 1210 Genghis Khan attacked the Jin Empire, whose capital was Zhongdu (modern Beijing). He earned a terrifying reputation: resisters were slaughtered, and entire towns were sometimes wiped out after defeat. News of his brutality often prompted surrender before battle. By 1219 he had conquered the Kara Khitai Empire in Central Asia and the Islamic Khwarazm Empire farther west. At his death in 1227, his khanate stretched from the North China Sea to eastern Persia.

Genghis Khan at War

Mongol success rested on highly disciplined cavalry skilled with the short bow, an efficient command structure, and innovative tactics. Special units mapped terrain in advance. Armies sometimes used feigned retreats with a smaller force to lure enemies into ambushes by larger reserves. Genghis Khan sent emissaries demanding surrender; if refused, aristocrats were killed while skilled workers (craftspeople, literate individuals, engineers) were recruited or enslaved for labor and siege work. The Mongols rapidly adopted conquered peoples' military technologies, including improved siege towers and catapults from Chinese and Persian engineers. A pony-express-style messenger system using oral messages kept the vast empire connected.

Genghis Khan at Peace

Those expecting Genghis Khan to rule as brutally as he conquered were surprised. The 13th–14th centuries are often called the **Pax Mongolica** (Mongolian Peace). He established his capital at Karakorum and consulted Chinese and Islamic scholars and engineers when building the city and government. He may have constructed more bridges than any ruler in history. His policy of religious tolerance was unusually liberal for the era. His soldiers protected the Silk Roads, ushering in a third golden age of trade and opening new channels between Asia, the Middle East, Africa, and Europe. He also directed the adaptation of the Uyghur alphabet to write Mongol (still used in Mongolia today).

Expansion of the Mongol Empire

Three of Genghis Khan's grandsons established separate khanates, further expanding the empire.

Batu and the Golden Horde

In 1236 Batu (son of Genghis Khan's eldest son) led ~100,000 troops into Russia, then a loose collection of city-states. His forces, known as the **Golden Horde**, conquered the Russian principalities and imposed tribute; Kiev was sacked in 1240. The Golden Horde pushed farther west, defeating Polish, German, and French knights in 1241 and Hungarian forces soon after. A planned advance into Italy and Austria was halted by the death of the Great Khan Ögödei; Batu returned for the succession struggle and never resumed the western campaign.

The Mongols ruled northern Russia indirectly through existing Russian princes who collected and delivered tribute. Moscow's rulers collected extra tribute, built an army, and forged an anti-Mongol coalition among Russian city-states. In 1380 this coalition defeated the Golden Horde at the Battle of Kulikovo. Mongol influence in Russia declined thereafter; by the mid-16th century Russia had defeated most descendant khans (the Crimean Tatars held out until the late 18th century).

The Mongol invasions devastated Russia but prompted improvements in military organization and acceptance of more centralized leadership. Three centuries of Mongol rule severed Russia's ties with much of Western Europe, fostering a more distinctly Russian culture and laying groundwork for the modern Russian state.

Hulegu and the Islamic Heartlands

Hulegu, another grandson, led campaigns into the Abbasid territories. In 1258 his forces destroyed Baghdad and killed the caliph along with perhaps 200,000 residents. The Mongols continued westward but were defeated in 1260 in Palestine by a temporary alliance of Muslim Mamluks (under Baibars) and Christian Crusaders, both of whom saw the Mongols as a grave threat.

Hulegu's **Il-khanate** stretched from Byzantium to the Oxus (Amu Darya) River. Mongols ruled, but Persians served as ministers and local officials to maximize tax collection. Hulegu and most Mongols in the Il-khanate eventually converted to Islam. Before conversion they had tolerated all religions; afterward they supported massacres of Jews and Christians.

Kublai Khan and the Yuan Dynasty

In the east, Kublai Khan (another grandson) spent 1235–1271 conquering Song China—the most formidable opponent the Mongols faced. In 1260 he became Great Khan; in 1271 he defeated the Song and founded the **Yuan Dynasty**. He rebuilt the destroyed capital Zhongdu as Dadu (Beijing) and governed more in the Chinese style than through strict Mongol practices. He maintained religious tolerance, winning support from Buddhists,

Daoists, Muslims, Jews, and Christians who had faced discrimination under the Song. His rule brought initial prosperity through cultural exchange and expanded trade, including with Europe.

Mongol women enjoyed greater independence than women in many contemporary societies. They herded animals, rode horses (wearing the same leather trousers as men), could remarry after widowhood, and could initiate divorce.

Mongols Lose Power

Over time Yuan rulers alienated the Chinese scholar-gentry by hiring foreigners instead of native Chinese, promoting Buddhists and Daoists, and abolishing the civil service examination system. Mongols remained socially separate and prohibited non-Mongols from speaking Mongolian. Military failures—unsuccessful invasions of Japan, Indochina, Burma, and Java beginning in 1274—further undermined their aura of invincibility.

In the 1350s the secret **White Lotus Society** began organizing resistance. In 1368 Zhu Yuanzhang, a Buddhist monk from a poor peasant family, led a successful revolt that overthrew the Yuan and founded the Ming Dynasty (1368–1644). Parallel declines occurred elsewhere: the Golden Horde lost most territory by ~1369, and Central Asian lands fell to Tamerlane (Timur the Lame).

Long-Term Impact of the Mongol Invasions

The Mongol conquests had profound and mixed consequences:

- They created the largest continuous land empire in history and left a well-earned reputation for brutality.
- During the **Pax Mongolica** (c. 1250–c. 1350) they revitalized interregional trade across Asia, the Middle East, Africa, and Europe by building and protecting roads and trade routes.
- Cultural and technological exchange flourished: Islamic scientific knowledge reached China; Chinese paper enabled the Gutenberg printing revolution in Europe; Greco-Islamic medical knowledge and the Arabic numeral system spread to Western Europe.
- The conquests inadvertently helped transmit the fleas carrying the bubonic plague (Black Death) from southern China along trade and military routes to Central Asia, Southeast Asia, and Europe.
- Mongol emphasis on centralized power and a single international law influenced later states in Europe, Asia, and Southeast Asia.
- Mongol tactics of speed and surprise, combined with advanced siege technology, ended the dominance of heavily armored European knights and rendered traditional walled cities obsolete. The cannon may have originated as a Mongol synthesis of Chinese gunpowder, Muslim flamethrowers, and European bell-casting techniques.

Vocabulary

- Mongols
- Kuriltai
- Genghis Khan
- Khanates
- Pax Mongolica
- Hulegu
- Il-khanate
- Batu
- Golden Horde

- Moscow
- Kublai Khan
- Yuan Dynasty
- Zhu Yuanzhang
- Ming Dynasty
- Siege weapons
- Cannon
- Uyghur alphabet
- Gobi Desert
- White Lotus Society
- Bubonic plague

2.2 MCQ

Stimulus 1: Marco Polo's Description of the Great Khan's Palace

Excerpt from Marco Polo's "The Travels of Marco Polo" (circa 1300):

"The palace of the Great Khan is the largest that was ever seen. The hall is so vast that it could easily dine 6,000 people. The number of chambers is incredible. The outside is painted with such beautiful colors that it is a delight to see. The whole building is so immense and so well constructed that no man in the world could have done better."

Questions:

1. The description of the Great Khan's palace primarily illustrates which of the following aspects of the Yuan Dynasty?
(A) The military strength of the Mongol Empire
(B) The cultural assimilation of the Mongols into Chinese society
(C) The economic prosperity and architectural achievements under Mongol rule
(D) The religious tolerance of the Mongol rulers

Answer: (C) The economic prosperity and architectural achievements under Mongol rule

Explanation: The passage emphasizes the immense size, beauty, and construction quality of the Great Khan's palace, highlighting the Yuan Dynasty's wealth and architectural prowess.

2. Marco Polo's account of his travels to China is significant because it
(A) provided Europeans with detailed information about East Asia, stimulating interest in trade and exploration
(B) led to the establishment of direct diplomatic relations between European states and the Yuan Dynasty
(C) encouraged the spread of Christianity in China through missionary activities
(D) resulted in the Mongol conquest of Europe

Answer: (A) provided Europeans with detailed information about East Asia, stimulating interest in trade and exploration

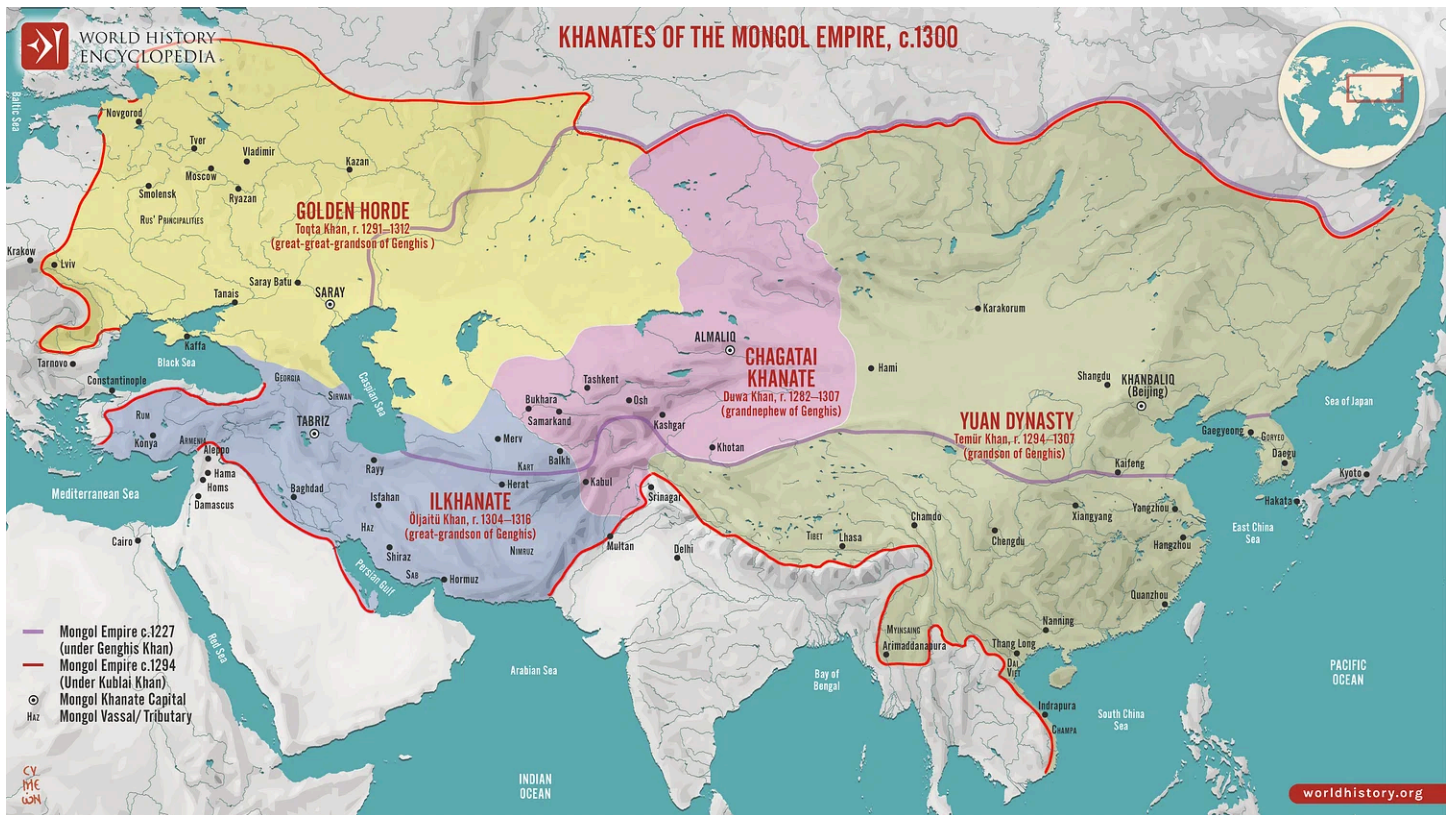
Explanation: Marco Polo's *Travels* introduced Europeans to the wealth and culture of the Yuan Dynasty, inspiring later trade and exploration (e.g., Age of Exploration).

3. The Yuan Dynasty's ability to construct such grand palaces was most directly facilitated by
(A) the exploitation of slave labor from conquered territories
(B) the adoption of advanced architectural techniques from the Middle East
(C) the wealth generated from control over the Silk Road trade routes
(D) the implementation of a centralized bureaucratic system

Answer: (C) the wealth generated from control over the Silk Road trade routes

Explanation: The Yuan Dynasty's control over the Silk Road facilitated immense wealth, enabling grand projects like the Great Khan's palace. While slave labor (A) and bureaucracy (D) played roles, wealth from trade was the primary driver.

Stimulus 2: Map of the Mongol Empire circa 1300



A map depicting the Mongol Empire circa 1300, showing its division into four khanates: the Yuan Dynasty in China, the Ilkhanate in Persia, the Chagatai Khanate in Central Asia, and the Golden Horde in Russia.

Questions:

1. The division of the Mongol Empire into four khanates primarily resulted from
(A) the need to administer a vast territory with diverse populations
(B) religious differences among the Mongol rulers
(C) conflicts over succession following Genghis Khan's death
(D) pressure from neighboring empires to decentralize power

Answer: (A) the need to administer a vast territory with diverse populations

Explanation: The Mongol Empire's division into four khanates (Yuan, Ilkhanate, Chagatai, Golden Horde) was primarily due to the administrative challenges of governing a vast empire spanning diverse regions and peoples, requiring regional khanates to manage effectively.

2. Which of the following was a significant consequence of the Mongol Empire's control over much of Eurasia?
(A) The spread of the Black Death along trade routes
(B) The decline of nomadic lifestyles in favor of settled agriculture

- (C) The unification of China under a single dynasty after centuries of division
- (D) The establishment of permanent diplomatic relations between Europe and East Asia

Answer: (A) The spread of the Black Death along trade routes

Explanation: The Mongol Empire's control over Eurasia facilitated trade and movement along the Silk Road, inadvertently spreading the Black Death (plague) in the mid-14th century. Nomadic lifestyles persisted

3. The Mongol Empire's impact on trade during the period circa 1200–1450 is best characterized as
- (A) facilitating increased trade across Eurasia through the protection of trade routes
 - (B) restricting trade to only those regions directly under Mongol control
 - (C) promoting maritime trade at the expense of overland routes
 - (D) leading to the decline of the Silk Road due to constant warfare

Answer: (A) facilitating increased trade across Eurasia through the protection of trade routes

Explanation: The Mongol Empire's Pax Mongolica ensured the safety of Silk Road trade routes, boosting commerce across Eurasia.

Topic 2.3: Exchange in the Indian Ocean

Essential Question: What were the causes and effects of the growth of networks of exchange after 1200, and how did environmental knowledge support that expansion?

A saying attributed to the Prophet Muhammad encourages Muslims to “seek knowledge, even to China.” This guidance helps explain why the Muslim world (Dar al-Islam) functioned as one of history’s first truly global empires, linking societies from North Africa to South Asia through trade. Even before large-scale missionary activity or military conquest spread Islam, Arab merchants had been traveling to South Asia for centuries in search of trading partners. Their commercial networks, combined with advances in sailing technology and deep knowledge of the Indian Ocean environment, transformed the Indian Ocean Basin into a vibrant economic zone during the Postclassical Era.

Causes of Expanded Exchange in the Indian Ocean

South Asia’s central location in the Indian Ocean gave it enormous advantages in the **Indian Ocean Basin** trade. While some causes overlapped with those of the overland Silk Roads, others were specific to maritime travel and environmental understanding.

Spread of Islam

Although Indian Ocean trade dates back to at least 200 B.C.E., the expansion of Islam connected far more cities and regions than ever before. Trading partners emerged across East Africa, East and Southeast Asia, and South Asia. Muslim Persian and Arab seafarers became the dominant carriers of goods across the ocean. On India’s west coast, cities such as **Calicut** and **Cambay** flourished through interactions with merchants from East Africa and Southwest Asia. Calicut in particular became a bustling hub where Arab and Chinese merchants exchanged goods from the West and East. Local rulers welcomed these traders because they brought wealth and elevated the city’s status in the broader Indian Ocean network.

Increased Demand for Specialized Products

As trade grew, demand rose for region-specific goods:

- India supplied high-quality cotton fabrics, intricately woven carpets, high-carbon steel (for knives and swords), tanned leather, artisan stonework, and pepper from its southern coasts.
- The islands of modern Malaysia and Indonesia—known as the **Spice Islands**—exported nutmeg, cinnamon, cloves, and cardamom.
- Swahili coastal cities such as Mombasa, Mogadishu, and Sofala supplied enslaved people, ivory, and gold, along with exotic items like tortoise shells, peacock feathers, and rhinoceros horns.
- China exported silk and porcelain (so prized in the West that fine dishes are still called “china”).
- Southwest Asia provided horses, figs, and dates.

A long-running slave trade operated in the eastern part of Africa. Enslaved people from eastern Africa were transported overland or by sea to northern Africa, the Middle East, India, and islands such as Madagascar. This trade peaked in the 18th and 19th centuries. Unlike the later Atlantic slave trade, those in the Indian Ocean system were more often used in seaports, shipping, households, as sailors, or even as soldiers. They lived in towns or cities, had greater opportunity to form communities, and in Islamic societies possessed certain rights (including the right to marry). As a result, African words, musical styles, and customs appear in places such as Oman and India.

Environmental Knowledge

Successful navigation depended on understanding the **monsoon winds**. In winter, winds blew from the northeast; in spring and summer, they came from the southwest. Merchants had to time their voyages precisely and often remained in port cities for months while waiting for favorable winds.

Advances in Maritime Technology

Sailors needed sturdy vessels capable of handling the Indian Ocean's variable winds. Arab sailors popularized triangular **lateen sails**, effective at catching winds from many directions. Chinese innovations from the classical period, including the **stern rudder**, provided greater stability and maneuverability. Small wooden **dhows** used by Arab and Indian sailors dominated Postclassical Era shipping. Sailing technology spread rapidly among the many lands bordering the Indian Ocean. Muslim navigators in the 12th century improved the **astrolabe**, enabling sailors to determine their latitude relative to the equator.

Growth of States

Thriving trade encouraged the rise of states that could tax and protect commerce. The Muslim city-state of **Malacca** (Melaka) grew wealthy by building a navy and collecting fees from ships passing through the strategic Strait of Malacca. In the 1400s the Sultan of Malacca expanded his control into Sumatra and the southern Malay Peninsula. Like other trade-based city-states in East Africa, Italy, and the Americas, Malacca's prosperity rested on commerce rather than agriculture or manufacturing. Portuguese forces invaded and captured the city in 1511, hoping to monopolize the India–China trade route. They extracted great wealth but also triggered regional conflicts that prompted traders to diversify their routes and ports.

Effects of Expanded Exchange in the Indian Ocean

Many of the same factors that caused trade to expand also produced lasting effects.

Diasporic Communities

Merchants who waited months for favorable winds often interacted deeply with local populations. Many Arab and East African merchants settled permanently in western Indian port cities after marrying local women; through intermarriage they became the first to bring Islam to southern Asia—not through conquest or missionary work, but through family ties. Their children were typically raised in Muslim traditions. Arab and Persian merchants also settled in East Africa. These **diaspora** communities introduced their own cultural traditions while absorbing influences from host societies. Similar merchant diasporas appeared elsewhere in the world.

Response to Increased Demand

Rising demand encouraged producers to increase efficiency in agriculture, textiles, and iron manufacturing. States expanded their roles in overseeing production and collecting revenue through customs duties and port fees. The western Indian Rajput kingdom of Gujarat became a key intermediary in East–West trade; its customs revenue far exceeded the total wealth of some European states.

Swahili City-States

Along the East African coast, trade created prosperous city-states known collectively as the Swahili city-states (from the Arabic for “coasters”). Centers such as Kilwa, Mombasa, and Zanzibar exported ivory, gold, enslaved people, and exotic goods to Arab partners while importing Chinese porcelain, Indian cotton, and ironwork.

Chinese porcelain remains a common archaeological find in these ruins. Wealth from trade led to impressive stone and coral construction for mosques and merchants' homes, replacing earlier mud-and-clay buildings.

Significant Cultural Transfers

Intensified trade facilitated the movement of knowledge, culture, technology, commerce, and religion. The voyages of the Muslim admiral **Zheng He** (1371–1433) under the Ming emperor Yongle exemplify both the benefits and tensions of these exchanges. Between 1405 and 1433, Zheng He led seven major expeditions with fleets of more than 300 ships carrying up to 28,000 people. He visited Indonesia, Ceylon (Sri Lanka), Arabia, the East African coast, and the Cape of Good Hope. The voyages displayed Ming power, secured tribute, opened new markets for Chinese goods, and brought back exotic items (including the first giraffe seen in China). They also inspired some Chinese to immigrate to Southeast Asia.

The expeditions were controversial within China. Confucian values favored a stable agrarian society, and many scholars viewed extensive foreign contact as a threat to social order or considered other cultures inferior. The voyages were also expensive. After Yongle's death, his successor Zhu Gaozhi ended the expeditions, banned the construction of large ships, and discouraged Chinese from sailing abroad. While the voyages temporarily suppressed piracy off China's coast and in Southeast Asia, pirate activity resumed once Chinese naval presence withdrew.

Vocabulary

- Malacca
- Gujarat
- Swahili city-states
- Calicut
- Spice Islands
- Indian Ocean Basin
- Monsoon winds
- Lateen sails
- Stern post rudder
- Astrolabe
- Indian Ocean slave trade
- Diaspora
- Zheng He

2.3 MCQ

Stimulus: Al-Bakri on Trans-Saharan Trade in the Mali Empire

Excerpt from Al-Bakri's "Book of Routes and Realms" (circa 1068, widely referenced through the 13th century):

"The kingdom of Mali thrives on the trade of gold, which flows from its mines to the markets of the north. Caravans cross the Sahara, carrying salt from Taghaza to exchange for gold in the south. The king, a Muslim, ensures the safety of these routes, and his patronage of mosques and scholars draws learned men from distant Islamic lands, enriching the cities of Timbuktu and Gao."

Source: Al-Bakri, *Book of Routes and Realms*, translated by Nehemia Levtzion and J.F.P. Hopkins, *Corpus of Early Arabic Sources for West African History*, Cambridge University Press, 1981.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, which of the following was a primary cause of the growth of trans-Saharan trade in the Mali Empire?**

- (A) The development of maritime trade routes bypassing the Sahara
- (B) The abundance of gold and the demand for salt in West Africa
- (C) The establishment of a centralized military state in the Sahara
- (D) The decline of Islamic influence in North African markets

Correct Answer: (B) The abundance of gold and the demand for salt in West Africa

Explanation: The passage highlights the trade of gold from Mali's mines for salt from Taghaza, indicating that the availability of these valuable resources was a key driver of trans-Saharan trade growth.

2. **According to the passage, the Mali king's role in ensuring the safety of trade routes primarily contributed to which effect of trans-Saharan trade?**

- (A) The isolation of West African economies from global trade networks
- (B) The increased prosperity and connectivity of Mali's trading cities
- (C) The decline of urban centers like Timbuktu and Gao
- (D) The restriction of trade to only Muslim merchants

Correct Answer: (B) The increased prosperity and connectivity of Mali's trading cities

Explanation: The passage notes that the king's protection of trade routes enriched cities like Timbuktu and Gao, showing that secure routes led to greater prosperity and trade connections.

3. **The passage's mention of the king's patronage of mosques and scholars suggests that a significant effect of trans-Saharan trade was**
- (A) the spread of Islamic culture and learning in West Africa
 - (B) the rejection of Islamic practices in favor of local traditions
 - (C) the decline of religious institutions in trading cities
 - (D) the restriction of scholarly activity to North African centers

Correct Answer: (A) the spread of Islamic culture and learning in West Africa

Explanation: The passage describes the king's support for mosques and scholars drawing learned men, indicating that trans-Saharan trade facilitated the spread of Islamic culture and intellectual activity in Mali.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the growth of trans-Saharan trade, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1200–1450?**
- (A) The unification of West Africa under a single Islamic empire
 - (B) The integration of West Africa into wider Islamic and global trade networks
 - (C) The decline of gold and salt trade due to competition with maritime routes
 - (D) The isolation of Mali from cultural exchanges with North Africa

Correct Answer: (B) The integration of West Africa into wider Islamic and global trade networks

Explanation: The passage highlights the trade of gold and salt, the king's Islamic patronage, and the attraction of scholars, showing how trans-Saharan trade connected Mali to broader Islamic and global economic and cultural networks.

Stimulus: Al-Umari on Trans-Saharan Caravans

Excerpt from Al-Umari's "Masalik al-Absar" (circa 1340):

"The merchants of the Sahara cross the desert with caravans of camels, each beast carrying heavy loads of salt and cloth to trade for gold in the markets of Mali. Caravanserais, built at oases, provide water and rest for these travelers, ensuring their safety. Bills of exchange are used to settle debts across distant cities, easing trade and enriching the kingdom."

Source: Al-Umari, *Masalik al-Absar fi Mamalik al-Amsar*, translated by J.F.P. Hopkins, *Corpus of Early Arabic Sources for West African History*, Cambridge University Press, 1981.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, which transportation technology most directly facilitated the growth of trans-Saharan trade?**
- (A) The use of wheeled carts for transporting heavy goods
 - (B) The employment of camels to carry loads across the desert

- (C) The development of maritime ships for coastal trade
- (D) The construction of paved roads across the Sahara

Correct Answer: (B) The employment of camels to carry loads across the desert

Explanation: The passage specifically mentions camels carrying heavy loads of salt and cloth, highlighting their critical role as a transportation technology that enabled long-distance trade across the Sahara.

2. The caravanserais described in the passage contributed to trans-Saharan trade by

- (A) serving as military outposts to defend against nomadic raids
- (B) providing rest stops that supported the safety and efficiency of caravan travel
- (C) restricting trade to only local merchants at oases
- (D) promoting agricultural production in desert regions

Correct Answer: (B) providing rest stops that supported the safety and efficiency of caravan travel

Explanation: The passage notes that caravanserais provided water and rest at oases, indicating their role in supporting safe and efficient travel for traders crossing the desert.

3. According to the passage, the use of bills of exchange in trans-Saharan trade was significant because it

- (A) standardized currency across all trading cities
- (B) facilitated commercial transactions over long distances
- (C) replaced the use of gold and salt as trade goods
- (D) limited trade to only Islamic merchants

Correct Answer: (B) facilitated commercial transactions over long distances

Explanation: The passage describes bills of exchange used to settle debts across distant cities, indicating their role as a commercial practice that eased long-distance trade by reducing the need to carry physical currency.

4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of improved transportation technologies and commercial practices, as described in the passage, on trans-Saharan trade during the period c. 1200–1450?

- (A) They isolated West African economies from global trade networks
- (B) They enhanced the connectivity and economic prosperity of West African kingdoms
- (C) They led to the decline of urban centers like Timbuktu
- (D) They restricted trade to only short-distance regional exchanges

Correct Answer: (B) They enhanced the connectivity and economic prosperity of West African kingdoms

Explanation: The passage highlights camels, caravanserais, and bills of exchange enabling trade in goods like gold and salt, which connected and enriched West African kingdoms like Mali within broader trans-Saharan networks.

Topic 2.4: Trans-Saharan Trade Routes

Essential Question: What were the causes and effects of Trans-Saharan trade, and how did the growth of empires influence trade and communication?

While the East African coast had long supported settled populations, the vast **Sahara Desert** remained sparsely inhabited because its arid conditions made agriculture nearly impossible. Nomadic groups conducted limited trade across the desert for centuries, but the volume of commerce increased dramatically after Muslim merchants arrived in the 7th and 8th centuries. When powerful empires such as Mali emerged in the early 1200s, trade expanded even further. As the 14th-century traveler Ibn Battuta observed, merchants moved goods using large camel caravans, exchanging African gold, ivory, hides, and enslaved people for Arab and Berber salt, cloth, paper, and horses.

Trans-Saharan Trade

The Sahara Desert covers roughly 3.6 million square miles—about the size of China. Only about 800 square miles consist of **oases**, where underground water reaches the surface and supports human settlement and agriculture. Some oases form naturally; others rely on wells dug by people.

Camels, Saddles, and Trade

Muslim merchants from Southwest Asia crossed the Sahara using camels, animals native to the Arabian Desert that had appeared in North Africa by the 3rd century B.C.E. Camels adapted exceptionally well to desert conditions. Compared with horses, they can drink enormous quantities of water at once (over 50 gallons in three minutes) and then travel long distances without needing more. After 300 C.E., camels gradually replaced horses and donkeys for desert travel.

As camel use spread, people developed as many as 15 specialized saddle designs. South Arabian saddles positioned the rider behind the hump for easier riding. North Arabian saddles placed the rider atop the hump for better visibility in battle. North African designs positioned the rider in front of the hump for maximum control. The most important innovation for trade came from the Somalis of East Africa: a load-bearing saddle that allowed camels to carry up to 600 pounds. Without this design, camels could not have transported the heavy volumes of goods that made large-scale trans-Saharan commerce possible.

Caravans and Trade Routes

Caravans crossing the Sahara often included thousands of camels carrying both trade goods and supplies of food and water sufficient to reach the next oasis. Caravan leaders typically walked the entire distance. There were seven main north-south routes and two east-west routes across the desert. These routes brought Sub-Saharan Africa into contact with a growing number of cultures and trading partners.

By the end of the 8th century, **trans-Saharan trade** had become well known throughout Europe and Asia. Gold was the most valuable commodity. West African merchants obtained it from the Senegal River region (near modern Senegal and Mauritania). Foreign traders sought not only gold but also ivory and enslaved people. In exchange, they offered salt, textiles, and horses. For more than 700 years, this trade brought substantial wealth to West African societies, especially the kingdoms of Ghana and Mali. It also facilitated the spread of Islam into Sub-Saharan Africa.

West African Empire Expansion

By the 12th century, repeated wars with neighboring societies had permanently weakened Ghana. (See Topic 1.5.) In its place arose new trading states, the most powerful of which was **Mali**. North African traders had introduced Islam to the region as early as the 9th century.

Mali's Riches

Mali's government profited enormously from the gold trade but also taxed nearly all other commerce entering West Africa. This made Mali even wealthier than Ghana had been. Most Malians were farmers who grew sorghum and rice, but the great cities of **Timbuktu** and Gao accumulated the greatest wealth and became centers of Muslim life. Timbuktu in particular emerged as a world-famous center of Islamic learning. By the 1500s, books produced and sold there commanded higher prices than most other goods.

Expanding Role of States

Growing trade and wealth required stronger administration. Rulers needed a widely accepted currency (in Mali this included cowrie shells, cotton cloth, gold, glass beads, and salt) and protection for trade routes and resource areas. Empires sometimes expanded militarily to control resource-rich territories, using horses and iron weapons purchased with tax revenue. Each expansion drew more people into the empire's economy and trade networks, exposing them to distant cultures.

Mali's founder, **Sundiata**, became legendary. After rivals killed most of his royal family and seized the throne, the young crippled prince was spared because he was not considered a threat. In exile he grew strong, trained as a warrior, and in 1235 returned as "the Lion Prince," defeated his enemies, and reclaimed the throne. Most scholars believe Sundiata was Muslim and used religious connections to build trade relationships with North African and Arab merchants. Under his leadership, Mali's gold trade flourished and the kingdom's wealth increased dramatically.

Mansa Musa

In the 14th century, Sundiata's grand-nephew **Mansa Musa** brought even greater fame to Mali. A devout Muslim, he undertook a famous pilgrimage to Mecca in 1324. His caravan was extraordinarily lavish—reportedly including 100 camels, thousands of enslaved people and soldiers, and gold distributed as gifts along the route. The display astonished observers and publicized Mali's wealth to the wider Islamic world.

Mansa Musa's hajj deepened his commitment to Islam. Upon returning, he founded religious schools in Timbuktu, built mosques in Muslim trading cities, and sponsored further religious study. Although most West Africans retained traditional beliefs, his reign significantly strengthened Islamic influence in Mali. Within a century of his death, however, Mali declined. By the late 1400s the **Songhai Kingdom** had replaced it as the dominant power in West Africa, following similar processes of expansion and enrichment. Despite Mali's fall, Mansa Musa's efforts ensured that Islam retained a prominent place in the region.

Vocabulary

- Mali
- Sundiata
- Mansa Musa
- Songhai Kingdom
- Timbuktu
- Mecca
- Trans-Saharan trade
- Sahara Desert

- Arabian Desert
- Camel saddle

2.4 MCQ

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Questions

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- (B) The abundance of gold and the demand for salt in West Africa
- (C) The establishment of a centralized military state in the Sahara
- (D) The decline of Islamic influence in North African markets

Correct Answer: (B) The abundance of gold and the demand for salt in West Africa

Explanation: The passage highlights the trade of gold from Mali's mines for salt from Taghaza, indicating that the availability of these valuable resources was a key driver of trans-Saharan trade growth.

2. **According to the passage, the Mali king's role in ensuring the safety of trade routes primarily contributed to which effect of trans-Saharan trade?**

- (A) The isolation of West African economies from global trade networks
- (B) The increased prosperity and connectivity of Mali's trading cities
- (C) The decline of urban centers like Timbuktu and Gao
- (D) The restriction of trade to only Muslim merchants

Correct Answer: (B) The increased prosperity and connectivity of Mali's trading cities

Explanation: The passage notes that the king's protection of trade routes enriched cities like Timbuktu and Gao, showing that secure routes led to greater prosperity and trade connections.

3. **The passage's mention of the king's patronage of mosques and scholars suggests that a significant effect of trans-Saharan trade was**
- (A) the spread of Islamic culture and learning in West Africa
 - (B) the rejection of Islamic practices in favor of local traditions
 - (C) the decline of religious institutions in trading cities
 - (D) the restriction of scholarly activity to North African centers

Correct Answer: (A) the spread of Islamic culture and learning in West Africa

Explanation: The passage describes the king's support for mosques and scholars drawing learned men, indicating that trans-Saharan trade facilitated the spread of Islamic culture and intellectual activity in Mali.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the growth of trans-Saharan trade, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1200–1450?**
- (A) The unification of West Africa under a single Islamic empire
 - (B) The integration of West Africa into wider Islamic and global trade networks
 - (C) The decline of gold and salt trade due to competition with maritime routes
 - (D) The isolation of Mali from cultural exchanges with North Africa

Correct Answer: (B) The integration of West Africa into wider Islamic and global trade networks

Explanation: The passage highlights the trade of gold and salt, the king's Islamic patronage, and the attraction of scholars, showing how trans-Saharan trade connected Mali to broader Islamic and global economic and cultural networks.

Stimulus: Al-Umari on Trans-Saharan Caravans

Excerpt from Al-Umari's "Masalik al-Absar" (circa 1340):

"The merchants of the Sahara cross the desert with caravans of camels, each beast carrying heavy loads of salt and cloth to trade for gold in the markets of Mali. Caravanserais, built at oases, provide water and rest for these travelers, ensuring their safety. Bills of exchange are used to settle debts across distant cities, easing trade and enriching the kingdom."

Source: Al-Umari, *Masalik al-Absar fi Mamalik al-Amsar*, translated by J.F.P. Hopkins, *Corpus of Early Arabic Sources for West African History*, Cambridge University Press, 1981.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, which transportation technology most directly facilitated the growth of trans-Saharan trade?**
- (A) The use of wheeled carts for transporting heavy goods
 - (B) The employment of camels to carry loads across the desert

- (C) The development of maritime ships for coastal trade
- (D) The construction of paved roads across the Sahara

Correct Answer: (B) The employment of camels to carry loads across the desert

Explanation: The passage specifically mentions camels carrying heavy loads of salt and cloth, highlighting their critical role as a transportation technology that enabled long-distance trade across the Sahara.

2. The caravanserais described in the passage contributed to trans-Saharan trade by

- (A) serving as military outposts to defend against nomadic raids
- (B) providing rest stops that supported the safety and efficiency of caravan travel
- (C) restricting trade to only local merchants at oases
- (D) promoting agricultural production in desert regions

Correct Answer: (B) providing rest stops that supported the safety and efficiency of caravan travel

Explanation: The passage notes that caravanserais provided water and rest at oases, indicating their role in supporting safe and efficient travel for traders crossing the desert.

3. According to the passage, the use of bills of exchange in trans-Saharan trade was significant because it

- (A) standardized currency across all trading cities
- (B) facilitated commercial transactions over long distances
- (C) replaced the use of gold and salt as trade goods
- (D) limited trade to only Islamic merchants

Correct Answer: (B) facilitated commercial transactions over long distances

Explanation: The passage describes bills of exchange used to settle debts across distant cities, indicating their role as a commercial practice that eased long-distance trade by reducing the need to carry physical currency.

4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of improved transportation technologies and commercial practices, as described in the passage, on trans-Saharan trade during the period c. 1200–1450?

- (A) They isolated West African economies from global trade networks
- (B) They enhanced the connectivity and economic prosperity of West African kingdoms
- (C) They led to the decline of urban centers like Timbuktu
- (D) They restricted trade to only short-distance regional exchanges

Correct Answer: (B) They enhanced the connectivity and economic prosperity of West African kingdoms

Explanation: The passage highlights camels, caravanserais, and bills of exchange enabling trade in goods like gold and salt, which connected and enriched West African kingdoms like Mali within broader trans-Saharan networks.

2.5

Topic 2.5: Cultural Consequences of Connectivity

Essential Question: What were the intellectual and cultural effects of the trade networks from c. 1200 to c. 1450?

Between roughly 1200 and 1450, goods, people, and ideas moved with relative freedom across Afro-Eurasia. Caravan routes through the Sahara and Gobi deserts, as well as maritime routes on the China Sea and Indian Ocean, connected distant societies. One major reason for this increased exchange was the stability provided by the Mongol Empire, which protected merchants and travelers across vast territories. Technological innovations such as gunpowder and paper from China spread widely through these networks. Travelers including Marco Polo and Ibn Battuta documented the wonders they encountered, expanding Europeans' and others' understanding of the wider world.

Religious, Cultural, and Technological Effects of Interaction

The diffusion of religions during this period had varied impacts. In some regions, a new religion helped unify populations and legitimize rulers. It often shaped local literature and art, introducing new themes, subjects, and styles. In other places, incoming religions blended with or coexisted alongside indigenous traditions. The interactions fostered by expanded trade also drove technological innovations that defined the era.

Influence of Buddhism on East Asian Culture

Buddhism reached China from India via the Silk Roads. The 7th-century monk Xuanzang helped popularize it. Monks connected Buddhist ideas to familiar Daoist principles, eventually creating the syncretic tradition known as Chan Buddhism (or Zen Buddhism in Japan). Although some Chinese leaders feared the dilution of native traditions, Chan Buddhism remained popular among ordinary people. Under the Song Dynasty (960–1279), many Confucian scholar-gentry incorporated its ideals into daily life. The spread of printing made Buddhist scriptures widely available. Buddhist writers also influenced Chinese literature by using the vernacular language rather than the formal classical style favored by Confucian scholars.

Japan and Korea, within China's cultural orbit, adopted Buddhism alongside Confucianism. In Korea, the educated elite studied Confucian classics while Buddhist teachings appealed more to peasants.

Neo-Confucianism, another syncretic tradition that originated in the Tang Dynasty and matured under the Song, combined rational thought with elements of Daoism and Buddhism. It spread widely in Japan and Vietnam and became Korea's official state ideology.

Spread of Hinduism and Buddhism

Through trade, Hinduism and Buddhism reached Southeast Asia. The sea-based Srivijaya Empire on Sumatra was Hindu, while the later Majapahit Kingdom on Java was Buddhist. The land-based Sinhala dynasties in Sri Lanka became major centers of Buddhist study with numerous monasteries; Buddhist priests often advised monarchs on governance.

The Khmer Empire (also called the Angkor Kingdom) in present-day Cambodia was the most successful Southeast Asian state of the era. Its royal monuments at Angkor Thom display both Hindu and Buddhist influences. Early rulers adorned the city with Hindu artwork and sculptures of Hindu gods. Later Buddhist rulers added Buddhist sculptures and artwork while preserving the existing Hindu elements.

Spread of Islam

Through merchants, missionaries, and conquests, Islam spread across wide areas of Africa, South Asia, and Southeast Asia. Its cultural influences varied by region:

Africa

- Swahili, a blend of Bantu and Arabic, remains widely spoken today.
- Timbuktu emerged as a renowned center of Islamic learning.
- Leaders of African states strengthened Islamic ties through pilgrimages to Mecca.

South Asia

- Before Islam's arrival, Hinduism and Buddhism were dominant.
- Buddhists often converted more readily than Hindus, partly due to disillusionment with corruption among Buddhist priests.
- Islam's emphasis on equality attracted many lower-caste Hindus.
- Architecture blended Hindu designs with Islamic patterns.
- The Urdu language incorporated elements of Sanskrit-based Hindi as well as Arabic and Farsi (Persian).
- Bhakti poets and missionaries sought connections between Hindu and Islamic traditions.

Southeast Asia

- Muslim rulers on Java combined features of Mughal Indian culture with local traditions and Chinese-Buddhist and Confucian elements.
- Traditional Javanese stories, puppetry, and poetry absorbed Muslim characters and techniques.

Scientific and Technological Innovations

Alongside religious ideas, science and technology traveled the trade routes. Islamic scholars translated Greek literary classics (including works by Aristotle) into Arabic, preserving them for later generations. They also brought mathematical texts from India and papermaking techniques from China. Drawing on medical knowledge from ancient Greeks, Mesopotamians, and Egyptians, they made advances in hospital care and surgery.

Agricultural improvements such as Champa rice spread from India to Vietnam and China. Reliable food supplies supported population growth, urbanization, and industries including porcelain, silk, steel, and iron production. Papermaking reached Europe from China in the 13th century; combined with printing technology, it contributed to rising literacy rates.

Seafaring technology advanced with lateen sails, the stern rudder, the astrolabe, and the magnetic compass as Chinese, Indian, and Southwest Asian scholars expanded knowledge of astronomy and the natural world. Production of gunpowder and guns spread from China and transformed warfare.

Growth of Cities

Trade networks supported urbanization. Hangzhou in southern China, with roughly one million residents, became a major cultural and commercial center at the southern end of the Grand Canal. It was home to poets such as Lu Yu and Xin Qiji and hosted a thriving Arab merchant community. Other important trade cities included Samarkand and Kashgar, known for Islamic scholarship, bustling markets, and reliable supplies of water and food for Silk Roads travelers.

Factors contributing to urban growth included political stability and reduced invasions, safe and reliable transportation, rising commerce, a plentiful labor supply, and increased agricultural output.

Declining Cities

Not all cities thrived. Kashgar declined after a series of nomadic conquests and was devastated by Tamerlane in 1389–1390. Constantinople, already weakened by the Fourth Crusade in 1204, suffered devastating outbreaks of the bubonic plague in 1346 and 1349 that killed about half its population. After a 53-day siege, the city fell to the Ottomans in 1453—an event some historians view as marking the end of the High Middle Ages.

Effects of the Crusades

Crusaders' encounters with Byzantine and Islamic cultures increased European knowledge of the wider world and stimulated demand for Eastern goods. At the same time, these connections exposed Europe to disease. The plague, known as the **Black Death**, reached Europe via trade routes and caused a major epidemic between 1347 and 1351, with additional outbreaks in following decades. As many as 25 million people in Europe may have died. Drastically reduced populations led to economic decline, labor shortages that undermined the feudal system, and exposure to new ideas that contributed to the Renaissance and the rise of secular thought.

Travelers' Tales

As exchange networks intensified and literacy rose thanks to paper and printing, more travelers wrote accounts of their journeys.

Marco Polo

In the late 13th century, the Venetian merchant Marco Polo visited the court of Kublai Khan in China. He was impressed by Chinese cities, silk production, paper money, and high levels of urbanization. After returning to Italy in 1295, he dictated a book about his travels. Many Europeans initially doubted his descriptions of China's size and wealth, but later travelers confirmed his accounts. Polo's merchant perspective kept his focus on trade-related matters.

Ibn Battuta

The Moroccan Muslim scholar Ibn Battuta (1304–1353) set out at age 21 driven by a desire to visit illustrious sanctuaries and learn about the Islamic world. Over more than 30 years he traveled through Central Asia, Southeast Asia, South Asia, China, Spain, North Africa, and Mali—primarily Muslim lands. At the request of the Sultan of Morocco, he dictated a detailed account of the cities he visited, the rulers and scholars he met, and the remarkable events he witnessed. His point of view as a devout Muslim shaped his emphasis on learning about Islam and its people.

Margery Kempe

The English mystic Margery Kempe (c. 1373–c. 1440) dictated what is considered one of the earliest autobiographies in English. Unable to read or write herself, she described her pilgrimages to Jerusalem, Rome, Germany, and Spain. Her vivid account includes both intense spiritual visions and the practical challenges of everyday life as a middle-class woman who had 14 children.

2.5 MCQ

Stimulus: Xuanzang on the Spread of Buddhism

Excerpt from Xuanzang's "Record of the Western Regions" (circa 646, widely circulated through the 13th century):

"In my travels along the Silk Roads, I observed Buddhist monks from India sharing sutras in the markets of Samarkand and Chang'an. Merchants and pilgrims carry these teachings, building stupas and monasteries in distant lands. Scholars also exchange knowledge of mathematics and astronomy, learned from Indian texts, which are studied alongside Islamic learning in the cities of Central Asia."

Source: Xuanzang, *Record of the Western Regions*, translated by Samuel Beal, *Buddhist Records of the Western World*, Trübner & Co., 1884.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, the diffusion of Buddhism along the Silk Roads was primarily facilitated by**
(A) military conquests by Buddhist empires
(B) the activities of merchants and pilgrims sharing religious texts
(C) the establishment of centralized Buddhist governance
(D) the restriction of Buddhist teachings to elite scholars

Correct Answer: (B) the activities of merchants and pilgrims sharing religious texts

Explanation: The passage describes Buddhist monks sharing sutras and merchants and pilgrims carrying teachings, indicating that these groups were key in spreading Buddhism through trade networks.

2. **The passage's mention of building stupas and monasteries suggests that the diffusion of Buddhism led to which cultural impact?**
(A) The decline of local religious practices in Central Asia
(B) The establishment of Buddhist institutions in new regions
(C) The restriction of Buddhist practices to Indian communities
(D) The replacement of Islamic learning with Buddhist scholarship

Correct Answer: (B) The establishment of Buddhist institutions in new regions

Explanation: The passage notes the construction of stupas and monasteries in distant lands, showing that Buddhism's spread resulted in the creation of religious institutions in new areas.

3. **According to the passage, the exchange of mathematical and astronomical knowledge alongside Buddhist teachings reflects which broader aspect of cultural diffusion?**

- (A) The isolation of scientific knowledge from religious traditions
- (B) The blending of Indian and Islamic intellectual traditions through trade
- (C) The rejection of foreign knowledge in Central Asian cities
- (D) The focus on military applications of scientific advancements

Correct Answer: (B) The blending of Indian and Islamic intellectual traditions through trade

Explanation: The passage describes scholars exchanging Indian mathematical and astronomical knowledge alongside Islamic learning, highlighting the syncretic blending of intellectual traditions facilitated by Silk Road trade.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the diffusion of cultural traditions, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1200–1450?**

- (A) The unification of Eurasia under a single religious authority
- (B) The increased cultural interconnectedness across Asia through trade networks
- (C) The decline of trade due to religious conflicts between Buddhists and Muslims
- (D) The restriction of cultural exchanges to elite scholarly communities

Correct Answer: (B) The increased cultural interconnectedness across Asia through trade networks

Explanation: The passage describes the spread of Buddhism and scientific knowledge via merchants, pilgrims, and scholars along the Silk Roads, demonstrating enhanced cultural interconnectedness across Asia.

Topic 2.6: Environmental Consequences of Connectivity

Essential Question: What were some of the environmental effects of trade in Afro-Eurasia from c. 1200 to c. 1450?

Although trade networks allowed the spread of new agricultural products—such as certain citrus fruits into the Mediterranean basin—the most dramatic environmental consequence of increased commerce was not food but disease. The bubonic plague, or Black Death, swept from Central Asia across China, India, Persia, and Egypt before reaching Europe in 1347. The epidemic killed an estimated 75 to 200 million people across Eurasia and peaked in Europe between 1347 and 1351. The Italian writer Giovanni Boccaccio, who lived through the plague and drew on the experience for his famous work *The Decameron*, described streets and homes filled with the dead.

Agricultural Effects of Exchange Networks

Along with luxury goods, spices, textiles, and religious ideas, merchants sometimes introduced crops to regions where they had not previously been grown. These introductions often affected land use, population growth, and distribution. In some areas, new crops supported abundant production and sustained larger populations. In others, overuse of the land led to environmental degradation.

Migration of Crops

Few crops had as transformative an impact as quick-ripening **Champa rice**, introduced to the Champa states of present-day central Vietnam (a Hindu-influenced region) and then offered to China as tribute. Some scholars believe it may have originated in India. The variety was drought-resistant, flood-resistant, and capable of producing two harvests per year. Chinese authorities distributed it widely to support a growing population, which in turn contributed to further population increase.

Champa rice also changed land use. Through terraced farming in upland areas and paddies in lowlands, it was grown in parts of China previously considered unsuitable for rice cultivation. As China's population expanded, many people migrated southward toward traditional rice-growing regions, fueling the growth of cities.

Indonesian seafarers traveling across the Indian Ocean introduced **bananas** to Sub-Saharan Africa. This nutritious crop caused a sharp rise in population. Many Indonesians settled on the island of Madagascar. Bananas enabled Bantu-speaking peoples—who possessed advanced metallurgy and farming skills—to expand into areas where yams, their traditional staple, grew poorly. Farmers cleared more land for banana cultivation, which enriched diets and supported further population growth.

As Muslim caliphs conquered territories beyond the Arabian Peninsula, they spread Islam, the Arabic language, and the cultivation of cotton, **sugar**, and **citrus crops**. Markets along trade routes introduced new foods to distant regions. The markets of Samarkand, for example, brought rice and citrus products from Southwest Asia to Europe. European demand for sugar later became so intense that it helped drive the massive use of enslaved labor in the Americas beginning in the 1500s.

Environmental Degradation

Rising populations placed heavy pressure on resources. Severe **overgrazing** outside Great Zimbabwe contributed to the city's abandonment in the late 1400s. In feudal Europe, overuse of farmland and widespread **deforestation** caused **soil erosion** and reduced agricultural output. The Little Ice Age (roughly 1300–1800)

further decreased agricultural productivity. Environmental degradation also played a role in the decline of Maya civilization in the Americas.

Spread of Epidemics through Exchange Networks

While scholars in Dar al-Islam and India made important advances in medical understanding and treatment, no knowledge available at the time could prevent the spread of deadly infectious diseases that traveled along trade routes. The Mongol conquests helped transmit the fleas carrying the **bubonic plague** (the Black Death) from southern China to Central Asia and then onward to Southeast Asia and Europe. Some historians suggest that caravanserais—in which people and animals were housed together—may have accelerated the spread, as animals likely carried infected fleas.

The Black Death had a devastating impact on Europe, killing roughly one-third of the population in just a few years. With fewer workers available, agricultural production declined further. However, the severe labor shortage increased the value of each worker's labor. Survivors could demand higher wages, helping lay the groundwork for the economic shifts that accompanied the decline of feudalism.

The plague caused similar massive loss of life in North Africa, China, and Central Asia—approximately 25 million people in China and other parts of Asia died between 1332 and 1347. South Asia and Sub-Saharan Africa were largely spared, likely because those regions had fewer major trading ports connecting them to the primary plague routes.

Vocabulary

- Champa rice
- Bananas
- Sugar
- Citrus crops
- Overgrazing
- Deforestation
- Soil erosion
- Bubonic plague

2.6 MCQ

Stimulus: William of Rubruck on Trade and Disease

Excerpt from William of Rubruck's "The Journey of William of Rubruck" (circa 1255):

"Along the Silk Roads, I saw merchants carrying rice and bananas from the East to the markets of Central Asia, where they are prized for their nourishment. Yet, with the caravans come diseases, for a great plague has struck the cities of the Mongols, spreading swiftly to Persia and beyond. The dead are many, and trade slows where the sickness rages."

Source: William of Rubruck, *The Journey of William of Rubruck to the Eastern Parts of the World, 1253–55*, translated by William Woodville Rockhill, Hakluyt Society, 1900.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, the diffusion of crops like rice and bananas along the Silk Roads primarily contributed to which of the following?**

(A) The decline of agricultural diversity in Central Asia
(B) The enhancement of food security and dietary variety in trading regions
(C) The restriction of trade to local markets only
(D) The replacement of all local crops with foreign varieties

Correct Answer: (B) The enhancement of food security and dietary variety in trading regions

Explanation: The passage describes rice and bananas being prized for nourishment in Central Asian markets, indicating that their diffusion improved dietary options and supported food security.

2. **The passage's mention of a great plague spreading along trade routes most likely refers to which epidemic disease of the period c. 1200–1450?**

(A) Smallpox
(B) The Black Death
(C) Cholera
(D) Malaria

Correct Answer: (B) The Black Death

Explanation: The passage describes a devastating plague spreading swiftly along trade routes to Persia and beyond, aligning with the historical spread of the Black Death (bubonic plague) in the mid-14th century.

3. **According to the passage, the diffusion of pathogens like the plague along trade routes had which significant effect?**
- (A) It encouraged the expansion of trade networks to avoid affected areas
 - (B) It disrupted trade and caused significant mortality in trading cities
 - (C) It led to the development of new medical technologies to combat disease
 - (D) It restricted the spread of crops to unaffected regions

Correct Answer: (B) It disrupted trade and caused significant mortality in trading cities

Explanation: The passage notes that the plague caused many deaths and slowed trade, indicating its disruptive impact on commerce and populations in affected areas.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the diffusion of crops and pathogens along trade routes, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1200–1450?**
- (A) The isolation of trading regions to prevent disease spread
 - (B) The transformation of diets and populations across Eurasia due to trade connectivity
 - (C) The decline of trade networks due to widespread agricultural failures
 - (D) The unification of Eurasia under a single health policy to combat plagues

Correct Answer: (B) The transformation of diets and populations across Eurasia due to trade connectivity

Explanation: The passage highlights the spread of nourishing crops like rice and bananas alongside the devastating plague, showing how trade routes transformed diets by introducing new crops and altered populations through disease-related mortality.

Topic 2.7: Comparison of Economic Exchange

Essential Question: What were the similarities and differences among the various networks of exchange in the period from c. 1200 to c. 1450?

Calicut, known as the “City of Spices,” was a bustling market where merchants exchanged goods for Indian pepper and cinnamon as well as products from distant regions. In some respects—such as the security it provided and the diversity of traders it attracted—Calicut resembled other major trading cities along well-established routes. In other respects—such as the currencies it used and how its government profited from trade—it differed from trading centers elsewhere. These similarities and differences among individual cities were also visible in the larger networks that connected them.

Similarities Among Networks of Exchange

Three major trading networks linked people across Africa, Europe, and Asia between c. 1200 and c. 1450:

- The **Silk Roads**, crossing the Gobi Desert and mountain passes from China through Central Asia to Southwest Asia and Europe, where merchants often specialized in luxury goods.
- The monsoon-dependent routes of the **Indian Ocean**, connecting East Asia with Southeast Asia, South Asia, and Southwest Asia, on which merchants transported goods too heavy or bulky for overland routes.
- The **trans-Saharan** routes from North Africa and the Mediterranean across the desert to West and East Africa, where merchants traded North African salt for gold from kingdoms south of the Sahara.

Despite their distinct geographies, the networks shared important similarities in origins, purpose, and effects.

Origins

Interregional trade had ancient roots, dating back to the consolidation of agrarian societies into stable settlements. The flourishing networks of the Postclassical period built upon routes first traced by earlier traders and conquerors. As kingdoms and empires expanded, they extended and protected the trade routes under their control.

These networks also required the stability of established states—kingdoms, caliphates, city-states, or empires—to grow. Stable polities protected merchants and routes, enabling the technological improvements that made trade more efficient and profitable, including nautical tools such as the magnetic compass and lateen sail, high-yielding crop varieties, and specialized saddles for carrying heavy loads.

Purpose

The primary purpose of all the networks was economic: to exchange what people could grow or produce for what they wanted, needed, or could use to obtain other goods. However, the routes also carried diplomats negotiating alliances and missionaries seeking converts. Merchants, diplomats, and missionaries together exchanged ways of life as well as material goods.

Effects

All the networks produced similar effects. Because a network resembles a fabric of cords knotted at regular intervals for strength, trade routes gave rise to trading cities—the “knots” that held each network together. Examples include:

Silk Roads

Chang'an (present-day Xi'an, China), Samarkand (present-day Uzbekistan), Aleppo (present-day Syria), Mosul (present-day Iraq).

Indian Ocean

Malacca (present-day Malaysia), Calicut (present-day India), Hormuz (present-day Iran), Mombasa (present-day Kenya), Alexandria (present-day Egypt).

Trans-Saharan

Gao and Timbuktu (both present-day Mali), Marrakesh (present-day Morocco), Cairo (present-day Egypt).

The growth of these cities encouraged centralization. Malacca, for instance, used fees collected from ships passing through the Strait of Malacca to build a strong navy that protected trade—an effort requiring centralized planning. Trading cities along all routes used their wealth to maintain security on the routes and within the cities themselves.

Another driver of centralization was the desire for standardized currency. Widely accepted currencies sped transactions and allowed merchants to assess the value of goods more easily. Many trading cities also became renowned centers of learning, such as the Ulugh Beg Madrasa (Islamic religious school) built in Samarkand between 1417 and 1422.

Differences Among Networks of Exchange

Despite their similarities, the networks differed in the goods exchanged, the nature of routes and transportation, the technologies they inspired, and the religions they helped spread.

Silk Roads

Goods moved primarily east to west (silk, tea, spices, dyes, porcelain, rice, paper, gunpowder) and west to east (horses, saddles, fruit, domestic animals, honey, textiles). Transportation relied on horses and camels, supported by technologies such as specialized saddles and caravanserais. The routes spread Buddhism from South Asia to East and Southeast Asia, Neo-Confucianism from China to Korea, Japan, and Vietnam, and Islam from Southwest Asia to South Asia.

Indian Ocean (and Mediterranean Basin)

Goods included gold, ivory, quartz, and animal skins from East Africa; citrus, fruits, dates, and books from Southwest Asia; and textiles, peppers, and pearls from southern India. Transportation used dhows and junks, aided by technologies such as the stern rudder, lateen sail, astrolabe, and magnetic compass. The routes spread Buddhism and Neo-Confucianism from South Asia to East and Southeast Asia, Islam from South Asia to Southeast Asia, and Christianity from the Mediterranean Basin.

Trans-Saharan

Goods moved north to south (horses, books, salt) and south to north (gold, ivory, cloth, enslaved people). Transportation relied on camel caravans, with people walking; specialized saddles enabled heavier loads. The routes spread Islam from Southwest Asia and North Africa to Sub-Saharan Africa.

The networks also used distinctive currencies and commercial practices. At times silk or tin ingots served as currency standards, and West African states used cowrie shells. Over time, most shifted toward money economies based on gold and metal coins. To reduce the bulk of transactions, the Chinese developed “flying cash” and early banking practices, including credit.

Social Implications of Networks of Exchange

Rising demand for luxury goods encouraged more efficient production. China experienced a period of proto-industrialization as it increased output of iron, steel, and porcelain. New business practices, such as partnerships to share investment risk, began to appear.

As the volume of goods grew, maritime trade began to surpass overland routes in scale, requiring larger ships and improved navigational knowledge and technology.

Labor

Demand for labor rose alongside demand for products. Existing forms of labor continued: free peasant farmers, artisans in cottage industries, people working to repay debts, and people enslaved through capture or purchase. Trade in enslaved people was common along the Indian Ocean and trans-Saharan routes.

Large-scale projects—irrigation systems, military defenses, and monumental buildings—required thousands of organized laborers. Kinship ties often helped coordinate these efforts. An observer in the Vijayanagara Empire in South India during the 1300s described a giant reservoir project involving 15,000 to 20,000 workers, with captains overseeing assigned groups to ensure completion.

Social and Gender Structures

Most societies between 1200 and 1450 remained organized by class or caste and were patriarchal. However, notable exceptions existed. In the Mongol Empire, women enjoyed relatively greater freedom: they moved about without the burka or foot binding common elsewhere and sometimes served as top advisors to the great khan. In Europe, women worked as farmers and artisans and formed their own guilds. In Southeast Asia, women often controlled marketplaces as representatives of powerful families. Outside these limited contexts, women generally had far fewer opportunities and freedoms than men.

Environmental Processes

The same interconnections that drove vibrant economic and cultural exchange also transmitted the bubonic plague and other infectious diseases along trade routes. The resulting population decline contributed to the weakening of once-great cities such as Constantinople. China suffered major outbreaks in the 1330s and 1350s that killed tens of millions. These connections also fostered cultural diffusion and the rise of educational centers in cities such as Canton, Samarkand, Timbuktu, Cairo, and Venice. At the same time, political instability and expanded agriculture strained environments through soil erosion from deforestation and overgrazing, sometimes forcing populations to migrate.

2.7 MCQ

Stimulus: Comparison of Trade Networks

Excerpt from Janet L. Abu-Lughod's "Before European Hegemony: The World System A.D. 1250–1350" (1989):

"The Silk Roads linked East Asia to the Mediterranean, carrying silk and porcelain through Central Asian cities like Samarkand, protected by Mongol rule. The Indian Ocean network connected ports from East Africa to Southeast Asia, with dhows transporting spices and textiles under monsoon winds. The Trans-Saharan routes, using camel caravans, moved gold and salt between West Africa and North Africa, fostering Islamic cities like Timbuktu."

Source: Janet L. Abu-Lughod, *Before European Hegemony: The World System A.D. 1250–1350*, Oxford University Press, 1989.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, which of the following best compares the primary goods exchanged in the Silk Roads and Trans-Saharan trade networks during the period c. 1200–1450?**
(A) Both networks primarily traded agricultural staples like wheat and barley.
(B) The Silk Roads focused on luxury goods like silk, while Trans-Saharan routes emphasized gold and salt.
(C) Both networks exclusively traded religious texts and artifacts.
(D) The Silk Roads traded gold, while Trans-Saharan routes focused on spices.

Correct Answer: (B) The Silk Roads focused on luxury goods like silk, while Trans-Saharan routes emphasized gold and salt.

Explanation: The passage specifies silk and porcelain for the Silk Roads and gold and salt for the Trans-Saharan routes, highlighting their distinct focus on luxury goods versus high-demand commodities.

2. **According to the passage, a key similarity between the Indian Ocean and Silk Road networks was their**
(A) reliance on centralized political control to regulate trade
(B) facilitation of long-distance trade connecting diverse regions
(C) exclusive use of overland routes for merchant travel
(D) focus on trading only within Islamic-controlled territories

Correct Answer: (B) facilitation of long-distance trade connecting diverse regions

Explanation: The passage describes the Indian Ocean network linking East Africa to Southeast Asia and the Silk Roads connecting East Asia to the Mediterranean, both facilitating long-distance trade

across diverse regions.

3. **The passage suggests that a significant difference between the Trans-Saharan and Indian Ocean trade networks was**

(A) the use of camels in the Trans-Saharan network versus dhows in the Indian Ocean network
(B) the trade of identical goods in both networks
(C) the reliance on monsoon winds in the Trans-Saharan network
(D) the absence of Islamic influence in the Indian Ocean network

Correct Answer: (A) the use of camels in the Trans-Saharan network versus dhows in the Indian Ocean network

Explanation: The passage highlights camel caravans for the Trans-Saharan routes and dhows with monsoon winds for the Indian Ocean, indicating a key technological difference in their trade mechanisms.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates a broader similarity in the networks of exchange described in the passage during the period c. 1200–1450?**

(A) All three networks promoted economic and cultural connectivity across regions.
(B) All three networks were controlled by a single empire to standardize trade.
(C) All three networks focused exclusively on the trade of agricultural goods.
(D) All three networks operated independently without cultural exchanges.

Correct Answer: (A) All three networks promoted economic and cultural connectivity across regions.

Explanation: The passage describes diverse goods and regions connected by the Silk Roads, Indian Ocean, and Trans-Saharan networks, emphasizing their role in fostering economic and cultural exchanges across Eurasia and Africa.

Stimulus: Map of Trade Networks, c. 1300



Visual Description: A map titled "Major Trade Routes, c. 1300" illustrates three key networks: the Silk Roads, Indian Ocean trade, and Trans-Saharan trade. The Silk Roads stretch from Chang'an in China through Samarkand to Constantinople, with icons indicating silk and porcelain. The Indian Ocean routes connect ports like Calcutta, Sumatra, and Malacca. The Trans-Saharan trade routes connect North Africa to the Sahel.

from Kilwa in East Africa to Malacca in Southeast Asia, marked with spices and textiles. The Trans-Saharan routes link Timbuktu in West Africa to Tunis in North Africa, labeled with gold and salt. Caravanserais are shown along the Silk and Trans-Saharan routes, while dhows with lateen sails appear in the Indian Ocean.

Source: Adapted from *The Silk Roads: A New History of the World* by Peter Frankopan, Bloomsbury Publishing, 2015, map section.

Questions

1. **Based on the map, which of the following best compares the primary goods traded along the Silk Roads and the Indian Ocean networks during the period c. 1200–1450?**

(A) Both networks primarily traded gold and salt.
(B) The Silk Roads focused on silk and porcelain, while the Indian Ocean traded spices and textiles.
(C) Both networks exclusively traded agricultural staples like wheat.
(D) The Indian Ocean traded silk, while the Silk Roads traded spices.

Correct Answer: (B) The Silk Roads focused on silk and porcelain, while the Indian Ocean traded spices and textiles.

Explanation: The map labels the Silk Roads with silk and porcelain and the Indian Ocean with spices and textiles, accurately distinguishing the primary goods of each network.

2. **The map's depiction of caravanserais along the Silk and Trans-Saharan routes suggests a key similarity in these networks, which is their**

(A) reliance on maritime technologies to facilitate trade
(B) use of overland infrastructure to support merchant travel
(C) focus on trading only within Mongol-controlled territories
(D) dependence on centralized political control to regulate trade

Correct Answer: (B) use of overland infrastructure to support merchant travel

Explanation: The presence of caravanserais on both the Silk and Trans-Saharan routes indicates shared overland infrastructure (rest stops) that supported long-distance trade, unlike maritime technologies.

3. **According to the map, a significant difference between the Indian Ocean and Trans-Saharan trade networks is**

(A) the use of dhows with lateen sails in the Indian Ocean versus camels in the Trans-Saharan network
(B) the trade of identical goods like gold and salt in both networks
(C) the reliance on caravanserais in the Indian Ocean network
(D) the absence of cultural exchange in the Trans-Saharan network

Correct Answer: (A) the use of dhows with lateen sails in the Indian Ocean versus camels in the Trans-Saharan network

Explanation: The map shows dhows with lateen sails for the Indian Ocean and implies camel caravans (via caravanserais) for the Trans-Saharan routes, highlighting a technological difference in transportation.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates a broader similarity in the networks of exchange depicted in the map during the period c. 1200–1450?**

(A) All three networks facilitated economic and cultural connectivity across diverse regions.
(B) All three networks were controlled by a single empire to standardize trade practices.
(C) All three networks focused exclusively on the trade of luxury goods like silk.
(D) All three networks operated without technological innovations.

Correct Answer: (A) All three networks facilitated economic and cultural connectivity across diverse regions.

Explanation: The map shows diverse goods (silk, spices, gold) and regions (China, Africa, Europe)

connected by the Silk Roads, Indian Ocean, and Trans-Saharan networks, emphasizing their role in fostering economic and cultural exchanges.

Unit 2 Test

AP World History Modern: Unit 2 Exam

This exam consists of one stimulus-based multiple-choice question set for each of the 7 topics in Unit 2 (c. 1200 to c. 1450). Each set includes a stimulus followed by 4 questions. Five sets use written stimuli (primary or secondary source excerpts), and two use visual stimuli (map descriptions with links to real maps). The correct answer and explanation are provided for each question.

Topic 2.1: The Silk Roads (Written Stimulus)

****Excerpt from Marco Polo's "The Travels of Marco Polo" (circa 1300):****

"Samarkand is a very great and splendid city... It has fine and extensive orchards and gardens, and many fine suburbs like those of Damascus. The inhabitants, who are partly Christians and partly Saracens, are subject to the dominion of a nephew of the Great Khan; his city is on the borders of Persia. Here is produced much silk; they have mulberry trees in great abundance, on which the worms that spin silk feed."

****Source:**** Marco Polo, *The Travels of Marco Polo*, translated by Ronald Latham, Penguin Books, 1958 (as cited in <https://www.advantour.com/silkroad/marco-polo.htm>).

Questions

1. ****Based on the passage, the city of Samarkand's significance in the Silk Roads was primarily due to****

- (A) its role as a military outpost for the Mongol Empire
- (B) its production and trade of silk and other agricultural goods
- (C) its isolation from Persian influences
- (D) its exclusive Christian population

****Correct Answer: (B) its production and trade of silk and other agricultural goods****

***Explanation*:** The passage emphasizes Samarkand's orchards, gardens, and silk production, highlighting its economic role in facilitating trade along the Silk Roads.

2. ****The mention of both Christians and Saracens in the passage reflects which aspect of the Silk Roads during the period c. 1200–1450?****

- (A) Religious intolerance under Mongol rule
- (B) Cultural diversity and coexistence in trading cities
- (C) Strict enforcement of Mongol religious policies
- (D) Conversion efforts by Christian missionaries

****Correct Answer: (B) Cultural diversity and coexistence in trading cities****

***Explanation*:** The passage notes a mixed population of Christians and Muslims (Saracens) under Mongol dominion, illustrating the multicultural nature of Silk Road hubs.

3. ****Marco Polo's description of Samarkand's location "on the borders of Persia" suggests that the city was important for****

- (A) serving as a barrier against Persian invasions
- (B) facilitating trade between Central Asia and the Middle East
- (C) promoting agricultural isolation from neighboring regions
- (D) establishing a center for Mongol administrative control

****Correct Answer: (B) facilitating trade between Central Asia and the Middle East****

Explanation: Samarkand's border location positioned it as a key intermediary point for goods moving along the Silk Roads between Persia and other regions.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the Silk Roads, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1200–1450?*

- (A) The decline of urban centers due to overland trade risks
- (B) The spread of goods and cultural influences across Eurasia
- (C) The unification of diverse populations under a single religion
- (D) The restriction of trade to luxury items like silk only

Correct Answer: (B) The spread of goods and cultural influences across Eurasia

Explanation: The passage highlights silk production, diverse populations, and abundant merchandise, reflecting the Silk Roads' role in exchanging goods and fostering cultural interactions.

Topic 2.2: The Mongol Empire and the Making of the Modern World (Visual Stimulus)

Visual Description: A map showing the Mongol Empire at its height in the 13th century, extending from Eastern Europe and the Middle East across Central Asia to China and Korea. The map highlights divisions into khanates (e.g., Golden Horde, Ilkhanate, Chagatai Khanate, Yuan Dynasty) and key cities like Karakorum, Samarkand, and Khanbaliq (Beijing). Trade routes, such as the Silk Roads, are marked, illustrating the empire's facilitation of commerce.

Source: Adapted from Spruner von Merz Historical Atlas, 1855 (as cited in <https://www.alamy.com/stock-photo/mongolian-empire-map.html>).

Questions

1. **Based on the map, the Mongol Empire's vast extent primarily facilitated which of the following during the period c. 1200–1450?*

- (A) The isolation of Asian cultures from European influences
- (B) The expansion of trade networks across Eurasia
- (C) The decline of urban centers in Central Asia
- (D) The unification of Europe under Mongol rule

Correct Answer: (B) The expansion of trade networks across Eurasia

Explanation: The map shows the empire spanning multiple regions with marked trade routes, enabling secure and extensive commerce under Mongol protection.

2. **The division of the empire into khanates, as shown on the map, reflects which aspect of Mongol governance?*

- (A) Centralized control from a single capital
- (B) Decentralized administration among family members
- (C) Complete cultural assimilation of conquered peoples
- (D) Rejection of overland trade in favor of maritime routes

Correct Answer: (B) Decentralized administration among family members

Explanation: The map depicts separate khanates, indicating the empire's division among Genghis Khan's descendants for local rule.

3. **The inclusion of cities like Samarkand and Khanbaliq on the map suggests that the Mongol Empire contributed to**

- (A) the decline of Silk Road trade due to warfare
- (B) the growth of urban centers as trade and administrative hubs
- (C) the spread of nomadic lifestyles to settled populations
- (D) the isolation of China from Central Asian influences

****Correct Answer: (B) the growth of urban centers as trade and administrative hubs****

***Explanation*:** Key cities are highlighted along trade routes, showing their importance as centers of commerce and Mongol administration.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the Mongol Empire, as depicted in the map, during the period c. 1200–1450?**

- (A) The fragmentation of Eurasia into competing states
- (B) The increased connectivity and exchange across continents
- (C) The permanent decline of Islamic cultures in Central Asia
- (D) The restriction of trade to Mongol-controlled territories only

****Correct Answer: (B) The increased connectivity and exchange across continents****

***Explanation*:** The map's vast scope and trade routes demonstrate the empire's role in linking diverse regions, promoting cultural and economic exchanges.

Topic 2.3: Exchange in the Indian Ocean (Written Stimulus)

****Excerpt from Ibn Battuta's "Rihla" (circa 1355):****

"We traveled thence to the city of Qaliquit [Calicut], which is one of the chief ports in Mulaibar. It is visited by men from China, Jawa, Ceylon, the Maldives, al-Yaman and Fars, and in it gather merchants from all quarters. The harbor is one of the largest in the world. We anchored at a distance of two farsakhs from the port, and were met by small boats called ajwaf in which we entered the harbor."

****Source:**** Ibn Battuta, *The Travels of Ibn Battuta*, translated by H.A.R. Gibb, Cambridge University Press, 1958 (as cited in <https://bridgingcultures-muslimjourneys.org/items/show/84>).

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, the port of Calicut was significant in the Indian Ocean trade because it**

- (A) served as a military base for regional conquests
- (B) attracted merchants from diverse regions like China and the Middle East
- (C) restricted trade to local Indian goods
- (D) focused exclusively on overland routes

****Correct Answer: (B) attracted merchants from diverse regions like China and the Middle East****

***Explanation*:** The passage lists visitors from China, Jawa, Ceylon, Maldives, Yemen, and Persia, highlighting Calicut's role as a multicultural trade hub.

2. **The description of Calicut's harbor as "one of the largest in the world" suggests that the Indian Ocean network facilitated**

- (A) the decline of maritime trade due to piracy
- (B) the growth of port cities as centers of exchange

- (C) the isolation of coastal communities
- (D) the restriction of trade to small-scale vessels

****Correct Answer: (B) the growth of port cities as centers of exchange****

***Explanation*:** The large harbor and gathering of merchants indicate the expansion of port cities driven by Indian Ocean commerce.

3. ****Ibn Battuta's mention of small boats (ajwaf) for entering the harbor reflects which aspect of Indian Ocean trade?****

- (A) The use of advanced navigational technologies
- (B) The adaptation to local geographical conditions for trade
- (C) The reliance on overland caravans for final delivery
- (D) The prohibition of foreign ships in Indian ports

****Correct Answer: (B) The adaptation to local geographical conditions for trade****

***Explanation*:** The need for small boats to anchor larger vessels shows practical adaptations to harbor conditions in facilitating trade.

4. ****Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of Indian Ocean exchange, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1200–1450?****

- (A) The spread of cultural and economic influences across Asia and Africa
- (B) The unification of the Indian Ocean under a single empire
- (C) The decline of land-based trade routes
- (D) The restriction of trade to Muslim merchants only

****Correct Answer: (A) The spread of cultural and economic influences across Asia and Africa****

***Explanation*:** The diverse origins of merchants demonstrate the network's role in connecting and exchanging ideas and goods across regions.

Topic 2.4: Trans-Saharan Trade Routes (Written Stimulus)

****Excerpt from Al-Bakri's "Book of Routes and Realms" (circa 1068):****

"The town of Ghiyaru is twelve miles from the [Niger River] and contains many Muslims. It is a great center of commerce, and caravans come there from all parts of the Sudan. The gold is found in the ground in nuggets, and is dug out by the people. The king takes the nuggets, but the gold dust is left to the people."

****Source:**** Al-Bakri, **Book of Routes and Realms**, translated by Nehemia Levtzion and J.F.P. Hopkins, **Corpus of Early Arabic Sources for West African History**, Cambridge University Press, 1981 (as cited in <https://wasscehistorytextbook.com/2-trans-saharan-trade-origins-organization-and-effects-in-the-development-of-west-africa/>).

Questions

1. ****Based on the passage, the town of Ghiyaru was important in the Trans-Saharan trade primarily for****

- (A) its role as a religious center for pilgrims
- (B) its commerce in gold and attraction of caravans from the Sudan
- (C) its military defenses against invasions
- (D) its production of salt for export

****Correct Answer: (B) its commerce in gold and attraction of caravans from the Sudan****

Explanation: The passage emphasizes Ghiyaru as a commerce center with gold trade and caravans from the Sudan.

2. **The king's control over gold nuggets, as described in the passage, reflects which aspect of Trans-Saharan trade?**

- (A) The decentralization of economic power
- (B) The royal monopoly on valuable resources to maintain authority
- (C) The equal distribution of wealth among the people
- (D) The exclusion of Muslims from gold mining

Correct Answer: (B) The royal monopoly on valuable resources to maintain authority

Explanation: The king taking nuggets while leaving dust to the people shows control over high-value gold to consolidate power.

3. **Al-Bakri's mention of "many Muslims" in Ghiyaru suggests that Trans-Saharan trade contributed to**

- (A) the spread of Islam alongside commercial activities
- (B) the isolation of Muslim communities from local populations
- (C) the decline of indigenous African religions
- (D) the restriction of trade to non-Muslim merchants

Correct Answer: (A) the spread of Islam alongside commercial activities

Explanation: The presence of Muslims in a trade center indicates Islam's diffusion through trade networks.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of Trans-Saharan trade, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1200–1450?**

- (A) The economic integration of West Africa with North Africa and beyond
- (B) The decline of gold mining due to overexploitation
- (C) The unification of the Sudan under a single ruler
- (D) The restriction of trade to river-based routes only

Correct Answer: (A) The economic integration of West Africa with North Africa and beyond

Explanation: Caravans from the Sudan and gold commerce highlight the network's role in connecting regions economically.

Topic 2.5: Cultural Consequences of Connectivity (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from Xuanzang's "Record of the Western Regions" (circa 646):

"In my travels along the Silk Roads, I observed Buddhist monks from India sharing sutras in the markets of Samarkand and Chang'an. Merchants and pilgrims carry these teachings, building stupas and monasteries in distant lands. Scholars also exchange knowledge of mathematics and astronomy, learned from Indian texts, which are studied alongside Islamic learning in the cities of Central Asia."

Source: Xuanzang, *Record of the Western Regions*, translated by Samuel Beal, *Buddhist Records of the Western World*, Trübner & Co., 1884 (as cited in <https://en.unesco.org/silkroad/content/spread-disease-along-silk-roads>).

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, the diffusion of Buddhism along the Silk Roads was facilitated by**

- (A) military conquests by Indian empires
- (B) merchants and pilgrims sharing sutras and building monasteries
- (C) the isolation of Central Asian cities
- (D) the prohibition of foreign texts in China

****Correct Answer: (B) merchants and pilgrims sharing sutras and building monasteries****

***Explanation*:** The passage describes monks, merchants, and pilgrims carrying teachings and constructing religious sites.

2. ****The exchange of mathematical and astronomical knowledge in the passage reflects****

- (A) the blending of Indian and Islamic intellectual traditions
- (B) the rejection of Buddhism in Central Asia
- (C) the dominance of Chinese scholarship over Indian texts
- (D) the decline of trade in favor of religious isolation

****Correct Answer: (A) the blending of Indian and Islamic intellectual traditions****

***Explanation*:** Scholars study Indian texts alongside Islamic learning, indicating syncretic cultural diffusion.

3. ****Xuanzang's observation of stupas and monasteries in distant lands suggests that cultural connectivity led to****

- (A) the establishment of Buddhist institutions across Eurasia
- (B) the restriction of Buddhism to India only
- (C) the destruction of local religious sites
- (D) the decline of merchant activity

****Correct Answer: (A) the establishment of Buddhist institutions across Eurasia****

***Explanation*:** Building stupas and monasteries in distant lands shows the spread of Buddhist architecture and practice.

4. ****Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of cultural diffusion, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1200–1450?****

- (A) The increased interconnectedness of religious and scientific ideas across Asia
- (B) The unification of Eurasia under Buddhist rule
- (C) The decline of Islam due to Buddhist competition
- (D) The isolation of Chang'an from foreign influences

****Correct Answer: (A) The increased interconnectedness of religious and scientific ideas across Asia****

***Explanation*:** The sharing of sutras, mathematics, and astronomy highlights the exchange of knowledge via trade routes.

Topic 2.6: Environmental Consequences of Connectivity (Written Stimulus)

****Excerpt from "The Journey of William of Rubruck" (circa 1255):****

"Along the Silk Roads, I saw merchants carrying rice and bananas from the East to the markets of Central Asia, where they are prized for their nourishment. Yet, with the caravans come diseases, for a great plague has struck the cities of the Mongols, spreading swiftly to Persia and beyond. The dead are many, and trade slows where the sickness rages."

****Source:**** William of Rubruck, *The Journey of William of Rubruck to the Eastern Parts of the World, 1253–55*, translated by William Woodville Rockhill, Hakluyt Society, 1900 (as cited in <https://www.history.com/articles/silk-road-black-death>).

Questions

1. ****Based on the passage, the diffusion of crops like rice and bananas along trade routes contributed to****
- (A) the decline of local agriculture in Central Asia
 - (B) enhanced nourishment and dietary variety in connected regions
 - (C) the restriction of trade to non-perishable goods
 - (D) the isolation of Mongol cities

****Correct Answer:** (B) enhanced nourishment and dietary variety in connected regions******

***Explanation*:** The passage notes these crops are prized for nourishment in Central Asian markets, indicating positive environmental and dietary impacts.

2. ****The "great plague" mentioned in the passage most likely refers to****

- (A) smallpox spreading from Europe
- (B) the Black Death transmitted along trade routes
- (C) cholera from contaminated water sources
- (D) malaria in tropical regions

****Correct Answer:** (B) the Black Death transmitted along trade routes******

***Explanation*:** The description of a plague striking Mongol cities and spreading to Persia aligns with the Black Death's path via Silk Roads.

3. ****According to the passage, the spread of diseases along caravans had which effect on trade?****

- (A) It accelerated trade by creating demand for medicines
- (B) It slowed trade in affected areas due to high mortality
- (C) It shifted trade to maritime routes exclusively
- (D) It had no impact on commercial activities

****Correct Answer:** (B) It slowed trade in affected areas due to high mortality******

***Explanation*:** The passage states "trade slows where the sickness rages," linking disease to disruptions in commerce.

4. ****Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of connectivity on environments, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1200–1450?****

- (A) The transformation of ecosystems and populations through crop and pathogen diffusion
- (B) The complete halt of overland trade due to plagues
- (C) The unification of Eurasia through shared diseases
- (D) The restriction of crop exchanges to East Asia

****Correct Answer:** (A) The transformation of ecosystems and populations through crop and pathogen diffusion******

***Explanation*:** The spread of nourishing crops and deadly plagues via caravans shows dual positive and negative environmental consequences.

Topic 2.7: Comparison in the Period from c. 1200 to c. 1450 (Visual Stimulus)

****Visual Description:**** A map depicting the Silk Roads, Indian Ocean trade, and Trans-Saharan routes around c. 1300. The Silk Roads run from China through Central Asia to the Mediterranean, with goods like silk and porcelain. Indian Ocean routes link East Africa (Kilwa) to Southeast Asia (Malacca), marked with spices and textiles. Trans-Saharan routes connect West Africa (Timbuktu) to North Africa (Tunis), labeled with gold and salt. Technologies include caravanserais on land routes and dhows on maritime ones.

****Source:**** Adapted from Scribble Maps interactive resource (<https://www.scribblemaps.com/maps/view/Silk-Road-Trans-Saharan-Indian-Ocean-Trade-Routes/SnCTraderoutes>).

Questions

1. ****Based on the map, a key difference between the Indian Ocean and Trans-Saharan networks is****

- (A) the Indian Ocean's maritime focus versus the Trans-Saharan's overland caravans
- (B) the Trans-Saharan's trade in luxury goods versus the Indian Ocean's bulk items
- (C) the Silk Roads' isolation from other networks
- (D) the absence of technologies in the Silk Roads

****Correct Answer:** (A) the Indian Ocean's maritime focus versus the Trans-Saharan's overland caravans******

***Explanation*:** The map shows dhows for the Indian Ocean and caravanserais for Trans-Saharan, highlighting transportation modes.

2. ****The map's depiction of goods like silk on the Silk Roads and gold on Trans-Saharan routes suggests****

- (A) all networks traded identical commodities
- (B) networks specialized in region-specific goods
- (C) trade was limited to agricultural products
- (D) spices were exclusive to Trans-Saharan routes

****Correct Answer:** (B) networks specialized in region-specific goods******

***Explanation*:** Distinct labels (silk/porcelain, spices/textiles, gold/salt) indicate specialization based on regional resources.

3. ****Caravanserais on the Silk and Trans-Saharan routes reflect a similarity in****

- (A) maritime navigation techniques
- (B) infrastructure supporting overland trade
- (C) restriction to Muslim traders
- (D) focus on short-distance exchanges

****Correct Answer:** (B) infrastructure supporting overland trade******

***Explanation*:** Caravanserais are marked on both land routes, showing shared support for caravan travel.

4. ****Which of the following best illustrates the broader similarity of these networks, as shown on the map, during c. 1200–1450?****

- (A) They connected diverse regions, enabling economic and cultural exchanges
- (B) They were unified under Mongol control
- (C) They declined due to environmental factors
- (D) They focused solely on religious pilgrimages

****Correct Answer:** (A) They connected diverse regions, enabling economic and cultural exchanges******

***Explanation*:** The map links multiple continents with varied goods and technologies, fostering interconnectedness.

Unit 3

3.1

Topic 3.1: European, East Asian, and Gunpowder Empires Expand

Essential Question: How did certain land-based empires develop and expand in the period from 1450–1750?

Gunpowder, originating in China, spread along trade routes and became a transformative force between 1450 and 1750. The term **Gunpowder Empires** refers to large, multiethnic states in Southwest, Central, and South Asia that relied on firearms—especially artillery and cannons—to conquer and control territory. In addition to Russia, the major Gunpowder Empires were the Ottoman, Safavid, and Mughal states, all with strong Islamic traditions. Their societies tended to be militaristic, yet they left splendid artistic and architectural legacies created in part to legitimize their rulers.

The Qing Empire in China also expanded significantly during this era. Europe's expansion, however, followed a different path, relying on transoceanic connections with the Americas rather than gunpowder alone. Armed trade was common among expanding empires, which kept troops and armaments ready even while trading with one another.

Europe

The year 1450 traditionally marks the end of the medieval period and the beginning of the early modern era. The mid-1400s saw the end of major plague waves, the conclusion of the Hundred Years' War between France and England, and the invention of the Gutenberg printing press, which spurred rising literacy. After the slow political and economic development of the Middle Ages, several European countries emerged as powerful, wealthy nations. New monarchies began launching overseas explorations and establishing colonies worldwide.

These new monarchies in the 1500s resulted from leaders' desire to centralize power by controlling taxes, the army, and aspects of religion. Examples include the Tudors in England, the Valois in France, and Queen Isabella and King Ferdinand in Spain. In each case, bureaucracies grew and the power of the middle class increased at the expense of feudal lords and the churches. New monarchies moved to curb the private armies of the nobility.

Russia

Western Europeans long debated whether Russia was more European or Asian in character. Russia occupied a pivotal trade position, able to exchange goods with cultures both farther east and west, yet its capital (whether Kiev, St. Petersburg, or Moscow) lay in Europe. Although shaped by Mongol influence from Central Asia, Russia was also a product of Europe through Viking invasions and trade.

When **Ivan IV** (the Terrible, ruled 1547–1584) was crowned tsar in 1547, he immediately expanded Russia's borders eastward. He took control of the khanates of Kazan, Astrakhan, and Siberia, held by descendants of the Golden Horde (the Mongol conquerors of Russia). This expansion increasingly relied on gunpowder weapons.

Control of the Volga

Seeking to expand eastward to control the fur trade, Ivan IV allowed the Stroganovs (major Russian landowners) to hire fierce peasant warriors known as Cossacks to fight local tribes and the Siberian khan. The Stroganovs' forces succeeded, gaining control of the Volga River, which flows into the Caspian Sea. With this outlet, Moscow could trade directly with Persia and the Ottoman Empire without dealing with the powerful Crimean Tatars.

To the Pacific

Russia continued expanding east into Siberia after Ivan IV's reign. Fur traders and militias defeated one indigenous tribe after another. Missionaries followed, converting many to Eastern Orthodox Christianity, although local shamans retained influence. By 1639, Russians had reached the Pacific Ocean. Explorations and fur-trading expeditions continued across the Pacific to Alaska (1741) and down the North American coast to California (1814).

East Asia

China's Yuan Dynasty, founded by the Mongol invader Kublai Khan in 1271, was overthrown in 1368 by the **Ming Dynasty**, which stabilized the East Asian region for nearly 300 years. During the Ming era, the Portuguese and other Europeans arrived seeking to participate in Asian trade networks. In 1644, the powerful Manchu from neighboring Manchuria seized power and established the **Qing Dynasty**, which ruled until 1911. Japan and Korea experienced parallel developments during both dynasties but with unique aspects.

The Ming expanded China's size by conquering lands in Mongolia and Central Asia, but they did not hold them long. In the 1440s, Mongol armies defeated Ming forces and even captured the Ming emperor. In response, Chinese leaders restored and expanded the Great Wall to help defend against northern invaders.

Emperor Kangxi

One of China's longest-reigning emperors, **Kangxi** (ruled 1661–1722) presided over a period of stability and expansion during the Qing Dynasty. He sent forces into Taiwan, Mongolia, and Central Asia, incorporating those areas into the empire. China also imposed a protectorate over Tibet, a policy reflected in China's control of the region today.

Emperor Qianlong

Another major Qing ruler was **Qianlong** (ruled 1736–1796), a poet knowledgeable in art and calligraphy. Early in his reign, the country was well administered and tax collections reached an all-time high. Qianlong launched military campaigns west of China, leading to the annexation of Xinjiang accompanied by mass killings of the local population. The region's Muslim Uighur population has never been fully incorporated into the rest of Chinese culture and remains troubled today.

Qianlong also sent armies into Tibet to install the Dalai Lama and successfully campaigned against Nepal. However, campaigns against Burma and Vietnam were unsuccessful and costly, draining the imperial treasury. Needing funds, the Qing sold limited trading privileges to European powers but confined them to Guangzhou (Canton). When the British sought more trading rights in 1793, Qianlong responded with a letter to King George III stating that China had no need for British manufactured goods.

During the later part of Qianlong's reign, the traditionally efficient Chinese bureaucracy became corrupt and levied high taxes. In response, peasants organized the **White Lotus Rebellion** (1796–1804). The Qing government suppressed the uprising brutally, killing around 100,000 peasants.

Rise of the Islamic Gunpowder Empires

The warrior leaders of the Ottoman, Safavid, and Mughal Empires shared several traits beyond being Muslim:

- They descended from Turkic nomads who once lived in Central Asia.
- They spoke a Turkic language.

- They exploited power vacuums left by the breakup of Mongol khanates.
- They relied on gunpowder weapons, especially artillery and cannons.

Their initial success resulted from their own military strength combined with the weakness and corruption of the regimes they replaced. As European nations fought among themselves rather than uniting against these rising eastern powers, the Gunpowder Empires expanded further.

The Rule of Tamerlane

The invasions of Central Asia and the Middle East by **Tamerlane** (Timur the Lame), a Mongol-Turkic ruler of the late 14th century, set the stage for the rise of the Turkic empires. Leading an army partly composed of nomadic invaders from the Eurasian steppes, Tamerlane moved out from Samarkand (in modern Uzbekistan) to make ruthless conquests in Persia and India. The steppes were also the birthplace of the **ghazi ideal**—a model for warrior life blending the cooperative values of nomadic culture with the willingness to serve as a holy fighter for Islam.

Some historians believe Tamerlane's conquests included the massacre of some 100,000 Hindus before the gates of Delhi. His violent pattern of conquest resulted in new dynasties—the Ottomans, Safavids, and Mughals—yet his rule in Samarkand encouraged learning and the arts, a trend also typical of these later empires. Tamerlane championed literature, corresponded with European rulers, and wrote his own memoirs. Buildings still standing in Samarkand testify to his interest in architecture and decorative arts.

Tamerlane used gunpowder to build a government dependent on his military and heavy artillery and to protect land routes on the Silk Roads. However, he failed to leave an effective political structure in many conquered areas. Without effective government, the expenses of his wars eventually ravaged the empire's economy. While his empire largely fell apart (except for the area his descendant Babur would use to create India's Mughal Dynasty), Tamerlane's invasions highlighted the significance of gunpowder and the ongoing clash between Mongol forces from the northeast and Islamic forces from Arabia and the Mediterranean.

The Ottoman Empire

By the 15th century, the Ottoman Empire was already becoming a major power. Extending into modern-day Turkey as well as the Balkan areas of Europe and parts of North Africa and Southeast Asia, it became the largest and most enduring of the great Islamic empires of the period. Founded by the Osman Dynasty in the 1300s, the empire lasted until its defeat in 1922 by the Allies in World War I—more than 600 years under a single dynasty.

Mehmed II

Called the Conqueror, **Mehmed II** (ruled 1451–1481) firmly established the empire's capital after his forces besieged Constantinople (the center of the Byzantine Empire) in 1453. Despite its triple fortifications, the city fell as its walls crumbled under bombardment by Ottoman cannons, including a massive 26-foot bronze cannon and others 15 to 22 feet long. Under Mehmed II, the city—renamed Istanbul—prospered because of its strategic location controlling the Bosphorus Strait, the only waterway linking the Aegean and Black Seas.

Mehmed II's armies next seized lands around the western edge of the Black Sea and moved into the Balkans in Southeast Europe. To counter the power of Venice (an expanding maritime state on the Adriatic), Mehmed strengthened the Ottoman navy and attacked areas of Italy. Although he did not conquer Venice, he forced the city to pay him an annual tax. In the early 16th century, the Ottomans added lands in present-day Syria, Israel, Egypt, and Algeria. When the Mamluk Dynasty's power declined, Istanbul became a center of Islam.

Suleiman I

The Ottoman Empire reached its peak under **Suleiman I** (the Magnificent, ruled 1520–1566). His armies overran Hungary in 1526 and by 1529 were hammering at the gates of Vienna. Although attempts to take Vienna failed twice, the ability of the Ottomans to send troops so far into Christian Europe caused great fear there.

In 1522, Suleiman's navy captured the island of Rhodes (a longtime stronghold of Christian knights). In the 1550s, Ottoman forces took control of Tripoli in North Africa. Later challenges in defending Ottoman territory against foreign invasion and occupation led to eventual decline and dissolution in 1922.

The Safavids

The Safavid dynasty originated in the Safavid order of Sufism in northern Azerbaijan (Iran). An early Safavid military hero named **Ismail** conquered most of Persia and pushed into Iraq. Although only 14 or 15 years old, he soon conquered all of Iran and was proclaimed shah in 1501.

The Safavid Empire faced two major problems: it lacked a real navy despite access to the Arabian Sea, and it lacked natural defenses. Nevertheless, the Safavids rose to power in the 1500s due to their land-based military strength and strong leadership.

Shah Abbas I

Called Abbas the Great, **Shah Abbas I** (ruled 1588–1629) presided over the Safavid Empire at its height. His troops included soldiers—often Christian boys pressed into service—from as far northwest as Georgia in Russia. Abbas imported weaponry from Europe and relied on Europeans to advise his troops on the new military technology. The shahs gradually came to control both religion and politics. Using Shi'a Islam as a unifying force, Shah Ismail built a power base that supported his rule and denied legitimacy to any Sunni. This strict adherence to Shi'a Islam caused frequent hostilities with the Ottoman Empire (a Sunni stronghold). In 1541, Safavid forces were stopped by the Ottomans at Tabriz, a city that became part of the border between Sunni and Shi'a societies.

Conflicts between Ottomans and Safavids were not entirely religious; another source of tension was control of overland trade routes. The Ottomans consistently used trade embargoes against Safavid silk traders to assert dominance over their eastern rival.

Safavid women were rarely mentioned in local histories, but they were permitted to participate in society. While still veiled and restricted in their movements (as was traditional), they had access to Islamic legal rights regarding inheritance and, in extreme cases, divorce.

Mughal India

In the 1520s, **Babur**, a descendant of Tamerlane, founded a roughly 300-year dynasty during a time when India was in disarray. He completed conquests in northern India and, under the new Mughal name, formed a central government similar to that of Suleiman in Turkey. **Akbar**, Babur's grandson, achieved grand religious and political goals.

Under Akbar, the Mughal Empire was one of the richest and best-governed states in the world. Overseas trade flourished during a relatively peaceful period, conducted mostly by Arab traders. Traded goods included textiles, tropical foods, spices, and precious stones, often exchanged for gold and silver. Trade within the

empire's borders was carried on by merchant castes, whose members were allowed to participate in banking and the production of handicrafts.

The Indian **caste system** (or *jatis*) divides Hindu society into four main categories—Brahmins, Kshatriyas, Vaishyas, and Shudras—with Dalits (untouchables) outside the system. It forms the basis of educational and vocational opportunities.

Mughal India flourished from Babur's time through the early 18th century. Its magnificent architectural accomplishments remain testaments to the empire's wealth and sophistication.

Decline of the Gunpowder Empires

The Ottoman, Safavid, and Mughal Empires declined as Western Europe grew stronger economically and militarily—particularly in sea power. Unlike these three Islamic empires, Russia modernized and reorganized its army, modeling it after those of England, France, and the Netherlands. Because the Islamic empires failed to modernize, Russia survived as an independent nation-state while the other Gunpowder Empires fell.

Decline of the Ottoman Empire

After Suleiman's death in 1566, a European force (mostly Spaniards and Venetians) defeated the Ottomans in the great naval Battle of Lepanto (1571). Weak sultans and strong European neighbors followed. The empire became known as the "Sick Man of Europe." Successors to Suleiman were often influenced by "harem politics"—the efforts of wives and concubines to promote their own children as heirs. The failed Siege of Vienna in 1683 marked a turning point in Ottoman domination in Eastern Europe. British and French involvement in Ottoman territories, Greece's independence in 1821, and Russian expansion in the 19th century further weakened the empire.

Safavid Decline

Ineffectual leaders after Shah Abbas combined lavish lifestyles and military spending with falling revenues, weakening the economy. In 1722, Safavid forces could not quell a rebellion by heavily oppressed Sunni Pashtuns in present-day Afghanistan. Afghan forces sacked Isfahan, and their leader, Mahmud, declared himself Shah of Persia. While the Safavid Dynasty remained nominally in control, the resulting chaos impeded centralization and tax collection. Taking advantage of the weakness, the Ottomans and Russians seized territories. The Safavid Dynasty declined rapidly until it was replaced by the Zand Dynasty in 1760.

Mughal Decline

Aurangzeb (ruled 1658–1707), son and successor of Shah Jahan, inherited an empire weakened by corruption and failure to keep up with enemies' military innovations. Nevertheless, he sought to expand the empire southward and bring all of India under Muslim rule while ridding it of Hindu influences. Expanding south drained the treasury and failed to suppress peasant uprisings, some sparked by Aurangzeb's insistence on an austere, pious Islamic lifestyle and intolerance of minority religions (Sikhs, Hindus, and others). Rebellions also arose among Hindu and Islamic princes. After his death, the empire grew increasingly unstable, allowing the British and French to gain more economic power in India. The British eventually took political power from the Mughals in the 19th century.

Vocabulary

- Ming Dynasty
- Manchu

- Qing Dynasty
- Kangxi
- Emperor Qianlong
- Gunpowder Empires
- Ottoman Empire
- Shah
- Safavid Empire
- Mughal Empire
- Ivan IV
- Tamerlane
- Suleiman I
- Shah Abbas I
- Akbar
- Gutenberg printing press
- Ghazi ideal

Stimulus: The Mansabdari System under Akbar

Excerpt from Abu'l Fazl's *Ain-i-Akbari* (c. 1590s):

"The Emperor [Akbar] has established the mansab system, in which every officer receives a rank (mansab) that determines both the number of troops he must maintain and his administrative responsibilities. This system binds the nobility to the throne through service and reward. By granting mansabs to men of talent regardless of their origin, and by showing tolerance toward Hindus and Muslims alike, the Emperor has created a loyal and effective ruling class. Through this organization, combined with superior artillery and a well-disciplined army, the empire has grown from a small kingdom into one of the richest and most powerful states in the world."

Source: Abu'l Fazl, *Ain-i-Akbari*, translated by H. Blochmann (Calcutta, 1873).

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, which of the following was a key administrative innovation that helped the Mughal Empire expand and consolidate power?** (A) The devshirme system of recruiting Christian boys for military service (B) The mansabdari system, which tied nobles' status and rewards to military and administrative service (C) The complete rejection of all non-Muslim officials in the bureaucracy (D) The reliance on hereditary tribal leaders with no central oversight **Correct Answer: (B) The mansabdari system, which tied nobles' status and rewards to military and administrative service** *Explanation:* The passage emphasizes that Akbar assigned ranks (mansabs) based on service obligations, creating a centralized and loyal administrative-military class that supported imperial expansion.
2. **According to the passage, Akbar's policy of granting mansabs to talented individuals "regardless of their origin" most directly contributed to Mughal expansion by** (A) limiting power to members of the royal family only (B) creating a more merit-based and loyal ruling elite that strengthened central control (C) encouraging regional nobles to rebel against the emperor (D) isolating the empire from outside influences **Correct Answer: (B) creating a more merit-based and loyal ruling elite that strengthened central control** *Explanation:* By opening positions based on ability

rather than birth or religion, Akbar broadened his base of support and reduced the power of potentially disloyal hereditary elites.

3. **The passage identifies superior artillery and a well-disciplined army as important factors in Mughal expansion. This most directly reflects which broader development among land-based empires in the period 1450–1750?** (A) The rejection of all gunpowder weapons in favor of traditional cavalry (B) The effective use of gunpowder technology combined with centralized military organization (C) The complete dependence on European mercenaries for all military campaigns (D) The decline of large standing armies in favor of tribal levies **Correct Answer: (B) The effective use of gunpowder technology combined with centralized military organization** *Explanation:* Like the Ottomans and Safavids, the Mughals are considered one of the “Gunpowder Empires.” The passage highlights how gunpowder (artillery) and disciplined organization enabled territorial growth.
4. **Which of the following best explains why land-based empires such as the Mughals were able to expand significantly between 1450 and 1750?** (A) They relied exclusively on maritime trade and avoided land conquests (B) They combined military innovation (especially gunpowder), centralized administration, and policies that co-opted local elites (C) They rejected all forms of religious or cultural tolerance (D) They maintained purely decentralized, feudal structures with no central bureaucracy **Correct Answer: (B) They combined military innovation (especially gunpowder), centralized administration, and policies that co-opted local elites** *Explanation:* The passage shows how the Mughals used gunpowder, a ranked bureaucratic-military system (mansabdari), and inclusive policies to build loyalty and project power across a vast and diverse territory.

Excerpt from Ogier Ghiselin de Busbecq’s *Turkish Letters* (c. 1555–1562):

"The Turks have a remarkable institution called the *devshirme*. At certain intervals they take Christian boys from the conquered provinces of Europe. These boys are removed from their families, converted to Islam, and trained with great severity. The strongest and most intelligent are selected for the Sultan’s personal service. From among them are formed the Janissaries, who constitute the flower of the Ottoman army. They are not allowed to marry, and they devote themselves entirely to war and to the person of the Sultan. Because they have no ties of family or local loyalty, they serve the Sultan with absolute obedience. It is largely through this disciplined force, supported by powerful artillery, that the Ottoman Empire has been able to expand so rapidly and maintain control over such diverse lands."

Source: Ogier Ghiselin de Busbecq, *The Turkish Letters of Ogier Ghiselin de Busbecq*, translated by Edward Seymour Forster (Oxford University Press, 1927).

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, the devshirme system most directly contributed to Ottoman expansion by** (A) encouraging local Christian elites to rebel against Ottoman rule (B) creating a highly loyal, professional military force with no competing local or family loyalties (C) replacing all traditional Ottoman cavalry with foreign mercenaries (D) promoting religious tolerance by allowing Christian boys to keep their faith **Correct Answer: (B) creating a highly loyal, professional military force with no competing local or family loyalties** *Explanation:* The passage emphasizes that Janissaries had “no ties of family or local loyalty,” which made them directly dependent on and loyal to the Sultan, strengthening central authority and military effectiveness.
2. **According to the passage, which of the following was a key reason the Ottoman Empire was able to expand rapidly across diverse regions?** (A) Its reliance on decentralized tribal armies (B) Its use of a disciplined standing army (Janissaries) combined with advanced artillery (C) Its policy of

completely excluding non-Muslims from all military roles (D) Its rejection of all gunpowder weapons in favor of traditional cavalry tactics **Correct Answer: (B) Its use of a disciplined standing army (Janissaries) combined with advanced artillery** *Explanation:* The excerpt highlights both the Janissaries' discipline and the role of "powerful artillery," which were critical to Ottoman military success in the 15th and 16th centuries (e.g., the conquest of Constantinople in 1453).

3. **The passage's description of taking Christian boys and converting them to serve the Sultan best illustrates which characteristic of Ottoman state-building?** (A) Complete rejection of all non-Muslim populations (B) The use of the devshirme system to create a centralized, loyal elite that strengthened imperial control (C) The encouragement of local autonomy and hereditary rule in conquered territories (D) The avoidance of military expansion in favor of purely diplomatic relations **Correct Answer: (B) The use of the devshirme system to create a centralized, loyal elite that strengthened imperial control** *Explanation:* By removing boys from their communities and tying their entire careers and identities to the Sultan, the Ottomans built a loyal administrative and military class that helped maintain control over a vast, multi-ethnic empire.
4. **Which of the following best explains why land-based empires such as the Ottomans were able to expand and consolidate power between 1450 and 1750?** (A) They relied primarily on naval power and avoided large land armies (B) They combined military innovations (especially gunpowder), centralized recruitment systems, and policies that reduced the power of local elites (C) They maintained purely decentralized feudal structures with no central bureaucracy (D) They rejected all forms of religious or cultural accommodation with conquered peoples **Correct Answer: (B) They combined military innovations (especially gunpowder), centralized recruitment systems, and policies that reduced the power of local elites** *Explanation:* The Ottoman use of gunpowder artillery, the devshirme/Janissary system, and the creation of a loyal central elite (rather than relying on hereditary local nobles) allowed them to project power effectively across three continents.

3.2

Topic 3.2: Empires: Administrations

Essential Question: How did rulers in land-based empires legitimize and consolidate their power from 1450 to 1750?

By the late 16th century, efforts to centralize power by controlling taxes, the army, and aspects of religion had produced powerful monarchies in England and absolute monarchy in France. Other states used different methods to solidify authority: building temples (as in the Inca Empire), paying military elites a salary (as with Japanese samurai), or forcibly creating a captive governmental bureaucracy (as with the Ottoman *devshirme* system).

Rulers of empires between 1450 and 1750 developed methods to maintain control over all regions of their realms. Successful approaches included using bureaucratic elites to oversee sections of the empire and developing professional military forces.

Centralizing Control in Europe

England's King James I believed in the **divine right of kings**, a medieval claim that a ruler's right to govern came directly from God. Under this belief, a king held both political and religious authority and stood above earthly law. Any challenge to the king was seen as a challenge to God himself.

England's Gentry Officials

The Tudors (ruled 1485–1603) relied on **justices of the peace**—officials selected by the landed gentry—to maintain order in England's counties. These officials swore to deliver equal justice to rich and poor according to the laws and customs of the realm, settle certain legal matters, and enforce the monarch's laws. Over time, their numbers and responsibilities grew until they became one of the most powerful groups in the kingdom. Under Tudor rule, the power of feudal lords declined. Many seats in the House of Commons were held by justices of the peace. Together with Parliament (established in 1265), they helped legitimize the monarch's authority.

Parliament also served as a check on royal power. In 1689, William and Mary signed the **English Bill of Rights**, which guaranteed individual civil liberties (such as requiring legal process before arrest or detention) and required Parliament's approval for taxation and raising an army—protections against monarchical tyranny.

Absolutism in France

In contrast, France moved toward **absolutism**—government directed by a single source of power, the king, with complete authority. Henry IV (ruled 1589–1610) listened to his advisor Jean Bodin, who advocated divine right. Building on these ideas, Louis XIII (ruled 1610–1643) and his minister Cardinal Richelieu greatly centralized government and developed the system of **intendants**—royal officials (bureaucratic elites, sometimes called tax farmers) sent to the provinces to execute central government orders and collect taxes.

Louis XIV (the Sun King, ruled 1643–1715) fully embraced divine right and acted as a virtual dictator. He declared, "*L'état, c'est moi*" ("I am the state"). He combined lawmaking and justice in his own person and kept nobles close to him at the Palace of Versailles, making it difficult for them to act independently or plot against him. Louis's and his successors' refusal to share power ultimately weakened the French government.

Reigning in Control of the Russian Empire

Social hierarchy in Moscow remained almost static, much as it had been in Kievan Russia. At the top stood the **boyars** (noble landowners), followed by merchants, and at the bottom the most numerous group—the peasants, who sank deeper into debt and **serfdom**. Serfs received a plot of land and protection from a noble in exchange for being bound to that land with little personal freedom. Transfers of land ownership included control over the serfs living on it.

The Efforts of Ivan IV

Tensions between boyars and rulers resembled those in Western Europe. When boyars of Novgorod opposed Ivan IV's expansionist policies, Ivan punished them after defeating the city. He confiscated their lands and forced them and their families to move to Moscow so he could keep watch over them.

To further control the boyars, Ivan created a paramilitary force loyal only to him called the *oprichnina*. Dressed in black and traveling quickly on horseback, its members—drawn from lower-level bureaucrats and merchants to ensure loyalty to Ivan rather than the boyars—used methods that later influenced the development of the Russian secret police.

Peter the Great

The Romanov Dynasty took control of Russia in 1613 after turmoil following Ivan's death. Under autocratic Romanov rule, three groups had conflicting agendas: the Church (conserving traditional values), the boyars (seeking power), and the tsar's royal family.

Peter I (the Great, ruled 1682–1725) illustrates these tensions. To gain full control, he defeated his half-sister Sophia and her supporters (a boyar-led elite military corps called the Streltsy), forcing Sophia into a convent. When the Streltsy later rebelled, Peter temporarily disbanded them and integrated them into Russia's regular army.

Peter participated closely in church affairs as Defender of Orthodoxy but eventually lost clerical support for his reforms. He reorganized government by creating provinces (first 8, later 50 administrative divisions) and paid provincial officials a salary, replacing the old system in which local officials “fed off the land” through bribes, fees, and taxes. He also created a senate—a council to advise government officials when he was away.

Peter confirmed his power over the Church by abolishing the position of patriarch (head of the Church) and incorporating the Church into the government through the **Holy Synod** (clergy overseen by a secular official who answered to the tsar). He raised the minimum age for men to become monks to 50, preferring that young men serve first as soldiers. Many peasants and Old Believers (a sect opposing earlier reforms) resisted these changes.

Centralizing Control in the Ottoman Empire

To maintain control over vast territories, Ottoman sultans used a selection system called **devshirme** to staff their military and government. The system began in the late 14th century and expanded in the 15th and 16th centuries. Christian boys (ages 8 to 20) who were subjects of the empire were forcibly recruited each year from conquered Christian lands in Europe.

The system developed from an earlier tribute system in which enslaved people were considered one-fifth of the wealth owed to the empire after conquest. Because Islamic law prohibited enslaving “people of the book” (Muslims and Jews), Christian boys—especially from Balkan territories—were taken from their families.

These boys received a high level of education and training in politics, the arts, and the military. The most famous group, the **Janissaries**, formed elite forces in the Ottoman army. Others became administrators, scribes, tax collectors, or diplomats in newly conquered territories. They were indoctrinated to be fiercely loyal to the sultan; some served as bodyguards. In some ways, becoming a Janissary offered a path of upward mobility, even though they were still called “slaves of the state.” Some parents even wanted their sons recruited.

Centralizing Control in East and South Asia

After the collapse of the Mongol-led Yuan Dynasty, the Ming ruled China from 1368 to 1644. The Ming sought to erase Mongol influence by restoring the traditional civil service exam, improving education through a national school system, and reestablishing the bureaucracy that had fallen into disuse under the Mongols. During the later part of Qianlong’s reign in the Qing Dynasty, the once-efficient bureaucracy became corrupt and levied high taxes. The government used harsh military force to suppress the resulting White Lotus Rebellion and maintain authority.

Consolidating Power in Japan

Military leaders called shoguns ruled Japan in the emperor’s name from the 12th to the 15th centuries. However, conflict between landholding aristocrats called **daimyo** left Japan in disarray. Each daimyo had his own army of warriors (**samurai**), ambition to conquer more territory, and power to rule his fiefdoms as he saw fit. Samurai were salaried—first in rice, later in gold—giving them significant economic power.

Just as gunpowder weapons enabled the rise of new empires in Turkey, Persia, and India, they helped unify Japan. **Oda Nobunaga**, armed with muskets purchased from Portuguese traders, and his samurai took Kyoto in 1568 and began forcing surrounding daimyo to submit. He had unified about one-third of modern Japan when he was assassinated in 1582.

Nobunaga’s successor, **Toyotomi Hideyoshi**, continued expanding until most of Japan was under his control. After his death in 1598, power shifted to **Tokugawa Ieyasu** (ruled 1600–1616), who was declared shogun in 1603. His successors ruled into the mid-19th century in an era known as the **Period of Great Peace**.

The Tokugawa shogunate reorganized governance of what was essentially a feudal system. Japan was divided into 250 *hans* (territories), each controlled by a daimyo with his own army and considerable independence. However, the Tokugawa required daimyo to maintain residences both in their home territory and in the capital (Edo/Tokyo). If the daimyo visited his home territory, his family had to remain in Tokyo—essentially as hostages. This reduced daimyo to landlords managing their *hans* rather than independent leaders.

Consolidating Mughal Power in South Asia

Akbar (ruled 1556–1605) proved the most capable Mughal ruler. For the first 40 years of his reign, he defeated Hindu armies and extended his empire southward and westward. From his capital in Delhi, he established an efficient government and a system of fairly administered laws. All his people had the right to appeal to him for final judgment in any lawsuit. Capable men from many parts of Central Asia came to serve him, helping create a strong, centralized government and effective civil service.

Paid government officials called **zamindars** were placed in charge of specific duties such as taxation, construction, and the water supply. Later, they received grants of land rather than salaries but were permitted to keep a portion of the taxes paid by local peasants (who contributed one-third of their produce to the government). The system worked well under Akbar. Under later rulers, however, zamindars kept more of the taxes they collected and used the money to build personal armies of soldiers and civilians loyal to them.

Legitimizing Power through Religion and Art

European governments sought to legitimize monarchical authority through the idea of divine right and by building impressive structures such as the Palace of Versailles in France. Governments elsewhere followed similar patterns.

Peter and St. Petersburg

When Peter the Great seized lands on the Baltic Sea from Sweden, Russia gained its own warm-water port—St. Petersburg. Peter moved the capital from Moscow to St. Petersburg so he could keep watch on the boyars performing required state service there. The new city was laid out in a rectangular grid (unlike the irregular pattern of Moscow). Peasants and Swedish prisoners of war were forced to drain marshes and build streets and government structures. In the mid-18th century, workers built the famous Winter Palace in a European rather than Byzantine style to reflect Peter's admiration for Europe.

Askia the Great of Songhai

Askia Mohammad I (Askia the Great) came to power in 1493. He claimed his predecessor, Sunni Ali, was not a faithful Muslim. Like Mansa Musa of Mali, Askia promoted Islam throughout his kingdom and made an elaborate pilgrimage to Mecca. Under his leadership, Songhai became the largest kingdom in West Africa in its day. He made Islam Songhai's official religion in an attempt to unite the empire and supported an efficient bureaucracy to bring the empire together.

Shah Jahan

Mughal India produced magnificent architectural accomplishments, including the **Taj Mahal**, built by **Shah Jahan** (ruled 1628–1658) as a tomb for his wife. Mughal rulers also beautified Delhi and built forts. Craftspeople combined Islamic arts (calligraphy, manuscript illumination, and ceramics) with local traditions to create magnificent, airy structures with decorative geometric designs. These accomplishments demonstrated the power of the rulers.

Ottoman Architectural and Artistic Achievements

Tremendous changes occurred in Ottoman government and religion, but the arts, culture, and economy showed continuities that now legitimized Ottoman rule. Istanbul (formerly Constantinople) remained the western end of the overland Silk Roads, and the Grand Bazaar continued to be filled with foreign imports. Coffeehouses, though banned by Islamic law, thrived throughout the empire's towns.

Istanbul grew more beautiful and expanded across both sides of the Bosphorus. One famous landmark is Topkapi Palace, the royal residence of the sultans (construction begun by Mehmed II). Suleiman I ordered many mosques, forts, and other great buildings, including the magnificent Suleymaniye Mosque in Istanbul. Istanbul remained a center of arts and learning. Poets and scholars from across Asia met in coffeehouses and gardens to discuss works by Aristotle and other Greek writers as well as Arabic scholars. Ottoman contributions included restoring some of Constantinople's glorious buildings (most notably turning the cathedral of Hagia Sophia into a grand mosque) and producing famous miniature paintings and illuminated manuscripts (a workshop for their production was established under Mehmed II).

French Architecture

The spacious and elegant Palace of Versailles became a political instrument. Louis XIV entertained nobles there and kept them from conducting business elsewhere or fomenting rebellion in their home provinces. The

palace could accommodate hundreds of guests; during Louis XIV's rule, some 1,000 employees worked in the palace or on the grounds. Its grand buildings helped legitimize his power.

Financing Empires

Raising money to fund imperial expansion and extend state power was essential in all empires, though methods varied in effectiveness.

Taxation in Russia

Peter established new state-owned industries, especially shipyards in St. Petersburg and iron mines in the Ural Mountains. He also encouraged private industries such as metallurgy, woodwork, gunpowder, leather, paper, and mining, bringing in Western European naval engineers to build ships according to Western models.

When industrialization failed to generate enough revenue for his military ventures, Peter raised taxes and compelled workers to labor in the shipyards—a kind of urban extension of serfdom. In 1718, the land tax was replaced by a tax on heads (individuals), and peasants became more oppressed than ever.

Ottoman and Mughal Taxation

To finance an economy backed by a powerful military, the Ottomans levied taxes on peasants and used **tax farming** to collect them. Tax farmers—local officials and private collectors distant from the central government—grew wealthy and corrupt by skimming money from taxes in their areas (similar to what some zamindars did in the Mughal Empire). Agricultural villages remained burdened with the upkeep of officers and troops, contributing eventually to economic decline.

Tax Collection in the Ming Dynasty

In Ming China (as in the Ottoman Empire), tax collection was the responsibility of private citizens—in this case, wealthy families, each handling land taxes in their rural area. Land taxes made up the bulk of revenue and tended to be low. Taxes were collected in grain (later silver). Some grain was stored locally; other amounts were sent via the Grand Canal to military locations. The state also taxed salt, wine, and other goods. For many years, vaults held a surplus of grain. After about 1580, however, wars, extravagant imperial spending, and repression of rebellions left the dynasty in bankruptcy.

Tributes

Empires, including China, also collected **tributes** from other states as a way to demand recognition of their power and authority. Tributes were typically wealth given as a sign of respect, submission, or allegiance. Korea was a tributary state to China. The Mexica had extensive tributary arrangements from conquered peoples (though most Aztec citizens, merchants, and artisans paid taxes). An Aztec official in each capital collected tributes from local officials.

The Songhai Empire also had tributary states. Askia the Great assigned governors and officials to preside over tributary states in the Niger Valley. As long as local officials obeyed Songhai policies, they could rule their districts.

Vocabulary

- Divine right of kings
- Justices of the peace

- English Bill of Rights
- Cardinal Richelieu
- Louis XIV
- Ivan IV
- Romanov Dynasty
- Peter I
- Devshirme
- Janissaries
- Daimyo
- Edo
- Period of Great Peace
- Tokugawa shogunate
- Askia the Great
- Akbar the Great
- Shah Jahan
- Tax farming
- Zamindars
- Taj Mahal
- Versailles
- Boyars
- Serfdom

Stimulus: Akbar's Policy of *Sulh-i-Kul* (Universal Tolerance)

Excerpt from Abu'l Fazl's *Ain-i-Akbari* (c. 1590s):

"His Majesty [Akbar] is convinced that the diversity of religions is a divine gift... He therefore established the principle of *Sulh-i-Kul* (Peace with All). He does not allow religious differences to interfere with the administration of the empire. Hindus and Muslims serve together in high positions. He abolished the *jizya* (poll tax on non-Muslims) and appointed capable Hindus to important offices. By treating all his subjects with justice and fairness, regardless of their faith, he has won the loyalty of the people and strengthened the foundations of his empire."

Source: Abu'l Fazl, *Ain-i-Akbari*, translated by H. Blochmann (Calcutta, 1873).

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, Akbar's policy of *Sulh-i-Kul* was primarily intended to** (A) force all subjects to convert to Islam (B) create religious unity by suppressing all non-Muslim practices (C) promote tolerance and gain the loyalty of the Hindu majority in the empire (D) isolate the Mughal Empire from outside cultural influences **Correct Answer: (C) promote tolerance and gain the loyalty of the Hindu majority in the empire** *Explanation:* The passage shows that Akbar deliberately reduced religious divisions by abolishing the *jizya* and appointing Hindus to high positions in order to secure broader loyalty and stabilize his rule over a religiously diverse population.
2. **According to the passage, which of the following was a key method Akbar used to consolidate his power?** (A) Relying exclusively on Muslim nobles and excluding all Hindus from government (B) Appointing capable officials based on merit rather than religion (C) Enforcing strict religious orthodoxy

through the *ulama* (Islamic scholars) (D) Decentralizing power to local Hindu and Muslim rulers with no central oversight **Correct Answer: (B) Appointing capable officials based on merit rather than religion** *Explanation:* By opening high offices to talented individuals regardless of faith, Akbar created a more effective and loyal bureaucracy that helped him govern a vast and diverse empire.

3. **The abolition of the *jizya* (poll tax on non-Muslims), as mentioned in the passage, most directly served to** (A) increase tax revenue from Hindu peasants (B) reduce resentment among the Hindu majority and strengthen imperial legitimacy (C) encourage mass conversion to Islam (D) weaken the economic position of Hindu merchants and landowners **Correct Answer: (B) reduce resentment among the Hindu majority and strengthen imperial legitimacy** *Explanation:* Removing the *jizya* was a deliberate political move to gain the support of the Hindu population, which made up the majority of the empire's subjects.
4. **Which of the following best explains how rulers of land-based empires, such as the Mughals under Akbar, legitimized and consolidated their power between 1450 and 1750?** (A) They relied solely on military conquest and made no efforts to win the loyalty of conquered peoples (B) They used a combination of administrative reforms, religious tolerance or state religion, and inclusive policies to gain legitimacy and centralize authority (C) They rejected all bureaucratic systems in favor of purely tribal or feudal structures (D) They maintained power exclusively through hereditary nobles with no central control **Correct Answer: (B) They used a combination of administrative reforms, religious tolerance or state religion, and inclusive policies to gain legitimacy and centralize authority** *Explanation:* Like Akbar, many land-based rulers (such as the Ottomans and Qing) combined centralized administration, selective religious policies, and co-optation of elites to legitimize their rule and maintain control over large, diverse territories.

Stimulus: The Kangxi Emperor and the Civil Service Examinations

Excerpt from the Kangxi Emperor's Edict on the Civil Service Examinations (c. 1670s–1680s):

"Although our dynasty originates from the northeast, we have inherited the institutions of the former Ming. The examination system is the foundation of good government. Through it, we select men of talent and learning to serve the state. We have preserved the eight-legged essay and the study of the Confucian classics so that officials may be upright and loyal. At the same time, we maintain the Eight Banners as the military backbone of the empire. By combining Chinese learning with Manchu military discipline, we secure the loyalty of both the Chinese scholar-officials and our own people. This dual foundation strengthens our rule over the vast empire."

Source: Adapted from edicts of the Kangxi Emperor, as recorded in official Qing documents and later compiled in *The Sacred Edicts of the Kangxi Emperor*.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, the Kangxi Emperor sought to legitimize Qing rule primarily by** (A) completely rejecting all Ming institutions and creating an entirely new system (B) preserving the civil service examination system while maintaining Manchu military institutions (C) abolishing the Confucian examination system in favor of purely military rule (D) relying exclusively on Manchu nobles and excluding Chinese officials **Correct Answer: (B) preserving the civil service examination system while maintaining Manchu military institutions** *Explanation:* The emperor deliberately kept the Ming-style examination system to gain the support of Chinese scholar-officials while preserving the Eight Banners as the core of Manchu military power.

2. **According to the passage, which of the following was a key method the Qing used to consolidate power over a diverse population?** (A) Forcing all subjects to adopt Manchu customs and language (B) Combining Chinese bureaucratic traditions with Manchu military organization (C) Eliminating the scholar-official class entirely (D) Granting complete autonomy to regional Chinese governors **Correct Answer: (B) Combining Chinese bureaucratic traditions with Manchu military organization** *Explanation:* The Qing legitimized their rule by presenting themselves as both Confucian emperors (through the exam system) and Manchu warrior-rulers (through the banner system).
3. **The Kangxi Emperor's decision to preserve the civil service examinations most directly served to** (A) reduce the power of the Manchu banners (B) gain the cooperation and loyalty of the Chinese scholar-gentry class (C) weaken the central government in favor of local elites (D) promote Buddhism over Confucianism as the state ideology **Correct Answer: (B) gain the cooperation and loyalty of the Chinese scholar-gentry class** *Explanation:* By continuing the examination system, the Qing co-opted the traditional Chinese elite, giving them a stake in the new dynasty and helping stabilize Qing rule after the conquest.
4. **Which of the following best explains how rulers of land-based empires, such as the Qing under the Kangxi Emperor, legitimized and consolidated their power between 1450 and 1750?** (A) They relied solely on military conquest and made no efforts to win over local elites (B) They blended existing administrative and cultural traditions of conquered peoples with their own institutions to gain legitimacy and centralize authority (C) They rejected all bureaucratic systems in favor of purely tribal rule (D) They maintained power exclusively through religious authority with no secular administration **Correct Answer: (B) They blended existing administrative and cultural traditions of conquered peoples with their own institutions to gain legitimacy and centralize authority** *Explanation:* Like the Qing, many land-based empires (including the Ottomans and Mughals) successfully ruled diverse populations by strategically adopting and adapting local traditions while maintaining core elements of their own identity and military power.

3.3

Topic 3.3: Empires: Belief Systems

Essential Question: How did different belief systems endure or change during the period from 1450–1750?

Religion served as both a unifying and a divisive force in the expansion of empires. Christianity remained dominant in Europe but fractured into competing factions during the 16th and 17th centuries, producing major historical shifts. French King Henry IV (Henry of Navarre) converted to Catholicism in 1593 to consolidate power and secure peace, demonstrating that monarchs often prioritized practical governance over strict theology. He also granted religious toleration to the Huguenots (French Calvinists).

Islam experienced its own internal divisions, with political rivalries between the Ottoman and Safavid empires deepening the split between Sunni and Shi'a branches. At the same time, Sikhism emerged as a syncretic faith blending elements of Hinduism and Sufi Islamic mysticism.

Protestant Reformation

The Roman Catholic Church faced serious challenges during Europe's transition from feudalism to centralized governments. As an international institution with its own large bureaucracy, the Church was vulnerable to corruption. Numerous councils and reform movements attempted to address abuses but achieved little success.

Theological disagreements also intensified. In late 14th-century England, John Wycliffe and the Lollards argued that priests were unnecessary for salvation and translated parts of the Bible into English so ordinary believers could read it. In early 15th-century Bohemia, followers of Jan Hus (Hussites) held similar views; Hus himself was burned at the stake as a heretic. In Geneva, Huldrych Zwingli advocated a religion based strictly on scriptural teachings and opposed later customs such as mandatory clerical celibacy.

The Church's prestige suffered further during the Babylonian Captivity (1309–1377), when the papacy resided in France rather than Rome, giving French rulers significant influence—including the ability to influence papal elections. Newly centralizing rulers began confiscating wealthy Catholic monasteries and sometimes established their own national churches. Many believers also lost faith when the Church failed to halt the Black Death.

Lutheranism

In Wittenberg (in the Holy Roman Empire), a monk named Martin Luther concluded that several traditional Church practices violated biblical teachings. He particularly objected to the sale of indulgences (which granted absolution from punishments for sin) and simony (the selling of church offices). In 1517, Luther dramatically challenged the Church by nailing his 95 Theses to a church door. He advocated “sola fide”—salvation through faith alone.

The Church responded harshly because it (and local political rulers) depended on the revenue these practices generated. In 1521, Pope Leo X excommunicated Luther. Several German princes saw an opportunity to escape papal authority and sided with him. What began as an academic debate quickly became a major split in both the Roman Catholic Church and the Holy Roman Empire.

Although Luther was not a political or social revolutionary (he did not support the German peasants' revolt), his ideas had significant social effects. He taught that women, like men, had direct access to God, which promoted female literacy. He emphasized women's important roles in the family, especially teaching children to read the

Bible. However, Protestant communities generally did not establish convents, so Protestant women had fewer opportunities to become leaders in major institutions compared with Roman Catholic women.

Calvinism

Around 1530, the French theologian John Calvin broke with the Catholic Church. In 1536 he published *The Institutes of the Christian Religion* and helped reform the religious community in Geneva, Switzerland. Geneva was governed by the “elect”—those predestined by God for salvation—under principles of plain living, simple church buildings, and rule by church elders. Calvin’s followers in France were called Huguenots. Other branches included the Reformed Church of Scotland (led by John Knox) and the Puritans in England and later Boston, who sought to purify the Church of England of Catholic remnants.

Historian and sociologist Max Weber later highlighted the socioeconomic impact of Calvinism through the concept of the “Protestant work ethic.” Calvinists were encouraged to work hard and reinvest profits; prosperity was seen as evidence of God’s favor and one’s status among the elect. This ethic was viewed as righteous living that could lead to positions of secular leadership. Together, these reform movements are known as the **Protestant Reformation**.

Anglicanism

The final major figure of the Reformation was England’s King Henry VIII (ruled 1509–1547). Desperate for a male heir, Henry asked the pope to annul his marriage to Catherine of Aragon so he could marry Anne Boleyn. When the pope refused (fearing the reaction of the powerful Holy Roman Emperor Charles V), Henry, with Parliament’s approval, declared himself head of a new Church of England (Anglican Church) independent of papal control in Rome.

The Orthodox Church and Reforms in Russia

Charles V had revitalized the ideal of universal monarchy and spent much of his reign defending the Holy Roman Empire against the Protestant Reformation. Similarly, Peter the Great of Russia asserted his authority against the Orthodox Church, which had long unified the Russian people and supported the tsars’ claim to rule by divine right.

Peter confirmed his control by abolishing the position of patriarch (head of the Church) and incorporating the Church into the government through the **Holy Synod**—a body of clergy overseen by a secular official who answered directly to the tsar. He raised the minimum age for men to become monks to 50, preferring that young men serve first as soldiers. Many peasants and members of the Old Believers sect (who opposed earlier reforms) resisted these changes.

Counter-Reformation or Catholic Reformation

The Roman Catholic Church did not passively accept the spread of Protestantism. Instead, it launched a vigorous **Counter-Reformation** with a three-pronged strategy that helped it remain the world’s largest Christian denomination:

- It expanded use of the Inquisition (originally established in the late 12th century to root out and punish nonbelievers), which sometimes employed torture.
- The Jesuits (Society of Jesus), founded in 1540 by Ignatius of Loyola, actively opposed Protestantism and conducted extensive missionary work throughout the Spanish Empire as well as in Japan and India.

- The Council of Trent (1545–1563) corrected some of the Church's worst abuses, reaffirmed traditional rituals and sacraments, and improved the education of priests. The Council also published the *Index of Prohibited Books*, banning Protestant translations of the Bible and writings such as those of Copernicus.

The Counter-Reformation succeeded in keeping Catholicism predominant in Western European regions near the Mediterranean. Colonies of European powers generally adopted the religion of their home country, so most people in Spanish, Portuguese, and French colonies became Catholic.

Discouraged by his inability to stop Lutheranism, Charles V abdicated in 1555. He left Spain to his son Philip II and the Holy Roman Empire to his brother Ferdinand. Philip II carried the Catholic crusade to the Netherlands (which he ruled from 1556 to 1581) and later attempted to conquer and convert England. In 1588, his Spanish Armada was defeated by English naval power.

Wars of Religion

Europe's religious divisions produced frequent wars. In 1546–1547, Charles V fought the German Lutheran Schmalkaldic League. The resulting Peace of Augsburg (1555) allowed each German state to choose whether its ruler would be Catholic or Lutheran; churches and inhabitants were required to follow the state religion or move to another state where their preferred faith was practiced.

France

In France, Catholics and Huguenots fought for nearly 40 years. In 1593, King Henry IV (who had been raised Protestant) converted to Catholicism to unify the country, reportedly remarking that "Paris is well worth a Mass." Five years later, the Edict of Nantes granted Huguenots the right to practice their faith, providing religious toleration for the next 87 years. In 1685, Louis XIV revoked the edict, causing many skilled craftsmen to leave France and taking valuable industrial knowledge and techniques with them.

Thirty Years' War

The culminating religious conflict was the **Thirty Years' War** (1618–1648), which began as a religious struggle within the Holy Roman Empire but expanded into a broader European war involving the Netherlands, Denmark, Sweden, France, and Spain. Much of the destruction resulted from troops being allowed to loot as part of their compensation, leading to widespread famine, starvation, and disease.

The war ended with the **Peace of Westphalia**, which allowed each area of the Holy Roman Empire to choose among three religious options: Roman Catholicism, Lutheranism, or Calvinism. After the settlement, France, Spain, and Italy were predominantly Catholic; northern Europe was largely Lutheran or Calvinist; and England was Protestant with a state church.

The settlement also had important political consequences. It granted countries and duchies far more autonomy than they had previously enjoyed. Prussia (now part of Germany) and Austria began to assert themselves more strongly, although they remained formally part of the Holy Roman Empire. After suffering tremendous destruction, Prussia developed a powerful military tradition that would remain influential in European politics into the 20th century.

Islamic Religious Schisms

As in the Holy Roman Empire, religion and the state were closely intertwined in the Islamic empires. Despite internal divisions, Islam remained an enduring and expanding belief system.

Ottoman Empire

Until 1453, much of the region had been under Byzantine control and followed Eastern Orthodox Christianity. After the Ottoman conquest of Constantinople, Islam became dominant. A sultan replaced the emperor, and Byzantine Justinian Law gave way to **shariah**—a strict Islamic legal system governing criminal justice, marriage, inheritance, and all aspects of life. The empire was mostly Sunni, with some tolerance under Suleiman but less under later rulers.

Safavids

Shah Ismail used Shi'a Islam as a unifying force, building a power base that denied legitimacy to Sunnis. He made conversion to Shi'a Islam mandatory for the Sunni population. This strict policy caused frequent hostilities with the Sunni Ottoman Empire.

Mughal Toleration and Prosperity

Akbar tolerated all religions. He gave money or land to both Hindus and Muslims, supported a Catholic church in Goa, and provided land grants for the relatively new religion of **Sikhism** (a monotheistic faith blending Hinduism with Sufi Islamic mysticism that recognized the rights of other faiths to exist; by the 21st century it had become the world's fifth-largest religion). Akbar eased Hindu-Muslim tensions by appointing Hindus (including zamindars of high and low rank) to government positions, marrying Hindu wives, and exempting Hindus from poll taxes paid by non-Muslims. He invited Catholic priests to Delhi to explain Christianity and enjoyed religious discussions.

Akbar encouraged learning, art, architecture, and literature. He attempted (but failed) to prohibit child marriage and *sati* (the practice in which widows immolated themselves on their husbands' funeral pyres). He promoted **Din-i Ilahi** ("divine faith"), a syncretic religion intended to reconcile Hinduism and Islam, but died in 1605 without converting his subjects. While Akbar's reign was marked by tolerance, his syncretic blend proved unpopular, and later Mughal rulers showed less tolerance.

Religious Schisms Through History

Major schisms have occurred across belief systems:

- **Buddhism in India** (c. 300 B.C.E.–100 C.E.): Theravada vs. Mahayana — disagreement over emphasis on personal meditation versus public rituals and compassion.
- **Islam in the Middle East** (632 C.E.): Sunni vs. Shi'a — disagreement over rightful successor to Muhammad.
- **Christianity in Europe and Byzantine Empire** (1054 C.E.): Roman Catholics vs. Orthodox — disagreement over papal authority, salvation, and rituals.
- **Christianity in Europe** (1517 C.E.): Roman Catholics vs. Protestants — disagreement over faith, clergy, papal role, and biblical interpretation.

Scientific Revolution

In the early 1600s, scientific thinking gained popularity in northern Europe amid Renaissance ideals of curiosity, investigation, and discovery. In an age of religious division, scientific thought represented a fundamentally different approach—one based on reason rather than faith.

In 1620, English scientist and philosopher Francis Bacon developed an early scientific method called **empiricism**, which required collecting data to support hypotheses. Bacon challenged long-accepted traditional

ideas and replaced them with conclusions backed by evidence. Scientific thinking advanced through correspondence among leading scholars (even during religious wars) and the establishment of Royal Academies of Science in France and England.

Sir Isaac Newton combined Galileo's laws of terrestrial motion with Johannes Kepler's laws of planetary motion in his 1687 work *Principia*, explaining gravitational force. Newton's ideas transformed science and mathematics and helped produce a new vision of the world as ordered and rational. Many intellectuals concluded that natural laws governed not only the physical universe but also the rational and orderly progress of governments and society. This perspective became a foundation of the Enlightenment.

Vocabulary

- Henry VIII
- Anne Boleyn
- Charles V
- Philip II
- Spanish Armada
- Peace of Augsburg
- Edict of Nantes
- Thirty Years War
- Peace of Westphalia
- Indulgences
- Holy Synod
- Counter-Reformation
- Inquisition
- Jesuits
- Council of Trent
- Martin Luther
- 95 Theses
- John Calvin
- Puritans
- Protestant Reformation
- Anglican Church
- Shariah
- Sikhism
- Empiricism

"Shah Ismail ordered that the names of the first three caliphs [Abu Bakr, Umar, and Uthman] be cursed in all mosques throughout the land. He commanded that the Shi'a call to prayer be used and that all people publicly curse the enemies of Ali. Those who refused were punished severely. He also sent missionaries into Ottoman territory to spread Shi'ism. The Ottoman Sultan Selim responded by ordering the massacre of many Shi'a in Anatolia and by declaring war on the Safavids, framing the conflict as a struggle between true Sunni Islam and heresy."

Source: Adapted from contemporary Persian and Ottoman chronicles, including accounts of the Battle of Chaldiran (1514), as recorded in *The Cambridge History of Iran*, Vol. 6.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, Shah Ismail I's religious policies most directly contributed to** (A) improved relations between the Safavid and Ottoman empires (B) the deepening of sectarian divisions between Sunni and Shi'a Muslims (C) the decline of Shi'ism in Iran (D) the unification of all Muslim lands under one caliph **Correct Answer: (B) the deepening of sectarian divisions between Sunni and Shi'a Muslims** *Explanation:* By making public cursing of Sunni caliphs mandatory and actively spreading Shi'ism into Ottoman lands, Shah Ismail turned religious identity into a major source of conflict between the two empires.
2. **According to the passage, the Ottoman Sultan Selim's response to Safavid religious policies included** (A) adopting Shi'ism as the official religion of the Ottoman Empire (B) massacring Shi'a populations in Anatolia and framing the conflict in religious terms (C) peacefully negotiating religious tolerance with the Safavids (D) withdrawing from all territories bordering Iran **Correct Answer: (B) massacring Shi'a populations in Anatolia and framing the conflict in religious terms** *Explanation:* Sultan Selim responded to the Safavid promotion of Shi'ism with violent repression of Shi'a communities in Ottoman territory and portrayed the rivalry as a religious struggle between Sunni orthodoxy and heresy.
3. **The passage best supports which of the following conclusions about the relationship between politics and religion in the Ottoman and Safavid empires?** (A) Religious differences were minor and had little impact on state policy (B) Political rivalry between the two empires was intensified by competing claims to religious legitimacy (C) Both empires promoted complete religious tolerance within their borders (D) Religion played no role in the conflict between the Ottomans and Safavids **Correct Answer: (B) Political rivalry between the two empires was intensified by competing claims to religious legitimacy** *Explanation:* The Safavids used Shi'ism to build a distinct identity and challenge Ottoman authority, while the Ottomans responded by positioning themselves as defenders of Sunni Islam. This turned a political rivalry into a sectarian one.
4. **Which of the following best explains how political rivalries between land-based empires such as the Ottomans and Safavids affected religious developments in the period 1450–1750?** (A) They had no impact on religious identity or practice (B) They often intensified existing religious divisions and led rulers to promote one sect as a marker of state loyalty (C) They led to the complete disappearance of sectarian differences within Islam (D) They encouraged both empires to adopt policies of complete religious tolerance **Correct Answer: (B) They often intensified existing religious divisions and led rulers to promote one sect as a marker of state loyalty** *Explanation:* The Ottoman-Safavid rivalry is a clear example of how political competition encouraged rulers to use sectarian identity (Sunni vs. Shi'a) to mobilize support, define loyalty, and justify conflict—significantly hardening the divide between the two branches of Islam.

Excerpt from the Peace of Augsburg (1555):

"It is agreed and established that the princes, estates, and cities... shall be allowed to choose between the two religions — the old religion [Catholicism] and the Augsburg Confession [Lutheranism] — and to introduce and maintain the one they prefer in their lands, principalities, and cities... No one shall be forced to adopt a religion against his will."

Source: Peace of Augsburg, 1555 (as cited in *Documents Illustrative of the Continental Reformation*, edited by B.J. Kidd, 1911).

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, the Peace of Augsburg most directly granted European rulers which new power?** (A) The right to determine the official religion of their territories (B) Complete religious freedom for all individuals within their lands (C) The authority to force all subjects to convert to Lutheranism (D) The elimination of all Catholic institutions in the Holy Roman Empire **Correct Answer: (A) The right to determine the official religion of their territories** *Explanation:* The principle of *cuius regio, eius religio* (“whose realm, his religion”) allowed rulers to choose either Catholicism or Lutheranism for their territories, significantly increasing their authority over religious matters.
2. **According to the passage, the Peace of Augsburg represented a major shift in the relationship between political and religious authority because it** (A) strengthened the power of the Pope over secular rulers (B) allowed political rulers to control religious policy within their own lands (C) ended all religious conflict in Europe permanently (D) required all rulers to remain Catholic **Correct Answer: (B) allowed political rulers to control religious policy within their own lands** *Explanation:* By giving rulers the legal right to choose the religion of their territory, the Peace of Augsburg reduced the authority of the Catholic Church and increased the power of the state over religious affairs.
3. **The Peace of Augsburg’s recognition of Lutheranism alongside Catholicism most directly contributed to which development in Europe during the period 1450–1750?** (A) The complete religious unity of the Holy Roman Empire (B) The permanent division of Western Christianity and the rise of state-controlled churches (C) The decline of all forms of Protestantism (D) The immediate spread of Calvinism across Europe **Correct Answer: (B) The permanent division of Western Christianity and the rise of state-controlled churches** *Explanation:* The agreement legalized the split between Catholicism and Lutheranism and gave rulers significant control over religion, setting a precedent for state churches (such as the Church of England).
4. **Which of the following best explains how the Protestant Reformation affected land-based states and empires in Europe between 1450 and 1750?** (A) It had no impact on political authority (B) It weakened the Catholic Church’s authority and allowed many rulers to increase their own power by controlling religious institutions within their territories (C) It led to the complete disappearance of Catholicism in Northern Europe (D) It strengthened the Pope’s political power over European monarchs **Correct Answer: (B) It weakened the Catholic Church’s authority and allowed many rulers to increase their own power by controlling religious institutions within their territories** *Explanation:* The Reformation enabled rulers (such as Henry VIII in England and many German princes) to break from papal authority, seize church lands, and establish state-controlled churches, thereby consolidating political power.

3.4

Topic 3.4: Comparison in Land-Based Empires

Essential Question: By what methods did empires increase their societal and cultural influence from c. 1450–c. 1750?

Building and maintaining large land-based empires was a central theme of the period c. 1450–c. 1750. These empires expanded by incorporating conquered territories. Their rulers implemented policies to solidify or legitimize control over diverse populations. However, conquered peoples often did not fully assimilate into the culture of their conquerors. In some cases, the conquered influenced the conquerors, helping create blended cultures. The growing interconnection of the hemispheres also produced blended cultures.

Not all empires maintained their authority. The Gunpowder Empires, for example, declined because they could not compete with European trading companies (especially the British), resolve conflicts over heirs driven by harem politics, or keep pace with advances in military and naval technology. Weak or corrupt leadership further undermined them. The expensive armies required to maintain control placed heavy tax and other burdens on peasants and villages. Religious conflicts also divided and weakened these empires.

A deep religious schism divided Muslims and Hindus in Mughal India, just as another schism divided Sunni Ottomans and Shi'a Safavids and foreshadowed later conflicts between the regions of modern Iraq and Iran.

Military Might

The armies of these land-based empires were well trained, well organized, well equipped, and well led. In Eurasia, all relied on gunpowder weapons, including large cannons, alongside traditional cavalry and infantry. In the Americas, the fierceness of Aztec and Inca warriors allowed them to intimidate and conquer neighboring territories.

Soldiers

In some cases, rulers created elite military groups to solidify control. Both the Ottoman sultan and Safavid shah used enslaved soldiers to counterbalance troops who were more loyal to their tribe or local governor than to the central ruler. The **Janissaries** in the Ottoman Empire helped preserve the sultan's power, while the **Ghulams** protected the Safavid shah from rival clans. Both groups were often recruited from minority religious or ethnic populations within the empires. Janissaries were frequently taken from Christian areas through the *devshirme* system, while Ghulams came from Georgian, Armenian, or Circassian populations in the Safavid Empire.

The practice of taking people as part of a “blood tax” or tribute was not limited to the Ottomans and Safavids. The Aztecs also required enslaved people or prisoners as part of the tribute from conquered states; many of these individuals became human sacrifices in Aztec religious rituals.

Warfare

Strong militaries did not prevent conflict among the land-based empires. The Ottoman and Safavid empires fought over territorial claims along their shared border, with religion serving as an underlying cause. The Ottomans were predominantly Sunni, while the Safavids were mainly Shi'a; each viewed the other's form of Islam as heretical. Religion played a less central role in the conflict between the Safavids and Mughals. Instead, control over resources and trade routes in present-day Afghanistan was the core issue.

In West Africa, two Muslim powers clashed when Morocco invaded the Songhai Empire in 1591. Moroccan forces sacked the capital of Gao and ended the empire, although Morocco proved unable to hold all Songhai territory.

Centralized Bureaucracy

Controlling large areas with diverse populations required land-based empires to establish organized, centralized bureaucracies. Methods of recruiting bureaucratic elites varied:

- In the Ming and Manchu (Qing) dynasties of China, the civil service examination system assessed the abilities of scholar-gentry seeking government service.
- In the Ottoman Empire, the *devshirme* system supplied the sultan with a ready pool of civil servants strictly loyal to him.
- In the Safavid Empire, the shah recruited a class of bureaucrats known as “the men of the pen” from the Persian population.
- In the Songhai Empire, the *mansa* (a title meaning “sultan”) employed bureaucrats from the scholarly class educated in the *madrasas* (schools) of Timbuktu.
- The Inca organized their empire into a federal system of provinces headed by nobles loyal to the emperor. These nobles oversaw a highly structured political system based on a decimal system.

The Aztec Empire was less centralized and bureaucratic than the others. It functioned primarily as a tributary empire with little direct control over territory in Mesoamerica. The Aztecs maintained dominance through force, fear, and intimidation rather than through a centralized bureaucracy.

Taxation

Some form of taxation or revenue collection was essential to support the bureaucracy and military. Taxation took several forms:

- **Mughal zamindar tax collection:** Emperors appointed tax officers (*zamindars*) to collect taxes from peasants based on land and production.
- **Ottoman tax farming:** Sultans appointed “tax farmers” who paid an annual fixed sum to the central government and then collected money or goods from residents of their assigned area. Many Janissaries received their salaries this way by collecting more than they paid to the central government.
- **Aztec tribute lists:** As a tributary empire, the Aztecs’ main revenue came from yearly offerings or tributes from surrounding areas. These lists specified local products or, in some cases, people—many of whom became human sacrifices in Aztec religious rituals.
- **Ming collection of “hard currency”:** The Ming initially used paper currency to facilitate trade and tax collection, but counterfeiting and hyperinflation forced a shift. Taxes were later required in rice and then in silver coins (“hard currency”).

Striving for Legitimacy

The diversity of populations within land-based empires strengthened their economic and political power but also created challenges for rulers. Governing groups with different ethnicities, religions, and tribal loyalties was difficult. Many rulers therefore turned to non-political means—religion, art, and monumental architecture—to unite their subjects in loyalty to the state. Akbar attempted a syncretic religious approach in the Mughal Empire but achieved limited success.

Sources of Legitimacy

Religion

- Rulers in Islamic empires referenced the title “caliph” (successor to the Prophet).
- European monarchs claimed **divine right**—the idea that God had granted them the mandate to rule.
- Conversion to Islam by Songhai rulers and the noble class provided both a religious and legal structure for the empire.
- The Aztecs (Mexico) used human sacrifice in religious rituals to reinforce authority.

Art

- Portraits of Qing emperors and other high officials.
- Miniature paintings in the Ottoman Empire.
- Financial support of artists by European rulers.

Monumental Architecture

- Mausolea such as the Taj Mahal and mosques in the Mughal Empire.
- European palaces such as the Palace of Versailles in France and El Escorial in Spain.

"Both the Ottoman and Mughal empires expanded their influence through a combination of military innovation and administrative organization. The Ottomans made effective use of gunpowder artillery and created a professional standing army known as the Janissaries, recruited through the *devshirme* system. This system took Christian boys from conquered territories, converted them to Islam, and trained them to serve the sultan with absolute loyalty. In contrast, the Mughals under Akbar expanded their influence by developing the *mansabdari* system, in which officials were ranked and rewarded based on their military and administrative service. Akbar also incorporated local Hindu Rajput elites into the empire through marriage alliances and high-ranking positions, while maintaining a powerful cavalry-based army supported by gunpowder weapons."

Source: Adapted from comparative studies of early modern empires, including works by historians such as Stephen Dale and Douglas Streusand.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, which of the following was a key similarity between Ottoman and Mughal methods of increasing their influence?** (A) Both empires relied primarily on naval power rather than land armies. (B) Both empires used gunpowder technology and created ranked systems to organize military and administrative service. (C) Both empires completely excluded conquered peoples from positions of power. (D) Both empires depended exclusively on hereditary tribal leaders with no central control. **Correct Answer: (B) Both empires used gunpowder technology and created ranked systems to organize military and administrative service.** *Explanation:* The passage notes that both empires used gunpowder weapons and developed ranking systems (Janissaries for the Ottomans and mansabdari for the Mughals) to organize and reward service.
2. **According to the passage, a major difference between Ottoman and Mughal methods of consolidation was that** (A) the Ottomans used the *devshirme* system to create loyal officials with no local ties, while the Mughals incorporated local elites through alliances and high positions. (B) the Mughals relied on forced conversion of all subjects, while the Ottomans promoted complete religious tolerance. (C) the Ottomans avoided gunpowder weapons entirely, while the Mughals depended on them. (D) the Mughals excluded all non-Muslims from government, while the Ottomans appointed them

to high offices. **Correct Answer: (A) the Ottomans used the *devshirme* system to create loyal officials with no local ties, while the Mughals incorporated local elites through alliances and high positions.** *Explanation:* The passage highlights a key contrast: the Ottomans created a loyal class detached from local society, whereas the Mughals co-opted existing local elites (especially Rajputs) to help govern.

3. **The passage suggests that Akbar's policy of incorporating Rajput elites through marriage alliances and high positions was primarily intended to** (A) weaken the Mughal military by removing experienced soldiers. (B) gain the loyalty of powerful local groups and reduce resistance to Mughal rule. (C) force all Hindus to convert to Islam. (D) isolate the Mughal Empire from Indian society. **Correct Answer: (B) gain the loyalty of powerful local groups and reduce resistance to Mughal rule.** *Explanation:* By bringing Rajput leaders into the imperial system, Akbar reduced the likelihood of rebellion and strengthened Mughal control over a diverse population.
4. **Which of the following best compares the methods used by land-based empires such as the Ottomans and Mughals to increase their influence between 1450 and 1750?** (A) They all relied on the same administrative system with no variations. (B) They combined military innovations (especially gunpowder) with different strategies for managing elites and conquered populations to extend and maintain their power. (C) They rejected all forms of centralized administration in favor of purely local rule. (D) They avoided using religion or cultural policies to legitimize their authority. **Correct Answer: (B) They combined military innovations (especially gunpowder) with different strategies for managing elites and conquered populations to extend and maintain their power.** *Explanation:* The passage shows that while both empires used gunpowder and ranking systems, they adapted their approaches to local conditions — the Ottomans through the *devshirme* system and the Mughals through incorporation of local elites.

Unit 3 Test

AP World History Modern: Unit 3 Exam

This exam consists of one stimulus-based multiple-choice question set for each of the 4 topics in Unit 3 (c. 1450 to c. 1750) of the AP World History Modern curriculum. Each set includes a stimulus followed by 4 questions. Three sets use written stimuli (primary or secondary source excerpts), and one uses a visual stimulus (map description with a link to a resource). The correct answer and explanation are provided for each question, and sources are cited as requested.

Topic 3.1: Empires Expand (Written Stimulus)

****Excerpt from Suleiman the Magnificent's Letter to King Ferdinand I (1526):****

"I who am the Sultan of Sultans, the sovereign of sovereigns, the dispenser of crowns to the monarchs on the face of the earth, the shadow of God on earth, the Sultan and sovereign lord of the White Sea and of the Black Sea, of Rumelia and of Anatolia, of Karamania, of the land of Romans, of Dhulkadria, of Diyarbakir, of Kurdistan, of Azerbaijan, of Persia, of Damascus, of Aleppo, of Cairo, of Mecca, of Medina, of Jerusalem, of all Arabia, of Yemen and of many other lands which my noble forefathers and my glorious ancestors (may God light up their tombs!) conquered by the force of their arms and which my August Majesty has made subject to my flamboyant sword and my victorious blade, I, Sultan Suleiman Khan..."

****Source:**** Suleiman the Magnificent, Letter to Ferdinand I, 1526, as cited in "The Ottoman Empire and the World Around It" by Suraiya Faruqi, I.B. Tauris, 2004 (accessed via https://www.theottomans.org/english/campaigns_army/1526-suleiman.asp).

Questions

1. ****Based on the passage, Suleiman's self-description as the "Sultan of Sultans" and "shadow of God on earth" primarily illustrates which aspect of Ottoman empire expansion?****

- (A) The use of religious legitimacy to justify conquests
- (B) The reliance on diplomatic alliances for territorial growth
- (C) The rejection of inherited titles from ancestors
- (D) The focus on maritime trade over land conquests

****Correct Answer: (A) The use of religious legitimacy to justify conquests****

***Explanation*:** Suleiman's titles emphasize divine authority and inheritance from conquerors, reflecting how Ottoman rulers used religious claims to legitimize military expansion.

2. ****The passage's reference to lands conquered by "the force of their arms" and "my victorious blade" suggests that Ottoman expansion was driven by****

- (A) peaceful negotiations with neighboring states
- (B) military prowess and gunpowder technology
- (C) economic incentives for voluntary submission
- (D) cultural assimilation without warfare

****Correct Answer: (B) military prowess and gunpowder technology****

***Explanation*:** The emphasis on arms and blade symbolizes military conquest, aligning with the Ottoman use of gunpowder weapons for expansion in the period.

3. **Suleiman's list of territories, including Cairo, Mecca, and Jerusalem, highlights which outcome of Ottoman expansion?**

- (A) The control over key Islamic holy sites and trade routes
- (B) The isolation from the Mediterranean world
- (C) The decline of Ottoman influence in Arabia
- (D) The restriction to Anatolian territories only

****Correct Answer: (A) The control over key Islamic holy sites and trade routes****

***Explanation*:** The mentioned cities represent strategic and religious centers, showing how expansion secured Ottoman dominance in the Islamic world.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of Ottoman empire expansion, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1450–1750?**

- (A) The creation of a multicultural empire through military and administrative integration
- (B) The unification of Europe under Ottoman rule
- (C) The decline of gunpowder technology in favor of traditional warfare
- (D) The restriction of Ottoman power to the Black Sea region

****Correct Answer: (A) The creation of a multicultural empire through military and administrative integration****

***Explanation*:** The diverse lands listed demonstrate the Ottoman's ability to expand and integrate various regions, fostering a vast, multicultural empire.

Topic 3.2: Empires: Administration (Written Stimulus)

****Excerpt from the Ottoman Devshirme System Description (16th century):****

"The tribute children are gathered from the Christian subjects of the Sultan in Rumeli, and nowadays from Anatolia as well... They are gathered every 5 years, or 7 years, or sometimes every 3 years, according to the need. The boys are selected for their physical and mental qualities, converted to Islam, and trained for service in the janissary corps or the palace administration."

****Source:**** Evliya Çelebi, **Seyahatname** (Book of Travels), 17th century, as cited in "The Ottoman Empire: The Classical Age 1300-1600" by Halil Inalcik, Phoenix Press, 2000 (accessed via <https://www.britannica.com/topic/devshirme>).

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, the devshirme system in the Ottoman Empire was primarily designed to**

- (A) promote religious tolerance among Christian subjects
- (B) create a loyal administrative and military elite through conversion and training
- (C) encourage voluntary migration from Anatolia
- (D) restrict administrative roles to Muslim-born individuals

****Correct Answer: (B) create a loyal administrative and military elite through conversion and training****

***Explanation*:** The passage describes selecting boys for conversion and training in the janissary corps or palace, ensuring loyalty to the sultan.

2. **The periodic gathering of boys "according to the need," as mentioned in the passage, reflects which aspect of Ottoman administration?**

- (A) The decentralized control over subject populations

(B) The centralized recruitment to maintain imperial bureaucracy

(C) The rejection of foreign influences in governance

(D) The focus on hereditary positions for elites

****Correct Answer: (B) The centralized recruitment to maintain imperial bureaucracy****

***Explanation*:** The system's flexibility based on need indicates a centralized mechanism to sustain administrative and military personnel.

3. ****The conversion of Christian boys to Islam in the devshirme system suggests that Ottoman administration emphasized****

(A) cultural assimilation to integrate diverse populations

(B) the separation of religious and state affairs

(C) the exclusion of non-Muslims from all roles

(D) the promotion of Christian communities within the empire

****Correct Answer: (A) cultural assimilation to integrate diverse populations****

***Explanation*:** Conversion and training assimilated subjects into the Islamic elite, helping manage a multiethnic empire.

4. ****Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of administrative systems like devshirme in land-based empires during the period c. 1450–1750?****

(A) The creation of merit-based elites that supported imperial stability and expansion

(B) The decline of military power due to internal conflicts

(C) The unification of religious groups under a single faith

(D) The restriction of empire growth to homogeneous populations

****Correct Answer: (A) The creation of merit-based elites that supported imperial stability and expansion****

***Explanation*:** The devshirme produced loyal, skilled administrators and soldiers, contributing to Ottoman longevity and territorial control.

Topic 3.3: Empires: Belief Systems (Written Stimulus)

****Excerpt from Martin Luther's 95 Theses (1517):****

"When our Lord and Master Jesus Christ said, 'Repent' (Mt 4:17), he willed the entire life of believers to be one of repentance. This word cannot be understood as referring to the sacrament of penance, that is, confession and satisfaction, as administered by the clergy. Yet it does not mean solely inner repentance; such inner repentance is worthless unless it produces various outward mortification of the flesh."

****Source:**** Martin Luther, **95 Theses**, 1517, as cited in "The Protestant Reformation" by Hans J. Hillerbrand, Harper Perennial, 2009 (accessed via <https://www.luther.de/en/95thesen.html>).

Questions

1. ****Based on the passage, Luther's criticism of the "sacrament of penance" primarily challenged which aspect of the Catholic Church?****

(A) The authority of the clergy in administering forgiveness

(B) The importance of inner repentance in Christian life

(C) The rejection of outward acts of mortification

(D) The promotion of confession as a daily practice

****Correct Answer: (A) The authority of the clergy in administering forgiveness****

***Explanation*:** Luther argues that repentance is not limited to clergy-administered penance, questioning their intermediary role.

2. ****The passage's emphasis on "outward mortification of the flesh" suggests that Luther believed true repentance involved****

- (A) only internal spiritual reflection without actions
- (B) both inner repentance and visible acts of piety
- (C) the complete rejection of physical discipline
- (D) the sole reliance on clerical satisfaction

****Correct Answer: (B) both inner repentance and visible acts of piety****

***Explanation*:** Luther states that inner repentance must produce outward mortification, advocating a holistic approach.

3. ****Luther's theses, as excerpted, contributed to which development in European belief systems?****

- (A) The Protestant Reformation challenging Catholic doctrines
- (B) The unification of Christian churches under papal authority
- (C) The decline of religious practices in favor of secularism
- (D) The expansion of Catholic missions in the Americas

****Correct Answer: (A) The Protestant Reformation challenging Catholic doctrines****

***Explanation*:** The criticism of penance sparked the Reformation, leading to Protestant splits from Catholicism.

4. ****Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of changes in belief systems like the Protestant Reformation during the period c. 1450–1750?****

- (A) The fragmentation of Christianity and conflicts over religious authority
- (B) The complete eradication of Catholic influence in Europe
- (C) The unification of land-based empires under Protestant rule
- (D) The restriction of religious reforms to the Ottoman Empire

****Correct Answer: (A) The fragmentation of Christianity and conflicts over religious authority****

***Explanation*:** Luther's ideas led to denominational splits and wars, transforming European religious landscapes.

Topic 3.4: Comparison in Land-Based Empires (Visual Stimulus)

****Visual Description:**** A map titled "Land-Based Empires, c. 1600," depicting the Ottoman Empire (spanning Southeast Europe, Middle East, North Africa), the Mughal Empire (covering much of the Indian subcontinent), the Safavid Empire (in Persia/Iran), and the Qing Empire (in China and surrounding areas). The map highlights capital cities (Istanbul, Delhi, Isfahan, Beijing), major trade routes (Silk Roads, Indian Ocean), and key resources (e.g., spices in Mughals, silk in Qing). Borders are color-coded, showing territorial extent and overlaps.

****Source:**** Adapted from AMSCO AP World History: Modern textbook, Perfection Learning, 2020 (as cited in <https://library.fiveable.me/ap-world/unit-3/land-based-empires-map>).

****Link to a Similar Resource:**** [Land-Based Empires Map - Fiveable](<https://library.fiveable.me/ap-world/unit-3/land-based-empires-map>)

Questions

1. **Based on the map, which of the following best compares the geographical extent of the Ottoman and Mughal Empires?**

- (A) Both empires controlled vast multicultural territories across continents
- (B) The Ottoman Empire was limited to Asia, while the Mughal was in Europe
- (C) The Mughal Empire focused on maritime routes, while the Ottoman was land-based
- (D) Both empires were confined to small, homogeneous regions

****Correct Answer: (A) Both empires controlled vast multicultural territories across continents****

***Explanation*:** The map shows the Ottoman spanning Europe, Africa, and Asia, and the Mughal covering diverse Indian regions, indicating large, multicultural domains.

2. **The map's depiction of trade routes connecting the Safavid and Qing Empires suggests a similarity in their**

- (A) reliance on overland Silk Roads for economic integration
- (B) rejection of gunpowder technologies for expansion
- (C) focus on maritime dominance over land control
- (D) unification under a single administrative system

****Correct Answer: (A) reliance on overland Silk Roads for economic integration****

***Explanation*:** Trade routes link these empires, highlighting shared dependence on Silk Roads for commerce and connectivity.

3. **According to the map, a key difference between the Ottoman and Qing Empires is**

- (A) the Ottoman's proximity to Mediterranean trade versus the Qing's East Asian focus
- (B) the Qing's multicultural composition versus the Ottoman's homogeneity
- (C) the Ottoman's avoidance of trade routes versus the Qing's embrace
- (D) the Qing's small size versus the Ottoman's vast extent

****Correct Answer: (A) the Ottoman's proximity to Mediterranean trade versus the Qing's East Asian focus****

***Explanation*:** The map positions the Ottoman near Europe/Middle East seas and the Qing in East Asia, showing regional trade differences.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates a broader similarity among the land-based empires shown on the map during the period c. 1450–1750?

- (A) Their use of centralized administration to manage diverse populations and resources
- (B) Their complete isolation from global trade networks
- (C) Their reliance on democratic institutions for governance
- (D) Their rejection of religious legitimacy in state building

****Correct Answer: (A) Their use of centralized administration to manage diverse populations and resources****

***Explanation*:** The map's depiction of vast territories with capitals and resources implies centralized control to govern multicultural empires effectively.

Unit 4

AP World History Modern: Unit 4 Exam

This exam consists of one stimulus-based multiple-choice question set for each of the 8 topics in Unit 4 (c. 1450 to c. 1750) of the AP World History Modern curriculum. Each set includes a stimulus followed by 4 questions. Six sets use written stimuli (primary or secondary source excerpts), and two use visual stimuli (map or diagram descriptions with links to relevant resources). The correct answer and explanation are provided for each question, and sources are cited as requested.

Topic 4.1: Technological Innovations from 1450 to 1750 (Written Stimulus)

****Excerpt from Christopher Columbus's Journal (1492):****

"We saw many people on the shore... We went ashore in the armed boat, and the royal banner was displayed, and the banners of the expedition... I presented them with some red caps, and some strings of glass beads, which they hung round their necks, and many other things of little value, with which they were delighted, and became so attached to us that it was a marvel."

****Source:**** Christopher Columbus, *Journal of the First Voyage*, translated by Clements R. Markham, Hakluyt Society, 1893 (as cited in <https://www.gutenberg.org/files/1492/1492-h/1492-h.htm>).

Questions

1. ****Based on the passage, the technological innovations that enabled Columbus's voyage primarily included****

- (A) the astrolabe and improved ship designs for transatlantic navigation
- (B) the introduction of gunpowder weapons to intimidate indigenous peoples
- (C) the use of steam-powered vessels for faster travel
- (D) the development of accurate world maps from satellite imagery

****Correct Answer:** (A) the astrolabe and improved ship designs for transatlantic navigation**

***Explanation*:** Although not directly mentioned, the context of Columbus's voyage relies on navigational tools like the astrolabe and caravel ships, which enabled European exploration in the period.

2. ****The exchange of "glass beads" and "red caps" in the passage reflects the impact of technological innovations on****

- (A) the unequal trade dynamics between Europeans and indigenous peoples
- (B) the immediate establishment of equal alliances
- (C) the rejection of European goods by local populations
- (D) the focus on agricultural exchanges only

****Correct Answer:** (A) the unequal trade dynamics between Europeans and indigenous peoples**

***Explanation*:** Europeans offered low-value manufactured items (enabled by innovations) for delight, highlighting asymmetrical exchanges that favored Europeans.

3. ****Columbus's description of the indigenous people's attachment as "a marvel" suggests that technological innovations contributed to****

- (A) cultural misunderstandings and initial European superiority perceptions
- (B) the rapid conversion of locals to Christianity
- (C) the decline of European interest in the Americas
- (D) the establishment of joint technological development

****Correct Answer: (A) cultural misunderstandings and initial European superiority perceptions****

***Explanation*:** The "marvel" at their delight indicates Europeans viewed indigenous reactions through a lens of cultural and technological disparity.

4. ****Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of technological innovations like those enabling Columbus's voyage during the period c. 1450–1750?****

- (A) The initiation of global exploration and the Columbian Exchange
- (B) The unification of Europe under a single maritime empire
- (C) The decline of land-based trade routes
- (D) The restriction of exploration to the Mediterranean Sea

****Correct Answer: (A) The initiation of global exploration and the Columbian Exchange****

***Explanation*:** Navigational advancements led to transoceanic voyages, fostering exchanges of goods, ideas, and diseases across the world.

Topic 4.2: Exploration: Causes and Events from 1450 to 1750 (Written Stimulus)

****Excerpt from Vasco da Gama's Report to the King of Portugal (1498):****

"We departed from the river of Bonaventura on the 24th of January, and shaped our course for the island of Sam Rafael, where we remained three days cleaning our ships and taking in water and wood. On the 1st of February we set sail, steering for the open sea, and on the 3rd we sighted land, which was the coast of the land of the good people, as it is called by the natives."

****Source:**** Vasco da Gama, *A Journal of the First Voyage of Vasco da Gama*, translated by E.G. Ravenstein, Hakluyt Society, 1898 (as cited in <https://www.gutenberg.org/files/1493/1493-h/1493-h.htm>).

Questions

1. ****Based on the passage, a primary cause of Portuguese exploration, as exemplified by da Gama, was****

- (A) the desire to establish direct trade routes to Asia for spices
- (B) the need to escape religious persecution in Europe
- (C) the focus on colonizing North American territories
- (D) the alliance with Ottoman merchants for Mediterranean trade

****Correct Answer: (A) the desire to establish direct trade routes to Asia for spices****

***Explanation*:** Da Gama's voyage aimed to reach India, bypassing intermediaries to access Asian goods, driven by economic motives.

2. ****The passage's mention of "cleaning our ships and taking in water and wood" highlights which challenge of exploration in this period?****

- (A) The logistical needs for long-distance maritime voyages
- (B) The conflicts with indigenous populations over resources
- (C) The reliance on local guides for navigation
- (D) The abandonment of ships due to poor maintenance

****Correct Answer: (A) The logistical needs for long-distance maritime voyages****

***Explanation*:** Stopping for supplies underscores the practical demands of sustaining extended sea journeys.

3. ****Da Gama's reference to "the land of the good people" suggests that European explorers often****

- (A) engaged in cultural exchanges with positive perceptions of locals
- (B) viewed indigenous peoples through ethnocentric lenses
- (C) avoided contact with coastal communities
- (D) established permanent settlements on first contact

****Correct Answer: (B) viewed indigenous peoples through ethnocentric lenses****

***Explanation*:** The term reflects European naming and perceptions, often romanticized or dismissive of local identities.

4. ****Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of explorations like da Gama's during the period c. 1450–1750?****

- (A) The establishment of European maritime empires and global trade networks
- (B) The unification of African kingdoms against European incursions
- (C) The decline of Asian economies due to isolation
- (D) The restriction of exploration to the Atlantic Ocean

****Correct Answer: (A) The establishment of European maritime empires and global trade networks****

***Explanation*:** Da Gama's route to India opened direct trade, leading to Portuguese dominance in the Indian Ocean and global commerce.

Topic 4.3: Columbian Exchange (Visual Stimulus)

****Visual Description:**** A diagram titled "The Columbian Exchange, c. 1500–1750," showing arrows between the "Old World" (Europe, Africa, Asia) and "New World" (Americas). From Old to New: horses, wheat, smallpox, sugarcane. From New to Old: maize, potatoes, tomatoes, tobacco. The diagram includes icons for crops, animals, and diseases, with notes on population impacts (e.g., Native American decline due to disease, European population growth from new crops).

****Source:**** Adapted from Alfred W. Crosby, *The Columbian Exchange: Biological and Cultural Consequences of 1492*, Greenwood Publishing Group, 1972 (as cited in <https://www.britannica.com/science/Columbian-Exchange>).

****Link to a Similar Resource:**** [Columbian Exchange Diagram - Khan Academy](<https://www.khanacademy.org/humanities/ap-world-history-600ce-1450ce-copy/unit-4-systems-of-government/a/the-columbian-exchange>).

Questions

1. ****Based on the diagram, the Columbian Exchange primarily involved the transfer of****

- (A) crops, animals, and diseases between the Old and New Worlds
- (B) only luxury goods like gold and silver
- (C) military technologies from Europe to the Americas
- (D) religious texts from Asia to Africa

****Correct Answer: (A) crops, animals, and diseases between the Old and New Worlds****

***Explanation*:** The diagram shows bidirectional exchanges of biological elements, central to the Columbian Exchange.

2. ****The depiction of smallpox moving from Old to New World in the diagram highlights which impact?****

- (A) The devastating population decline among Native Americans

- (B) The improvement of health in European colonies
- (C) The spread of immunity to Old World populations
- (D) The restriction of disease to African regions

****Correct Answer: (A) The devastating population decline among Native Americans****

***Explanation*:** Notes indicate Native American decline due to introduced diseases like smallpox.

3. ****The transfer of maize and potatoes from New to Old World, as shown, contributed to****

- (A) population growth in Europe through new food sources
- (B) the decline of agricultural diversity in Asia
- (C) the rejection of American crops by African farmers
- (D) the focus on cash crops in the Americas only

****Correct Answer: (A) population growth in Europe through new food sources****

***Explanation*:** The diagram notes European population growth from nutrient-rich crops like potatoes and maize.

4. ****Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the Columbian Exchange, as depicted in the diagram, during the period c. 1450–1750?****

- (A) The global transformation of diets, economies, and populations
- (B) The unification of the world under European political control
- (C) The decline of trade due to disease outbreaks
- (D) The restriction of exchanges to the Atlantic region

****Correct Answer: (A) The global transformation of diets, economies, and populations****

***Explanation*:** The bidirectional arrows and diverse items show widespread biological and cultural shifts worldwide.

Topic 4.4: Maritime Empires Established (Written Stimulus)

****Excerpt from the Treaty of Tordesillas (1494):****

"Forasmuch as between the said lords, their constituents, there has been a difference over the lands and seas which the said King of Portugal has discovered and which the said Sovereigns of Castile claim belong to them... It is hereby agreed that a line be drawn from pole to pole, 370 leagues west of the Cape Verde Islands, and that all lands to the east belong to Portugal, and to the west to Castile."

****Source:**** Treaty of Tordesillas, 1494, as cited in "The European Discovery of America: The Southern Voyages" by Samuel Eliot Morison, Oxford University Press, 1974 (accessed via https://avalon.law.yale.edu/15th_century/mod001.asp).

Questions

1. ****Based on the passage, the Treaty of Tordesillas was primarily intended to****

- (A) divide newly discovered lands between Spain and Portugal
- (B) establish trade monopolies in Asia for England
- (C) unify European powers against Ottoman expansion
- (D) restrict maritime exploration to the Mediterranean

****Correct Answer: (A) divide newly discovered lands between Spain and Portugal****

Explanation: The treaty draws a line to allocate eastern lands to Portugal and western to Spain (Castile), resolving colonial disputes.

2. **The "difference over the lands and seas" mentioned in the passage reflects which cause of maritime empire establishment?**

- (A) Competition among European powers for overseas territories
- (B) Cooperation between Spain and Portugal to share resources
- (C) The decline of interest in American colonies
- (D) The focus on internal European conflicts

Correct Answer: (A) Competition among European powers for overseas territories

Explanation: The dispute over discoveries highlights rivalry driving maritime expansion and treaty negotiations.

3. **The line "from pole to pole" in the treaty suggests that maritime empires were established through**

- (A) papal arbitration and global division of spheres of influence
- (B) military alliances with indigenous rulers
- (C) the rejection of papal authority in colonial matters
- (D) the limitation of claims to coastal areas only

Correct Answer: (A) papal arbitration and global division of spheres of influence

Explanation: The meridian line, endorsed by the Pope, divided the world, establishing spheres for Spanish and Portuguese empires.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of treaties like Tordesillas during the period c. 1450–1750?**

- (A) The formalization of European dominance in global colonization
- (B) The unification of maritime empires under a single European power
- (C) The decline of Portuguese influence in the Indian Ocean
- (D) The restriction of Spanish claims to Europe

Correct Answer: (A) The formalization of European dominance in global colonization

Explanation: The treaty legitimized divisions that enabled extensive Spanish and Portuguese empires in the Americas and beyond.

Topic 4.5: Maritime Empires Maintained and Developed (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from Adam Smith's "The Wealth of Nations" (1776, reflecting on earlier periods):

"The discovery of America, and that of a passage to the East Indies by the Cape of Good Hope, are the two greatest and most important events recorded in the history of mankind... The Portuguese, who enjoyed almost the exclusive trade to the East Indies for about a century, carried it on by means of treaties with the sovereigns of the country."

Source: Adam Smith, *An Inquiry into the Nature and Causes of the Wealth of Nations*, W. Strahan and T. Cadell, 1776 (as cited in <https://www.gutenberg.org/files/3300/3300-h/3300-h.htm>).

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, maritime empires like Portugal maintained their dominance through**

- (A) treaties and monopolies on trade routes to Asia
- (B) the complete colonization of East Indian territories
- (C) alliances with American indigenous empires
- (D) the rejection of Cape of Good Hope routes

****Correct Answer: (A) treaties and monopolies on trade routes to Asia****

***Explanation*:** Smith notes Portugal's exclusive trade via treaties, indicating diplomatic and monopolistic strategies.

2. ****The "discovery of America" and "passage to the East Indies" in the passage highlight which development in maritime empires?****

- (A) The expansion of global trade networks and economic transformations
- (B) The decline of European interest in overseas ventures
- (C) The unification of East and West Indies under Portuguese rule
- (D) The restriction of trade to the Mediterranean region

****Correct Answer: (A) The expansion of global trade networks and economic transformations****

***Explanation*:** These events are called the "greatest" in history, leading to new trade paths and wealth.

3. ****Smith's reference to Portugal's "exclusive trade" for a century suggests that maritime empires developed by****

- (A) establishing temporary monopolies through naval power and diplomacy
- (B) sharing trade equally with rival European powers
- (C) focusing solely on military conquests without treaties
- (D) abandoning Asian trade for American colonies

****Correct Answer: (A) establishing temporary monopolies through naval power and diplomacy****

***Explanation*:** The century-long exclusivity via treaties reflects strategic maintenance of trade dominance.

4. ****Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of maritime empire maintenance, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1450–1750?****

- (A) The shift to a global economy with Europe at the center
- (B) The decline of Asian sovereigns due to European isolation
- (C) The unification of all maritime empires under Portugal
- (D) The restriction of discoveries to the Atlantic Ocean

****Correct Answer: (A) The shift to a global economy with Europe at the center****

***Explanation*:** Discoveries and trade monopolies transformed world commerce, positioning European powers centrally.

Topic 4.6: Internal and External Challenges to State Power from 1450 to 1750 (Written Stimulus)

****Excerpt from the Pugachev Rebellion Manifesto (1773):****

"By the grace of God, Emperor and Autocrat of All the Russias... We decree freedom to all Our loyal subjects... We free all previously noble serfs from the taxes and burdens which were laid on them by the villains of the nobility and the bribe-taking judges... We command that all should obey Us as their sole Sovereign."

****Source:**** Emelian Pugachev, Manifesto, 1773, as cited in "The Pugachev Rebellion" by Paul Avrich, Princeton University Press, 1967 (accessed via <https://www.britannica.com/event/Pugachevs-Rebellion>).

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, Pugachev's rebellion primarily challenged state power by**

- (A) appealing to serfs with promises of freedom from nobility and taxes
- (B) supporting the nobility against the tsar's authority
- (C) promoting foreign alliances to overthrow the government
- (D) restricting challenges to urban areas only

Correct Answer: (A) appealing to serfs with promises of freedom from nobility and taxes

Explanation: The manifesto frees serfs from burdens, positioning Pugachev as a liberator against the state.

2. **The self-proclamation as "Emperor" in the passage reflects which internal challenge to state power?**

- (A) Impersonation and peasant revolts claiming legitimacy
- (B) Diplomatic negotiations with external powers
- (C) The unification of nobility under a single leader
- (D) The rejection of all monarchical titles

Correct Answer: (A) Impersonation and peasant revolts claiming legitimacy

Explanation: Pugachev claimed to be Peter III, using royal language to legitimize his rebellion against Catherine II.

3. **The command to "obey Us as their sole Sovereign" suggests that such challenges aimed to**

- (A) replace existing authority with a new centralized figure
- (B) decentralize power to local judges
- (C) promote anarchy without any sovereign
- (D) strengthen the nobility's role in governance

Correct Answer: (A) replace existing authority with a new centralized figure

Explanation: Pugachev positioned himself as the true ruler, seeking to supplant the tsar's power.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of internal challenges like the Pugachev Rebellion during the period c. 1450–1750?**

- (A) The weakening of absolutist states through peasant uprisings and social unrest
- (B) The complete overthrow of all European monarchies
- (C) The unification of states against external threats
- (D) The restriction of challenges to religious conflicts only

Correct Answer: (A) The weakening of absolutist states through peasant uprisings and social unrest

Explanation: Rebellions like Pugachev's exposed vulnerabilities in land-based empires, leading to reforms or repression.

Topic 4.7: Changing Social Hierarchies from 1450 to 1750 (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from Olaudah Equiano's "The Interesting Narrative" (1789):

"I was soon put down under the decks, and there I received such a salutation in my nostrils as I had never experienced in my life: so that, with the loathsomeness of the stench, and crying together, I became so sick and low that I was not able to eat... The closeness of the place, and the heat of the climate, added to the number in the ship, which was so crowded that each had scarcely room to turn himself, almost suffocated us."

****Source:**** Olaudah Equiano, *The Interesting Narrative of the Life of Olaudah Equiano*, self-published, 1789 (as cited in <https://www.gutenberg.org/files/15399/15399-h/15399-h.htm>).

Questions

1. ****Based on the passage, the transatlantic slave trade contributed to changing social hierarchies by****

- (A) creating racialized labor systems in the Americas
- (B) promoting equality among European sailors
- (C) restricting slavery to African elites
- (D) unifying social classes in colonial societies

****Correct Answer:** (A) creating racialized labor systems in the Americas******

***Explanation*:** Equiano's description of the Middle Passage underscores the dehumanization that reinforced racial hierarchies in plantation economies.

2. ****The "loathsomeness of the stench" and overcrowding in the passage highlight which aspect of the slave trade?****

- (A) The brutal conditions that led to high mortality and social disruption
- (B) The comfortable accommodations for enslaved people
- (C) The focus on voluntary migration for work
- (D) The integration of enslaved individuals into European societies

****Correct Answer:** (A) The brutal conditions that led to high mortality and social disruption******

***Explanation*:** The horrific ship conditions illustrate the trade's impact on human suffering and demographic shifts.

3. ****Equiano's narrative, as excerpted, reflects changes in social hierarchies through****

- (A) the commodification of African labor in global economies
- (B) the elevation of enslaved people to elite status
- (C) the decline of European involvement in slavery
- (D) the restriction of slavery to indentured servants

****Correct Answer:** (A) the commodification of African labor in global economies******

***Explanation*:** The passage depicts enslaved people as cargo, emphasizing their role in emerging capitalist hierarchies.

4. ****Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of changing social hierarchies due to the slave trade during the period c. 1450–1750?****

- (A) The development of racial castes and economic inequalities in the Americas
- (B) The complete abolition of slavery in European colonies
- (C) The unification of African kingdoms against European powers
- (D) The decline of social mobility in Europe

****Correct Answer:** (A) The development of racial castes and economic inequalities in the Americas******

***Explanation*:** The trade entrenched racialized systems, shaping colonial societies with lasting inequalities.

Topic 4.8: Continuity and Change in the Global Economy from 1450 to 1750 (Written Stimulus)

****Excerpt from "The Wealth of Nations" by Adam Smith (1776):****

"The discovery of America, and that of a passage to the East Indies by the Cape of Good Hope, are the two greatest and most important events recorded in the history of mankind. Their consequences have already been very great; but, in the short period of between two and three centuries which has elapsed since these discoveries were made, it is impossible that the whole extent of their consequences can have been seen."

****Source:**** Adam Smith, *An Inquiry into the Nature and Causes of the Wealth of Nations*, W. Strahan and T. Cadell, 1776 (as cited in <https://www.gutenberg.org/files/3300/3300-h/3300-h.htm>).

Questions

1. ****Based on the passage, the global economy from 1450 to 1750 experienced continuity in****

- (A) the dominance of European trade networks before and after discoveries
- (B) the focus on overland trade routes like the Silk Roads
- (C) the reliance on mercantilist policies to accumulate wealth
- (D) the restriction of trade to regional exchanges

****Correct Answer:** (C) the reliance on mercantilist policies to accumulate wealth******

***Explanation*:** Smith's analysis implies ongoing economic strategies like mercantilism, which persisted amid changes from discoveries.

2. ****The "discovery of America" and "passage to the East Indies," as mentioned, represent changes in the global economy through****

- (A) the shift to a more interconnected world with new trade routes
- (B) the decline of silver and gold as currencies
- (C) the unification of economies under a single system
- (D) the isolation of Europe from Asian markets

****Correct Answer:** (A) the shift to a more interconnected world with new trade routes******

***Explanation*:** These events opened transoceanic paths, transforming global trade patterns.

3. ****Smith's comment on "consequences have already been very great" suggests that economic changes led to****

- (A) increased wealth disparities and colonial exploitation
- (B) the immediate equality of global economies
- (C) the decline of European influence overseas
- (D) the restriction of impacts to the short term

****Correct Answer:** (A) increased wealth disparities and colonial exploitation******

***Explanation*:** The discoveries fueled European enrichment through colonies, creating global inequalities.

4. ****Which of the following best illustrates the broader continuity and change in the global economy, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1450–1750?****

- (A) Continuity in mercantilism amid change from new oceanic trade and the rise of capitalism
- (B) Complete change to a socialist system worldwide
- (C) Continuity in isolationist policies with no new discoveries
- (D) Change limited to land-based empires only

****Correct Answer:** (A) Continuity in mercantilism amid change from new oceanic trade and the rise of capitalism******

***Explanation*:** Mercantilism persisted, but discoveries introduced global shifts toward capitalist structures.

4.1

Topic 4.1: Technological Innovations

Essential Question: How did cross-cultural interactions spread technology and facilitate changes in trade and travel from 1450 to 1750?

Although land-based empires remained important during this period, a series of inventions enabled Europeans to venture long distances across the oceans. The magnetic compass, originally developed in China for fortune-telling, helped sailors maintain their course even when clouds or darkness obscured the sun and stars. The astrolabe, improved by Muslim navigators in the 12th century, allowed sailors to determine how far north or south they were from the equator. The caravel—a small, three-masted sailing ship developed by the Portuguese in the 15th century—handled storms at sea better than earlier designs. Advances in cartography (mapmaking) and knowledge of ocean currents and wind patterns also improved navigation.

Demographic pressures encouraged Europeans to explore and trade overseas. As populations grew, not all workers could find employment or even food. Primogeniture laws, which gave all of a family's land to the eldest son, left younger sons of wealthy families without property. In the early 17th century, religious minorities sought places where they could practice their beliefs freely. Others simply longed for adventure and glory. These groups—along with those seeking work, food, land, or tolerance—participated in a global shift in demographics.

Developments of Transoceanic Travel and Trade

Europe was never completely isolated from East and South Asia. The Indian Ocean trade routes had long carried silk, spices, and tea to the Mediterranean via the Red Sea. Islamic traders had long known land routes from China to Baghdad and Constantinople, and from there to Rome. In the 16th century, growing numbers of Europeans became active in the Indian Ocean, motivated by hopes of wealth and new converts to Christianity. However, they faced competition from Middle Eastern traders based in kingdoms such as Oman. The Portuguese, for example, established forts in Oman but repeatedly faced challenges to remove them. This Omani-European rivalry was one factor behind Christopher Columbus's search for a new route to India.

Columbus's voyages connected people across the Atlantic Ocean. European traders became intermediaries linking Afro-Eurasia and the Americas:

- From the Americas, they acquired sugar, tobacco, and rum.
- From Africa, they acquired enslaved people.
- From Asia, they acquired silk, spices, and rhubarb.

This extensive trade transformed Spain, Portugal, Great Britain, France, and the Netherlands into **maritime empires**—states whose power and wealth were based on sea travel and oceanic trade.

Much of this trade was conducted by men. In Southeast Asia, however, Europeans often did business with women, who traditionally handled markets and money-changing services in those societies.

Classical, Islamic, and Asian Technology

Western European countries such as Portugal, Spain, and England were developing their naval technology. They were familiar with classical Greek traditions of using the stars to navigate. They combined this knowledge with new ideas developed by Islamic and Asian sailors and scholars, which they encountered through the cross-cultural interactions of trade networks. Al-Andalus (in what is now Spain) was a key site where Islamic ideas diffused into Europe.

The leading European figure in this development was Portuguese ruler **Prince Henry the Navigator**. Although he never sailed far enough out to sea to lose sight of land, he strongly supported exploration. He financed expeditions along Africa’s Atlantic coast and around the Cape of Good Hope. With his backing, Portugal explored African coastal communities and kingdoms before other European powers.

Advances in Ideas

As scholars gathered and refined knowledge, they improved the safety of ocean sailing. Isaac Newton’s discovery of gravitation, for example, increased understanding of the tides, allowing sailors to predict when water depth near shore would decrease and expose dangerous rocks. As people kept increasingly accurate records of wind direction and intensity, sailors could navigate with greater confidence.

Improvements in cartography also aided navigation. Mariners relied on astronomical charts—maps of the stars and galaxies—to determine direction and location, especially before the compass became widespread. Ancient astronomers in Babylonia and Mesopotamia had created star charts as early as the 2nd millennium B.C.E. Chinese astronomers produced charts by the 5th century B.C.E., and classical Greek astronomers also used them widely. The use of telescopes to create more accurate astronomical charts began in 1609 and became common by the end of the 17th century. Astronomers typically divided charts into grids to help locate specific constellations and objects.

Advances in Equipment

Several equipment improvements made sailing safer and faster. Ships moved more nimbly thanks to a new type of rudder, another idea imported from China. The astrolabe, improved by Muslim navigators in the 12th century, allowed sailors to determine how far north or south they were from the equator.

The compass became the primary direction-finding device in navigation. It worked either with magnets or a gyroscope (a wheel or disk mounted to spin rapidly around an axis). Other compasses used the location of the sun or a specific star. The magnetic compass, originally invented in China, allowed sailors to steer reliably. Discovered by mariners in both China and Europe in the 12th century, it worked because Earth itself acts as an enormous bar magnet whose magnetic field is nearly parallel to the globe’s north-south axis. Freely moving magnets (such as those in a compass) align with this field.

The **lateen sail**—a triangular sail used by Arab sailors and in the Indian Ocean—proved pivotal. Earlier square sails allowed travel in only one direction and required the wind to be behind the ship. The lateen sail could catch the wind on either side, allowing travel in different directions. When combined with square sails, the lateen enabled sailors to cross large bodies of water, including oceans, successfully for the first time and thus expand trade routes.

New types of ships also improved trade. By adjusting the ratio of length to width, adding or reducing masts, and using different sail types, shipbuilders could adapt vessels for greater efficiency.

Three Types of Ships

Ship	Typical Length	Sails and Masts	Purpose	Primary Users	Centuries of Peak Use
Carrack	150 feet	Square and lateen on 3–4 masts	Trade	Portugal	14th to 17th

Caravel	75 feet	Lateen sails on 2 or 3 masts	Long voyages at great speed	Portuguese and Spanish	15th to 17th
Fluyt	80 feet	Square on 2 or 3 masts	Trade	Dutch	16th to 17th

Long-Term Results

The combination of navigational techniques invented in Europe with those from other parts of the world produced rapid expansion of exploration and global trade. Polynesia was one of the few parts of the Afro-Eurasian world largely unaffected because it lay far from major trading routes.

The introduction of gunpowder, another Chinese invention, aided European conquests abroad. Before long, however, sea pirates—particularly the Dutch “Sea Beggars”—also used the new technology.

In North Africa and along Africa’s east coast trading cities, Islam spread rapidly through the growth of the Abbasid Empire (centered in Baghdad) and the activities of Muslim merchants. Interactions among cultures inside and outside Africa brought extensive trade and new technology to the continent.

Navigational techniques continued to spread in the 17th century. Russia’s Tsar Peter the Great visited Western Europe in 1697 to study military and naval technology. His interest led him to hire technicians from Germany and elsewhere to help build Russia’s military and naval power.

Vocabulary

- Primogeniture laws
- Omani-European rivalry
- Cartography
- Astronomical chart
- Maritime empires

"By the fifteenth century, many of the scientific and technological advances that would later transform Europe had already been developed elsewhere. The magnetic compass and gunpowder, both invented in China centuries earlier, reached Europe through trade routes and the Mongol Empire. At the same time, the works of Greek scholars such as Aristotle, Euclid, and Ptolemy — which had been largely lost in Western Europe — were preserved, translated, and expanded upon by Muslim scholars in centers like Baghdad, Cordoba, and Cairo. These texts, along with advancements in algebra, optics, and astronomy by scholars such as Al-Khwarizmi and Ibn al-Haytham, were gradually translated into Latin and circulated in European universities. This cross-cultural exchange provided European thinkers with both ancient knowledge and newer innovations that stimulated further scientific and technological progress during the Renaissance."

Source: Adapted from historical analyses of the transmission of knowledge, including works by historians such as Toby Huff and George Saliba.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, which of the following best describes how Chinese technologies contributed to European developments during the period 1450–1750?** (A) They were independently invented in Europe with no outside influence. (B) Technologies such as the compass and gunpowder, originally developed in China, were transmitted to Europe and later adapted for new uses. (C) Chinese inventions were rejected by Europeans as inferior. (D) European technological progress

occurred in complete isolation from Asia. **Correct Answer: (B) Technologies such as the compass and gunpowder, originally developed in China, were transmitted to Europe and later adapted for new uses.** *Explanation:* The passage notes that the compass and gunpowder reached Europe via trade and the Mongols, and were later adapted — the compass for navigation during the Age of Exploration and gunpowder for military use.

2. **According to the passage, the preservation and translation of Greek classical texts by Muslim scholars most directly benefited Europe by** (A) preventing Europeans from accessing ancient knowledge. (B) reintroducing important works in philosophy, mathematics, and science that had been largely lost in Western Europe. (C) replacing all European intellectual traditions with Islamic ones. (D) isolating European universities from outside influences. **Correct Answer: (B) reintroducing important works in philosophy, mathematics, and science that had been largely lost in Western Europe.** *Explanation:* The passage explains that Greek texts preserved and expanded by Muslim scholars were later translated into Latin, giving European scholars access to classical knowledge that helped fuel the Renaissance.
3. **The passage identifies advancements by scholars such as Al-Khwarizmi and Ibn al-Haytham as important contributions that reached Europe. These advancements most directly relate to which fields?** (A) Military technology and shipbuilding only. (B) Mathematics (algebra) and optics/astronomy. (C) Agricultural techniques and animal husbandry. (D) Political theory and legal systems. **Correct Answer: (B) Mathematics (algebra) and optics/astronomy.** *Explanation:* Al-Khwarizmi is known for his foundational work in algebra, while Ibn al-Haytham made major contributions to optics and the scientific method — both of which influenced later European science.
4. **Which of the following best explains how the spread of knowledge from Classical, Islamic, and Asian civilizations facilitated European technological developments between 1450 and 1750?** (A) European innovation occurred independently with no influence from other civilizations. (B) The transmission of existing knowledge in mathematics, science, and technology from other regions provided a foundation that Europeans built upon and adapted during the Renaissance and early modern period. (C) Non-European civilizations refused to share their knowledge with Europe. (D) European technological progress was entirely the result of new inventions with no connection to earlier traditions. **Correct Answer: (B) The transmission of existing knowledge in mathematics, science, and technology from other regions provided a foundation that Europeans built upon and adapted during the Renaissance and early modern period.** *Explanation:* The passage demonstrates that Europe did not develop in isolation. Instead, it benefited from the earlier scientific and technological achievements of other civilizations, which were transmitted through trade, conquest, and translation movements.

"By the mid-fifteenth century, Portuguese shipbuilders developed the caravel, a vessel that combined the sturdy hull of northern European ships with the triangular lateen sails common in the Indian Ocean. This design allowed ships to sail effectively both with and against the wind. At the same time, European sailors adopted and improved navigational instruments such as the astrolabe and quadrant, which enabled them to determine their latitude at sea by measuring the height of the sun or stars above the horizon. Perhaps most importantly, Portuguese explorers systematically studied the wind and current patterns of the Atlantic Ocean. They learned to use the northeast trade winds to sail south along the African coast and the westerlies to return to Europe on a more northerly route. These combined innovations in ship design, navigation, and oceanographic knowledge made regular transoceanic voyages possible for the first time."

Source: Adapted from J.H. Parry, *The Age of Reconnaissance* (1963) and Felipe Fernández-Armesto, *Pathfinders: A Global History of Exploration* (2006).

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, which of the following was a major advantage of the caravel over earlier European ship designs?** (A) It could only sail with the wind, making it faster on long voyages. (B) It combined square and lateen sails, allowing it to sail effectively in multiple wind directions. (C) It was significantly larger than previous ships, allowing it to carry more soldiers. (D) It relied exclusively on oars rather than sails for propulsion. **Correct Answer: (B) It combined square and lateen sails, allowing it to sail effectively in multiple wind directions.** *Explanation:* The caravel's hybrid sail design gave it greater maneuverability, which was essential for exploring coastlines and sailing against prevailing winds.
2. **According to the passage, instruments such as the astrolabe and quadrant most directly contributed to transoceanic travel by** (A) allowing sailors to determine their longitude with great accuracy. (B) enabling sailors to calculate their latitude at sea. (C) replacing the need for any knowledge of wind patterns. (D) making ships faster and more durable. **Correct Answer: (B) enabling sailors to calculate their latitude at sea.** *Explanation:* These instruments allowed navigators to determine how far north or south they were from the equator, which was critical for open-ocean navigation before accurate longitude could be measured.
3. **The passage emphasizes that Portuguese sailors learned to use the northeast trade winds on the outward journey and the westerlies on the return. This knowledge most directly** (A) made regular round-trip voyages between Europe and West Africa possible. (B) discouraged further exploration because of dangerous wind patterns. (C) allowed ships to sail directly east to Asia without stopping. (D) eliminated the need for improved ship designs. **Correct Answer: (A) made regular round-trip voyages between Europe and West Africa possible.** *Explanation:* Understanding wind patterns allowed sailors to take advantage of prevailing winds for both going out and returning, which was essential for sustained transoceanic trade and exploration.
4. **Which of the following best explains how technological and scientific developments contributed to European transoceanic travel and trade between 1450 and 1750?** (A) European sailors independently invented all necessary technologies with no outside influence. (B) A combination of improved ship designs, navigational instruments, and better understanding of wind and current patterns enabled Europeans to undertake and sustain long-distance oceanic voyages. (C) Technological improvements only affected trade within the Mediterranean Sea. (D) European expansion was driven solely by religious motivation with no technological basis. **Correct Answer: (B) A combination of improved ship designs, navigational instruments, and better understanding of wind and current patterns enabled Europeans to undertake and sustain long-distance oceanic voyages.** *Explanation:* The passage clearly shows that multiple interconnected innovations — in shipbuilding, navigation, and oceanography — together made transoceanic exploration and trade feasible on a regular basis.

Topic 4.2: Exploration: Causes and Events

Essential Question: What were the causes and effects of the state-sponsored expansion of maritime exploration?

Thanks in part to improved navigation techniques, Italian cities with Mediterranean ports held a monopoly on European trade with Asia. By controlling access to trade routes, they controlled prices of Asian imports to Europe. This drove Spain and Portugal—and later France, England, and the Netherlands—to search for new routes to Asia. Explorers hoped to find riches overseas, especially gold and silver. In addition to these economic and political motives, explorers sought to convert others to Christianity. Technological breakthroughs in sailing and navigation also made bold new voyages possible.

Christopher Columbus, credited with “discovering the New World,” gained the support of Spanish monarchs Queen Isabella and King Ferdinand in 1492 for his Atlantic voyages. His journeys increased interest in discovery, and the English, French, and Dutch supported later exploration.

The Role of States in Maritime Exploration

European states sought to expand their authority and control of resources during the era of empire-building. Conquests brought new wealth through taxes and new trading opportunities. Over time, they also brought great material wealth—especially silver—to European states. Rivalries among European states encouraged expansion before another power could claim territory. Religion provided additional motivation: many Europeans believed it was their Christian duty to seek out and convert people in other lands.

For all these reasons, states were centrally involved in maritime exploration. Voyages like those of Columbus were expensive; without state financial support, they would likely have been unaffordable for most explorers and even merchants. Since religion was tightly integrated into most European governments, preserving and spreading a state’s religion became another reason for state involvement.

In the 17th century, Europeans generally measured a country’s wealth by its accumulated gold and silver. Countries therefore adopted policies designed to sell as many goods as possible to other nations (to maximize gold and silver inflows) and buy as few as possible (to minimize outflows). This theory, known as **mercantilism**, required heavy government involvement.

Expansion of European Maritime Exploration

No nation tied the interests of the state and explorers as closely as Portugal, which led the way in European exploration and maritime innovation.

Portuguese in Africa and India

The small kingdom of Portugal, bounded on the east by the Spanish kingdoms of Castile and Aragon, could expand only overseas. Three figures led its exploration:

- **Prince Henry the Navigator** (1394–1460) became the first European monarch to sponsor seafaring expeditions in search of an all-water route to the east and African gold. Under him, Portugal began importing enslaved Africans by sea, replacing the overland slave trade.
- **Bartholomew Diaz** sailed around the southern tip of Africa (the Cape of Good Hope) in 1488 into unfamiliar waters. Fearing mutiny, he turned back.

- **Vasco da Gama** sailed farther east than Diaz, landing in India in 1498. He claimed territory as part of Portugal's empire. Portuguese ports in India became a key step in expanding Portugal's Indian Ocean trade and connections farther east.

Portuguese in Southeast and East Asia

In the early 16th century, the ruthless Portuguese admiral **Afonso de Albuquerque** won a short but bloody battle against Arab traders and established a factory at Malacca in present-day Indonesia. He had previously served as governor of Portuguese India (1509–1515), sending strings of Indians' ears to Portugal as evidence of his conquests.

China's outward exploration ended after Zheng He's final voyage in the 1430s. Less than a century later, in 1514, the outside world arrived on China's doorstep in the form of Portuguese traders. At that time, Portugal's superior ships and weapons gave it unmatched advantages among Europeans. The Portuguese already controlled both the African and Indian coasts and had defeated a Turkish-Egyptian-Venetian fleet at Diu, India, in 1509.

Initial Portuguese visits had little impact on Chinese society. They were followed, however, by Roman Catholic missionaries—mainly Franciscans and Dominicans—who worked to gain converts. The Jesuits soon followed and tried to win over the Chinese court elite. Scientific and technical knowledge proved key to success at court. Jesuit missionaries in Macau, such as Matteo Ricci (arrived 1582) and Adam Schall von Bell (arrived 1619), impressed the Chinese with their learning but failed to win many converts among the hostile scholar-gentry, who viewed them as barbaric.

Trading Post Empire

To control trade, the Portuguese built a chain of forts stretching from Hormuz on the Persian Gulf (1507) to Goa in western India (1510) to Malacca on the Malay Peninsula (1511). The forts aimed to establish a monopoly over the spice trade in the region and to license all vessels trading between Malacca and Hormuz. These outposts created a global **trading post empire** based on small settlements rather than control of large territories. The Portuguese also restricted Indian Ocean trade to those willing to buy permits.

Portuguese Vulnerability

Portugal succeeded in global trade for several decades, but as a small nation it lacked the workers and ships needed to enforce a large trade empire. Many Portuguese merchants ignored their government and traded independently. Corruption among officials also hampered the empire. By the 17th century, Dutch and English rivals challenged the Portuguese in East Asia, including islands that today form parts of Malaysia and Indonesia.

The Dutch captured Malacca and built a fort at Batavia in Java in 1620. From Batavia, they attempted to monopolize the spice trade. As a result, the English focused on India and pushed the Portuguese out of South Asia.

In the early 16th century, the Portuguese also traveled to Japan to trade, followed by Christian missionaries in 1549. They established large Catholic settlements until the 1600s, when Japanese rulers outlawed Catholicism and expelled the missionaries.

Spanish in the Philippines

Portuguese explorers such as Vasco da Gama were the first Western Europeans to reach the Indian Ocean by sea by sailing around the southern tip of Africa. Spanish ships, however, became the first to circumnavigate the globe when the government sponsored Ferdinand Magellan's voyage. Magellan died in the Philippine Islands in 1522, but one ship from his fleet completed the journey, proving the Earth could be circumnavigated.

Spain annexed the Philippines in 1521 when Magellan's fleet arrived. The Spanish returned in 1565 and began a long campaign to conquer the Filipinos, who resisted fiercely. Manila became a Spanish commercial center in the region, attracting Chinese merchants and others. Because of Portuguese and Spanish occupations, many Filipinos became Christians.

The Lure of Riches

Columbus and other European explorers sought a new route to Asia and hoped to find gold, silver, and other valuable resources. The Spanish found so little of value in their first two decades of contact that they considered halting further exploration. After sponsoring voyages in the 1490s, the English made little attempt to explore or settle for almost a century.

European interest in the Americas revived when the Spanish encountered the two major empires in the region: the Aztecs in Mesoamerica and the Incas in South America. These empires possessed the gold and silver that made exploration, conquest, and settlement profitable. Europeans soon realized they could grow wealthy by raising sugar, tobacco, and other valuable crops using enslaved Native Americans and, later, enslaved Africans.

Trade Across the Pacific

China was a particularly enthusiastic consumer of silver from the Western Hemisphere. Silver from what is now Mexico crossed the Pacific in heavily armed Spanish ships known as **galleons**, which stopped in the Philippines. At the trading post in Manila, Europeans exchanged silver for luxury goods such as silk and spices—and even for gold bullion. The impressive Manila galleons allowed the silver trade to flourish. The Chinese government soon began using silver as its main form of currency. By the early 17th century, silver had become a dominant force in the global economic system.

Spain's European rivals also explored and claimed regions in the Americas. French, English, and Dutch explorers all sought a **northwest passage**—a route through or around North America that would lead to East Asia and the lucrative trade in spices and luxury goods.

French Exploration

In the 1500s and 1600s, the French government sponsored expeditions in search of a northwest passage. In 1535, for example, Jacques Cartier sailed from the Atlantic into the St. Lawrence River at today's northern U.S. border. He did not find a new route to Asia but claimed part of what is now Canada for France. Eventually, explorers such as Cartier and Samuel de Champlain (explored 1603–1616) realized there were valuable goods and rich resources available in the Americas, so there was no need to continue to Asia.

Like the Spanish, the French hoped to find gold. Instead, they found a land rich in furs and other natural resources. In 1608 they established a town and trading post they named Quebec. French traders and priests spread across the continent. Traders searched for furs; priests sought to convert Native Americans to Christianity and sometimes established schools among indigenous peoples. In the 1680s, a French trader known as La Salle explored the Great Lakes and followed the Mississippi River south to its mouth at the Gulf of Mexico, claiming the vast region for France.

Unlike the Spanish—or the English colonizing the East Coast of what is now the United States—the French rarely settled permanently. Instead of demanding land, they traded for furs trapped by Native Americans. For this reason, the French had better relations with indigenous peoples than the Spanish or English, and their settlements grew more slowly. By 1754, the European population of New France (the French colony in North America) was only about 70,000, while the English colonies included one million Europeans.

English Exploration

In 1497, the English king sent explorer John Cabot to America to search for a northwest passage. Cabot claimed lands from Newfoundland south to the Chesapeake Bay. The English initially lacked sufficient sea power to defend against Spanish naval forces, although English pirates known as “sea dogs” sometimes attacked Spanish ships. In 1588, however, the English surprisingly defeated and destroyed all but one-third of the Spanish Armada. With that victory, England declared itself a major naval power and began competing for lands and resources in the Americas.

Around the same time the French were founding Quebec, the English established a colony in Virginia. In 1607, about one hundred English colonists traveled roughly 60 miles inland from the coast and built a settlement called Jamestown on the James River (both named for King James I). Jamestown was England’s first successful colony in the Americas and one of the earliest colonies in what would become the United States. The first colonies in the present-day United States were actually Spanish settlements in Florida and New Mexico.

Dutch Exploration

In 1609, the Dutch sent Henry Hudson to explore the East Coast of North America. Among other feats, he sailed up what became known as the Hudson River to see if it led to Asia. He was disappointed not to find a northwest passage. He and other explorers continued searching for such a route. Although it would pass through a chilly region, it offered the possibility of being only half the distance of a route around South America.

Although Hudson did not find a northwest passage, his explorations proved valuable to the Dutch. Based on his voyage, the Dutch claimed the Hudson River Valley and the island of Manhattan. On the tip of Manhattan, they settled a community called New Amsterdam (today New York City). Like many port towns, New Amsterdam prospered because it was located where a major river flowed into the ocean.

New Amsterdam became an important node in the Dutch transatlantic trade network. Dutch merchants bought furs from trappers who lived and worked in forest lands as far north as Canada. They purchased crops from lands to the south, particularly tobacco from Virginia planters. They sent these goods to the Netherlands in exchange for manufactured items they could sell throughout colonial North America.

Vocabulary

- Mercantilism
- Trading post empire
- Manila
- Prince Henry the Navigator
- Galleons
- Christopher Columbus
- Bartholomew Diaz
- Vasco da Gama
- Ferdinand Magellan

- Northwest passage
- Jacques Cartier
- Samuel de Champlain
- John Cabot
- Henry Hudson
- Quebec
- New France
- Jamestown
- New Amsterdam

"Unlike the Spanish, who sought to conquer and settle large territories in the Americas, the Portuguese pursued a different imperial strategy. Building on technological advances such as the caravel and improved navigational knowledge of Atlantic winds and currents, Portuguese explorers established a network of fortified trading posts (*feitorias*) along the coasts of Africa and Asia. These posts, such as those at Elmina on the Gold Coast, Goa in India, and Malacca in Southeast Asia, allowed the Portuguese to control key points along the Indian Ocean trade routes. Rather than attempting to conquer vast inland territories, the Portuguese focused on dominating maritime commerce, particularly the spice trade. This system of trading posts, protected by a powerful navy, enabled Portugal to become the first European power to establish a truly global maritime empire by the early sixteenth century."

Source: Adapted from J.H. Parry, *The Age of Reconnaissance* (1963) and Charles R. Boxer, *The Portuguese Seaborne Empire, 1415–1825* (1969).

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, the Portuguese imperial strategy in Africa and Asia differed from the Spanish model in the Americas primarily because the Portuguese** (A) focused on conquering large inland territories and establishing settler colonies (B) established a network of fortified coastal trading posts to control maritime trade rather than large territorial empires (C) avoided all contact with African and Asian societies (D) relied exclusively on missionary work rather than military force **Correct Answer: (B) established a network of fortified coastal trading posts to control maritime trade rather than large territorial empires** *Explanation:* The passage clearly contrasts the Portuguese strategy of building trading posts (*feitorias*) with the Spanish approach of large-scale territorial conquest and settlement.
2. **According to the passage, which technological and navigational developments most directly enabled the Portuguese to establish their global trading-post empire?** (A) The invention of the steam engine and railroads (B) Improvements in ship design (such as the caravel) and better understanding of wind and current patterns (C) The development of the printing press (D) Advances in agricultural techniques **Correct Answer: (B) Improvements in ship design (such as the caravel) and better understanding of wind and current patterns** *Explanation:* These maritime innovations allowed Portuguese ships to sail long distances and return safely, making regular voyages to Africa and Asia possible.
3. **The passage identifies key Portuguese trading posts such as Elmina, Goa, and Malacca. These locations were strategically important because they** (A) were located in the interior of continents far from the coast (B) allowed the Portuguese to control major maritime trade routes and access to valuable goods like gold and spices (C) were used primarily as settler colonies for Portuguese peasants (D) had no connection to existing trade networks **Correct Answer: (B) allowed the Portuguese to control major maritime trade routes and access to valuable goods like gold and spices** *Explanation:* These posts were positioned at critical points along existing trade routes, enabling the Portuguese to dominate commerce without needing to conquer large territories.

4. **Which of the following best explains how Portuguese exploration and maritime technology contributed to the creation of a global trading-post empire between 1450 and 1750?** (A) Portuguese explorers focused only on settling the Americas and ignored Africa and Asia. (B) Technological advances in navigation and shipbuilding, combined with a strategy of establishing fortified coastal trading posts, allowed Portugal to dominate key segments of global maritime trade. (C) The Portuguese rejected all military force and relied solely on peaceful trade agreements. (D) Portuguese expansion remained limited to the Mediterranean Sea and never reached the Indian Ocean. **Correct Answer: (B) Technological advances in navigation and shipbuilding, combined with a strategy of establishing fortified coastal trading posts, allowed Portugal to dominate key segments of global maritime trade.** *Explanation:* The passage highlights how a combination of maritime technology and a trading-post model enabled Portugal to build the first global European maritime empire.

"Christopher Columbus's voyages, sponsored by the Spanish monarchs Ferdinand and Isabella, had a profound effect on European attitudes toward exploration. When Columbus returned to Spain in 1493 with news of lands across the Atlantic, along with gold, exotic plants, and Indigenous people, it created tremendous excitement throughout Europe. Unlike earlier voyages along the African coast, Columbus's expeditions suggested the existence of entirely new continents. This discovery sparked a surge of interest among European rulers and merchants. Within a generation, Spanish-sponsored expeditions had reached the Pacific Ocean, and in 1519–1522, Ferdinand Magellan's voyage — also under Spanish sponsorship — completed the first circumnavigation of the globe. These successes convinced many Europeans that long-distance oceanic voyages were not only possible but potentially highly profitable, leading to increased royal and private investment in exploration and trade."

Source: Adapted from J.H. Parry, *The Age of Reconnaissance* (1963) and Felipe Fernández-Armesto, *Columbus* (1991).

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, which of the following best describes the immediate impact of Columbus's return to Spain in 1493?** (A) It discouraged further European exploration of the Atlantic. (B) It generated widespread excitement and increased European interest in transoceanic voyages. (C) It led to the immediate rejection of Columbus's claims by the Spanish crown. (D) It had little effect on European attitudes toward exploration. **Correct Answer: (B) It generated widespread excitement and increased European interest in transoceanic voyages.** *Explanation:* The passage emphasizes that Columbus's return with news and goods from across the Atlantic created "tremendous excitement" and sparked greater interest in exploration.
2. **According to the passage, how did Columbus's voyages differ from earlier Portuguese expeditions along the African coast?** (A) They proved that entirely new continents existed across the Atlantic. (B) They focused exclusively on establishing trading posts in Africa. (C) They were sponsored by Portugal rather than Spain. (D) They had no economic or political impact on Europe. **Correct Answer: (A) They proved that entirely new continents existed across the Atlantic.** *Explanation:* The passage notes that unlike coastal African voyages, Columbus's expeditions revealed the existence of new lands, which dramatically changed European perceptions of the world.
3. **The passage identifies Magellan's circumnavigation (1519–1522) as a major development following Columbus's voyages. This expedition most directly demonstrated that** (A) the Earth was flat and impossible to circumnavigate. (B) it was possible to sail around the world using oceanic routes. (C) Spanish exploration was limited only to the Atlantic Ocean. (D) trade with Asia was no

longer economically viable. **Correct Answer: (B) it was possible to sail around the world using oceanic routes.** *Explanation:* Magellan's voyage, sponsored by Spain, proved that the world could be circumnavigated by sea, further encouraging European interest in global maritime exploration and trade.

4. **Which of the following best explains how Spanish-sponsored voyages after 1492 affected European interest in transoceanic travel and trade between 1450 and 1750?** (A) They discouraged European rulers from funding further exploration. (B) They demonstrated the feasibility and potential profitability of long-distance oceanic voyages, leading to increased royal and private investment in exploration and global trade. (C) They caused European powers to abandon all interest in maritime trade. (D) They had no lasting impact on European attitudes toward exploration. **Correct Answer: (B) They demonstrated the feasibility and potential profitability of long-distance oceanic voyages, leading to increased royal and private investment in exploration and global trade.** *Explanation:* Columbus's voyages and those that followed (including Magellan's) proved that transoceanic travel was achievable and potentially lucrative, which dramatically increased European commitment to overseas exploration and commerce.

"The voyages of Christopher Columbus beginning in 1492 initiated one of the most significant biological and cultural exchanges in human history, later known as the Columbian Exchange. Contact between the Eastern and Western Hemispheres led to the transfer of plants, animals, diseases, and people across the Atlantic. In the Americas, the introduction of diseases such as smallpox and measles — to which Indigenous populations had no immunity — caused catastrophic population declines, in some regions by as much as 90 percent. At the same time, Europeans introduced new crops such as wheat, rice, and sugarcane, as well as livestock including horses, cattle, and pigs. In return, the Americas provided the Eastern Hemisphere with highly productive staple crops, most notably maize (corn), potatoes, and cassava. These new food sources contributed to significant population growth in Europe, Africa, and Asia. Additionally, the demand for labor in the Americas led to the forced migration of millions of Africans through the transatlantic slave trade, creating new demographic and cultural patterns on both sides of the Atlantic."

Source: Adapted from Alfred W. Crosby, *The Columbian Exchange: Biological and Cultural Consequences of 1492* (1972) and subsequent scholarship on the Columbian Exchange.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, which of the following was a primary cause of the Columbian Exchange?** (A) The intentional isolation of the Americas from the rest of the world (B) European transatlantic voyages beginning with Columbus in 1492 (C) The decline of trade between Europe and Asia (D) The rejection of new crops by European societies **Correct Answer: (B) European transatlantic voyages beginning with Columbus in 1492** *Explanation:* The passage identifies Columbus's voyages as the starting point that connected the Eastern and Western Hemispheres, initiating the large-scale exchange of plants, animals, diseases, and people.
2. **According to the passage, which of the following was a major effect of the Columbian Exchange on the Western Hemisphere (the Americas)?** (A) A significant increase in the Indigenous population due to new food crops (B) Catastrophic population decline among Indigenous peoples due to the introduction of new diseases (C) The complete rejection of all European crops and animals (D) The immediate end of the transatlantic slave trade **Correct Answer: (B) Catastrophic population decline among Indigenous peoples due to the introduction of new diseases** *Explanation:* The passage notes that diseases like smallpox and measles caused massive population losses in the Americas because Indigenous peoples had no prior exposure or immunity.

3. **The passage states that crops such as maize and potatoes from the Americas contributed to population growth in the Eastern Hemisphere. This effect was most significant because these crops** (A) were difficult to grow and required advanced technology (B) provided high yields and could be grown in a variety of climates, improving food security (C) replaced all traditional European and Asian crops immediately (D) had no nutritional value compared to existing staples **Correct Answer: (B) provided high yields and could be grown in a variety of climates, improving food security**
Explanation: Maize and potatoes were highly productive and adaptable, which helped support larger populations in Europe, Africa, and Asia after their introduction.
4. **Which of the following best summarizes the overall effects of the Columbian Exchange on both the Eastern and Western Hemispheres between 1450 and 1750?** (A) It had minimal impact on either hemisphere. (B) It caused massive demographic collapse in the Americas due to disease while transforming diets, populations, and economies in the Eastern Hemisphere through new crops and the transatlantic slave trade. (C) It led to immediate equality in wealth and power between the two hemispheres. (D) It resulted in the complete isolation of the Americas from global trade networks.
Correct Answer: (B) It caused massive demographic collapse in the Americas due to disease while transforming diets, populations, and economies in the Eastern Hemisphere through new crops and the transatlantic slave trade. *Explanation:* The passage shows the dual impact: devastating population loss in the Americas from disease, contrasted with agricultural and demographic gains in the Eastern Hemisphere, along with the rise of the transatlantic slave trade.

4.3

Topic 4.3: Columbian Exchange

Essential Question: What were the causes of the Columbian Exchange and its effects on the Eastern and Western Hemispheres?

Initial contact, conquest, and colonization of the Americas proved disastrous for native peoples. Overpowered by superior weapons and decimated by disease, many native populations declined sharply, dispersed, or were forced to submit to new rulers and a new religion.

Although European conquest severely damaged entire native societies and their ways of life, new ways of living eventually emerged from the interaction of three broad cultural traditions: indigenous American, European, and African. In the process, the Eastern and Western Hemispheres became linked in a new way, sharing diseases, foods, and animals. Because of Christopher Columbus's role in establishing this connection, these interactions became known as the **Columbian Exchange**.

The Columbian Exchange produced far-reaching effects beyond dramatic changes in population and biodiversity. It also contributed to a changing global economy, sometimes with unintended consequences. For example, Spain successfully mined silver in the Americas, but this silver sparked inflation in Spain that contributed to the downfall of the Spanish Empire.

Diseases and Population Catastrophe

Until Columbus's arrival, the peoples of the Western and Eastern Hemispheres had been almost completely isolated from each other. As a result, indigenous Americans had no exposure—and therefore no immunity—to the germs and diseases brought by Europeans. Although European horses, gunpowder, and metal weapons helped conquer indigenous Americans, disease caused the majority of deaths.

Spanish soldiers known as **conquistadores**, such as Francisco Pizarro and Hernán Cortés, brought smallpox with them. Smallpox spreads through the respiratory system. Europeans, who were largely immune after millennia of exposure in Afro-Eurasia, infected indigenous populations through face-to-face contact.

As colonists settled in the Americas, insects, rats, and other disease-carrying animals arrived as well. Measles, influenza, and malaria, in addition to smallpox, killed many native peoples.

The indigenous population of the Americas fell by more than 50 percent from disease alone in less than a century. Some American lands lost up to 90 percent of their original populations. It was one of the greatest population disasters in human history.

Animals and Foods

Germ and disease transmission formed only one part of the Columbian Exchange. Another major component was the sharing of new crops and livestock in both directions. Before the exchange began around 1500, Mesoamerican peoples consumed very little meat. Although modern Mexican food in the United States relies heavily on pork, beef, and cheese, indigenous Mexicans knew nothing of pigs or cows until Europeans introduced them. These animals, along with Mediterranean foods such as wheat and grapes, were brought to the Western Hemisphere and eventually became staples of the American diet.

The horse, another domesticated animal Europeans brought to the Americas, transformed the culture of American Indians living in the Plains region. With horses, Indians could hunt buffalo on horseback far more efficiently and over a larger area, creating a food surplus. This efficiency gave them more time for other

pursuits such as art and spirituality. However, competition and even armed conflict among tribes increased, with those possessing the most horses holding the most power.

At the same time, European explorers carried Mesoamerican maize (corn), potatoes, tomatoes, beans, peppers, and cacao back to their home countries, where people began growing them. Potatoes became so popular in Europe that they are often thought of as native to certain regions, such as Ireland. The introduction of these vegetable crops caused tremendous population growth in Europe during the 16th and 17th centuries.

Cash Crops and Forced Labor

People themselves also became part of the exchange. The coerced arrival of enslaved Africans in the Americas brought biological and demographic changes. Africans brought okra and rice with them. Tobacco and cacao produced on American plantations with forced labor were sold to consumers in Europe, Africa, and the Middle East.

Even though slave traders kidnapped millions of Africans from their homelands, populations in Africa actually grew during the 16th and 17th centuries. This growth resulted from the nutritious foods introduced to the continent. Yams and manioc, for example, were brought to Africa from Brazil.

The Lure of Sugar

While Spain and Spanish America profited from silver, the Portuguese empire focused on agriculture. Brazil, the center of the Portuguese-American empire, had a tropical climate and vast tracts of land ideal for sugarcane cultivation. Because disease had decimated the indigenous population, however, there were not enough laborers available. Many of those forced to work in the sugar fields escaped into the uncharted Brazilian jungle. In response, the Portuguese began importing enslaved people from Africa, especially from the Kongo Kingdom and cities along the Swahili coast.

Slavery

Sugar's profitability in European markets dramatically increased the number of Africans captured and sold through the transatlantic slave trade. Sugar cultivation in Brazil required constant importation of African labor. African laborers became so numerous in Brazil that their descendants eventually formed the majority of the population. Slave importers sold more than 90 percent of enslaved Africans to the Caribbean and South America. Only about 6 percent went to British North America. Until the mid-1800s, more Africans than Europeans traveled to the Americas.

Enslaved people often died from backbreaking working conditions, poor nutrition, inadequate shelter, and tropical heat along with the diseases it brought. Sugar plantations processed so much sugar that they were called *engenhos* ("engines" in Portuguese). Because of the horrific working conditions, plantation owners lost 5 to 10 percent of their labor force each year.

Growing Cash Crops

The Spanish noticed Portugal's success with plantation agriculture and returned to the Caribbean to pursue cash crop cultivation, such as sugar and tobacco. Cash crops are grown for sale rather than subsistence. Soon, sugar eclipsed silver as the main moneymaker for the European empires.

African Presence in the Americas

African cultures were not completely lost once captives arrived in the Americas. During the **African Diaspora** (the dispersion of Africans out of Africa), enslaved Africans retained some aspects of their cultures.

Languages

With few exceptions, Africans were unable to transplant their languages to the Americas. Captives were forced away from their communities and soon found themselves on ships among people from across West Africa (and sometimes East Africa as well). Because captives came from many different African cultural groups, most did not share a common language. They found it difficult, if not impossible, to communicate during the voyage. Because of this linguistic isolation on the ships and in the Americas, most Africans lost their languages within a generation.

Despite this forced isolation from their cultures, West Africans combined European colonizers' languages (English, Spanish, French, or Portuguese) with elements of their West African languages and grammatical patterns to create new languages known broadly as **creole**.

Because the Caribbean islands had a larger concentration of enslaved Africans than North America did, creole languages remain dominant there today. In the United States, which had a smaller percentage of Africans relative to the total population, few creole languages exist. One notable exception is the Gullah or Geechee language of coastal South Carolina and Georgia, areas where enslaved people once made up 75 percent of the population.

Music

Africans brought their music with them. The syncopated rhythms and percussion they used influenced later styles, including gospel, blues, jazz, rock and roll, hip-hop, rap, samba, reggae, and country music.

One reason many African descendants maintained their musical traditions was that enslaved Africans used them as a means of survival. They sang songs from home to help endure long workdays and to communicate with other Africans, such as when planning escapes. They blended European Christian music with their own religious songs, creating what became known as Negro spirituals—essential elements of American folk music history. Enslaved people also invented the banjo, which is very similar to stringed instruments found in West Africa.

Food

In addition to rice and okra, Africans brought their knowledge of how to prepare these foods. The dish known as gumbo, popular in the southern United States, has roots in African cooking. Through influences on language, music, food, and much more, African culture has had a profound and lasting impact on life in the Americas.

Columbian Exchange: Eastern Hemisphere to Western Hemisphere

Crops — Sugar, wheat, barley, okra, rice, oranges, grapes, lettuce, coffee

Effects — Deforestation to make way for new crops; soil depletion from repeated planting of the same crops on the same land.

Animals — Horses, oxen, pigs, cattle, sheep, goats, mosquitoes, rats, chickens

Effects — Overgrazing by cattle, sheep, and goats; soil erosion from overgrazing; spread of diseases from mosquitoes, rats, and livestock.

People — Europeans, Africans

Effects — Racial diversity; chattel slavery; social structures based on race and ethnicity.

Diseases — Smallpox, measles, typhus, bubonic plague, influenza

Effects — Spread of disease; millions of deaths among Native American populations.

Technology and Ideas — Alphabetic writing, firearms

Effects — Improved communication; new methods for hunting and warfare.

Columbian Exchange: Western Hemisphere to Eastern Hemisphere

Crops — Potatoes, maize, manioc, tobacco, cacao, peanuts

Effects — Better nutrition; increase in population; greater wealth.

Animals — Turkeys, llamas, alpacas, guinea pigs

Effects — More diverse diet; new types of textiles.

Diseases — Syphilis

Effects — Increased health risks.

People — Native Americans

Effects — Ethnic diversity.

Technology and Ideas — Rubber, quinine

Effects — Rubber first used as an eraser; quinine provided a treatment for malaria.

Environmental and Demographic Impact

Contact between Afro-Eurasia and the Americas brought dramatic changes to both hemispheres. Most changes resulted from the Columbian Exchange. In addition, Europeans used agricultural land more intensively than American Indians had. Colonists cut down trees to clear areas for planting crops and created large fields that they cultivated year after year. As a result, deforestation and soil depletion became problems in the Americas. Europeans also tended to live in more densely populated communities than American Indians, which increased the strain on water resources and created more concentrated areas of pollution.

Vocabulary

- Smallpox
- Conquistadores
- Creole
- Maize
- Cacao
- Rice
- Sugarcane

- Columbian Exchange
- Transatlantic slave trade
- *Engenhos*
- Cash crop
- African Diaspora

"The voyages of Christopher Columbus beginning in 1492 initiated one of the most significant biological and cultural exchanges in human history, later known as the Columbian Exchange. Contact between the Eastern and Western Hemispheres led to the transfer of plants, animals, diseases, and people across the Atlantic. In the Americas, the introduction of diseases such as smallpox and measles — to which Indigenous populations had no immunity — caused catastrophic population declines, in some regions by as much as 90 percent. At the same time, Europeans introduced new crops such as wheat, rice, and sugarcane, as well as livestock including horses, cattle, and pigs. In return, the Americas provided the Eastern Hemisphere with highly productive staple crops, most notably maize (corn), potatoes, and cassava. These new food sources contributed to significant population growth in Europe, Africa, and Asia. Additionally, the demand for labor in the Americas led to the forced migration of millions of Africans through the transatlantic slave trade, creating new demographic and cultural patterns on both sides of the Atlantic."

Source: Adapted from Alfred W. Crosby, *The Columbian Exchange: Biological and Cultural Consequences of 1492* (1972) and subsequent scholarship on the Columbian Exchange.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, which of the following was a primary cause of the Columbian Exchange?** (A) The intentional isolation of the Americas from the rest of the world (B) European transatlantic voyages beginning with Columbus in 1492 (C) The decline of trade between Europe and Asia (D) The rejection of new crops by European societies **Correct Answer: (B) European transatlantic voyages beginning with Columbus in 1492** *Explanation:* The passage identifies Columbus's voyages as the starting point that connected the Eastern and Western Hemispheres, initiating the large-scale exchange of plants, animals, diseases, and people.
2. **According to the passage, which of the following was a major effect of the Columbian Exchange on the Western Hemisphere (the Americas)?** (A) A significant increase in the Indigenous population due to new food crops (B) Catastrophic population decline among Indigenous peoples due to the introduction of new diseases (C) The complete rejection of all European crops and animals (D) The immediate end of the transatlantic slave trade **Correct Answer: (B) Catastrophic population decline among Indigenous peoples due to the introduction of new diseases** *Explanation:* The passage notes that diseases like smallpox and measles caused massive population losses in the Americas because Indigenous peoples had no prior exposure or immunity.
3. **The passage states that crops such as maize and potatoes from the Americas contributed to population growth in the Eastern Hemisphere. This effect was most significant because these crops** (A) were difficult to grow and required advanced technology (B) provided high yields and could be grown in a variety of climates, improving food security (C) replaced all traditional European and Asian crops immediately (D) had no nutritional value compared to existing staples **Correct Answer: (B) provided high yields and could be grown in a variety of climates, improving food security** *Explanation:* Maize and potatoes were highly productive and adaptable, which helped support larger populations in Europe, Africa, and Asia after their introduction.
4. **Which of the following best summarizes the overall effects of the Columbian Exchange on both the Eastern and Western Hemispheres between 1450 and 1750?** (A) It had minimal impact on either

hemisphere. (B) It caused massive demographic collapse in the Americas due to disease while transforming diets, populations, and economies in the Eastern Hemisphere through new crops and the transatlantic slave trade. (C) It led to immediate equality in wealth and power between the two hemispheres. (D) It resulted in the complete isolation of the Americas from global trade networks.

Correct Answer: (B) It caused massive demographic collapse in the Americas due to disease while transforming diets, populations, and economies in the Eastern Hemisphere through new crops and the transatlantic slave trade. *Explanation:* The passage shows the dual impact: devastating population loss in the Americas from disease, contrasted with agricultural and demographic gains in the Eastern Hemisphere, along with the rise of the transatlantic slave trade.

Topic 4.4: Maritime Empires Link Regions

Essential Question: How were the empires of European states established between 1450 to 1750, and what economic and labor systems fueled them?

European nations, driven largely by political, religious, and economic rivalries, established new maritime empires. They administered trading posts in Asia and Africa and colonies in the Americas. Asian trade frequently exchanged silver and gold for luxury goods such as silk and spices, while newly developed colonial economies in the Americas often depended on agriculture.

American plantations relied on existing labor systems and also introduced new ones. Among these were **indentured servitude**—arrangements in which servants contracted to work for a specified number of years in exchange for passage—and **chattel slavery**, a system in which individuals were considered property to be bought and sold. The appalling shock of free people being seized and enslaved is captured in a griot (storyteller) song of the West African Wolof people. The growth of the plantation economy increased the demand for enslaved Africans in the Americas, leading to significant demographic, social, and cultural changes.

State-Building and Empire Expansion

The explorations of European states (see Topic 4.2) formed the foundation of maritime empires. States claimed lands and established the basis of an empire in the areas they explored.

Trading Posts in Africa and Asia

Certain regions of East and West Africa became targets of European conquest during the late 15th century. Portuguese ruler Prince Henry the Navigator, keenly interested in navigational technology, financed expeditions along Africa's Atlantic coast and around the Cape of Good Hope. These voyages allowed Portugal to explore African coastal communities before other European powers.

With the cooperation of local rulers, first Portuguese and then other European traders established trading posts along Africa's coasts. Some local rulers traded enslaved people to Europeans in exchange for gunpowder and cannons, giving those coastal governments a military advantage when battling neighboring villages. Some African city-states grew wealthy by selling enslaved Africans to Europeans. The Kingdom of Dahomey, in particular, grew stronger because it raided other villages to enslave people and sold them to European merchants.

African States

In central West Africa, Portuguese explorers, traders, and missionaries made inroads into the Kongo and Benin kingdoms. Artwork from these societies bears signs of both European and African cultural influences. As early as the 16th century, Benin artisans incorporated images of the European "intruder" into their carvings and sculptures. The expansion of maritime trading networks supported the growth of some African states, including the Asante Empire and the Kingdom of the Kongo. Their participation in trade led to an increase in their influence.

In 1498, Portuguese explorer Vasco da Gama invaded the Swahili city-states of East Africa, most of which were thriving commercial centers in the Indian Ocean trade. The Portuguese took over trade in Kilwa, Mombasa, and other city-states by sending heavily armed ships and building fortresses. This takeover threw the region into a devastating decline.

Japan

Just as European states were expanding their trade networks, Japan was sharply restricting its own. Japan had tolerated the first Portuguese and Dutch traders and missionaries in the mid-16th century. Thousands of Japanese converted to Christianity. Some Christians, intolerant of other faiths, destroyed Buddhist shrines. In response, in 1587 the Japanese government banned Christian worship services. Over the next forty years, Japan took additional steps to persecute Christians and limit foreign influences. By the 1630s, the government had expelled nearly all foreigners, banned most foreign books, and prohibited Japanese people from traveling abroad.

For more than two centuries, Japan remained partially isolated from the rest of the world. It allowed some Dutch merchants to live on a small island in Nagasaki harbor in almost total seclusion. Japan continued some trade with the Chinese, mostly carried out by regional lords who were far from the capital and had easy access by sea to Korea, Taiwan, and Okinawa. The Japanese thought they were done with the “uncouth” Europeans. However, Europeans and Americans would return in the mid-19th century.

China

After the voyages of Zheng He in the 15th century, the Ming Dynasty tried to limit outside influence on China by restricting trade. The Ming prohibited private foreign trade, destroyed some dockyards, limited the size of ships that could be built, and began reconstructing the Great Wall. These changes formed part of a broader pattern of conservatism under the Ming aimed at undoing the influence of the Mongol Yuan Dynasty that had ruled China before them. For example, the Ming reemphasized the importance of Confucianism and reinvigorated the traditional exam system. Many of the limits on trade were eventually reversed, and China resumed its important role in global trade.

European Rivalries on Five Continents

European rivalries, fueled by political, economic, and religious motives, shaped the expansion of empires. Several powers established trading posts in India:

- The British East India Company had begun a commercial relationship with the Mughal Empire in the 17th century.
- Portugal controlled a coastal trading post in the southwestern state of Goa.
- France controlled Pondicherry, a city in the southeastern state of Tamil Nadu.

During the mid-18th century, France and Great Britain, along with their respective allies, competed for power on five continents in the Seven Years’ War. Britain’s victory in that war in 1763 drove the French out of India. The Portuguese remained in India until driven out in the mid-20th century.

British in India

At first, British trading posts in India were typical of those established by Europeans elsewhere. The East India Company (EIC) established small forts on the coasts that focused solely on making a profit through trade. Limited by the power of India’s Mughal Empire, the EIC posts controlled very little territory.

However, the EIC then began to expand. It took advantage of tensions between Muslims and Hindus in India and increased its political power through treaties with local rulers. With the help of European-trained Indian private forces called sepoys, the East India Company moved inland, spreading its influence. Ultimately, Britain intervened in India politically and militarily to such an extent that it controlled much of the subcontinent.

The British Global Network

The British also set up trading posts in West Africa, where the Asante Empire limited their impact. Trading posts in Africa, India, and elsewhere paved the way for globalization. Each post became a node—an intersection of multiple points serving as a trade center for goods from many parts of the world.

Europeans in the Americas

Before the arrival of Europeans in the late 15th century, the Aztec Empire in Mexico and the Inca Empire in South America each included 10 to 15 million people. However, the spread of European diseases caused their populations to plummet. Both empires collapsed quickly when attacked by Spanish forces.

In Mexico, helped by groups the Aztecs had conquered, Cortés's forces overthrew the Aztec by 1521 and established the colony of New Spain. The Spaniards melted down the Aztecs' treasures and sent the gold back home. They destroyed Tenochtitlán and built their own capital, Mexico City, on its ruins.

In the Andes of South America, Francisco Pizarro and his crew attacked the Inca and captured their ruler, Atahualpa. Pizarro offered to release Atahualpa if the Inca would fill a large room with gold. The Inca complied. However, in 1533 the Spanish killed Atahualpa anyway. By 1572, the Spaniards had completed their conquest of the Inca Empire.

Spain Versus Portugal

In the Treaty of Tordesillas of 1494, Spain and Portugal divided the Americas between them. Spain reserved all lands to the west of a meridian that ran through eastern South America. Portugal reserved all lands east of this line. This arrangement placed Brazil under Portugal's rule, while Spain claimed the rest of the Americas.

In addition to establishing colonies in Mesoamerica and South America, Spain explored other parts of North America north of present-day Mexico. Explorer Pedro Menéndez de Avilés established a fort in St. Augustine on the east coast of Florida in 1565, which became the oldest continuous settlement in what later became the United States. Spain would not be able to control all of North America, however, because the French, British, and Dutch later made claims and settlements there.

France Versus Britain

France and Britain continued to vie for dominance in North America. As British settlers moved into former Dutch territory in upper New York, they began to form ties with the powerful Iroquois, who had been in conflict with the French over trade issues for decades. The British hoped the Iroquois could frustrate French trade interests. Over time, the Iroquois realized that the British posed more of a threat than the French. In a shift of alliances, the Iroquois and French signed a peace treaty known as the Great Peace of Montreal in 1701. In the same war in which Britain drove France out of India, the British drove France out of Canada as well. The North American portion of this war is sometimes called the French and Indian War.

Continuity and Change in Economic Systems

Although the intensification of trade and the increasing influence of Europeans brought some disruption to Indian Ocean trading networks, on the whole the system absorbed the changes and continued its familiar ways of doing business. Merchants in the Indian Ocean networks were used to paying taxes and fees to states controlling sea lanes and ports and often operated through religious and ethnic ties. They did not use arms to protect their trade, and if the fees in one trading center became too high, they were free to move elsewhere.

Europeans in the Indian Ocean Trade

The Portuguese, however, arrived with superior naval forces, religious zeal, and a determination to profit from the increasingly diverse products being traded—both from Asia to Europe and within Asia. In addition to porcelain and silk from China, cloth from Gujarati weavers in western India, agricultural goods from Java, and spices from many places created an abundant market for trade and profit. In contrast to the ethnic and religious trading ties developed over hundreds of years, the Portuguese used their military superiority to take control of trade, creating a string of armed trading posts along the trade routes of the Indian Ocean. In 1509, for example, the Portuguese won a decisive victory in the Battle of Diu in the Arabian Sea over the combined forces of Gujaratis, the Mamluks of Egypt, and the Zamorin of Calicut, with the support of Venice, Portugal's European competitor.

Despite the differences between traditional trading networks and those controlled by European powers, merchants in the Indian Ocean trade networks continued as before in many ways—paying for the right to use certain ports or passageways and developing trade links through traditional networks.

Spain and Gold in the Americas

The Western European search for profit began with Columbus. On his first voyage, he was convinced that gold was plentiful on Hispaniola, the name he gave the island now occupied by Haiti and the Dominican Republic. But gold was sparse in the Caribbean. Desiring to return home with something valuable, Columbus and his crew kidnapped Taínos, indigenous peoples, and took them, enslaved, to Spain.

In the early 1500s, the Spanish established the **encomienda** system to gain access to gold and other resources of the Americas. *Encomenderos*, or landowners, compelled indigenous people to work for them in exchange for food and shelter, as landowners required of serfs in Europe's manorial system. This coercive labor system was notorious for its brutality.

The Spanish crown often granted land to conquistadores as a reward for their efforts. The **hacienda** system arose when landowners developed agriculture on their lands—wheat, fruit, vegetables, and sugar. They used coerced labor to work the fields. Most conquistadores were men, and many had children with native women. This made the Spanish colonies unlike British colonies.

Silver

While gold did not yield riches for Spanish conquistadores, the discovery of silver in Mexico and Peru revived economic fortunes—for both individual explorers and Spain. The use of mercury to separate silver from its ore increased the profitability of silver mining. By the end of the 16th century, the cities of Zacatecas in Mexico and especially Potosí in the Andes Mountains in modern-day Bolivia became thriving centers of silver mining.

For this industry to flourish, Spanish prospectors needed labor. Indigenous populations would do all but the most dangerous work in the mines. In response, Spanish authorities in Peru transformed the traditional Incan **mit'a** system of labor obligation—in which young men were required to devote a certain amount of labor to public works projects—into a coerced labor system. Villages were compelled to send a percentage of their male population to do the dangerous work in the mines for a paltry wage.

Silver and Mercantilism

The silver trade not only made individual Spanish prospectors wealthy; it also strengthened the Spanish economy. European powers at the time were adopting **mercantilism**, an economic system that increased government control of the economy through high tariffs and the establishment of colonies—claimed lands

settled by immigrants from the home country. In the case of Spain, the main purpose of the colonies in the Americas was to supply as much gold and silver as possible.

Another way to increase national wealth, according to the mercantilist system, was for a colonizing country to export more than it imported. A percentage of overseas silver production went directly to the Spanish crown. The empire used this wealth to build up the military and establish foreign trade.

Continuity and Change in Labor Systems

Different regions and different economies used different labor systems.

Types of Labor in the Early Modern Period

Laborer	Location	Type of Work	Freedoms/Limits
Enslaved	Americas, Africa	Domestic labor, Agricultural labor	Considered property; had few or no rights
Serf	Europe, Asia	Subsistence farming	Attached to the land; not free to move at will; had little or no legal protection
Indentured Servant	All regions	Domestic labor, Field work	Employer paid for transport to a new location; individual worked without pay for up to seven years
Free Peasant	Europe, Asia	Farming, Craft labor (blacksmithing, weaving, etc.)	Worked on their own land; sometimes owned a business; paid taxes to the lord; paid tithes to the church
Nomad	Europe, Asia, Africa	Animal breeding, Pastoralism, Herding	Did not own land permanently; used land temporarily; had freedom to move
Guild Member	Europe	Skilled craft labor	Workers organized to set standards for quality and price; started as an apprentice; could eventually work independently

During this era, Europeans sought sources of inexpensive labor in the Americas. Western European countries such as Portugal, Spain, and England were developing their naval technology, but Portugal was ahead of the others. In West Africa during the latter part of the 1400s, Portuguese trading fleets arrived in the Kingdom of the Kongo seeking enslaved people. Initially they took the enslaved Africans back to Europe to work as domestic servants.

Slavery existed in Africa—including the extensive enslavement of women as household workers—well before Europeans sought labor for their investments in the Americas. For example, in many societies the entire community shared the land. In order to establish positions of wealth and power, individuals not only showcased the property they owned but also showcased the enslaved people they owned.

Europeans were also not the first foreigners to seek out African labor. Arab merchants during the Postclassical Era (600–1450) often bought enslaved people during their travels to the Swahili Coast of East Africa. However, it was the Atlantic slave trade that wreaked the most havoc on African societies.

Why Africans?

Several factors converged to make Africa a target for slave raids by Europeans after 1450. Slavery in Latin America and the Caribbean began toward the end of the 16th century, when European conquistadores sought fortunes in gold, silver, and sugar. Land was plentiful, but labor to make the land profitable was scarce.

Europeans initially forced indigenous people to do the hard labor of mining and farming, but European diseases wiped out large portions of these coerced laborers. The enslaved indigenous people who survived often escaped bondage because, compared to Europeans, they were more familiar with the territory, had social networks that could protect them, and could easily camouflage themselves within the native population. Repeated efforts to enslave Native Americans failed, although other efforts to coerce labor did have some success.

Labor for Plantations

In North America, plantation owners recruited European indentured servants who would come to work, mostly to grow tobacco, for a specified period in exchange for passage, room, and board. However, most of these people were not used to the backbreaking agricultural working conditions and the climate of the Americas. In addition, indentured servants were required to work for only about seven years. If they survived their indenture, they became free laborers. Thus, landowners did not think of indigenous captives and European indentured servants as ideal workers.

Transport of Enslaved Africans to the Americas

Capturing Africans for slavery was invariably violent. When African leaders along the coast realized that their kingdoms could economically benefit from the slave trade, they invaded neighboring societies in a quest for enslaved people to take back to the coast. At times, African rulers were also willing to hand over individuals from the lower rungs of their own societies, such as prisoners of war, servants, or criminals.

However, King Afonso of Kongo understood that slave raids were not easily controllable. Though he had initially allowed slave trading in his kingdom, he had no intention of giving up his society's elite to slavery, nor did he want Kongo to be depopulated. King Afonso also saw that his authority was undermined because his subjects were able to trade enslaved people for European goods without his involvement. Before the Europeans came, he had been able to control all trade in his domain.

The Horrors of the Journey

Captive Africans, swept away from their families, were taken to holding pens in West Africa known as barracoons, or "slave castles." The modern country of Ghana has preserved these "Points of No Return," where thousands upon thousands of Africans saw their homeland for the last time. Today, people can visit one such holding prison—the so-called House of Slaves on Île de Gorée (Gorée Island), on the coast of Senegal.

From these holding pens, slave traders next crammed their captives into the dank cargo section of a ship, providing them little water, food, or even room for movement. The grueling journey across the Atlantic was known as the **Middle Passage**, because it was the middle part of the captives' journey. Many captured Africans attempted rebellions at sea, but most uprisings were crushed.

During the journey to the Americas, which usually took about six weeks, up to half of a ship's captives might die. Over the hundreds of years of the Atlantic slave trade, from the early 1500s to the mid-19th century, 10 to 15 percent of all African captives perished before reaching the Americas.

Destination of Enslaved Africans by Colonial Region

- Portuguese Colonies: 39%
- British West Indian Colonies: 18%
- Spanish Colonies: 18%
- French Colonies: 14%
- British Mainland Colonies: 6%
- Dutch West Indian Colonies: 2%
- Other: 3%

Demographic, Social, and Cultural Changes

The growth of the plantation economy and the expansion of slavery in the Americas led to significant changes that affected not only countless individual lives but also broad patterns of history. The physical migration of captives had a significant impact on the demographics of both their African homes and the countries of their captivity. The exportation of enslaved people required to keep the population continuing in the country of captivity caused a century-long decline in population in African home countries.

In addition to physical migration, slavery resulted in a migration of status—from free person to enslaved—setting up social classes that remain influential in post-slavery countries. Further, it disrupted family organization, since families were often separated and more men than women were taken captive. Polygyny (having more than one wife) became more common. With people treated as commodities under chattel slavery, social and family groupings were determined more by supply and demand than by the familial bonds of kinship.

Each region in which slavery was introduced was affected in a unique way. However, in all of them, people with African roots helped shape and enrich the language and culture of the societies into which they were brought. The mixing of ethnic groups resulted in new groups of multiracial people, such as mestizos and mulattos.

The Indian Ocean Slave Trade

While most Africans who were enslaved and transported to the Americas came from west and central Africa, there was a long-running slave trade in the eastern part of the continent. By routes overland or in the Indian Ocean, enslaved East Africans were sold to buyers in northern Africa, the Middle East, and India. Many were transported to the islands off the southeast coast of Africa, such as Madagascar. The trade reached its peak in the 18th and 19th centuries.

Enslaved people taken in the Indian Ocean trade suffered different fates from those taken across the Atlantic. People from the Indian Ocean region were more likely to work in seaports as laborers in the shipping industry and as household servants. Some worked as sailors or even soldiers. Living in towns or cities, they had some opportunity to develop communities and to work alongside free laborers. Those who ended up in Islamic communities had certain rights, such as the right to marry. As a result of the Indian Ocean slave trade, African words, musical styles, and customs can be found in Oman, India, and elsewhere.

Vocabulary

- Asante Empire
- Kingdom of the Kongo
- Ming Dynasty
- Aztec Empire
- Inca Empire
- New Spain

- Mexico City
- Francisco Pizarro
- Atahualpa
- Treaty of Tordesillas
- Hispaniola
- Conquistadores
- Mercantilism
- Colonies
- Indentured servitude
- Chattel slavery
- Encomienda
- Encomenderos
- Coercive labor system
- Hacienda system
- Mit'a system
- Middle Passage
- Silver Trade

"The voyages of Christopher Columbus beginning in 1492 initiated one of the most significant biological and cultural exchanges in human history, later known as the Columbian Exchange. Contact between the Eastern and Western Hemispheres led to the transfer of plants, animals, diseases, and people across the Atlantic. In the Americas, the introduction of diseases such as smallpox and measles — to which Indigenous populations had no immunity — caused catastrophic population declines, in some regions by as much as 90 percent. At the same time, Europeans introduced new crops such as wheat, rice, and sugarcane, as well as livestock including horses, cattle, and pigs. In return, the Americas provided the Eastern Hemisphere with highly productive staple crops, most notably maize (corn), potatoes, and cassava. These new food sources contributed to significant population growth in Europe, Africa, and Asia. Additionally, the demand for labor in the Americas led to the forced migration of millions of Africans through the transatlantic slave trade, creating new demographic and cultural patterns on both sides of the Atlantic."

Source: Adapted from Alfred W. Crosby, *The Columbian Exchange: Biological and Cultural Consequences of 1492* (1972) and subsequent scholarship on the Columbian Exchange.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, which of the following was a primary cause of the Columbian Exchange?** (A) The intentional isolation of the Americas from the rest of the world (B) European transatlantic voyages beginning with Columbus in 1492 (C) The decline of trade between Europe and Asia (D) The rejection of new crops by European societies **Correct Answer: (B) European transatlantic voyages beginning with Columbus in 1492** *Explanation:* The passage identifies Columbus's voyages as the starting point that connected the Eastern and Western Hemispheres, initiating the large-scale exchange of plants, animals, diseases, and people.
2. **According to the passage, which of the following was a major effect of the Columbian Exchange on the Western Hemisphere (the Americas)?** (A) A significant increase in the Indigenous population due to new food crops (B) Catastrophic population decline among Indigenous peoples due to the introduction of new diseases (C) The complete rejection of all European crops and animals (D) The immediate end of the transatlantic slave trade **Correct Answer: (B) Catastrophic population decline among Indigenous peoples due to the introduction of new diseases** *Explanation:* The passage

notes that diseases like smallpox and measles caused massive population losses in the Americas because Indigenous peoples had no prior exposure or immunity.

3. **The passage states that crops such as maize and potatoes from the Americas contributed to population growth in the Eastern Hemisphere. This effect was most significant because these crops** (A) were difficult to grow and required advanced technology (B) provided high yields and could be grown in a variety of climates, improving food security (C) replaced all traditional European and Asian crops immediately (D) had no nutritional value compared to existing staples **Correct Answer: (B) provided high yields and could be grown in a variety of climates, improving food security**
Explanation: Maize and potatoes were highly productive and adaptable, which helped support larger populations in Europe, Africa, and Asia after their introduction.
4. **Which of the following best summarizes the overall effects of the Columbian Exchange on both the Eastern and Western Hemispheres between 1450 and 1750?** (A) It had minimal impact on either hemisphere. (B) It caused massive demographic collapse in the Americas due to disease while transforming diets, populations, and economies in the Eastern Hemisphere through new crops and the transatlantic slave trade. (C) It led to immediate equality in wealth and power between the two hemispheres. (D) It resulted in the complete isolation of the Americas from global trade networks.
Correct Answer: (B) It caused massive demographic collapse in the Americas due to disease while transforming diets, populations, and economies in the Eastern Hemisphere through new crops and the transatlantic slave trade. *Explanation:* The passage shows the dual impact: devastating population loss in the Americas from disease, contrasted with agricultural and demographic gains in the Eastern Hemisphere, along with the rise of the transatlantic slave trade.

"Beginning in the sixteenth century, European maritime empires established plantation economies in the Americas, particularly in Brazil and the Caribbean. These plantations, devoted to the large-scale production of cash crops such as sugar, tobacco, and later cotton, required vast amounts of labor. As Indigenous populations declined dramatically due to disease and exploitation, European planters turned increasingly to enslaved Africans to meet labor demands. The transatlantic slave trade grew rapidly to supply this need. Between 1500 and 1800, millions of Africans were forcibly transported across the Atlantic. This massive forced migration fundamentally altered the demographic composition of the Americas. It also created new social hierarchies based on race, as European colonizers developed legal and cultural systems to justify and maintain slavery. Over time, these conditions gave rise to distinct creole cultures that blended African, European, and Indigenous traditions in language, religion, music, and food."

Source: Adapted from Sidney W. Mintz, *Sweetness and Power* (1985) and subsequent scholarship on the plantation complex and the transatlantic slave trade.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, which of the following was the primary reason European planters in the Americas turned to enslaved African labor?** (A) Indigenous populations were unwilling to work on plantations. (B) The dramatic decline of Indigenous populations due to disease and exploitation created a severe labor shortage. (C) African workers were considered more expensive than Indigenous workers. (D) European governments prohibited the use of Indigenous labor. **Correct Answer: (B) The dramatic decline of Indigenous populations due to disease and exploitation created a severe labor shortage.** *Explanation:* The passage states that Indigenous populations declined sharply, forcing planters to seek an alternative labor source — enslaved Africans.
2. **According to the passage, the growth of the plantation economy most directly contributed to which demographic change in the Americas?** (A) A rapid increase in the Indigenous population (B)

The large-scale forced migration of Africans through the transatlantic slave trade (C) The complete disappearance of European settlers (D) A decline in the overall population of the Americas **Correct Answer: (B) The large-scale forced migration of Africans through the transatlantic slave trade** *Explanation:* The passage highlights that millions of Africans were forcibly transported to meet the labor demands of the expanding plantation system.

3. **The passage notes the development of new social hierarchies based on race and the emergence of creole cultures. These changes most directly resulted from** (A) peaceful cooperation between European settlers and Indigenous peoples (B) the plantation system and the institution of chattel slavery (C) the rejection of all African cultural practices in the Americas (D) the decline of cash crop production in the colonies **Correct Answer: (B) the plantation system and the institution of chattel slavery** *Explanation:* The passage connects the rise of plantations and slavery to the creation of racial hierarchies and the blending of cultures into new creole societies.
4. **Which of the following best explains the broader impact of the plantation economy on the Americas between 1450 and 1750?** (A) It had little effect on the social or demographic structure of colonial societies. (B) It drove the massive expansion of the transatlantic slave trade, reshaped the demographic makeup of the Americas, and created new racial hierarchies and creole cultures. (C) It led to the immediate abolition of slavery throughout the Americas. (D) It strengthened Indigenous control over land and labor in the colonies. **Correct Answer: (B) It drove the massive expansion of the transatlantic slave trade, reshaped the demographic makeup of the Americas, and created new racial hierarchies and creole cultures.** *Explanation:* This answer captures the major demographic (African forced migration), social (racial hierarchies), and cultural (creole societies) transformations caused by the plantation economy.

4.5

Topic 4.5: Maritime Empires Develop

Essential Question: What economic strategies did maritime empires use to increase their power, and how did the developing empires affect political, economic, religious, and cultural dynamics?

Maritime (sea-based) empires transformed commerce from local, small-scale trading—mostly based on barter—to large-scale international trade using gold and silver. These empires employed new economic models, such as joint-stock companies, through which investors financed trade by buying shares in corporations such as the East India Company, supporting increased trade in Asia. New ocean trade routes were opened, aiding the rise of this extended global economy. The Atlantic trading system involved the movement of labor—including enslaved people—and the mixing of African, American, and European cultures and peoples, with all groups contributing to a cultural synthesis. Silver, sugar, and slavery were the keys to the development of these mercantilist empires.

Economic Strategies

In the 17th century, Europeans generally measured the wealth of a country by how much gold and silver it had in its coffers. To achieve this wealth, countries used economic strategies designed to sell as many goods as they could to other countries in order to obtain maximum amounts of gold and silver. To keep their wealth, countries would also spend as little of their precious metals as possible on goods from other countries.

The accumulation of **capital** (material wealth available to produce more wealth) in Western Europe grew as entrepreneurs entered long-distance markets. Capital changed hands from entrepreneurs to laborers, putting laborers in a better position to become consumers—and even investors. Despite restrictions by the Church, lending money at high rates of interest became commonplace. Actual wealth also increased with gold and silver from the Western Hemisphere.

Commercial Revolution

The transformation to a trade-based economy using gold and silver is known as the **Commercial Revolution**. The Commercial Revolution affected all regions of the world and resulted from four key factors: the development of European overseas colonies; the opening of new ocean trade routes; population growth; and inflation, caused partly by the pressure of the increasing population and partly by the increased amount of gold and silver that was mined and put in circulation. The high rate of inflation, or general rise in prices, in the 16th and early 17th century is called the **Price Revolution**.

Aiding the rise of this extended global economy was the formation of **joint-stock companies**, owned by investors who bought stock or shares in them. People invested capital in such companies and shared both the profits and the risks of exploration and trading ventures. Offering **limited liability**—the principle that an investor was not responsible for a company's debts or other liabilities beyond the amount of an investment—made investing safer.

The developing European middle class had capital to invest from successful businesses in their home countries. They also had money with which to purchase imported luxuries. The Dutch, English, and French all developed joint-stock companies in the 17th century, including the **British East India Company** in 1600 and the **Dutch East India Company** in 1602. In Spain and Portugal, however, the government did most of the investing itself through grants to certain explorers. Joint-stock companies were a driving force behind the development of maritime empires, as they allowed continued exploration as well as ventures to colonize and develop the resources of distant lands with limited risk to investors.

Commerce and Finance

The Dutch were long the commercial middlemen of Europe, having set up and maintained trade routes to Latin America, North America, South Africa, and Indonesia. Dutch ships were faster and lighter than those of their rivals for most of the 17th century, giving them an early trade advantage. The Dutch East India Company was also highly successful as a joint-stock company. It made enormous profits in the Spice Islands and Southeast Asia.

Pioneers in finance, the Dutch had a stock exchange as early as 1602. By 1609, the Bank of Amsterdam traded currency internationally. The Dutch standard of living was the highest in Europe as goods such as diamonds, linen, pottery, and tulip bulbs passed through the hands of Dutch traders.

France and England were not so fortunate. Early in the 18th century, both fell victim to speculative financial schemes. Known as financial bubbles, the schemes were based on the sale of shares to investors who were promised a certain return on their investment. After a frenzy of buying that drove up the price of shares, the bubble burst and investors lost huge amounts of money, sending many into bankruptcy and inflicting wide damage to the economy.

Triangular Trade

The Europeans' desire for enslaved workers in the Americas, coupled with Portugal's "discovery" of West Africa, meant that Africa became the source for new labor. Enslaved Africans became part of a complex Atlantic trading system known as the **triangular trade**, because voyages often had three segments. A ship might carry European manufactured goods such as firearms to West Africa, and from there transport enslaved Africans to the Americas, and then load up with sugar or tobacco to take to Europe. Sugar was the most profitable good from the Americas. By the 1700s, Caribbean sugar production and rum (made from sugar) were financing fortunes in Britain, and to a lesser extent in France and the Netherlands.

Rivalries for the Indian Ocean Trade

After Europeans stumbled upon the Americas, trade over the Atlantic Ocean became significant. However, states continued to vie for control of trade routes on the Indian Ocean as well. The Portuguese soundly defeated a combined Muslim and Venetian force in a naval battle in the Arabian Sea in 1509 over controlling trade. They met a different fate, though, when they tried to conquer Moroccan forces in a battle on land in 1578.

Its coffers depleted after the victory, Morocco looked inland to capture the riches of the Songhai Kingdom, despite the prohibition of waging war on another Muslim state. With thousands of soldiers, camels, and horses, as well as eight cannons and other firearms, Moroccan forces traveled months to reach Songhai. In 1590, in a battle near Gao, the Songhai—despite their greater number of fighters—were overcome by the force of firearms. The empire crumbled. The Spanish and Portuguese soon overtook much of this territory.

Change and Continuities in Trade Networks

The trading networks involved a new global circulation of goods, wealth, and labor. Silver from the Spanish colonies in the Americas flowed to Asia, where Asians were eager to exchange their goods—silks, porcelain, steel products—for silver. Asian goods were eagerly purchased in the Atlantic markets.

New Monopolies

One way these patterns of trade were maintained was through monopolies chartered by European rulers. Monopolies granted certain merchants—usually through a joint-stock company—or the government itself the exclusive right to trade. For example, the Spanish government established a monopoly first over all the domestic tobacco grown and then over all the tobacco grown in its American colonies. The profits from this monopoly greatly enriched the Spanish government. The income from tobacco in Spain made up about one-third of total revenues.

Ongoing Regional Markets

At the same time, traditional regional markets continued to flourish in Afro-Eurasia. However, improved shipping offered merchants the opportunity to increase their volume of products. The increasing output of peasant and artisan labor—wool and linen from Western Europe, cotton from India, and silk from China—exchanged hands in port cities with global connections.

Effects of the Atlantic Slave Trade

The Atlantic slave trade greatly weakened several West African kingdoms, such as Kongo. The loss of so many people slowed population growth. Trade competition led to violence among their societies, but also made African slave-raiding kingdoms economically dependent on goods from Europe. Such societies were slow to develop more complex economies in which they produced their own goods. Thus, the slave trade set the stage for European conquest and imperialism of the late 19th century.

Economically, African societies that conducted slave raids, such as the Dahomey and the Oyo, became richer from selling their captives to Europeans. This trade also had political effects, because when a society such as the Dahomey exchanged enslaved people for guns, its raiders easily took advantage of rival societies that had no firearms. Without firearms, neighboring groups could not fight off slave raids, so raiding societies became even richer and more fortified with firearms. Intergroup warfare thus became more common and bloodier as a result of the slave trade.

Slavery and Gender

Those most affected by the slave trade were the peoples and civilizations of West Africa in present-day Ghana and Benin, from which most Africans were kidnapped or sold. Gender distributions in those regions became severely imbalanced, because more than two-thirds of those taken were males. The resulting predominance of women prompted a rise in **polygyny** (the taking of more than one wife) and forced women to assume duties that had traditionally been men's jobs.

Impact of New Foods

While the Atlantic trading system weakened Africa in many ways, it also ultimately spurred population growth through an improved diet. The Columbian Exchange introduced new crops to the continent, such as the American crops maize, peanuts, and manioc (also known as yucca or cassava), which became staples in the African diet.

Political and Cultural Changes for Indigenous Peoples

Earlier land-based empires, such as those of the Romans, Muslims, and Mongols, all grappled with how to deal with conquered people's traditions and cultures. These empires either allowed traditions to exist or they tried to graft their ways onto those of their subjects. European empires in the Americas stood in stark contrast to these land-based empires. The Spanish and Portuguese empires managed to erase the basic social

structures and many of the cultural traditions of the indigenous Americans within a century of when the first European explorers arrived. Europeans' actions nearly depopulated the Americas.

Political Changes: Colonial Administration

Indigenous political structures in Latin America were soon replaced by Spanish and Portuguese colonial administrations. Spanish royalty appointed **viceroy**s to act as administrators and representatives of the Spanish crown. To keep these viceroys from operating independently of the crown, Spain established **audiencias**, or royal courts, to which Spanish settlers could appeal viceroys' decisions or policies. Slow transportation and communication networks between Europe and the Americas, however, made it difficult for the Spanish crown to exercise direct control over New Spain. As a result, the Spanish throne did not focus on colonial affairs in the Western Hemisphere.

Cultural Changes

The indigenous peoples of the Americas lost a great deal of their culture and history at the hands of conquerors. Conquistadors, such as Cortés in Mexico, ordered the burning of native books, which were thought to be unholy. Thus, very few original accounts written in Nahuatl, the language of the Aztec, exist today.

The scarcity of firsthand accounts from indigenous peoples has shaped how historians view this period. For example, because the Spanish burned nearly all Aztec documents, most of the information about the Aztec comes from documents that were written by Spanish conquistadores and priests after the conquest. The authors' biases and lack of familiarity with Nahuatl limit the value of these sources. However, some sources are considered reliable. For example, in 1545, a Spanish priest named Bernardino de Sahagún began compiling the Florentine Codex, one of the most widely cited sources about Aztec life before conquest.

Spanish and Portuguese conquerors transplanted their own languages and religion into the Americas. The remnants of this cultural interaction are present today. Although indigenous languages thrive in certain regions—in Guatemala and in the mountains of Mexico, for example—Spanish predominates through much of Latin America, and Brazilians overwhelmingly speak Portuguese.

By 1750, those born in America of Spanish origin, or **creoles**, enjoyed political dominance in New Spain. They soon began clamoring for independence from the Spanish throne.

Effects of Belief Systems

The increase and intensity of newly established global connections between hemispheres extended the reach of existing religions. In some areas, the new connections contributed to the development of syncretic belief systems and practices. In other areas, the connections contributed to religious conflicts.

Syncretic Belief Systems in the Americas

African religions in the Americas provide powerful examples of religious **syncretism**, or the combining of different religious beliefs and practices. Africans melded aspects of Christianity, usually Roman Catholicism, with their West African religious traditions, such as drumming, dancing, and a belief in spirits that could take over and act through a person:

- **Santería** means “the way of the saints.” Originally an African faith, it became popular in Cuba and then traveled throughout Latin America and to North America.

- **Vodun** means “spirit” or “deity.” This belief system originated with African peoples of Dahomey, Kongo, and Yoruba who were enslaved and living in Saint-Domingue, which is now Haiti.
- **Candomblé** means “dance to honor the gods.” It is a combination of Yoruba, Fon, and Bantu beliefs from different parts of Africa. It developed in Brazil.

Enslaved Africans in the United States also laid the roots for the African American church, a hybrid of Christianity and African spiritual traditions that remains one of the oldest and most stable institutions in African American communities.

About 1 in 10 of the enslaved Africans practiced Islam. While some of the men who sailed with Columbus may have been Muslims, these enslaved Africans became the first significant presence of Islam in the Americas.

Religion in Latin America

Several Catholic religious orders in Europe, such as the Dominicans, Jesuits, and Franciscans, sent missionaries to Latin America to convert people to Christianity. The missionaries were so successful that today most Latin Americans are Roman Catholic Christians. In recent decades, Protestant denominations have begun to gain members.

Numerous examples of religious syncretism originated in the Spanish colonies. Catholic saints’ days that coincided with days honored by indigenous people were especially celebrated. In Mexico, a cult developed around the dark-complexioned **Virgin of Guadalupe**, who was revered for her ability to perform miracles.

Global Interactions and Religious Conflicts

Syncretic religions also developed in Afro-Eurasia as global interactions intensified. Sufism, for example, with its focus on personal salvation, helped spread Islam and may have influenced Sikhism, which blended Muslim and Hindu belief systems. The Mughal leader Akbar tried to mediate conflicts between Muslims and Hindus under his control.

Religion also played a role in conflicts as global interactions increased. The split between Sunni and Shi’a Muslims worsened conflicts between the Ottoman and Safavid empires. The split between Catholicism and Protestantism, and between official state religions such as Anglicanism and other Protestant sects, helped drive the settlement of North America as people sought freedom to worship as they saw fit.

Vocabulary

- Capital
- Commercial Revolution
- Price Revolution
- Joint-stock companies
- Limited liability companies
- East India Company
- Dutch East India Company
- Triangular trade
- Monopoly
- Syncretism
- Polygyny
- Creoles
- Santería
- Vodun

- Candomblé
- Virgin of Guadalupe
- Viceroys
- Dahomey

"During the seventeenth century, European rulers increasingly embraced mercantilist economic policies. These policies were designed to increase national wealth and power by ensuring that exports exceeded imports, thereby accumulating gold and silver. To achieve these goals, rulers chartered joint-stock companies, such as the Dutch East India Company (VOC) in 1602 and the English East India Company in 1600. These companies allowed merchants and investors to pool large amounts of capital for long-distance trade while limiting individual financial risk. In exchange, monarchs granted these companies exclusive trading monopolies in specific regions, along with the authority to establish colonies, build forts, maintain armies, and even wage war. Through these chartered companies, states like the Netherlands and England were able to challenge Portuguese and Spanish dominance in global trade and compete directly with one another for control of valuable resources and trade routes."

Source: Adapted from standard historical scholarship on mercantilism and European overseas expansion, including works by historians such as Jan de Vries and Charles Wilson.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, which of the following best describes the primary goal of mercantilist policies adopted by European rulers?** (A) To promote free trade and open competition between nations (B) To increase national wealth by maintaining a favorable balance of trade and accumulating precious metals (C) To encourage colonial independence and self-sufficiency (D) To reduce government involvement in economic affairs **Correct Answer: (B) To increase national wealth by maintaining a favorable balance of trade and accumulating precious metals** *Explanation:* Mercantilism was based on the belief that a nation's power depended on its wealth, measured primarily by gold and silver reserves, which could be increased through a positive balance of trade.
2. **According to the passage, joint-stock companies were particularly useful to European rulers and merchants because they** (A) eliminated all financial risk for investors (B) allowed investors to pool capital for expensive overseas ventures while limiting individual liability (C) prevented any competition between European nations (D) were completely independent of government control **Correct Answer: (B) allowed investors to pool capital for expensive overseas ventures while limiting individual liability** *Explanation:* By spreading financial risk among many investors, joint-stock companies made it possible to raise the large sums of money needed for long-distance trade and colonization.
3. **The passage notes that rulers granted joint-stock companies monopolies and the right to maintain armies and wage war. This practice most directly illustrates** (A) the decline of state power in favor of private enterprise (B) the use of private companies as instruments of state power and international competition (C) the rejection of mercantilist ideas by European monarchs (D) the complete separation of economic and political goals **Correct Answer: (B) the use of private companies as instruments of state power and international competition** *Explanation:* European rulers used chartered companies not just for profit, but as tools to expand national power, secure trade routes, and compete with rival states.
4. **Which of the following best explains how mercantilist policies and joint-stock companies contributed to European global competition between 1450 and 1750?** (A) They encouraged European nations to cooperate peacefully in overseas trade. (B) They enabled European states to mobilize capital and project power overseas, leading to intense commercial and military rivalry between nations such as the Dutch, English, Portuguese, and Spanish. (C) They resulted in the immediate independence of most European colonies. (D) They had no significant impact on relations between

European powers. **Correct Answer: (B) They enabled European states to mobilize capital and project power overseas, leading to intense commercial and military rivalry between nations such as the Dutch, English, Portuguese, and Spanish.** *Explanation:* Mercantilism and joint-stock companies intensified competition between European powers as they fought for control of trade routes, colonies, and valuable resources around the world.

"By the late sixteenth century, a truly global system of trade had emerged, centered on the circulation of silver. Large quantities of silver mined in Spanish America — especially from Potosí in modern-day Bolivia — flowed across the Pacific via the Manila Galleons to China, where it was in high demand to fuel the Ming economy. At the same time, silver also moved across the Atlantic to Europe, where it was used by Portuguese, Dutch, and English merchants to purchase Asian goods such as spices, textiles, and porcelain for European markets. Despite the growing presence of European chartered companies, many regional trade networks in the Indian Ocean and East Asia continued to thrive. Indian, Chinese, and Malay merchants maintained well-established commercial practices and used both traditional and newly available European shipping services to conduct intra-Asian trade, which often remained more valuable than the direct trade between Europe and Asia."

Source: Adapted from Dennis O. Flynn and Arturo Giráldez, "Born with a 'Silver Spoon': The Origin of World Trade in 1571" (1995), and subsequent scholarship on the global silver economy.

Questions

- Based on the passage, which of the following best describes the role of silver in the emerging global trade system after 1500?** (A) Silver was used primarily as currency within Europe only. (B) Silver mined in the Americas became a key commodity that connected the economies of the Americas, Europe, and Asia. (C) Silver production declined sharply due to European conquests. (D) Silver was rejected by Asian economies in favor of gold. **Correct Answer: (B) Silver mined in the Americas became a key commodity that connected the economies of the Americas, Europe, and Asia.** *Explanation:* The passage highlights how American silver flowed to both Europe and China, serving as a critical link in the new global trading system.
- According to the passage, European chartered companies used silver primarily to** (A) purchase Asian goods for resale in European markets. (B) pay taxes to Asian governments. (C) fund missionary activities in the Americas. (D) build large settler colonies in Asia. **Correct Answer: (A) purchase Asian goods for resale in European markets.** *Explanation:* European merchants used American silver to buy high-demand Asian products (spices, textiles, porcelain) that were then sold in Europe for profit.
- The passage notes that regional markets in the Indian Ocean and East Asia "continued to thrive" despite European involvement. This best supports which conclusion?** (A) European companies completely dominated and replaced all Asian trade networks. (B) Existing Asian commercial practices and merchants remained resilient and continued to play a major role in regional and intra-Asian trade. (C) Asian merchants abandoned all maritime trade after European arrival. (D) Trade within Asia declined sharply in the sixteenth and seventeenth centuries. **Correct Answer: (B) Existing Asian commercial practices and merchants remained resilient and continued to play a major role in regional and intra-Asian trade.** *Explanation:* The passage emphasizes continuity, noting that Indian, Chinese, and Malay merchants kept using established practices and even benefited from some European shipping services.
- Which of the following best explains the broader impact of the global circulation of silver and European maritime activity on trade between 1450 and 1750?** (A) It led to the complete collapse of all pre-existing trade networks in Afro-Eurasia. (B) It created new global connections (especially through silver flows) while many established regional and intra-Asian trade networks continued to

flourish alongside European commercial expansion. (C) It resulted in the isolation of Asian economies from global trade. (D) It had no significant economic impact outside of Europe. **Correct Answer: (B) It created new global connections (especially through silver flows) while many established regional and intra-Asian trade networks continued to flourish alongside European commercial expansion.** *Explanation:* This answer captures the dual reality of change (new global silver economy and European companies) and continuity (persistent and vibrant Asian regional trade networks).

"The Atlantic trading system, centered on the plantation economies of the Americas, brought together people from three continents in unprecedented ways. Millions of Africans were forcibly transported across the Atlantic to labor on sugar, tobacco, and rice plantations. At the same time, European settlers and Indigenous American populations interacted with these enslaved communities. Out of this forced and often violent convergence emerged new creole cultures. Enslaved Africans brought with them diverse languages, religious beliefs, musical traditions, and agricultural knowledge, which blended with European and Indigenous practices. In places such as Brazil, the Caribbean, and parts of North America, new languages, religions (such as Vodou, Santería, and Candomblé), musical forms, and cuisines developed that reflected the contributions of African, European, and Indigenous peoples. These cultural syntheses were not simply imposed from above but were actively shaped by all groups involved, even under conditions of extreme inequality and oppression."

Source: Adapted from scholarship on the Atlantic World and creolization, including works by historians such as Ira Berlin, Sidney Mintz, and Richard Price.

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, which of the following best describes the demographic foundation of the Atlantic trading system?** (A) It involved only European settlers and Indigenous peoples. (B) It centered on the forced migration of millions of Africans alongside European and Indigenous populations. (C) It was based entirely on voluntary European migration. (D) It excluded Africans from participating in the plantation economy. **Correct Answer: (B) It centered on the forced migration of millions of Africans alongside European and Indigenous populations.** *Explanation:* The passage highlights the central role of enslaved Africans in the plantation system, alongside the presence of Europeans and Indigenous peoples.
2. **According to the passage, the cultural developments in the Americas (such as new religions, music, and languages) were primarily the result of** (A) the complete dominance of European culture with no African or Indigenous influence. (B) the blending of African, European, and Indigenous traditions, with contributions from all groups. (C) the total rejection of all European cultural practices by enslaved people. (D) the isolation of African cultures from outside influences. **Correct Answer: (B) The blending of African, European, and Indigenous traditions, with contributions from all groups.** *Explanation:* The passage emphasizes that creole cultures emerged from the interaction and contributions of African, European, and Indigenous peoples, even under oppressive conditions.
3. **The passage's reference to religions such as Vodou, Santería, and Candomblé best illustrates which broader process in the Atlantic World?** (A) The complete suppression of all African religious practices. (B) The creation of new syncretic religions that combined African spiritual traditions with European and Indigenous elements. (C) The exclusive adoption of Indigenous American religions by Europeans. (D) The rejection of all religious practices in the Americas. **Correct Answer: (B) The creation of new syncretic religions that combined African spiritual traditions with European and Indigenous elements.** *Explanation:* These religions are classic examples of cultural synthesis, blending African religious systems with Catholicism and, in some cases, Indigenous beliefs.

4. **Which of the following best explains the broader cultural impact of the Atlantic trading system between 1450 and 1750?** (A) It resulted in the complete cultural domination of one group over all others. (B) It led to the emergence of new creole societies in which African, European, and Indigenous peoples contributed to the formation of distinct languages, religions, music, and cultural practices. (C) It had no lasting cultural effects on the Americas. (D) It caused the total disappearance of African cultural traditions in the Western Hemisphere. **Correct Answer: (B) It led to the emergence of new creole societies in which African, European, and Indigenous peoples contributed to the formation of distinct languages, religions, music, and cultural practices.** *Explanation:* This answer captures the central theme of the passage: the creation of new hybrid cultures through the forced convergence of peoples from three continents.

Topic 4.6: Internal and External Challenges to State Power

Essential Question: How did the development of state power result in external and internal challenges in the period between 1450 and 1750?

As empires developed and changed, many social, political, and economic groups resisted state expansion through a variety of challenges to state power. Some of these revolts occurred in the home of the empire. For example, the **Fronde** civil disturbances in France between 1648 and 1653 attempted to curb growing royal power.

Other disturbances took place within colonies. For instance, **Metacom's War** (1675–1678), also called King Philip's War, was in part a result of English colonists using underhanded tactics in their continuing pressure to control Native American lands. Several powers sought to create empires in the 16th and 17th centuries. They fought with one another and with indigenous peoples.

Resistance to Portugal in Africa

By the 17th century, the Dutch and the English had pushed the Portuguese out of South Asia. The Portuguese looked to Africa, where it had carried out slave raids since the 15th century, to build a colony. In 1624, **Ana Nzinga** became ruler of **Ndongo** in south-central Africa (present-day Angola). In addition to the slave raids by Portugal, other African peoples were attacking Ndongo. In exchange for protection from neighboring powers and an end to Portugal's raids, Nzinga became an ally of Portugal. Nzinga was baptized as Christian, with the governor of the Portuguese colony as her godfather. However, the alliance broke down. Nzinga and her people fled west, taking over the state of **Matamba**. She then incited a rebellion in Ndongo, allied with the Dutch, and offered freedom in Matamba to enslaved Africans. Nzinga ruled for decades, building Matamba into an economically strong state.

Local Resistance in Russia

In contrast to the Portuguese empire, pressures on state power came from within Russia, not outside of it. While conditions had improved for serfs in Western Europe by the 14th century, the same was not true for the serfs in Russia. Wars during the 14th and 15th centuries weakened the central government and increased the power of the nobility.

As demand for grain increased, nobles imposed harsh conditions on serfs. But Russian serfs had long been oppressed. First the Mongols and later the Russian princes collected heavy tribute and taxes (for services such as protection or to support the government's army) from the peasants. As a result, the peasants' debts increased, and over time more peasants lost their lands and were forced into serfdom.

Serfdom, Power, and Control

The practice of serfdom benefitted the government because it kept the peasants under control, regulated by the nobility. Serfdom also benefitted the landowners because it provided free labor. Although townspeople were also controlled and not permitted to move their businesses freely to other cities, the serfs were practically enslaved, their labor bought and sold along with the lands of their owners.

As Russian territory expanded west to the Baltic and east to Siberia, the institution of serfdom expanded with it. An agricultural state, Russia kept serfs tied to the land long after the practice had ended, practically if not legally, in Western Europe. For example, Elizabeth I freed the last remaining serfs in England in 1574. In contrast, a law of 1649 chained Russian serfs to the lands where they were born and ensured their service to

their landlords, who could buy and sell them and administer punishments. The village communes, called **mirs**, also controlled even the small landholders among the peasants.

Cossacks and Peasant Rebellions

Southwest of Moscow, near the Black Sea, peasants who were skilled fighters lived on the grassy, treeless steppes. Many were runaway serfs who lived in small groups, influenced by the ways of the neighboring nomadic descendants of the Mongols. These fierce Cossack warriors were sometimes at odds with the central, autocratic government of the tsars. However, these fiercely independent warriors could also be hired as mercenaries to defend “Mother Russia” against Swedish, Tartar, and Ottoman forces. The Cossacks were thus important in Russia’s expansion to the Ural Mountains and farther east into Siberia.

A Cossack known as Yemelyan Pugachev began a peasant rebellion against Catherine the Great in 1773 for giving the nobility power over the serfs on their lands in exchange for political loyalty, leaving the peasants without ties or recourse to the state. Falsely claiming to be Catherine’s murdered husband, Peter III, Pugachev gathered a following of discontented peasants, people from different ethnic groups, and fellow Cossacks. At one point, these groups controlled the territory between the Volga River and the Urals. Within a year, though, the Russian army captured Pugachev and the Russian government executed him. The Pugachev Rebellion caused Catherine to increase her oppression of the peasants in return for the support of the nobles to help her avoid future revolts.

Rebellion in South Asia

In the 16th and 17th centuries, the Mughal empire controlled much of what is now India and Pakistan. The Mughals centralized government and spread Persian art and culture as well as Islam. However, much of the population remained Hindu. The Maratha—a Hindu warrior group—fought the Mughals in a series of battles from 1680–1707. They created the Hindu Maratha Empire. It lasted until 1818, effectively ending the Mughal rule of India.

Revolts in the Spanish Empire

Spain also experienced rebellions within its territories. The Pueblo Revolt took place in 1680 against the Spanish in what is now New Mexico. The Pueblo and Apache, two indigenous groups, fought colonizers who were trying to force religious conversions. The indigenous people killed about 400 Spaniards, drove the rest out of the area, and destroyed churches. The Spanish reconquered the area in 1692.

Struggles for Power in England and Its Colonies

Although Spain colonized much of the Caribbean, England’s power there grew stronger. England defeated Spanish colonists and took control of much of Jamaica in 1655. Enslaved people in the Caribbean and former Spanish territories in the Americas fought to gain freedom in what were known as Maroon wars (1728–1740 and 1795–1796).

Maroons were descendants of Africans who had escaped slavery in Jamaica. They escaped their owners and formed independent settlements. Queen Nanny, herself had escaped slavery, united all the maroons of the island. Jamaicans later recognized her as a national hero.

Slave revolts were common in the Americas, especially in those locations where enslaved Africans outnumbered free Europeans. The first recorded slave revolt in what is now the United States was the Gloucester County Rebellion in Virginia in 1663. In this rebellion, enslaved Africans and white indentured

servants conspired together to demand their freedom from the governor. Authorities found out about their plot, ambushed them, and arrested them.

Metacom's War, discussed earlier in this topic, was the final major effort of the indigenous people to drive the British from New England. The war spread throughout New England and resulted in the destruction of 12 towns. Some Native American groups, including the Mohegan and Pequot, sided with the English. Although Native American peoples continued to live in the region, the war ended with the subjugation of the Wampanoag people to the English colonists.

Struggles for power took place within England as well. In 1685, James II became king. James was Catholic, and his anti-Protestant measures enraged many English people. A group of nobles invited William of Orange, who was James's nephew and son-in-law, to invade England with an army and become the new king. He agreed, landing in England in 1688. James fled to France. In 1689, William and his wife Mary II (James's daughter) began their joint rule of England. Both William and Mary were Protestant, and the English throne remained in Protestant hands after that.

English people called this revolt the Glorious Revolution or the Bloodless Revolution. It strengthened the power of Parliament, which passed a law forbidding Catholics to rule England. That revolution took place without much violence, but religious tensions continued in England and throughout much of the world.

Internal and External Challenges to State Powers

State	Internal/External Challenge
Portugal	Dutch and English pushed Portugal out of South Asia (external); Rebellion in Ndongo allied with Dutch (external)
France	Fronde civil disturbances against royal power (internal)
Russia	Cossack rebellion (internal); Pugachev rebellion (internal)
South Asia	Hindu Marathas ended Mughal rule (internal)
Spanish Empire	Pueblo and Apache groups rebelled in present-day New Mexico (internal to the colonies)
British Empire	Maroon wars (internal to the colonies); Gloucester County Rebellion (internal to the colonies); Metacom's War (internal to the colonies); Glorious Revolution (internal)

Vocabulary

- Ndongo
- Matamba
- Black Sea steppe
- Maratha Empire
- Mirs
- Ana Nzinga
- Yemelyan Pugachev
- Queen Nanny
- James II

- William of Orange
- Mary II
- Mohegan
- Pequot
- Wampanoag
- Fronde
- Metacom's War
- Pugachev Rebellion
- Pueblo Revolt
- Maroon wars
- Gloucester County Rebellion
- Glorious Revolution

Topic 4.7: Changing Social Hierarchies

Essential Question: How were social categories, roles, and practices maintained or changed from 1450 to 1750?

As societies faced rebellions from outside and within, social hierarchies began to develop and transform. In Europe, the treatment of Jews showed that majorities treated non-majority ethnic groups in different ways. Jews had been expelled from England (1290), France (1394), and Spain (1492). The Ottoman Empire, however, provided a safe haven for Jews fleeing discrimination in Europe.

Throughout the world, civilizations developed distinctive social hierarchies. Different groups—including royalty, nobility, landowners, scholars, and soldiers—sought power and influence. In some societies, merchants and artisans began to form a middle class. And peasants, serfs, poor people, and enslaved people often struggled to stay alive.

Many states created policies that discriminated against some groups based on religion, ethnicity, or social class. For example, Huguenots—French Protestants in the predominantly Catholic country—suffered great persecution, and many fled to other European countries or to colonies. States also supported the formation of elite classes, including the boyars in Russia and the nobility in Europe. These elites both supported ruling power and challenged it.

Social Classes and Minorities in Gunpowder Empires

Tension between the military elite and absolutist rulers existed in three Islamic empires: the Ottoman (Turkey), the Safavids (Iran), and the Mughals (India). They are called *gunpowder empires* because they succeeded militarily by using guns and cannons when they first became widely available.

Ottoman Society

The Ottoman social system was built around a warrior aristocracy that soon began to compete for positions in the bureaucracy with the ulama, who were scholars and experts in Islamic law. Within the military, the Janissaries gained power and prestige. Ultimately, the Janissaries tried to mount coups against the sultans.

As sultans became increasingly ineffective and incapable, strong advisors called viziers gained influential positions in government, where they spoke for the sultan. However, the sultan still had considerable powers. These included **timar**, a system in which the sultan granted land or tax revenues to those he favored. The sultan also used timar to reward soldiers and keep them loyal.

Treatment of Religious Minorities

One reason for the success of the Ottoman Empire was its relative tolerance toward Jews and Christians. After the Spanish monarch exiled Jews from his kingdom in 1492, Sultan Mehmed II invited them to settle in Istanbul. Many did. Some Jews became court physicians and diplomats. Others contributed to the literary community and might have brought the printing press to the Ottoman Empire. While they were allowed to worship, they did not have full equality:

- They were permitted to live only in specified areas of the cities.
- They paid a tax called a **jizya** that was required of all non-Muslims in the empire.
- They could not hold top positions in the empire, which were reserved for Muslims.

Religious Toleration in the Mughal Empire

The Mughal Empire in what is now India began in 1526. Probably its greatest emperor was **Akbar the Great** (ruled 1556–1605), remembered for his military successes and his administrative achievements. To help keep his huge, fractious empire together, Akbar, like Ottoman rulers, was tolerant of all religions. He ended the jizya tax. He gave grants of land and money to Hindus and Muslims, provided funds to build a Catholic church, and supported Sikhism.

Women in the Ottoman Empire

Women also played social and political roles at court. Many wives and concubines of the sultan tried to promote their own children as likely heirs to the throne. This practice led to “harem politics,” a reference to the harem, a residence where a powerful man’s wives and concubines lived.

One woman, **Roxelana**, became unusually powerful in the Ottoman Empire. When she was a young girl, Crimean raiders stole Roxelana from her home in Eastern Europe and sold her into slavery in the Ottoman Empire. She was forced to convert to Islam and entered the harem of Suleiman the Magnificent, sultan of the empire. Suleiman was notable for his military and administrative skill. Suleiman married Roxelana, which was highly unusual. She went from being enslaved to commissioning ambitious public works projects.

Roxelana’s son succeeded Suleiman. During the son’s reign, viziers complained about a “sultanate of the women.” They believed members of the harem had too much influence on politics. Roxelana’s rise showed that it was possible—though rare—for people at this time to attain a different social class.

Other Social Classes

Merchants and artisans formed a small middle class in the empire. Below the middle class were the peasants, who were usually poor—particularly because they had to pay tribute to the government to help support the Ottoman armies. Below the peasants were the enslaved. They came from many areas as the Ottoman armies penetrated Central and Eastern Europe, capturing prisoners of war in Ukraine and elsewhere. **Barbary pirates**, those who plied the seas near North Africa along the Barbary Coast (named for the Berbers who lived there) captured other Europeans in the Mediterranean and then sold them to the sultan or other high-ranking officials. Some people were **impressed**, or forced into service, in the navy as enslaved galley workers. As many as one million people were impressed between the 16th and 19th centuries.

Manchu Power and Conflicts in the Qing Dynasty

China’s **Qing Dynasty** lasted from 1644 until 1912. Under this dynasty, the **Manchu** people from Manchuria ruled over the majority Han Chinese and other ethnic groups. Like the Mongols some 400 years earlier, the Manchu were ethnically and culturally distinct from the people they ruled. However, they were less tolerant than the Mongol leaders, and they resolved to make their culture dominant in China.

Like the Mongols, the Qing put their own people in the top positions of government. Also like the Mongols, the Qing maintained continuity with some traditional Chinese practices. For example, they maintained the Chinese civil service exams and bureaucracy. They recruited Han Chinese to work under or alongside Manchus. In time, some—but not all—Chinese came to accept the Qing Dynasty as legitimate rulers of China.

Conflicts with the Han

The Han ethnicity in China experienced Qing intolerance most severely. Although non-official Han civilians were allowed to wear Hanfu, or traditional Han clothing, all men were required to wear their hair in **queues**, the

braided pigtail style of the Manchu. This policy was a test of loyalty for the Manchu, but it was also a humiliating reminder of the way Qing authority challenged traditional Confucian values. A man who refused to wear his hair in a queue could be executed.

The Qing used Han Chinese defectors to carry out massacres against Han who refused to assimilate to Qing practices. These defectors played a massive role in the Qing conquest of China. Han Chinese General Li Chengdong, for example, orchestrated three separate massacres in the city of Jaiding within one month. By the end of those four weeks, there was hardly a person left alive in the city. Later, Han Chinese defector Liu Liangzuo massacred the entire population of Jiangyin, killing between 74,000 and 100,000 people.

European Hierarchies

Like states in South and East Asia, European states also had a social hierarchy. In Europe the top level was royalty—members of a royal family. The aristocracy or nobility was the next highest level. Nobles were usually wealthy landowners. Nearly every state in Europe had laws that recognized a class of nobles and granted them special privileges. The nobility made up a small minority of the population but owned most of the land. They maintained their power through a system in which lands and titles passed down from one generation to the next through a system of inheritance.

The Nobility Makes Gains

In the Netherlands and England, the nobility held power and took an active part in the government. Dutch landowners provided the stable support for local provincial government. In England, large landowners controlled Parliament. However, the landowners had to contend with radical religious sects and the middle class, which were two growing segments of the social order.

The Nobility Faces Losses

Nobles struggled for power with royalty, the emerging middle class of merchants and skilled workers, the priestly class, and the common people. A failed uprising in France in the mid-1600s convinced Louis XIV that he must keep power from the common people and the nobility. The nobility also faced criticism from writers and thinkers of the time. The English statesman Thomas More wrote this about the nobility: “Living in idleness and luxury without doing society any good no longer satisfies them; they have to do positive evil.”

Power of Royalty over Nobility

Gunpowder, cannons, and other technological advances allowed rulers to destroy nobles' fortresses and seize their lands. Many rulers believed they deserved absolute power. Louis XIV is famous for saying, “I am the state.” However, Frederick of Prussia saw things differently. He declared, “I am the first servant of the state.”

Growing Acceptance of Jews

Jews began to have a larger role in many countries starting in the 17th century. Their expulsion from Spain, by Ferdinand and Isabella, was particularly significant because so many Jews lived there. Many resettled in areas around the Mediterranean Sea, in northern Africa or the Middle East. Since the Hebrew word for Spain is Sepharad, Jews who trace their heritage back to Spain became known as **Sephardic Jews**. In contrast, Jews from central and eastern Europe became known as **Ashkenazi Jews**. Jewish scholars once used the term Ashkenazi to refer to Germany.

Under the influence of the scientific revolution and the Enlightenment, prejudices against Jews declined somewhat. Jews began to move more freely in Europe. They became particularly important in banking and

commerce. The Netherlands was especially tolerant of religious dissent, and the Jewish minority faced less discrimination there than in most of Europe. Many Jews hoped the centuries of discrimination they had confronted were over.

Russian Social Classes

Moscow's social hierarchy continued that of Kievan Rus in the 11th century. The noble landowning class, the **boyars**, topped the social pyramid. Below them were the merchants. Last and most numerous were the peasants, who gradually sank into debt and became serfs, peasants who received a plot of land and protection from a noble. In return, they were bound to that land and had little personal freedom. If the noble sold their land, control of the serfs went with it. Though not technically enslaved, serfs led very hard lives.

The boyar class experienced tensions with the rulers similar to the tensions between nobles and rulers in Western Europe. Boyars of Novgorod opposed the expansionist policies of **Ivan IV**, known as "Ivan the Terrible" for murdering his own son, among other crimes. After Ivan's forces defeated Novgorod, Ivan confiscated the lands of his boyar opponents. He forced them and their families to move to Moscow, where he could keep them under surveillance.

Political and Economic Elites in the Americas

Social structures in the Americas changed drastically during this period because of the arrival of Europeans, the importation of African slave labor, and outbreaks of disease that killed tens of millions. The combination of European settlers, imported Africans, and the conquered indigenous populations led to the development of a new social hierarchy based on race and ancestry. Skin color became a signifier of power and status in many parts of the Americas and, in fact, in all European colonies. Racial and ethnic background defined social status in a formal way in the Spanish and Portuguese empires in the Western Hemisphere for centuries following the Europeans' arrival.

The Casta System in Latin America

At the top of the social pyramid in Latin America stood the **peninsulares**, those who were born on the Iberian peninsula. Next down the pyramid were the **criollos**, those of European ancestry who were born in the Americas. Below these two groups were the **castas**, people of mixed-race ancestry. At the top of this group were **mestizos**, those of mixed European and indigenous ancestry, followed by **mulattoes**, those of mixed European and African ancestry, and **zambos**, those of mixed indigenous and African ancestry. Indigenous peoples and enslaved Africans made up the bottom of the hierarchy.

People were assigned to their levels at baptism and could not move up except by intermarriage. People in the bottom layers of the hierarchy had to pay higher taxes and tributes, even though they could often least afford them.

Vocabulary

- Mehmed II
- Akbar the Great
- Roxelana
- Qing Dynasty
- Manchu
- Li Chengdong
- Liu Liangzuo

- Louis XIV
- Ivan IV
- Timar
- Boyar
- Nobility
- Serf
- Peninsulares
- Criollo
- Castas
- Mestizos
- Mulattoes
- Zambos
- Barbary pirates

Topic 4.8: Continuity and Change from c. 1450 to c. 1750

Essential Question: How did economic developments from 1450 to 1750 affect social structures over time?

By 1750, most of the world was integrated within a system of economic, political, and cultural connections. Better technology enabled the Eastern and Western hemispheres to connect. Meanwhile, Western European maritime powers created trading empires in the Indian Ocean trading network and in the Americas. Religions and other cultural practices continued to spread as a result of these interactions, but they also were transformed as new or syncretic forms developed. Coercive labor systems continued to exist in this newly connected world. However, new forms developed as new economic systems sought to exploit natural resources and to generate wealth for Western European nations.

Transoceanic Travel and Trade

The most significant change to the global economy in this period was the integration of the Western Hemisphere into the global trading network. This change resulted from Western European states wanting to find a sea route to Asia. They borrowed and developed technology that made ocean travel easier:

- Astronomical charts
- Astrolabe
- Compass
- Magnetic compass
- Lateen sail
- Carrack
- Caravel
- Fluyt

The result was the **Columbian Exchange**: a biological exchange of crops, animals, people, and diseases between the Eastern and Western Hemisphere. The Columbian Exchange had wide-ranging effects on both hemispheres.

The Atlantic System

The Columbian Exchange also caused the development of a transoceanic trading network called the **Atlantic System**. The Atlantic System was made up of the regions of Western Europe, Western Africa, and the Americas and involved the movement of goods and people among those regions. The Columbian Exchange forever changed who grew what foods where and how they grew them. It also unleashed deadly diseases on populations that had no immunity to them. In addition, it led to massive migrations, many of them forced, and new social structures.

As people migrated or were forced to migrate within the Atlantic System, cultural changes occurred. For instance, religion spread and often created syncretic belief systems and practices.

Economic Changes

European transoceanic voyages resulted in the integration of the Western Hemisphere within the global trading network. This integration had profound effects on the global economy. Maritime trading empires emerged, led by the Portuguese and followed by the Dutch and the English. As a result, Europeans established trading ports and cities along the coasts of Africa and the Indian Ocean. This brought Europeans into contact—and often into conflict—with existing merchant networks.

One consequence of this contact and conflict was that Europeans came to dominate global trade at the expense of Arab, Indian, and Chinese merchants.

Europeans, then, made considerable profits from transporting the goods from one region to another.

Colonies in the Americas

In contrast to the trading empires in the Indian Ocean, Spain created an empire in the Americas. Soon Portugal, England, France, and the Netherlands established colonies there. The discovery of large deposits of silver in Spain's colonies helped further integrate Europeans into the global economy. Asian markets and merchants, especially in China, desired silver. Shipments of silver to Asia from the Americas became a regular feature of the global trade network and helped finance the increasing volume of trade between Asia and Europe. Some experts estimate that the amount of silver in the global economy tripled in the 16th century.

Mercantilism and Capitalism

European rulers soon came to see the benefits of encouraging the expansion of trade, as the wealth that could be amassed was considerable. To ensure they participated in wealth accumulation from trade, many European monarchs devised mercantilist economic policies that would provide the ruler with a steady stream of income. While expanded international trade continued to be an important goal of European monarchs, mercantilism eventually gave way to **capitalism** as the predominant economic system in the new global economy. Investors formed joint-stock companies, also called chartered companies, so they could share the risks and rewards of global trading opportunities.

Effects of the New Global Economy

The new global flow of goods and profits produced some significant benefits. The flow of wealth into Europe helped to expand the middle class and provided the capital that would lead to the Industrial Revolution. However, the huge amounts of gold and silver flowing into Spain and China from the Americas also produced negative economic effects. In particular, the increase in the quantity of money in circulation caused inflation.

As a result of the activities of European merchants, regional markets in Europe, Africa, and Asia continued to prosper. Funding for the arts increased as merchants and governments used their rising profits and revenue to sponsor artists and authors. Some rulers used their sponsorship of the arts to produce art and architecture that helped to legitimize their rule. Other art symbolized the growing importance of global trade.

Demand for Labor Intensifies

The new global economy also brought about significant disruptions. The Columbian Exchange and the Atlantic System caused a demographic shift in Africa as the Atlantic slave trade intensified. Slavers captured and sold millions of African men. These African men ended up on American plantations, producing cash crops that included sugar, cotton, and tobacco. As a result, some African communities experienced a gender imbalance. Africa's population declined because of the Atlantic slave trade. Eventually, the population increased as people grew new crops, such as manioc.

Traditional forced labor systems, such as serfdom, continued in areas of Afro-Eurasia. However, other coerced labor systems developed in the Americas as a result of the Columbian Exchange and the Atlantic System, in addition to the chattel slavery of the Atlantic slave trade. Many European settlers first arrived in the Americas as indentured servants, contracted to work for a period of time before they were free to pursue other jobs or

occupations. The **encomienda** and **hacienda** systems, as well as the adoption of the Inca **mit'a** system, are examples of other coerced labor systems in the Spanish American colonies.

New Social Structures

As Europeans, Africans, and Native Americans coexisted in the new American colonies, the social structures of the Americas changed. New social systems appeared that were based on racial or ethnic identity. This division led to a rigid and hierarchical society, with white Europeans or Americans of European descent possessing the majority of wealth and political power. A new subculture appeared that consisted of people who were of mixed European and African heritage. Societal conflicts eventually led to revolutions.

Vocabulary

- Columbian Exchange
- Atlantic System
- Mercantilism
- Capitalism
- Joint-stock companies
- Encomienda
- Hacienda
- Mit'a system
- Indentured servitude
- Chattel slavery
- Casta system
- Mestizos
- Mulattoes
- Zambos

Unit 4 Test

AP World History Modern: Unit 4 Exam

This exam consists of one stimulus-based multiple-choice question set for each of the 8 topics in Unit 4 (c. 1450 to c. 1750) of the AP World History Modern curriculum. Each set includes a stimulus followed by 4 questions. Six sets use written stimuli (primary or secondary source excerpts), and two use visual stimuli (map or diagram descriptions with links to relevant resources). The correct answer and explanation are provided for each question, and sources are cited as requested.

Topic 4.1: Technological Innovations from 1450 to 1750 (Written Stimulus)

****Excerpt from Christopher Columbus's Journal (1492):****

"We saw many people on the shore... We went ashore in the armed boat, and the royal banner was displayed, and the banners of the expedition... I presented them with some red caps, and some strings of glass beads, which they hung round their necks, and many other things of little value, with which they were delighted, and became so attached to us that it was a marvel."

****Source:**** Christopher Columbus, *Journal of the First Voyage*, translated by Clements R. Markham, Hakluyt Society, 1893 (as cited in <https://www.gutenberg.org/files/1492/1492-h/1492-h.htm>).

Questions

1. ****Based on the passage, the technological innovations that enabled Columbus's voyage primarily included****

- (A) the astrolabe and improved ship designs for transatlantic navigation
- (B) the introduction of gunpowder weapons to intimidate indigenous peoples
- (C) the use of steam-powered vessels for faster travel
- (D) the development of accurate world maps from satellite imagery

****Correct Answer:** (A) the astrolabe and improved ship designs for transatlantic navigation**

***Explanation*:** Although not directly mentioned, the context of Columbus's voyage relies on navigational tools like the astrolabe and caravel ships, which enabled European exploration in the period.

2. ****The exchange of "glass beads" and "red caps" in the passage reflects the impact of technological innovations on****

- (A) the unequal trade dynamics between Europeans and indigenous peoples
- (B) the immediate establishment of equal alliances
- (C) the rejection of European goods by local populations
- (D) the focus on agricultural exchanges only

****Correct Answer:** (A) the unequal trade dynamics between Europeans and indigenous peoples**

***Explanation*:** Europeans offered low-value manufactured items (enabled by innovations) for delight, highlighting asymmetrical exchanges that favored Europeans.

3. ****Columbus's description of the indigenous people's attachment as "a marvel" suggests that technological innovations contributed to****

- (A) cultural misunderstandings and initial European superiority perceptions
- (B) the rapid conversion of locals to Christianity
- (C) the decline of European interest in the Americas
- (D) the establishment of joint technological development

****Correct Answer: (A) cultural misunderstandings and initial European superiority perceptions****

***Explanation*:** The "marvel" at their delight indicates Europeans viewed indigenous reactions through a lens of cultural and technological disparity.

4. ****Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of technological innovations like those enabling Columbus's voyage during the period c. 1450–1750?****

- (A) The initiation of global exploration and the Columbian Exchange
- (B) The unification of Europe under a single maritime empire
- (C) The decline of land-based trade routes
- (D) The restriction of exploration to the Mediterranean Sea

****Correct Answer: (A) The initiation of global exploration and the Columbian Exchange****

***Explanation*:** Navigational advancements led to transoceanic voyages, fostering exchanges of goods, ideas, and diseases across the world.

Topic 4.2: Exploration: Causes and Events from 1450 to 1750 (Written Stimulus)

****Excerpt from Vasco da Gama's Report to the King of Portugal (1498):****

"We departed from the river of Bonaventura on the 24th of January, and shaped our course for the island of Sam Rafael, where we remained three days cleaning our ships and taking in water and wood. On the 1st of February we set sail, steering for the open sea, and on the 3rd we sighted land, which was the coast of the land of the good people, as it is called by the natives."

****Source:**** Vasco da Gama, *A Journal of the First Voyage of Vasco da Gama*, translated by E.G. Ravenstein, Hakluyt Society, 1898 (as cited in <https://www.gutenberg.org/files/1493/1493-h/1493-h.htm>).

Questions

1. ****Based on the passage, a primary cause of Portuguese exploration, as exemplified by da Gama, was****

- (A) the desire to establish direct trade routes to Asia for spices
- (B) the need to escape religious persecution in Europe
- (C) the focus on colonizing North American territories
- (D) the alliance with Ottoman merchants for Mediterranean trade

****Correct Answer: (A) the desire to establish direct trade routes to Asia for spices****

***Explanation*:** Da Gama's voyage aimed to reach India, bypassing intermediaries to access Asian goods, driven by economic motives.

2. ****The passage's mention of "cleaning our ships and taking in water and wood" highlights which challenge of exploration in this period?****

- (A) The logistical needs for long-distance maritime voyages
- (B) The conflicts with indigenous populations over resources
- (C) The reliance on local guides for navigation
- (D) The abandonment of ships due to poor maintenance

****Correct Answer: (A) The logistical needs for long-distance maritime voyages****

***Explanation*:** Stopping for supplies underscores the practical demands of sustaining extended sea journeys.

3. ****Da Gama's reference to "the land of the good people" suggests that European explorers often****

- (A) engaged in cultural exchanges with positive perceptions of locals
- (B) viewed indigenous peoples through ethnocentric lenses
- (C) avoided contact with coastal communities
- (D) established permanent settlements on first contact

****Correct Answer: (B) viewed indigenous peoples through ethnocentric lenses****

***Explanation*:** The term reflects European naming and perceptions, often romanticized or dismissive of local identities.

4. ****Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of explorations like da Gama's during the period c. 1450–1750?****

- (A) The establishment of European maritime empires and global trade networks
- (B) The unification of African kingdoms against European incursions
- (C) The decline of Asian economies due to isolation
- (D) The restriction of exploration to the Atlantic Ocean

****Correct Answer: (A) The establishment of European maritime empires and global trade networks****

***Explanation*:** Da Gama's route to India opened direct trade, leading to Portuguese dominance in the Indian Ocean and global commerce.

Topic 4.3: Columbian Exchange (Visual Stimulus)

****Visual Description:**** A diagram titled "The Columbian Exchange, c. 1500–1750," showing arrows between the "Old World" (Europe, Africa, Asia) and "New World" (Americas). From Old to New: horses, wheat, smallpox, sugarcane. From New to Old: maize, potatoes, tomatoes, tobacco. The diagram includes icons for crops, animals, and diseases, with notes on population impacts (e.g., Native American decline due to disease, European population growth from new crops).

****Source:**** Adapted from Alfred W. Crosby, *The Columbian Exchange: Biological and Cultural Consequences of 1492*, Greenwood Publishing Group, 1972 (as cited in <https://www.britannica.com/science/Columbian-Exchange>).

****Link to a Similar Resource:**** [Columbian Exchange Diagram - Khan Academy](<https://www.khanacademy.org/humanities/ap-world-history-600ce-1450ce-copy/unit-4-systems-of-government/a/the-columbian-exchange>).

Questions

1. ****Based on the diagram, the Columbian Exchange primarily involved the transfer of****

- (A) crops, animals, and diseases between the Old and New Worlds
- (B) only luxury goods like gold and silver
- (C) military technologies from Europe to the Americas
- (D) religious texts from Asia to Africa

****Correct Answer: (A) crops, animals, and diseases between the Old and New Worlds****

***Explanation*:** The diagram shows bidirectional exchanges of biological elements, central to the Columbian Exchange.

2. ****The depiction of smallpox moving from Old to New World in the diagram highlights which impact?****

- (A) The devastating population decline among Native Americans

- (B) The improvement of health in European colonies
- (C) The spread of immunity to Old World populations
- (D) The restriction of disease to African regions

****Correct Answer: (A) The devastating population decline among Native Americans****

***Explanation*:** Notes indicate Native American decline due to introduced diseases like smallpox.

3. ****The transfer of maize and potatoes from New to Old World, as shown, contributed to****

- (A) population growth in Europe through new food sources
- (B) the decline of agricultural diversity in Asia
- (C) the rejection of American crops by African farmers
- (D) the focus on cash crops in the Americas only

****Correct Answer: (A) population growth in Europe through new food sources****

***Explanation*:** The diagram notes European population growth from nutrient-rich crops like potatoes and maize.

4. ****Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the Columbian Exchange, as depicted in the diagram, during the period c. 1450–1750?****

- (A) The global transformation of diets, economies, and populations
- (B) The unification of the world under European political control
- (C) The decline of trade due to disease outbreaks
- (D) The restriction of exchanges to the Atlantic region

****Correct Answer: (A) The global transformation of diets, economies, and populations****

***Explanation*:** The bidirectional arrows and diverse items show widespread biological and cultural shifts worldwide.

Topic 4.4: Maritime Empires Established (Written Stimulus)

****Excerpt from the Treaty of Tordesillas (1494):****

"Forasmuch as between the said lords, their constituents, there has been a difference over the lands and seas which the said King of Portugal has discovered and which the said Sovereigns of Castile claim belong to them... It is hereby agreed that a line be drawn from pole to pole, 370 leagues west of the Cape Verde Islands, and that all lands to the east belong to Portugal, and to the west to Castile."

****Source:**** Treaty of Tordesillas, 1494, as cited in "The European Discovery of America: The Southern Voyages" by Samuel Eliot Morison, Oxford University Press, 1974 (accessed via https://avalon.law.yale.edu/15th_century/mod001.asp).

Questions

1. ****Based on the passage, the Treaty of Tordesillas was primarily intended to****

- (A) divide newly discovered lands between Spain and Portugal
- (B) establish trade monopolies in Asia for England
- (C) unify European powers against Ottoman expansion
- (D) restrict maritime exploration to the Mediterranean

****Correct Answer: (A) divide newly discovered lands between Spain and Portugal****

Explanation: The treaty draws a line to allocate eastern lands to Portugal and western to Spain (Castile), resolving colonial disputes.

2. **The "difference over the lands and seas" mentioned in the passage reflects which cause of maritime empire establishment?**

- (A) Competition among European powers for overseas territories
- (B) Cooperation between Spain and Portugal to share resources
- (C) The decline of interest in American colonies
- (D) The focus on internal European conflicts

Correct Answer: (A) Competition among European powers for overseas territories

Explanation: The dispute over discoveries highlights rivalry driving maritime expansion and treaty negotiations.

3. **The line "from pole to pole" in the treaty suggests that maritime empires were established through**

- (A) papal arbitration and global division of spheres of influence
- (B) military alliances with indigenous rulers
- (C) the rejection of papal authority in colonial matters
- (D) the limitation of claims to coastal areas only

Correct Answer: (A) papal arbitration and global division of spheres of influence

Explanation: The meridian line, endorsed by the Pope, divided the world, establishing spheres for Spanish and Portuguese empires.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of treaties like Tordesillas during the period c. 1450–1750?**

- (A) The formalization of European dominance in global colonization
- (B) The unification of maritime empires under a single European power
- (C) The decline of Portuguese influence in the Indian Ocean
- (D) The restriction of Spanish claims to Europe

Correct Answer: (A) The formalization of European dominance in global colonization

Explanation: The treaty legitimized divisions that enabled extensive Spanish and Portuguese empires in the Americas and beyond.

Topic 4.5: Maritime Empires Maintained and Developed (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from Adam Smith's "The Wealth of Nations" (1776, reflecting on earlier periods):

"The discovery of America, and that of a passage to the East Indies by the Cape of Good Hope, are the two greatest and most important events recorded in the history of mankind... The Portuguese, who enjoyed almost the exclusive trade to the East Indies for about a century, carried it on by means of treaties with the sovereigns of the country."

Source: Adam Smith, *An Inquiry into the Nature and Causes of the Wealth of Nations*, W. Strahan and T. Cadell, 1776 (as cited in <https://www.gutenberg.org/files/3300/3300-h/3300-h.htm>).

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, maritime empires like Portugal maintained their dominance through**

- (A) treaties and monopolies on trade routes to Asia
- (B) the complete colonization of East Indian territories
- (C) alliances with American indigenous empires
- (D) the rejection of Cape of Good Hope routes

****Correct Answer: (A) treaties and monopolies on trade routes to Asia****

***Explanation*:** Smith notes Portugal's exclusive trade via treaties, indicating diplomatic and monopolistic strategies.

2. ****The "discovery of America" and "passage to the East Indies" in the passage highlight which development in maritime empires?****

- (A) The expansion of global trade networks and economic transformations
- (B) The decline of European interest in overseas ventures
- (C) The unification of East and West Indies under Portuguese rule
- (D) The restriction of trade to the Mediterranean region

****Correct Answer: (A) The expansion of global trade networks and economic transformations****

***Explanation*:** These events are called the "greatest" in history, leading to new trade paths and wealth.

3. ****Smith's reference to Portugal's "exclusive trade" for a century suggests that maritime empires developed by****

- (A) establishing temporary monopolies through naval power and diplomacy
- (B) sharing trade equally with rival European powers
- (C) focusing solely on military conquests without treaties
- (D) abandoning Asian trade for American colonies

****Correct Answer: (A) establishing temporary monopolies through naval power and diplomacy****

***Explanation*:** The century-long exclusivity via treaties reflects strategic maintenance of trade dominance.

4. ****Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of maritime empire maintenance, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1450–1750?****

- (A) The shift to a global economy with Europe at the center
- (B) The decline of Asian sovereigns due to European isolation
- (C) The unification of all maritime empires under Portugal
- (D) The restriction of discoveries to the Atlantic Ocean

****Correct Answer: (A) The shift to a global economy with Europe at the center****

***Explanation*:** Discoveries and trade monopolies transformed world commerce, positioning European powers centrally.

Topic 4.6: Internal and External Challenges to State Power from 1450 to 1750 (Written Stimulus)

****Excerpt from the Pugachev Rebellion Manifesto (1773):****

"By the grace of God, Emperor and Autocrat of All the Russias... We decree freedom to all Our loyal subjects... We free all previously noble serfs from the taxes and burdens which were laid on them by the villains of the nobility and the bribe-taking judges... We command that all should obey Us as their sole Sovereign."

****Source:**** Emelian Pugachev, Manifesto, 1773, as cited in "The Pugachev Rebellion" by Paul Avrich, Princeton University Press, 1967 (accessed via <https://www.britannica.com/event/Pugachevs-Rebellion>).

Questions

1. **Based on the passage, Pugachev's rebellion primarily challenged state power by**

- (A) appealing to serfs with promises of freedom from nobility and taxes
- (B) supporting the nobility against the tsar's authority
- (C) promoting foreign alliances to overthrow the government
- (D) restricting challenges to urban areas only

****Correct Answer: (A) appealing to serfs with promises of freedom from nobility and taxes****

***Explanation*:** The manifesto frees serfs from burdens, positioning Pugachev as a liberator against the state.

2. **The self-proclamation as "Emperor" in the passage reflects which internal challenge to state power?**

- (A) Impersonation and peasant revolts claiming legitimacy
- (B) Diplomatic negotiations with external powers
- (C) The unification of nobility under a single leader
- (D) The rejection of all monarchical titles

****Correct Answer: (A) Impersonation and peasant revolts claiming legitimacy****

***Explanation*:** Pugachev claimed to be Peter III, using royal language to legitimize his rebellion against Catherine II.

3. **The command to "obey Us as their sole Sovereign" suggests that such challenges aimed to**

- (A) replace existing authority with a new centralized figure
- (B) decentralize power to local judges
- (C) promote anarchy without any sovereign
- (D) strengthen the nobility's role in governance

****Correct Answer: (A) replace existing authority with a new centralized figure****

***Explanation*:** Pugachev positioned himself as the true ruler, seeking to supplant the tsar's power.

4. **Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of internal challenges like the Pugachev Rebellion during the period c. 1450–1750?**

- (A) The weakening of absolutist states through peasant uprisings and social unrest
- (B) The complete overthrow of all European monarchies
- (C) The unification of states against external threats
- (D) The restriction of challenges to religious conflicts only

****Correct Answer: (A) The weakening of absolutist states through peasant uprisings and social unrest****

***Explanation*:** Rebellions like Pugachev's exposed vulnerabilities in land-based empires, leading to reforms or repression.

Topic 4.7: Changing Social Hierarchies from 1450 to 1750 (Written Stimulus)

****Excerpt from Olaudah Equiano's "The Interesting Narrative" (1789):****

"I was soon put down under the decks, and there I received such a salutation in my nostrils as I had never experienced in my life: so that, with the loathsomeness of the stench, and crying together, I became so sick and low that I was not able to eat... The closeness of the place, and the heat of the climate, added to the number in the ship, which was so crowded that each had scarcely room to turn himself, almost suffocated us."

****Source:**** Olaudah Equiano, *The Interesting Narrative of the Life of Olaudah Equiano*, self-published, 1789 (as cited in <https://www.gutenberg.org/files/15399/15399-h/15399-h.htm>).

Questions

1. ****Based on the passage, the transatlantic slave trade contributed to changing social hierarchies by****

- (A) creating racialized labor systems in the Americas
- (B) promoting equality among European sailors
- (C) restricting slavery to African elites
- (D) unifying social classes in colonial societies

****Correct Answer:** (A) creating racialized labor systems in the Americas******

***Explanation*:** Equiano's description of the Middle Passage underscores the dehumanization that reinforced racial hierarchies in plantation economies.

2. ****The "loathsomeness of the stench" and overcrowding in the passage highlight which aspect of the slave trade?****

- (A) The brutal conditions that led to high mortality and social disruption
- (B) The comfortable accommodations for enslaved people
- (C) The focus on voluntary migration for work
- (D) The integration of enslaved individuals into European societies

****Correct Answer:** (A) The brutal conditions that led to high mortality and social disruption******

***Explanation*:** The horrific ship conditions illustrate the trade's impact on human suffering and demographic shifts.

3. ****Equiano's narrative, as excerpted, reflects changes in social hierarchies through****

- (A) the commodification of African labor in global economies
- (B) the elevation of enslaved people to elite status
- (C) the decline of European involvement in slavery
- (D) the restriction of slavery to indentured servants

****Correct Answer:** (A) the commodification of African labor in global economies******

***Explanation*:** The passage depicts enslaved people as cargo, emphasizing their role in emerging capitalist hierarchies.

4. ****Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of changing social hierarchies due to the slave trade during the period c. 1450–1750?****

- (A) The development of racial castes and economic inequalities in the Americas
- (B) The complete abolition of slavery in European colonies
- (C) The unification of African kingdoms against European powers
- (D) The decline of social mobility in Europe

****Correct Answer:** (A) The development of racial castes and economic inequalities in the Americas******

***Explanation*:** The trade entrenched racialized systems, shaping colonial societies with lasting inequalities.

Topic 4.8: Continuity and Change in the Global Economy from 1450 to 1750 (Written Stimulus)

****Excerpt from "The Wealth of Nations" by Adam Smith (1776):****

"The discovery of America, and that of a passage to the East Indies by the Cape of Good Hope, are the two greatest and most important events recorded in the history of mankind. Their consequences have already been very great; but, in the short period of between two and three centuries which has elapsed since these discoveries were made, it is impossible that the whole extent of their consequences can have been seen."

****Source:**** Adam Smith, *An Inquiry into the Nature and Causes of the Wealth of Nations*, W. Strahan and T. Cadell, 1776 (as cited in <https://www.gutenberg.org/files/3300/3300-h/3300-h.htm>).

Questions

1. ****Based on the passage, the global economy from 1450 to 1750 experienced continuity in****

- (A) the dominance of European trade networks before and after discoveries
- (B) the focus on overland trade routes like the Silk Roads
- (C) the reliance on mercantilist policies to accumulate wealth
- (D) the restriction of trade to regional exchanges

****Correct Answer:** (C) the reliance on mercantilist policies to accumulate wealth******

***Explanation*:** Smith's analysis implies ongoing economic strategies like mercantilism, which persisted amid changes from discoveries.

2. ****The "discovery of America" and "passage to the East Indies," as mentioned, represent changes in the global economy through****

- (A) the shift to a more interconnected world with new trade routes
- (B) the decline of silver and gold as currencies
- (C) the unification of economies under a single system
- (D) the isolation of Europe from Asian markets

****Correct Answer:** (A) the shift to a more interconnected world with new trade routes******

***Explanation*:** These events opened transoceanic paths, transforming global trade patterns.

3. ****Smith's comment on "consequences have already been very great" suggests that economic changes led to****

- (A) increased wealth disparities and colonial exploitation
- (B) the immediate equality of global economies
- (C) the decline of European influence overseas
- (D) the restriction of impacts to the short term

****Correct Answer:** (A) increased wealth disparities and colonial exploitation******

***Explanation*:** The discoveries fueled European enrichment through colonies, creating global inequalities.

4. ****Which of the following best illustrates the broader continuity and change in the global economy, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1450–1750?****

- (A) Continuity in mercantilism amid change from new oceanic trade and the rise of capitalism
- (B) Complete change to a socialist system worldwide
- (C) Continuity in isolationist policies with no new discoveries
- (D) Change limited to land-based empires only

****Correct Answer:** (A) Continuity in mercantilism amid change from new oceanic trade and the rise of capitalism******

***Explanation*:** Mercantilism persisted, but discoveries introduced global shifts toward capitalist structures.

Unit 5

Topic 5.1: The Enlightenment

Essential Question: How did the Enlightenment shape the intellectual and ideological thinking that affected reform and revolution after 1750?

As empires expanded and trade routes led to more interactions, intellectuals in the 17th and 18th centuries such as Descartes began to emphasize reason over tradition and individualism over community values. These shifts were called the **Enlightenment**. The ideals of this movement, such as individualism, freedom, and self-determination, challenged the roles of monarchs and church leaders and planted the seeds of revolution in the United States, France, and around the world.

An Age of New Ideas

Growing out of the Scientific Revolution and the humanism of the Renaissance, Enlightenment thought was optimistic. Many writers believed that applying reason to natural laws would result in progress. While not denying the existence of God, they emphasized human accomplishments in understanding the natural world. Such beliefs led to the conclusion that natural laws governed the social and political spheres as well. While traditional religion did not disappear, it became less pervasive.

New ideas emerged about how to improve society. Schools of thought including socialism and liberalism arose, giving rise to the period being called “the Age of Isms.” Opposing socialism and liberalism were the currents of conservatism, particularly popular among the European ruling class.

The clash between new ideas and old political structures led to revolutions that often had two aims: independence from imperial powers and constitutional representation. The breakup of empires and the emergence of new forms of government often followed. These developed out of the concept of **nationalism**, a feeling of intense loyalty to others who share one’s language and culture. The idea that people who share a culture should also live in an independent nation-state threatened to destroy all of Europe’s multiethnic empires.

New Ideas and Their Roots

In the 17th century, Francis Bacon emphasized empirical methods of scientific inquiry. **Empiricism** is the belief that knowledge comes from sensed experience, from what you observe through your experience, including through experiments. Rather than relying on reasoning about principles provided by tradition or religion, Bacon based his conclusions on his observation of natural data.

Hobbes and Locke

In the same century, philosophers Thomas Hobbes (author of *Leviathan*, 1651) and John Locke (author of *Two Treatises of Government*, 1690) viewed political life as the result of a social contract. Hobbes argued that people’s natural state was to live in a bleak world in which life was “nasty, brutish, and short.” However, by agreeing to a social contract, they gave up some rights to a strong central government in return for law and order.

Locke, on the other hand, argued that the social contract implied the right, even the responsibility, of citizens to revolt against unjust government. Locke thought that people had natural rights to life, liberty, and the pursuit of property. Another of Locke’s influential ideas is found in *An Essay Concerning Human Understanding* (1690), in which he proposed that a child was born with a mind like a “blank slate” (*tabula rasa*) waiting to be filled with knowledge. In a world in which most people believed that an individual’s intelligence, personality, and fate were

heavily determined by their ancestry, Locke's emphasis on environment and education in shaping people was radical.

The Philosophes

In the 18th century, a new group of thinkers and writers who came to be called the *philosophes* explored social, political, and economic theories in new ways. In doing so, they popularized concepts that they felt followed rationally upon those of the scientific thinkers of the 17th century. Taking their name from the French word *philosophe* ("philosopher"), these writers included Thomas Jefferson and Benjamin Franklin from America, Adam Smith from Scotland, and several French thinkers.

Of particular importance to writers of the new constitutions in France and America in the 18th and 19th centuries were the ideas of Baron Montesquieu. His famous work *The Spirit of Laws* (1748) praised the British government's use of checks on power because it had a Parliament. Montesquieu thus influenced the American system, which adopted his ideas by separating its executive branch (the president) from its legislative branch (Congress) and both from its third branch (the federal judiciary).

Francois-Marie Arouet, pen name Voltaire, is perhaps best known for his social satire *Candide* (1762). He was famous during his lifetime for his wit and for his advocacy of civil liberties. Exiled for three years due to a conflict with a member of the French aristocracy, Voltaire lived in England long enough to develop an appreciation for its constitutional monarchy and a regard for civil rights. He brought these ideas back to France, where he campaigned for religious liberty and judicial reform. His correspondence with heads of state (such as Catherine the Great of Russia and Frederick the Great of Prussia) and his extensive writings, including articles in Diderot's *Encyclopedia*, are still quoted today. His idea of religious liberty influenced the U.S. Constitution.

A contemporary of Voltaire was the writer **Jean-Jacques Rousseau**, who expanded on the idea of the social contract as it had passed down through the work of Hobbes and Locke. One of Rousseau's early works was *Emile, or On Education* (1762) in which he laid out his ideas on child-rearing and education. A later work, *The Social Contract* (1762), presented the concept of the General Will of a population and the obligation of a sovereign to carry out that General Will. An optimist who believed that society could improve, Rousseau inspired many revolutionaries of the late 18th century.

Adam Smith

One of the most influential thinkers of the Enlightenment was **Adam Smith**. In his book *The Wealth of Nations* (1776), Smith responded to mercantilism by calling for freer trade. While Smith did support some government regulations and saw the benefits of taxes, he generally advocated for **laissez-faire**, a French phrase for "leave alone." This approach meant that governments should reduce their intervention in economic decisions. Smith believed that if businesses and consumers were allowed to make choices in their own interests, the "invisible hand" of the market would guide them to make choices beneficial for society. His ideas provided a foundation for **capitalism**, an economic system in which the means of production, such as factories and natural resources, are privately owned and are operated for profit.

Deism

The Enlightenment's emphasis on reason led some thinkers to reexamine the relationship of humans to God. Some adopted **Deism**, the belief that a divinity simply set natural laws in motion. Deists compared the divinity to a watchmaker who makes a watch but does not interfere in its day-to-day workings. Deists believed these laws could be best understood through scientific inquiry rather than study of the Bible. Despite their unorthodox ideas, many Deists viewed regular church attendance as an important social obligation and a way people received moral guidance.

Thomas Paine, never one to shrink from conflict, was militant in his defense of Deism in the book *The Age of Reason* (1794). Paine's previous work, *Common Sense* (1776), made him popular in America for advocating liberty from Britain, but his anti-church writings damaged much of his popularity.

European Intellectual Life, 1250–1789

Period	Representative Thinkers	Characteristics
Medieval Scholasticism	St. Thomas Aquinas (1225–1274)	Used reason to defend faith; argued through writing and debating; relied heavily on Aristotle; used little experimentation
Renaissance Humanism	Erasmus (1466–1536); Mirandola (1463–1494)	Wrote practical books, such as Machiavelli's <i>The Prince</i> ; emphasized human achievements; focused on secularism and the individual
Scientific Revolution and Enlightenment	Francis Bacon (1561–1626); Isaac Newton (1642–1727); Thomas Hobbes (1588–1679); John Locke (1632–1704); French philosophes	Emphasized use of empirical data; believed in natural rights, progress, and reason; wanted new constitutions; supported religious toleration; wrote for the reading public

The Age of New Ideas Continues

In Europe and America, Enlightenment thinkers reacted to the social ills caused by increasing urbanization and industrialization. Poverty in the cities increased. Poor workers lived in slums without proper sanitation and without political representation. Various writers proposed solutions to the observable problems. Some wanted more government regulations and programs, and many Christians called for greater private charity. But some conservatives blamed the poor themselves and called on them to change. **Conservatism** is a belief in traditional institutions, favoring reliance on practical experience over ideological theories, such as that of human perfectability.

Utopian Socialism

The economic and political theory of **socialism** refers to a system of public or direct worker ownership of the means of production such as the mills to make cloth or the machinery and land needed to mine coal. Various branches of socialism developed in the 19th century, providing alternative visions of the social and economic future. Those who felt that society could be channeled in positive directions by setting up ideal communities were often called utopian socialists:

- Henri de Saint-Simon, of France, believed that scientists and engineers, working together with businesses, could operate clean, efficient, beautiful places to work that produced things useful to society. He also advocated for public works that would provide employment. He proposed building the Suez Canal in Egypt, a project that the French government later undertook and which opened in 1869.
- Charles Fourier identified some 810 passions that, when encouraged, would make work more enjoyable and workers less tired. Like other utopian socialists, Fourier believed that a fundamental principle of utopia was harmonious living in communities rather than the class struggle that was basic to the thinking of Karl Marx.

- Robert Owen was born in Great Britain. He established intentional communities—small societies governed by the principles of utopian socialism—in New Lanark, Scotland, and New Harmony, Indiana. He believed in education for children who worked, communal ownership of property, and community rules to govern work, education, and leisure time.

In the later 19th century, socialist groups such as the Fabian Society formed in England. The Fabians were gradual socialists: they favored reforming society by parliamentary means. Writers H. G. Wells, Virginia Woolf, and George Bernard Shaw were prominent Fabians. By the mid-20th century, socialist principles would influence most of Western Europe.

Classical Liberalism

Others advocated **classical liberalism**, a belief in natural rights, constitutional government, laissez-faire economics, and reduced spending on armies and established churches. Most classical liberals were professionals, writers, or academics. In Britain they pursued changes in Parliament to reflect changing population patterns so that new industrial cities would have equal parliamentary representation. Classical liberals backed the Reform Bills of 1832, 1867, and 1884, all of which broadened male suffrage.

Feminism

This period saw the emergence of the movement for women's rights and equality based on Enlightenment ideas. The French writer Olympe de Gouges fought for these rights in the era of the French Revolution. In 1789, France had adopted the "Declaration of the Rights of Man and of the (Male) Citizen," a pioneering document in the history of human rights. In 1791, de Gouges published a "Declaration of the Rights of Woman and of the (Female) Citizen," to point out that women's rights had not been addressed.

In 1792 in England, the pioneering writer Mary Wollstonecraft published *A Vindication of the Rights of Women*. In it, she argued that females should receive the same education as males. Universal education, she argued, would prepare women to participate in political and professional society, enabling them to support themselves rather than relying on men. Wollstonecraft's ultimate goal was for women to gain the same rights and abilities as men through the application of reason. Women won the full right to vote in 1928.

In 1848 in Seneca Falls, New York, activists gathered to promote women's rights and suffrage (the ability to vote). In the convention's "Declaration of Sentiments," organizers Lucretia Mott and Elizabeth Cady Stanton declared, "All men and women are created equal." They demanded women deserved the right to vote and hold office, hold property and manage their own incomes, and be the legal guardians of their children. The Seneca Falls Convention was a landmark in the history of the women's rights movement.

Abolitionism

Reform movements to provide rights and equality extended to freedom for enslaved people and the end of serfdom. **Abolitionism**, the movement to end the Atlantic slave trade and free all enslaved people, gained followers in the 18th century. Slave trading was banned earlier than slavery itself. The first states to ban the slave trade were Denmark in 1803, Great Britain in 1807, and the United States in 1808. In most countries, the slave system depended on a steady supply of new enslaved people in order to function. As a result, as soon as the slave trade stopped, slavery began to decline. In most parts of the Americas, slavery was abolished within 30 years of the end of the slave trade. The United States was the rare country where numbers increased after the importation of enslaved people ended. The last country in the Americas to end slavery was Brazil, in 1888.

The End of Serfdom

Serfdom in Europe had been declining as the economy changed from agrarian to industrial. Peasant revolts pushed leaders toward reform. Queen Elizabeth I abolished serfdom in 1574. The French government abolished all feudal rights of the nobility in 1789. Alexander II of Russia abolished serfdom in 1861. The Russian emancipation of 23 million serfs was the largest single emancipation of people in bondage in human history.

Zionism

Yet another “ism” in the late 19th century was the emergence of **Zionism**—the desire of Jews to reestablish an independent homeland where their ancestors had lived in the Middle East. After centuries of battling **anti-Semitism**, hostility toward Jews, and pogroms—violent attacks against Jewish communities—many European Jews had concluded that living in peace and security was not a realistic hope. To be safe, Jews needed to control their own land. Leading the movement was an Austro-Hungarian Jew, **Theodor Herzl**.

Support for Zionism increased after a scandal in France known as the **Dreyfus Affair**. In 1894, Alfred Dreyfus, a military officer who was Jewish, was convicted of treason against the French government. However, the conviction had been based on forged documents by people promoting anti-Semitism. Dreyfus was ultimately pardoned after time in prison, but the case illustrated how widespread anti-Semitism was in France, one of the countries where Jews seemed least oppressed.

Zionists faced many obstacles. The land they wanted was controlled by the Ottoman Empire, and Palestinian Arabs were already living in the region. Both the Ottomans and the Palestinians were predominantly Muslim, which added a religious aspect to the conflict. However, the Zionist movement grew in strength until 1948, when the modern country of Israel was founded.

Vocabulary

- John Locke
- Social contract
- *Tabula Rasa*
- Baron Montesquieu
- Voltaire
- Jean-Jacques Rousseau
- Enlightenment
- Deism
- Liberalism
- Conservatism
- Empiricism
- Nationalism
- Classical liberalism
- Feminism
- Abolitionism
- Zionism
- Theodor Herzl
- Dreyfus Affair
- Adam Smith *The Wealth of Nations*
- Laissez-faire
- Capitalism
- Socialism
- Henri de Saint-Simon

- Charles Fourier
- Robert Owen
- Fabian Society

Topic 5.2: Nationalism and Revolutions

Essential Question: What were the causes and effects of the various revolutions in the period from 1750 to 1900, including influences of the Enlightenment and emerging nationalism?

The age of new ideas led to political and philosophical conflicts. Like the English statesman Edmund Burke, the French thinker Joseph de Maistre was a conservative who went against the tide of Enlightenment thinking. In the view of conservative thinkers such as Burke and Maistre, revolutions were bloody, disruptive, and unlikely to yield positive results. However, try as conservatives might to quell revolutionary change, the desire of common people for constitutional government and democratic practices erupted in revolutions throughout the 19th century. And many nations did, indeed, get a new form of government that responded to the new wave of thinking with its key ideals: progress, reason, and natural law.

The American Revolution

The ideals that inspired the American Revolution had their roots in European Enlightenment philosophy. The economic ideas of the physiocrats also played a part in the American Revolution, providing a defense of free market ideas in opposition to English mercantilism. Additionally, the American colonists had become increasingly independent politically. Colonial legislatures were making decisions usually made by Parliament. Moreover, great distances separated the colonists from Parliament and the king in London. With economic and political desires for independence grew a new social spirit.

Declaration of Independence

On July 4, 1776, the **Declaration of Independence** expressed the philosophy behind the colonists' fight against British rule. In the document, Thomas Jefferson picked up the phrase "unalienable rights" from John Locke. For Jefferson, these rights were to life, liberty, and the pursuit of happiness. In the war that followed, the colonists triumphed in 1783 with crucial help from Britain's long-time enemy, France.

The New Zealand Wars

New Zealand had been occupied by Polynesian people, the Maori, since at least the mid-1200s. In the period between their arrival and the arrival of Europeans the Maori developed a rich culture. The people were divided into individual tribes, or iwi, who sometimes engaged in warfare. After colonization by the British, made official by annexation of New Zealand in 1840, English control over Maori affairs increased, as did pressure for their land. These issues resulted in a series of wars between the Maori and British collectively known as the New Zealand Wars. Though the Maori tribes fought together, developing a sense of Maori nationalism, by 1872, the British had won.

The French Revolution

In France in the 1780s, revolutionary ideals took on their own spin, summarized in the slogan *liberté, égalité, et fraternité* (liberty, equality, and fraternity). These ideas, which struck many people as radical, were popularized throughout Europe in the writings of the *philosophes*.

Economic Woes

However, additional causes led to the French Revolution. France had long spent more than it was taking in, partly to finance a series of wars. Among this spending was the economic aid that France supplied the

Americans in their revolution. To address its financial situation, the French government called a meeting of the Estates-General in spring 1789. Three sectors of society, or estates, made up the Estates-General: the clergy (religious officials), the nobility, and the commoners. However, inequality in voting caused the commoners (who made up 97 percent of French society) to break away and form a new body, the National Assembly.

The Revolution Begins

In the early days of the French Revolution, moderates such as Marquis de Lafayette seemed to be on the point of establishing a constitutional monarchy. The National Assembly began meeting in Paris, but then the King threatened to arrest the leaders. Angry crowds rioted in Paris and elsewhere in France. On July 14, 1789, a crowd in Paris stormed the Bastille, a former prison that symbolized the abuses of the monarchy and the corrupt aristocracy. In the French countryside, peasants rose up against nobles, even burning some manor houses. Some royal officials fled France. The king was forced to accept a new government with a National Assembly in charge.

The date July 14, 1789, became French Independence Day. The most permanent changes were enacted early in the Revolution—the abolition of feudalism and the adoption of the Declaration of the Rights of Man, a statement declaring basic human rights. Louis XVI and the nobility refused to accept the limited monarchy, which led to dissatisfaction among radical groups such as the Jacobins and inspired the establishment of the First French Republic in 1792. The Reign of Terror, a period during which the government executed thousands of opponents of the revolution, including the king and queen, sprang from the Jacobins. After a period of turmoil and war, the brilliant general Napoleon Bonaparte became emperor of France in 1804.

The Haitian Revolution

At the end of the 18th century, revolutionary forces were also at work in the rich French sugar and coffee colony of **Haiti** on the western third of the island of St. Domingue, also known as Hispaniola. Enslaved Africans began the rebellion by killing their masters and burning their homes. They were soon joined by **Maroons**, individuals who had already escaped slavery in Haiti. The examples of the recent American and French revolutions led formerly enslaved **Toussaint L'Ouverture** to join the revolts in 1791 and then to lead a general rebellion against slavery. Besides being well-read in Enlightenment thought, L'Ouverture proved to be a capable general. His army of enslaved Africans and Maroons established an independent government and played the French, Spanish, and British against each other.

Haiti

In 1801, after taking control of the territory that would become the independent country of Haiti, L'Ouverture produced a constitution that granted equality and citizenship to all residents. He also declared himself governor for life. Haiti next enacted land reform: plantations were divided up, with the lands being distributed among formerly enslaved and free black people.

L'Ouverture worked with the French but they betrayed and imprisoned him. He died in France in 1803. But he had cemented the abolition of slavery in Haiti, which he set on the road to independence from France.

In 1804, L'Ouverture's successor, Jean-Jacques Dessalines, orchestrated a Haitian declaration of permanent independence. Thus, Haiti became the first country in Latin America to win its independence and the first black-led country in the Western Hemisphere. It was also the only country to become permanently independent as a result of a slave uprising.

Comparing the Haitian and French Revolutions

Both the Haitian and French revolutions grew out of the Enlightenment's insistence that men had natural rights as citizens, and that legal restraints were limiting the freedom of people by forcing them into various estates (social classes). However, in the case of the Haitians, the restraints were more severe—the rebellion was led by people who had no rights at all.

Creole Revolutions in Latin America

On the Latin American mainland, revolutionary ideals were taken up by creoles. Born of European ancestry in the Americas, the creoles were well educated and aware of the ideas behind the revolutions in North America and France. They considered themselves superior to the mestizos, who were born of European and Indian parents. Colonists who were born in Spain or Portugal, known as **peninsulares**, felt superior to everyone. At the bottom of the social ladder were the enslaved Africans, the indigenous population, and **mulattoes**, those of African and either European or indigenous ancestry. (Some of these social distinctions remain today.)

There were many reasons for discontent in the colonies, each of which encouraged some people to desire independence from Spain:

- Many creoles were wealthy owners of estates, mines, or businesses. They opposed Spain's mercantilism, which required colonists to buy manufactured goods only from Spain and sell products only to Spain.
- Creoles wanted more political power. They resented that Spain tended to give important government jobs in the colonies to peninsulares.
- Mestizos wanted political power and a share of the wealth of the colonies. Many had jobs in the towns or worked in the mines or on the estates of the peninsulares and creoles.

The Bolívar Revolutions

In many parts of South America, the desire for independence from Spain grew among the creole class. Fearing the masses, the creoles refused the support of mestizos, indigenous people, and mulattos (people of mixed African and European heritage). The creoles had seen the result in Haiti of a slave uprising as well as the excesses of the French Revolution during the Reign of Terror. Some creoles, such as **Simón Bolívar**, continued to push for Enlightenment ideals in Latin America. He promoted independence of areas that became Venezuela, Colombia, Ecuador, and Peru.

Bolívar was born in Venezuela in 1783 to a family whose ancestors had been village aristocrats in Spain. The family had grown very wealthy in Venezuela, and Bolívar had access to this wealth for his revolutionary causes. After considerable military success in Latin America fighting the Spanish, his forces achieved the formation of a large area that he called Gran Colombia. He hoped it would become a federation similar to the United States, one based on Enlightenment ideals. He described himself as a liberal who believed in a free market and the abolition of slavery. Bolívar's goals and concerns for Latin America are outlined in his "Jamaica Letter" (1815): "Generous souls always interest themselves in the fate of a people who strive to recover the rights to which the Creator and Nature have entitled them, and one must be wedded to error and passion not to harbor this noble sentiment."

The new nations of Latin America suffered from the long wars of independence. Armies loyal to their generals led to the rise of the **caudillos**—strong, local leaders with regional power bases. These men intervened in national politics to make or break governments. Sometimes the caudillos defended the interests of the regional elites and sometimes of the indigenous population and the peasants, but in general they disregarded representative forms of government and the rule of law.

Results of the Creole Revolutions

Although the constitutions of the newly independent countries in Latin America legally ended slavery and some social distinctions, governments were often conservative. The first constitution of Peru, for example, forbade voting by those who could not read or write in Spanish, which effectively denied most indigenous people the vote until the constitution was changed in 1860. The creoles formed powerful and conservative upper class, as they had before the wars of colonial independence.

Women gained little from the revolutions in Latin America. They were still unable to vote or enter into contracts. Most women received little education until late in the nineteenth century, and most remained submissive to men. One notable exception was Manuela Sáenz (1797–1856), who was the lover of Simón Bolívar. She actively participated in fighting alongside Bolívar, for example, in 1822 in a battle near Quito, Ecuador. An excellent rider as well as courageous fighter, she rose to the rank of colonel. On one occasion, she saved Bolívar's life, for which she received the nickname "Liberator of the Liberator."

Later Challenges to Spanish Colonialism

Spain's grip on parts of its empire lasted throughout the 19th century. In the Caribbean, Puerto Rico and Cuba were among its final colonial holdings. Both islands saw uprisings against Spanish rule beginning in the year 1868.

While many individuals and organizations contributed to the spirit of revolution in Puerto Rico, the role of **Lola Rodríguez de Tió** was unique. A recognized poet during an era of little educational opportunity for women, Rodríguez de Tió became famous for her eloquent critiques of Spain's exploitive rule over Puerto Rico. Her home became a meeting place for political thinkers and revolutionaries. At such meetings, she began to read lyrics to a revolutionary song, "La Borinqueña," which encouraged her fellow Puerto Ricans, "Awake from your sleep, for it's time to fight!"

The 1868 uprising forced Rodríguez de Tió into exile in Venezuela. She was allowed to return in 1885, but her critical writings again ended in exile—this time in Cuba. Once there, she wrote and worked for Cuban independence, earning her exile from there, too, to New York. She returned to Cuba in 1899 and spent her remaining years as a campaigner for social justice there.

Revolt in the Philippines

The Philippines, too, remained a Spanish colony throughout the 19th century. Educational opportunities, even for well-to-do Filipinos, were limited and controlled by religious authorities. As a result, many young men (often creoles and mestizos) from wealthy families traveled to Europe, especially Madrid and Barcelona, to attend universities. An atmosphere of nationalist fervor and republicanism, inspired by Enlightenment thinking, existed in 1880s Europe, and these Filipino students embraced it.

José Rizal became the most prominent of these young agitators, all of whom contributed to magazines, pamphlets, and other publications advocating for greater autonomy for the Philippines. Called the Propaganda Movement, it did not call for revolution or independence. But Spanish authorities viewed its members with suspicion. Rizal's arrest in 1892 and execution in 1896 shocked Filipinos and helped spur the first nationalist movement with the organization and strength to truly challenge Spanish rule. A serious military upheaval, the Philippine Revolution, began in 1896.

Nationalism and Unification in Europe

As nationalism spread beyond Europe, people often created an identity under one government where none had existed before. Nationalism increased in France and in other areas of Europe and in the Americas. More than in the past, people felt a common bond with others who spoke their language, shared their history, and followed their customs. Nationalism thrived in France and beyond its borders in areas conquered by Napoleon, particularly those in the Germanic areas of the declining Holy Roman Empire. Nationalism was a unifying force that not only threatened large empires, but it also drove efforts to unite people who shared a culture into one political state.

Italian Unification

Count di Cavour, the prime minister of Piedmont-Sardinia, led the drive to unite the entire Italian Peninsula under the only native dynasty, the House of Savoy. At the time, the region was divided among a patchwork of kingdoms and city-states, and most people spoke regional languages rather than Italian. Cavour himself spoke French better than he spoke Italian. Like other classical liberals, he believed in natural rights, progress, and constitutional monarchy. But he also believed in the practical politics of reality, which came to be called **realpolitik**. Thus, he did not hesitate to advance the cause of Italian unity through manipulation. In 1858, he maneuvered Napoleon III of France into a war with Austria, hoping to weaken Austrian influence on the Italian Peninsula. Napoleon III backed out of the war after winning two important battles, partly because he feared the wrath of the Pope, who did not want his Papal States to be controlled by a central Italian government.

Nevertheless, it was too late to stop the revolutionary fervor, and soon several areas voted by plebiscite, or popular referendum, to join Piedmont (the Kingdom of Sardinia). To aid the unification effort, Cavour adopted the radical romantic revolutionary philosophy of Giuseppe Mazzini, who had been agitating for Italian resurgence (**Risorgimento**) since early in the nineteenth century. Cavour also allied with the Red Shirts military force led by Giuseppe Garibaldi, which was fighting farther south in the Kingdom of Naples.

German Unification

In Germany, nationalist movements had already strengthened as a result of opposition to French occupation of German states under Napoleon Bonaparte. Following the Congress of Vienna, which settled the Napoleonic Wars in 1815, revolutions occurred in a number of European states, including Prussia and Austria. The revolutions of 1848 were the result of both nationalism (especially a desire for independence) and liberalism (a desire for representation under constitutions that recognized civil liberties).

Prussian leader Otto von Bismarck, who like Cavour favored *realpolitik*, used nationalist feelings to engineer three wars to bring about German unification. Bismarck manipulated Austria into participating in two wars, the first with Prussia against Denmark (1864) and the second between Prussia and Austria (Seven Weeks' War of 1866). After winning both wars, Bismarck manipulated France into declaring war against Prussia. His armies beat the French soundly in the Franco-Prussian War (1870). In each of these three wars, Prussia gained territory. In 1871, Bismarck founded the new German Empire, made up of many territories gained from the wars, including Alsace-Lorraine, an area long part of France on the border between France and the new Germany.

Global Consequences

By 1871, two new powers, Italy and Germany, were on the international stage in an environment of competing alliances. Balance of power would be achieved briefly through these alliances, but extreme nationalism would lead to World War I.

Unification did not solve all Italian troubles. Poverty in Italy, more in the south than in the north, led to considerable emigration in the late nineteenth century—particularly to the United States and to Argentina,

where the constitution of 1853 specifically encouraged immigration, the movement of people into the country from other countries.

Balkan Nationalism

The Ottoman Empire had been the dominant force in southeastern Europe for centuries. But for many reasons, the 17th century saw the beginning of its long, slow decline. A failed attempt to conquer Vienna in 1683 signaled the beginning of successful efforts by Austria and Russia to roll back Ottoman dominance in the Balkans. It was largely due to the increasing involvement and contact with Western European ideas and powers that Balkan nationalism developed.

In Greece, which by 1800 had been under Ottoman control for more than 350 years, increased contact with Western ideas meant exposure to Enlightenment principles. It also meant exposure to the reverence with which Greece and its ancient culture were viewed across Europe. Together, these developments helped reawaken Greek cultural pride and stoke the fires of Greek nationalism. A protracted civil war against Ottoman forces brought some success. However, it took the intervention of a British, French, and Russian fleet, which destroyed an Ottoman fleet in 1827, to help assure Greek independence.

Events in other Balkan regions, such as Serbia, Bulgaria, and Romania, followed a similar, but by no means identical, course. The waning of Ottoman control led to greater freedom and an influx of new ideas, including nationalism. People began to rally around important cultural markers, such as language, folk traditions, shared history, and religion. Later, outside powers, such as Russia or Austria, aided in achieving independence.

Ottoman Nationalism

The 1870s and 1880s saw the development in the Ottoman state of **Ottomanism**—a movement that aimed to create a more modern, unified state. Officials sought to do this by minimizing the ethnic, linguistic, and religious differences across the empire. Taking control of local schools and mandating a standard curriculum was a major part of this drive. But the effects of nationalism were not limited to Balkan territories and Ottoman officials. Ethnic and religious groups within the Ottoman Empire had nationalist urges of their own, and they viewed Ottomanism with suspicion. Ironically, this attempt to create a more unified state actually served to highlight and intensify subject people's feelings of difference and promote their desire for independence.

The Future of Nationalism

While nationalism continues to shape how people view themselves and their political allegiances, some signs suggest that nationalism might be starting to decline. In Europe, many countries have agreed to use the same currency, to allow people to travel freely across borders, and to coordinate public policies. These changes might reflect a shift away from nationalism and toward a larger political grouping. Like city-states and empires, nations might someday give way to other forms of political organization.

Key Terms by Theme

GOVERNMENT: American Revolution

Declaration of Independence

GOVERNMENT: French Revolution

Philosophes, Declaration of the Rights of Man, Reign of Terror

CULTURE: France

Liberté, égalité, et fraternité

GOVERNMENT: Haitian Revolution

Haiti, Toussaint L'Ouverture

GOVERNMENT: Bolívar Revolutions

Simón Bolívar

GOVERNMENT: Puerto Rico

Lola Rodríguez de Tió

GOVERNMENT: Philippines

Propaganda Movement

GOVERNMENT: Italian Unification

Realpolitik, Giuseppe Mazzini, Risorgimento, Giuseppe Garibaldi

GOVERNMENT: German Unification

Otto von Bismarck

CULTURE: Italy

Immigration

GOVERNMENT: Balkans

Ottomanism

SOCIETY: Classes

Maroons, mestizos, peninsulares, mulattoes

SOCIETY: Europe

Bastille, Italian Peninsula

5.3

Topic 5.3: Industrial Revolution Begins

Essential Question: What factors contributed to and characterized industrialization in the period from 1750 to 1900?

In addition to new ideas, new technologies were reshaping societies. These technologies led to a dramatic change in society and economies. This change was so dramatic that it is called the **Industrial Revolution**. The rigid structure of early factory work described by Adam Smith, Scottish economist and philosopher, is one of the most enduring images of the Industrial Revolution. **Industrialization**, the increased mechanization of production, and the social changes that accompanied this shift, had their roots in several influences. Among these were the Columbian Exchange and rise of maritime trading empires, increased agricultural productivity, and greater individual accumulation of capital. As the Industrial Revolution spread from Great Britain to Europe and North America, and then to the world, it reshaped society, increasing world population, shifting people from farm to city, and expanding the production and consumption of goods.

Agricultural Improvements

Just before the Industrial Revolution, in the early 1700s, an **agricultural revolution** resulted in increased productivity. **Crop rotation** (rotating different crops in and out of a field each year) and the **seed drill** (a device that efficiently places seeds in a designated spot in the ground) both increased food production. Also, the introduction of the potato from South America contributed more calories to people's diets. As nations industrialized, their populations grew because more food was available to more people. And because of improved medical care, infant mortality rates declined and people lived longer. With these demographic changes, more people were available to work in factories and to provide a market for manufactured goods.

Preindustrial Societies

During the early 18th century, most British families lived in rural areas, grew most of their food, and made most of their clothes. For centuries, wool and flax had been raised domestically, and people spun fabrics they needed.

However, one result of the commercial revolution and the establishment of maritime empires (see Topic 4.5) was that Indian cotton became available in Britain, and before long it was in high demand. Wool and flax could not be produced quickly enough or in a large enough quantity to compete with cotton imports. To compete with Indian cotton, investors in Britain began to build their nation's own cotton cloth industry. Using imported raw cotton produced by slave labor in the Americas, the British developed the **cottage industry** system, also known as the putting-out system, in which merchants provided raw cotton to women who spun it into finished cloth in their own homes.

Home spinning was hard work and pay was low, but cottage industries gave women weavers some independence. While working in their own homes, they were also close to children. But cottage industry production was slow. Investors demanded faster production, spurring the development of technologies and machinery that turned out cloth in more efficient ways.

Growth of Technology

By the mid-eighteenth century, the **spinning jenny** and the **water frame** reduced the time needed to spin yarn and weave cloth. The spinning jenny, invented by James Hargreaves in the 1760s, allowed a weaver to spin more than one thread at a time. The water frame, patented by Richard Arkwright in 1769, used waterpower to

drive the spinning wheel. The water frame was more efficient than a single person's labor, and this mechanization doomed the household textile cottage industry, as textile production was moved to factories big enough to house these bulky machines. Arkwright was thus considered the father of the factory system.

Interchangeable Parts

In 1798, inventor Eli Whitney created a system of **interchangeable parts** for manufacturing firearms for the U.S. military. In Whitney's system, if a particular component of a machine were to break, the broken component could easily be replaced with a new, identical part. Entrepreneurs adapted this method of making firearms to the manufacture of other products. The system of interchangeable parts was a pivotal contribution to industrial technology.

Whitney's system directly led to the **division of labor**. Factory owners no longer had to rely on skilled laborers to craft every component of a product. Instead, with **specialization of labor**, each worker could focus on one type of task. For example, one worker might cast a part, and then another worker would install the part on the finished product. In the early 20th century, Henry Ford expanded the concept of the division of labor, developing the moving assembly line to manufacture his Model T automobiles.

Britain's Industrial Advantages

Britain had many environmental and geographic advantages that made it a leader in industrialization. Located on the Atlantic Ocean with its many seaways, the country was well placed to import raw materials and export finished goods.

Mineral Resources

Britain also had the geographic luck of being located atop immense coal deposits. Coal was vital to industrialization because when burned it could power the steam engine. The burning of this fossil fuel, an energy source derived from plant and animal remains, was also essential in the process of separating iron from its ore. Iron production (and later steel production) allowed the building of larger bridges, taller buildings, and stronger ships. Coal mining became the major industry of northern and western Britain, including South Wales, Yorkshire, and Lancashire. When the United States industrialized, coal-mining areas developed in West Virginia, Pennsylvania, and Kentucky.

Resources from the Colonies

As a colonizing power, Britain also had access to resources available in its colonies, including timber for ships. Largely because of the wealth they accumulated during the trans-Atlantic slave trade, enough British capitalists had excess **capital** (money available to invest in businesses). Without this capital, private entrepreneurs could not have created new commercial ventures.

Abundant Rivers

Britain, the northeastern United States, and other regions also had a natural network of rivers supplemented by publicly funded canals and harbors. These water routes made transport of raw materials and finished products inexpensive.

Strong Fleets

Britain also had the world's strongest fleet of ships, including naval ships for defense and commercial ships for trade. These ships brought agricultural products to Britain to be used to make finished products for consumers.

Protection of Private Property

A vital factor that aided industrialization in Britain was the legal protection of private property. Entrepreneurs needed the assurance that the business they created and built up would not be taken away, either by other businesspeople or by the government. Not all nations offered these legal guarantees.

Growing Population and Urbanization

The increases in agricultural production caused two shifts in society. As farmers grew more food, they could support more people. As they grew it more efficiently, society needed a smaller percentage of the population working in agriculture.

This growing population in rural areas did not remain there. Migration was sometimes the best of bad options. English towns had traditionally allowed farmers to cultivate land or tend sheep on government property known as “the commons.” However, this custom ended with the **enclosure movement** as the government fenced off the commons to give exclusive use of it to people who paid for the privilege or who purchased the land. Many farmers became landless and destitute. The enclosure movement was thus instrumental in a wave of demographic change—forcing small farmers to move from rural areas to urban areas such as **Manchester** and **Liverpool**. The people who moved then became the workforce for the new and growing industries.

Key Terms by Theme

TECHNOLOGY: Textiles

Spinning jenny, water frame, James Hargreaves, Richard Arkwright, factory system

TECHNOLOGY: Agriculture

Agricultural revolution, crop rotation, seed drill

ECONOMY: Manufacturing

Industrial Revolution, industrialization, cottage industry, Eli Whitney, interchangeable parts, division of labor, specialization of labor, assembly line, enclosure movement, capital

ENVIRONMENT: Britain

Seaways, raw materials, Manchester, Liverpool

Topic 5.4: Industrialization Spreads

Essential Question: How did different types and locations of production develop and change over time?

Although the Industrial Revolution began in Britain, it soon spread elsewhere. The British cottage industry system for the production of cotton, in which merchants provided raw cotton to be spun into cloth in workers' homes, was supplanted by the industrialization of cotton manufacture in factories. Cotton became an increasingly valuable commodity in the world economy as industrialized Britain, with higher productivity, was able to replace Indian and Middle Eastern goods. After Britain industrialized, Belgium and then France and Germany followed, and eventually Russia and Japan became industrialized. These countries possessed many of the characteristics that allowed Britain to industrialize, including capital, natural resources, and water transportation.

Spread of Industrialization

After Britain industrialized, Belgium, and then France and Germany followed. Like Britain, these countries possessed capital, natural resources, and water transportation. The United States, Japan, and Russia also transformed as industrialization spread.

France and Germany

Despite some favorable factors for industrialization, France had sparsely populated urban centers, which limited the amount of labor available for factories. Also, the French Revolution (1789–1799) and subsequent wars involving France and its neighbors consumed both the attention and the capital of France's elites. These factors delayed the Industrial Revolution in France.

Germany was politically fragmented into numerous small states, which delayed its industrialization. However, once Germany unified in 1871, it quickly became a leading producer of steel and coal.

The United States

The United States began its industrial revolution in the 19th century. By 1900, the United States was a leading industrial force in the world. **Human capital** (the workforce) was a key factor in U.S. success. Political upheaval and widespread poverty brought a large number of immigrants to the United States from Europe and East Asia. These immigrants, as well as migrants from rural areas in the United States, provided the labor force to work in the factories.

Russia

Russia also began to industrialize, focusing particularly on railroads and exports. By 1900, Russia had more than 36,000 miles of railroad connecting its commercial and industrial areas. The **Trans-Siberian Railroad** stretched from Moscow to the Pacific Ocean, allowing Russia to trade easily with countries in East Asia, such as China and Japan. The Russian coal, iron, and steel industries developed with the railroad, mostly in the 1890s. By 1900, Russia had become the fourth largest producer of steel in the world. However, the economy remained overwhelmingly agricultural until after the Communists seized power in 1917.

Japan

The first country in Asia to industrialize was the one that had the least contact with Europe since the 17th century: Japan. In the mid-19th century, Japan went through a process of **defensive modernization**. That is, it

consciously adapted technology and institutions developed in Europe and the United States in order protect its traditional culture. By learning from the West, Japan built up its military and economic strength so it could maintain its own domestic traditions. In the last four decades of the 19th century, Japan emerged as a leading world power. For more details on Japan, see Topic 5.6.

Shifts in Manufacturing

While Middle Eastern and Asian countries continued to produce manufactured goods, these regions' share in global manufacturing declined.

Shipbuilding in India and Southeast Asia

Shipbuilding initially saw a resurgence in India at the end of the 17th century, largely due to the political alliances formed between India and western countries. However, Indian shipbuilding ultimately suffered as a result of British officials' mismanagement of resources and ineffective leadership during the period of British colonization in the late 17th and 18th centuries. In 1830, Britain designated ships of the British East India Company as the Indian Navy. The Indian Navy was disbanded by 1863, however, when Britain's Royal Navy took complete control of the Indian Ocean.

Iron Works in India

British colonial rule in India also affected the country's mineral production. During the period of **company rule**—British East India Company control over parts of the Indian subcontinent from 1757 to 1858—steep British tariffs led to the decline of India's ability to mine and work metals. The British also began to close mines completely, especially after the Rebellion of 1857, because they perceived that the mines were being used to extract lead for ammunition.

The ongoing fear of another uprising led to the Arms Act of 1878, which restricted not only access to minerals, but also to the subsequent production of firearms. British colonizers limited India's ability to mine and work metals in areas such as the mineral-rich state of Rajasthan. By the early 19th century, most of the mines in Rajasthan were abandoned and the mining industry was extinct.

Even though British colonial rule ended in 1948, mining and metalworking remained practically nonexistent in India until the early 20th century. Lack of technological innovation after so many years of abandoned mines led to a relatively crude, labor-intensive method of mining, which created the false impression that India's mineral resources were inaccessible.

Textile Production in India and Egypt

India and Egypt were both among the first to engage in the production and trade of textiles. Just as it stifled the production of ships and iron, British colonization also affected textile production in India. As the textile industry flourished in India, it undermined the British textile mills in Britain, specifically in Lancaster. The owners of the Lancaster textile mills pressured the British government in India to impose an “equalizing” five percent tax on all textiles produced at the more than 80 mills operating in Bombay, thus undermining their profitability.

Egypt's textile industry, too, experienced difficulties as a result of Europe's worldwide economic reach. In the 18th century, Egypt exported carpets, silks, and other textiles to Europe. By the mid-19th century, however, the huge growth in European textile production had changed matters. Egypt had lost not only its export market in textiles, but much of its domestic market as well.

Key Terms by Theme

ECONOMY: Railroads

Trans-Siberian Railroad

ECONOMY: Manufacturing

Human capital, company rule

Topic 5.5: Technology in the Industrial Age

Essential Question: How did technology shape economic production during the period from 1750 to 1900?

As the Industrial Revolution spread, it became increasingly important economically. Although he later came to be troubled by the role of technology, Ralph Waldo Emerson initially saw the innovations of the industrial age as a delightful way to mold nature in the service of humankind. The steam engine and then the internal combustion engine, powering railroads, ships, and factories, increased access to resources and increased the distribution of goods those resources helped produce.

The next technological wave, known as the **second industrial revolution**, came in the late 19th and early 20th centuries and involved chemicals, steel, precision machinery, and electronics. Electrification lit the streets, and the telephone and radio made world-wide, instantaneous communication a reality.

The Coal Revolution

The new machinery of the Industrial Revolution benefited from a new power source, one more mobile than the streams that had powered the first factories with their water power. The version of the **steam engine** made by **James Watt** in 1765 provided an inexpensive way to harness **coal** power to create steam, which in turn generated energy for machinery in textile factories. Within 50 years, steam was producing power for steam powered trains.

Water Transportation

Steamships revolutionized sailing. The use of coal made energy production mobile and dependable. Instead of being fixed in one place as a river was, coal-powered steam engines could be built anywhere and could be used on ships and trains. Further, unlike the wind, engines could be turned on by people when needed and turned off when not. As a result, ocean-going ships and boats on lakes were no longer dependent on winds for power. On rivers, steam-powered ships were able to travel quickly upstream on rivers, up to five miles per hour, instead of having to sail up or be towed by people and animals along the shore. Over time, steam-powered ships replaced sailing ships in worldwide travel. As a result, **coaling stations**, especially at critical points on trade routes, such as Cape Colony in South Africa and various islands in the Pacific, became important refueling points.

Iron

In addition to powering steam engines, coal made possible the mass production of iron. Throughout the 1700s and into the early 1800s, improved processes helped iron producers increase outputs. One of these was the introduction of **coke**, a refined form of coal that made possible the use of much larger iron producing furnaces. Cast iron was strong but brittle, making it difficult to stretch and shape. But in 1784, Englishman Henry Cort patented the process for making the less strong but much more workable wrought iron. Each was a valuable component in transportation and industry, but greater improvements were still to come.

A Second Industrial Revolution

The United States, Great Britain, and Germany were key players in what is known as the second industrial revolution, which occurred in the late 19th and early 20th centuries. The innovations of the first industrial revolution were in textiles, steam power, and iron. The developments of the second industrial revolution were in steel, chemicals, precision machinery, and electronics.

Steel Production

The mass production of **steel**, an alloy of iron and carbon, became possible with the introduction of the **Bessemer Process** in 1856. This process involved blasting the molten metal with air as a means of removing impurities as well as helping keep the metal from solidifying. Over the years, Bessemer's innovation was refined and improved, allowing steel to become the strong and versatile backbone of the industrial society.

Oil

In the mid-1800s, the first commercial oil wells were drilled, tapping into a vast new resource of energy. Petroleum, like coal, is a fossil fuel, an energy source derived from plant and animal remains. At first, the most important product from petroleum was kerosene, which was used for lighting and heaters. In 1847, inventors developed chemical techniques to extract kerosene from petroleum.

These techniques led to other developments, such as precision machinery and the internal combustion engine, which in turn led to automobile and airplane technologies. When automobiles were introduced in the early 1900s, gasoline as fuel became a more important product from petroleum than kerosene.

Electricity

The harnessing of electrical power had to wait for the development of an effective electrical generator. In 1882 in London, the first public power station began production. Electrification led to street lighting and electric street trains in the 1890s.

Communications

The development of electricity and electronics over the years helped lead to important developments in communication technology. Inventors had been working with the idea of transmitting sound by electrical means since the early 19th century. Finally, a patent for the telephone was issued to **Alexander Graham Bell** in 1876. Early phone systems were notoriously low in quality, but Thomas Edison's 1886 design of a refined voice transmitter made telephone use more practical.

Radio developed after the experiments of Italian physicist **Guglielmo Marconi**. In 1901, he was able to send and receive a radio signal across the Atlantic Ocean. After further refinements and inventions, radio became a form of popular mass media with an impact unlike any previously seen.

Global Trade and Migration

Railroads, steamships, and a new invention called the telegraph made exploration, development, and communication possible. The telegraph allowed immediate communication. The construction of railroads, including the **Transcontinental Railroad** that connected the Atlantic and Pacific oceans when it was completed in 1869, facilitated U.S. industrial growth. Like the canals, the railroads were heavily subsidized by public funds. The vast natural resources of the United States (timber, coal, iron, and oil, for example) and the ability to transport them efficiently contributed to the development of the United States as an industrial nation.

The desire for **capital**, money available to invest in a business, was a driving force domestically and abroad. Products of industrialization, such as the railroad, steamship, and the telegraph, directly linked farmers, miners, manufacturers, customers, and investors globally for the first time in history.

With the development of the railroad and steamships, such countries as Great Britain, Germany, and the United States intensified industrialization, increasing the need for resources. Industrialized countries sought to protect their access to resources and markets by establishing colonies.

Whereas earlier trade and migration often centered on coastal cities, railroads, steamships, and the telegraph also opened up to exploration and development the interior regions around the globe. Access to these areas increased trade and migration.

Key Terms by Theme

ENVIRONMENT: Resources

Coal, coaling stations

ECONOMY: Industry

Steam engine, James Watt, steel, oil, capital

SOCIETY

Second industrial revolution

TECHNOLOGY: Transportation and Communication

Alexander Graham Bell, Guglielmo Marconi, Transcontinental Railroad

Topic 5.6: Industrialization: Government's Role

Essential Question: What economic strategies did different states and empires adopt, and what were the causes and effects of those strategies?

As Western domination and technology spread, they met with varying degrees of acceptance in different nations. Each country experienced competing pressures between preservation of traditional values and modernization. Egypt and some other countries early adopted policies that encouraged the use of industrialized innovations, such as the steam engine, to boost textile productivity. Others, such as China, had weakened central governments under European ascendancy that were unable to promote industrialization effectively.

The Ottoman Empire

The Ottoman Empire, although bordering Europe, had not adopted Western technology or Enlightenment ideas. Moreover, rampant corruption led to rapid decline, and ethnic nationalism among the empire's diverse population led to widespread unrest. The empire earned the nickname "the sick man of Europe." Europeans, particularly Russians, saw opportunities to expand their own empires at the expense of the weakening Ottomans. Though they feared the results of a power vacuum from a total collapse of the Ottoman Empire, they dismantled it after World War I. A smaller nation-state, the Republic of Turkey, and several independent countries replaced the former empire.

China

China suffered two great humiliations at the hands of Europeans in the 19th century: the Opium War and the split into "spheres of influence." In the 20th century, China shook off foreign domination and briefly became a republic. However, its traumatic 19th century left a central government too weak to promote industrialization effectively for decades. (See Topic 6.5.)

Japan

In Japan, in contrast, the central government grew stronger in its struggle to maintain independence and territorial integrity in the face of Western challenges. As the quote at the beginning of this chapter from Emperor Meiji's letter to President Grant indicates, Japan actively sought Western innovations that it felt would help make it the equal of Western countries.

Ottoman Industrialization

Suffering from problems of overexpansion and failure to modernize, the Ottoman Empire underwent palace coups, declining trade, and weakening leadership in the 1800s. The empire no longer covered the grand areas of Suleiman the Magnificent, who had taken his army to the gates of Vienna in 1529.

The Rise of Muhammad Ali

One part of the Ottoman Empire where the sultan ruled in name but had little power was Egypt. In fact, the **Mamluks**, formerly enslaved Turks who formed a military class, had ruled there for some 600 years. In 1801, the sultan sent an Ottoman army to retake Egypt. In the conflict with the Mamluks, an Albanian Ottoman officer, **Muhammad Ali**, rose to prominence, and local leaders selected him to be the new governor of Egypt. The sultan lacked the power to do anything but agree.

Because of his power, Ali was able to act somewhat independently of the sultan. He joined the sultan's military campaigns when it benefited him, and also undertook several campaigns without the sultan's permission, including in the Sudan and Syria. He also began his own reforms in Egypt. He began by making over the country's military on a European model. He also established schools, sent military officers to be educated in France, and started an official newspaper—the first in the Islamic world.

As part of his reform of the Egyptian economy, Ali taxed the peasants at such a high rate that they were forced to give up their lands to the state. The government could then control the valuable cotton production and make money on the export of cotton and other agricultural products. Secularizing religious lands put more agricultural produce in the hands of the government, resulting in large profits during the period of the Napoleonic wars (1799–1815), when prices for wheat were high in Europe.

Muhammad Ali also pushed Egypt to industrialize. He had textile factories built to compete with those of the French and British. In Cairo, he had factories built to produce armaments. In Alexandria, he set up facilities to build ships so that Egypt could have its own navy. The city of Cairo had dozens of small shops turning out locks, bolts of cloth, and other parts for uniforms and weaponry. Ali is called the first great modern ruler of Egypt partly because of his vision of state-sponsored industrialization.

Japan and the Meiji Restoration

Japan's transition to a modern, industrialized country took less than half a century to accomplish. No country made such a rapid change.

A Challenge to Isolation

Between 1600 and 1853, Japan had very little contact with the rest of the world. However, the rising imperial powers in the world were not content to let Japan keep to itself. The great powers of Europe, such as Great Britain, the Netherlands, and Russia, all wanted to sell goods in Japan. Further, in the age of coal-powered ships, trading states wanted to be able to refuel in Japan as they sailed to and from China and other parts of East Asia.

Japan Confronts Foreigners

In 1853, a naval squad led by Commodore Matthew Perry sailed into Yedo and Tokyo Bay, asking for trade privileges. The next year, Perry returned with even more ships, demanding that the Japanese engage in trade with the United States. Faced with the power of the U.S. warships, the Japanese gave in to U.S. demands. Soon they yielded to similar demands by other foreign states.

The arrival of Perry, and the threat he posed, caused Japanese leaders to realize the danger they and their culture were in. They had seen how even a large, traditionally powerful country such as China had been humiliated by Westerners. They had watched as the British had gone to war to force the Chinese to accept opium imports. While some Japanese argued that the country could defend itself, many reformers feared it could not. They argued that the country should adopt enough Western technology and methods so it could protect its traditional culture. To accomplish this goal, they overthrew the shogun and restored power to the emperor in 1868, an event known as the **Meiji Restoration**.

Reforms by the Meiji State

Japan systematically visited Europe and the United States and invited experts to Japan in order to study Western institutions. Then, Japan adopted reforms based on what it admired:

- It formally abolished feudalism in 1868 by the Charter Oath.
- It established a constitutional monarchy based on the Prussian model in which the emperor ruled through a subordinate political leader.
- It established equality before the law and abolished cruel punishments.
- It reorganized the military based on the Prussian army, building a new navy and instituting conscription.
- It created a new school system that expanded educational opportunities, particularly in technical fields.
- It built railroads and roads.
- It subsidized industrialization, particularly in the key industries of tea, silk, weaponry, shipbuilding, and a rice wine called sake.

The government financed all of these reforms with a high agricultural tax. The taxes proved a good investment because they stimulated rapid economic growth. The government's ability to collect increased taxes also provided revenue for the bureaucracy, now centered in Tokyo.

However, in replicating the methods of Western countries, the Japanese also replicated some of industrial society's problems. For example, accounts of abuse and exploitation of female Japanese mill workers are similar to the experiences that British female mill workers had recorded decades earlier.

The Role of Private Investments

While the relationship between industry and centralized government was key to modernization in Japan, private investment from overseas also became important. Once new industries were flourishing, they were sometimes sold to **zaibatsu**, powerful Japanese family business organizations like the conglomerates in the United States. The prospect of attracting investors encouraged innovation in technology. For example, a carpenter founded a company in 1906 called Toyoda Loom Works that made an automatic loom. The company prospered, modified its name, and grew into today's Toyota Motor Company.

Key Terms by Theme

GOVERNMENT: Ottoman

Mamluks, Muhammad Ali

ECONOMY: Japan

Commodore Matthew Perry, zaibatsu

TECHNOLOGY: Japan

Automatic loom

GOVERNMENT: Japan

Meiji Restoration, Charter Oath

Topic 5.7: Economic Developments and Innovations

Essential Question: How did the development of economic systems, ideologies, and institutions contribute to change between 1750 and 1900?

Industrialization and modernization led to new philosophies and business structures. In the *Wealth of Nations* (1776), Adam Smith, arguing that humans are naturally transactional, provided a foundational text in support of capitalism and the establishment of private entrepreneurship and shaped the economics and politics of the industrial age and the centuries to follow. Mercantilism, a system of economic protectionism, was replaced by a **laissez-faire** (“leave alone” in French) policy that promoted minimal governmental involvement in commerce and encouraged countries to reduce tariffs on trade.

These economic ideas were reflected in, and supported by, emerging transnational institutions, including banks such as the Hong Kong and Shanghai Banking Corporation (HSBC) and manufacturers such as Unilever. As trade increased, so did the availability, affordability, and variety of consumer goods.

Effects on Business Organization

New ways of organizing businesses arose during the Industrial Revolution. Some manufacturers formed **giant corporations** in order to minimize risk. A corporation is a business chartered by a government as a legal entity owned by **stockholders** (individuals who buy partial ownership directly from the company when it is formed or later through a **stock market**). Stockholders might receive sums of money, known as dividends, from a corporation when it makes a profit. If a corporation experiences a loss or goes bankrupt, the stockholders are not liable for the losses. The most that stockholders can lose is what they paid for the stock in the first place.

Markets with One Seller

Some corporations became so powerful that they could form a **monopoly**, control of a specific business and elimination of all competition. For example, Alfred Krupp of Essen, Germany, ran a gigantic company that used the **Bessemer process**, a more efficient way to produce steel, gaining a monopoly in the German steel industry. In the United States, John D. Rockefeller created a monopoly in the oil industry.

Companies Working Across Boundaries

British-born Cecil Rhodes, founder of De Beers Diamonds, was an especially enthusiastic investor in a railroad project that was to stretch from Cape Town, in modern-day South Africa, to Cairo, Egypt. Connecting all of the British-held colonies with a transportation network could make governance easier and aid in conducting a war, if necessary. The project was never completed because Britain never gained control over all the land on which such a railroad was to be built. The overwhelming majority of railway workers in Africa were natives who were paid far lower wages than their European counterparts. Thus, railroad technology was a means of extracting as many resources as possible from subject lands while paying colonial laborers as little as possible.

De Beers was one of many **transnational companies**—those that operated across national boundaries—that emerged in the 19th century. For example, the Hong Kong and Shanghai Banking Corporation, a British-owned bank opened in its colony of Hong Kong in 1865, focused on finance, corporate investments, and global banking. The Unilever Corporation, a British and Dutch venture, focused on household goods—most famously, soap. By 1890 it had soap factories in Australia, Switzerland, the United States, and beyond. Unilever sourced the palm oil for its soaps first from British West Africa and later the Belgian Congo, where it operated huge plantations. Because these companies were transnational, they gained wealth and influence on a scale rarely approached before.

Corporations

A sole proprietorship is a business owned by a single person, and a partnership is a small group of people who make all business decisions. A corporation differs from these two other major forms of business ownership in that a corporation is a more flexible structure for large-scale economic activity. It replaced the traditional system of a single entrepreneur engaging in high-risk business endeavors with a system of larger companies, collectively engaging in lower-risk efforts. By spreading risk, investments became much safer and more attractive.

Four Features of a Corporation

Feature	Description
Limited Liability	Capital suppliers are not subject to losses greater than the amount of their investment.
Transferability of Shares	Voting rights in the enterprise may be transferred easily from one investor to another.
Juridical Personality	The corporation itself acts as a “person” and may therefore sue and be sued, may make contracts, and may hold property.
Indefinite Duration	The life of the corporation may extend beyond the participation of any of its incorporators.

Despite critics' charges that corporations undermined individual responsibility, they became a common form of business organization. They eventually dominated many areas of business, from banking to manufacturing to providing services. With their growth, corporations gained great economic and political power. For example, the decision by a corporation about where to build a new factory could create thousands of new jobs for a community.

Banking and Finance

Another way to reduce risk was through insurance, especially marine insurance. Lloyd's of London, with beginnings in a coffee house where merchants and sailors went for the most reliable shipping news, helped establish the insurance industry. The number of banks rose as merchants and entrepreneurs looked for a reliable place to deposit money and to borrow it when needed to build a factory or hire workers for a new enterprise.

Effect on Mass Culture

A culture of **consumerism** as well as of leisure developed among the working and middle classes of society in Great Britain, and for some people, living standards rose. Consumption needed to keep up with production, so producers began to advertise heavily, particularly to the middle class whose members had some disposable income, money that can be spent on nonessential goods.

Leisure activities such as biking and boating became popular during the late 1800s. In the 1880s, the penny-farthing bicycle was replaced by the newer safety bicycle. The older style featured one large wheel and one small one. This allowed riders to travel fast, but the danger of falling over was high. The newer style, by using a chain connecting different sized gears on the wheels, could go the same speed, but with less risk.

Companies encouraged their workers to participate in athletics, because they believed that sports rewarded virtues such as self-discipline and playing by the rules. The sales of athletic equipment also generated business for those who made everything from soccer balls to sports stadiums.

Perhaps because workers spent most of their waking hours in a bleak industrial environment, material goods and leisure entertainment became important escapes. In Europe, soccer (known there as football), became popular, while baseball dominated sports in the United States. Particular sports developed along class lines: tennis and golf in England, for example, were played by the upper classes, while certain types of rugby were played only by the lower classes.

The commercialization of the demand for public culture was also seen in the construction of music halls and public parks, particularly during the second half of the 19th century. Both the halls and the parks were built to accommodate a wide range of social classes. One aim of this mingling of classes was for the lower classes to see more civilized, rational behavior so that they would be encouraged to emulate it. The manner in which one class may have ultimately influenced the other is difficult to quantify, yet the enduring presence of such public mingling places remains intact.

Key Terms by Theme

ECONOMY: Structures

Corporations, stockholders, stock market, monopoly, Cecil Rhodes, transnational

ECONOMY: Businesses

Hong Kong and Shanghai Banking Corporation, Unilever Corporation

CULTURE: Population

Consumerism, urbanization

TECHNOLOGY: Industry

Bessemer process

5.8

Topic 5.8: Reactions to the Industrial Economy

Essential Question: What conditions led to calls for change in industrial societies, and what were the effects of those efforts?

The harsh conditions of industrial life provoked resistance and calls for reform. “Mother” Jones, a labor organizer, described the severe deprivations of the coal miners working underground all day, and other activists told of the horrors of factory work. Philosophers such as John Stuart Mill sought to address this growing inhumanity of the industrial era through social reforms. Others, such as the utopian socialists, argued for completely changing a system they considered to be basically flawed. Workers formed trade unions to advocate for higher pay and safer working conditions. Various ideologies and political movements emerged, some promoting alternative visions of society.

The Ottoman Empire in the Mediterranean Basin, China, and Japan also instituted reforms to promote industrialization. In response, each faced reactions against the results of economic change.

Labor Unions

Dangerous and unsanitary working conditions, low wages, and long hours were common in factory work in the 19th century. A committee of Britain's Parliament released a study called the Sadler Report in 1833. The report described these conditions. It made many people in Britain, particularly in Parliament, aware of the need for reforms.

Workers also responded to low pay and harsh conditions. They began to form **labor unions**—organizations of workers that advocated for the right to bargain with employers and put the resulting agreements in a contract. For most of the 19th century, unions in Great Britain had to organize in secret because the government treated them as enemies of trade. However, by the 20th century, unions became more acceptable and membership increased.

Unions improved workers' lives by winning minimum wage laws, limits on the number of hours worked, overtime pay, and the establishment of a five-day work week.

Voting Rights

Unions sparked a larger movement for empowerment among the working class. In 1832, 1867, and 1884, the British parliament passed reform bills to expand the pool of men who could vote, thereby giving more representation to British cities. The acts reduced property ownership qualifications as a requirement for voting. These reforms laid the foundation for expansion of the franchise (right to vote) to all men in 1918. British women would not gain equal suffrage (voting rights) until 1928.

Child Labor

Along with unions, social activists and reformers hoped to improve the living conditions of the least powerful in society. Reformers' achievements especially benefited children. A law in 1842 declared that children under the age of 10 were banned from working in the coal mines. In 1881, education became mandatory for British children between the ages of 5 and 10. This focus on education, as opposed to work for monetary gain, permanently redefined the role of children in urban society.

The Intellectual Reaction

As trade and production became increasingly global, the ideas of early economists such as Adam Smith were taken in new directions. While Smith wrote in an age of individual entrepreneurs and small businesses, people of the 19th century witnessed the rise of large-scale transnational businesses. This shift caused people to think about society in new ways. For example, utopian socialists tried to create new communities to demonstrate alternatives to capitalism.

John Stuart Mill

Some economists, clergy, and intellectuals criticized laissez-faire capitalism as inhumane to workers. One of these was a British philosopher, John Stuart Mill (1806–1873). He championed legal reforms to allow labor unions, limit child labor, and ensure safe working conditions in factories. While his ideas were controversial in his time, many of them eventually become widely adopted in industrial societies.

Mill's philosophy was called **utilitarianism**. Rather than state a set of timeless moral rules, as many religions or ethicists did, utilitarianism sought “the greatest good for the greatest number of people.” Unlike utopian socialists, who wanted to replace capitalism, utilitarians wanted to address the growing problems they saw with it. They viewed themselves as moderate, rational advocates of gradual reform.

Karl Marx

While most reformers wanted to fix what they considered problems with capitalism, some people wanted more extensive changes. Karl Marx (1818–1883) was a German scholar and writer who argued for socialism. Unlike utopian socialists, whom he scorned because he thought they wanted to escape problems rather than confront them, he wanted to look at how the world actually operated. He called his approach to economics “scientific socialism.”

In 1848, Karl Marx and his wealthy supporter Friedrich Engels published a pamphlet (now called the *Communist Manifesto*) that summarized their critique of capitalism. According to Marx, capitalism was an advance on feudalism because it produced tremendous wealth, but that it also produced needless poverty and misery. This contradiction between wealth and poverty occurred because capitalism divided society into two basic classes.

- The **proletariat** was essentially the working class, working in factories and mines, often for little compensation.
- The **bourgeoisie** included the middle class and investors who owned machinery and factories where workers produced goods.

Marx said that market competition drove the bourgeoisie to exploit the proletariat for the sake of higher profits. Because the bourgeoisie owned the **means of production**, such as machines, factories, mines, and land, they received most of the wealth produced. The proletariat, who did the physical and dangerous work, received very little, just enough to survive. Marx exhorted the proletariat to recognize their shared interest as a class and take control of the means of production and share the wealth they created fairly.

For Marx, socialism would replace capitalism. It, then, would later be replaced by a final stage of economic development, **communism**, in which all class distinctions would end.

Ottoman Response to Industrialization

In the 19th century, the Ottoman Empire was no longer at the peak of its political power. However, it maintained some economic power. Sultan Mahmud II (ruled 1808–1839) reformed the Ottoman system. In 1826, he abolished the corps of Janissaries, which had opposed him, and developed a new artillery unit trained by

Europeans. When the Istanbul Janissaries revolted, he had them massacred. The abolition of the feudal system in 1831 marked the final defeat of the Janissaries' power. Military officers were no longer able to collect taxes directly from the populace for their salaries. Instead, tax collections went directly to the central government, which paid military personnel, thus ensuring their loyalty.

Mahmud's reforms also included building roads and setting up a postal service. To fight the power of popular religious charities, he set up a government directory of charities. To operate the central administration of government, Mahmud II created European-style ministries.

Reorganization Reforms after Mahmud (during the years 1839–1876) are called **Tanzimat** (reorganization) and include the following changes:

- The sultans in this period worked to root out long-standing and widespread corruption in the central government.
- Education had long been under the control of the ulama, the educated class of Muslim scholars. Now the sultans created a secular system of primary and secondary schools. Secular colleges were also gradually set up, one for each special purpose: military, engineering, translation, civil service, and so on.
- The sultans codified Ottoman laws and created new ones, including a commercial code (1850) and a penal code (1858). These codes made it easier for foreigners to do business in the empire.
- In 1856, the sultan issued an edict known as the **Hatt-i Humayun** (Ottoman Reform Edict) that updated the legal system, declaring equality for all men in education, government appointments, and justice regardless of religion or ethnicity. The new legal system also regulated the **millet**s, which were separate legal courts established by different religious communities, each using its own set of religious laws. Christians in the Balkans protested the new regulations because they felt that their autonomy was being threatened. Muslims, on the other hand, protested the reforms because they conflicted with traditional values and practice.

Although not achieving religious equality, the Tanzimat reforms continued to have wide effects in areas such as the military and education. These effects continued even when succeeding sultans blocked other reforms.

Ottoman Economy and Society

The reforms under Mahmud II and the Tanzimat occurred during a period of economic change in Turkey. After the Napoleonic wars ended in 1815, prices for food and other crops declined in the Ottoman Empire. However, a global economy was in place, built partially on the flow of wealth into the Mediterranean from European colonial expansion in the Americas. Ottoman workers were increasingly paid in cash rather than in goods. Financial enterprises such as banking increased. These economic changes occurred along with the slow spread of industrialization. The growth of industry affected men and women differently. For example, most new industrial jobs went to men.

Legal reforms also benefited men more than women. Traditionally, under shariah, women had been allowed to hold money, to gain from inheritance, and to receive some education. The reforms of Mahmud II made the law more secular, and ended the right of women to distribute their property or cash through trusts to family members.

Although women had indirect control of their property, the new nonreligious courts ended even these limited rights. Many reforms had no effect on women. Since women were excluded from the army, the professions, higher education, and commerce, reforms in these areas did not affect them directly. The Tanzimat reforms of 1839 did not even mention women.

Opposition to Reform

When Sultan Abdulhamid took power in 1876, he supported the efforts at internal reforms. He accepted a new constitution for the Ottoman Empire and he continued to emphasize primary education and secularization of the law. A few girls were allowed to attend girls' secondary schools by the beginning of the 20th century.

However, fearful of any "seditious" reform, the sultan and the central government maintained tight control over the empire. Abdulhamid eventually drove the advocates for reform, known as "Young Turks" into exile. Further, his government whipped up anger against minority groups, particularly Armenians and Assyrian Christians. Between 1894 and 1896, between 100,000 and 250,000 Armenians were killed throughout several provinces in what has become known as the Hamidian massacres. For this bloodshed, he received the nickname the Red Sultan.

Reform Efforts in China

Like other powers, China under the Qing Dynasty felt pressure to modernize. Its major reform effort of the late 19th century was known as the **Self-Strengthening Movement**. It developed as a way for the government to face the internal and external problems confronting China. Government officials hoped to strengthen China in its competition with foreign powers by advancing its military technology and readiness and by training Chinese artisans in the manufacture of items for shipyards and arsenals. French and British advisors helped Chinese reform efforts. A stable government capable of collecting revenue allowed China to repay debts and participate in trade. For the Chinese, their existence as an independent state depended upon economic solvency. Reform in the name of modernization seemed inevitable.

As another step toward reform, the Chinese government set up its own diplomatic corps and a customs service to help collect taxes on imports and exports. The government's strategy was to graft some modern ideas and technology onto Chinese tradition rather than to create major change.

Demand for reform increased after China's defeat in the Sino-Japanese War (1894–1895). People formed clubs to call for change. One club, led by a civil servant named Kang Youwei, was able to meet with Emperor Guangxu. Kang convinced the ruler to support a set of sweeping reforms known as the **Hundred Days of Reform**. The reforms included the abolition of the outdated civil service exam, the elimination of corruption, and the establishment of Western-style industrial, commercial, and medical systems.

Cixi's Initial Conservatism

However, the emperor's aunt and adopted mother and the most powerful political figure in the country, Empress Dowager Cixi, was a conservative. At first, she opposed the reforms and wanted to protect traditional social and governmental systems. In a coup d'état, Cixi imprisoned the emperor and immediately repealed his reform edicts. She feared the influence of foreigners, so she resisted any new technology that would extend their reach into her country. For example, she stopped the extension of railroad lines and telegraph networks into the Chinese interior.

Reform of the Civil Service

However, toward the end of Cixi's rule, she came to recognize the problems with the civil service system. It was designed according to Confucian ideals of respect for rank and hierarchy as well as values of civic participation and action. By the 19th century, though, the wealthy were using the civil servants to get favors. Revenue dropped off for the government as a result of bribes going into the pockets of corrupt civil servants. Moreover, non-qualified persons were purchasing civil service posts. China abandoned nearly 2,500 years of

tradition, one that had yielded an educated bureaucracy of scholar-gentry. In spite of this concession, the empress's overall conservatism caused her to fail to cope with demands of modernity in China.

China and Foreign Powers

Unlike Turkey, where Europeans had little to gain from either passage or opposition to progressive reforms, in China, Europeans encouraged change. When reforms were met with the conservatism of Empress Cixi and the 1900 Boxer Rebellion against foreign influence, the Chinese government, including its provincial governors, continued to modernize, with some help from American and European advisors. Weakened by internal rebellion and fearing encroachment from Japan, China had to accept territorial "protection" from Western powers, who in return demanded trade concessions.

In 1911, the Chinese chose to become a republic. In addition, they resisted being swallowed up by their external enemies. China's attempts to preserve its territorial integrity benefited from the efforts of the United States to maintain stability in Asia by preventing Japan from encroaching farther on its territory after the Russo-Japanese War of 1905. U.S. efforts were exemplified by the Treaty of Portsmouth, which settled the war and was negotiated with the help of President Theodore Roosevelt.

Resistance to Reform in Japan

Just as China ended its long-standing civil service system, the Japanese also ended a traditional system of exercising authority. In 1871, Japan gave samurai a final lump-sum payment and legally dissolved their position. They were no longer fighting men and were not allowed to carry their swords. The **bushido**, their code of conduct, was now a personal matter, no longer officially condoned by the government.

Some samurai adjusted to the change by serving the government as **genros**, or elder statesmen. Others, particularly those from the provinces of Satsuma and Choshu, resisted the change. They defended their right to dress and wear their hair in traditional ways and to enjoy relative autonomy from the centralized government. The last battle between the samurai shogunate forces and those loyal to the emperor occurred in the 1870s. Dismayed by defeat, the samurai became the main victims of Japan's rapid modernization. Ironically, some of their leaders were the same people who had supported the Meiji Restoration in the 1860s.

Rise and Decline of Liberalization

Some reforms in Japan worked better than others. The new schools quickly improved literacy rates, the economy rapidly industrialized, and the country began to develop traits of democracy such as a free press, strong labor unions, and respect for individual liberties. However, by the 1920s, army officers again began to dominate the government.

Limits to Reform

Turkey, China, and Japan each followed its own path in responding to industrialization in the 19th century. Of the three, Turkey began to make changes earliest. However, Sultan Abdulhamid, though he supported reforms at first, became more conservative during his time as ruler. China began to make changes only later in the century. In contrast to Abdulhamid, China's Cixi started as skeptical of reform but became more liberal during her reign. Japan responded to industrialization with dramatic, rapid changes beginning with the Meiji Restoration in 1868. However, the speed and depth of its reforms prompted a backlash from conservative members of society.

Key Terms by Theme

ECONOMICS: Communists

Socialism, Karl Marx, Friedrich Engels, *Communist Manifesto*, means of production, communism

SOCIETY: Workers

Labor unions, proletariat, bourgeoisie

GOVERNMENT: Ottomans

Mahmud II, Tanzimat, Hatt-i Humayun, millets

ECONOMICS: Theory

John Stuart Mill, utilitarianism

CULTURE: Japan

Bushido, genros

GOVERNMENT: China

Self-Strengthening Movement, Emperor Guangxu, Hundred Days of Reform, Empress Cixi

Topic 5.9: Society and the Industrial Age

Essential Question: How did industrialization cause change in existing social hierarchies and standards of living?

Industrialization affected not only governments and economies but also people's everyday lives. Dickens illustrated the sharp contrasts in the industrial age between the emerging middle class, who enjoyed the benefits of the new prosperity, and the urban poor, who were ill-treated. Young children worked in factories. Women experienced substantial changes in their lifestyle. Poor women took jobs in domestic service and the textile industries, spending less time at home. Middle-class women, with no economic responsibilities, felt limited by household roles. The middle classes also started spending their free time seeking entertainment in theaters, concert halls, and sports facilities.

Effects on Urban Areas

For the first half of the 19th century, urban areas grew rapidly and with little planning by governments. This development left a damaging ecological footprint and created inhumane living conditions for the cities' poorest residents, members of the working class. Working families crowded into shoddily constructed **tenement** apartment buildings, often owned by factory owners themselves. Tenements were often located in **urban slums** (areas of cities where low-income families were forced to live), where industrial by-products such as polluted water supplies and open sewers were common.

In conditions like these, disease, including the much-feared cholera, spread quickly. So did other public health menaces, such as fire and crime and violence. Over time, municipalities created police and fire departments, and several public health acts were passed to implement sanitation reform by creating better drainage and sewage systems, supplying cleaner water, removing rubbish, and building standards to reduce accidents and fire.

Eventually, industrialization led to increased living standards for many. While life could be very hard for poor and working class people, the growing middle class had increased access to goods, housing, culture, and education.

The wealth and opportunities of the middle class were among the reasons people continued to stream into cities from rural areas. People living in poverty on farms or in villages hoped to find a better life in an urban center. Many did.

Effects on Class Structure

As industrialization spread, new classes of society emerged in Britain. At the bottom rungs of the social hierarchy were those who labored in factories and coal mines. They were known as the **working class**. Though they helped construct goods rapidly, the technology of interchangeable parts and the factory system's division of labor had deprived workers of the experience of crafting a complete product. In comparison to the artisans of earlier generations, workers needed fewer skills, so managers viewed them as easily replaceable. Competition for jobs kept wages low.

While industrialization created low-skilled jobs, it also required those who managed the production of goods to have education and sophisticated skills. A new middle class emerged, consisting of factory and office managers, small business owners, and professionals. They were **white-collar workers**, those held by office workers. Most were literate and considered middle class.

At the top of the new class hierarchy were the industrialists and owners of large corporations. These so-called captains of industry soon overshadowed the landed aristocracy as the power brokers and leaders of modern society.

Farm Work Versus Factory Work

Before industrialization, family members worked in close proximity to one another. Whether women spun fabric in their own homes or landless workers farmed the fields of a landlord, parents and children usually spent their working hours close to each other. Industrialization disrupted this pattern. Industrial machinery was used in large factories, making it impossible to work from home. Thus, individuals had to leave their families and neighborhoods for a long workday in order to earn enough money to survive.

In a factory, work schedules were nothing like they were on a farm or in a cottage industry. The shrill sounds of the factory whistle told workers when they could take a break, which was obviously a culture shock to former-farmers who had previously completed tasks according to their own needs and schedules. Considering that workers commonly spent 14 hours a day, six days a week in a factory, exhaustion was common. Some of these exhausted workers operated dangerous heavy machinery. Injuries and death were common.

Effects on Children

The low wages of factory workers forced them to send their children to work also. In the early decades of industrialization, children as young as five worked in textile mills. Because of their small size and nimble fingers, children could climb into equipment to make repairs or into tight spots in mines. However, the dust from the textile machinery damaged their lungs just as much as it did to adults' lungs.

Children who worked in coal mines faced even more dangerous conditions than those in mills:

- They labored in oppressive heat, carting heavy loads of coal.
- Coal dust was even more unhealthy to breathe than factory dust.
- Mine collapses and floods loomed as constant threats to life.

Effect on Women's Lives

The Industrial Revolution affected women in different ways, depending on their class position. Because their families needed the money, working-class women worked in coal mines (until the practice of hiring women for coal mining was declared illegal in Britain in the 1840s) and were the primary laborers in textile factories. Factory owners preferred to hire women because they could pay them half of what they paid men.

Middle-class women were spared factory work, yet in many ways they lived more limited lives than working-class women. Middle-class men had to leave the house and work at an office to provide for their families. If a wife stayed at home, it was an indication that her husband was capable of being the family's sole provider. Being a housewife thus became a status symbol.

By the late 1800s, advertising and consumer culture contributed to a “**cult of domesticity**” that idealized the female homemaker. Advertising encouraged women to buy household products that would supposedly make the home a husband's place of respite from a harsh modern world. Pamphlets instructed middle-class women on how to care for the home, raise children, and behave in polite society and urged them to be pious, submissive, pure, and domestic. For working-class women the cult of domesticity was even more taxing, as they had to manage the household, care for their children, and work full time.

Industrialization also spurred feminism. When men left a community to take a job, their absence opened up new opportunities for the women who remained home. One political sign of this feminism came in 1848 at Seneca Falls, New York, when 300 people met to call for equality for women.

Effects on the Environment

The Industrial Revolution was powered by fossil fuels such as coal, petroleum, and natural gas. Although burning coal produced more energy than burning wood, the effects were extremely harmful. Industrial towns during the late 19th century were choked by toxic air pollution produced by coal-burning factories. Smog (smoke and fog) from factories led to deadly respiratory problems. Water became polluted, also, as the new industries dumped their waste into streams, rivers, and lakes. Cholera, typhoid, and other diseases ravaged neighborhoods.

Key Terms by Theme

SOCIETY

Working class, white-collar workers, cult of domesticity, urban slums, tenements

5.10

Topic 5.10: Continuity and Change in the Industrial Age

Essential Question: How did the Industrial Revolution demonstrate both continuity and change?

The Industrial Revolution, an era that began in the late 18th century, produced economic, social, cultural, political, and environmental changes not seen since the first Agricultural Revolution, more than 10,000 years before. The Industrial Revolution changed how goods were produced, how people earned their living, and how businesses were structured. The Industrial Revolution also caused sweeping social changes.

An expansion of the middle class in industrial economies occurred. A working class, dependent on factory jobs, emerged. The role of women was transformed, as they made up a significant portion of the factory work force. Politically, the Enlightenment proved to be a long-lasting and influential intellectual movement that influenced events during the Industrial Revolution. The effects of the Industrial Revolution inspired the works of economic and political philosophers like Adam Smith and Karl Marx. The Industrial Revolution altered life locally as well as globally. Rivalries among nations, which had existed previously, continued into and throughout this era leading to political and economic conflict. Additionally, rigid social orders, based on economic or ethnic status, continued within industrial economies.

Economic Continuities and Changes

The Industrial Revolution transformed the production and consumption of goods. In Western Europe, access to abundant natural resources, transoceanic trade routes, and financial capital combined with an increasing population resulted in a leadership role in industrialization. The Scientific Revolution, begun in the previous era and influenced by scientific knowledge transferred to the West from the Islamic world, helped to bring about inventions that would lead to the establishment of the factory system and the mass production of goods. However, the invention of the machines used to mass produce goods meant a change from the era of skilled artisans working at their own pace to craft unique and well-built products. With automation, many factory jobs required only unskilled labor working on an assembly line doing repetitive tasks to produce identical goods. As a result, many consumer goods were now more readily available, more affordable, and in greater variety than ever before.

Industrialization Around the World

New methods of industrial production associated with the Industrial Revolutions spread and changed the economies of other areas of the world outside of Western Europe. As a result, the United States, Russia, and Japan experienced increased industrial production and built more railroads. In the cases of Japan and Egypt, industrialization was encouraged through state sponsored efforts to modernize their economies with varying degrees of success. However, the industrial economies of Western Europe and the United States continued to dominate the global economy while the manufacturing output of Middle Eastern and Asian economies declined.

Share of Total World Manufacturing Output (Percentage)

Year	Europe	United States	Japan	The Rest of the World
1750	23.2	0.1	3.8	73.0
1800	28.1	0.8	3.5	67.7

1860	53.2	7.2	2.6	36.6
1880	61.3	14.7	2.4	20.9
1900	62.0	23.6	2.4	11.0

Sources of Raw Materials

Some regions of the world continued to produce minerals, crops, and other resources as they had done in previous eras. Latin America and Africa were important sources of minerals and metals used in industrial processes. Cotton from Egypt, South Asia, and the Caribbean was grown and exported to Great Britain and other European countries. Southeast Asian areas continued to be sources for spices but also for rubber, tin, and timber.

New sources of raw materials were also made possible by the invention of the steam ship and steam locomotive. Maritime trade was made faster and cheaper due to steam power, and railroads built in interior regions helped to access and exploit previously untapped natural resources. Other inventions such as the telegraph helped to improve communication across these far flung and sometimes remote areas. These and other technological innovations made the movement of goods and people easier and cheaper and led to an increase in global trade.

Western Europe

Western Europe began to change from a mercantilist economic system designed to make a country wealthy through tightly regulated trade to a capitalist system in which private companies were freer to pursue their own profits. Philosopher and political economist Adam Smith believed that the private pursuit of profit would result in general prosperity.

While industrialization and capitalism produced great wealth overall, many people had hard, short lives. In response to this suffering, many reformers argued for changes. One of these was the German philosopher Karl Marx. He argued that the working class, whom he called the proletariat, were being exploited by the capital class, or bourgeoisie. He called for workers to unite and take control of the means of production, a change that would revolutionize society.

Social Continuities and Changes

Industrialization caused significant changes to social structures of Western Europe and, later, the United States. Prior to industrialization, the population of Western Europe was primarily rural and involved in farming. As factories were built in urban centers in greater numbers, mainly due to a new steam engine design invented by James Watt, agricultural workers soon migrated to find employment in these industrial cities.

Physical Labor

As the Industrial Revolution spread, the need for factory labor increased. An industrial working class emerged. Members of this class were paid low wages, worked long hours in poor conditions, lived in squalid housing, and resided in crowded and polluted parts of the new industrial cities. Much of their daily lives revolved around their jobs in the factories. This was a change from the agricultural economy of the previous era, when farmers and farm laborers could more or less set their own work schedule based on the seasons. In response to their working and living conditions, the working class formed worker associations, or labor unions, that used labor strikes and collective bargaining to win concessions on wages, working conditions, and hours from the factory owners.

Office Labor

Along with the emergence of the industrial working class, the Industrial Revolution also changed the size and make-up of the middle class. In pre-industrial society, the middle class was often made up of professionals such as doctors and lawyers as well as local merchants or shopkeepers. As industrialization occurred, while these pre-industrial occupations continued to be part of the middle class, other occupations were added to it, including the middle-management of factories, banks, insurance companies, shipping agents, and, of course, trading companies.

Non-Agricultural Workers as a Percentage of the Workforce

Country	1800	1850	1900
England	68	78	84
France	41	57	69
Italy	42	56	67
Poland	44	53	58

The Wealthy

The Industrial Revolution also transformed social hierarchies in the period from 1750 to 1900. Wealthy owners of industrial companies who made money from investments rather than from land overtook the aristocracy in wealth and prestige. These capitalists soon made up the highest of the upper class in industrial societies.

Gender and Industrialization

The role of women changed significantly during the Industrial Revolution. In an agricultural economy, women provided labor at critical times during the planting and harvesting season but were rarely paid for their labor. In a proto-industrial system, women were able to earn some extra money in the manufacturing of textiles.

Despite these activities, women were still mainly supported by the labor and income of their male family members. This pattern began to change with the Industrial Revolution. Due to the low wages paid by the factories, all family needed to work. Hence, a woman's income was just as important to the welfare of the family as a man's. Despite the importance of female labor, women were often paid less than men for the same work and denied high-wage jobs.

Political Continuities and Changes

As during the Enlightenment, philosophers living through the Industrial Revolution era developed new political ideas about the individual and government. During the Industrial Revolution, most people had little to no formal voice in government such as the right to vote, but they demanded the ability to exercise their "natural rights." Among these were the rights to petition, protest, and rebel against their governments. Sometimes these protests were based on nationalism and the right of people to choose their own governments.

However, political movements of the Industrial Revolution were almost always connected to the interests of the growing middle and working classes. For example, labor leaders advocated formation of international unions so that workers in various countries could unite to demand higher wages. But the vast majority of the protests were for the right to vote and to end aristocratic privileges. A series of uprising throughout European cities in

1848, known as the Revolution of 1848, were a sign of the growing interest in more pluralistic, more democratic governments:

- In Paris, protesters called for greater freedom of the press.
- In Berlin, people wanted a parliament to check the monarch's power.
- In cities in Hungary, people demanded freedom from Austrian control.

People wanted not just general natural rights, but specific rights recognized by their government.

Voting Rights

As the number of wealthy capitalists and the middle class grew, more frequent calls for greater political participation were made. As a result, some political reforms were enacted that included the extension of voting rights to city dwellers, non-landowners, and, eventually, to the working class. However, the voting franchise was extended to male voters only. Women would not gain the right to vote in Western industrial countries until the early 20th century. Sometimes voting rights were extended through the legislative process, as in Great Britain. However, in other instances, protests and revolutions forced governments to enact political reforms.

One factor in all of these political reforms was the size and influence of the middle class. In countries where the middle class was large and economically significant, democracy emerged. However, in regions where the middle class was small or insignificant, dictatorships remained in place.

Protections for Workers

Reforms that began in one country often spread. For example, Otto Von Bismarck's social reforms spread throughout Europe and eventually the world. All industrializing nations grappled with the new challenges that factory life introduced. Among these nations, Germany implemented the most comprehensive set of social reforms to protect industrial workers. Under the leadership of Chancellor Otto von Bismarck, Germany started workers' accident compensation insurance, unemployment insurance, and old age pensions for employees. Bismarck was concerned that if his government did not address these problems, socialists and more radical citizens would demand stronger government action.

Another effect of the expansion of voting rights was the emergence of political parties that represented the working class. These "labor parties" advocated for minimum wages, shorter work days, paid sick and holiday leave, better working conditions, and health and unemployment insurance.

Unit 5 test

AP World History Modern: Unit 5 Exam

Period: c. 1750 to c. 1900 – Revolutions

This exam contains one stimulus-based multiple-choice question set for each of the 10 topics in Unit 5. Each set has a stimulus followed by 4 questions. Eight sets use written stimuli; two use visual stimuli (map/diagram descriptions with source links). Every question includes the correct answer and a brief explanation.

Topic 5.1: The Enlightenment (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from Jean-Jacques Rousseau, *The Social Contract* (1762):

"Man is born free, and everywhere he is in chains. Those who think themselves the masters of others are indeed greater slaves than they. How did this change come about? I do not know. What can make it legitimate? That question I think I can answer. The social order is a sacred right which is the basis of all rights. Nevertheless, this right does not come from nature, and must therefore be founded on conventions."

Source: Jean-Jacques Rousseau, *The Social Contract*, translated by G.D.H. Cole, 1913 (as cited in <https://www.gutenberg.org/files/46333/46333-h/46333-h.htm>).

Questions

- Based on the passage, Rousseau's central argument about political authority most directly challenged which Enlightenment-era idea? (A) Divine right of kings (B) Natural rights and popular sovereignty (C) Mercantilist economic theory (D) Scientific rationalism **Correct Answer: (A) Divine right of kings**
Explanation: Rousseau argues that legitimate authority comes from conventions (social contract), not nature or divine inheritance, directly undermining absolute monarchy.
- The phrase "Man is born free, and everywhere he is in chains" best reflects which broader Enlightenment theme? (A) The inherent equality of all human beings and the artificiality of social hierarchies (B) The superiority of European civilization over non-European societies (C) The necessity of strong centralized government to prevent chaos (D) The rejection of all forms of religion in public life **Correct Answer: (A) The inherent equality of all human beings and the artificiality of social hierarchies**
Explanation: Rousseau emphasizes that freedom is natural but corrupted by artificial social and political structures.
- Rousseau's ideas in the passage most directly influenced which later historical development? (A) The French Revolution's emphasis on popular sovereignty and the rights of citizens (B) The continuation of absolute monarchy in Prussia and Austria (C) The expansion of the transatlantic slave trade (D) The rise of mercantilist colonial policies **Correct Answer: (A) The French Revolution's emphasis on popular sovereignty and the rights of citizens**
Explanation: Rousseau's social contract theory provided intellectual justification for revolutionary demands that sovereignty resides in the people.
- Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of Enlightenment political philosophy, as expressed in the passage, during the period c. 1750–1900? (A) The spread of revolutionary ideas that challenged traditional monarchies across Europe and the Americas (B) The complete rejection of all forms of government in favor of anarchy (C) The strengthening of divine-right monarchies in response to radical ideas (D) The isolation of European political thought from global influences **Correct Answer: (A) The spread of revolutionary ideas that challenged traditional monarchies across Europe and the Americas**
Explanation: Rousseau's ideas helped fuel revolutions that questioned absolute rule and promoted popular sovereignty.

Topic 5.2: Nationalism and Revolutions (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from Toussaint Louverture's Letter to the French Directory (1797):

"Brothers and friends, I am Toussaint Louverture... I have undertaken to restore to my fellow citizens their rights... You have given us liberty; we will defend it... We are not the enemies of France; on the contrary, we love her... But we will not suffer any attempt to reduce us again to slavery."

Source: Toussaint Louverture, Letter to the French Directory, 1797 (as cited in <https://www.britannica.com/biography/Toussaint-Louverture>).

Questions

1. Based on the passage, Toussaint Louverture's primary goal in the Haitian Revolution was to (A) restore French colonial control over Saint-Domingue (B) secure and defend the liberty of formerly enslaved people (C) establish an independent monarchy modeled on European systems (D) reject all European political ideas in favor of African traditions **Correct Answer: (B) secure and defend the liberty of formerly enslaved people** *Explanation:* Louverture explicitly states he is restoring rights and will not allow a return to slavery while still expressing attachment to French revolutionary ideals.
2. The passage's reference to both "liberty" and loyalty to France illustrates which characteristic of many Atlantic revolutions? (A) Complete rejection of European Enlightenment ideas (B) Selective adoption of revolutionary principles while adapting them to local conditions (C) Immediate establishment of democratic republics without transitional leadership (D) Total isolation from transatlantic intellectual currents **Correct Answer: (B) Selective adoption of revolutionary principles while adapting them to local conditions** *Explanation:* Louverture embraces liberty but frames it within continued (though reformed) ties to France.
3. Toussaint Louverture's leadership most directly contributed to which outcome of the Haitian Revolution? (A) The first successful slave revolt leading to an independent Black republic in the Americas (B) The restoration of French sugar plantation slavery (C) The unification of all Caribbean colonies under one government (D) The peaceful transition to independence without violence **Correct Answer: (A) The first successful slave revolt leading to an independent Black republic in the Americas** *Explanation:* Under Louverture's leadership, Haiti achieved independence in 1804 after defeating French, Spanish, and British forces.
4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of nationalist and revolutionary movements like the Haitian Revolution during the period c. 1750–1900? (A) They inspired other independence movements and challenged the legitimacy of colonial and slave systems across the Atlantic world (B) They led to the immediate abolition of slavery throughout the Americas (C) They strengthened European colonial control by demonstrating the dangers of rebellion (D) They remained isolated events with little influence outside their immediate regions **Correct Answer: (A) They inspired other independence movements and challenged the legitimacy of colonial and slave systems across the Atlantic world** *Explanation:* Haiti's success influenced later Latin American independence movements and abolitionist thought.

Topic 5.3: Industrial Revolution Begins (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from Friedrich Engels, *The Condition of the Working Class in England* (1845):

"The great towns are chiefly inhabited by the working classes... The streets are generally unpaved... The houses are built back to back... The atmosphere is thick with smoke... The working people... are packed into these dens... In Manchester... there are often ten or twelve persons in a single room..."

Source: Friedrich Engels, *The Condition of the Working Class in England*, 1845 (as cited in <https://www.marxists.org/archive/marx/works/1845/condition-working-class/>).

Questions

1. Based on the passage, early industrialization in Britain most directly led to (A) improved living conditions for the working class (B) rapid urbanization and overcrowded, unsanitary housing (C) the decline of cities in favor of rural factory villages (D) widespread government regulation of housing standards **Correct Answer: (B) rapid urbanization and overcrowded, unsanitary housing**
Explanation: Engels describes densely packed, unsanitary urban housing resulting from factory-driven migration to cities.
2. The description of smoke-filled air and back-to-back housing highlights which environmental consequence of early industrialization? (A) Improved public health due to better sanitation (B) Severe air pollution and poor living conditions in industrial cities (C) The preservation of traditional rural landscapes (D) The development of green urban planning **Correct Answer: (B) Severe air pollution and poor living conditions in industrial cities**
Explanation: The passage emphasizes smoke and cramped housing as direct results of industrial growth.
3. Engels' focus on working-class living conditions most strongly reflects which emerging intellectual response to industrialization? (A) Laissez-faire economic theory (B) Socialist and reformist critiques of industrial capitalism (C) Romantic idealization of pre-industrial society (D) Mercantilist defense of colonial trade **Correct Answer: (B) Socialist and reformist critiques of industrial capitalism**
Explanation: Engels' detailed critique of working-class misery helped shape socialist thought and calls for reform.
4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of early industrialization in Britain, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1750–1900? (A) Dramatic social and environmental changes that prompted new political ideologies and reform movements (B) Immediate improvement in living standards for all social classes (C) The decline of urban centers in favor of decentralized cottage industry (D) The isolation of Britain from global economic networks **Correct Answer: (A) Dramatic social and environmental changes that prompted new political ideologies and reform movements**
Explanation: Conditions described by Engels fueled socialism, Chartism, and later labor reforms.

Topic 5.4: Industrialization Spreads (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from the Meiji Emperor's Charter Oath (1868):

"By this oath, we set up as our aim the establishment of the national weal on a broad basis and the framing of a constitution and laws.

1. Deliberative assemblies shall be established and all measures shall be decided in accordance with public opinion.
2. All classes of the people shall unite in vigorously carrying on the affairs of the government.
3. All common people... shall be allowed to pursue their own calling... Knowledge shall be sought throughout the world..."

Source: Meiji Charter Oath, 1868 (as cited in <https://www.britannica.com/event/Charter-Oath>).

Questions

1. Based on the passage, the Meiji government's primary strategy for industrialization was to (A) reject all foreign influence and preserve traditional Japanese institutions (B) selectively adopt Western knowledge and institutions while maintaining Japanese sovereignty (C) rely exclusively on agricultural exports without industrial development (D) isolate Japan from global trade networks **Correct Answer: (B) selectively adopt Western knowledge and institutions while maintaining Japanese sovereignty** *Explanation:* The oath calls for seeking knowledge "throughout the world" and establishing deliberative assemblies, showing selective Western adoption.
 2. The Charter Oath's emphasis on "deliberative assemblies" and "public opinion" most directly reflects (A) a complete rejection of centralized authority (B) the influence of Western constitutional and parliamentary ideas (C) a return to feudal decentralization (D) the dominance of Buddhist monastic governance **Correct Answer: (B) the influence of Western constitutional and parliamentary ideas** *Explanation:* The call for deliberative assemblies mirrors Western parliamentary models Japan studied during the Meiji era.
 3. The Meiji government's approach to industrialization, as outlined in the passage, most directly resulted in (A) Japan becoming a major industrial and military power by the early 20th century (B) the permanent weakening of the Japanese state (C) the rejection of all Western technology (D) the restoration of the shogunate system **Correct Answer: (A) Japan becoming a major industrial and military power by the early 20th century** *Explanation:* Meiji reforms led to rapid industrialization, military modernization, and Japan's emergence as an imperial power.
 4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of state-led industrialization programs like Japan's Meiji Restoration during the period c. 1750–1900? (A) Non-Western states could rapidly industrialize by strategically adopting Western technology and institutions while preserving political independence (B) All non-Western societies rejected industrialization in favor of traditional economies (C) Industrialization remained confined to Western Europe and North America (D) State intervention always slowed economic growth **Correct Answer: (A) Non-Western states could rapidly industrialize by strategically adopting Western technology and institutions while preserving political independence** *Explanation:* Japan's success demonstrated that deliberate state policy could accelerate industrialization outside the West.
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Topic 5.5: Technology of the Industrial Age (Visual Stimulus)

Visual Description: A map titled "Major Railroads in Europe, 1870" showing dense rail networks connecting major industrial cities in Britain, France, Germany, and Belgium, with thinner lines extending into Russia and the Austro-Hungarian Empire. Key industrial regions (e.g., the Ruhr, northern England, northern France) are shaded. The map highlights how railroads linked coal mines, factories, and ports.

Source: Adapted from *The Industrial Revolution: A Very Short Introduction* by Robert C. Allen, Oxford University Press, 2017 (map section).

Link to a Similar Resource: [European Railroads 1870 – Wikimedia Commons](#)

Questions

1. Based on the map, the expansion of railroads in Europe by 1870 most directly facilitated (A) the decline of industrial production in favor of agriculture (B) faster and cheaper movement of raw materials, goods, and people between industrial centers (C) the isolation of rural regions from urban markets (D) the restriction of trade to coastal shipping only **Correct Answer: (B) faster and cheaper movement of raw materials, goods, and people between industrial centers** *Explanation:* Dense rail networks connected factories, mines, and ports, dramatically reducing transportation costs and time.
 2. The concentration of rail lines in Britain, northern France, and the Ruhr region suggests that railroads (A) developed most rapidly in areas already rich in coal and industry (B) were evenly distributed across all European countries (C) primarily served agricultural rather than industrial regions (D) replaced all other forms of transportation immediately **Correct Answer: (A) developed most rapidly in areas already rich in coal and industry** *Explanation:* The heaviest rail density appears in established industrial heartlands.
 3. The map's depiction of rail lines extending into Russia and the Austro-Hungarian Empire illustrates which broader process? (A) The spread of industrial technology and infrastructure beyond the earliest industrializing regions (B) The complete industrialization of Eastern Europe by 1870 (C) The rejection of railroads by conservative governments (D) The decline of rail technology in Western Europe **Correct Answer: (A) The spread of industrial technology and infrastructure beyond the earliest industrializing regions** *Explanation:* Rail construction reached less industrialized areas, showing technology diffusion.
 4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of railroad expansion, as shown on the map, during the period c. 1750–1900? (A) Railroads accelerated industrialization, national market integration, and urbanization across Europe (B) Railroads caused the immediate collapse of all traditional industries (C) Railroads remained limited to Britain and had little impact elsewhere (D) Railroads primarily served military purposes with no economic effect **Correct Answer: (A) Railroads accelerated industrialization, national market integration, and urbanization across Europe** *Explanation:* Rail networks lowered costs, expanded markets, and supported factory growth and city expansion.
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Topic 5.6: Industrialization: Government's Role (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from Adam Smith, *The Wealth of Nations* (1776):

"It is not from the benevolence of the butcher, the brewer, or the baker that we expect our dinner, but from their regard to their own interest. We address ourselves, not to their humanity but to their self-love, and never talk to them of our own necessities but of their advantages."

Source: Adam Smith, *An Inquiry into the Nature and Causes of the Wealth of Nations*, 1776 (as cited in <https://www.gutenberg.org/files/3300/3300-h/3300-h.htm>).

Questions

1. Based on the passage, Adam Smith's economic philosophy most strongly supported which government policy toward industry? (A) Extensive government regulation of prices and production (B) Laissez-faire policies allowing individuals to pursue their self-interest with minimal interference (C) Complete state ownership of all factories and farms (D) Heavy tariffs to protect domestic industries from foreign competition **Correct Answer: (B) Laissez-faire policies allowing individuals to pursue their self-interest with minimal interference** *Explanation:* Smith argues that self-interest, not government direction, drives economic activity.

2. Smith's emphasis on self-interest as the driver of economic activity most directly challenged which earlier economic system? (A) Mercantilism, which emphasized state control and trade surpluses (B) Socialism, which called for collective ownership (C) Feudalism, which relied on hereditary land obligations (D) Guild-based craft production **Correct Answer: (A) Mercantilism, which emphasized state control and trade surpluses** *Explanation:* Smith rejected mercantilist state intervention in favor of free markets guided by individual self-interest.
 3. The ideas expressed in the passage most strongly influenced which approach to industrialization in 19th-century Britain? (A) Heavy government investment in worker housing and safety regulations from the beginning (B) Limited government intervention and reliance on market forces during early industrialization (C) State ownership of major industries such as railroads and steel (D) Complete prohibition of foreign trade **Correct Answer: (B) Limited government intervention and reliance on market forces during early industrialization** *Explanation:* Britain largely followed laissez-faire principles in the early phases of industrialization.
 4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of laissez-faire economic thought, as represented in the passage, during the period c. 1750–1900? (A) It shaped early industrial policy in Britain but later gave way to increased government regulation due to social problems (B) It led to the immediate adoption of socialist economic systems across Europe (C) It had no influence outside of academic circles (D) It caused all European governments to nationalize industry by 1850 **Correct Answer: (A) It shaped early industrial policy in Britain but later gave way to increased government regulation due to social problems** *Explanation:* While influential early on, the social costs of industrialization eventually prompted greater state intervention (e.g., Factory Acts).
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Topic 5.7: Economic Developments and Innovations (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from a British parliamentary report on joint-stock companies (1844):

"The principle of limited liability... has been found to be of great advantage in enabling persons to embark capital in undertakings of great public utility... without risking their whole fortunes... It has led to the formation of many companies for the construction of railways, docks, and other works of great national importance."

Source: Report of the Select Committee on Joint Stock Companies, 1844 (as cited in <https://parlipapers.proquest.com>).

Questions

1. Based on the passage, the introduction of limited liability most directly encouraged (A) risk-averse behavior among all investors (B) larger-scale investment in infrastructure and industry by reducing personal financial risk (C) the decline of all forms of corporate organization (D) exclusive reliance on family-owned businesses **Correct Answer: (B) larger-scale investment in infrastructure and industry by reducing personal financial risk** *Explanation:* Limited liability allowed investors to risk only the amount they invested, encouraging bigger projects like railroads.
2. The growth of joint-stock companies with limited liability most strongly contributed to which economic development? (A) The rise of modern corporate capitalism and large-scale industrial enterprises (B) The return to small-scale artisanal production (C) The elimination of all private investment (D) The dominance of agricultural economies **Correct Answer: (A) The rise of modern corporate capitalism and large-scale industrial enterprises** *Explanation:* Joint-stock companies with limited liability enabled the massive capital formation needed for railroads, factories, and infrastructure.

3. The passage's reference to "undertakings of great public utility" suggests that limited liability companies were viewed as (A) purely private ventures with no public benefit (B) instruments that could serve both private profit and national development (C) threats to traditional guild structures (D) mechanisms for complete state control of the economy **Correct Answer: (B) instruments that could serve both private profit and national development** *Explanation:* The report highlights benefits for public works like railways and docks.
 4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of financial innovations like limited liability during the period c. 1750–1900? (A) They enabled the massive capital accumulation required for industrial expansion and infrastructure projects across Europe and beyond (B) They caused the immediate collapse of all traditional banking systems (C) They restricted investment to only the wealthiest aristocrats (D) They had no lasting effect on economic organization **Correct Answer: (A) They enabled the massive capital accumulation required for industrial expansion and infrastructure projects across Europe and beyond** *Explanation:* Limited liability was crucial for funding the large-scale projects that defined the Industrial Age.
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Topic 5.8: Reactions to the Industrial Economy (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from Karl Marx and Friedrich Engels, *The Communist Manifesto* (1848):

"The bourgeoisie... has pitilessly torn asunder the motley feudal ties... It has resolved personal worth into exchange value... It has created enormous cities... It has agglomerated population... It has created more massive and more colossal productive forces than have all preceding generations together."

Source: Karl Marx and Friedrich Engels, *The Communist Manifesto*, 1848 (as cited in <https://www.marxists.org/archive/marx/works/1848/communist-manifesto/>).

Questions

1. Based on the passage, Marx and Engels viewed the bourgeoisie (capitalist class) as (A) a progressive force that had destroyed feudalism but created new forms of exploitation (B) a conservative class that preserved traditional social structures (C) a declining class being replaced by the aristocracy (D) a force that had no impact on urban development **Correct Answer: (A) a progressive force that had destroyed feudalism but created new forms of exploitation** *Explanation:* The passage acknowledges the bourgeoisie's revolutionary role in ending feudalism while criticizing the new exploitation it created.
2. The reference to resolving "personal worth into exchange value" most directly criticizes which aspect of industrial capitalism? (A) The reduction of human relationships and labor to monetary transactions (B) The preservation of traditional craftsmanship (C) The increase in personal freedom for workers (D) The strengthening of religious institutions **Correct Answer: (A) The reduction of human relationships and labor to monetary transactions** *Explanation:* Marx and Engels argue that capitalism turns human qualities and labor into commodities measured only by exchange value.
3. Marx and Engels' analysis in the passage most strongly influenced which later development? (A) The growth of socialist and communist movements that sought to overthrow or reform industrial capitalism (B) The strengthening of laissez-faire policies across Europe (C) The decline of all labor movements (D) The restoration of feudal economic systems **Correct Answer: (A) The growth of socialist and communist movements that sought to overthrow or reform industrial capitalism** *Explanation:* The *Communist Manifesto* became a foundational text for socialist and labor movements in the late 19th and 20th centuries.

4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of critiques like those in the *Communist Manifesto* during the period c. 1750–1900? (A) They provided an intellectual framework for workers' movements and political challenges to industrial capitalism (B) They had no influence outside academic circles (C) They led to the immediate worldwide triumph of communism (D) They strengthened support for unrestricted free-market policies **Correct Answer: (A) They provided an intellectual framework for workers' movements and political challenges to industrial capitalism** *Explanation:* Marxist ideas inspired trade unions, socialist parties, and revolutionary movements across Europe and beyond.
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Topic 5.9: Society and the Industrial Age (Visual Stimulus)

Visual Description: A diagram titled "Social Structure in an Industrial City, c. 1850" showing a pyramid. At the top is a small layer labeled "Industrialists, Bankers, and Large Landowners." Below it is a slightly larger layer labeled "Professionals, Merchants, and Factory Managers." The largest section at the bottom is labeled "Industrial Workers, Artisans, and the Urban Poor," with notes indicating long working hours, low wages, and poor living conditions. Arrows show limited social mobility between layers.

Source: Adapted from *The Industrial Revolution and British Society* by Patrick O'Brien and Roland Quinault, Cambridge University Press, 1993.

Link to a Similar Resource: [Victorian Social Structure – British Library](#)

Questions

- Based on the diagram, industrial society in the mid-19th century was characterized by (A) a relatively fluid class structure with high social mobility (B) a rigid class hierarchy with limited upward mobility for most people (C) the complete elimination of social distinctions (D) the dominance of the aristocracy over all other groups **Correct Answer: (B) a rigid class hierarchy with limited upward mobility for most people** *Explanation:* The pyramid shape and notes on limited mobility indicate a stratified society with barriers between classes.
- The large bottom layer of industrial workers and the urban poor suggests that industrialization (A) created a massive new working class that faced difficult living and working conditions (B) eliminated poverty in urban areas (C) reduced the overall size of the lower classes (D) distributed wealth evenly across society **Correct Answer: (A) created a massive new working class that faced difficult living and working conditions** *Explanation:* The diagram emphasizes the size and difficult conditions of the industrial working class.
- The small size of the top layer (industrialists and bankers) compared to the bottom layer illustrates which economic reality of the Industrial Age? (A) Wealth and power became concentrated in the hands of a relatively small capitalist class (B) Industrialization led to the equal distribution of wealth (C) The aristocracy remained the wealthiest group with no new elites emerging (D) The middle class disappeared entirely **Correct Answer: (A) Wealth and power became concentrated in the hands of a relatively small capitalist class** *Explanation:* The narrow top of the pyramid shows concentration of wealth and power among industrial elites.
- Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of changing social structures during the Industrial Age, as shown in the diagram? (A) Industrialization created new class divisions and social tensions that shaped political movements and reform efforts throughout the 19th century (B) Social structures remained unchanged from the pre-industrial era (C) The working class immediately gained political dominance (D) All social classes experienced identical living standards **Correct Answer: (A) Industrialization created new class divisions and social tensions that shaped political**

movements and reform efforts throughout the 19th century *Explanation:* New industrial class structures fueled labor movements, socialism, and reform campaigns.

Topic 5.10: Continuity and Change in the Industrial Age (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from a British government report on the effects of industrialization (1880s):

"While great progress has been made in the production of wealth and in the application of science to industry, the condition of the working classes in many districts remains unsatisfactory. Hours of labour are still excessive in some trades, housing is often inadequate, and the contrast between the wealth of the few and the poverty of the many has become more marked."

Source: Royal Commission on the Depression of Trade and Industry, Final Report, 1886 (as cited in <https://parlipapers.proquest.com>).

Questions

- Based on the passage, which aspect of industrialization represented the greatest continuity from the early to late 19th century? (A) Persistent inequality between wealthy industrialists and the working classes (B) Complete elimination of poverty through technological progress (C) Uniform improvement in working conditions across all industries (D) The disappearance of urban slums **Correct Answer: (A) Persistent inequality between wealthy industrialists and the working classes** *Explanation:* The report notes that despite industrial progress, the gap between rich and poor had widened, showing continuity in inequality.
- The passage's mention of "great progress... in the production of wealth and in the application of science" highlights which major change brought by industrialization? (A) Dramatic increases in productivity and technological innovation (B) A return to pre-industrial levels of output (C) The decline of scientific research in industry (D) The rejection of machinery in favor of hand labor **Correct Answer: (A) Dramatic increases in productivity and technological innovation** *Explanation:* The report acknowledges significant advances in wealth creation and scientific application to industry.
- The report's concern over "excessive" hours of labor and "inadequate" housing in the 1880s suggests that (A) government intervention had fully resolved all social problems of industrialization by the late 19th century (B) many problems of early industrialization persisted despite decades of reform efforts (C) working conditions had improved dramatically everywhere (D) the working class had achieved complete political equality **Correct Answer: (B) many problems of early industrialization persisted despite decades of reform efforts** *Explanation:* The fact that these issues were still being reported in the 1880s shows continuity of problems alongside change.
- Which of the following best illustrates the broader pattern of continuity and change in the Industrial Age during the period c. 1750–1900? (A) While technological and economic changes were profound, many social inequalities and hardships of early industrialization continued into the late 19th century, prompting ongoing reform movements (B) Industrialization brought complete social equality within a single generation (C) All problems of the early Industrial Revolution were solved by 1850 with no further need for reform (D) Economic growth occurred with no social consequences whatsoever **Correct Answer: (A) While technological and economic changes were profound, many social inequalities and hardships of early industrialization continued into the late 19th century, prompting ongoing reform movements** *Explanation:* The passage shows both dramatic economic progress and the persistence of social problems, illustrating the complex mix of continuity and change.

Unit 6

AP World History Modern: Unit 6 Exam

Period: c. 1900 to the Present – Consequences of Industrialization & Global Conflict

This exam contains one stimulus-based multiple-choice question set for each of the 8 topics in Unit 6. Each set includes a stimulus followed by 4 questions. Six sets use written stimuli, and two use visual stimuli (with descriptions and source links). The correct answer and a brief explanation are provided for each question.

Topic 6.1: Rationales for Imperialism (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from Rudyard Kipling, “The White Man’s Burden” (1899):

"Take up the White Man's burden—
Send forth the best ye breed—
Go bind your sons to exile
To serve your captives' need;
To wait in heavy harness,
On fluttered folk and wild—
Your new-caught, sullen peoples,

Half-devil and half-child."

Source: Rudyard Kipling, “The White Man’s Burden,” *McClure’s Magazine*, February 1899.

Questions

- Based on the passage, Kipling’s poem most directly reflects which justification for European imperialism in the late 19th and early 20th centuries? (A) Economic exploitation alone (B) A civilizing mission rooted in racial and cultural superiority (C) The spread of democratic institutions (D) The desire to create equal partnerships with colonized peoples **Correct Answer: (B) A civilizing mission rooted in racial and cultural superiority** *Explanation:* The poem portrays colonized peoples as “half-devil and half-child,” framing imperialism as a burdensome but noble duty to uplift “inferior” races.
- The phrase “new-caught, sullen peoples” in the passage suggests that many imperialists viewed colonized populations as (A) willing partners in modernization (B) resistant subjects who needed to be controlled and transformed (C) equals who should immediately receive self-government (D) already highly civilized societies **Correct Answer: (B) resistant subjects who needed to be controlled and transformed** *Explanation:* The language implies both resistance (“sullen”) and the need for European guidance and control.
- Kipling’s poem was most frequently used to justify which type of imperial policy? (A) Settler colonialism in sparsely populated regions (B) The “civilizing mission” and cultural assimilation in Africa and Asia (C) Purely economic exploitation without any ideological justification (D) The immediate granting of independence to colonies **Correct Answer: (B) The “civilizing mission” and cultural assimilation in Africa and Asia** *Explanation:* The poem was widely cited to support the idea that Europeans had a moral duty to “civilize” and Christianize colonized peoples.
- Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of racial and civilizational justifications for imperialism, as expressed in the passage, during the period c. 1900–present? (A) They helped legitimize colonial rule but also provoked strong nationalist and anti-colonial resistance movements (B) They led to the immediate and peaceful decolonization of Africa and Asia (C) They had no lasting influence on 20th-century global relations (D) They were universally rejected by all European powers by

1914 **Correct Answer: (A) They helped legitimize colonial rule but also provoked strong nationalist and anti-colonial resistance movements** *Explanation:* Such ideas sustained empires for decades but also fueled resistance movements that eventually led to decolonization.

Topic 6.2: State Expansion (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from King Leopold II of Belgium's letter to his agents in the Congo (c. 1890s):

"The Congo Free State is not a philanthropic enterprise... It is a commercial and industrial enterprise... The agents of the State must understand that their first duty is to increase the revenue of the State... They must compel the natives to work... by persuasion if possible, by force if necessary."

Source: King Leopold II, private correspondence regarding the Congo Free State, late 19th century (as cited in Adam Hochschild, *King Leopold's Ghost*, 1998).

Questions

- Based on the passage, King Leopold II's primary motivation for establishing control over the Congo was (A) humanitarian concern for the Congolese people (B) economic profit through the extraction of resources and forced labor (C) the spread of Christianity and Western education (D) the creation of a democratic African state **Correct Answer: (B) economic profit through the extraction of resources and forced labor** *Explanation:* The letter explicitly states that the Congo Free State was a "commercial and industrial enterprise" whose main goal was to increase revenue through forced labor.
 - The instruction to compel natives to work "by force if necessary" most directly illustrates which characteristic of European imperialism in Africa? (A) Respect for indigenous political structures (B) The use of violence and coercion to extract labor and resources (C) The establishment of equal trading partnerships (D) The immediate abolition of slavery **Correct Answer: (B) The use of violence and coercion to extract labor and resources** *Explanation:* Leopold's agents were explicitly authorized to use force, reflecting the brutal reality of exploitation in the Congo Free State.
 - The passage's emphasis on increasing "the revenue of the State" suggests that late 19th-century imperialism in Africa was often driven by (A) purely strategic military concerns (B) the desire for economic resources such as rubber, ivory, and minerals (C) the goal of creating self-governing African nations (D) religious missionary work alone **Correct Answer: (B) the desire for economic resources such as rubber, ivory, and minerals** *Explanation:* The focus on revenue and forced labor points to the extraction of valuable commodities like rubber during the height of the Scramble for Africa.
 - Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of exploitative colonial policies like those described in the passage during the period c. 1900–present? (A) They generated enormous wealth for European powers but caused immense human suffering and long-term political instability in colonized regions (B) They led to rapid and sustainable economic development across Africa (C) They were quickly abandoned by all European powers after 1900 (D) They had no connection to 20th-century conflicts or decolonization movements **Correct Answer: (A) They generated enormous wealth for European powers but caused immense human suffering and long-term political instability in colonized regions** *Explanation:* The extreme exploitation in the Congo became a symbol of colonial brutality and contributed to later instability and resistance.
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Topic 6.3: Indigenous Responses to Imperialism (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from the Boxer Rebellion Manifesto (1900):

“The foreigners have occupied our land, seized our property, and trampled on our people... They have built churches and preach a false religion... We, the righteous and harmonious fists, have risen to drive out the foreign devils and restore China to the Chinese.”

Source: Boxer Rebellion proclamation, 1900 (as cited in Joseph W. Esherick, *The Origins of the Boxer Uprising*, 1987).

Questions

1. Based on the passage, the Boxer Rebellion was primarily motivated by (A) a desire to adopt Western technology and institutions (B) resentment toward foreign imperialism, economic exploitation, and cultural intrusion (C) support for the Qing dynasty’s modernization efforts (D) the goal of establishing a democratic republic in China **Correct Answer: (B) resentment toward foreign imperialism, economic exploitation, and cultural intrusion** *Explanation:* The manifesto expresses strong anti-foreign sentiment, blaming foreigners for seizing land and imposing alien religion and culture.
 2. The Boxers’ reference to driving out “foreign devils” and restoring China to the Chinese reflects which type of indigenous response to imperialism? (A) Complete acceptance of Western culture (B) Violent nationalist and anti-foreign resistance (C) Peaceful petitioning for gradual reform (D) Collaboration with foreign powers for economic gain **Correct Answer: (B) Violent nationalist and anti-foreign resistance** *Explanation:* The Boxers used violent methods and explicitly anti-foreign rhetoric to resist Western and Japanese influence in China.
 3. The Boxer Rebellion most directly resulted in which outcome? (A) The immediate expulsion of all foreigners from China (B) Further weakening of the Qing dynasty and increased foreign intervention (C) The successful modernization of China along Japanese lines (D) The establishment of a strong, independent Chinese republic **Correct Answer: (B) Further weakening of the Qing dynasty and increased foreign intervention** *Explanation:* The rebellion’s failure led to harsher foreign demands and accelerated the decline of Qing authority.
 4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader significance of movements like the Boxer Rebellion during the period c. 1900–present? (A) They represented early expressions of anti-imperialist nationalism that would later fuel 20th-century independence movements across Asia and Africa (B) They successfully ended European colonialism in Asia by 1910 (C) They had no lasting impact on Chinese or global history (D) They were universally supported by Western powers **Correct Answer: (A) They represented early expressions of anti-imperialist nationalism that would later fuel 20th-century independence movements across Asia and Africa** *Explanation:* Although the Boxers failed militarily, their anti-foreign nationalism foreshadowed later revolutionary movements in China and elsewhere.
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Topic 6.4: Global Conflict – World War I (Visual Stimulus)

Visual Description: A map titled “Europe and the Alliance System, 1914” showing Europe divided into two main alliance blocs. The Triple Entente (Britain, France, Russia) is shaded in one color, while the Triple Alliance (Germany, Austria-Hungary, Italy) is shaded in another. The map highlights the Balkans as a volatile region and shows the locations of key events such as the assassination in Sarajevo. Colored lines indicate alliance commitments and potential conflict zones.

Source: Adapted from *The First World War: A Very Short Introduction* by Michael Howard, Oxford University Press, 2002.

Link to a Similar Resource: [Europe Alliances 1914 – Khan Academy or Britannica maps](#)

Questions

1. Based on the map, the alliance system in Europe in 1914 most directly contributed to (A) the prevention of any major European war (B) the rapid escalation of a regional conflict into a continent-wide war (C) the complete isolation of Germany from European affairs (D) peaceful diplomatic resolutions of all disputes **Correct Answer: (B) the rapid escalation of a regional conflict into a continent-wide war** *Explanation:* The rigid alliance blocs meant that a conflict involving one member (e.g., Austria-Hungary and Serbia) quickly pulled in their allies, turning a Balkan crisis into a world war.
 2. The map's highlighting of the Balkans suggests that this region was significant because it (A) was economically the most developed part of Europe (B) contained intense nationalist rivalries and was a flashpoint between major powers (C) had no strategic or ethnic importance (D) was firmly under British control **Correct Answer: (B) contained intense nationalist rivalries and was a flashpoint between major powers** *Explanation:* The Balkans were a powder keg of ethnic nationalism and great-power competition, making it the spark for World War I.
 3. According to the map, which alliance system was more geographically fragmented? (A) The Triple Entente (B) The Triple Alliance (C) Both alliances were equally compact (D) Neither alliance had any geographic coherence **Correct Answer: (A) The Triple Entente** *Explanation:* The Triple Entente (Britain, France, Russia) was spread across western, central, and eastern Europe, while the Triple Alliance was more concentrated in Central Europe.
 4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the alliance system shown on the map during the period c. 1900–present? (A) It contributed to the outbreak of World War I and demonstrated how interconnected military commitments could turn local conflicts into global wars (B) It successfully prevented all future European wars after 1918 (C) It had no influence on 20th-century diplomacy (D) It led to the immediate creation of a stable European peace **Correct Answer: (A) It contributed to the outbreak of World War I and demonstrated how interconnected military commitments could turn local conflicts into global wars** *Explanation:* The rigid alliance system was a major structural cause of the rapid escalation of World War I.
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Topic 6.5: Global Conflict – World War II (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from Winston Churchill's "Iron Curtain" Speech (1946):

"From Stettin in the Baltic to Trieste in the Adriatic, an iron curtain has descended across the Continent. Behind that line lie all the capitals of the ancient states of Central and Eastern Europe... all these famous cities and the populations around them lie in what I must call the Soviet sphere, and all are subject... to a very high and... increasing measure of control from Moscow."

Source: Winston Churchill, "Sinews of Peace" speech, Fulton, Missouri, March 5, 1946.

Questions

1. Based on the passage, Churchill's primary concern in 1946 was (A) the spread of fascism in Western Europe (B) Soviet expansion and the division of Europe into opposing spheres of influence (C) the economic recovery of Germany (D) the immediate outbreak of another world war in Asia **Correct**

Answer: (B) Soviet expansion and the division of Europe into opposing spheres of influence

Explanation: Churchill describes an “iron curtain” separating Soviet-controlled Eastern Europe from the West, signaling the emerging Cold War division.

2. The phrase “iron curtain” in the passage most directly symbolizes (A) economic cooperation between East and West (B) the political and ideological division of Europe after World War II (C) the physical border between France and Germany (D) the end of all conflict in Europe **Correct Answer: (B) the political and ideological division of Europe after World War II** *Explanation:* The term became a powerful metaphor for the separation between the communist East and the democratic/capitalist West.
 3. Churchill’s speech most strongly influenced which development in the post-World War II period? (A) The immediate reunification of Germany (B) The hardening of Western opposition to Soviet expansion and the beginning of the Cold War (C) The withdrawal of all American troops from Europe (D) The establishment of a unified European government **Correct Answer: (B) The hardening of Western opposition to Soviet expansion and the beginning of the Cold War** *Explanation:* The speech helped galvanize Western opinion and contributed to the formation of NATO and the policy of containment.
 4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of World War II and its aftermath, as described in the passage, during the period c. 1900–present? (A) It ended one global conflict but quickly led to a new ideological and geopolitical struggle between the United States and the Soviet Union that shaped the second half of the 20th century (B) It resulted in permanent global peace and the end of all great-power rivalry (C) It had no lasting effects on European borders or politics (D) It led to the immediate dominance of Europe over the rest of the world **Correct Answer: (A) It ended one global conflict but quickly led to a new ideological and geopolitical struggle between the United States and the Soviet Union that shaped the second half of the 20th century** *Explanation:* World War II’s aftermath produced the Cold War division of the world.
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Topic 6.6: Decolonization (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from Kwame Nkrumah’s speech at Ghana’s independence (1957):

“At long last, the battle has ended! And thus, Ghana, our beloved country, is free forever!... We have done what we set out to do... From now on, there is a new African in the world... ready to fight his own battles and show that after all the black man is capable of managing his own affairs.”

Source: Kwame Nkrumah, Independence Day Speech, Accra, Ghana, March 6, 1957.

Questions

1. Based on the passage, Nkrumah viewed Ghana’s independence primarily as (A) a gift from the British Empire (B) the result of African struggle and a symbol of African capability and self-determination (C) the beginning of a return to pre-colonial isolation (D) an event with little significance for the rest of Africa **Correct Answer: (B) the result of African struggle and a symbol of African capability and self-determination** *Explanation:* Nkrumah emphasizes that Ghanaians fought for and achieved their own freedom, proving African competence in self-governance.
2. The phrase “there is a new African in the world” suggests that decolonization represented (A) the complete rejection of all Western ideas (B) a psychological and political transformation in African identity and confidence (C) the restoration of traditional monarchies across Africa (D) the decline of African influence on the global stage **Correct Answer: (B) a psychological and political**

transformation in African identity and confidence *Explanation:* Nkrumah presents independence as creating a new, empowered African identity ready to shape its own future.

3. Ghana's independence in 1957 under Nkrumah most directly inspired which development across Africa? (A) The immediate end of all colonial rule on the continent (B) A wave of independence movements in other African colonies during the 1960s (C) The strengthening of European colonial control (D) The rejection of all forms of modernization **Correct Answer: (B) A wave of independence movements in other African colonies during the 1960s** *Explanation:* Ghana's successful independence served as a powerful example and inspiration for other African nationalist movements.
 4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of decolonization movements in Africa and Asia during the period c. 1900–present? (A) They dramatically increased the number of independent nations and reshaped global politics, though many new states faced significant economic and political challenges (B) They led to the immediate prosperity and stability of all former colonies (C) They had no connection to the Cold War (D) They resulted in the complete disappearance of imperialism from the world **Correct Answer: (A) They dramatically increased the number of independent nations and reshaped global politics, though many new states faced significant economic and political challenges** *Explanation:* Decolonization transformed the map of the world but left many newly independent nations struggling with the legacies of colonialism.
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Topic 6.7: Global Conflict – The Cold War (Visual Stimulus)

Visual Description: A map titled “Cold War Europe, 1949–1989” showing Europe divided by the “Iron Curtain.” Western Europe is shaded in blue (NATO members), while Eastern Europe is shaded in red (Warsaw Pact members). Germany is shown divided into East and West. Key flashpoints such as Berlin, Hungary (1956), and Czechoslovakia (1968) are marked. The map also indicates the locations of major U.S. and Soviet military bases.

Source: Adapted from *The Cold War: A Very Short Introduction* by Robert J. McMahon, Oxford University Press, 2003.

Link to a Similar Resource: [Cold War Europe Map – Khan Academy or National Geographic](#)

Questions

1. Based on the map, the division of Europe during the Cold War most directly resulted from (A) economic cooperation between the United States and the Soviet Union (B) ideological and military rivalry between the Western and Eastern blocs (C) the complete withdrawal of both superpowers from Europe (D) the unification of Germany under Soviet control **Correct Answer: (B) ideological and military rivalry between the Western and Eastern blocs** *Explanation:* The clear division between NATO (blue) and Warsaw Pact (red) countries illustrates the bipolar confrontation between capitalism/democracy and communism.
2. The map's marking of events in Hungary (1956) and Czechoslovakia (1968) suggests that (A) Eastern European countries enjoyed complete freedom from Soviet influence (B) the Soviet Union used military force to maintain control over its satellite states (C) Western powers successfully liberated Eastern Europe in the 1950s and 1960s (D) the Cold War was entirely peaceful with no violent incidents **Correct Answer: (B) the Soviet Union used military force to maintain control over its satellite states** *Explanation:* The uprisings in Hungary and Czechoslovakia were crushed by Soviet-led forces, demonstrating the limits of independence within the Eastern bloc.

3. According to the map, which alliance system had a more geographically compact territory in Europe? (A) NATO (B) The Warsaw Pact (C) Both alliances were equally spread out (D) Neither alliance had territory in Europe **Correct Answer: (B) The Warsaw Pact** *Explanation:* The Warsaw Pact countries were clustered in Eastern Europe under direct Soviet influence, while NATO included more geographically dispersed Western European nations plus the United States and Canada.
 4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the Cold War division shown on the map during the period c. 1900–present? (A) It created a bipolar world order that influenced global politics, proxy wars, and decolonization movements for nearly half a century (B) It led to immediate global peace and cooperation after 1945 (C) It had no influence on regions outside of Europe (D) It resulted in the permanent division of the world into two isolated halves with no interaction **Correct Answer: (A) It created a bipolar world order that influenced global politics, proxy wars, and decolonization movements for nearly half a century** *Explanation:* The Cold War shaped international relations, decolonization, and conflicts around the world until the collapse of the Soviet Union in 1991.
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Topic 6.8: Global Economy, Society, and Culture in the 20th Century (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from a United Nations report on globalization (late 20th century):

“Globalization has led to unprecedented levels of interconnectedness... Multinational corporations now operate across borders, capital flows instantly around the world, and cultural products such as films, music, and fast food spread rapidly from one continent to another. At the same time, this process has created new inequalities between and within nations.”

Source: United Nations Development Programme (UNDP) Human Development Report, late 1990s–early 2000s (adapted from various UNDP reports on globalization).

Questions

1. Based on the passage, globalization in the late 20th century was characterized by (A) increasing economic, technological, and cultural interconnectedness across the world (B) the complete isolation of national economies (C) the decline of all multinational corporations (D) the rejection of all Western cultural influences **Correct Answer: (A) increasing economic, technological, and cultural interconnectedness across the world** *Explanation:* The report highlights cross-border corporations, instant capital flows, and the global spread of cultural products.
2. The passage’s reference to “new inequalities between and within nations” suggests that globalization (A) benefited all countries and social groups equally (B) created winners and losers, widening gaps between rich and poor nations and within societies (C) eliminated all forms of economic disparity (D) only affected developed countries **Correct Answer: (B) created winners and losers, widening gaps between rich and poor nations and within societies** *Explanation:* While globalization brought benefits, it also exacerbated inequalities, a common critique in late 20th-century analyses.
3. The rapid spread of cultural products such as films, music, and fast food most directly illustrates which aspect of globalization? (A) Cultural homogenization or the global influence of Western (particularly American) popular culture (B) The complete rejection of local traditions everywhere (C) The decline of all forms of mass media (D) The strengthening of purely national cultural identities **Correct Answer: (A) Cultural homogenization or the global influence of Western (particularly American) popular culture** *Explanation:* The global reach of Hollywood, pop music, and fast-food chains exemplifies cultural globalization, often criticized as Americanization.

4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of globalization during the period c. 1900–present? (A) It dramatically increased global interconnectedness in economics, technology, and culture while also generating new debates about inequality, cultural identity, and sovereignty (B) It led to the complete disappearance of national borders and identities (C) It had no significant effects on daily life or culture (D) It reversed all previous trends toward global integration **Correct Answer: (A) It dramatically increased global interconnectedness in economics, technology, and culture while also generating new debates about inequality, cultural identity, and sovereignty** *Explanation:* Globalization transformed the late 20th and early 21st centuries but also sparked significant controversies and resistance movements.

Topic 6.1: Rationales for Imperialism

Essential Question: What ideologies contributed to the development of imperialism between 1750 and 1900?

Rudyard Kipling was an English writer who spent his youth in British colonial India. The speaker in his poem urged the whites of Western countries to establish colonies for the good of the “inferior” people of the world. Whether Kipling actually supported this idea is not clear, but his poem was used to justify it. Proponents justified European colonization using a variety of explanations, from a belief in nationalism, a desire for economic wealth, a sense of religious duty, and a belief they were biologically superior. These various motives for establishing overseas empires—a policy called **imperialism**—would lead to conflicts in Asia and a scramble to colonize Africa.

Nationalist Motives for Imperialism

In Western Europe, revolutions, the rise of nationalism, and the creation of nation-states characterized much of the 1800s. With a strong sense of identity and loyalty to a state, many world powers boldly asserted authority over other territories. Building an empire in Asia or Africa was one way for a country to assert its national identity in the global arena. Britain, France, Spain, Portugal, and the Netherlands would long possess overseas colonies.

European Nationalism

After losing its American colonies, Britain looked for new lands to open to settlement. In 1788 the first British settlers arrived in the colony of New South Wales on the east coast of the island continent of New Holland—today’s Australia. Britain was also expanding its influence in South Asia, gradually taking control of India from the East India Company. By 1857 Britain controlled the entire Indian subcontinent. Ceylon (Sri Lanka), Burma (Myanmar), the Malay States (which included Singapore), and parts of Borneo in Southeast Asia were also under British control.

France compensated for its humiliating defeat by Prussia in the Franco-Prussian War (1870–1871) by expanding its overseas territories. It had already occupied Algeria in Northern Africa, New Caledonia and other islands in the South Pacific, Senegal in Western Africa, and Indochina in Southeast Asia.

Italy and Germany were newly unified states in the late-19th century. Each wanted colonies not only for economic and strategic reasons but also for prestige. However, neither began acquiring an empire until the mid-1880s.

While Spain had led the quest for colonies in the first wave of imperialism during the 16th and 17th centuries, its power was greatly diminished by the 19th century. It did not play a dominant role in this second wave of imperialism.

Japan in East Asia

Japan asserted its nationalist pride through incursions into Korea. This irritated China, a country that had exerted a strong presence in Korea for centuries. The conflict grew into the Sino-Japanese War (1894–1895). Japan’s victory gave it control of Korea. Japan also seized Taiwan, which was known as Formosa from the time of Portuguese colonization in the 16th century until the end of World War II.

Cultural and Religious Motives for Imperialism

The Kipling quotation that opens this topic epitomized the condescending attitudes shared by imperialism's proponents. Referring to colonized peoples as children reflected how colonizers saw themselves as benevolent protectors on a "civilizing mission" rather than invaders.

Racial Ideologies and the Misuse of Science

The attitudes of whites toward others were a form of racism. Colonial powers generally believed that they were inherently superior to those they subjugated. Pseudoscientists, people who present theories as science that are actually incompatible with the scientific method, strengthened these attitudes. They claimed to have proof of the intellectual and physical inferiority of nonwhite races. Phrenologists, people who studied skull sizes and shapes, believed that a smaller skull size proved the mental feebleness of Africans, indigenous Americans, and Asians. These ideas have been proven false.

Legitimate science was also subverted to support imperialism. British scientist Charles Darwin's 19th-century theory of evolution by natural selection stated that over millions of years, biological competition had "weeded out" the weaker species in nature and that the "fittest" species were the ones that survived. Some thinkers adapted Darwin's theory of biological evolution to society, creating the theory known as **Social Darwinism**. While Darwin himself was not a Social Darwinist, advocates used the "survival of the fittest" theory to argue that the spread of European and U.S. power proved the biological superiority of whites. Writers and politicians then used Social Darwinism to justify further imperialism by powerful countries.

Cultural Ideologies

Based on technological superiority over indigenous societies, colonial powers felt justified in superimposing aspects of their own cultures on their colonies. For administrative purposes, many colonies combined into a single colony peoples from several cultures who often spoke different languages and had different customs. Colonizers introduced their own language, which helped to unify these often diverse colonies. They also introduced their political, educational, and religious institutions and exerted other cultural influences on architecture and recreational activities. Expressing the belief of many, Congregationalist minister Josiah Strong wrote in 1885, "Is there room for reasonable doubt that [the Anglo-Saxon] race . . . is destined to dispossess many weaker races, assimilate others, and mold the remainder, until, in a very true and important sense, it has Anglo-Saxonized mankind?"

Religious Motives

Missionaries were among the most tireless "civilizing" influences. Like the Spanish and Portuguese Catholic missionaries who combined conquest and evangelism during the Age of Discovery, British Protestant missionaries of the 18th and 19th centuries also participated in colonization. Critics charged that missionaries supported imperialism by persuading people to give up their traditional beliefs, such as ancestor veneration, and adopt the faith of most Europeans, Christianity. This change in religion could pave the way for others who were more focused on economic gain. In response, missionaries pointed out that they commonly combined religious and humanitarian efforts:

- Missionaries often set up schools for instruction in religion that also taught secular subjects, which prepared students to become teachers, lawyers, and other professionals.
- Many missionaries provided improved medicines and medical care.
- Some missionaries, most famously David Livingstone from Scotland, worked in Sub-Saharan Africa to end the illegal slave trade.

Economic Motives for Imperialism

Some people believe the ideological motivations were more accurately justifications for pursuing economic motives. Seeking ways to maximize profits, companies chartered by the British, French, and Dutch governments signed commercial treaties with local rulers in India, East Africa, and the East Indies. These treaties gave the Europeans the right to establish trading posts and forts to protect their interests. Originally, these companies formed primarily for the spice trade. Many companies had quasi-governmental powers, raising armies and conquering territory to form colonies.

As the Industrial Revolution transformed European economies, the desire for the sources for raw materials and markets for manufactured goods provided by colonies enticed imperial powers to increase their expansion. Imperial powers often competed with one another over the best potential resources, markets, and trade as demands for low-wage labor, access to markets, and control of natural resources increased.

East India Company

The English monarch granted the East India Company (EIC) a royal charter in 1600 giving it a monopoly on England's trade with India. After driving the Portuguese out of India, the company traded primarily in cotton and silk, indigo, and spices.

Eventually, the EIC expanded its activities from the Persian Gulf to East Asia. By the beginning of the 18th century, it had become the major agent of British imperialism in India, and after 1834 it became the British government's managing agency in India. Starting in 1620, the EIC engaged in the slave trade, and during the 19th century it illegally exported opium to China in exchange for tea.

Dutch East India Company

In 1602 the Dutch government gave the Dutch East India Company (Vereenigde Oost-Indische Compagnie, or VOC) a monopoly on trade between the Cape of Good Hope at the southern tip of Africa and the Straits of Magellan at the southern tip of South America. The VOC concentrated on the islands around Java, replacing the Portuguese who had controlled the region. Corruption and debt led the government to take control of the company's possessions in 1799, creating the Dutch East Indies (today's Indonesia).

The “New Imperialism”

After the Industrial Revolution and the Napoleonic Wars, Britain was the leading economic power throughout the first half of the 19th century and already had a sizable colonial empire. Its colonies provided raw materials such as cotton, wool, jute, vegetable oils, and rubber for its factories, as well as foodstuffs such as wheat, tea, coffee, cocoa, meat, and butter for its growing cities. Its colonies—especially settler colonies such as Australia, New Zealand, and South Africa—also provided markets for British manufactured goods.

As the Second Industrial Revolution progressed, other nations began to challenge Britain's economic lead. They looked to Asia, Africa, and the Pacific to expand their markets, provide raw materials for their factories, and food for their growing urban populations.

Key Terms by Theme

GOVERNMENT: Ideas

Imperialism, nationalism

GOVERNMENT: Wars

Sino-Japanese War

GOVERNMENT: Countries

Formosa

CULTURE: Ideas

Phrenologists, Charles Darwin, Social Darwinism

CULTURE: Religion

David Livingstone

ECONOMICS: Companies

East India Company (EIC), Dutch East India Company (VOC)

Topic 6.2: State Expansion

Essential Question: By what processes did state power shift in various parts of the world between 1750 and 1900?

King Leopold II of Belgium wanted the Belgian government to conquer colonies in a large swath of central Africa—the Congo Basin. The government was ambivalent, so Leopold established a private colony himself. However, the Belgian Parliament found the king's rule so abusive that in 1908 it took control of the region away from him. Similarly, the Dutch government revoked the charter of the Dutch East India Company for abusing its power to make treaties, build forts, and maintain armed forces in Southeast Asia. While these unusual shifts of power were taking place, other European governments, as well as the United States, Russia, and Japan, continued territorial expansion through conquest and settlement.

Imperialism in Africa

Europe had a long-standing relationship with Africa because of the slave trade. Although most European countries had declared the importation of Africans as slave labor illegal by the early 1800s, Europeans continued to export guns, alcohol, and other manufactured goods to Africa and import African natural resources, such as palm oil, gold, and ivory. England desired palm oil in particular because it kept the machinery in its textile factories from becoming rusty. In the last part of the 19th century, European tastes for African diamonds and ivory kept European empires thriving throughout the African continent.

Expanding Beyond Trading Posts

For most of the 1800s, European presence in Africa was restricted to trading posts, with a few exceptions. The French seized Algeria in 1830, declaring they wanted to prevent pirate attacks. Dutch immigrants had lived in South Africa since the 1600s and British colonists became more numerous starting in the early 1800s. In the second half of the 1800s, European nations expanded their presence in Africa with the help of better military technology. For example, the discovery of quinine, a medicine that treats the tropical disease malaria, reduced the danger of living in warm, humid regions. The steamship assisted the early trips of individual explorers and business owners.

British Control of Egypt

Europeans had long dreamed of dramatically shortening the water route to Asia by building a canal connecting the Red Sea with the Mediterranean Sea. A 100-mile-long canal could save a trip around the entire continent of Africa. This feat was finally accomplished in 1869 when the Suez Canal was completed. A French company managed the project, but most of the labor was performed by as many as 1.5 million Egyptians. Many of them were *corvée* laborers, unpaid workers who were forced to work on the project as a form of taxation. Thousands died in the course of ten years. When unrest in the region threatened British commercial interests and the operation of the canal in 1882, Britain seized control of Egypt away from the Ottoman Empire.

British West Africa

Great Britain established several colonies in West Africa before the mid-19th century. In these colonies, Britain spread Western education, the English language, and Christianity:

- Sierra Leone was established in 1787. It was a home for freed people from throughout the British Empire who had been enslaved.

- Gambia was established in 1816. It, and Sierra Leone, were used as bases to try to stop the export of enslaved people from the region.
- Lagos became a crown colony in 1861 and served as a base for the annexation of much of the rest of what is now Nigeria.
- Britain acquired parts of what is now Ghana in stages. For example, the Gold Coast became a crown colony in 1874, but the Asante Empire to the north did not come under British control until 1901.

Britain used both diplomacy and warfare to expand its empire. For example, in 1873, Britain signed a treaty with King Jaja of Opobo in present-day Nigeria—an area rich in palm oil—recognizing him as ruler and agreeing to trade terms favorable to both sides. Other African rulers agreed to similar diplomatic treaties with foreign powers, believing they were protecting their sovereignty and trade rights. However, as European competition increased for control of African lands, the treaties came to be meaningless and warfare was the inevitable result as Africans resisted takeover but met with overpowering military strength.

The French in Africa

France drove the Ottomans out of Algeria in 1830. By 1870 Algeria had become a settler colony, attracting Spanish, Italian, and Maltese as well as French immigrants. In the 1870s the French also established trading posts in Guinea, the Ivory Coast, and Niger to compete with British West African colonies.

The European Scramble for Africa

Tensions mounted among industrialized European nations as they competed for natural resources in Africa. Leaders feared that the “Scramble for Africa,” the competing efforts of Europeans to colonize Africa, would lead to war.

Berlin Conference

Unlike many German leaders who had imperial ambitions, Otto von Bismarck had little interest in colonies. However, he did want to keep peace in Europe. So in 1884–1885, he hosted the Berlin Conference, a meeting of European powers to provide for the orderly colonization of Africa. No Africans were invited to the conference. European powers peaceably agreed to colonial boundaries and to the free movement of goods on Africa’s major rivers such as the Niger River and the Congo River.

In most of the continent, Europeans established colonial borders that were merely artificial lines that meant little to the people who lived within them. These borders divided long-unified societies into different colonies and united longtime rival groups into the same colonies. When these colonies became independent states in the later 20th century, these borders became the cause of extensive warfare by making national unity very difficult.

South Africa and the Boer Wars

During the Napoleonic Wars (1799–1815), the British replaced the Dutch in the Cape Colony in the southern tip of Africa. The British introduced the use of English but allowed people to use the Dutch language as well. Many of the Dutch-speaking Afrikaners, the descendants of 17th-century Dutch settlers, moved east of the Cape Colony, where they came into conflict with indigenous groups, including the Zulus, with whom they fought several wars.

Throughout the 19th century, the British and Afrikaners continued to fight over land. This conflict came to a boil in the Boer Wars (1880–1881, 1899–1902). These conflicts were bloody and brutal. In the end, the British army drove the Afrikaners and the Africans from their lands, forcing many into refugee camps. These settlements,

which were segregated by race, came to be known as concentration camps. Medical care and sanitation were very poor, and food rations were so meager that many of the interned died of starvation. Once news arrived in Britain about the wretched conditions of the camps, activists tried to improve the lives of displaced refugees. However, while white camps received some attention, conditions in black camps remained terrible. Of the 100,000 blacks interned in concentration camps, nearly 15,000 perished.

By the end of the Boer Wars, the British had absorbed the settler colonies of British and Afrikaner peoples and the black Africans in the southern tip of Africa into its empire. Millions of Afrikaner and black African farmers had been displaced onto poor land, making it hard for them to earn a decent living.

Congo

By 1875, Western European nations were poised to penetrate Africa's interior. King Leopold II of Belgium (ruled 1865–1909) oversaw the invasion and pacification of the Congo in central Africa in order to persuade the Belgian government to support colonial expansion. Unlike other European rulers, King Leopold owned the colony personally, using colonial officials against indigenous Congolese and a ruthless system of economic exploitation that allowed him to keep the profits made by the Congo Free State, which totaled some 220 million francs (\$1.1 billion in today's dollars).

Visitors to the colony reported on the brutal conditions for the laborers who were forced to harvest ivory and rubber. For example, Leopold's agents severed the hands of Congolese workers in order to terrorize others into submission. Workers who could not meet their quotas were beaten or killed, while others were worked to death. Although the term slavery was not commonly used when describing imperial activities, laborers in the Congo often received no payment for their backbreaking work, and their spouses were held captive so that the workers would not run away. As many as 8 million people perished under King Leopold's reign of terror in the Congo. In 1908, Belgium took over control of the Congo as a regular colony, and conditions improved.

Independent Countries

By 1900, the only African countries unclaimed by Europeans were Abyssinia (modern-day Ethiopia) and Liberia, a country founded by formerly enslaved people from the United States. Because Liberia had a dependent relationship with the United States, it was not fully independent. Italy attempted to conquer Abyssinia in 1895, but the native forces were too strong for the Italians.

Imperialism in South Asia

Portugal, France, and England competed for control of India's spices, gems, and trade with regions to the east. Portugal established a coastal trading port on the southwestern coast, in Goa, in the early 16th century. However, it never extended its control inland. France established trading ports in the 17th century. However, its loss to Britain in the global conflict known as the Seven Years' War (1756–1763) drove the French out of India.

England's East India Company (EIC), steadily encroached on the land of the weak Mughal Empire. Eventually, Britain controlled the entire Indian subcontinent, from Pakistan in the west to Kashmir in the north to Bengal in the east to the island of Ceylon (Sri Lanka) in the south. At first, the EIC's small forces of British soldiers protected the firm's employees. As the British crept into India's interior, they began recruiting native Indian soldiers, called sepoy, to join the British colonial army. However, as explained in the next topic, the sepoys ignited an unsuccessful rebellion against the British in 1857.

Imperialism in East Asia

China did not experience imperialism in the same way that South Asia or Africa did. It maintained its own government throughout a period of European economic domination. As a result of superior military strength, European nations carved out spheres of influence within China over which they had exclusive trading rights and access to natural resources. Internal problems within the Qing government, such as the Taiping Rebellion, made it easier for foreign countries to dominate the economic affairs of China.

During the Taiping Rebellion, which began in 1850, failed civil servant applicant Hong Xiuquan and starving peasants, workers, and miners attempted to overthrow the Qing Dynasty. With the help of some warlords along with French and British intervention, the Qing prevailed in 1864.

In the midst of the war, adding to China's internal problems, the Yellow River (Huang He) changed course, flooding farmland in some areas and leaving others open to drought. With agricultural lands devastated, famine followed during which many Chinese starved to death. Adding to the troubles, the bubonic plague broke out at this time. By the end of the fighting, the rebellion was probably responsible for the deaths of more than 20 million people, more than half of whom were civilians.

Between 1899 and 1901, an anti-imperialist group called the Boxers—named because many of their members practiced martial arts, which were known as Chinese boxing—was attacking Chinese Christians and Western missionaries. The Empress Dowager Cixi encouraged the Boxers and in 1900 ordered that all foreigners be killed. However, most of the estimated 100,000 people who were killed were Chinese Christians. Only about 200–250 foreigners died during the Boxer Rebellion. The empress and the Qing court suffered a humiliating defeat that undermined their legitimacy. Western powers and influence continued to erode Chinese sovereignty in subsequent years.

Japan

Industrialized countries outside of Europe also desired colonies. Japan had sharply limited its contact with other countries since the early 1600s. In 1853, United States Commodore Matthew Perry came to Japan in large warships to secure a treaty that opened Japanese ports to trade. In the following decade, Japan overthrew its traditional government in an uprising called the Meiji Restoration and began to rapidly industrialize, hoping it could become strong enough to protect its distinctive culture. As part of this change, Japan began to look outward for territorial gains. An island nation with few natural resources and little arable land, it sought lands and natural resources to fuel its own growth.

Partly to relieve population pressures in rural areas and partly to gain knowledge of foreign places, Japan's government began to encourage agricultural workers to take seasonal contract work on Hawaii, Guam, and other locations. Through a Colonization Society established in 1893, leaders began plans to establish colonies in Mexico and Latin America. Japan set up an empire in East Asia that included parts of China, Korea, Southeast Asia, and Pacific islands that lasted from the 1890s until the end of World War II.

Imperialism in Southeast Asia

Portugal and Spain originally controlled European trade with Southeast Asia. After 1600, the power shifted and the English and Dutch supplanted them.

The Dutch in Southeast Asia

Dutch imperialism in Southeast Asia began with a private company, just as English imperialism in South Asia had. In 1602 the Dutch seized control of the Spice Islands (now part of Indonesia), so called because they produced spices such as cloves and nutmeg that were in great demand in Europe. The Dutch East India Company (VOC) took over the spice trade from the Portuguese, setting up several trading posts on the

archipelago. Although the trade was very profitable for the VOC, corruption caused the company to go bankrupt by 1800. Once the VOC folded, the Dutch government itself took control of the Dutch East Indies. By the mid-19th century, the islands were producing cash crops to support the Dutch economy.

Plantations produced tea, rubber, and sugar for export purposes, a situation that limited rice cultivation and eventually created enormous hardships for Indonesian farmers who relied on rice to survive. Although criticism of this agricultural policy forced the Dutch government to implement humanitarian reforms, the reforms failed to meet the needs of the Indonesian people.

The French in Southeast Asia

The French government also wanted an imperial presence in Asia. After it defeated China in the Sino-French War of 1883–1885, France gained control of northern Vietnam. France later pressured Siam to cede control of the territory of modern-day Laos to the French. By the 1890s, France controlled Cambodia, Laos, and all of modern-day Vietnam. Together, these nations became known as French Indochina. French motives for imperialism were like those of the Dutch—a desire for cash crops. Soon rubber plantations dotted the landscape of Cambodia and Vietnam.

The British in Southeast Asia

British influence in Southeast Asia began when the East India Company acquired the island of Penang off the northwest coast of the Malay Peninsula in 1786. In 1824, the British founded the port of Singapore. Chinese immigrants soon made it the most important seaport in Southeast Asia. Eventually, Britain controlled all of the Malay Peninsula, Burma (Myanmar), and northern Borneo. British investors were originally attracted by the region's mineral wealth, especially tin and gold. In addition, Britain promoted the planting of cash crops such as pepper, tobacco, palm oil, and rubber. By the end of the 19th century, Malaya was the world's greatest producer of natural rubber.

Siam

Only one Southeast Asian nation, Siam—modern-day Thailand—managed to escape the clutches of 19th-century European imperialism. Siam's monarchs deftly handled diplomatic relations with the British and French, whose colonies bordered Siam. The Siamese government also instituted a series of modernizing reforms, similar to Japan's Meiji reforms. The government began to industrialize by building railroads, and it set up Western-style schools in order to create an educated populace who could fill the ranks of an efficient government bureaucracy.

Australia and New Zealand

After the loss of its American colonies, Britain began to consider the possibility of establishing various kinds of settlements in Australia, finally deciding to locate a penal colony there. In 1788 the first convicts, along with some free settlers, arrived in Australia, and the east coast became known as New South Wales. In the 1820s, Britain took possession of the entire continent. For decades, the chief economic activity of the colony was to house convicts. The discovery that Australia was well-suited to producing fine wool provided a new industry, and in the 1830s larger numbers of free settlers began to arrive. The discovery of copper in 1842 and gold in 1851 helped spur growth.

When Britain annexed the settler colony of New Zealand in 1839, it was made a part of New South Wales. Two years later, after the Treaty of Waitangi guaranteeing that the rights of the original Maori inhabitants would be protected by the British crown, it became a separate colony. Nevertheless, open war broke out as European settlers encroached on Maori lands. The Australian gold rushes provided a market for foodstuffs raised by New

Zealand farmers, both European and Maori. For many years, sheep grazing and dairy farming provided the base for the colony's economy.

U.S. Imperialism in Latin America and the Pacific

During the 19th century, the United States continued taking land from indigenous peoples, as Europeans had done since Columbus arrived. One notorious episode was the forced relocation of Eastern Woodlands peoples from the Southeast to a new Indian Territory in what is now Oklahoma. So many Native Americans died from exposure, malnutrition, disease, and exhaustion that this forced migration became known as the Trail of Tears.

In 1823, President James Monroe issued the Monroe Doctrine, which stated that European nations should not intervene in the affairs of the countries in the Western Hemisphere. Implied in the doctrine was a desire to be an imperial power in the Americas. This desire played out in the U.S. war with Mexico (1845–1848), through which the United States gained vast territories in the Southwest from Mexico.

Expansion on Land

White Americans believed that they had a Manifest Destiny—a natural and inevitable right to expand to the Pacific Ocean. The United States bought Alaska from Russia in 1867. Two years later, in 1869, the completion of a transcontinental railway spurred development of the American West. As white settlers moved westward to take advantage of offers of free land, Native Americans were forced onto reservations. By 1893, the U.S. Bureau of the Census declared that the western frontier was now closed.

Expansion Overseas

The United States turned its focus to lands overseas. The United States was not a global power for most of the 19th century. The Second Industrial Revolution brought newfound prosperity to the young republic. Economic considerations, as well as feelings of nationalism and cultural superiority, drove Americans' desire for territorial conquest. A group of American planters overthrew Hawaii's constitutional monarchy in 1895, but the islands did not become a U.S. territory until 1900. In the meantime, the U.S. victory in the Spanish-American War in 1898 brought Guam, Cuba, Puerto Rico, and the Philippines under U.S. control. President Theodore Roosevelt, a proponent of Social Darwinism, was especially eager to expand U.S. influence throughout the Western Hemisphere. The 1904 Roosevelt Corollary to the Monroe Doctrine stated that if countries in Latin America demonstrated "instability," the United States would intervene. It did several times. For example, in 1904 Roosevelt sent U.S. troops to occupy a Caribbean island nation, the Dominican Republic, until it repaid its foreign debts.

Comparing Three Types of Imperialism

Type and Examples	Features	Outcomes
State-Run Colony • British West Africa • Belgian Congo	Western institutions slowly replace the local culture Often defended by claims of helping the indigenous population	Exploitation of indigenous labor Loss of indigenous culture Creation of non-native elite and mixed native and non-native middle class Imperialist countries rule by corporations or states guided by Western policy

Settler Colony • British South Africa, Australia, and New Zealand • French Algeria	Focus on control and use of land Settlers remove or dominate the indigenous population Most common in sparsely populated lands	Loss of indigenous culture Genocide Spread of disease Forced conversion to Western business, political, and religious ideas Exploitation of indigenous labor Indigenous populations forced into extreme poverty and addiction
Economic Domination • British in China • French in China • United States in Latin America	Commonly based on exploiting raw materials and hiring low-wage labor Local government remains in control but becomes weak	Social destabilization based on economic exploitation Monoculture and lack of agricultural diversity Soil depletion and environmental damage

Russian Expansion

Empress Catherine II (“the Great”) set out to expand the Russian Empire in all directions during her reign (1762–1796), annexing about half of Poland as well as territory won from the Ottoman Empire. Her grandson, Alexander I, annexed Finland, Moldova, Georgia, Azerbaijan, and part of Armenia during his reign (1815–1825).

Beginning in the 1740s, Russian merchants sponsored voyages to Alaska. In 1808 the Russian-American Company, which was similar to the British and Dutch East India companies, established permanent headquarters in Novo-Arkhangelsk (modern-day Sitka). From there they explored the west coast of North America. In 1811, they selected the site for a settlement at Fort Ross in California. They abandoned Fort Ross in 1839 and in 1867 sold Alaska to the United States, ending Russian plans to make the North Pacific a Russian sea.

Russia continued to push into Central Asia during the 19th century, leading to an intense rivalry between the Russian and British empires as they competed unsuccessfully for dominance in Afghanistan—a rivalry that came to be known as the Great Game. Russia also succeeded in annexing lands from China, most notably a large portion of Manchuria.

Key Terms by Theme

GOVERNMENT: Rulers

King Leopold II, Cixi

GOVERNMENT: Countries

Sierra Leone, Gold Coast, Cape Colony, Congo Free State, Abyssinia, Liberia, Ceylon, Dutch East Indies, Indochina, Malaya, Siam, Australia, New Zealand

GOVERNMENT: Treaties

Berlin Conference, Treaty of Waitangi

GOVERNMENT: Ideas

Scramble for Africa, Monroe Doctrine, Manifest Destiny, Roosevelt Corollary, Great Game

GOVERNMENT: Systems

Concentration camps, penal colony

GOVERNMENT: Wars and Rebellions

Boer Wars, Seven Years' War, Taiping Rebellion, Boxer Rebellion, Spanish-American War

ECONOMICS: Systems

Corvée laborer, spheres of influence, settler colony

ECONOMICS: Companies

East India Company (EIC), Dutch East India Company (VOC)

SOCIETY: Peoples

Afrikaners, Maori

SOCIETY: Organization

Colonization Society, Indian Territory, Trail of Tears

ENVIRONMENT: Tropics

Quinine, Suez Canal

6.3

Topic 6.3: Indigenous Responses to State Expansion

Essential Question: How and why did internal and external factors influence state building between 1750 and 1900?

In response to European imperialism, nationalist movements emerged throughout South America, Africa, and Asia. Often the movements' leaders, such as Túpac Amaru II in Peru, had European-style educations. Many had developed a deep understanding of such Enlightenment ideals as natural rights, sovereignty, and nationalism. Some worked in official posts in colonial government. Some colonial elites used the education that imperialism provided them to drive out their conquerors in the 20th century. Anti-imperial resistance often created new states.

Nationalist Movements in the Balkans

At its most powerful, the Ottoman Empire stretched deep into Europe. However, by the early 19th century, it was losing its hold on its remaining European territories in the Balkan Peninsula. Inspired by the French Revolution, ethnic nationalism emerged as the peoples of the Balkans sought independence. The growing ethnic tensions in the region set the stage for World War I.

Serbia (1815) and Greece (1832) won independence only after long wars. Bosnia and Herzegovina, Montenegro, and Bulgaria all rebelled against Ottoman rule. In 1877, Serbia and Russia came to their aid in what was to be the last and most important Russo-Turkish War. After the war ended in 1878, the Treaty of Berlin freed Bulgaria, Romania, and Montenegro but placed Bosnia and Herzegovina under the control of Austria-Hungary.

Resistance and Rebellion in the Americas

In North America, following the British victory over the French in the French and Indian War, the British issued the Proclamation of 1763. This act reserved all the land between the Appalachian Mountains and the Mississippi River for Native Americans—the first time a European government had recognized the territorial rights of indigenous peoples. However, the British colonists resented this interference in colonial affairs. After winning independence, citizens of the new United States soon overran the Ohio and Illinois river valleys, displacing Native Americans.

Cherokee Nation

After 1800, the Cherokee assimilated to white settler culture, adopting colonial methods of farming, weaving, and building. They developed a syllabic alphabet for writing their language. Within a short time, almost the entire tribe was literate, and the *Cherokee Phoenix* became the first Native American newspaper in the United States. The Cherokee nation adopted a constitution based on the U.S. Constitution.

But assimilation did not save the Cherokee from white Americans' greed. After the discovery of gold in 1829 on Cherokee land in Georgia, attempts began to force the Cherokee off their land. After Congress passed the Indian Removal Act of 1830, the Cherokee and other Southeast Native American tribes were forced to relocate to what is now Oklahoma. U.S. expansionism continued, affecting many Native American peoples.

Ghost Dance

In the northwestern United States around 1869, prophet-dreamers among the Northern Paiute Indians announced that the dead would soon come back and drive out the whites, restoring the lands and traditions of

Native Americans. The Ghost Dance rituals of dances and songs were meant to hasten this event. The Ghost Dance spread from the Sierra Nevada to the Missouri River and from northern Texas to the Canadian border. It reached the Sioux by 1890, coinciding with the Sioux revolts. Sioux warriors wore “ghost shirts.” However, the Ghost Dance resistance movement fell at the Wounded Knee Massacre in 1890, marking the end of the Indian Wars.

Túpac Amaru II

José Gabriel Condorcanqui was a cacique (hereditary chief) in southern Peru. He was descended from the last Inca ruler, Túpac Amaru, and took the name Túpac Amaru II. Born around 1740, he continued to identify with his Inca heritage in spite of having received a formal Jesuit education. In 1780 he arrested and executed a colonial administrator, charging him with cruelty. This action led to the last general Indian revolt against Spain, which at first was supported by some criollos (Spaniards born in America). The revolt spread throughout southern Peru and into Bolivia and Argentina before Túpac Amaru II and his family were captured in March 1781. They were taken to Cuzco, the former capital of the Inca empire. There Túpac Amaru II was forced to watch as his wife and sons were executed before he was tortured and executed himself.

French Intervention in Mexico

In 1863 a group of Mexican conservatives conspired with Emperor Napoleon III of France to overthrow the liberal government of Benito Juárez, a full-blooded Zapotec. Mexico owed France money, and Napoleon III wanted to further his imperialist ambitions. He offered to make a European noble, Archduke Maximilian, the emperor of Mexico. Maximilian was crowned on June 10, 1864. After three more years of war, Mexicans forced the French to withdraw from Mexico. Maximilian was executed on June 19, 1867, and Juárez resumed the presidency.

South Asian Movements

By the mid-19th century, sepoys, Indian soldiers under British employ, made up the majority of the British armed forces in colonial India. Most were Hindus or Muslims. In 1857, the British began using rifle cartridges that had been greased with a mixture of the fat of cows and pigs. Hindus, who view the cow as sacred, and Muslims, who refuse to slaughter pigs, were both furious. Both were convinced that the British were trying to convert them to Christianity. Their violent uprising, known as the Indian Rebellion of 1857 or the Sepoy Mutiny, spread throughout cities in northern India. The British crushed the rebellion, killing thousands, but the event marked the emergence of Indian nationalism.

After the Indian Rebellion, Britain also exiled the Mughal emperor for his involvement in the rebellion and ended the Mughal Empire. In its place, the British government took a more active role in ruling India. From 1858 until India won independence in 1947, the British Raj, the colonial government, took its orders directly from the British government in London.

Under the Raj, many Indians attended British universities. In 1885, several British-educated Indians established the Indian National Congress. Though begun as a forum for airing grievances to the colonial government, it quickly began to call for self-rule.

Southeast Asian Resistance

By the 1880s, the only independent country remaining in Southeast Asia was Siam (Thailand). The rest of the region was under the control of the Spanish, Dutch, British, and French.

Vietnam

From the beginning of French colonialism in the region, many Vietnamese resisted. By 1884, when 12-year-old Ham Nghi became emperor, his top advisers were vocal critics of the French. The French soon tried to assert their control by raiding the royal palace, but the young emperor had been removed for safety. Ham Nghi's supporters continued to resist French rule until he was captured in 1888 and exiled to Algeria. The resistance continued until 1895 under Phan Dinh Phung, who became a hero to future revolutionaries in the Vietnamese resistance movement.

Philippine Resistance

The Philippines came under Spanish control in the 16th century, but there was no public education there until 1863. However, wealthy Filipinos sent their sons to Europe to study. One of those young men, José Rizal, started a reform movement called Liga Filipina (Philippine League) in 1892. Though the Liga was loyal to Spain, the Spanish feared it. They promptly arrested and executed Rizal, an action that shocked many Filipinos.

There had been numerous rebellions throughout the history of Spanish rule, but now, for the first time, Filipinos had nationalist ambitions and the education needed to carry them out. In 1896 several revolts broke out in provinces around Manila, marking the beginning of the Philippine Revolution. The Spanish-American War broke out in 1898, and after a decisive American victory in the Battle of Manila Bay, exiled Filipino revolutionaries returned. Based on U.S. sympathy for Philippine independence, the rebels expected freedom.

However, the Treaty of Paris ending the war merely transferred control of the Philippines from Spain to the United States. By the time the treaty was ratified in February 1899, hostilities had broken out in what was to be known as the Philippine-American War. The war ended in a U.S. victory in 1902. An estimated 20,000 Filipino troops were killed, and more than 200,000 civilians died as a result of the war. Of the 4,300 Americans who lost their lives, nearly two-thirds of them died of disease. Organized resistance continued until 1906, but the Philippines remained a U.S. possession until 1946.

Resistance in Australia and New Zealand

The Aboriginal people have been in Australia for an estimated 50,000 years and have the oldest continuous culture on Earth. At the time of European settlement, there may have been as many as 1 million people in 500 clans, speaking 700 languages.

Australia

In 1788, the British began sending convicts and soldiers to establish colonies in New South Wales. The government instructed the settlers to treat the Aboriginal people with kindness, but conflict soon arose as settlers took land for farming and grazing. Aboriginal resistance took the form of guerrilla warfare, but British military superiority and the spread of diseases such as smallpox devastated Aboriginal populations. By the late 19th century, many Aboriginal people had been forced onto reserves or missions.

New Zealand

When Britain annexed New Zealand in 1840, the Treaty of Waitangi was supposed to protect Maori rights. However, European settlers soon encroached on Maori lands, leading to the New Zealand Wars (1845–1872). Maori resistance was fierce, and in some cases Maori forces used innovative tactics and fortifications. Although the British eventually prevailed militarily, Maori political and cultural resistance continued, and the Maori population survived and eventually recovered.

Key Terms by Theme

GOVERNMENT: Rulers

Túpac Amaru II, Ham Nghi, José Rizal

GOVERNMENT: Countries/Empires

Balkans, Serbia, Greece, Ottoman Empire, Cherokee Nation, Indian Territory, Philippines, Vietnam, Siam, Australia, New Zealand

GOVERNMENT: Wars and Rebellions

Indian Rebellion of 1857 (Sepoy Mutiny), Philippine Revolution, Philippine-American War, New Zealand Wars, Taiping Rebellion, Boxer Rebellion, Russo-Turkish War

GOVERNMENT: Treaties and Documents

Treaty of Berlin, Treaty of Waitangi, Monroe Doctrine, Indian Removal Act

SOCIETY: Peoples and Movements

Afrikaners, Maori, Aboriginal peoples, Ghost Dance, Indian National Congress, Liga Filipina

ECONOMICS: Systems

British Raj, settler colony

Topic 6.4: Global Economic Development

Essential Question: How did environmental factors contribute to the global economy between 1750 and 1900?

As the Industrial Revolution spread, the need to find raw materials that could be turned into finished products to be sold globally—often bought with the profits from raw materials—grew rapidly. As urban populations grew, the demand for food was increasingly met by imports made possible by new technology such as refrigeration. As the industrialized nations grew wealthier, stock exchanges developed, allowing more people to invest their capital, and the need to protect global markets and investments grew rapidly.

Technological Developments

New technologies enabled imperial powers to extract resources more efficiently and transport them to markets around the world.

Railroads

In India, the British built a complex railway network that stretched from the interior to the coasts in order to ship raw materials out of the country easily.

British-born Cecil Rhodes (1853–1902), founder of De Beers Diamonds, was an especially enthusiastic investor in a railroad project that was to stretch from Cape Town, in the Cape Colony of South Africa, to Cairo, Egypt. Connecting all of the British-held colonies with a transportation network could make governance easier and aid in mobilizing for war, if necessary. The project was never completed because Britain never gained control over all the land on which it was to be built. The overwhelming majority of railway workers in Africa were natives who were paid far lower wages than their European counterparts. Thus, railroad technology was a means of extracting as many resources as possible from subject lands while paying colonial laborers as little as possible.

Steamships

Because they required huge quantities of coal as fuel, early steamships could travel only limited distances. However, steamboats could transport people, mail, and goods on navigable rivers such as the Ganges in South Asia and the Congo in Africa. After the development of more efficient steam engines in 1870, steamships became practical for long distances. In the 1870s, the development of compression refrigeration equipment made it possible to ship perishables such as meat and dairy products across oceans.

Telegraph

Invented in 1832, the electric telegraph transformed communications. Instead of taking days, weeks, or even months, news could travel instantaneously. Telegraph service was introduced in India in 1850, just five years after it started in Britain. Telegraph lines often followed railroad routes. Submarine (underwater) telegraph cables soon crossed oceans. In 1866 the first permanent transatlantic cable was laid between the United States and England. Telegraph service between England and Australia was introduced in 1872, and in 1874 service between Portugal and Brazil allowed instant communication between Europe and South America.

Agricultural Products

When Europeans arrived in Asia and Africa, they found mainly agricultural economies, with most people raising enough food to live on—subsistence farming—with perhaps a little left over to sell. Subsistence farming is still common throughout Sub-Saharan Africa, Southeast Asia, and parts of Latin America. Under control of imperialist powers, subsistence farmers abandoned their traditional ways and grew cash crops instead. These were crops such as tea, cotton, sugar, oil palms, rubber, and coffee that were grown for their commercial value rather than for use by those who grew them. Imperial demands for cash crops had a damaging effect on subject nations. As cash crops replaced food crops, food prices rose.

The growing European middle classes created a demand for meat. Cattle ranches in Argentina, Brazil, and Uruguay produced beef for export. Sheep herders in Australia and New Zealand exported lamb and mutton. New technology allowed meat to be shipped over long distances. Meat could be processed and canned in packing plants or shipped fresh or frozen in refrigerated steamships.

Guano, bat and seabird excrement, is rich in nitrates and phosphates. These make it an excellent natural fertilizer. Because of the dry climate in Peru and Chile, vast quantities of guano had accumulated before people began mining it in the 19th century. Between 1840 and 1880, millions of tons of guano were dug by hand and loaded onto ships for export, often by indentured Chinese or Polynesian laborers.

Raw Materials

The demand for raw materials that could be processed into manufactured goods and shipped away—often back to the providers of raw materials—turned colonies into export economies. Imperial attention focused on the tropical climates that were conducive to the presence of raw materials, unlike some imperial countries.

Cotton

Britain's Parliament banned Indian cotton textiles in 1721 because they competed with the native wool industry. Soon after, cotton from Britain's southern colonies in America shifted production. The colonies would provide the raw materials, and England would manufacture textiles. During the Industrial Revolution, Britain's great textile mills got 80 percent of their cotton from the United States.

When the American Civil War erupted, northern warships blockaded Confederate ports, cutting off the supply of cotton. As a result, farmers all over the world, from Australia to the West Indies, replaced food production with cotton to make up for the shortage. Cotton farmers in India were able to benefit from the shortages caused by the Civil War, but Egypt benefited most. Egypt had already developed a fine long-staple variety of cotton and ramped up production. By the end of the 19th century, 93 percent of Egypt's export revenue came from cotton. Raw cotton production from Egypt and India supported the manufacturing of textiles that Britain exported all over the world.

Rubber

Natural rubber is made from the latex sap of trees or vines. It softens when warm and hardens when cold. In 1839, Charles Goodyear developed a process known as vulcanization that eliminated these problems and helped create the modern rubber industry. Rubber was used to produce tires for bicycles (and eventually automobiles), hoses, gaskets, waterproof clothing, and shoe soles, among other items.

Rubber trees are native to the Amazon rainforest of South America, where they grew wild but widely dispersed. Latex could also be extracted from vines native to Central Africa, though they were destroyed in the process. Each source provided about half the world's rubber supply, but they soon were inadequate to meet the demand as rubber became an important industrial material. In both sources, "rubber barons" forced indigenous people into virtual slavery. In some cases, companies mutilated or killed workers who failed to meet their quotas.

In 1876, the British India Office obtained rubber tree seeds from Brazil. After being propagated in England, the seedlings were sent to Ceylon (Sri Lanka) and Singapore. Before long, thousands of acres of forest were cleared to make room for rubber plantations in Malaya, Indochina, the Dutch East Indies, and elsewhere in Southeast Asia.

Palm Oil

The machinery in Europe's factories required constant lubrication to keep it working, creating a demand for palm oil, which was also used for candle making. The oil palm originated in West Africa, where it was used as a staple food product for 5,000 years. Palm oil was so valued that it was used in place of money in many African cultures. Palm oil became an important cash crop in West Africa, where prisoners of tribal war were often enslaved to help with the palm oil crops. European colonists established oil palm plantations in Malaya and the Dutch East Indies.

Ivory

The tusks of elephants provide the product ivory. Most of the ivory trade was with Africa, since both male and female African elephants have large tusks, which average six feet in length. Ivory was prized for its beauty and durability. It was used primarily for piano keys, billiard balls, knife handles, and ornamental carvings. In the mid-19th century, the European scramble for ivory preceded the scramble for colonies. The Ivory Coast (Côte d'Ivoire) got its name from the fact that the French originally set up trading posts there for the acquisition of ivory and the purchase of enslaved people.

Minerals

Some of the most valuable products were mineral ores used in manufacturing. They came from around the world:

- Mexico produced silver.
- Chile produced copper, which was used for telegraph cables and electrical power lines.
- Northern Rhodesia (now Zambia) and the Belgian Congo produced copper.
- Bolivia, Nigeria, Malaya, and the Dutch East Indies produced tin, which helped meet the growing demand for food products in tin cans.
- Australia and South Africa, as well as parts of West Africa and Alaska, produced large deposits of gold.

Diamonds

Because of his frail health, Cecil Rhodes was sent to South Africa in 1870 to join a brother on a cotton farm. In 1871 the brothers joined the diamond rush and went to Kimberley, the center of mining activity. After completing a degree at Oxford University, Rhodes acquired some of the De Beers mining claims and formed the De Beers Mining Company in 1880. By 1891, De Beers accounted for 90 percent of the world's diamond production. Rhodes also had a large stake in the world's largest gold fields, which were discovered in 1886 on South Africa's Witwatersrand.

By the age of 29, when Rhodes was elected to the Cape Parliament, he was the most powerful man in Southern Africa. He sought to expand to the north, into Bechuanaland (Botswana) and what became known as Rhodesia and is now Zimbabwe and Zambia, with the dream of building a railroad from Cape Town to Cairo—and claiming all the land along the route for the British Empire. In 1890, Rhodes became the prime minister of the Cape Colony where his racist policies paved the way for the apartheid, or racial segregation, that plagued South Africa during the 20th century.

Global Consequences

Industrialization was accompanied by the need to find raw materials that could be turned into finished products to be sold globally—often bought with the profits from raw materials. As urban populations grew, the demand for food was increasingly met by imports made possible by new technology such as refrigeration. As the industrialized nations grew wealthier, stock exchanges developed, allowing more people to invest their capital, and the need to protect global markets and investments grew rapidly.

Consequences of Commercial Extraction

Farmers were allowed to raise only cash crops, such as sugar, cocoa, or groundnuts, at the expense of other agricultural products. This use of land led to monocultures, or a lack of agricultural diversity, particularly in developing nations. Large areas were often cleared of forests to make room for farming, which took its toll on both biodiversity and the climate. Cash crops such as cotton rapidly depleted the soil's natural fertility. Moreover, crop diseases and pests spread more easily when there was only one crop planted in an area.

Today, many former colonies have been unable to rediversify their land use because the development of monocultures has badly damaged croplands. As a result, they often must import basic agricultural goods in order to feed their people.

Key Terms by Theme

ENVIRONMENT: Natural Resources

Guano, cotton, rubber, palm oil, ivory, copper, tin, gold, diamonds

ECONOMICS: People

Cecil Rhodes

ECONOMICS: Companies

De Beers Mining Company

ECONOMICS: Activities

Cash crops, export economies, monocultures

TECHNOLOGY: Inventions

Railroads, steamships, telegraph

SOCIETY: Hierarchy

Apartheid

6.5

Topic 6.5: Economic Imperialism

Essential Question: What economic factors contributed to the imperialism in the global economy between 1750 and 1900?

For centuries, India was the world's leading supplier of finished cotton textiles. By the late 18th century, the Industrial Revolution and a new source of cotton from America had allowed Britain to flood the market with inexpensive textiles, pushing independent Indian textile artisans out of business. By the late 19th century, India was producing only raw cotton for Britain, not cotton textiles. After Britain's textile factories processed India's cotton, the colonial government sold some of its factory-made or "finished" textiles back to the Indian subcontinent at inflated prices.

Another critical raw material for Britain was the drug opium. The poppies from which it is obtained grew easily on South Asia's fertile lands, and selling it to the Chinese became very profitable for Britain. The Chinese, as Lin Zexu expressed in the letter to Queen Victoria, objected to the export of opium to their country, and the conflict resulted in the first Opium War. The Chinese paid a heavy price for their attempt to curtail the opium trade and ended up losing much trading independence.

The Rise of Economic Imperialism

The agricultural influence and power of raw materials shifted away from Asia and Latin America to industrialized states such as Britain, the United States, France, Japan, and Germany between the late 19th century and the beginning of the 20th century. **Economic imperialism**, a situation in which foreign business interests have great economic power or influence, developed as businesses took advantage of natural resources beyond their borders. People, raw materials, and refined materials were the main resources exploited. Cash crops and mineral resources were produced on a large scale. As in the colonial era of the 15th to the 18th centuries, colonial powers served their own economic interests by turning colonies into export economies that produced goods not for domestic use but to be sent to colonial powers to sell for profit.

Economic Imperialism in Asia

England's defeat of the Spanish Armada in 1588 created an opening for the British and Dutch to take over the spice trade in Asia from the Spanish and Portuguese, who formerly had a monopoly on it.

India

The English East India Company formed in 1600 to engage in the lucrative spice trade. However, the company soon ran into opposition from the Dutch. By the mid-1600s cotton and silk textiles from India had replaced spices as the East India Company's major import, and by the 1700s the company dominated the world textile trade. Indian weavers learned to create fabrics with patterns that would appeal to European tastes. With the Industrial Revolution, India began supplying raw cotton to the textile mills of Britain, and the demand for finished Indian textiles decreased.

Dutch East Indies

The Dutch East India Company had a monopoly on trade with the Dutch East Indies in present-day Indonesia, where the Spice Islands were located. By the second half of the 18th century, it had switched its focus from shipping to agricultural production. The Dutch government revoked the company's charter in 1799 and took direct control of the Dutch East Indies. In 1830, the Dutch government introduced the **Culture System**, which forced farmers to choose between growing cash crops for export or performing *corvée* labor, compulsory

unpaid work. Under this system, villagers either had to set aside one-fifth of their rice fields for such export crops as sugar, coffee, or indigo, or work in a government field for 66 days if they had no land. If the crops failed, the villagers were held responsible for the loss. The practice was finally abolished in 1870.

China

Chinese goods such as porcelain, silk, and tea were in great demand in Great Britain. However, the Chinese were not interested in British goods, and in this trade imbalance, British silver reserves became very low. To make up for this shortfall, the East India Company began forcing farmers in India to grow opium, an addictive drug that also relieves pain and reduces stress. The company then sold it for silver in China, where millions of people became addicted to the illegal drug. The company then used its profits to buy tea and other goods.

The Chinese emperor criminalized the use of opium in 1729. However, the ban had little effect. The Chinese objection to the importation of this drug led to the first Opium War (1839–1842). The Chinese government seized the British opium warehoused in the port of Canton (Guangzhou). War broke out when British warships destroyed a Chinese blockade keeping ships from Canton, the only port China allowed to trade with foreigners. The British attacked and occupied Canton and engaged in several other successful battles, finally capturing Nanking (Nanjing).

The conflict between Britain and China revealed the fate of nonindustrialized nations. China had not anticipated the power that industrialized nations were gaining or the shift in the balance of power that was taking place. Industrialized nations in Europe would begin to dominate and defeat states that lacked the military technology needed to stand against British steamships and weaponry.

The resulting Treaty of Nanking required China to open up four additional ports to foreigners, cede the island of Hong Kong to Britain, and pay damages. It also forced the Chinese to allow free trade, which the British took to include trade in opium.

Neither Britain nor China was completely satisfied with the Treaty of Nanking. The British wanted the use of opium legalized, while the Chinese were unhappy about the concessions they had been forced to make. Hostilities erupted in October 1856 after Chinese officers boarded a British trading ship, searched it, lowered the flag, and arrested some Chinese sailors. The French joined the British in what came to be known as the second Opium War (1856–1860). The Treaty of Tientsin (Tianjin) following that war allowed foreign envoys to reside in Beijing, opened several new ports to Western trade and residence, and allowed freedom of movement for Christian missionaries. After additional negotiations, opium was legalized, and China ceded to Britain the southern portion of Kowloon Peninsula, which was adjacent to Hong Kong.

Spheres of Influence

Japan, France, Germany, Russia, and the United States sought the same trading privileges that Britain attained after winning the Opium Wars. By the end of the century, these nations began forcing China to give them exclusive trading rights in areas known as spheres of influence. It was at this time that the Open Door policy, proposed by the United States, allowed for a system of trade in China to be open to all countries equally in order to keep any one power from total control of China.

Economic Imperialism in Africa

Before colonization, most farming in Africa was to raise food crops. After colonization, land that had been devoted to growing food was converted to cash crop production to provide raw materials for European industries and goods for European markets. In exchange, the Africans received cotton textiles, canned food,

and alcoholic beverages. This unequal trade structure made the colonies economically dependent on the imperial powers.

Reliance on a single cash crop, one grown to be sold, in a country or region left many Africans vulnerable during periods of drought, economic decline, or falling world prices. Food production declined as farmers chose to plant cash crops such as cotton, which would increase the value of their land. Food shortages, even famines, could arise because the most arable land was devoted to growing crops for export.

Egypt had embraced cotton as a cash crop before the American Civil War and more than doubled production between 1861 and 1863. By the end of the century, cotton accounted for 93 percent of Egypt's exports. It was also the leading cash crop in Sudan, where the Plantation Syndicate, a group of British weaving companies, dictated land use to farmers. When the British colonized Uganda, they encouraged cotton as a cash crop there as well, and it soon replaced enslaved people and ivory as the chief export.

In Kenya, most native peoples were herders. Groups like the Kikuyu were moved to reserves with poor soil and bad climates. In the fertile Rift Valley, the colonial government gave the land to white settlers, forcing most Africans to relocate. Those who remained were forced to provide cheap labor for white farmers. African farmers were also forbidden to participate in export of any cash crops, and prohibited from growing some cash crops, such as coffee and tea.

After missionaries introduced it to the area in the 1880s, cocoa became the major cash crop on the Gold Coast. This region soon became the largest cocoa producer in the world. Cocoa was also an important cash crop in the Ivory Coast, Nigeria, and the Portuguese colonies of São Tomé and Angola.

Palm oil, palm kernels, and peanuts (also called groundnuts) were already major exports from West Africa before colonization. It was a valuable raw material because it was used as a lubricant for the machines of the industrial revolution in Europe.

Slavery in Africa

Slavery was outlawed in British colonies in 1833, but it persisted elsewhere in Africa. The French army often used enslaved people as payment for its African soldiers, and French colonial administrators relied on enslaved people for many of their staff. It was not until 1912 that slave raiding and trading was suppressed in most of Africa. Slavery was not abolished by law throughout Africa until the first quarter of the 20th century.

Slave labor was used to produce many of the cash crops, especially oil palms (which produced palm kernels as well as palm oil), coffee, and cocoa. Some companies felt a moral responsibility to oppose the use of enslaved people in the production of the raw materials they used. For example, cash crop production in French-ruled colonies in Africa came about as a result of the end of the slave trade in the French Empire in 1848, along with the economic transformations brought about in France by the Industrial Revolution. Quaker-owned Cadbury's, for example, stopped buying slave-grown cocoa from Portuguese African colonies in 1908 after the slave trade was exposed.

Economic Imperialism in Latin America

In the second half of the 19th century, Latin America was subjected to imperialist aggression from both Europe and the United States. The "new imperialism" was concerned with a world capitalist economy as the industrialized nations of Europe and the United States sought raw materials, low-wage labor, and new markets for their goods. The emerging middle classes of Latin America were hungry for the latest European news and fashions.

Britain replaced Spain as Latin America's major trading partner. Companies based in Britain became the largest investors in Latin America, followed by ones from France and Germany. Europeans invested over \$10 billion in Latin America between 1870 and 1914, primarily in Argentina, Mexico, and Brazil.

Role of the United States

The United States was not yet as established a world power as Britain or France. However, the Second Industrial Revolution brought newfound prosperity to the young republic. U.S. corporate investments came later and were concentrated at first in Mexico and Cuba. These investments supported infrastructure and industry, especially railways, shipping, and the emerging banking and financial sectors. They also financed mining, guano, and meat processing and packing plants. In 1823, the Monroe Doctrine, the U.S. policy of opposing European colonialism in the Americas, told the world that Latin America was in the U.S. sphere of influence.

Investments in Argentina

In the late 19th century, Britain had invested more in Argentina than in its own colony of India. As much as 10 percent of British foreign investment was in Argentina. British investors, entrepreneurs, and business leaders helped turn Argentina into the richest country in Latin America and one of the dozen richest in the world by the outbreak of World War I. They improved breeding stock and developed large-scale farming throughout the grassy plains, known as the Pampas. They also financed infrastructure and building projects, such as the railroad and telegraph systems. Because of its location on the shallow Rio de la Plata, Buenos Aires needed to build a new port to facilitate passenger service and the massive import and export of goods and services. The British financed and designed the new port, Puerto Madera.

Mining in Chile

Spain colonized the region of present-day Chile between 1540 and 1818. Chile's economic development was initially dependent on the export of agricultural produce. The wealth of these raw materials brought dependency on Spain and tension among neighboring states. Copper would come to dominate Chile's exports. The mining sector in Chile would come to be one of the pillars of the Chilean economy, making up for more than one-third of government income.

Rubber Industry in Brazil

Brazil once had a booming rubber industry. However, it declined after people began growing rubber in Malaysia at a lower cost. The shift of rubber production demonstrated how trade was organized to the advantage of companies based in Europe and the United States. Economic competition brought prosperity to some regions, but it was always fragile.

Central America and the Caribbean

Foreign investors often used their governments to act as "strong men" to help them achieve the ends they wanted. The United Fruit Company was an American corporation that traded in tropical fruit, primarily bananas, grown on Latin American plantations and sold in the United States and in Europe. The United Fruit Company allied itself with large landowners to pressure governments to maintain conditions that would be favorable for the U.S. company. In a short story, the writer O. Henry coined the term "banana republics" to describe small Central American countries under the economic power of foreign-based corporations. The banana republics were politically unstable states with an economy dependent upon the exportation of a limited-resource product, such as bananas or minerals.

Patterns of imperial control over territories and transportation networks in Central America, the Caribbean coast of Colombia, Ecuador, and the West Indies continued as companies sought political dominance to gain monopolies over natural resources.

Economic Imperialism in Hawaii

The power of investments to transform and dominate small or weak states could also be seen in the Pacific islands. A group of American businesses and sugar planters in Hawaii went so far as to overthrow the constitutional monarchy in 1893, hoping that the islands would be annexed by the United States. In 1898, Hawaii became a territory of the United States.

Contextualizing Economic Imperialism

The Industrial Revolution developed the demand for raw materials and the technological ability through steamships, railroads, and military weapons to control other territories. These set the stage for economic imperialism.

Key Terms by Theme

GOVERNMENT: Colonial Holdings

Spice Islands, Egypt, Sudan, Uganda, Kenya, Gold Coast, Argentina

GOVERNMENT: Treaties

Treaty of Nanking

GOVERNMENT: Wars and Rebellions

Opium War

ENVIRONMENT: Natural Resources

Opium, Pampas

ECONOMICS: Companies

East India Company, Dutch East India Company

ECONOMICS: Systems

Economic imperialism, Culture System, corvée labor, spheres of influence, cash crop, banana republics

Topic 6.6: Causes of Migration in an Interconnected World

Essential Question: How did environmental and economic factors contribute to patterns of migration between 1750 and 1900?

An increasingly global economy characterized by economic imperialism and the availability of different modes of transportation promoted a new era in migrations. As industrialization grew, populations moved to urban centers. Some workers who left their homelands, such as the Lebanese merchants in the United States or the Italian laborers in Argentina, could travel back to their native country for visits or to retire. Others, like the Irish settler quoted above, chose a permanent resettlement as relief from economic and political difficulties. Other movements of people were coerced. To meet the demands for workers, coerced and semi-coerced migration of people resulted in slavery, indentured servitude, and convict labor.

Migration through Labor Systems

The desire for low-wage labor was linked to the exploitation of natural resources in the system of economic imperialism. Even though slavery was gradually being abolished in imperial territories in the 19th century, the demand for the agricultural goods that enslaved workers had produced was still increasing. European states recruited new laborers to work on plantations, where they produced enormous wealth that fueled industrial growth at home:

- Indian laborers migrated to British colonies in the Caribbean, South Africa, East Africa, and Fiji.
- Chinese laborers migrated to California and British Malaya to build railroads and serve as farmhands, gardeners, and domestics.
- Japanese laborers migrated to Hawaii, Peru, and Cuba to work on sugar plantations.

Slavery

Most countries in the Americas abolished the African slave trade in the early 19th century. Slavery itself continued, but without a fresh supply of enslaved people, the institution declined. Only in the United States did the number of enslaved people increase after the abolition of the slave trade. The last countries to abolish slavery in the Americas were the United States (1865), Cuba (1886), and Brazil (1888).

In spite of prohibitions, Africans continued enslaving one another well into the 20th century. As slavery was being abolished, labor was still desired, so imperial countries turned to other forms of coerced labor.

Indentured Servitude

People who worked for a set number of years before becoming free were **indentured servants**. Many people became indentured as a way to pay for their transportation from a desperately poor community to one with more opportunity. Others were forced to do so to pay off a debt.

Some of these servants intended to work temporarily, earning money for their family, and then return home. But many stayed in their new country. As a result, indentured laborers brought their home cultures to their new lands and altered the demographics of these lands. For example, the cultures of Mauritius (in the Indian Ocean off Southeast Africa), Fiji (in the South Pacific), and Trinidad (in the Caribbean) added a strong Indian influence.

Asian Contract Laborers

Many Chinese and Indian workers were an early substitute for the slave trade. They were forced or tricked into servitude. Britain first tried this form of labor after ending the slave trade in 1806. They imported 200 Chinese to Trinidad. Between 1847 and 1874, the British, French, Dutch, and Spanish had imported between 250,000 and 500,000 Chinese workers to their colonies in Southeast Asia, Africa, and the Caribbean. About 125,000 Chinese were sent to Cuba alone, where 80 percent worked the sugar plantations.

The life of an Asian contract worker was riddled with difficulty and unjust treatment. While they were not property, they were unskilled laborers or porters who were exploited as substitutes for slave labor, often working for subsistence wages. The media of the time brought the treatment of them to the attention of the public by criticizing the system as a new form of slavery. In 1855, Britain stopped its trade. In 1862 Congress banned the contract Asian labor trade in the United States, and in 1874, under international pressure, Portugal ended it. A treaty between China and Spain in 1877 terminated the contracts of Chinese workers still in Cuba.

British Penal Colonies

In the late 1700s, Great Britain established a penal colony in Australia after losing its original one in Georgia as a result of the American Revolution. The British government shipped convicts from England, Scotland, and Ireland as well as British colonies such as India, to Australia. There, they performed hard labor and suffered harsh treatment. Actual imprisonment of the convicts was rare. Most performed labor for free settlers, worked for the government in record keeping, or worked on government projects such as road and railway building. The majority of convicts earned their freedom after a prescribed number of years of service.

Some people sent to penal colonies were never allowed to return to Great Britain. In addition, because transportation back home was expensive, the majority decided to stay in Australia. By 1850, the British government ended the transportation of convicts to Australia, largely because a stay in Australia was not considered much of a punishment.

Australia also attracted free settlers, especially after gold was discovered there in 1851. Some 50,000 Chinese came during this gold rush. Eventually Australia became one of Britain's most successful settler colonies.

French Penal Colonies

The French also had penal colonies in Africa, New Caledonia, and French Guiana. New Caledonia, an island part of an archipelago in the southwest Pacific Ocean 750 miles from Australia, served as a penal colony from 1864 to 1897 for both convicts and political prisoners. The penal colony in French Guiana, which included Devil's Island, was notorious for its harsh treatment of convicts. Prisoners were underfed and forced to do hard labor. Although the French stopped transporting convicts in 1938, Devil's Island continued to hold prisoners until 1953.

Migration in the Face of Challenges

The word **diaspora** is often applied to mass emigrations from a country or region that may take place over a period of many years. The African slave trade was responsible for one of the biggest diasporas in history, the involuntary emigration of millions of people between the 16th and 19th centuries. Most diasporas, however, were the result of poverty, political conditions, or famine.

India

Poverty was the principal reason that drove Indians to leave the subcontinent. In 1833, the British began sending Indians to Mauritius as indentured laborers to replace enslaved workers on the sugar plantations. By 1878, Indians were working on plantations in British Guiana (Guyana), Dutch Guiana (Surinam), Natal (South

Africa), Fiji, and British and French islands in the Caribbean. Most Indian laborers signed five-year contracts. Many renewed their contracts, and some decided to stay permanently, accepting a piece of land or a lump sum rather than their passage back to India. Over 1.5 million Indians were shipped to colonies in Asia, Africa, the Caribbean, and Oceania before Britain abolished the indenture system in 1916. Between 1880 and 1938, two systems recruited labor in Southeast Asia:

- The **kangani** (foreman who oversees workers) system in Ceylon and Malaya recruited from their own extended family.
- The **maistry** (supervisors) system in Burma recruited laborers within a structured system with defined hierarchies and sent them to plantations, usually in Southeast Asia. Conditions were highly exploitative.

China

The Chinese diaspora did not begin in earnest until the middle of the 19th century, with the gold rushes in California, South Australia, and western Canada. However, most Chinese migrants were not engaged in mining. Despite prejudices toward Chinese immigrants, the Chinese were instrumental in the development of the U.S. Transcontinental Railroad. Some Chinese paid their own way, but many more left China as indentured laborers. The vast majority of Chinese emigrants were males who planned to return to China after their time abroad.

People left China for many reasons, some to escape poverty or famine, others for better opportunities. Beginning in the late 18th century, a population explosion in coastal cities and contacts through foreign trade led large numbers of Chinese to emigrate to Southeast Asia. Most of them were illiterate, landless peasants looking for opportunities abroad. However, most of the Chinese did not arrive in Southeast Asia until the mid-19th century, after the first Opium War made it easier for them to leave. Many people left as a result of the poverty and disorder brought on by the Taiping Rebellion (1850–1864). After the middle of the century, most Chinese emigrated to the Americas, Europe, Australia, or New Zealand.

Ireland

People emigrated from Ireland for many reasons. Some left for political reasons. Britain abolished the Irish Parliament in 1801 when Ireland became part of the United Kingdom of Great Britain and Ireland. Roman Catholics and Protestant dissenters faced religious discrimination from their British rulers. Evictions of tenant farmers increased after the 1846 repeal of the Corn Laws, which had regulated the import and export of grain. During the **Great Famine** (1845–1849) that destroyed the potato crop for four years, as many as 3 million people emigrated from Ireland. Most went to the United States, but many others went to England, Scotland, Canada, or Australia.

Emigration continued even after the famine ended; as many people left Ireland in the first four years after the famine was over as left during the height of the famine. The Irish had been going to Great Britain and the United States to build canals since the 18th century, and they continued to leave to help build railroads. During the 18th and 19th centuries, 300,000 free Irish emigrated to Australia, and 45,000 Irish convicts were transported there. In the second half of the 19th century, about 45,000 Irish went to Argentina, although only about 20,000 remained there. The rest moved on to the United States.

Italy

The first wave of Italian emigration began with the unification of Italy in 1861 and continued until 1900. More than 7 million people left Italy during those four decades. More than half of them went to other countries in Europe, with most of the rest going to North and South America, Australia, and New Zealand. The main reason for the Italian diaspora was poverty. Two-thirds of the emigrants during this period were men with traditional

skills. Farmers had an increasingly difficult time making a living in harsh conditions, especially in a society where land was subdivided over generations. Some left for political reasons, while others left for economic reasons related to organized crime, especially in South Italy. Those who left often sent money back to family members, encouraging further emigration.

Migration to Settler Colonies

Large numbers of British citizens lived in all the colonies of the British Empire. Most who moved abroad permanently went to settler colonies such as Canada, South Africa, Australia, or New Zealand. Those who went to other colonies such as India, Malaya, or Kenya, usually did so with no intention of staying permanently. Many went as officers or soldiers in the British army, as government officials in the Colonial Service, or as managers for plantations or other colonial enterprises.

Technical Experts

Engineers and geologists migrated to South Asia and Africa. One was Andrew Geddes Bain, who emigrated to Cape Town, South Africa, in 1816. Bain initially worked on eight major roads and passes but moved on to a career in geological studies. Bain prepared the first comprehensive geological map of South Africa in 1852. In 1854, he reported back to the British government about the copper mines in Namaqualand.

British engineers were so numerous in the colonies that they formed a type of diaspora. They spread Western science and technology through the world. However, as they did, they blended their knowledge with the experience of engineers from the colonial lands. Together, people from Europe and the colonies collaborated on both public works and private industrial projects.

Argentina

During the 19th century, Argentina was part of Britain's "informal" empire. Britain invested more in Argentina than it did in India, the so-called "Jewel in the Crown" of the British Empire. Unlike most of the people who emigrated to make a new life for themselves, the British who settled in Argentina during the 19th century were not trying to escape poverty or persecution. They were primarily businessmen, traders, bankers, and engineers. They founded banks, developed the export trade in agricultural products, built railroads and other infrastructure, and imported luxuries that appealed to the growing Argentine middle class.

Japan

Before 1868, Japan was closed to the rest of the world. However, by 1893, the Japanese government had decided that Japan should acquire an overseas empire and established the Colonization Society. Its aim was to export Japan's surplus population as well as commercial goods. In 1892 the Society made an unsuccessful attempt to start an agricultural settler colony in Mexico. The failure of that attempt did not deter the society from sending 790 Japanese to Peru in 1899 for contract work. At the same time, many young Japanese men were leaving Japan to study in the United States, congregating mostly in such cities as San Francisco, Portland, and Seattle on the West Coast.

Tensions and anti-immigrant sentiment toward Japanese people intensified as immigrants assimilated to life in America. In 1907, the Gentlemen's Agreement between the United States and Japan was an informal agreement that the U.S. would not impose restrictions on Japanese immigration, and Japan would not allow further emigration to the U.S. The agreement was never ratified and was ultimately ended by the Immigration Act of 1924.

Migration, Transportation, and Urbanization

Improvements in transportation technology allowed some who migrated for work reasons to return to their home societies, either for a period of time or permanently. For example, in 1885, an agreement between the governments of Japan and Hawaii allowed Japanese laborers to go to Hawaii to work on the sugar plantations under three-year contracts. Approximately 29,000 Japanese went to Hawaii over the next nine years. During that time, thousands more Japanese went to other destinations in the South Pacific, including Australia, New Caledonia, and Fiji, under similar contracts. Most planned to return home after a few years.

Industrial workers from Italy had similar arrangements for working in Argentina and then returning home, though many Italians settled permanently in Argentina. Since most industry was located in urban areas, both internal and external migrants often settled in cities, which increased in size and influence around the globe.

Voluntary Migration Patterns in the 19th Century

Years	Home Country	Destination	Reasons for Migrating
1880–1914	Italy	Argentina	Argentina had pro-immigration policies; Argentina offered better wages.
1868–1907	Japan	Hawaii	Japanese sought financial opportunities on sugar cane and pineapple plantations.
1850–1880	China	United States	The Chinese first sought work in gold mines, then agricultural and factory work; There were opportunities to work on Transcontinental Railroad.
1820–1910	Ireland	United States	Irish were escaping the Irish Great Famine; Irish sought labor opportunities in canal building, lumbering, and civil construction.

Coerced or Semi-Coerced Migration Patterns in the 19th Century

Years	Home Country	Destination	Reasons for Migrating
1500s–1800s	Africa	Americas, Europe	Forced slavery administered through triangular trade system; Europeans needed enslaved workers on plantations along the southern coast, in the Caribbean, and elsewhere, cultivating cash crops like cotton, rice, and tobacco.
1788–1868	Britain (convicts)	Australia	Britain transported convicts to penal colonies.
1806–1877s	China and India	Caribbean, Southeast Asia, Africa, Americas	The slave trade had been abolished (1806); The contract labor system was instituted to replace slavery.

1834–1916	India (indentured servants)	Africa, Asia, Caribbean region	Slavery was abolished in the British Empire (1833); The indentured servant system was instituted to replace slavery.
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Key Terms by Theme

GOVERNMENT: Systems

Colonial Service

GOVERNMENT: Wars and Rebellions

Taiping Rebellion

ECONOMICS: Systems

Slavery, indentured servants, contract laborers, Colonization Society

SOCIETY: Organization

Penal colony, convicts

SOCIETY: Movement

Diaspora, emigrate, Great Famine

6.7

Topic 6.7: Effects of Migration

Essential Question: How and why did patterns of migration affect society between 1750 and 1900?

Migration in the 19th century — whether undertaken freely to escape poverty or seek opportunity or coerced as part of an imperialist labor system — led to demographic changes with long-lasting results. Laborers tended to be male and from particular ethnic groups, such as the Indian indentured servants brought to work on sugar plantations in the Caribbean or the Chinese laborers recruited to complete the transcontinental railroad in the United States. These migrants often formed ethnic enclaves and created cultural groups that maintained elements of their native culture and religion while absorbing the influences of their new locations. For example, many Indians in Trinidad and Tobago practiced Hinduism and contributed to Caribbean musical traditions. These migrants also left behind women who sometimes took on the roles formerly filled by men and thus brought about change in migrants' home societies.

Migrant groups often experienced racial and ethnic prejudice. The Chinese Exclusion Act, noted above, was the first major U.S. federal legislation that specifically suspended immigration of a specific ethnic group.

Changes in Home Societies

The experiences of migrants and the families they left behind varied widely depending on the norms of their home cultures. Migrant laborers were more often male than female, so in some places their migration — whether internal or external — brought a shift in demographics and gender roles in the societies they left. In some societies, males waited to emigrate until a male relative was available to live with and help support the women and children who did not emigrate with the males. In these places, women's roles were much the same as before their husbands left. However, in other places, women gained some autonomy and authority as they took on responsibilities once filled by their husbands and took a meaningful place in society outside the bounds of family responsibilities. If they later followed their husbands to another country, they often participated more fully, though far from equally, in family decision-making than women who had not been on their own. If their husbands returned, women who had taken up their husbands' responsibilities sometimes continued to play a role outside of domestic life, while those who had been put in the care of male relatives remained in traditional gender roles.

Most male migrants sent remittances, funds from their foreign earnings, back home. If the remittances were large enough, women often reduced their hours working outside the home and spent more time with family responsibilities while also exercising considerable decision-making power over how the money was spent. In some places, the receipt of remittances correlates to girls' longer school attendance; in other places boys seem to have been the greater beneficiaries of remittance-supported education.

Effects of Migration on Receiving Societies

Immigrants were interested in a new economic start but intent on carrying with them their own traditions and culture. **Ethnic enclaves**, clusters or neighborhoods of people from the same foreign country, formed in many major cities of the world. In these areas inhabitants spoke the language of their home country, ate the foods they were familiar with from home, and pursued a way of life similar to that they had known in their home countries. At the same time, they influenced the culture of their new homes which absorbed some of the migrants' cultural traditions.

Chinese Enclaves

Many Chinese emigrated in search of work during the latter half of the 19th century—some to work on sugar plantations or for other agricultural endeavors, others to work in industry and transportation. Together, they spread Chinese culture around the world.

Southeast Asia

The Chinese who migrated to Southeast Asia thrived under colonial rule. In Indochina, the French encouraged them to engage in commerce. In Malaya, they managed opium farms and controlled opium distribution for the British. In the Dutch East Indies, some Chinese held posts with the colonial government. As time went on, many Chinese throughout the region became business owners and traders, often founding family businesses. Some Chinese acquired great wealth as moneylenders or through international trade. By the end of the 19th century, the Chinese controlled trade throughout Southeast Asia and were a significant presence in the region.

The Americas

Chinese immigrants first came to the United States in large numbers during the height of the California gold rush. Many worked in mines, but others found work on farms or in San Francisco's garment industry. Chinese laborers became indispensable during the construction of the first transcontinental railroad.

Between 1847 and 1874, some 225,000 Chinese laborers were sent to Cuba and Peru on eight-year contracts. Almost all of them were male, and 80 percent of them were sent to work on sugar plantations alongside enslaved Africans in Cuba and replacing enslaved workers in Peru, where slavery had been abolished. Other Chinese in Cuba were employed as servants, in cigarette factories, and in public works projects. Several thousand contract laborers in Peru helped build the Andean railroad and worked in the guano mines. In the 1870s, some Chinese built settlements in the Peruvian Amazon, where they were active as merchants and grew rice, beans, sugar, and other crops.

In each area they lived, Chinese immigrants left their cultural stamp. Some Peruvian cuisine is a fusion of Chinese foods and ingredients and cooking styles of Peru. As in other areas, Chinese immigrants sometimes married local people and thus contributed to the multicultural diversity of populations.

Indian Enclaves

The British Empire abolished slavery in 1833. However, it was replaced with a system that was little better, indentured servitude. Indians were among the first indentured servants sent to work in British colonies.

Indians in Africa

Many Indians went to Mauritius, islands off the southeast coast of Africa, and Natal, a colony that is today part of South Africa, as indentured servants on sugar plantations. In Natal and British East Africa, they built railways. Nearly 32,000 indentured Indian workers went to Kenya to work on railroad construction between 1886 and 1901, but only about 7,000 chose to stay. Today, Indians continue to make up significant parts of the population of these regions.

Both Hindus and Muslims emigrated from India to South Africa. The Hindus brought with them their caste system and the social laws that stem from it, but they soon abandoned the caste system. In contrast, many kept up Hindu traditions and had altars in their homes to honor deities.

The Hindu and Muslim Indian population of South Africa was divided by class, language, and religion. However, Indians in South Africa shared the injustice of discrimination, which became central to the work of a young Indian named Mohandas Gandhi. He arrived in Pretoria, South Africa, in 1893, where he intended to

practice law. After suffering repeatedly from racial discrimination, Gandhi became an activist. He founded the Natal Indian Congress and worked to expose to the world the rampant discrimination against Indians in South Africa. In 1914 Gandhi returned to India, where he became a leader in the Indian nationalist movement against British rule.

Indians in Southeast Asia

Between 1834 and 1937 India was the major source of labor for the British Southeast Asian colonies of Ceylon, Burma, and Malaya. Many Indians went to Malaya as indentured laborers. Indentured servitude was eventually replaced by the **kangani system**, under which entire families were recruited to work on tea, coffee, and rubber plantations in Ceylon, Burma, and Malaya. Their lives were less restricted than those of indentured laborers, and they had the advantage of having their families with them. It is estimated that about 6 million Indians migrated to Southeast Asia before the kangani system was abolished. Because Southeast Asia was relatively close, Indian workers there often kept close ties with India.

Indian traders settled in many countries where there were indentured laborers. They also looked for business opportunities throughout the British Empire, such as British East Africa.

Indians in the Caribbean Region

So many Indians were sent to work on the sugar plantations in and around the Caribbean that today they comprise the largest ethnic group in Guyana and Trinidad and Tobago, and the second largest group in Suriname, Jamaica, Grenada, Saint Vincent and the Grenadines, Saint Lucia, Martinique and Guadeloupe. In many of the other Caribbean nations Indians constitute a sizable proportion of the population. In addition, they have blended ethnically with migrants from other parts of the world, creating a unique culture, affecting national cuisines, film, and music. Many of the countries in the region celebrate the arrival of the Indians with annual holidays or festivals.

Irish Enclaves in North America

Before the American Revolution, most Irish who came to North America were Protestant descendants of Scots who had previously migrated to Ireland. They are often referred to as Scots-Irish. Most came as indentured servants. Those who paid their own passage often went west to the frontier.

After the American Revolution, most new Irish immigrants who came to the United States settled in northern cities. Many others went to British North America (Canada), where they were able to get cheap land grants. By the 1830s, most new Irish immigrants were poorer than earlier settlers, and Catholic. Most of those who settled in cities worked in factories. Many of the men who came to the United States helped construct the canal system. In Canada as well as the United States, many Irish farmed. Most Irish immigrants were able to create decent lives for themselves and their children.

Half of the 3 million Irish who fled Ireland during the Great Famine came to North America. Most of this huge wave of Irish immigrants faced many hardships, not the least of them anti-immigrant nativist and anti-Catholic sentiments in the United States. Nevertheless, immigration from Ireland continued strong after the Great Famine ended until the 1880s, when it gradually slowed. Many of these new immigrants were single women who came to the United States looking for work and husbands. More than half became domestic servants. Many of the men who came during this period were unskilled laborers.

Wherever they settled, the Irish in the United States spread their culture—their lively dance music and holiday traditions such as the celebration of St. Patrick's Day. They also had a strong influence on the conditions of

laborers through their efforts at promoting labor unions, and their great numbers ensured the spread of Catholicism in the United States.

Second-generation Irish were often either white-collar or skilled blue-collar workers. Many became “stars” of the new popular culture that was taking root at the end of the century as boxers, baseball players, and vaudeville performers. Many second- and third-generation Irish, such as the Fitzgeralds and the Kennedys, became very wealthy and powerful.

Italians in Argentina

During the 18th and 19th centuries only the United States surpassed Argentina in the number of immigrants it attracted. The 1853 Argentine Constitution not only encouraged European immigration, but it also guaranteed to foreigners the same civil rights enjoyed by Argentine citizens.

In the late 19th and early 20th centuries, Italians made up almost half of the European immigrants to Argentina. Today people of Italian descent make up more than 55 percent of the Argentine population. As a result, Italians have had an enormous influence on all aspects of Argentine culture and language. Argentine Spanish has absorbed many Italian words, and Italian is still widely spoken in Buenos Aires.

Argentina was underpopulated and had an enormous amount of fertile land, which appealed to Italian immigrants. Most of them were farmers, artisans, and day laborers. Wages in Argentina were much higher than in Italy. Agricultural workers, for example, could earn five to ten times as much in Argentina as in Italy. In addition, the cost of living, even in Buenos Aires, was much lower than that of many rural Italian provinces. Both of these factors allowed most immigrants to raise their standard of living greatly in a very short time. By 1909, Italian immigrants owned nearly 40 percent of Buenos Aires’ commercial establishments.

Prejudice and Regulation of Immigration

In the United States and Australia, native-born residents resented immigrants from China who were willing to work for lower wages. In response to these resentments, governments institutionalized discrimination against the Chinese.

Regulation in the United States

Nativists were powerful enough in California that a revised constitution ratified in 1879 included several provisions that targeted people from China:

- It prohibited the state, counties, municipalities, and public works from hiring Chinese workers.
- It prevented individuals from China, and any others who were not considered white, from becoming citizens on the grounds that they were “dangerous to the well-being of the State.”
- It encouraged cities and towns either to remove Chinese residents from within their limits or to segregate them in certain areas.

With many thousands of Chinese living in the United States by 1882, Congress banned further Chinese immigration by passage of the **Chinese Exclusion Act**. Initially limited to a ten-year period, the policy was extended periodically and made permanent in 1902. This act, which was finally repealed in 1943, showed the discrimination in the United States.

After the U.S. Congress excluded Chinese immigrants, some of them began to move to Mexico. Mexican President Porfirio Díaz promoted immigration as well as development, especially in the northern area bordering

the United States. Rather than working as laborers in the mines or railroads, most worked as truck farmers, shopkeepers, or manufacturers.

White Australia

Before the Australian gold rushes of the 1850s and 1860s, most of the Chinese in Australia were indentured laborers, convicts, or traders. During the gold rushes, the Chinese population grew to around 50,000. In response to the influx of Chinese miners, the parliament of the province of Victoria passed a **Chinese Immigration Act** in 1855 that limited the number of Chinese who could come ashore from each ship. Many Chinese got around this law by landing instead in South Australia.

In December 1860, white miners in the goldfields of New South Wales attacked the area where Chinese miners were quartered, killing several and wounding many others. Several other attacks followed. One of the worst occurred on June 30, 1861, when several thousand white miners attacked the Chinese and plundered their dwellings.

In response to this violence, the New South Wales Legislative Council passed the **Chinese Immigration Regulation and Restriction Act** in November of that year. The act, eventually repealed in 1867, was an attempt to restrict the number of Chinese immigrants from entering the colony. By the end of the gold rushes in 1881, New South Wales passed the **Influx of Chinese Restriction Act**, which attempted to restrict Chinese immigration by means of an entrance tax.

After the gold rushes, the Chinese in Australia turned to other sources of income, such as gardening, trade, furniture making, fishing, and pearl diving. While **Chinatowns** (Chinese enclaves) developed in cities across Australia, the Chinese made their biggest economic contributions in the Northern Territory and north Queensland regions. Eventually, however, anti-Chinese sentiment grew. Because the Chinese artisans and laborers would work for less than white Australians, resentment increased. Anti-Chinese leagues also began to develop.

Although the number of Chinese in Australia was declining, they were becoming more concentrated in Melbourne and Sydney and thus more visible. After six separate British self-governing colonies in Australia united under a single centralized government in 1901, the new parliament took action to limit non-British immigration. The new attorney general stated that the government's policy was to preserve a "white Australia." The **White Australia Policy**, as it was known, remained in effect until the mid-1970s.

Key Terms by Theme

GOVERNMENT: Leaders

Mohandas Gandhi, Porfirio Díaz

GOVERNMENT: Countries

Trinidad and Tobago, Mauritius, Natal, Guyana, Argentina

GOVERNMENT: Laws

Chinese Exclusion Act, Chinese Immigration Act, Chinese Immigration Regulation and Restriction Act, Influx of Chinese Restriction Act, White Australia Policy

ECONOMICS: Activities

Gold rush, white-collar, blue-collar

TECHNOLOGY: Transportation

Canal system

CULTURE: Classifications

Scots-Irish, popular culture

SOCIETY: Organization

Ethnic enclaves, Natal Indian Congress, kangani system, Chinatowns

6.8

Topic 6.8: Causation in the Imperial Age

Essential Question: What was the relative significance of the effects of imperialism from 1750 to 1900?

Industrial capitalism caused significant developments between 1750 and 1900. The manufacturing capacity of industrialized nations caused an increase in the availability, affordability, and variety of both capital (financial assets) and consumer goods. However, this increased industrial capacity also led to an increased demand for natural resources—“the conquest of the earth”—to use in manufacturing these goods. Additionally, domestic markets soon became saturated, leading industrialized nations to seek out foreign markets to soak up the excess production. Competition for these markets increased among industrialized economies, especially those in the West. To reduce competition and increase profits, Western nations continued to look to empire-building, begun in the previous era, as a solution to these challenges.

Nineteenth-century imperialism also caused significant effects, including increased migration, the rise of independence movements within the colonies, and increased political and economic rivalry among Western European nations that would lead to catastrophic events in the early 20th century.

Changes in Standards of Living

Due to increased automation, the use of interchangeable parts, the division and specialization of labor, and the assembly line, the efficiency of industrial production increased. This efficiency led to greater output, especially of such consumer goods as textiles, home furnishings, clothing, and porcelain. As the supply of consumer goods increased, the availability of goods rose and the prices fell. In addition, increased global industrial production led to greater competition and variety of both consumer and capital goods. For some people, standards of living improved with the proliferation of consumer goods.

One way economists measure standard of living is by tracing patterns in real wages—those adjusted for inflation. Real wages signify the amount of goods or services that can be bought. In the early years of the Industrial Revolution, some studies show that real wages grew slowly, but after 1819 the pace of growth accelerated, and between 1819 and 1852 they doubled. The growth of real wages paralleled the rise in consumption. By these measures, standards of living increased for people of all income groups.

At the same time, however, the distribution of income (the wealth gap) became more pronounced. Additionally, some of the rise in income was offset by the growing problems in an industrialized society—pollution, crowded cities, and the costs of wars. With these taken into consideration, standards of living may not have risen for many people.

Overseas Expansion

As more countries industrialized and the capacity to produce goods increased, overproduction became a serious economic issue. Domestic markets could no longer consume the amount of goods being produced. As a result, international trade transformed industrial economies from mercantilist to capitalist systems. Industrialized economies looked to increase exports of their products. The desire to increase exports, however, caused both economic and political rivalries among industrialized countries as businesses sought out new international customers and enlisted their government’s assistance to help open previously closed or inaccessible markets.

As production increased, new and greater amounts of natural resources were required by industrial economies. In addition, such common industrial resources as coal and iron, tin, bauxite, rubber, and copper

were also imported from sources in Africa, Southeast Asia, and Latin America. A key effect of industrial capitalism, therefore, was the expansion of imperialism in the 19th century. Industrialized countries, especially those in Western Europe, the U.S., and Japan, saw the benefits of controlling trade and resources of other areas of the world. This trend was a continuation from the previous era during which European countries created colonies in the Western Hemisphere and in the Indian Ocean.

In contrast, the dependent colonial economies that provided raw material to and markets for the imperial powers often saw little economic development from participation in the world economy. Reliance on the cash crops introduced by imperial powers often left them vulnerable to natural disasters and volatile markets.

In this era, however, states and people in regions that had previously been able to resist European colonization found themselves increasingly dominated by Western powers. Most areas of Africa came under the direct control of European colonizers. Large portions of South Asia and Southeast Asia were colonized, mainly by Great Britain and France, respectively. Even China, the most dynamic civilization in previous eras, succumbed to the domination of Western and Japanese imperialists. Western powers were able to achieve this level of dominance because of the technological advances associated with the Industrial Revolution. Advances in military technology, ship building, and medicine helped Western European nations assert control over these other regions.

Seeds of Revolution and Rebellion

In the late 1700s, the former North American colonies of Great Britain revolted against its colonial rule and declared themselves the independent nation of the United States of America. Shortly after, France threw off the yoke of the monarchy and established a republic. In the early 1800s, former Spanish and Portuguese colonies in South America also became independent states.

As western imperialism took hold in other parts of the world, the seeds of resistance and rebellion that would, in time, lead to new nation-states took root. Westernization (assimilation of Western culture) was often resisted in colonized or dominated areas. In South Asia, for example, Indian soldiers known as sepoys rose up in rebellion against the British East India Company. While the rebellion was brutally suppressed by British soldiers, the effect was the disbandment of the British East India Company and the direct rule of India by the British government, commencing a period now known as the British Raj. Similarly, westernization was opposed in China by the Boxers who attempted to rid China of Western influence, especially from Christian missionaries. These nascent independence movements would lead to the more widespread and successful nationalism of the post-World War II period.

Migration and Discrimination

One of the more significant effects of modern imperialism was the migration from dependent or less industrial areas of the world to the dominant industrial economies. People emigrated from rural areas to urban areas within countries and from less developed areas of Europe to more developed areas of Europe.

Immigrants looking for economic opportunity left many European countries and settled in the United States and Canada, often making up a large proportion of the industrial workforce. Some immigrants signed contracts to travel to areas to work for a prescribed period of time, pay back the cost of their transport, and then either settle in these areas or return to their homelands. These indentured laborers, as they were called, came from China, Japan, South Asia, and Europe and found themselves working and living in the Americas, Southeast Asia, Africa, or Australia. If they chose to settle in their host country, they often formed enclaves, or communities, with others from their home country. Often, these immigrants were faced with discrimination based on race, religion, or other factors. The spread of global capitalism resulted in the accumulation of wealth

by the middle and upper classes, while the working classes in the industrial economies, already exploited by the profit motive, found themselves in direct competition for jobs with immigrants from nonindustrial countries.

Unit 7

AP World History Modern: Unit 7 Exam

Global Conflict (c. 1900 – Present)

This exam contains one stimulus-based multiple-choice question set for each of the 9 topics in Unit 7. Seven sets use written stimuli, and two use visual stimuli (with descriptions and source links). Each set includes 4 questions. The correct answer and a brief explanation are provided for every question.

Topic 7.1: Shifting Power After 1900 (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from a speech by Mustafa Kemal Atatürk (1923):

"The Ottoman Empire has collapsed. The old order is dead. We must build a new Turkey on the foundations of reason, science, and national sovereignty. We will reject the superstitions of the past and adopt the civilization of the West while preserving our independence. The Turkish nation will no longer be a plaything of foreign powers."

Source: Mustafa Kemal Atatürk, speech to the Grand National Assembly, 1923 (as cited in Andrew Mango, *Atatürk: The Biography of the Founder of Modern Turkey*, 1999).

Questions

- Based on the passage, Atatürk's vision for Turkey after the collapse of the Ottoman Empire most directly reflected which broader global trend after 1900? (A) The strengthening of traditional Islamic institutions across the Middle East (B) The rise of secular nationalism as a response to imperial collapse (C) The rejection of all Western ideas in favor of complete isolation (D) The restoration of multi-ethnic empires in the region **Correct Answer: (B) The rise of secular nationalism as a response to imperial collapse** *Explanation:* Atatürk explicitly calls for a modern, secular, national state based on reason and sovereignty, rejecting the old imperial and religious order.
- The phrase "reject the superstitions of the past" in the passage suggests that many leaders in the early 20th century viewed traditional institutions as (A) essential foundations for stable governance (B) obstacles to modernization and national strength (C) the primary cause of economic prosperity (D) compatible with Western-style democracy without change **Correct Answer: (B) obstacles to modernization and national strength** *Explanation:* Atatürk frames old beliefs and structures as barriers that must be removed for Turkey to progress.
- Atatürk's emphasis on "national sovereignty" and independence most strongly aligned with which development in the period after 1900? (A) The spread of communist revolutions across Europe and Asia (B) The growth of anti-imperialist and nationalist movements in former imperial territories (C) The consolidation of European colonial empires (D) The decline of all forms of nationalism worldwide **Correct Answer: (B) The growth of anti-imperialist and nationalist movements in former imperial territories** *Explanation:* His focus on sovereignty reflects the broader wave of nationalism that emerged as old empires (Ottoman, Austro-Hungarian, Russian) collapsed.
- Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of leaders like Atatürk during the period c. 1900–present? (A) They successfully created stable, prosperous, and fully democratic states in all former imperial territories (B) They helped establish models of secular nationalism that influenced many post-imperial states, though with varying degrees of success and authoritarianism (C) They led to the immediate and peaceful democratization of the entire Middle East (D) They had no lasting influence on 20th-century politics outside of Turkey **Correct Answer: (B) They helped establish models of**

secular nationalism that influenced many post-imperial states, though with varying degrees of success and authoritarianism *Explanation:* Atatürk's reforms became a powerful (though controversial) model for other leaders seeking to modernize after imperial collapse.

Topic 7.2: Causes of World War I (Visual Stimulus)

Visual Description: A map titled "Europe's Alliance System, 1914" showing two opposing blocs. The Triple Alliance (Germany, Austria-Hungary, Italy) is shaded in one color and connected by solid lines. The Triple Entente (France, Russia, Britain) is shaded in another color with dashed lines. The Balkans are highlighted as a volatile region with arrows showing the spread of nationalist movements. Key cities like Sarajevo are marked.

Source: Adapted from *The First World War: A Very Short Introduction* by Michael Howard, Oxford University Press, 2002.

Link to a Similar Resource: [Europe Alliances 1914 Map – Britannica or Khan Academy](#)

Questions

- Based on the map, the alliance system in 1914 most directly contributed to World War I by (A) preventing any possibility of conflict through mutual deterrence (B) turning a regional crisis in the Balkans into a continent-wide war (C) isolating Germany completely from European affairs (D) encouraging peaceful diplomatic solutions to all disputes **Correct Answer: (B) turning a regional crisis in the Balkans into a continent-wide war** *Explanation:* The rigid alliance blocs meant that conflict between Austria-Hungary and Serbia quickly pulled in their respective allies.
 - The map's emphasis on the Balkans suggests that this region was a major cause of World War I because it (A) was the most economically advanced part of Europe (B) contained intense ethnic nationalism and great-power rivalry (C) had no strategic importance to any European power (D) was firmly controlled by a single stable empire **Correct Answer: (B) contained intense ethnic nationalism and great-power rivalry** *Explanation:* The Balkans were a flashpoint of Slavic nationalism and competition between Austria-Hungary and Russia.
 - According to the map, which alliance was more geographically fragmented? (A) The Triple Alliance (B) The Triple Entente (C) Both alliances were equally compact (D) Neither alliance extended beyond Central Europe **Correct Answer: (B) The Triple Entente** *Explanation:* The Triple Entente stretched from Western Europe (Britain and France) to Eastern Europe (Russia), making coordination more difficult than the more compact Triple Alliance.
 - Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the alliance system shown on the map during the period c. 1900–present? (A) It successfully prevented all future European wars after 1918 (B) It demonstrated how rigid military commitments could rapidly escalate local conflicts into global wars, a pattern seen again in later 20th-century conflicts (C) It had no influence on the outbreak of World War II (D) It led to the immediate creation of a stable and peaceful European order **Correct Answer: (B) It demonstrated how rigid military commitments could rapidly escalate local conflicts into global wars, a pattern seen again in later 20th-century conflicts** *Explanation:* The alliance system's role in 1914 became a cautionary example regarding entangling alliances and escalation risks.
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Topic 7.3: Conducting World War I (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from a British soldier's letter from the Western Front (1916):

"We are living in a world of mud and death. The trenches are filled with water. We stand knee-deep in it for days. The shells never stop. Men are blown to pieces or buried alive. There is no glory here, only horror and the constant fear that the next shell has your name on it."

Source: Private letter from the Western Front, 1916 (as cited in *The First World War: A Complete History* by Martin Gilbert, 1994).

Questions

1. Based on the passage, fighting on the Western Front during World War I was characterized by (A) rapid movement and decisive victories (B) static trench warfare with high casualties and miserable conditions (C) clean and comfortable living conditions for soldiers (D) the complete absence of artillery fire
Correct Answer: (B) static trench warfare with high casualties and miserable conditions
Explanation: The description of mud, water-filled trenches, and constant shelling captures the reality of stalemated trench warfare.
 2. The soldier's statement that "there is no glory here, only horror" most directly challenges which traditional view of war? (A) The idea that war is a noble and heroic endeavor (B) The belief that modern technology makes war less deadly (C) The notion that all soldiers enjoy fighting (D) The view that war should be avoided at all costs
Correct Answer: (A) The idea that war is a noble and heroic endeavor
Explanation: The letter rejects romanticized views of war in favor of its brutal, dehumanizing reality.
 3. Conditions described in the passage most strongly contributed to which development during World War I? (A) High rates of desertion, mutiny, and psychological trauma among soldiers (B) Rapid advances and quick victories for all sides (C) Improved living standards for troops on the front lines (D) The decline of artillery use in favor of cavalry charges
Correct Answer: (A) High rates of desertion, mutiny, and psychological trauma among soldiers
Explanation: The horrific conditions led to shell shock (PTSD), mutinies (e.g., French Army 1917), and widespread disillusionment.
 4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of trench warfare on the home front and society during World War I? (A) It created a "lost generation" of survivors and fueled post-war disillusionment, pacifism, and political extremism in many countries (B) It led to immediate and universal support for continued warfare (C) It had no lasting psychological effects on soldiers or civilians (D) It strengthened traditional romantic views of war across Europe
Correct Answer: (A) It created a "lost generation" of survivors and fueled post-war disillusionment, pacifism, and political extremism in many countries
Explanation: The trauma of trench warfare profoundly shaped interwar literature, politics, and society.
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Topic 7.4: The Russian Revolution (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from Vladimir Lenin's "April Theses" (1917):

"The specific feature of the present situation in Russia is that the country is passing from the first stage of the revolution—which, owing to the insufficient class-consciousness and organization of the proletariat, placed power in the hands of the bourgeoisie—to its second stage, which must place power in the hands of the proletariat and the poorest sections of the peasants."

Source: Vladimir Lenin, “April Theses,” April 1917 (as cited in *The Russian Revolution* by Sheila Fitzpatrick, 1994).

Questions

1. Based on the passage, Lenin argued that the Russian Revolution should (A) stop after the February Revolution and accept bourgeois rule (B) move immediately to a second stage giving power to workers and poor peasants (C) restore the Tsar to maintain stability (D) ally with the bourgeoisie against foreign invasion **Correct Answer: (B) move immediately to a second stage giving power to workers and poor peasants** *Explanation:* Lenin explicitly calls for advancing beyond the February Revolution to proletarian power.
 2. Lenin’s reference to the “insufficient class-consciousness” of the proletariat in February 1917 suggests that he believed the earlier revolution had (A) fully achieved socialist goals (B) been incomplete because workers were not yet ready to seize power (C) been entirely unnecessary (D) been led successfully by the bourgeoisie alone **Correct Answer: (B) been incomplete because workers were not yet ready to seize power** *Explanation:* He argues that the proletariat lacked the organization and consciousness needed to take power in February.
 3. The ideas expressed in Lenin’s “April Theses” most directly contributed to which event later in 1917? (A) The continuation of the Provisional Government until 1920 (B) The Bolshevik seizure of power in the October Revolution (C) The restoration of the Romanov dynasty (D) The immediate end of all fighting in World War I **Correct Answer: (B) The Bolshevik seizure of power in the October Revolution** *Explanation:* The April Theses provided the ideological blueprint for the Bolsheviks’ successful takeover in October.
 4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the Russian Revolution during the period c. 1900–present? (A) It established the world’s first communist state and inspired revolutionary movements and anti-communist reactions worldwide for decades (B) It led to immediate global peace and the end of all revolutions (C) It had no influence outside of Russia (D) It strengthened the Russian monarchy for another century **Correct Answer: (A) It established the world’s first communist state and inspired revolutionary movements and anti-communist reactions worldwide for decades** *Explanation:* The Bolshevik victory created a model (and a threat) that shaped 20th-century politics globally.
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Topic 7.5: The Versailles Treaty and its Consequences (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from the Treaty of Versailles, Article 231 (1919):

“The Allied and Associated Governments affirm and Germany accepts the responsibility of Germany and her allies for causing all the loss and damage to which the Allied and Associated Governments and their nationals have been subjected as a consequence of the war imposed upon them by the aggression of Germany and her allies.”

Source: Treaty of Versailles, 1919 (as cited in *The Versailles Treaty and its Legacy* by Norman A. Graebner and Edward M. Bennett, 2011).

Questions

1. Based on the passage, Article 231 of the Treaty of Versailles is best known as the (A) “self-determination clause” (B) “war guilt clause” (C) “reparations payment schedule” (D) “League of

Nations covenant” **Correct Answer: (B) “war guilt clause”** *Explanation:* This article forced Germany to accept full responsibility for starting the war, becoming one of the most resented parts of the treaty.

2. The “war guilt clause” most directly contributed to which later development in Germany? (A) Widespread acceptance of the treaty as fair and just (B) Deep resentment and a desire for revision of the treaty, which Hitler later exploited (C) Immediate economic recovery and political stability (D) Strong support for the Weimar Republic among all Germans **Correct Answer: (B) Deep resentment and a desire for revision of the treaty, which Hitler later exploited** *Explanation:* The clause was widely seen in Germany as humiliating and unjust, fueling nationalist anger that the Nazis capitalized on.
 3. The Treaty of Versailles’ approach to Germany, as reflected in the passage, differed most significantly from the treatment of Germany after World War II in that it (A) focused heavily on punishment and reparations rather than reconstruction and integration (B) immediately welcomed Germany into a new European union (C) completely destroyed all German military capacity permanently (D) granted Germany significant territorial gains in Eastern Europe **Correct Answer: (A) focused heavily on punishment and reparations rather than reconstruction and integration** *Explanation:* Unlike the post-1945 approach (Marshall Plan, NATO integration), Versailles emphasized blame and financial punishment.
 4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the Treaty of Versailles during the period c. 1900–present? (A) It helped create the conditions for World War II by fostering German resentment and economic instability while failing to create a lasting peaceful order in Europe (B) It successfully prevented all future European conflicts for a century (C) It led to immediate and lasting peace across the continent (D) It had no connection to the rise of Adolf Hitler **Correct Answer: (A) It helped create the conditions for World War II by fostering German resentment and economic instability while failing to create a lasting peaceful order in Europe** *Explanation:* The treaty’s harsh terms contributed significantly to the instability of the interwar period.
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Topic 7.6: Causes of World War II (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from Adolf Hitler’s *Mein Kampf* (1925):

“The German people must be assured of the land and soil to which they are entitled... The soil of the East must be conquered... Germany will either be a world power or cease to exist... We stop the endless German movement to the south and west, and turn our gaze toward the land in the east.”

Source: Adolf Hitler, *Mein Kampf*, 1925 (as cited in *Hitler: A Biography* by Ian Kershaw, 1998).

Questions

1. Based on the passage, Hitler’s foreign policy goals most clearly included (A) peaceful coexistence with neighboring states (B) territorial expansion (Lebensraum) in Eastern Europe at the expense of Slavic peoples (C) the restoration of Germany’s pre-1914 borders only (D) complete German disarmament and neutrality **Correct Answer: (B) territorial expansion (Lebensraum) in Eastern Europe at the expense of Slavic peoples** *Explanation:* Hitler explicitly calls for conquering land in the East and stopping expansion to the West, outlining his vision for Lebensraum.
2. The ideas expressed in the passage most directly contributed to which cause of World War II? (A) The policy of appeasement by Britain and France (B) Hitler’s aggressive expansionism and violation of international agreements (C) The strengthening of the League of Nations (D) Economic cooperation between Germany and the Soviet Union **Correct Answer: (B) Hitler’s aggressive expansionism and**

violation of international agreements *Explanation:* Hitler's stated goals made conflict almost inevitable once he gained power and began acting on them.

3. Hitler's reference to Germany becoming "a world power or cease to exist" reflects which characteristic of Nazi ideology? (A) A belief in peaceful diplomacy and international law (B) Extreme nationalism combined with Social Darwinist ideas of struggle and survival (C) Support for democratic institutions within Germany (D) A desire to return to the political system of the Weimar Republic **Correct Answer: (B) Extreme nationalism combined with Social Darwinist ideas of struggle and survival**
Explanation: The language of existential struggle and the need for expansion reflects Nazi racial and nationalist ideology.
 4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of Nazi expansionist ideology during the period c. 1900–present? (A) It led to World War II and the Holocaust, fundamentally reshaping global politics and creating lasting memories of total war and genocide (B) It resulted in permanent German dominance over Europe (C) It had no connection to the outbreak of World War II (D) It promoted peaceful relations between Germany and its neighbors **Correct Answer: (A) It led to World War II and the Holocaust, fundamentally reshaping global politics and creating lasting memories of total war and genocide**
Explanation: Hitler's ideology directly caused the most destructive war in history and the systematic murder of millions.
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Topic 7.7: Conducting World War II (Visual Stimulus)

Visual Description: A map titled "World War II in Europe and North Africa, 1943–1945" showing Allied advances from multiple directions. Red arrows indicate Soviet offensives from the East, blue arrows show Western Allied landings in North Africa, Italy, and Normandy (D-Day), and green shading marks Axis-controlled territory shrinking over time. Key locations such as Stalingrad, Normandy, and Berlin are highlighted.

Source: Adapted from *The Second World War: A Complete History* by Martin Gilbert, 1989.

Link to a Similar Resource: [WWII Europe Map 1944–45 – National WWII Museum or Britannica](#)

Questions

1. Based on the map, the Allied strategy in Europe after 1943 most clearly involved (A) a single-front attack from the West only (B) a multi-front offensive pressuring Germany from both East and West (C) complete reliance on naval power with no land offensives (D) immediate surrender to German forces **Correct Answer: (B) a multi-front offensive pressuring Germany from both East and West**
Explanation: The map shows simultaneous Soviet pressure from the East and Western Allied advances from the West and South, creating a two-front war that Germany could not sustain.
2. The map's depiction of the D-Day landings and Soviet offensives illustrates which key feature of World War II? (A) The dominance of defensive trench warfare (B) The importance of coordinated, large-scale combined arms operations across multiple fronts (C) The absence of any significant land battles after 1943 (D) Germany's successful defense of all its conquered territory until 1945 **Correct Answer: (B) The importance of coordinated, large-scale combined arms operations across multiple fronts**
Explanation: The map highlights the massive, coordinated offensives that eventually overwhelmed the Axis powers.
3. According to the map, which Allied power bore the heaviest burden of fighting on land in Europe? (A) The United States (B) The Soviet Union (C) Britain (D) France **Correct Answer: (B) The Soviet Union**
Explanation: The extensive red arrows from the East show the massive scale of Soviet operations, which inflicted the majority of German casualties.

4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the multi-front strategy shown on the map during World War II? (A) It eventually led to the defeat of Nazi Germany but at an enormous human and material cost, fundamentally altering the balance of power in Europe and the world (B) It allowed Germany to achieve total victory in Europe (C) It had no connection to the outcome of the war in the Pacific (D) It resulted in minimal casualties on all sides **Correct Answer: (A) It eventually led to the defeat of Nazi Germany but at an enormous human and material cost, fundamentally altering the balance of power in Europe and the world** *Explanation:* The two-front war was decisive in Germany's defeat and helped set the stage for the post-war division of Europe.
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Topic 7.8: Mass Atrocities (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from Primo Levi's *If This Is a Man* (1947):

"...we are slaves, deprived of every right, exposed to every insult, condemned to certain death... They have taken away our shoes, our clothes, even our hair... They have taken away our names..."

Source: Primo Levi, *If This Is a Man* (also known as *Survival in Auschwitz*), 1947 (as cited in *The Holocaust: A New History* by Laurence Rees, 2017).

Questions

- Based on the passage, the Nazi concentration camp system aimed to (A) provide humane treatment and re-education for prisoners (B) completely dehumanize and destroy the identity and dignity of victims (C) integrate prisoners into German society as equals (D) offer prisoners opportunities for rapid advancement **Correct Answer: (B) completely dehumanize and destroy the identity and dignity of victims** *Explanation:* Levi describes the systematic stripping away of personal identity (names, hair, clothes, shoes) as a deliberate process of dehumanization.
- The conditions described in the passage most directly reflect which characteristic of Nazi mass atrocities? (A) Random and unplanned violence (B) Systematic, bureaucratic, and industrialized killing and dehumanization (C) Limited to combat zones only (D) Focused exclusively on political opponents rather than racial groups **Correct Answer: (B) Systematic, bureaucratic, and industrialized killing and dehumanization** *Explanation:* The organized removal of identity and the scale of the camps reflect the bureaucratic and industrialized nature of the Holocaust.
- Primo Levi's account most strongly contributed to which post-war development? (A) The denial of the Holocaust by most Europeans (B) Greater global awareness of the Holocaust and the establishment of international laws against genocide (C) The immediate reunification of Germany in 1945 (D) The rejection of all forms of international justice **Correct Answer: (B) Greater global awareness of the Holocaust and the establishment of international laws against genocide** *Explanation:* Survivor testimonies like Levi's helped document the Holocaust and influenced the 1948 Genocide Convention.
- Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of mass atrocities like the Holocaust during the period c. 1900–present? (A) They led to the creation of new international legal frameworks (such as the Genocide Convention) and ongoing debates about memory, justice, and the prevention of future genocides (B) They were quickly forgotten by the international community after 1945 (C) They had no influence on later conflicts or human rights law (D) They resulted in the complete elimination of all forms of genocide worldwide **Correct Answer: (A) They led to the creation of new international legal frameworks (such as the Genocide Convention) and ongoing debates about memory, justice, and the prevention of future genocides** *Explanation:* The Holocaust became a defining event that shaped post-war human rights law and collective memory.

Topic 7.9: The Cold War (Visual Stimulus)

Visual Description: A map titled “Cold War Divisions and Proxy Conflicts, 1947–1991” showing the world divided between the Western bloc (blue) and the Eastern bloc (red). Europe is split by the Iron Curtain. Key proxy war locations are marked, including Korea (1950–53), Vietnam (1955–75), Afghanistan (1979–89), and various conflicts in Africa and Latin America. Arrows indicate the global reach of U.S. and Soviet influence.

Source: Adapted from *The Cold War: A Very Short Introduction* by Robert J. McMahon, Oxford University Press, 2003.

Link to a Similar Resource: [Cold War Proxy Conflicts Map – Khan Academy or National Geographic](#)

Questions

1. Based on the map, the Cold War was characterized by (A) direct military confrontation between the United States and the Soviet Union in Europe (B) indirect conflicts fought through proxy wars in the developing world (C) complete isolation of the two superpowers from each other (D) the absence of any ideological competition **Correct Answer: (B) indirect conflicts fought through proxy wars in the developing world** *Explanation:* The map highlights numerous proxy conflicts (Korea, Vietnam, Afghanistan, etc.) rather than direct U.S.-Soviet fighting.
2. The map’s depiction of proxy wars in Asia, Africa, and Latin America suggests that the Cold War (A) remained confined to Europe only (B) became a truly global struggle that affected decolonizing nations (C) had no impact on newly independent countries (D) was primarily an economic rather than ideological conflict **Correct Answer: (B) became a truly global struggle that affected decolonizing nations** *Explanation:* Many proxy wars occurred in the context of decolonization, as the superpowers competed for influence in the developing world.
3. According to the map, which region experienced the most prolonged and intense superpower involvement through proxy conflicts? (A) Western Europe (B) Southeast Asia and parts of Africa (C) North America (D) Australia and New Zealand **Correct Answer: (B) Southeast Asia and parts of Africa** *Explanation:* The map shows multiple overlapping conflicts in Vietnam, Korea, and various African nations over several decades.
4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the Cold War, as shown on the map, during the period c. 1900–present? (A) It shaped global politics for nearly half a century, influenced decolonization, and left lasting legacies in many regions even after the collapse of the Soviet Union in 1991 (B) It had no lasting effects on any region outside of Europe (C) It led to immediate global peace and cooperation after 1991 (D) It remained limited to diplomatic disagreements with no military component **Correct Answer: (A) It shaped global politics for nearly half a century, influenced decolonization, and left lasting legacies in many regions even after the collapse of the Soviet Union in 1991** *Explanation:* The Cold War’s global reach and proxy conflicts had profound and enduring consequences worldwide.

7.1

Topic 7.1: Shifting Power

Essential Question: How did internal and external factors contribute to change in various states after 1900?

An intense period of rebellion continued into the early 1900s. Nicholas II, the last Russian tsar, clearly did not understand the force of the political opposition to his rule that resulted in his assassination in 1918. In the 20th century's first two decades, rebellions erupted against long-standing authoritarian governments in Russia, China, and Mexico. Revolutionaries unseated ruling governments in each country, challenging the existing political and social order and instituting their own political philosophies and practices. Established land-based and maritime empires collapsed under pressure from internal and external forces. By the end of the century, a new global order had emerged.

Revolution in Russia

By the early 20th century, Russia was falling behind most of Europe, the United States, and Japan in wealth and power.

Russia's most obvious challenges were internal. While governments in other industrializing states in the 19th century were actively promoting economic growth, Russia was not. It was slow to expand education for peasants, build roads and other parts of its transportation networks, and support entrepreneurs with loans and contracts. Further, the tsarist government resisted calls for political reform. It was reluctant to recognize civil liberties and to allow more citizens to participate in government.

These internal problems led to external ones. Without a strong economic base to support a military, Russia then became weaker in international affairs:

- It lost the Crimean War (1853–1856) against the Ottoman Empire, which was supported by Great Britain and France.
- It lost the Russo-Japanese War (1904–1905) in a battle for power in East Asia.

Key Events Leading to Revolution in Russia

Internal

- **Bloody Sunday, January 22, 1905:** Thousands of workers marched peacefully to petition the tsar asking for better working conditions, higher wages, and universal suffrage. The tsar's troops and police began shooting. About 1,300 marchers were killed.
- **The Revolution of 1905:** In strikes responding to Bloody Sunday, 400,000 workers refused to work. The tsar tried to appease the protesters. However, by the end, thousands of workers had been killed, injured, or exiled.

External

- **Russo-Japanese War (1904–1905):** Russia and Japan both wanted to expand their influence in Korea and Manchuria. Japan won easily, the first time in modern history that an East Asian state had defeated a European power.
- **World War I:** Germany declared war on Russia in 1914. Russians quickly realized how poorly trained and armed their troops were. Civilians suffered from extreme food shortages.

In the fall of 1917, the **Bolsheviks**, an organization representing the revolutionary working class of Russia under the leadership of Vladimir Lenin, seized power and set up a communist government with Lenin at its head. The **communists** believed that workers eventually should own the means of production and that collective ownership would lead to collective prosperity and a just society. Toward that long-term goal, the Soviet government abolished private trade, distributed peasants' crops to feed urban workers, and took over ownership of the country's factories and heavy industries.

The success of the Bolsheviks in taking power shook the world. They were the first example of communists running a large country. Throughout the capitalist world, from Europe to the United States to Japan, people worried that communists were a danger to their governments as well. The conflict between communism and capitalism would become an important issue shaping world affairs in the rest of the 20th century.

Upheaval in China

China was another land-based empire that collapsed in this period from problems it faced at home and from other countries. The Qing Dynasty had come to power in China in 1644. Finally, a revolution overthrew it in 1911, creating a republic led first by Dr. Sun Yat-sen. However, his rule was short.

Internal Challenges

China faced daunting domestic concerns in the 19th century, each of which weakened support for the government. One of these was ethnic tension. China consisted of dozens of ethnic groups. The largest group was the Han. The rulers of the Qing Dynasty were Manchus, from a region northeast of China. Many Chinese, particularly the Han, never fully accepted the Qing as legitimate rulers of China. By the late 19th century, the Qing had ruled China for over two centuries, but they had remained ethnically distinct.

A second problem was the constant danger of famine. China experienced rapid population growth between the mid-1700s and mid-1800s, but could not expand the amount of farmland or productivity rapidly enough to provide a stable food supply. Any natural disaster, such as a drought or a flood, could result in the early deaths of thousands of people.

Third, government revenues were very low. The imperial government had not updated the tax system to adjust to changes in the economy. As a result, compared to Europe or the United States, taxes in China were low. This meant that the government did not have the resources to maintain roads, bridges, and irrigation canals.

External Challenges

China had been one of the wealthiest, most powerful, most innovative states in the world for much of its recorded history. However, starting in the late 18th century, it faced growing threats to its position by industrialization in Europe. In the late 18th century, Europeans interested in the Chinese market could trade only in the city of Canton (Guangzhou). Europeans commonly bought tea, rhubarb, porcelain, and silk. In Europe, Chinese fashions, table settings, and art objects were very popular. The Chinese received European silver in exchange for what they sold. However, the Chinese did not desire the products Europeans produced, and they looked down on Europeans as violent and less civilized. In response to growing European influence in China, many Chinese did rally behind the empress in the 1890s.

Chinese Republic

However, the desire to support the empress against foreign pressure was not enough to save the Qing Dynasty. In 1911, the last Chinese dynasty was overthrown by a revolutionary movement led by Sun Yat-sen. Though a Christian, Sun believed that China should continue to follow such Confucian principles as loyalty,

respect for ancestors, and efforts to promote social harmony. He combined these traditions with ideas he later elaborated upon in his book *The Three People's Principles*:

- **Democracy:** Sun believed in sovereignty, not for all the people but for those Chinese who were “able.” In Confucian terms, this meant a country governed by active and pragmatic experts in the name of the people. He felt that expelling foreign capitalists from China would enable China to redistribute revenues from land taxes more fairly, since the revenues would not have to be used to pay debts to foreigners.
- **Nationalism:** Sun advocated patriotism and loyalty, primarily to central authority.
- **Livelihood:** Sun wanted to end the extreme unequal distribution of wealth in China and the harsh economic exploitation.

Sun Yat-sen's Legacy

Sun never had enough military strength to rule all of China. Various warlords controlled the majority of the country. Sun recognized the weakness of his position. After two months in office, he gave up his position to a military leader. The party Sun led, the Chinese Nationalist Party, or Kuomintang, would later regain power. It would rule China for two decades before losing a civil war with Chinese Communists. While both the Kuomintang and the Communists would honor Sun as the founder of the Chinese republic, neither would fully implement his principles.

Self-Determination in the Ottoman Collapse

By the beginning of the 20th century, the once-mighty Ottoman Empire—“the sick man of Europe”—had relatively few exports and a waning agricultural economy. The empire relied mostly upon its position as a trade center. Egypt, by contrast, continued to make profits from cotton.

The Young Turks

As Ottoman prosperity declined, a group of reformers known as the **Young Turks** emerged. They advocated for a constitution like those of the European states. They also advocated **Turkification**, an effort to make all citizens of the multiethnic empire identify with Turkish culture, which was heavily Islamic. For the millions of Armenians in the empire, who were mostly Christians, this was difficult. In response, some Young Turks scapegoated, or unfairly blamed, Armenians for the empire's economic problems.

Fight Against Foreign Influence

Turks resented many Europeans, particularly the British and the French, for their economic policies. Foreign investments had given Europeans undue power in the empire. Further, Europeans had imposed trade privileges that were unprofitable for the Ottomans. Because of these resentments, the Ottoman Empire secretly allied with Germany in World War I. After Germany's defeat in World War I, the Ottoman Empire was dismantled by the victorious powers. It was replaced by a smaller nation-state, the Republic of Turkey, and several independent countries.

Victorious Allied forces immediately sent troops to occupy Anatolia. Although the sultan of the Ottoman Empire remained on his throne, he had little power. He served as a mere puppet for British forces that hoped to control the lands of the former empire.

The Rise of Atatürk

During the war, a group called the Turkish National Movement organized an army to fight for self-determination. Led by Mustafa Kemal, the Turkish Nationalists defeated British and other forces in 1921.

The Republic of Turkey was established in 1923, with Kemal as the first president. The new national assembly awarded him the surname **Atatürk** (“father of the Turks”) in recognition of his role in establishing the new republic.

Atatürk’s policies focused on reforming Turkey to make it more like the Western democracies. He was determined to create a secular nation, not one with strong Islamic influences. He implemented several reforms: establishing public education for boys and girls, abolishing polygyny, and expanding suffrage to include women. As a symbolic gesture, he wore mainly Western suits and hats and encouraged others to do the same. Despite his reforms, he ruled as a dictator for 15 years. He did not give up power before his death in 1938.

Power Shifts in Mexico

Mexico entered the 20th century as an independent nation firmly under the control of a dictator, **Porfirio Díaz**. He oversaw a period of stability and some economic progress. However, he had allowed foreign investors, particularly those from the United States, control over many of the country’s resources. Additionally, the wealthiest 1 percent of the population controlled 97 percent of the land. Typical Mexican peasants were landless.

Revolution

In 1910, Díaz jailed **Francisco Madero**, the opposition candidate for president. This act, combined with the growing opposition to Díaz’s strong-armed policies, accommodation to foreign powers, and opposition to land reform, ignited the **Mexican Revolution**. Madero escaped and set up revolutionary offices in El Paso, Texas. Then, in 1911, Madero’s troops, under the command of **Francisco “Pancho” Villa**, defeated Mexican troops, sending Díaz into exile. One revolutionary leader, **Emiliano Zapata**, began the actual process of redistributing land to impoverished peasants.

Until 1920, Mexico suffered from political instability and devastating violence. Between 1910 and 1920, conflict resulted in around 2 million deaths, out of a population of around 15 million people. Political violence continued for another decade. However, two results came out of conflicts between 1910 and 1930 that provided Mexico with stability for the rest of the century:

- Mexico adopted a new constitution in 1917. It included the goals of land redistribution, universal suffrage, and public education. These principles continued to guide Mexico’s government.
- The **Institutional Revolutionary Party**, or **PRI**, was formed in 1929. Though widely criticized as corrupt, the PRI dominated Mexican politics. Until 2000, all presidents were PRI members.

Key Terms by Theme

CULTURE: Ethnic Conflict

Turkification

GOVERNMENT: Politics

Bolshevik, communists, Young Turks, Mexican Revolution, Institutional Revolutionary Party (PRI)

GOVERNMENT: Leaders

Sun Yat-sen, Kemal Atatürk, Porfirio Díaz, Francisco Madero, Francisco “Pancho” Villa, Emiliano Zapata

Topic 7.2: Causes of World War I

Essential Question: What were the causes and consequences of World War I?

In the years before World War I, social and political developments, including shifting powers, contributed to the escalation of tensions that resulted in global conflict. European nations, expanding their empires, competed for raw material resources in Africa and Asia. A series of mutual alliances created entanglements that committed nations to defense systems that would draw them into war. Arms races involving Germany, Great Britain, and Russia gave military establishments great influence.

The immediate cause of the war's outbreak had its roots in yet another cause of conflict—a rising wave of nationalism. As Bismarck predicted, this clash erupted in the Balkans when Serbian nationalists, protesting Austria-Hungary's control over the territory of Bosnia-Herzegovina, assassinated Austro-Hungarian Archduke Franz Ferdinand. Thus World War I began.

Immediate Causes of the Great War

World War I, which lasted from 1914 to 1918, was known as the **Great War**—not because of its positive nature, but because of the immense scale of the fighting. No previous war had involved as many nations from different parts of the world or killed as many soldiers and civilians. However, World War I did more than create an enormous body count. It fundamentally weakened the Western European powers, thus encouraging the growth of nationalism and appeals for self-rule within European colonies in Asia and Africa. Treaties signed at the end of this war helped set the stage for World War II. World War I was one of the most significant events of the 20th century.

A long series of events led up to World War I. The immediate cause was the assassination by **Gavrilo Princip** of Archduke Franz Ferdinand, the heir to the Austro-Hungarian throne, and his wife, Sophie, on June 28, 1914. Princip, a Serbian, was a member of the **Black Hand**, a nationalist organization devoted to ending Austro-Hungarian presence in the Balkans. From the Austro-Hungarian perspective, however, the Black Hand was a terrorist group.

Immediately after the assassinations, Austria-Hungary sent an ultimatum to the Serbian government, demanding that it end all anti-Austrian agitation in Serbia. When the Serbian government rejected the ultimatum, Austria-Hungary declared war on Serbia on July 28, 1914. Austria-Hungary looked to its ally Germany, a stronger nation with more firepower, for military assistance to punish Serbia. Serbia, populated by ethnic Slavs, looked to other Slavic countries, particularly Russia, for help. On August 1, Germany declared war on Russia, and two days later on France. The following day, Britain declared war on Germany, and on August 6 Austria declared war on Russia. By the end of August 1914, Japan's entrance into the conflict changed a relatively minor incident into a true world war.

Long-Term Causes of the Great War

Princip's actions were not the sole cause of World War I. Tensions in Europe had been simmering for decades. One way to remember the sources of these tensions is with the acronym **MAIN**: Militarism, Alliances, Imperialism, and Nationalism.

Militarism

Defined as aggressive military preparedness, **militarism** celebrates war and the armed forces. European powers had been competing for dominance; one way to prove their strength was to invest in the military. Great

Britain and Germany in particular spent a great deal of money on building up their armies and navies, heavily recruiting young men to join their armed forces and building more ships and amassing other military hardware. Because of the Industrial Revolution, it was possible to mass-produce weapons and supplies. A nation's militaristic attitude influenced its public to view war as a festive competition, more like a game than a gravely serious matter. "Everybody said, 'It'll be over by Christmas,'" a British soldier named Bill Haine recalled.

Alliances

In their quest for power, European nations also formed **secret alliances**—groups whose members secretly agree to protect and help one another when attacked. When one member of an alliance was attacked in any way, the other members were expected to stand up for that particular member. This system explains why Russia and Germany were ready to jump into the conflict between Serbia and Austria-Hungary.

Furthermore, countries that were allied with other countries were also sworn enemies of members of other alliances. For example, Britain and France were allies with Russia in the alliance called the **Triple Entente**, and all three viewed Germany as a rival—for different reasons. France was bitter about its defeat in the Franco-Prussian War (1870–1871) and the loss to Germany of Alsace-Lorraine, a major industrial region with rich deposits of iron ore. Both Britain and France competed with Germany for colonies in Africa. After the war began, the Triple Entente became known as the **Allies** as they were joined by Italy, Japan, China, the United States, and other countries. By the end of the war, there were a total of 27 Allies and "Associated Powers."

The Allies' rival alliance before the war was known as the **Triple Alliance**, composed of Germany, Austria-Hungary, and Italy. However, when the war began, Italy remained neutral until 1915, when it switched its allegiance and joined the Allies. At the outbreak of the war, the Ottoman Empire and Bulgaria joined the former Triple Alliance, which was now called the **Central Powers**.

Imperialism

The alliance system developed largely because Western European countries became bitter rivals for global domination. One of the most important ways these nations could assert their power and generate wealth was to own overseas colonies. During the latter half of the 19th century, for example, Western European countries scrambled for any available land in Africa to add to the colonies they already owned in Asia, the Americas, and the Pacific. Once European powers had claimed nearly all the land in Africa, they began fighting with one another over colonies. Thus, imperialism was a driving force behind tensions in Europe leading up to the archduke's assassination.

Nationalism

The assassination of the archduke in June 1914, the immediate cause of war, illustrates the growth of nationalism, the final long-term cause of the Great War. On a basic level, nationalism originates from a feeling of pride in one's national identity. Multinational empires such as the Ottoman Empire and the Austro-Hungarian Empire had to contend with different nationalist movements among their subject peoples. Serbs like Princip wanted to rid their land of Austro-Hungarian domination, and Arabs were tired of the limitations the Ottoman Empire imposed on them. Both groups sought **self-determination**—the idea that peoples of the same ethnicity, language, culture, and political ideals should be united and should have the right to form an independent nation-state. Militant nationalists among Serbs and Arabs fought for the Allies, thus extending the boundaries of the Great War.

Consequences of the Great War

As the 20th century began, most Europeans looked forward to a bright future. They expected a century of peace guaranteed by alliances, prosperity as a result of their colonial empires, and continued progress. All of that optimism was shattered on one fateful day in 1914.

Virtually every major event during the remainder of the 20th century was a direct or indirect result of World War I. The war led to the downfalls of four monarchies: Russia, Austria-Hungary, Germany, and the Ottoman Empire. It redrew the maps of Europe and the Middle East with the disintegration of Austro-Hungarian and Ottoman empires. Germany lost all its overseas colonies to various Allied nations, and the former Ottoman provinces of Iraq, Palestine, Syria, and Lebanon came under the control of Britain and France. But the war also led to the beginning of the end of colonialism.

New technologies made World War I the deadliest and most destructive war in human history. It disrupted European economies and had profound social consequences, including the rise of communism and fascism, colonial revolts, and genocide. There was a massive shift of power from Europe to the United States.

Germany was furious about the terms of the peace treaty. Germany was forced to take full blame for the war—although Austria-Hungary started it—and forced to agree to make **reparations**, impossibly large payments to its opponents to make up for their losses. The war that was to make the world safe for democracy instead gave rise to authoritarian regimes and an even greater world war.

Key Terms by Theme

GOVERNMENT: Wars and Rebellions

Great War, Gavrilo Princip

GOVERNMENT: Leaders

Archduke Franz Ferdinand

GOVERNMENT: Alliances

Triple Entente, Allies, Triple Alliance, Central Powers

SOCIETY: Ideologies and Organizations

Black Hand, militarism, secret alliances, self-determination

7.3

Topic 7.3: Conducting World War I

Essential Question: What were some of the methods governments used to fight World War I?

British poet Wilfred Owen's "Dulce et Decorum Est" is one of the most famous war poems of the 20th century. Most of the poem describes the horrors of modern warfare, and the final lines of the excerpt, translated as "It is sweet and noble to die for one's country," he labels "The old Lie." No previous war had involved as many nations from different parts of the world and none had killed as many soldiers and civilians.

At the outbreak of World War I, Britain was the only major power going into the war without universal **conscription**, compulsory enlistment in the armed forces. Realizing that patriotism could be contagious, the British Army began to recruit "Pals Battalions" made up of men who already knew each other. The first of these was made up of a group of stockbrokers from the City of London. Other Pals Battalions were recruited in cities throughout Britain, such as Liverpool and Manchester. Because the men who volunteered were friends or associates, these battalions were especially close knit. By the end of the war, one out of four British men had served in the military.

Changes in Warfare

Many modern films such as *Saving Private Ryan*, set during World War II, and *Platoon*, set during the Vietnam War, show that war is *not* a glorious experience, but most Europeans saw warfare differently during the first few months of World War I. "Everybody said, 'It'll be over by Christmas,'" a British soldier named Bill Haine recalled. The war began in June 1914. Hundreds of thousands of teenage boys enthusiastically enlisted in the military, dreaming of heroism. Wartime assemblies sounded more like high school pep rallies, in which speakers naively predicted swift and easy victories in battles against supposedly inferior enemies. Leaders of some of the socialist parties were among the few Europeans who spoke out against the war. Even socialists were divided on the issue, however, as many supported the war efforts of their nation.

At the time, few people actually understood how brutal 20th-century warfare could be. As the war dragged on, the world became aware of the horrific effects of new advances in war technology and tactics, such as trench warfare, poison gas, machine guns, submarines, airplanes, and tanks.

- The defining experience for most soldiers in this war was the time spent in the **trenches**, long ditches dug in the ground with the excavated earth banked in front in order to defend against enemy fire. **Trench warfare** was not a glorious way to fight a war. Combatant nations dug hundreds of miles of trenches facing one another, and soldiers slept, ate, and fought in the trenches for months at a time. Trenches were often cold, muddy, and rat-infested. Many soldiers died from diseases caused by unhygienic conditions. Erich Maria Remarque's 1929 novel, *All Quiet on the Western Front*, and the 1930 film based on it give a vivid sense of a soldier's life in the trenches. Remarque was a young German soldier during World War I.
- **Poison gas** was one of the most insidious weapons of the new style of warfare. Chlorine, phosgene, and mustard gas were used during World War I. Soldiers were soon equipped with gas masks, which were effective when used immediately. Although fatalities were limited, the effects of a gas attack could be extremely painful and long lasting. Many veterans suffered permanent damage to their lungs. After the war, international treaties outlawed the use of poison gas.
- Developed in the late 1800s, **machine guns** could fire more than 500 rounds of ammunition per minute, increasing the deadly impact of warfare. The weapon made it difficult for either side in a battle to gain new territory.

- Although primitive submarines had been used briefly in the American Civil War, they played a much larger part in World War I, wreaking havoc on the shipping lanes of the Atlantic Ocean.
- Airplanes in 1914 were still light, small, and unable to carry many weapons. Therefore, they did not present much of a threat to troops, vehicles, or ships. At first, airplanes were used mainly to carry on **reconnaissance** (observation) of enemy lines. By 1915 they were being fitted with machine guns and aerial combat began. Individual “air aces” would engage in “dog fights” with enemy aircraft.
- The British developed **tanks** to protect troops as they moved across vast areas of difficult terrain, even over trenches, with the ability to fire at the enemy. They were developed by the Royal Navy, and originally referred to as *landships*. They got their name from the fact that during their development, they were disguised as water tanks.

With both the Central Powers and the Allies using brutal weapons and tactics, neither side could defeat the other. The result was a bloody four-year **stalemate** in which the death toll and suffering rose ever higher.

The United States Enters the War

Economic ties between the United States and the Allies were one underlying reason for U.S. entry into the war in 1917. In addition, many Americans believed that the Allied nations were more democratic than the Central Powers were. A third reason was growing resentment against the Germans, especially for U-boat (submarine) attacks on ships carrying civilians, including Americans. On May 7, 1915, a German submarine attacked and sank the *Lusitania*, an ocean liner carrying more than 100 U.S. citizens among its passengers.

The event that finally pushed the United States into the war was the interception of the **Zimmermann Telegram** in January 1917. In this document, the German government offered to help Mexico reclaim territory it had lost to the United States in 1848 if Mexico allied itself with Germany in the war.

Total War

Combatant nations intensified the conflict in World War I by committing all their resources to the war effort. This strategy, known as **total war**, meant that a nation's domestic population, in addition to its military, was committed to winning the war. Thus, millions of civilians, including women, worked in factories producing war materials. Workers imported from China helped make up for labor shortages in Britain, France, and Russia. Entire economies were centered on winning the war. Governments set up planning boards that set production quotas, price and wage controls, and the rationing of food and other supplies. They censored the media and imprisoned many who spoke out against the war effort.

Propaganda was another component of total war. **Propaganda** is communication meant to influence the attitudes and opinions of a community around a particular subject by spreading inaccurate or slanted information. Governments invested heavily in army and navy recruitment campaigns and other wartime propaganda. Posters and articles in newspapers and magazines often depicted the enemy crudely or misrepresented the facts of the war completely. For example, American and British propaganda demonized the German army, exaggerating reports of atrocities against civilians. Likewise, German propaganda demonized the Americans and the British.

The use of highly emotional and often misleading information fomented hatred and bitterness across borders, among civilians as well as soldiers. Other propaganda was more subtle. For example, the U.S. government sent artists to the front lines in Europe to illustrate scenes of battle and glorify Allied soldiers.

A Global War

World War I was fought in Europe, Asia, Africa, and the Pacific and Atlantic Oceans. Not since the Seven Years' War of the late 18th century had there been such a **global war**. Most of the major combatants in World War I ruled colonies in Asia, Africa, the Americas, and the Pacific. Competition for these colonies was one major reason for war. Imperialism extended the boundaries of the war, and major battles were fought in North Africa and the Middle East. Japan entered the war on the side of the Allies so that it could take control of German colonies in the Pacific—the Marshall Islands, the Mariana Islands, Palau, and the Carolines. Japan also occupied Tsingtao (Qingdao), a German-held port in China.

The British seized most of Germany's colonies in Africa. However, the Germans held on to German East Africa, later called Tanzania. The British also defended the Suez Canal from an attack by the Ottoman Empire.

Colonial troops reinforced their home countries' forces in several battles. About half a million Australians and New Zealanders enlisted to fight the war. These troops formed a special corps known as **ANZAC** and fought in a bloody year-long campaign at **Gallipoli**, a peninsula in northwestern Turkey, that resulted in heavy Allied losses with little to show for the effort. Canadian troops fought in several European battles. Britain drafted Africans and Indians for combat roles in Europe. Some 90,000 Gurkha soldiers from Nepal fought in the Indian Army. Approximately 1.3 million soldiers served in the Indian Army during the war, in Europe and Southwest Asia. The French Army included 450,000 Africans, mostly from West Africa and Algeria, as well as another 110,000 Europeans from North Africa. Some 44,000 Indochinese soldiers fought in the French army, with nearly 50,000 more working in support roles behind the lines. Some colonial troops fought in hopes that their efforts would gain them recognition from their colonizers, who often promised the colonies self-rule after the war ended.

Arabs, long under the rule of the Turkish-led Ottoman Empire, fought with the Allies because the British promised self-rule after the war if they were victorious. Arab troops attacked Ottoman forts in Arabia and present-day Israel and helped the British take over the cities of Baghdad, Damascus, and Jerusalem.

Women and the War

In the early 20th century, most countries did not allow women to vote or to be soldiers. However, the sheer numbers of men enlisting meant that women's lives changed significantly. They began replacing those men on farms and in factories. Thousands of women served on the front lines as nurses, ambulance drivers, and switchboard operators.

Most countries forbade women from serving in combat, but Russia, Serbia, Romania, and Bulgaria allowed it. In 1917, the Russian government created an all-female battalion (military unit) as propaganda to shame men into continuing to fight. The commander Maria Bochkareva led the First Russian Women's Battalion of Death.

The Paris Peace Conference

The war itself greatly damaged Europe. However, the peace conference held in its wake would have even more profound effects on the entire world. The leaders of the victorious countries at the Paris Peace Conference became known as the **Big Four**: Woodrow Wilson (United States), David Lloyd George (Great Britain), Georges Clemenceau (France), and Vittorio Orlando (Italy). The Italians walked out of the peace conference in a rage because Italy would not get Dalmatia and other territories that they had been promised for joining the Allies, including the city of Fiume on the Adriatic Sea. Russia was not invited to the conference because it had undergone a communist revolution. Russia's Bolshevik leaders refused to honor Russia's financial debts to the Allies, who in return refused to recognize the Bolshevik government.

The Big Four had different visions of how to settle the peace. President Wilson's pledge to establish "peace without victory" reflected his belief that no one country should be severely punished or greatly rewarded. France's Clemenceau rejected this view. He believed that France, out of all the Allies represented at the conference, had suffered the most and thus deserved special considerations to be protected from Germany. He also argued that the victorious powers should seek some sort of revenge on the Central Powers for starting the war. Clemenceau complained that Wilson was an unrealistic idealist who was naive about European relations, even though Wilson had a Ph.D. in history. David Lloyd George tended to support Clemenceau's ideas, but he often acted as an intermediary between the two differing points of view.

Fourteen Points

Despite Clemenceau's protests, Wilson pushed for his principles, which he outlined in a document called the **Fourteen Points**. He particularly wanted to create a **League of Nations**, an organization in which all nations of the world would convene to discuss conflicts openly, as a way to avoid the simmering tensions that had caused World War I. Although the other nations agreed to establish the League, the U.S. Senate voted against joining it and against ratifying the Treaty of Versailles, the 1919 peace treaty with Germany.

Wilson also believed that conquered peoples under the defeated Central Powers deserved the right to **self-determination**, to decide their own political futures. Instead of the colonies and territories of the Central Powers being snatched up by the Allies, conquered peoples should have the right to decide their own political fate. A number of new nations were created or resurrected in Europe as the Austro-Hungarian and Ottoman empires were broken up: Finland, Estonia, Latvia, Lithuania, Poland, Czechoslovakia, and Yugoslavia. The last three of these were home to Slavic peoples.

The Treaty of Versailles

Because Wilson failed to convince France and Britain not to punish Germany, the Treaty of Versailles treated Germany harshly. Most notably, Germany had to pay billions of dollars in **reparations** for damage caused by the war, give up all of its colonies, and restrict the size of its armed forces. Germans took the entire blame for the war. Signing the treaty was humiliating for German leaders. Moreover, the terms of the treaty caused tremendous hardship to the nation during the decade following World War I. The German economy suffered from sky-high inflation, partly due to the reparations the country was forced to pay. The German people were bitter in the immediate aftermath of the Paris Peace Conference. Resentment toward the **Weimar Republic**, which had agreed to the terms of the Treaty of Versailles, set the stage for an extreme and militaristic political party known as the Nazis to take power barely 15 years later.

Key Terms by Theme

GOVERNMENT: Policies

Conscription, stalemate, propaganda, global war, self-determination, reparations

GOVERNMENT: Leaders

Big Four, Woodrow Wilson, David Lloyd George, Georges Clemenceau, Vittorio Orlando

TECHNOLOGY: Warfare

Trench warfare, poison gas, machine guns, submarines, airplanes, tanks

GOVERNMENT: Wars and Rebellions

Lusitania, Zimmermann Telegram, total war, ANZAC, Gallipoli, Paris Peace Conference

GOVERNMENT: Treaties

Fourteen Points, League of Nations, Treaty of Versailles

CULTURE: Popular

All Quiet on the Western Front

GOVERNMENT: Countries

Weimar Republic

Topic 7.4: Economy in the Interwar Period

Essential Question: How did different governments respond to economic crises after 1900?

Not long after the global trauma of World War I, a global economic crisis resulted in the Great Depression of the 1930s and eventually led to World War II. It undermined faith in the market-based economics that had delivered such wealth as imperialism spread. As unemployment, hunger, and homelessness increased, people turned to their governments for help. Governments had long been essential to capitalism—building roads, providing schools, and regulating trade—but across the world in the 1930s, government intervention in the economy increased. The United States became more liberal as President Roosevelt identified inequities and activities that undermined the economy and could lead to war. Countries such as Germany, Italy, and Japan, however, turned radically to the right. In Russia, government economic control was instituted through the implementation of often repressive Five-Year Plans based on production quotas.

The Great Depression

From today's perspective, the effects of World War I can look small compared to the even greater destruction caused by World War II. However, the effects were massive. Many Western Europeans felt bewildered. World War I brought anxiety to the people who suffered through it. The Allied nations, though victorious, had lost millions of citizens, both soldiers and civilians, and had spent tremendous amounts of money on the international conflict. The defeated Central Powers, particularly Germany and the countries that emerged from the breakup of Austria-Hungary, suffered even greater losses.

The Treaty of Versailles forced Germany to pay billions of dollars in reparations to the war's victors. War-ravaged Germany could not make these payments, so its government printed more paper money in the 1920s. This action caused **inflation**, a general rise in prices. Inflation meant that the value of German money decreased drastically. To add to the sluggish postwar economy, France and Britain had difficulty repaying wartime loans from the United States, partly because Germany was having trouble paying reparations to them. In addition, the Soviet government refused to pay Russia's prerevolutionary debts.

Global Downturn

Although the 1920s brought modest economic gains for most of Europe, the subsequent **Great Depression** ended the tentative stability. Agricultural overproduction and the United States' stock market crash in 1929 were two major causes of the global economic downturn. American investors who had been putting money into German banks removed it when the American stock market crashed. In addition to its skyrocketing inflation, Germany then had to grapple with bank failures. Germany thus suffered more than any other Western nation during the Great Depression. The economies of Africa, Asia, and Latin America suffered because they depended on the imperial nations that were experiencing this enormous economic downturn. Japan also suffered during the Depression because its economy depended on foreign trade. With the economic decline in the rest of the world, Japan's exports were cut in half between 1929 and 1931.

Keynesian Economics

The Great Depression inspired new insights into economics. British economist **John Maynard Keynes** rejected the laissez-faire ideal. He concluded that intentional government action could improve the economy. During a depression, he said, governments should use **deficit spending** (spending more than the government takes in) to stimulate economic activity. By cutting taxes and increasing spending, governments would spur economic growth. People would return to work, and the depression would end.

New Deal

The administration of President Franklin Delano Roosevelt used Keynes's ideas to address the Great Depression in the United States. Roosevelt and his backers created a group of policies and programs known collectively as the **New Deal**. Its goal was to bring the country **relief, recovery, and reform**: relief for citizens who were suffering, including the poor, the unemployed, farmers, minorities, and women; recovery to bring the nation out of the Depression, in part through government spending; and reform to change government policies in the hopes of avoiding such disasters in the future.

By 1937, unemployment was declining and production was rising. Keynesian economics seemed to be working. However, Roosevelt feared that government deficits were growing too large, so he reversed course. Unemployment began to grow again. The Great Depression finally ended after the United States entered World War II in 1941 and ran up deficits for military spending that dwarfed those of the New Deal programs.

Impact on Trade

The Great Depression was a global event. Though it started in the industrialized countries of the United States and Europe, it spread to Latin America, Africa, and Asia. By 1932, more than 30 million people worldwide were out of work. People everywhere turned to their governments for help. As unemployment increased, international trade declined, a decline made worse as nations then imposed strict tariffs, or taxes on imports, in an effort to protect the domestic jobs they still had.

In contrast to most countries, Japan dug itself out of the Depression relatively rapidly. Japan devalued its currency; that is, the government lowered the value of its money in relation to foreign currencies. Thus, Japanese-made products became less expensive than imports. Japan's overseas expansionism also increased Japan's need for military goods and stimulated the economy.

Political Revolutions in Russia and Mexico

In the century's first two decades, rebellions erupted against long-standing authoritarian governments in Mexico, China, and Russia. Revolutionaries unseated the ruling governments in each country, instituting their own political philosophies and practices. The revolutions influenced subsequent events in the Soviet Union, Mexico, and China in the interwar years. Each country took a different approach to managing their national economy.

Continuing Revolution in Russia

Although Lenin and the Bolshevik Party had promised "peace, land, and bread" during World War I, they instead presided over a populace that faced starvation during the widespread Russian Civil War (1918–1921). Hundreds of thousands of Russians, Ukrainians, and others revolted against the Russian government's actions. Urban factory workers and sailors went on strike, and peasants began to hoard their food stocks. Industrial and agricultural production dropped sharply.

By 1921, Lenin realized that the Russian economy was near complete collapse. In an attempt to remedy this, he instituted a temporary retreat from communist economic policies. Under his **New Economic Plan (NEP)**, he reintroduced private trade, allowing farmers to sell their products on a small scale. Although the government permitted some economic liberties, it maintained strict political control. The NEP enjoyed modest successes, but it came to an end when Lenin died in 1924.

Joseph Stalin

Several years after Lenin's death, Joseph Stalin took control of the **Politburo**, the Communist Party's central organization, setting himself up as a dictator. He remained in power for almost 30 years. Once in power, Stalin abandoned Lenin's NEP and instituted the first **Five-Year Plan**, which was meant to transform the Union of Soviet Socialist Republics (also called the USSR or the Soviet Union) into an industrial power. He wanted his largely agricultural nation to "catch up" to the industrial nations of the West. At the same time, Stalin **collectivized** agriculture, a process in which farmland was taken from private owners and given to collectives to manage. In theory, a collective, or **kolkhoz**, was a group of peasants who freely joined together to farm a certain portion of land. In practice, however, peasants were forced by the state to work on a specific collective and were expected to follow detailed plans and to reach specific goals set by the government.

This elimination of private land ownership and the forced redistribution of land, livestock, and tools enraged farmers. Each year, the government seized food to send to the cities. The farmers retaliated against collectivization by burning crops and killing livestock. Many moved to the cities for a better life.

A series of five-year plans had mixed results. The collectivization of agriculture was a huge failure. Millions of peasants starved to death, especially in the Ukraine. However, heavy industry grew tremendously in the 1930s. Although consumer goods were in short supply, there were plenty of factory jobs available, and the cost of living was low.

Stalin's brutal regime is widely condemned today. He punished his political opponents by executing them or sentencing them to life terms in **gulags**, or labor camps, where many died. In addition, his agricultural policies led to the deaths of many millions of Soviet citizens. Because Stalin kept tight control of the press, details of his atrocities went largely unreported. Nonetheless, in the 1930s, an economically depressed world viewed the U.S.S.R. with a mix of horror and wonder. The USSR was rapidly industrializing and increasing its military power. It presented a challenge to countries with capitalist economies whose people were experiencing high levels of unemployment.

Party Rule in Mexico

The economy took a different direction in Mexico. The Mexican revolution saw the emergence of one strong political party, the **Institutional Revolutionary Party**, or **PRI**. This party dominated Mexican politics for most of the 20th century. The Mexican political system has often been called corporatist since the ruling PRI party claimed favors, such as access to primary education and jobs created through improvements to infrastructure, for its constituents.

During PRI's rule, there was a vast improvement in the economy, especially in the period from 1930 to the 1970s. In the 1930s, efforts at land reform were successful under **Lázaro Cárdenas**. In 1938, for example, his regime nationalized the country's mostly foreign-owned oil industry, angering foreign investors. This company, **Petróleos Mexicanos** or **PEMEX**, became the second largest state-owned company in the world. Despite these reforms, however, the interwar period did not see dramatic changes in Mexico's social hierarchy.

Rise of Right-Wing Governments

In some countries, the turn to the right was radical. A new political system known as **fascism** arose that appealed to extreme nationalism, glorified the military and armed struggle, and blamed problems on ethnic minorities. Fascist regimes suppressed other political parties, protests, and independent trade unions. They justified violence to achieve their goals and were strongly anticommunist. Germany turned to fascism, and some other countries did as well.

Rise of Fascism in Italy

Benito Mussolini coined the term fascism, which comes from the term *fascis*, a bundle of sticks tied around an axe, which was an ancient Roman symbol for authority. This symbol helped characterize Italy's Fascist government, which glorified militarism and brute force.

The Italian fascist state was based on a concept known as **corporatism**, a theory based on the notion that the sectors of the economy—the employers, the trade unions, and state officials—are seen as separate organs of the same body. Each sector, or organ, was supposedly free to organize itself as it wished as long as it supported the whole. In practice, the fascist state imposed its will upon all sectors of society, creating a **totalitarian state**—a state in which the government controls all aspects of society.

Mussolini Takes Control

Even though Italy had been considered one of the victors at the 1919 Paris Peace Conference—along with Britain, France, and the United States—Italy received very little territory from the Treaty of Versailles. This failure to gain from the war caused discontent in Italy. Amid the general bitterness of the 1920s, Mussolini and his allies in the Fascist Party managed to take control of the parliament. Mussolini became a dictator, repressing any possible opposition to his rule. Militaristic propaganda infiltrated every part of the Fascist government. For example, schoolchildren were taught constantly about the glory of their nation and their fearless leader, “Il Duce.”

Part of Mussolini's fascist philosophy was the need to conquer what he considered an inferior nation. During the imperialist “Scramble for Africa” in the 19th century, Italy seized Libya and colonized Italian Somaliland, now part of Somalia. However, the Italian army was pushed back by Abyssinia, modern-day Ethiopia, in the 1890s. In 1935, Mussolini called for the complete conquest of Abyssinia. In 1935, 100,000 Italian troops crossed the border from Somaliland to Abyssinia, defying sanctions from the League of Nations. This time, the Italian army overpowered Abyssinia's while the global community did little to stop the conquest. Many historians believe the Abyssinian crisis destroyed the League of Nations' credibility. In 1936, Mussolini and Germany's Adolf Hitler formed an alliance they hoped would dominate Europe.

Fascism and Civil War in Spain

After the economic decline in the early 1930s, two opposing ideologies, or systems of ideas, battled for control of Spain. The **Spanish Civil War** that resulted soon took on global significance as a struggle between the forces of democracy and the forces of fascism.

The Spanish Republic formed in 1931 after King Alfonso XIII abdicated. In 1936, the Spanish people elected the **Popular Front**, a coalition of left-wing parties, to lead the government. A key aspect of the Front's platform was land reform, a prospect that energized the nation's peasants and radicals. Conservative forces in Spain, such as the Catholic Church and high-ranking members of the military, were violently opposed to the changes that the Popular Front promised. In July of the same year, Spanish troops stationed in Morocco conducted a military uprising against the Popular Front. This action marked the beginning of the Spanish Civil War, which soon spread to Spain itself. General **Francisco Franco** led the insurgents, who called themselves **Nationalists**. On the other side were the **Republicans** or **Loyalists**, the defenders of the newly elected Spanish Republic.

Foreign Involvement

Although the nations of Europe had signed a nonintervention agreement, Hitler of Germany, Mussolini of Italy, and Antonio Salazar of Portugal contributed armaments to the Nationalists. Civilian volunteers from the Soviet Union, Britain, the United States, and France contributed their efforts to the Loyalists. Many historians believe

that without the help of Germany, Italy, and Portugal, the Nationalist side probably would not have prevailed against the Republic of Spain.

Guernica

The foreign involvement in Spain's struggle also escalated the violence of the war. One massacre in particular garnered international attention. The German and Italian bombing of the town of **Guernica** in northern Spain's **Basque region** was one of the first times in history an aerial bombing targeted civilians. Many historians believe that the bombing of Guernica was a military exercise for Germany's air force, the **Luftwaffe**.

The tragedy of Guernica was immortalized in Pablo Picasso's painting of that name, commissioned by the Republic of Spain and completed in 1938. Although abstract, the painting brilliantly depicts the horrific violence of modern warfare and is one of the most significant works of 20th-century art.

Franco's Victory

The Spanish Civil War (1936–1939) ended when Franco's forces defeated the Loyalist army. He ruled Spain as a dictator until his death in 1975. Spain did not officially enter World War II (1939–1945), but the government offered some help to Germany, Italy, and Japan.

Rise of a Repressive Regime in Brazil

As in Europe, parts of Latin America also became more conservative. During the interwar years, Brazil was considered Latin America's "sleeping giant" because of its slow shift from an agricultural to an industrial economy. Large landowners dominated the nation's economy, which frustrated members of the urban middle class. Compounding their frustration was the workers' suffering caused by the Great Depression. Discontent led to a bloodless 1930 coup, or illegal seizure of power, which installed Getúlio Vargas as president.

Vargas's pro-industrial policies won him support from Brazil's urban middle class. They believed he would promote democracy. However, his actions paralleled those of Italy's corporate state under Mussolini. While Brazil's industrial sector grew rapidly, Vargas began to strip away individual political freedoms. His **Estado Novo** ("New State") program instituted government censorship of the press, abolition of political parties, imprisonment of political opponents, and **hypernationalism**, a belief in the superiority of one's nation over all others and the single-minded promotion of national interests. While these policies were similar to those of European fascists, the Brazilian government did not praise or rely on violence to achieve and maintain control.

Moreover, even though Brazil had close economic ties with the United States and Germany in the late 1930s, Brazil finally sided with the Allies in World War II. This political alignment against the Axis powers made Brazil look less like a dictatorship and more liberal than it actually was. World War II prompted the people of Brazil to push for a more democratic nation later. They came to see the contradiction between fighting fascism and repression abroad and maintaining a dictatorship at home.

Three Approaches to Modern Industrial Society

Policy Area	Communism	Capitalism	Fascism
Economics	Believed that businesses should be owned or managed by the government	Believed that businesses should be owned privately and compete with each other	Believed that businesses should be owned privately and government should restrict competition

Internationalism and Nationalism	Supported internationalism by opposing colonialism and calling for global worker solidarity	Supported a mixture of nationalism and internationalism	Supported nationalism strongly by urging each nation to pursue its unique interests
War and Peace	Believed that international peace would follow the defeat of capitalism	Expressed mixed attitudes toward war and peace	Opposed peace on the belief that it weakened society
Equality	Supported both political and economic equality	Supported political equality but not economic equality	Opposed both political and economic equality
Religion	Advocated atheism	Allowed individual religious liberty	Use religion to build nationalism

Key Terms by Theme

ECONOMICS: Concepts

Inflation, deficit spending, relief, recovery, reform, collectivize, kolkhoz, corporatism

ECONOMICS: Events and Policies

Great Depression, New Deal, New Economic Plan (NEP), Five-Year Plan

ECONOMICS: Economists

John Maynard Keynes

GOVERNMENT: Wars and Rebellions

Russian Civil War, Spanish Civil War, Guernica

GOVERNMENT: Politics

Politburo, Institutional Revolutionary Party (PRI), fascism, totalitarian state, Popular Front, Nationalists, Republicans, Loyalists, Luftwaffe

GOVERNMENT: Countries and Regions

Union of Soviet Socialist Republics (U.S.S.R.), Soviet Union, Libya, Italian Somaliland, Spanish Republic, Basque region, hypernationalism

GOVERNMENT: Leaders

Franklin Delano Roosevelt, Lázaro Cárdenas, Francisco Franco

GOVERNMENT: Institutions

Gulag, PEMEX

7.5

Topic 7.5: Unresolved Tensions After World War I

Essential Question: How did continuities and changes in territorial holdings create tensions after World War I?

As economic crises beset countries after World War I, unresolved disputes over the control of land continued to fester. The victors in the war, European powers and Japan, generally kept or expanded control over colonial territories. However, anti-imperial resistance was growing throughout Asia and Africa. In a larger context, the spread of nationalism in these regions was part of the same global trend that included the breakup of empires in Europe, the success of communism in Russia, and the spread of anti-immigrant sentiments in the United States. The example of Turkey's push for self-determination was already discussed in Topic 7.1. Similarly, events such as the May Fourth Movement in China and groups such as the Indian National Congress demonstrated how nationalism was spreading throughout the world.

Effects of the War

The effects of World War I varied around the world. The United States prospered because of all the war materials and agricultural products it sold to Britain and the other Allies. By contrast, the European countries that suffered the greatest damage in the war were economically devastated.

Effects on Colonial Lands

While nationalist movements had been brewing for decades in colonies in South Asia and West Africa, the war renewed the hopes of people in these regions for independence. African and Asian colonial troops contributed thousands of soldiers to the Allied war effort. In addition, this disastrous war showed colonial peoples that imperial powers such as Britain and France were not invincible.

German propaganda during the war had predicted that colonial soldiers' experience in the war would lead to a great uprising against colonial rule. This did not materialize, although there were several local rebellions. Between November 1915 and September 1916, a large group of villages in French West Africa, between the Volta and Bani rivers in what later became Burkina Faso, united in an effort to drive out the French. It was only with a great effort and loss of life on both sides that the French managed to put down the revolt. The rebellion forced the French to recognize that they had an obligation to the people they colonized. After World War I, many war veterans from the French colonies assisted in colonial administration after they returned home.

Colonized people's war experiences raised their expectations. They thought that the principle of self-determination, as expressed in Wilson's Fourteen Points, would get them closer to self-rule. Nationalists in Africa and Asia hoped that the blood they had shed for their "home countries" would earn them some respect from Western Europe and thus begin a decolonization process.

However, the peace conference's Big Three—David Lloyd George, Woodrow Wilson, and Georges Clemenceau (after Italy left)—were not interested in freeing the colonies. After World War I, European powers granted self-determination only to white countries in Eastern Europe. Middle Eastern lands that had been a part of the Ottoman Empire came under the control of France and Britain in the League of Nations mandate system. Former German colonies in Africa had the same fate. German territories and spheres of influence in East Asia and the Pacific were transferred to various victorious nations of World War I. India and nearly every nation in Africa—as well as most of the Middle East—continued to be controlled by European nations.

Wilson even refused to meet with a group of Vietnamese nationalists, including a young Ho Chi Minh, who asked to speak with him about self-determination for Vietnam. This rejection fueled stronger nationalist

movements in colonies scattered across the southern rim of Asia and in parts of Africa. The seeds of African, Arab, and Asian nationalism were sown largely in the aftermath of World War I, although they did not come to fruition until much later.

The Mandate System

Arab rebels of the former Ottoman Empire were especially insulted by the results of the peace conference. They had been promised self-rule if they fought with the Allies. Instead, the Allies forgot all of their promises and, through the League of Nations, established a **mandate system** to rule the colonies and territories of the Central Powers. Article 22 of the League of Nations charter stated that colonized people in Africa and Asia required “tutelage” from more “advanced” nations in order to survive. Thus, the Allied countries—including France, Great Britain, and Japan—were able to increase their imperial holdings through a new form of colonization. For example, Cameroon, which had been a German colony, was divided and transferred to France and Britain as separate mandates. Japan seized the German-held islands of the Western Pacific.

The Middle East experienced enormous upheaval because of the fall of the Ottoman Empire. Palestine, Transjordan, Lebanon, Syria, and Iraq all became League of Nations mandates. These Arab states were not yet sovereign lands but virtual colonies of Great Britain and France. This infuriated the Arabs who lived in these lands and set the stage for a nationalist movement known as **Pan-Arabism**—an ideology that called for the unification of all lands in North Africa and the Middle East.

Another source of conflict arose in 1917, when the British government issued the **Balfour Declaration**, which stated that Palestine should become a permanent home for the Jews of Europe. Those who supported a Jewish homeland were known as **Zionists**. After the Allied victory in the Great War, European Jews moved in droves to Palestine, which Britain controlled.

Anti-Colonialism in South Asia

The setback presented by the Paris Conference inspired anticolonial activists to redouble their efforts. In South Asia, the **Indian National Congress** formed in the late 19th century to air grievances against the colonial government. By the end of World War I in 1918, it had become a strong voice for independence.

Massacre at Amritsar

In the spring of 1919, a group of Indian nationalists gathered in a public garden in Amritsar, Punjab, to protest the arrest of two freedom fighters. The protest took place during a Sikh festival, which had attracted thousands of villagers to the city, which Sikhs considered holy. Although the throngs were peaceful, the British colonial government had recently made such public gatherings illegal. Armed colonial forces fired hundreds of shots into the unarmed crowd, killing an estimated 379 people and wounding 1,200 more.

The Amritsar massacre radicalized many Indians. It convinced moderate members of the Indian National Congress that independence from Britain was the only way forward.

Gandhi

By the 1920s, **Mohandas Gandhi** had brought the congress’s cause to the Indian masses and caught the attention of the world. His **satyagraha** (“devotion-to-truth”) **movement** embarked on a campaign of **civil disobedience** that encouraged Indians to break unjust laws and serve jail time. These actions, he believed, would stir the consciousness of the empire and the international community and expose the injustice of Britain’s imperial system.

Gandhi, who came to be known by Indians as **Mahatma**, or “the great soul,” led a boycott against British goods. After returning to India from South Africa, Gandhi wore the traditional cotton Hindu *dhoti* rather than the Western-style suits he had worn as a lawyer in Natal. Wearing homespun clothes was a form of protest against British fabrics made from Indian cotton and sold to Indians at inflated prices.

One of Gandhi's first campaigns became known as the **Salt March**. British authorities had made it illegal for Indians to produce their own sea salt. The commodity was easy to make in the tropical country, but Britain wanted a monopoly on salt. In 1930, Gandhi led thousands of Indians to the Arabian Sea and simply picked up a few grains of salt, in defiance of Britain's unjust edict.

The Two-State Solution

While anticolonial sentiment was building, leaders of the independence movement disagreed about how India should define its national identity. Muslim leader **Muhammad Ali Jinnah**, a member of the Muslim minority in the largely Hindu Indian National Congress, originally favored Muslim-Hindu unity but later proposed a two-state plan for South Asian independence. He was concerned that Muslim interests would be overwhelmed by Hindu concerns in an independent India. He proposed creating a separate state, Pakistan, that would include the heavily Muslim western and eastern parts of South Asia. This proposal made several leaders, including Gandhi and **Jawaharlal Nehru**, who eventually became India's first prime minister, anxious about the region's future. Although independence did not come for India and Pakistan until after World War II, the interwar years were critical times for the anticolonial movement.

Nationalism in East Asia

Korea, China, and Japan had not been formally colonized by Europe, but they did suffer from European domination. These countries also demonstrated the spread of the desire for self-determination.

The March First Movement in Korea

The small country of Korea had suffered under increasing Japanese influence since the 1890s. In 1910, Japan took control of Korea. After World War I, Japan expected to expand its role in East Asia, just as European states did in the Middle East. The prospect of European support for a stronger Japan, and the mysterious death of the Korean emperor, caused Korean resentment to explode. On March 1, 1919, Koreans began a series of protests that involved as many as 2 million Koreans out of a population of 17 million. The occupying Japanese forces cracked down harshly, killing several thousand Koreans. But the March First Movement demonstrated the power of Korean nationalism.

The May Fourth Movement in China

During World War I, China supported the Allies. Britain and France hired nearly 150,000 Chinese to work in factories, dig trenches, and do other support work. China hoped that the victorious Allies would support China's desire to reclaim German-controlled land on the Shandong Peninsula in northeast China. However, Japan wanted the same land. At the Paris Peace Conference in 1919, Great Britain and France sided with Japan. Infuriated, Chinese intellectuals and workers staged anti-Japanese demonstrations beginning on May 4, 1919. The May Fourth Movement symbolized China's growing nationalism and demand for democracy. Angered by Europe's support for Japan, many Chinese rejected Western-style government. They turned toward the Marxist model of the Soviet Union. Several May Fourth leaders joined the Chinese Communist Party. In the years after the May Fourth protests, two main groups fought for power: the communists and the nationalists.

- The **Chinese Communist Party (CCP)** was founded in 1921. It was eventually led by **Mao Zedong** (or Mao Tse-tung), the son of a prosperous peasant, who was inspired by the communist revolution in

Russia. Instead of energizing the working classes of Chinese cities, however, Mao believed that China's communist revolution could be based on the revolt of peasants, who made up the vast majority of China's population.

- The **Chinese Nationalist Party**, or **Kuomintang**, was led by Sun Yat-sen. He was devoted to full independence and industrialization, and he allied with Mao's forces to free China from foreign domination and overthrow the warlords. Following Sun's death in 1925, **Chiang Kai-shek** took control of the Nationalist Party. Chiang was a conservative and had a deep-seated distrust of communism. In 1927, Chiang's forces attacked and nearly annihilated Mao's forces, initiating the Chinese Civil War.

The Long March

Mao and remnants of the Chinese Communist Party retreated into China's interior, where for several years they trained in hiding. In 1934, Chiang's forces again attacked Mao's army in the rural areas of Jiangxi. After the attack, Mao's forces began the **Long March**, a year-long, 6,000-mile long retreat. It traversed treacherous mountains, deep marshes, and extremely dry deserts. Of the 80,000 or more who began the Long March, only 10,000 remained to assemble in 1935 in northern China.

The Chinese Communist Party was weak after the Long March. However, peasants admired Mao and his army's tremendous stamina and their commitment to their ideals. This support among peasants would later be important for the success of the Communists in winning control of the country.

While the Communists were retreating on the Long March, the Nationalist Kuomintang continued to rule much of China during the 1930s. Chiang, however, had alienated many. Old traditions were losing support, but he advocated Confucianism. When opponents criticized him, he suppressed free speech. When people accused the Nationalists of corruption, he did not stop it.

China, Japan, and Manchukuo

In 1935, the Nationalists and Communists in China suspended their civil war to unite against a more pressing danger: Japan. Seeking access to natural resources on the Asian mainland, Japan had invaded Manchuria in northern China in September 1931. Tensions increased when someone, either Chinese dissidents or Japanese soldiers, attacked a railway owned by Japan near Mukden. When the League of Nations condemned Japan's actions in Manchuria, Japan gave up its membership in the League and seized more land. In 1932, the Japanese set up a puppet state called **Manchukuo**. To make Manchukuo seem like an independent Chinese state, it selected the last Chinese emperor to sit on its throne.

Japan continued to expand its empire until 1945, the year World War II ended. It seized the Philippines (under partial U.S. control at the time), the Dutch East Indies, British Malaya, Burma, and numerous Pacific islands. Japan termed these territories the **Greater East Asia Co-Prosperity Sphere**. Although Japan claimed to be liberating people from Western imperialism, people in the region experienced Japan as a conqueror.

Resistance to French Rule in West Africa

As in South Asia, people all over Africa were disappointed that their colonies did not achieve independence after World War I. Pro-independence movements in Africa began with European-educated intellectuals. For example, the future leader of Kenya, **Jomo Kenyatta**, studied in London. **Léopold Senghor**, the future leader of Senegal, studied in Paris. In Europe, African intellectuals learned to recognize the racial discrimination taking place in their homelands. Most members of the educated elite worked for the colonial government, if they were not self-employed attorneys or doctors.

Africans under colonial rule resisted the colonizers. Black workers in French West Africa staged a series of strikes, including a strike of railway workers in 1917 and a general strike in 1946. Some of these actions spread throughout French West Africa (Senegal, Benin, Ivory Coast, and Guinea). Strikers protested discriminatory wage and benefit policies and in some cases won a number of their demands through a compromise settlement.

Key Terms by Theme

GOVERNMENT: Policies

Decolonization, mandate system, Balfour Declaration, civil disobedience

GOVERNMENT: Leaders

Big Three, Mohandas Gandhi, Muhammad Ali Jinnah, Jawaharlal Nehru, Mao Zedong, Chiang Kai-shek

GOVERNMENT: Movements

Pan-Arabism, Indian National Congress, satyagraha (devotion-to-truth) movement, Salt March, March First Movement, May Fourth Movement, Chinese Communist Party (CCP), Kuomintang, Long March

GOVERNMENT: Countries

Palestine, Pakistan

GOVERNMENT: Imperialism

Amritsar, Manchukuo, Greater East Asia Co-Prosperity Sphere

CULTURE: People

Zionists, Mahatma, Jomo Kenyatta, Léopold Sédar Senghor

7.6

Topic 7.6: Causes of World War II

Essential Question: What were the causes and consequences of World War II?

The causes of World War II lay in the unresolved issues in the aftermath of World War I. Economic instability in the postwar economies of Europe led to civil unrest in Italy and Germany. In Italy, the rise of fascism was directly related to the downturn of the Italian economy that occurred after World War I. Benito Mussolini and his National Fascist Party came to power in 1922 because of their promises to renew the Italian economy and create another Italian empire in the Mediterranean and beyond. The peace settlement after World War I also placed unsustainable economic and political terms on Germany and instituted territorial distributions that took away resources and created resentment among the German population. Thus, the ideology associated with Italian fascism and militarism—as seen in the quotation above—spread to Germany, where Hitler and the Nazis adopted it.

The Path to War

Out of the context of the broad economic and political trends emerged **Adolf Hitler**. His extreme views on the superiority of the Aryan race and his vision of a great German civilization led him to persecute Jews and other minorities and to systematically seize land.

Rise of Nazism

Following Germany's defeat in 1918, the democratically elected **Weimar Republic** replaced the monarchical rule of the kaiser. Under the terms of the Treaty of Versailles, the new German government not only had to pay billions in war reparations, but it also was not allowed to have an army. The Weimar Republic, appearing weak to the demoralized German people, became especially unpopular during the Great Depression.

The rolls of the unemployed swelled due to the weak German economy. Large numbers of young men, including many World War I veterans, found themselves with few job prospects. Such an environment fostered alienation and bitterness. Many Germans perceived the Weimar Republic to be too weak to solve the country's problems, so they looked to right-wing political parties that promised strong action.

Hitler had declared his extreme anti-Semitic views in his book *Mein Kampf* ("My Struggle"), which he began writing in 1924 while in a Bavarian prison after a failed coup attempt. The National Socialist German Worker's Party, or the **Nazis**, came to power legally after the party did well in the 1932 parliamentary elections. In early 1933, the president of Germany, Paul von Hindenburg, invited Adolf Hitler to form a government as chancellor, which he did. Hindenburg died in 1934, giving Hitler the opening he needed to declare himself president.

Through manipulation, the Nazi Party instilled fear and panic in the German people, making them believe that they were in a state of emergency. For example, the Nazis staged a burning of the **Reichstag**, the German parliament building, and blamed radical extremists for the act. Using domestic security as justification, Hitler outlawed all other political parties and all forms of resistance to his rule.

Hitler openly promoted ultranationalism and **scientific racism**, a pseudoscientific theory that claimed that certain races were genetically superior to others. He also advanced an extreme form of **anti-Semitism**, or hostility toward Jews. He filled his speeches with accusations against German Jews, whom Hitler claimed were responsible for the nation's domestic problems. Nazi propaganda emphasized a need for a "pure" German nation of "**Aryans**," purged of "outsiders"—not only Jews, but also Slavs, communists, Roma (also known as Gypsies), and gay men and women. Hitler suggested that the only way for Germany to live up to its potential was to eliminate the corrupting influence of these groups, particularly the Jews.

Nuremberg Laws

Hitler's anti-Jewish campaign began with laws designed to disenfranchise and discriminate against them. The **Nuremberg Laws**, passed in 1935, forbade marriage between Jews and gentiles (people who are not Jewish), stripped Jews of their citizenship, and unleashed a series of subsequent decrees that effectively pushed Jews to the margins of German society. German Jews, many of whom were successful in their careers and felt assimilated into German society, were shocked by the way they were being treated. Some Eastern European nations, such as Romania and Bulgaria, also passed laws discriminating against their Jewish citizens.

The Axis Powers

Hitler then sought new allies to help him acquire **Lebensraum** (living space) for the new German empire. He did not try to hide his ambition to conquer the entire continent. Hitler's lust for land eventually brought the international community to the brink of war. He first formed a military pact with Fascist Italy, the **Rome-Berlin Axis**, in October 1936. In addition to their need for military support, the two countries shared a political ideology and economic interests. Germany then created a military alliance with Japan based on mutual distrust of communism, known as the **Anti-Comintern Pact**. The alliances among these three nations created the **Axis Powers**.

Kristallnacht

Hitler's campaign to rid Germany of Jews predated his aggressive land grabs in Europe. His propaganda and the Nuremberg Laws successfully created an atmosphere of hostility, hatred, and distrust within Germany. This tension erupted one night in early November 1938. **Kristallnacht**, the "Night of the Broken Glass," produced anti-Jewish riots that ostensibly occurred in response to the assassination of a German diplomat by a Jewish teenager. Although it appeared to be a spontaneous burst of outrage on the part of the German citizenry, Nazi leaders had actually engineered the entire operation. The riots resulted in the deaths of more than 90 German Jews and the destruction of nearly every synagogue in Germany and some 7,000 Jewish shops. More than 30,000 Jews were dragged from their homes, arrested, and sent to concentration camps. Most of these prisoners were eventually released on orders to leave Germany, an option not given to later concentration camp prisoners.

Nazi Germany's Aggressive Militarism

The terms of the Treaty of Versailles severely limited the German military after World War I. Yet Hitler wanted a stronger military to acquire more land. In March 1935, he broke the treaty when he announced the creation of a German air force and a policy of conscription to enlarge the size of the army.

The Treaty of Versailles

Under the treaty, a strip of land in the Rhineland 31 miles wide was set up as a buffer zone between Germany and France. Germany was not allowed to station troops there. Hitler broke the agreement, sending German troops into the Rhineland on March 7, 1936. Both France and Britain protested this move, but they took no other action.

Some British believed that Hitler was the strong anticommunist leader that central Europe needed to keep order. Others were simply reluctant to return to war. So Britain followed a policy of **appeasement**, giving in to Germany's demands in hopes of keeping the peace. However, Germany's military expansion and its support of the fascist Spanish Nationalist government during the Spanish Civil War (1936–1939) indicated that Hitler was increasing his power.

German-Austrian Unification

With his military revived and alliances in hand, Hitler felt confident about taking his next step in the creation of a new German empire, the **Third Reich**. His plan was to bring Austria, where he was born, under German rule. Hitler used the threat of invasion to pressure the Austrian chancellor into giving more power to the Austrian Nazi Party. As Hitler had planned, the Austrian Nazis then opened the door for German troops to occupy Austria with no resistance. With the **Anschluss** (political union), Austria officially became part of the Third Reich in March 1938.

Czechoslovakia

The annexation of Austria was only the first step for Hitler. He wanted more. In September 1938, he issued a demand to Czechoslovakia for the border territory of the **Sudetenland**. Most of the people who lived in this region spoke German. Hitler argued that the area was a natural extension of his Aryan empire. The German leader met with the leaders of Britain, France, and Italy in Munich to discuss his demands. **Neville Chamberlain**, the British prime minister, again argued that a policy of appeasement would keep the peace and put an end to Hitler's demands for more land. The **Munich Agreement** allowed Hitler to annex the Sudetenland in return for a promise that Germany would not take over any more Czech territory. This was a fateful miscalculation. Hitler saw that the British were not willing to stand up to his illegal land grabs, emboldening him to seize control of all of Czechoslovakia with an armed invasion in 1939.

The Conflict over Poland

Hitler next set his sights on the Polish port of Danzig. Although Germany did have some historical claims to the port, in reality, Hitler was merely looking for an excuse to invade Poland. Britain, in the meantime, had reached the end of its policy of appeasement and agreed to protect Poland from a German attack. Britain and France also reached out to the Soviet Union to form a stronger alliance against Germany.

Germany, however, was already in negotiations with the Soviets. With the signing of the **German-Soviet Nonaggression Pact** on August 23, 1939, the two nations pledged not to attack one another. During the negotiations for the pact, Hitler secretly offered Stalin control of eastern Poland and the Baltic States if Stalin would stand by during a German invasion of western Poland. With this assurance in hand, Germany invaded Poland on September 1, 1939, claiming that Poland had attacked first. Britain and France honored their agreement to protect Poland and declared war on Germany. These actions marked the official start of World War II in Europe.

Japan's Expansion in Asia

By the time Germany invaded Poland in 1939, Japan had already been moving aggressively against Korea and China for almost 50 years. In 1931, Japan had invaded Manchuria. After several months of fighting, it successfully created the state of Manchukuo under its control. Then, in 1937, a small incident in this region between Japanese troops and Chinese troops quickly escalated. Soon, Japan had launched a full-scale invasion of China. This marked the start of World War II in Asia.

Key Terms by Theme

GOVERNMENT: People

Adolf Hitler, Neville Chamberlain

GOVERNMENT: Alliances

Rome-Berlin Axis, Anti-Comintern Pact, Axis Powers, German-Soviet Nonaggression Pact

CULTURE: Beliefs and Ideas

Mein Kampf, scientific racism, anti-Semitism, Aryans, appeasement

GOVERNMENT: Geography

Weimar Republic, Sudetenland, Danzig

GOVERNMENT: Organizations

Nazis, Reichstag, Third Reich

GOVERNMENT: Policies

Nuremberg Laws, Kristallnacht, Lebensraum, Anschluss, Munich Agreement

7.7

Topic 7.7: Conducting World War II

Essential Question: What similarities and differences were there in the methods governments used to conduct war?

During World War II, governments rallied all their resources in the war effort. The call to intense nationalism, as illustrated in Winston Churchill's speech in the British House of Commons, was part of concerted policies that used all forms of communication to mobilize the population. Appeal to ideological beliefs, including fascism and communism, dominated daily life during the conflict and minimized resistance to militarism.

Governments also used new military technology and tactics, including the atomic bomb and "total war," disregarding previously accepted laws of war. These policies increased the level of wartime casualties.

Japan and Imperialist Policies

With the military in control of the government, Japan harbored imperialist ambitions that would lead to a world war in the Pacific. The Mukden Incident and the takeover of land in Manchuria in a state called Manchukuo were early efforts in this drive.

New Order in East Asia

The occupation of parts of China was but one step in Japan's overall strategy, which was to create a "New Order in East Asia." The Japanese had looked to expand into Soviet Siberia, but when Germany and the Soviets signed the Nonaggression Pact of 1939, Japan had to look elsewhere for new territory. Nearby Southeast Asia, which had been under the control of imperial powers in Western Europe and the United States, was the most obvious target. However, Japan faced obstacles. Its occupation of China led to economic sanctions by the United States. Because Japan's economy relied on oil and scrap iron from the United States, sanctions threatened to strangle its economy and undercut its military expansion. Therefore, Japan began to plan to retaliate against the United States with military force in the hope that by doing so, the Western powers would submit to Japan's imperial ambitions.

Germany's Early Victories and Challenges

Once war broke out in Europe, Hitler moved swiftly to acquire territory. He embarked on a strategy called **blitzkrieg**, or lightning war, to quickly subdue Poland. Germany used rapidly moving tank divisions supported by the air force in its four-week campaign. At the end of September 1939, Germany and the Soviets divided the country as they had planned when they signed the German-Soviet Nonaggression Pact.

Germany's rapid success in Poland encouraged Hitler to attack and conquer Denmark and Norway in April 1940 and the Netherlands, Belgium, and France in the following month. Germany then proceeded to bring the government and resources of the conquered nations under its control. As the Germans approached Paris, the French government fled to Bordeaux, in southern France. Germany took direct control of the northern two-thirds of the country. The French set up a new pro-Nazi regime based in Vichy under Marshal Henri-Philippe Pétain, an aged World War I hero.

British-American Relations

Fearing that it would be the next victim in Germany's relentless and rapid campaign, Britain asked the United States for support. Despite a long history of isolationism from European troubles, President Roosevelt believed the United States should help the British.

In 1940, the two powers signed the **Destroyers-for-Bases Agreement**, in which the United States promised delivery of 50 destroyers in exchange for eight British air and naval bases in the Western Hemisphere. In the 1941 **Lend-Lease Act**, the United States gave up all pretensions of neutrality by lending war materials to Britain. Also in 1941, Britain and the United States forged a policy statement known as the **Atlantic Charter**, which set down basic goals for the post-war world. The charter included such provisions as the restoration of self-government to those deprived of it, the abandonment of the use of force, and the disarmament of aggressor nations.

The Battle of Britain

In Europe, Britain was the last major holdout against Nazi power. In July 1940, Hitler ordered a large campaign against the small island nation by the **Luftwaffe**, the German air force. He believed that bombardment from the air would sufficiently weaken the country so that German sea and land forces could mount a successful invasion. Initially targeting military bases in this **Battle of Britain**, the Germans turned to bombing British cities after the British Royal Air Force conducted a raid on Berlin. Winston Churchill termed this Britain's "finest hour" as the civilian population in London and other cities withstood months of relentless bombing.

The targeting of cities did provide one advantage for Britain: the British military was able to rebuild after the earlier raids on its bases. Ultimately, Britain's superior planes and radar system allowed it to destroy German planes faster than they could be replaced. By May 1941, Hitler was forced to postpone indefinitely any attempted invasion of Britain.

War on the Soviet Union

After failing to invade Britain, Hitler turned east. He attacked the Soviet Union to eliminate Bolshevism and to create Lebensraum—land for settlement and development—for the German people. Germany's turning its focus to the east took pressure off Britain. Germany began its invasion of the Soviet Union in June 1941. Initially the Nazis experienced rapid success as they had in Western Europe, capturing large amounts of territory and two million Soviet troops. However, the German forces soon found themselves at the mercy of the harsh Russian winter. The Soviets defended the city of Leningrad in the **Siege of Leningrad**, which lasted three years and led to the deaths of a million Soviet men, women, and children.

Japan Overreaches

Japan experienced rapid victories in the Pacific. It launched a surprise air attack on the U.S. naval base at **Pearl Harbor** in Hawaii on December 7, 1941, destroying much of the U.S. Pacific fleet. Japan then seized the Philippines, the Dutch East Indies, British Malaya, Burma, and numerous Pacific islands.

Japan believed that the surprise attack and the damage to the U.S. Pacific Fleet would prompt the United States to negotiate a settlement favorable to Japan immediately. Instead, U.S. isolationism disappeared overnight; public opinion demanded retaliation against Japan. Great Britain and China joined the United States in the fight against Japanese aggression. The war truly became global when, within days, Hitler responded to the U.S. declaration of war against Japan with his own declaration of war against the United States.

Colonial Armies

As the Axis powers expanded into new territory, Western colonies began to join the Allies in the war effort. For example, the Indian Army, which had started the war with only 200,000 men, ended the war as the largest volunteer army in history with more than 2.5 million men. Although the Indian Army sent troops to North Africa, the bulk of its troops fought against the Japanese in Southeast Asia.

Home Fronts

Like World War I, World War II was a total war. Most countries mobilized all their resources, including the civilian population, to achieve victory. The United States started with the strongest industrial sector of any country in the world and it added stringent government planning to provide factories what they needed. In addition, unlike anywhere in Europe, U.S. industry operated without threat of military attack. The United States ramped up production of the resources required for war, including ships, tanks, planes, landing craft, radar equipment, guns, and ammunition. With the enlistment of large numbers of men in the armed forces, women found far more opportunities to work in factories and offices. The U.S. government promoted art of “Rosie the Riveter” to encourage women to succeed at jobs that were once thought to be for men.

Instead of mobilizing all available citizens in the war effort, German leaders relied on forced labor, some of it in concentration camps. At its peak, 20 percent of the wartime workforce was forced labor, with 600,000 French citizens working in German war plants and 1.5 million French soldiers working in prisoner-of-war (POW) camps. The solution was counterproductive, however. The workers were treated so poorly that productivity was low.

In Japan, efforts on the home front were confused. The government presented an optimistic view of the war instead of trying to mobilize resources. The government took pride in not using women in the war effort, claiming that the enemy is “drafting women but in Japan, out of consideration for the family system, we will not.” The government was able to systematically remove children from cities to the countryside when bombing of cities started late in the war. It was also successful in rationing food throughout the war.

The Tide Turns in the European Theater

With its entry into the war in December 1941, the United States joined the other Allied powers, Great Britain and the Soviet Union. In spite of political differences, the three nations were united in their determination to achieve a military victory and agreed that Axis surrender must be unconditional.

In early 1942, the Allies were struggling in Europe and North Africa. General **Erwin Rommel**, the “Desert Fox,” led German troops in Egypt and threatened to take the northern city of Alexandria. But in the second half of 1942, the tide turned. The British defeated Rommel at the **Battle of El Alamein**. And after months of fighting, a Soviet counteroffensive successfully defeated the pride of Hitler’s military, the German Sixth Army, in the **Battle of Stalingrad**. Although the Germans remained in control of most of Western Europe, the momentum of the war in Europe had turned against the Nazis.

The Tide Turns in the Pacific Theater

The year 1942 was also crucial in the war against Japan. The first Allied victory occurred in May in the **Battle of the Coral Sea**, when the U.S. Navy stopped a Japanese fleet set to invade New Guinea and the Solomon Islands, thus helping to prevent a future invasion of Australia. The following month, with the destruction of four Japanese aircraft carriers at the **Battle of Midway Island**, Allied naval forces demonstrated their superiority in the Pacific. These battles stopped the advance of the Japanese. The first major Allied offensive was on the island of Guadalcanal, which ended in early 1943 with an Allied victory.

The Allied forces in the Pacific under U.S. General **Douglas MacArthur** used a strategy called **island-hopping**. The Allies attacked islands where Japan was weak and skipped those where Japan was strong. The Allies slowly, and at great human cost, moved through the Philippines, getting closer to Japan itself.

Technology was critical to Allied success. The development of fleets of **aircraft carriers**, ships that allowed planes to take off from and land on their decks at sea, provided air support for battleships and increased the range and flexibility of naval forces. Aircraft were used for raids on enemy ships and bases and for intelligence gathering. Submarines sank about 55 percent of the Japanese merchant fleet, severely damaging Japan's supply lines.

The Last Years of the War

The Allied successes of 1942 put the Axis powers on the defensive in 1943. The Allies identified Italy as the weakest point under Axis control in Europe. In spite of German forces sent to aid Italy, the Allies gained control of the island of Sicily in July 1943, leading to the fall of Mussolini. After the Allies invaded southern Italy in September 1943, Italy turned against its former ally. After months of slow and costly progress, the Allies finally recaptured Rome on June 4, 1944.

June 6, 1944, has become known as **D-Day**, when about 150,000 Allied forces under the command of U.S. General Dwight Eisenhower launched an amphibious invasion from England, landing on the beaches of Normandy in northern France. Allied casualties were high. Eventually, however, the Allies established a base to begin the march toward Paris, which was liberated in August. With control of Western Europe slipping away, Germany's defeat was drawing closer.

The Germans made one final push against the Allies during the winter of 1944. The **Battle of the Bulge** was fought in the Ardennes Forest across parts of France, Belgium, and Luxembourg. An Allied victory left Germany with no realistic expectation of winning the war, yet Hitler refused to give up. Allied air raids began to systematically destroy Germany's infrastructure and Allied troops crossed the Rhine River into Germany in March 1945. One month later they were approaching Germany's capital city of Berlin.

On the Eastern Front, Soviet troops were also moving rapidly toward Germany. In July 1943, the largest tank battle of the war, the **Battle of Kursk**, was fought about 300 miles south of Moscow. The Soviets challenged this instance of German Blitzkrieg by successfully holding their defensive position and then counterattacking. The Soviets then made rapid progress through the Ukraine and the Baltic States in 1944. After taking control of Warsaw, Poland, in January 1945, the Soviets moved on to Hungary, Romania, and Bulgaria. In April 1945, they advanced on Berlin.

Victory in Europe

Hitler spent the war's final days hiding in a bunker, a fortified underground shelter, in Berlin. Although the country was falling apart, he continued to live under the delusion that somehow Germany would triumph. The end came on April 30, 1945, when Hitler committed suicide. His ally Mussolini had been killed by members of the Italian resistance two days before. After Hitler's death, members of Germany's High Command acknowledged that continuing the war would be futile. In the first days of May, Germany surrendered to the Allies. May 8, 1945, marked the official end of the war in Europe and was designated as **Victory in Europe Day** or **V-E Day**.

Victory over Japan

In early 1945, U.S. forces captured the islands of Okinawa and Iwo Jima and prepared to attack the Japanese mainland. In March 1945, U.S. troops fire-bombed Tokyo, killing about 100,000 people and leaving about a million others homeless. Although the island-hopping campaign had weakened Japan's hold on the Pacific, the emperor was not ready to surrender. The United States was beginning to consider the costs of invading the Japanese homeland, which it feared might lead to enormous Allied casualties. Despite initial hesitations about

using nuclear weapons, President Truman ordered the U.S. Army Air Force to drop the first atomic bomb on the Japanese city of Hiroshima on August 6, 1945. The nuclear age had begun. Three days later, a second bomb was dropped on Nagasaki, resulting in an estimated total of 140,000 Japanese civilian deaths. The months of Allied victories, combined with these devastating nuclear attacks, caused Japan to surrender unconditionally on August 14. Truman designated September 2, the day of the formal surrender ceremonies, as **Victory over Japan Day** or **V-J Day**.

Consequences of World War II

World War II was the bloodiest war in human history. It resulted in the deaths of around 75 million people, two-thirds of whom were civilians. As later topics explain, it changed how people thought about racism, colonial empires, and international relations. Further, it provided the context for a fierce ideological battle between the United States and the Soviet Union that would shape global affairs for the following five decades.

Key Terms by Theme

GOVERNMENT: War

Vichy, Lend-Lease Act, Battle of Britain, Siege of Leningrad, Pearl Harbor, Battle of El Alamein, Battle of Stalingrad, Battle of the Coral Sea, Battle of Midway Island, Guadalcanal, island-hopping, D-Day, Battle of the Bulge, Battle of Kursk, V-E Day, Hiroshima, Nagasaki, V-J Day

GOVERNMENT: Treaties

Nonaggression Pact, Destroyers-for-Bases Agreement, Atlantic Charter

GOVERNMENT: Leaders

Winston Churchill, Erwin Rommel, Douglas MacArthur

TECHNOLOGY: Warfare

Blitzkrieg, Luftwaffe, aircraft carriers

7.8

Topic 7.8: Mass Atrocities

Essential Question: What were the causes and consequences of mass atrocities from 1900 to the present?

The deaths of fighting forces in the two world wars were only part of the total casualties. Genocide, ethnic violence, and other atrocities took place as extremist groups rose to power. During and after World War I, the Ottoman Empire, ruled by a clique of “Young Turks” who were disturbed by the continuing decline of Ottoman power, perpetrated the Armenian genocide in which some 1.5 million Armenians died. As Adolf Hitler implemented the Holocaust, he referred to the Armenian annihilation as a reminder of how little the Nazis need fear for the systematic murder of six million Jews.

Ethnic atrocities did not end after World War II. Dictator Pol Pot wanted to “purify” Cambodian society along racial, social, and political lines, resulting in the deaths of 1.6 to 1.8 million Cambodians. And in Rwanda, the majority Hutu government directed mass slaughter of the Tutsi minority.

Atrocities in Europe and the Middle East

After three years of a bloody stalemate, the United States entered World War I in 1917, despite considerable popular protests in the United States against American involvement. By the summer of 1918, when U.S. forces were in place in Europe, U.S. actions helped push the war in the Allies’ favor. Allied advances against the Central Powers forced Germany to surrender on November 11, 1918, which became known as **Armistice Day**.

Between 8 million and 9 million soldiers died in the war, with more than 21 million wounded. In France, Germany, Russia, and Austria-Hungary, fewer than half of all young men who fought for their countries returned physically unharmed. Soldiers who did return often bore emotional scars.

Civilian casualties were harder to record, but estimates range anywhere from 6 million to 13 million. This was one of the first modern wars where civilians were considered legitimate targets. Although the Allies’ propaganda often exaggerated accounts of atrocities, reports of German soldiers raping women and killing families during their march through Belgium were common.

Armenian Genocide

The most shocking example of such atrocities were the deaths of between 600,000 and 1.5 million Armenians in Turkey. This action has been called the 20th century’s first genocide, the attempted killing of a group of people based on their race, religion, or ethnicity. The Ottoman government alleged that the Christian Armenians, a minority within the Ottoman Empire, were cooperating with the Russian army, an Ottoman enemy during World War I. As punishment for this cooperation, the Ottoman government deported Armenians from their homes between 1915 and 1917 and into camps in Syria and what is today Iraq. Many Armenians died from starvation, disease, or exposure to the elements. Turkish troops executed others. Armenians have argued that the deaths were genocide. The Turkish government has said the deaths were the result of actions of war, ethnic conflicts, and disease, not genocide.

Pandemic Disease

War-related deaths continued past Armistice Day in the form of an influenza epidemic. Under peacetime circumstances, a virulent disease might devastate a concentrated group of people in a particular region. However, in 1918, millions of soldiers were returning home as the war ended. As they did, they had contact with loved ones and friends, thereby spreading the flu. In 1919, the epidemic became a **pandemic**, a disease

prevalent over a large area or the entire world, killing 20 million people in Europe, the United States, and elsewhere. India alone may have lost 7 million people to the disease.

The worldwide spread of the disease was another sign that while nationalism remained a powerful political force, improvements in transportation were creating a global culture that would create global challenges. Whether people could create effective international responses was unclear.

Suffering and Famine

A more intangible casualty of the war was the loss of a sense of security and hopefulness. The term **Lost Generation**, first used to describe American expatriate writers living in Paris after the war, came to be used more broadly to describe those suffering from the shock of the war. World War I was the bloodiest war thus far in history. It resulted in tremendous suffering and death for both military personnel and civilians.

Famine in the Ukraine

In the Soviet Union, peasants strongly resisted Stalin's collectivization of agriculture. They hid or destroyed their crops and killed their livestock rather than turning them over to state control. This led to famines from human action rather than by weather or crop failures. The famines in 1932 and 1933 were especially devastating in the Ukraine, one of the Soviet Union's most fertile farming regions. An estimated 7 million to 10 million peasants died as a result of these famines. The government took much of the crops that were grown to feed industrial workers or to use for industry. Although peasants starved, industry grew.

Casualties of World War II

Because of the widespread fighting, advances in the technology of destruction, and its impact on the economies and civilian life of so many nations, the effects of World War II were unprecedented. Although exact casualty figures have been impossible to determine, total deaths probably numbered 40 million to 50 million. Maybe half of those were citizens of the Soviet Union, and millions of others were from Germany, Poland, China, and Japan. Losses among U.S. troops were fewer, but still considerable: about 290,000 soldiers killed and more than 600,000 wounded. Civilian casualties from attacks on land, air, and sea—from government executions based on political rationales, including genocide—and from disease and starvation caused by the war likely exceeded military casualties.

The Nazis

During the war, the world gradually learned about Nazi brutality. In its pursuit of territory, Germany forcefully removed many Slavic peoples, including one million Poles, and Roma, also known as Gypsies, from their homes. **Heinrich Himmler**, the leader of the Nazi special police, the SS, oversaw these policies. In addition, more than 7 million residents of conquered territories were forced to work in labor camps or in jobs that supported the German war effort. The Nazis sent political opponents, people with disabilities, and gay people to the camps. But the largest single group the Nazis targeted were the Jews. When Hitler became chancellor, he instituted many policies that reflected these extreme anti-Semitic views, such as the Nuremberg Laws of 1935 that banned Jews from certain professions and certain schools. Jews were forced to live in sections of cities called **ghettos**.

In 1942, the Nazi persecution of Jews turned into mass murder. They began a campaign led by the SS to kill all Jews in Europe, a plan they called the "**Final Solution**." Initially, Nazi killing units moved from place to place, shooting Jews and burying them in mass graves. Later the SS began rounding up Jews and shipping them to death camps, where Nazis gassed them. Auschwitz and Treblinka in Poland and Dachau in Germany were

some of the largest camps. By the end of the war, the Nazis had killed about six million Jews, an act of genocide known as the **Holocaust**. The Nazis killed another five million people who belonged to other persecuted groups or were Soviet prisoners of war. The Nazis worked many to death in labor camps and massacred others.

One shocking aspect of the Holocaust was how the Nazis used technology—trains, poisonous gas, and ovens for cremation—to make their attempt at genocide more efficient and more deadly.

The Japanese

During the Second Sino-Japanese War in 1937, Japanese soldiers killed at least 100,000 Chinese soldiers and civilians in what was called the Rape of Nanking. During World War II, although the Japanese did not carry out a dedicated policy of genocide that paralleled the Holocaust, millions of people died as a result of their policies. Under the program “**Asia for Asiatics**,” Japan forced people they had conquered into labor programs. These included service in the military, on public works projects, and on farms to reduce the food shortage in Japan. The Japanese army forced women in Korea, China, and other occupied countries to become “comfort women,” prostitutes for Japanese soldiers. Because of these harsh programs, more than a million civilians died in Vietnam alone. Perhaps an equal number of Allied prisoners of war and local workers perished while doing forced labor for Japan.

The Allies

Air warfare carried out by the United States and the other Allies brought a new type of deadly combat to civilians. The Allies’ **firebombing** of German cities, particularly Hamburg in 1943 and Dresden in 1945, caused large casualties. The number of deaths in Hamburg was about 50,000. Dresden had fewer casualties, maybe 25,000 deaths, as 15 square miles of its historic city center were destroyed. The United States also used firebombing in Tokyo.

The final two air attacks in the war, Hiroshima and Nagasaki, produced not only high casualties, but tremendous fear about the destructiveness of a future war fought with nuclear weapons. These weapons had been developed by an international group of scientists working in the United States. The scientific achievement was impressive, but it also required developments in other areas to have military use. For example, to deliver the nuclear weapons required improvements in airplane design to allow long flights carrying heavy loads. There is a great difference between the planes used in World War II and those used in World War I. In addition, the widespread use of the aircraft carrier by several powers extended the airplanes’ reach. Using these developments in planes and ships, countries could carry out air attacks anywhere in the world.

Genocide and Human Rights

The global community said “never again” to genocide after the horrors of the Holocaust. However, genocides continued to occur.

Bosnia

Ethnic conflict drove the genocide in Bosnia. The end of World War I brought with it the creation of several new nations in Eastern Europe, including Yugoslavia. That country was home to Serbians, who were Eastern Orthodox Christians; Croats and Slovenes, who were Catholic; and Muslims in the regions of Bosnia and Kosovo. Marshal Josip Broz Tito led communist Yugoslavia from the end of World War II until his death in 1980. As dictator, Tito tried to suppress separatist tendencies among the peoples of Yugoslavia by keeping Serbia and Croatia, the two largest republics, from dominating the smaller ones.

After the Soviet Union collapsed, so did Yugoslavia. When Slovenia, Croatia, and Montenegro declared independence, they each defined citizenship in terms of ethnic background and religion. Serbian nationalists led by the demagogue **Slobodan Milošević** were particularly emphatic about ethnic purity. Serb forces, in attempts to dominate states such as Bosnia-Herzegovina and Kosovo, committed horrific acts of **ethnic cleansing** against Muslims from Bosnia and Kosovo, killing or driving people who were not part of the main ethnic group from their homes. Bosniaks, Kosovars, and Croats fought back, causing more casualties. Serb soldiers raped untold numbers of Muslim women. In total, more than 300,000 people in the region perished over the course of Yugoslavia's **balkanization**, or disintegration into separate states.

Rwanda

One of the smallest countries in Africa, Rwanda was the site of one of the worst genocides in modern history. Ethnic and tribal hatred going back to the colonial era was behind the slaughter. Belgian colonizers had treated the minority Tutsis better than the majority Hutus. The latter group resented all the power that the Tutsis enjoyed. When Rwanda won independence from Belgium in 1962, the Hutu majority easily won control of the government and took revenge on the Tutsis by discriminating against them. In response, tens of thousands of Tutsis fled the country and formed a rebel army.

In 1993, Tutsi and Hutu forces in Rwanda began negotiations for a coalition government in which both ethnic groups would share power. The negotiations were cut short in 1994 when Rwanda's president, a Hutu, was killed in an airplane crash, supposedly shot down by rebel forces. This incident lit the flames of genocide. Over the next three months or so, between 500,000 and 1 million civilians—mostly Tutsis and some moderate Hutus—were killed. Some sources estimate that casualties were even higher.

International responses ranged from insufficient to callous. United Nations peacekeepers were instructed not to use force to restore order. There were also too few peacekeepers to protect all Rwandans. Individual countries, including the United States, evacuated their personnel from the country after Belgian peacekeepers were killed. UN peacekeepers and individual nations failed to evacuate any Rwandans. The Rwandan genocide focused attention on the lack of leadership in the international community. It became clear that the United Nations needed to think seriously about its role in violent conflicts if it wanted to effectively protect human lives and human rights.

Sudan

Another genocide erupted in 2003 in **Darfur**, a region located in western Sudan. Most of the people involved were Muslim, but some were nomadic pastoralists of Arab descent, while others were non-Arab farmers. The government of Sudan was controlled by Arab Muslims. Two Darfur rebel groups composed of non-Arabs took up arms against the Sudanese government in response to attacks from nomads. In response, the government unleashed Arab militants known as the **Janjaweed** (translation: "evil men on horseback") on the region. Together with Sudanese forces, the Janjaweed attacked and destroyed hundreds of villages throughout Darfur, slaughtering more than 200,000 people, mostly non-Arab Muslim Africans. More than one million people were displaced, creating a refugee crisis that spilled into neighboring Chad. Despite negotiations, appeals, and the **International Criminal Court** charging Sudan's President **Omar al-Bashir** with war crimes, the genocide continued.

The genocides in Bosnia, Rwanda, and Sudan became stains on the conscience of the world. International organizations and the broad global community were supposed to defend human rights after the Jewish Holocaust. Considering the millions of lives lost and human dignity shattered, the failure of the international community appeared obvious.

Key Terms by Theme

GOVERNMENT: War

Armistice Day, Hamburg, Dresden, Tokyo

GOVERNMENT: Countries

Bosnia, Rwanda, Darfur

TECHNOLOGY: Warfare

Firebombing

GOVERNMENT: Policies

Genocide, Final Solution, Holocaust, Asia for Asiatics, ethnic cleansing, balkanization

GOVERNMENT: Leaders

Heinrich Himmler, Slobodan Milošević, Omar al-Bashir

GOVERNMENT: Organizations

International Criminal Court

CULTURE: Movements

Lost Generation

CULTURE: Ethnic Groups

Armenians, Tutsis, Hutus

ENVIRONMENT: Disease

Influenza epidemic, pandemic

SOCIETY: Discrimination

Nuremberg Laws, ghetto, Janjaweed

Topic 7.9: Causation in Global Conflict

Essential Question: What was the relative significance of the causes of global conflict from 1900 to the present?

The 20th century saw significant changes to the global order. At the beginning of the century, the West dominated the global political order. However, the First and Second World Wars resulted in a power shift within the Western political sphere from Western Europe to the United States. These global conflicts also resulted in the emergence of new states around the world as independence movements ended the colonial relationships that existed in the previous century.

The Ottoman, Russian, and Qing empires that had existed at the beginning of the century all collapsed due to internal decay and political revolutions. Other areas of the world also saw political upheaval as nations struggled with both economic depression and calls for greater democracy. Often, though, totalitarian governments emerged out of these political and economic crises.

Political Causes of Global Conflict in the 20th Century

Many historians refer to World War I as the first “total war.” The war was fought on an industrial scale by soldiers from around the world, including soldiers from colonial areas. The combatants discovered more, and deadlier, methods of killing each other. Long-range artillery, poison gas, flamethrowers, and machine guns led to the deaths of millions of soldiers on both sides. The roots of this conflict lie in several main causes. A balance of power in Europe had been established during the 19th century through a constantly shifting system of alliances. However, these alliances proved instrumental in escalating the scope of the war as European nations jumped into the conflict to honor their commitments.

Nationalism was a growing force for political change in Europe. As such, Serbian nationalism was the main spark that created conflict in the Balkans, known as the “powder keg of Europe,” which led to the expansion of the war throughout Europe. An arms race among the great powers of Europe helped to increase the possibility of war as well. Lastly, the imperial rivalry among Western nations, as well as Japan and Russia, helped to increase tensions over commerce and access to resources.

Some of the same issues that brought about World War I also led to World War II. Fascism was nationalism in an extreme form. The fascist governments of Germany and Italy defied international pressure and treaties when they invaded neighboring territories. The alliance of Germany, Italy, and, eventually, Japan was opposed by the Western democracies of Great Britain and France. However, it was the inability of the Western democracies to offer a strong response to Germany’s aggressive militarism that launched Europe and the rest of the world into war. Additionally, Japan’s imperial ambitions in Asia were the main cause for war to break out in the Pacific between Japan and the United States.

Economic Causes of Global Conflict in the 20th Century

The primary economic cause of global conflict in the early 20th century was the acquisition and control of markets and resources. In the 19th century, Western European governments, followed by the United States, Russia, and Japan, began policies to take control of trade, territory, or both in Asia and Africa. In previous centuries, armed conflict would often erupt over the rivalry to control the natural resources of these areas. However, as the Industrial Revolution spread from Great Britain to the rest of Western Europe, and then to the United States, Russia, and Japan, control over markets to sell consumer goods was a primary motive of

imperialistic policies. Attempts were made, particularly in the late 19th century, to prevent wars over trade but these attempts had mixed success.

The Opium Wars, the First and Second Sino-Japanese War, the Crimean War, and eventually the First and Second World Wars had these economic factors as some of their root causes. For example, the desire of Imperial Japan to take over territory in Asia to obtain sources of oil, rice, rubber, and other raw materials led to the decision of the United States (and other countries) to place an embargo on Japan that cut off oil and steel exports from the United States to Japan. The result was the Japanese decision to attack the U.S. Pacific Fleet in Pearl Harbor, Hawaii, causing the United States to enter World War II. Economic crisis also helped lead to global conflict. The severe economic effects of the Great Depression (1929–1939), including high unemployment and low wages, led to the rise of populist leaders like Adolf Hitler who promised to rebuild the economies of their states.

Effects of Global Conflict in the 20th Century

Rapid advances in science and technology led to a better understanding of the natural world and brought about advances in many areas, including communication, transportation, industry, agriculture, and medicine. States also improved their war-making capabilities. As a result, one of the most significant effects of the global conflicts of the 20th century was the immense loss of life as warfare became deadlier to both combatants and civilians alike. Large-scale aerial bombing that targeted populated areas, deadly policies that targeted specific minority groups such as European Jews, and the use of new military technology such as the atomic bomb all meant that global conflict would cause unprecedented deaths among the civilian population. In addition, mass starvation and crimes against humanity were also responsible for millions of civilian deaths during the 20th century.

Global conflict in the 20th century also brought about notable political changes in the world. In the beginning of the century, the Mexican Revolution took place because many Mexicans wanted political and economic reforms. Populist movements formed and, eventually, Mexico created a new constitution with more political and economic rights for the majority of Mexicans. However, true democratic institutions in Mexico emerged and evolved slowly.

As a result of World War I, regime change occurred in both the Ottoman Empire and the Russian Empire. In addition to the effect of the First World War, ineffective or corrupt leadership was also instrumental in bringing about the political revolutions that toppled the monarchies of these states. While the Ottoman government was replaced by a Western-style democracy, the Russian Revolution instituted a totalitarian government headed by the Communist Party.

Resentment of the Treaty of Versailles, the peace agreement that ended World War I, also helped to bring about totalitarian regimes in Germany and Italy. These fascist governments appealed to people's nationalism and desire to restore the country's glory and standing in the world, leading their nations toward war.

World War I weakened the colonial powers, and after the war, U.S. President Woodrow Wilson advocated for the self-determination of people to choose their government or nation-state. This was seen as a sign that colonies had the right to demand independence. Many people in the colonies also felt that their support of or active participation in the war meant that they were owed some form of self-government. When those in power did not meet these demands, organized independence movements formed or grew.

The desire for independence continued to grow after World War II, as the colonial powers were further weakened by the war and unable to afford the cost and labor power to rebuild and maintain their empires. Many new states formed during this time. Former colonies that had a small foreign settler population gained

their independence relatively peacefully, while colonies that had a sizeable foreign settler population often experienced a more violent process towards independence.

Perhaps the largest independence movement, in terms of the number of people involved, took place in India. Relying on passive resistance and civil disobedience, the people of the British colony of India achieved independence in 1947. However, due to religious and ideological differences, the Indian subcontinent was partitioned into a Muslim-dominated Pakistan (which originally included East Pakistan, now Bangladesh) and a Hindu-dominated India. The tensions between Muslims and Hindus living in British India did not disappear with independence. These tensions have led to several military conflicts between the two countries since partition.

Another significant effect of the global conflicts of the 20th century was a repositioning of power in the Western countries—away from Western Europe and to the United States. Because of the participation of the United States in both the First and Second World Wars, as well as the smaller scale of destruction the U.S. experienced compared to Western European countries, the United States became a world power, playing the dominant role in the transatlantic relationship. However, the Soviet Union soon emerged as a second superpower in opposition to the United States.

Unit 8

AP World History Modern: Unit 8 Exam

Cold War and Decolonization (c. 1900 – Present)

This exam contains one stimulus-based multiple-choice question set for each of the 9 topics in Unit 8. Seven sets use written stimuli, and two use visual stimuli (with descriptions and source links). Each set includes 4 questions. The correct answer and a brief explanation are provided for every question.

Topic 8.1: Setting the Stage for the Cold War and Decolonization (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from the Yalta Conference Agreement (February 1945):

"It is our inflexible purpose to destroy German militarism and Nazism and to ensure that Germany will never again be able to disturb the peace of the world... We are resolved... to create conditions in which all men in all lands may live out their lives in freedom from fear and want."

Source: Yalta Conference Communiqué, February 11, 1945 (as cited in *The Cold War: A New History* by John Lewis Gaddis, 2005).

Questions

- Based on the passage, the Yalta Conference most directly reflected which emerging global reality after World War II? (A) Complete agreement between the United States and the Soviet Union on the post-war order (B) The beginning of tensions over the future of Germany and Eastern Europe (C) The immediate end of all European colonialism (D) The establishment of a unified world government
Correct Answer: (B) The beginning of tensions over the future of Germany and Eastern Europe
Explanation: While the Allies agreed on destroying Nazism, deep disagreements soon emerged over the political future of Eastern Europe and Germany, setting the stage for the Cold War.
- The phrase "all men in all lands may live out their lives in freedom from fear and want" most closely aligns with which principle promoted at the end of World War II? (A) The Four Freedoms articulated by Franklin D. Roosevelt (B) The complete rejection of democracy in favor of communism (C) The restoration of pre-war colonial empires without change (D) The immediate granting of independence to all colonies
Correct Answer: (A) The Four Freedoms articulated by Franklin D. Roosevelt
Explanation: The language echoes Roosevelt's Four Freedoms speech, which emphasized freedom from fear and want as a post-war goal.
- The Yalta Conference's focus on Germany and Eastern Europe most directly contributed to which later development? (A) The rapid decolonization of Africa and Asia (B) The division of Europe into Western and Soviet spheres of influence (C) The immediate unification of Germany under democratic rule (D) The decline of the United Nations
Correct Answer: (B) The division of Europe into Western and Soviet spheres of influence
Explanation: Decisions made at Yalta (and later Potsdam) led to the Soviet domination of Eastern Europe and the eventual division of Germany.
- Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of conferences like Yalta during the period c. 1900–present? (A) They successfully created a lasting peaceful world order with no future conflicts (B) They helped establish the post-World War II international system while also planting the seeds of Cold War divisions (C) They led to the immediate end of all colonial empires (D) They had no lasting influence on global politics after 1945
Correct Answer: (B) They helped establish the post-World War II international system while also planting the seeds of Cold War divisions
Explanation: Yalta

symbolized both Allied cooperation against fascism and the emerging superpower rivalry that would define the next half-century.

Topic 8.2: The Cold War (Visual Stimulus)

Visual Description: A map titled “The Cold War World, 1947–1991” showing the division between the Western bloc (NATO and allies, shaded blue) and the Eastern bloc (Warsaw Pact and allies, shaded red). Europe is split by a bold line labeled “Iron Curtain.” Proxy conflict zones are marked in Asia (Korea, Vietnam), Africa, and Latin America. Arrows indicate U.S. and Soviet spheres of influence and key flashpoints such as the Cuban Missile Crisis and the Berlin Wall.

Source: Adapted from *The Cold War: A Very Short Introduction* by Robert J. McMahon, Oxford University Press, 2003.

Link to a Similar Resource: [Cold War World Map – Khan Academy](#)

Questions

1. Based on the map, the Cold War was primarily characterized by (A) direct military conflict between the United States and the Soviet Union in Europe (B) ideological competition and proxy wars fought around the world (C) complete economic isolation between the two blocs (D) the absence of any military alliances **Correct Answer: (B) ideological competition and proxy wars fought around the world**
Explanation: The map shows few direct U.S.-Soviet battles but many proxy conflicts and spheres of influence across the globe.
 2. The map’s depiction of the “Iron Curtain” dividing Europe illustrates which key feature of the Cold War? (A) Economic cooperation between East and West (B) The political and military division of Europe into opposing blocs (C) The immediate reunification of Germany after 1945 (D) The decline of NATO and the Warsaw Pact **Correct Answer: (B) The political and military division of Europe into opposing blocs**
Explanation: The Iron Curtain became the symbolic and physical division between democratic/capitalist Western Europe and communist Eastern Europe.
 3. According to the map, which region saw the most intense superpower competition through proxy wars? (A) Western Europe (B) Asia (especially Korea and Vietnam) and parts of Africa and Latin America (C) North America (D) Australia and Oceania **Correct Answer: (B) Asia (especially Korea and Vietnam) and parts of Africa and Latin America**
Explanation: The map highlights multiple overlapping conflicts in these regions as the U.S. and Soviet Union competed for influence during decolonization.
 4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the global Cold War structure shown on the map during the period c. 1900–present? (A) It created a bipolar world that influenced nearly every region through alliances, proxy wars, and ideological competition for nearly half a century (B) It led to immediate global peace and cooperation after 1945 (C) It had no connection to decolonization movements (D) It remained limited to Europe with no impact on the developing world **Correct Answer: (A) It created a bipolar world that influenced nearly every region through alliances, proxy wars, and ideological competition for nearly half a century**
Explanation: The map demonstrates how the Cold War became a truly global conflict that shaped international relations until 1991.
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Topic 8.3: Effects of the Cold War (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from President John F. Kennedy's Inaugural Address (1961):

"Let every nation know, whether it wishes us well or ill, that we shall pay any price, bear any burden, meet any hardship, support any friend, oppose any foe to assure the survival and the success of liberty."

Source: John F. Kennedy, Inaugural Address, January 20, 1961.

Questions

1. Based on the passage, Kennedy's speech most directly reflects which effect of the Cold War on U.S. foreign policy? (A) A policy of isolationism and withdrawal from global affairs (B) A commitment to global containment of communism and support for anti-communist regimes (C) Complete neutrality in all international conflicts (D) The rejection of all military alliances **Correct Answer: (B) A commitment to global containment of communism and support for anti-communist regimes** *Explanation:* The speech signals the U.S. willingness to intervene anywhere to defend "liberty" against communism, a core tenet of containment policy.
2. The phrase "pay any price, bear any burden" most strongly suggests that the Cold War led to (A) reduced military spending by the United States (B) a massive expansion of American global military and economic commitments (C) the immediate end of all proxy wars (D) the decline of NATO **Correct Answer: (B) a massive expansion of American global military and economic commitments** *Explanation:* The language reflects the enormous resources the U.S. was prepared to commit worldwide during the Cold War.
3. Kennedy's address most directly influenced which later Cold War development? (A) The escalation of U.S. involvement in Vietnam (B) The immediate withdrawal of all U.S. troops from Europe (C) The rejection of the Truman Doctrine (D) The end of the arms race **Correct Answer: (A) The escalation of U.S. involvement in Vietnam** *Explanation:* The commitment to oppose communism anywhere helped justify increasing U.S. military involvement in Southeast Asia.
4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of Cold War foreign policy commitments, as expressed in the passage, during the period c. 1900–present? (A) They led to prolonged and costly interventions that shaped U.S. domestic politics and global perceptions of American power for decades (B) They resulted in immediate and total victory over communism by 1970 (C) They had no lasting effects on American society or foreign policy (D) They promoted complete global disarmament **Correct Answer: (A) They led to prolonged and costly interventions that shaped U.S. domestic politics and global perceptions of American power for decades** *Explanation:* The global commitments Kennedy described contributed to the Vietnam War, massive defense spending, and long-term debates about American foreign policy.

Topic 8.4: Spread of Communism (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from Mao Zedong's "Report on an Investigation of the Peasant Movement in Hunan" (1927):

"The peasants are the main force in the countryside... Without the poor peasants there would be no revolution. To reject them is to reject the revolution... The poor peasants have done a great deal... They have hit the landlords hard."

Source: Mao Zedong, "Report on an Investigation of the Peasant Movement in Hunan," March 1927.

Questions

1. Based on the passage, Mao Zedong's revolutionary strategy in China differed from classical Marxism by (A) focusing primarily on the urban proletariat (B) emphasizing the revolutionary potential of the peasantry (C) rejecting all forms of violence (D) supporting the landlord class **Correct Answer: (B) emphasizing the revolutionary potential of the peasantry** *Explanation:* Mao argued that poor peasants, not just industrial workers, were the key revolutionary force in China.
 2. Mao's focus on the peasantry most directly contributed to which development in the Chinese Revolution? (A) The immediate success of the urban-based Communist Party in the 1920s (B) The eventual Communist victory in 1949 through rural guerrilla warfare and peasant support (C) The rejection of all land reform policies (D) The alliance with the Nationalist Party (Guomindang) until 1949 **Correct Answer: (B) The eventual Communist victory in 1949 through rural guerrilla warfare and peasant support** *Explanation:* Mao's rural strategy allowed the Communists to build strength in the countryside and ultimately defeat the Nationalists.
 3. The ideas in the passage most strongly influenced which later revolutionary movement? (A) The Russian Revolution of 1917 (B) Peasant-based communist revolutions in countries such as Vietnam and Cuba (C) The rise of fascism in Europe (D) The decline of all communist movements after 1945 **Correct Answer: (B) Peasant-based communist revolutions in countries such as Vietnam and Cuba** *Explanation:* Mao's model of rural revolution inspired other communist movements in agrarian societies.
 4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of Maoist revolutionary thought during the period c. 1900–present? (A) It provided an alternative model of communist revolution suited to agrarian societies and influenced anti-colonial and revolutionary movements across the developing world (B) It led to the immediate global triumph of communism by 1960 (C) It had no influence outside of China (D) It promoted peaceful democratic transitions in all developing countries **Correct Answer: (A) It provided an alternative model of communist revolution suited to agrarian societies and influenced anti-colonial and revolutionary movements across the developing world** *Explanation:* Maoism became a powerful ideological export during the Cold War, especially in Asia, Africa, and Latin America.
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Topic 8.5: Decolonization (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from Jawaharlal Nehru's "Tryst with Destiny" speech (1947):

"Long years ago we made a tryst with destiny, and now the time comes when we shall redeem our pledge... At the stroke of the midnight hour, when the world sleeps, India will awake to life and freedom. A moment comes, which comes but rarely in history, when we step out from the old to the new..."

Source: Jawaharlal Nehru, Independence Day Speech, August 14–15, 1947.

Questions

1. Based on the passage, Nehru viewed India's independence primarily as (A) a gift granted by the British Empire (B) the fulfillment of a long struggle for self-determination and national awakening (C) the beginning of a return to pre-colonial isolation (D) an event with little significance for other colonized peoples **Correct Answer: (B) the fulfillment of a long struggle for self-determination and national awakening** *Explanation:* Nehru frames independence as the redemption of a historic pledge and a rare moment of national rebirth.
2. The phrase "we step out from the old to the new" most directly reflects which characteristic of decolonization in South Asia? (A) Complete rejection of all Western ideas and institutions (B) The

creation of new independent nation-states while inheriting many colonial-era structures (C) The restoration of traditional monarchies across the region (D) The immediate economic prosperity of all newly independent countries **Correct Answer: (B) The creation of new independent nation-states while inheriting many colonial-era structures** *Explanation:* India gained independence but retained many British legal, administrative, and economic systems.

3. India's independence in 1947 under Nehru most directly inspired which development across Asia and Africa? (A) The strengthening of European colonial control (B) A wave of independence movements and the rapid decolonization of Asia and Africa in the 1950s and 1960s (C) The rejection of all forms of nationalism (D) The immediate unification of all former colonies into one superstate **Correct Answer: (B) A wave of independence movements and the rapid decolonization of Asia and Africa in the 1950s and 1960s** *Explanation:* India's independence served as a powerful example and inspiration for other nationalist movements.
 4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of decolonization in Asia and Africa during the period c. 1900–present? (A) It dramatically increased the number of sovereign states and reshaped global politics, though many new nations faced significant challenges of poverty, instability, and neocolonial pressures (B) It led to immediate and lasting prosperity in all former colonies (C) It had no connection to the Cold War (D) It resulted in the complete disappearance of imperialism from the world **Correct Answer: (A) It dramatically increased the number of sovereign states and reshaped global politics, though many new nations faced significant challenges of poverty, instability, and neocolonial pressures** *Explanation:* Decolonization transformed the international system but left many new states struggling with the legacies of colonial rule.
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Topic 8.6: Newly Independent States (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from Kwame Nkrumah's speech on African unity (1963):

"We have to prove that greatness is not to be measured by the size of a country or its population... We have to prove that the black man is capable of managing his own affairs... Africa must unite or perish."

Source: Kwame Nkrumah, speech at the founding of the Organization of African Unity, Addis Ababa, May 1963.

Questions

1. Based on the passage, Nkrumah believed that newly independent African states should prioritize (A) complete isolation from each other and the outside world (B) political and economic unity across the continent (C) the restoration of pre-colonial tribal structures only (D) reliance on former colonial powers for all development **Correct Answer: (B) political and economic unity across the continent** *Explanation:* Nkrumah explicitly calls for African unity as essential for survival and progress.
2. The phrase "Africa must unite or perish" most strongly suggests that Nkrumah saw fragmentation among newly independent states as (A) a path to rapid economic development (B) a major threat that could lead to continued weakness and external domination (C) irrelevant to Africa's future (D) the best way to preserve traditional cultures **Correct Answer: (B) a major threat that could lead to continued weakness and external domination** *Explanation:* Nkrumah argued that disunity would leave African nations vulnerable to neocolonial exploitation.
3. Nkrumah's vision for African unity most directly influenced which later development? (A) The immediate creation of a single united African government in 1963 (B) The founding of the Organization of African Unity (later the African Union) (C) The rejection of all forms of regional cooperation in Africa (D) The

strengthening of European colonial control **Correct Answer: (B) The founding of the Organization of African Unity (later the African Union)** *Explanation:* Nkrumah was a leading advocate for the OAU, which was established in 1963.

4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader challenges faced by newly independent states in Africa and Asia during the period c. 1900–present? (A) Many struggled with nation-building, economic development, ethnic divisions, and external pressures while attempting to assert sovereignty and pursue development (B) All achieved immediate and lasting political stability and prosperity (C) They rejected all forms of international cooperation (D) They experienced no significant challenges after independence **Correct Answer: (A) Many struggled with nation-building, economic development, ethnic divisions, and external pressures while attempting to assert sovereignty and pursue development** *Explanation:* Nkrumah's call for unity highlights the real difficulties many post-colonial states faced in consolidating power and achieving development.
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Topic 8.7: Global Resistance to Established Order (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from a speech by Fidel Castro at the United Nations (1960):

“We are not communists... But we are against imperialism... We are against the exploitation of man by man... We want to be free... We want to be masters of our own destiny.”

Source: Fidel Castro, speech to the United Nations General Assembly, September 1960.

Questions

- Based on the passage, Fidel Castro positioned the Cuban Revolution as (A) a purely communist movement aligned completely with the Soviet Union from the beginning (B) an anti-imperialist and nationalist movement seeking independence from U.S. influence (C) a movement in favor of continued American economic dominance (D) a rejection of all forms of social reform **Correct Answer: (B) an anti-imperialist and nationalist movement seeking independence from U.S. influence** *Explanation:* Castro emphasizes opposition to imperialism and exploitation while initially distancing himself from communism.
- Castro's emphasis on being “masters of our own destiny” most directly reflects which global trend in the mid-20th century? (A) The strengthening of colonial empires (B) The rise of nationalist and anti-imperialist movements in Latin America, Asia, and Africa (C) The decline of all revolutionary movements after 1945 (D) The universal acceptance of American leadership **Correct Answer: (B) The rise of nationalist and anti-imperialist movements in Latin America, Asia, and Africa** *Explanation:* Castro's language echoes the broader wave of anti-colonial and nationalist revolutions occurring worldwide.
- The Cuban Revolution under Castro most directly contributed to which development during the Cold War? (A) The immediate collapse of the Soviet Union (B) A major challenge to U.S. influence in Latin America and the spread of revolutionary movements in the region (C) The strengthening of U.S. control over the Western Hemisphere (D) The end of all revolutionary activity in Latin America **Correct Answer: (B) A major challenge to U.S. influence in Latin America and the spread of revolutionary movements in the region** *Explanation:* Cuba became a symbol and supporter of revolutionary movements across Latin America and the developing world.
- Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of revolutionary movements like the Cuban Revolution during the period c. 1900–present? (A) They inspired other anti-imperialist and revolutionary movements while also provoking strong counter-reactions from the United States and its allies (B) They

led to the immediate triumph of communism across Latin America (C) They had no lasting influence outside of Cuba (D) They promoted peaceful democratic transitions everywhere **Correct Answer: (A) They inspired other anti-imperialist and revolutionary movements while also provoking strong counter-reactions from the United States and its allies** *Explanation:* Cuba's revolution had ripple effects across the Global South and intensified Cold War tensions in the Western Hemisphere.

Topic 8.8: End of the Cold War (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from Mikhail Gorbachev's speech to the United Nations (1988):

"We are witnessing the emergence of a new world order... The world is becoming increasingly interdependent... We need a new thinking... We are in favor of the demilitarization of international relations... We are in favor of the complete and final elimination of nuclear weapons."

Source: Mikhail Gorbachev, Address to the United Nations General Assembly, December 7, 1988.

Questions

1. Based on the passage, Gorbachev's "new thinking" most directly contributed to which development in the late 1980s? (A) The intensification of the arms race with the United States (B) Greater openness (glasnost) and restructuring (perestroika) that weakened Soviet control over Eastern Europe (C) The immediate invasion of Afghanistan (D) The rejection of all diplomatic engagement with the West **Correct Answer: (B) Greater openness (glasnost) and restructuring (perestroika) that weakened Soviet control over Eastern Europe** *Explanation:* Gorbachev's reforms and new foreign policy approach reduced Soviet willingness to use force to maintain its empire in Eastern Europe.
2. Gorbachev's call for the "demilitarization of international relations" and elimination of nuclear weapons most strongly signaled (A) a hardening of Cold War tensions (B) a desire to reduce the enormous military and economic burden of the Cold War on the Soviet Union (C) complete Soviet withdrawal from all global affairs (D) the strengthening of the Warsaw Pact **Correct Answer: (B) a desire to reduce the enormous military and economic burden of the Cold War on the Soviet Union** *Explanation:* The Soviet economy was struggling under the weight of military spending, and Gorbachev sought relief through reduced confrontation.
3. Gorbachev's speech and reforms most directly led to which outcome by 1991? (A) The strengthening and expansion of the Soviet Union (B) The collapse of communist regimes in Eastern Europe and the eventual dissolution of the Soviet Union itself (C) The immediate reunification of Germany under Soviet control (D) The end of all nuclear weapons worldwide **Correct Answer: (B) The collapse of communist regimes in Eastern Europe and the eventual dissolution of the Soviet Union itself** *Explanation:* Gorbachev's policies unintentionally accelerated the fall of the Eastern Bloc and the USSR.
4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of the end of the Cold War during the period c. 1900–present? (A) It ended the bipolar world order, led to the expansion of democracy and markets in many regions, but also created new instabilities and power vacuums in others (B) It resulted in permanent global peace and the end of all conflict (C) It had no lasting effects on international relations after 1991 (D) It led to the immediate dominance of the Soviet Union over the United States **Correct Answer: (A) It ended the bipolar world order, led to the expansion of democracy and markets in many regions, but also created new instabilities and power vacuums in others** *Explanation:* The end of the Cold War transformed global politics but also brought new challenges, including ethnic conflicts and economic inequality.

Topic 8.9: Causation in the Age of the Cold War and Decolonization (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from a historian's analysis of the 20th century:

"The twentieth century was shaped by two great forces: the ideological struggle between capitalism and communism, and the revolt of colonized peoples against European empires. These two forces often intersected, as newly independent nations became battlegrounds in the Cold War, while the superpowers competed to influence the process of decolonization."

Source: Adapted from *The Twentieth Century: A People's History* by Howard Zinn (updated editions) and similar analyses in *The Cold War and the Color Line* by Thomas Borstelmann.

Questions

1. Based on the passage, the historian argues that the Cold War and decolonization were (A) completely separate and unrelated historical processes (B) deeply interconnected, with each influencing the other (C) both caused solely by economic factors in Europe (D) limited only to the period before 1945

Correct Answer: (B) deeply interconnected, with each influencing the other *Explanation:* The passage explicitly states that the two forces "often intersected" and that newly independent nations became Cold War battlegrounds.

2. The passage's reference to newly independent nations becoming "battlegrounds in the Cold War" most directly illustrates which causal relationship? (A) Decolonization caused the end of the Cold War (B) The Cold War shaped the process and outcomes of decolonization in many regions (C) Decolonization had no effect on superpower rivalry (D) The superpowers had no interest in the developing world

Correct Answer: (B) The Cold War shaped the process and outcomes of decolonization in many regions *Explanation:* Many independence movements and new states were supported or opposed by the U.S. or Soviet Union depending on their ideological alignment.

3. According to the passage, which factor best explains why the Cold War and decolonization became intertwined? (A) The superpowers' desire to expand their global influence during a period of imperial collapse (B) The complete absence of ideology in international relations after 1945 (C) The rejection of all alliances by newly independent states (D) The immediate economic prosperity of all former colonies

Correct Answer: (A) The superpowers' desire to expand their global influence during a period of imperial collapse *Explanation:* As European empires weakened, the U.S. and Soviet Union competed to fill the resulting power vacuums.

4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader pattern of causation in the period c. 1900–present, as described in the passage? (A) Major historical developments such as the Cold War and decolonization were interconnected and mutually reinforcing, creating complex chains of cause and effect that reshaped the modern world (B) All historical events occurred in complete isolation from one another (C) Ideology played no role in 20th-century global politics (D) Decolonization was caused solely by events in Europe with no global connections

Correct Answer: (A) Major historical developments such as the Cold War and decolonization were interconnected and mutually reinforcing, creating complex chains of cause and effect that reshaped the modern world *Explanation:* The passage demonstrates how two major forces interacted, producing a web of causes and consequences that defined much of the 20th century.

8.1

Topic 8.1: Setting the Stage for the Cold War and Decolonization

Essential Question: What was the historical context for the Cold War after World War II?

After the global conflict of World War II, the largely unfulfilled hopes for greater colonial self-government after World War I were revived. Colonies' desire for independence became intertwined with a global ideological conflict between capitalist countries (led by the United States) and communist countries (led by the Soviet Union).

Bringing the War to an End

During World War II, the leaders of Great Britain, the United States, and the Soviet Union, known as the **Big Three**, held several meetings to plan for the post-war world. Three of these were particularly important.

The Tehran Conference

During the **Tehran Conference** in Iran in November 1943, the Allies agreed that the Soviet Union would focus on freeing Eastern Europe, while Britain and the United States would concentrate on Western Europe. In addition, Britain and the United States agreed to a Soviet demand to shift some Polish territory to the Soviet Union, which would be offset by Poland gaining territory elsewhere, mostly from Germany.

The Yalta Conference

By February 1945, the Allies knew that Germany was near defeat, but they disagreed about what should happen after Germany's surrender. At the **Yalta Conference**, at a resort on the Black Sea, the leaders focused on plans for reconstructing Eastern Europe and for defeating Japan.

- Franklin Roosevelt wanted free, democratic elections in Eastern Europe. He also wanted the Soviets to join the war against Japan.
- Stalin demanded influence over Eastern Europe. Fearful that another Napoleon or Hitler would invade Russia from the West, he wanted Eastern Europe as a buffer zone. In return for Soviet help against Japan, he wanted control of islands claimed by Japan, ports ruled by China, and part ownership of a Manchurian railroad.

Roosevelt thought that after years of overseas war, the American public was unlikely to support a war against the Soviets over the fate of democracy in Eastern Europe. The conference ended with a Soviet pledge to fight Japan, but the Soviets offered only vague assurances on free elections in Eastern Europe.

The Potsdam Conference

The final meeting among leaders of the Big Three, the Potsdam Conference, began in July 1945 in Germany. Harry Truman, who had become president after Roosevelt died on April 12, represented the United States. Churchill started the conference but lost his position as prime minister in mid-July and was replaced by Clement Attlee.

Truman insisted on free elections in Eastern Europe. However, by then Soviet troops had occupied the region. Stalin refused Truman's demand. With the backing of Soviet power, communists eventually gained control of East Germany, Poland, Czechoslovakia, Hungary, Bulgaria, and Romania.

By 1945, the United States and the Soviet Union lacked trust in one another and had begun the aggressive rhetoric that would become standard for four decades following World War II. Potsdam and the earlier conferences failed to settle important issues between the world's major powers. As a result, the stage was set for a cold war between countries still devastated by a hot war.

Shifting Balance of Power

When the war ended in 1945, parts of Europe and Asia had been devastated. The war resulted in 40 million to 60 million deaths. It destroyed factories, roads, bridges, and other structures needed for industrial production. It forced millions of people to move. Many were fleeing communism or searching for safety and opportunity.

Massive Destruction in Europe

Wartime losses were not evenly distributed throughout Europe. In general, East and Central Europe suffered greater losses than did Western Europe. Worst hit were the Soviet Union, Poland, and Germany. Each lost between 10 and 20 percent of its population.

Countries such as Great Britain and France, despite their losses, maintained strong traditions of democracy and the rule of law. They still had strong educational systems, including outstanding universities. They remained home to large, innovative corporations. These advantages provided the foundation for Western Europe to become a global leader after the war. However, because of the massive physical destruction and population loss in victorious and defeated nations, Europe became less influential and powerful in the rest of the world, while the United States and the Soviet Union became more powerful.

The U.S.-Soviet Rivalry

In 1945, then, the United States was poised to become the most powerful country in the world. Of all the major countries involved in the war, the United States suffered the least. Heavy fighting occurred on U.S. soil, in the Philippines, but the U.S. mainland was untouched by attacks. Its industrial base and infrastructure not only remained intact but also grew stronger through government-funded military contracts. Further, the loss of life in the United States was far lower than in Europe. The relative prosperity of the United States allowed it to provide financial aid to European countries after the war. This aid program, called the Marshall Plan, is described in Topic 8.2.

The United States also had developed atomic weapons and used them during the war, making the country even more formidable. The Soviets successfully tested an atomic bomb of their own in 1949. By the end of the 1940s, only the Soviet Union could challenge the United States in military might and political influence.

Advances During the War

Military research at universities and in private companies, often funded by government, resulted in tremendous technological developments during World War II. Among the items that were developed for, improved, or used more widely by the military were air pressure systems for airplane cabins, refrigeration for food, stronger plywood for construction, and a variety of plastics for many uses. One of the most important advances was the spread of the use of penicillin, which saved the lives of thousands of wounded soldiers. Each of these advances would be adapted for civilian use, thereby improving the lives of millions of people.

The Start of the Cold War

The U.S.-Soviet tensions evident at Tehran, Yalta, and Potsdam made conflict likely. However, the high costs of the war meant that neither superpower wanted a full-scale war with the other. Rather, they settled into a **cold**

war, a conflict that does not involve direct military confrontation between two or more rival states. The Cold War between the superpowers played out in propaganda campaigns, secret operations, and an arms race.

The deadliest results of the Cold War occurred outside the lands of the two superpowers. The U.S.-Soviet rivalry led both countries to arm opposing sides in conflicts around the world, thereby transforming small civil wars and regional conflicts into much larger events. This increased the death tolls and level of destruction in these wars.

In the early 1950s, the United States and Soviet Union each developed a **hydrogen bomb** that was much more powerful than the atomic bombs dropped on Japan at the end of World War II. The arms race fostered close ties between the military and the industries that developed weapons. Before he left office in 1961, President **Dwight Eisenhower** expressed his concerns about the U.S.-Soviet competition for supremacy in nuclear armaments. He warned against allowing the **military-industrial complex**, the informal alliance between the government and the large defense contractors, to gain too much power. In later decades, citizens in many countries expressed similar worries. They began to protest the stockpiling of nuclear weapons.

Breakdown of Empires

After World War II, efforts resumed to undermine colonialism. The start of World War I had marked the high point of colonial empires. The British, the French, and other Europeans had colonized almost all of Africa, India, and Southeast Asia, and they dominated China. Empires based in Austria, Turkey, and Russia were multiethnic states, but each was dominated by one group, leaving others feeling discriminated against. After World War I, the demand for **self-determination**, the idea that each country should choose its own form of government and leaders, was spreading. The Austro-Hungarian Empire and the Ottoman Empire crumbled, restructured into multiple new countries. However, in China, India, and throughout Africa, Europeans generally maintained their power, even expanding it over territories that had been part of the Ottoman Empire.

During World War II, the leading colonial powers focused on stopping Hitler. As a result, the anti-colonial movements probably grew stronger, but actual independence made little progress. However, after World War II, the foundation was set for the dismantling of colonial empires:

- In the colonized world, movements for self-determination grew. Often, they included both advocates of greater self-rule and proponents of full independence.
- World War II had so weakened Great Britain, France, and the other colonial powers that they had fewer resources to resist independence.
- The Cold War between the United States and the Soviet Union gave anti-colonial activists two superpowers to recruit as supporters.

The successful efforts of people to undermine colonial empires are described in Topics 8.5 and 8.6.

Key Terms by Theme

GOVERNMENT: Europe

Big Three, Tehran Conference, Yalta Conference, Potsdam Conference

GOVERNMENT: United States

Harry Truman, Cold War, Dwight Eisenhower

TECHNOLOGY: Armaments

Hydrogen bomb, military-industrial complex

SOCIETY: Anti-Colonial Movements

Self-determination

Topic 8.2: The Cold War

Essential Question: What were the causes and effects of the ideological struggle of the Cold War?

After World War II, the democratic United States and the authoritarian Soviet Union emerged as the strongest countries in the world. Both countries had expanded their territorial control and influence after the war. After the Potsdam Conference in Germany in 1945, Truman and Stalin soon recognized their rivalry for dominance over Europe and Asia. The ideological conflict noted by Bernard Baruch, the power struggle between capitalism (led by the United States) and communism (led by the Soviet Union), was the central global conflict over the next 40 years.

Cooperation Despite Conflict: The United Nations

Despite ideological differences, the Allies shared a commitment to building a new organization to promote peace and prosperity to replace the League of Nations. The League had failed for two significant reasons:

- It lacked the support of all the world's powerful countries, particularly the United States.
- It lacked a mechanism to act quickly to stop small conflicts from escalating into large ones.

In 1943, leaders of the United States, Great Britain, the Soviet Union, and China discussed the idea of the **United Nations (UN)**. The UN was established in 1945.

Rivalry in Economics and Politics

The existence of the United Nations did not prevent tensions from growing worse between the Soviet Union and the West. Winston Churchill's March 1946 speech symbolized the Cold War. Churchill said that "an iron curtain has descended across the continent" of Europe. The metaphor of the **Iron Curtain** described the split between Eastern and Western Europe.

Capitalism and Communism

One difference between the United States and the Soviet Union was how they organized their economies.

- In the United States, Western Europe, and other capitalist countries, economic assets, such as farms and factories, were mostly owned privately. Hence, private interests determined economic decisions. People had the freedom to act in their self-interest.
- In the Soviet Union, Eastern Europe, and other communist countries, economic assets were owned by the government. The system emphasized equality and fairness.

Democracy and Authoritarianism

A second difference was how the rivals organized their political systems. In the United States, people chose their elected leaders through free elections. Further, they relied on an independent press to provide accurate information about the government and political parties to compete for votes. In the Soviet Union, elections were not significant, the press was operated by the government, and a single party dominated politics.

Criticisms and Similarities

Each side pointed to what it saw as flaws in the other. In the United States, people attacked the Soviet system for restricting the rights of people to speak and worship freely, to elect their own representatives, and to allow

businesses to operate efficiently. Soviets accused the United States of giving poor people the “freedom to starve” and for discriminating against African Americans and other minorities. The Soviet Union also stressed its emphasis on women’s equality as a difference between its system and that of the United States.

Despite the difference in the U.S. and Soviet models, some analysts emphasized their similarities. For example, in both, control of big economic decisions was in the hands of groups, either the government or millions of corporate shareholders. Further, both countries often acted out of fear of the other, which made the military a powerful force in each.

Conflicts in International Affairs

Each side wanted to expand its system of thought throughout the world. This competition resulted in a long-running battle for influence over the opinions of people and alliance with governments.

The USSR and Its Satellite Countries

The Soviets were determined to make the governments of Eastern Europe as much like the Soviet government as possible. They therefore directed the countries of Bulgaria, East Germany, Hungary, Poland, and Romania to develop five-year economic plans focused on developing industry and collective agriculture at the expense of consumer products. All political parties other than the Communists were outlawed.

These actions allowed the USSR (Union of Soviet Socialist Republics) to exploit the Eastern European nations to benefit the Soviets rather than to help those countries grow. The **satellite countries**—small states that are economically or politically dependent on a larger, more powerful state—were forced to import only Soviet goods and to export only to the Soviet Union. Moreover, the governments of these countries were just as dictatorial as the Soviet government.

World Revolution

Beginning with the October Revolution of 1917, the Soviet Union viewed capitalism as a threat to its power. This view was enhanced with the concept of **world revolution**, a belief that organized workers would overthrow capitalism in all countries. The Soviets supported revolutions and uprisings between 1919 and 1923 in Germany, Bavaria, Hungary, northern Italy, and Bulgaria. Soviet interference elevated Western suspicions about Soviet intentions. After World War II, growing revolutionary feelings became a serious threat to Western powers and to governments in Central and Southern Europe.

Containment

U.S. diplomat George Kennan worked in the U.S. Embassy in Moscow during the 1930s and in 1946. Kennan believed that the Soviet Union would continue to expand its borders and its influence abroad if it could. He advocated a policy of **containment**—not letting communism spread farther. Some politicians criticized Kennan for accepting the status quo. They argued for a more aggressive policy of overthrowing existing regimes in order to “roll back” the spread of communism.

Truman Doctrine

Kennan’s reports influenced President Harry Truman. A speech in 1947 outlined the **Truman Doctrine**, a strong statement that the United States would do what it had to do to stop the spread of communist influence, specifically in Greece and Turkey. The Soviet Union wanted to put military bases in Turkey so it could control the Dardanelles, the strait between the Black Sea and the Mediterranean Sea. In Greece, left-wing groups

controlled by Communists were close to gaining control of the government. Truman pledged U.S. economic and military support to help the two countries resist this communist domination.

The Marshall Plan

After World War II, the United States was deeply concerned about rebuilding Europe. The United States provided assistance to those countries soon after the war ended. However, many U.S. leaders thought more was needed to get European allies back on their feet economically. Based on the belief that a communist revolution could happen in economically unstable nations, the new goal was to rebuild Europe into a prosperous and stable region. The **Marshall Plan**, enacted in June 1947, was designed to offer \$12 billion in aid to all nations of Europe, including Germany. This money would be used to modernize industry, reduce trade barriers, and rebuild Europe's damaged infrastructure. The plan worked. Economic output in the countries aided was 35 percent higher in 1951 than it had been in 1938.

The Soviet Union and its Eastern European satellites refused to participate in the plan. Instead, in 1949, the Soviets developed their own plan to help rebuild Eastern Europe—the **Council for Mutual Economic Assistance (COMECON)**. The scope of the organization was narrower than that of the Marshall Plan. It was limited primarily to trade and credit agreements among the six members. Its impact was modest compared to the Marshall Plan.

The Space Race and the Arms Race

Space Race

In 1957, the Soviet Union launched the first artificial satellite, called *Sputnik*, into orbit around Earth, inaugurating what became known as the **Space Race**. The United States launched its first satellite in January 1958. The two nations competed to become the first with a manned satellite orbiting Earth and, later, the first to land a human on the moon.

Mutual Assured Destruction (MAD)

Early in 1959, the Soviets tested the first intercontinental ballistic missile (ICBM) capable of delivering a nuclear warhead into U.S. territory. The United States tested a similar missile later that same year. Both countries realized that they had become so powerful that they had reached a point of **mutual assured destruction**. That is, regardless of who started a war, both would be obliterated by the end of it. Since neither side could win a nuclear war, neither side had an incentive to start one. As long as both sides kept improving their technology, the balance of terror between them would keep the peace—everyone hoped.

The Non-Aligned Movement

Many new African and Asian countries wanted to stay out of the U.S.-Soviet Cold War. They wanted an alternative framework for international economic, political, and social order—one not dominated by the two superpowers. In 1955, Indonesia hosted a conference, known as the Bandung Conference after the city where it was held, for representatives of these countries. Delegates from China, India, and 27 other countries—representing more than half the world's population—passed resolutions condemning colonialism. The impulse that prompted the Bandung Conference led countries to formally organize the **Non-Aligned Movement** in 1961. However, non-aligned countries faced challenges:

- Member states tried to combine support for stronger international institutions with efforts to advance their own interests. For example, Indian leader Jawaharlal Nehru supported a stronger UN, but he

opposed its efforts to intervene in the conflict between India and Pakistan over control of the region of Kashmir.

- Member states often became more closely allied with one superpower or the other. When war broke out between Somalia and Ethiopia in 1977, the Soviet Union supplied aid to Ethiopia, prompting the United States to supply aid to Somalia.

Key Terms by Theme

GOVERNMENT: Global

United Nations (UN), Iron Curtain, satellite countries, world revolution, containment, Truman Doctrine, Non-Aligned Movement

ECONOMICS: International

Marshall Plan, Council for Mutual Economic Assistance (COMECON)

TECHNOLOGY: Space

Mutual assured destruction, Sputnik

Topic 8.3: Effects of the Cold War

Essential Question: In what ways did both the Soviet Union and the United States seek to maintain influence during the Cold War?

With the start of the Cold War, new military alliances for mutual protection formed in different parts of the world. The threat of nuclear war, as noted by Chung Mong-joon, kept the United States and the Soviet Union from starting a war that could end in unprecedented global destruction. But **proxy wars**, such as the ones in Korea and Vietnam, resulted in millions of deaths. In a proxy war, a major power helps bring about a conflict between other nations but does not always fight directly. These conflicts underlined the political and philosophical divide between the superpowers.

The superpowers faced off in Cuba and several other Central American countries as well as in the African country of Angola. The combination of military, economic, and nuclear influence across the globe made the world a tense place for decades after World War II—the war the two superpowers had worked together to end.

Allied Occupation of Germany

The conflict among the Allies after World War II was exemplified by the debate over how to occupy the defeated country of Germany. The Allies agreed to partition the country among France, Great Britain, the United States, and the Soviet Union. The three Western Allies wanted to combine their zones into one state under democratic principles.

Berlin Blockade

The Allies also decided to divide Germany's capital, Berlin, into four zones. The three Western zones would become a free city that was located within the Soviet zone of Germany. The Soviets wanted to stop these Western plans and control all of Berlin. They set up a blockade of the Western zones in Berlin to prevent the West from moving supplies into the area by land. The Western Allies did not want to risk a military confrontation with the Soviets and ultimately began the **Berlin Airlift**. Through this operation, the Allies flew supplies into Western zones between February 1948 and May 1949, when the Soviets lifted the blockade.

Two Germanys

After the blockade ended, Germany split into two states. West Germany became the Federal Republic of Germany. East Germany became the German Democratic Republic. The division of Europe into East and West was complete.

Berlin Wall

As citizens of East Germany saw the prosperity and democratic lifestyle of West Germany, many wanted to move to the West. Between 1949 and 1961, about 2.5 million East Germans fled.

However, the East German and Soviet governments were determined to keep people in East Germany. They knew that the exodus to the West reflected poorly on the communist system, and it was hard on their economy. They first set up barbed-wire fences patrolled by guards along the perimeter of East Germany and between East and West Berlin. In August 1961, they began replacing the fences in Berlin with a wall, which became known as the **Berlin Wall**. Between 1961 and 1989, when the Berlin Wall fell, soldiers killed about 150 people as they tried to escape over it.

NATO, the Warsaw Pact, and Other Alliances

Only a few years after World War II ended, the Soviet Union dominated the Eastern European countries they had occupied during the war. Communist governments in those countries—buoyed by support and the direct influence of Stalin—subjected their people to the same suppression and economic system as the Soviet Union. Many Western European countries feared such a dominant communist presence on their doorstep.

Out of a desire to coordinate their defenses in case of a conflict with the Soviets, several Western nations created the **North Atlantic Treaty Organization (NATO)** in April 1949. The treaty pledged mutual support and cooperation within the alliance against conflicts and wars. Its original members were Belgium, Canada, Denmark, France, Great Britain, Iceland, Italy, Luxembourg, the Netherlands, Norway, Portugal, and the United States. Membership in this Brussels-based organization expanded considerably in the decades after its founding.

The Soviet Union's response to NATO was the **Warsaw Pact**, created in 1955. Albania, Bulgaria, Czechoslovakia, East Germany, Hungary, Poland, Romania, and the Soviet Union were the original members. Warsaw Pact nations combined their armed forces and based their army leaders in Moscow, the capital of the Soviet Union. These nations were known as the **communist bloc**.

Two countries with communist political systems successfully resisted Soviet control. Albania, located next to Greece, joined the Warsaw Pact but withdrew in 1968. It became more closely tied to China. Yugoslavia, under the authoritarian leadership of Marshal Josip Broz Tito, never joined the Warsaw Pact. In the 1990s, ethnic divisions caused Yugoslavia to break apart into several countries, including Slovenia, Serbia, and Croatia.

Other treaty organizations formed in an attempt to halt the spread of communism in other regions:

- In 1954, Australia, France, Great Britain, New Zealand, Pakistan, the Philippines, Thailand, and the United States formed the **Southeast Asia Treaty Organization (SEATO)**.
- The **Central Treaty Organization (CENTO)** was an anti-Soviet treaty organization formed by Great Britain, Iran, Iraq, Pakistan, and Turkey to prevent the spread of Communism in the Middle East. The United States was not a full member, but it joined CENTO's military committee.

During the Cold War, the United States formed alliances with more than 40 states. It was sometimes easier for the United States to influence and negotiate through these smaller alliances than through the United Nations.

Proxy Wars

The ideological Cold War was accompanied by hot wars in Asia, Africa, Latin America, and the Caribbean. They were called proxy wars because the armies of smaller countries were proxies, or stand-ins, for the two superpowers. These wars often combined specific local issues, such as a battle against colonialism or for land reform, with the international conflict over the spread of communism. Though proxy wars occurred in small countries, some resulted in millions of deaths.

Two of the biggest confrontations were the Korean War and Vietnam War in Asia. In both instances, the countries were split into northern and southern sections. In both countries, a communist government ruled the northern section.

Korean War

Just as the victorious powers divided Germany after World War II, they also divided the Korean Peninsula. The Soviets occupied the north while the United States and its allies occupied the south. The Korean War

(1950–1953) began when North Korea invaded South Korea in an attempt to reunite the country under its leadership. In response, the UN voted to defend South Korea militarily. The Soviet Union could have vetoed the resolution, but its representative was absent during the vote because the Soviet Union was boycotting all Security Council meetings in protest over a disagreement about China's seat on the Security Council.

UN military forces supporting the South Koreans came from 16 member countries, but the United States provided the largest number and the overall commander, General **Douglas MacArthur**. The Soviet Union did not send troops, but it sent money and weapons to North Korea. The UN forces pushed back the North Koreans across the inter-Korean border and drove toward North Korea's border with China. The Chinese, allies of North Korea and concerned that the UN forces would try to invade China as well, sent Chinese troops across the border and entered the war against the United States and its allies. After three years of fighting and some four million civilian and military casualties, the war ended in a stalemate. The two parts of Korea remained divided, with a demilitarized zone in between.

Vietnam War

U.S. President Dwight D. Eisenhower, following the Truman policy of containment, sent military advisers to South Vietnam to train the South Vietnamese army and to prevent a communist takeover by North Vietnam. Eisenhower's successor, President John F. Kennedy, increased the number of advisers from 1,000 to 16,000. Some U.S. citizens believed America could not afford to lose a confrontation in Vietnam. They thought a communist victory would weaken U.S. prestige around the world.

However, the United States was supporting an undemocratic and unpopular South Vietnamese ruler, Ngo Dinh Diem. In 1963, Buddhist monk Thich Quang Duc publicly set himself on fire in Saigon to protest the South Vietnamese government's favoring of Catholics over Buddhists. His protests inspired others. A military coup, with U.S. support, soon overthrew Diem.

In 1964, President **Lyndon Johnson** sent more U.S. troops to South Vietnam. Johnson believed in the **domino theory**—the idea that if one country in the region became communist, other countries would soon follow. Johnson feared that China and the Soviet Union would bring all of Southeast Asia under communist rule.

The Bay of Pigs Crisis

Fidel Castro and other communist revolutionaries overthrew the Cuban dictator Fulgencio Batista in 1959. Castro soon set up a dictatorship in Cuba. On August 6, 1960, the new government started to nationalize foreign-owned industries, which was a common communist strategy. Cuba nationalized businesses and properties of the national telephone and electricity companies; Texaco, Esso, and Sinclair oil companies; and 36 sugar mills owned by U.S. firms. As a result of these economic losses for its citizens, the United States broke off trade with Cuba and cut diplomatic ties. Castro in turn accepted Soviet aid and aligned Cuba's foreign policy with that of the Soviet Union.

In 1961, newly elected U.S. President John F. Kennedy had grave concerns about the presence of a communist country located only 90 miles from the coast of Florida. Before Kennedy took office, a group of Cuban exiles who opposed Castro had asked for U.S. government backing to invade Cuba and overthrow Castro. Kennedy gave his support. The resulting **Bay of Pigs** invasion was a total failure. Even worse for the United States, it cemented the Cuba-Soviet alliance.

The Cuban Missile Crisis

In response to the Bay of Pigs, the Soviets began to support Cuba with arms and military advisors. Soviet Premier **Nikita Khrushchev**, who came to power after Stalin, saw an opportunity in Cuba. In 1962 he shipped nuclear missiles to Cuba. Khrushchev felt justified in his actions because in the summer of 1961 the United States had placed nuclear missiles in Turkey, a U.S. ally that shared a border with the Soviet Union.

In October 1962, U.S. intelligence learned that more missiles were on their way to Cuba. Kennedy ordered the U.S. Navy to prevent the missiles from reaching Cuba. He called his action a “quarantine” because a blockade was technically an act of war. Regardless of the term, the two superpowers were on a collision course that threatened nuclear war.

Ultimately, the two leaders pulled back from the brink. Khrushchev called back the Soviet ships and removed the missiles that had been delivered to Cuba. In return, the United States pledged to quietly remove its missiles from Turkey. After this incident, leaders of both countries realized that better communication between their countries was needed. In 1963, the two countries set up a **Hot Line**, a direct telegraph/teleprinter link between the U.S. and Soviet leaders’ offices.

Test-Ban Treaty

People worldwide worried about deaths and environmental harm from nuclear war or nuclear testing. In 1963, the Soviet Union, the United States, and more than 100 other states signed the **Nuclear Test-Ban Treaty**. France and China did not sign it. This agreement outlawed testing nuclear weapons above ground, underwater, and in space. The goal was to cut down the amount of radiation that people would be exposed to as a result of weapons testing. Underground testing remained legal. In 1968, the **Nuclear Non-Proliferation Treaty** called on nuclear powers to prevent the spread of military nuclear technology and materials to non-nuclear countries.

Angola

The Portuguese colony of Angola in southwest Africa won its independence in 1975, after 14 years of armed struggle. Like the Vietnamese, the Angolans had to fight a war to end their colonial status.

However, Angola faced greater ethnic conflict than did Vietnam. The borders of Angola, like those of many newly independent African countries, had been set by European colonial powers with little regard for traditional regions. Rival ethnic groups were thrown together under one government. Angola was more a multiethnic empire consisting of three distinct cultural groups than a nation-state in which everyone shared a common culture. Each group had fought for independence. Each wanted to control the country’s lucrative diamond mines. And each was supported by other countries:

- The USSR and Cuba backed the Mbundu tribe.
- South Africa backed the Ovimbundu tribe.
- The United States backed the Bankongo tribe.

Upon independence, civil war broke out. In 2002, after 27 years of fighting, the rivals agreed on a cease-fire. However, threats of violence from militant separatist groups remained.

Contra War

In Nicaragua in 1979, the 43-year dictatorship by the Somoza family was ended by the rebel Sandinistas, who called themselves socialists. Two years later, conservative opponents of the Sandinistas, known as Contras, tried to overthrow them. From 1981 to 1988, the Contra War gripped the country. Wanting to isolate the Sandinistas, the United States heavily backed the Contras with covert support. The Contra War took the lives

of tens of thousands of Nicaraguans. The war ended after the signing of the Tela Accord in 1989 and the demobilization of the Contra and Sandinista armies.

Antinuclear Weapons Movement

The nuclear arms race spawned a reaction known as the **antinuclear weapons movement**. One of the first such movements developed in Japan in 1954 in opposition to U.S. testing of nuclear weapons in the Pacific Ocean. In 1955, more than one-third of Japan's population signed a petition against nuclear weapons. In the late 1970s and early 1980s, the antinuclear weapons movement expanded to other countries, particularly to the United States and Western Europe. On June 6, 1982, some one million people demonstrated in New York City against the creation, buildup, and possible use of nuclear weapons.

Key Terms by Theme

GOVERNMENT: International Conflicts

Proxy war, Berlin Airlift, Berlin Wall, Korean War, Vietnam War, domino theory, Bay of Pigs, Cuban Missile Crisis, Angola, Contra War

GOVERNMENT: Treaties

North Atlantic Treaty Organization (NATO), Warsaw Pact, communist bloc, Southeast Asia Treaty Organization (SEATO), Central Treaty Organization (CENTO), Nuclear Test-Ban Treaty, Nuclear Non-Proliferation Treaty

TECHNOLOGY: Military

Hot Line

SOCIETY: Activism

Antinuclear weapons movement

GOVERNMENT: Leaders

Douglas MacArthur, Lyndon Johnson, John F. Kennedy, Nikita Khrushchev

Topic 8.4: Spread of Communism after 1900

Essential Question: How did communism and land reform affect China and other countries?

The Cold War provided the context in which many countries wrestled with the legacies of their past. The combined heritage of feudalism, capitalism, and colonialism often resulted in societies with a small class of powerful landowners and a large class of peasants who owned little or no land. When socialists or communists sought to make more people into landowners, they got caught up in the U.S.-Soviet ideological battle. Land reform was a vital issue in China, Iran, Vietnam, Ethiopia, India, and a number of Latin American countries, including Mexico, Bolivia, and Venezuela.

Communism in China

In China, the Communists and the Nationalists began fighting for control of the country in 1927. However, after the Japanese invaded, the two sides agreed to focus on fighting them instead of each other.

Victory by the Communists

After the defeat of the Japanese in 1945, the Chinese Civil War resumed. The Communists, led by **Mao Zedong**, won popular support because they redistributed land to peasants, opened schools and hospitals, and punished soldiers who mistreated civilians. Peasants saw the Communists as more nationalist and less corrupt than the Nationalists. In 1949, the Communists defeated the Nationalists and set up the People's Republic of China. Mao ordered the nationalization of Chinese industries and created five-year plans based on the Soviet model. Like the Soviets, the Chinese plans emphasized heavy industry instead of consumer goods.

Great Leap Forward

In 1958, China went through more land reform as part of the policy called the **Great Leap Forward**. Peasant lands were organized into **communes**, large agricultural communities where the state held the land, not private owners. Those who protested this policy could be sent to "reeducation camps" or killed.

Even though failing harvests caused severe food shortages, China continued to export grain to Africa and Cuba. Mao sought to convince the outside world of the success of his economic plans. Some 20 million Chinese died from starvation. By 1960, the Great Leap Forward was abandoned.

Cultural Revolution

In 1966, Mao attempted to reinvigorate China's commitment to communism, an effort called the **Cultural Revolution**. In practice, the Cultural Revolution silenced critics of Mao and solidified his hold on power. Its impact on China was similar to the impact of Stalin's purges in the Soviet Union. Mao ordered the **Red Guards**, groups of revolutionary students, to seize government officials, teachers, and others and send them to the countryside for reeducation. Reeducation involved performing hard physical labor and attending group meetings where Red Guards pressured them to admit they had not been revolutionary enough.

Relations with the Soviets

Although China and the Soviet Union were both communist states, they were often hostile to each other. From 1961 onward, the two countries skirmished over their border. They also competed for influence around the world. For example, Albania, a Soviet satellite, took advantage of the split by allying with China against the Soviet Union, thereby receiving more autonomy and additional financial aid from China.

Turmoil in Iran

The modern country of Iran fell under foreign domination in the late 19th century. Britain and Russia fought to control the area. The competition grew even keener when oil was discovered in Iran in the early 20th century.

Foreign Influence

Early in World War II, the leader of Iran considered supporting Hitler's Nazi regime. Determined not to let that happen, Russia and Britain invaded Iran. They forced the leader to abdicate power to his young son, Shah **Muhammad Reza Pahlavi**. They kept their forces in Iran until the end of the war.

Iranian nationalists objected to the new shah as a puppet of Western powers. In 1951, they forced him to flee the country. Two years later, Iran selected **Mohammad Mosaddegh** as prime minister. He vowed to nationalize the oil companies. The United States and Great Britain engineered an overthrow of the democratically chosen Mosaddegh and returned the shah to power. The shah ran an authoritarian regime that relied on a ruthless secret police force.

Land Reform in the White Revolution

Despite his harsh rule, the shah instituted several progressive reforms, known as the **White Revolution** because they came without bloodshed. They included recognizing women's right to vote, creating a social welfare system, and funding literacy programs in villages.

The most important reform dealt with land ownership. The shah wanted to undercut the power of traditional landowners and increase his popularity among peasants. Under his plan, the government bought land from landlords and resold it at a lower price to peasants. The program helped many peasants become first-time landowners, but it failed to reach a majority of peasants.

Many Iranians—both landowners who had been forced to sell their land and frustrated peasants who received nothing—opposed the land reforms. Religious conservatives opposed modernizing the country, particularly changing the relationship between men and women. Advocates for greater democracy opposed the shah's harsh rule.

The Iranian Revolution

In 1979, a revolution toppled the shah. Many Iranians supported the revolution because they vividly remembered the overthrow of the Mosaddegh government in 1953. The leaders to emerge from the revolution, though, were ones who rejected the shah's secular worldview for one that viewed Islam as a key part of the individual-state relationship. The new government was a **theocracy**, a form of government in which religion is the supreme authority. The new government was headed by a cleric and a Guardian Council, a body of civil and religious legal experts who were responsible for interpreting the constitution and making sure all laws complied with shariah (Islamic law). The clergy had the right to approve or disapprove anyone who ran for office. Iran opposed Western policies in the Middle East and the state of Israel.

Land Reform in Latin America

Throughout Latin America, leaders saw the concentration of land ownership as a barrier to progress. Hence, as countries freed themselves from colonialism, they considered land reform. Mexico's effort dates back to the 1930s, but much of the land reform in Latin America took place in the 1960s or later.

Venezuela

In Venezuela, for example, the government redistributed some five million acres of land. Some of the land was state-owned and not previously under cultivation, while other pieces of land were seized from large landowners. The land reform, begun with a 2001 law, was not popular with the landowners who claimed that the state seized their property while it was under cultivation. Additional problems arose from illegal squatters who moved in to settle on lands that were not scheduled for land reform. Land reform efforts had political repercussions as well; those who benefitted were more willing to vote for the government instituting the reforms, while those from whom land was confiscated tended not to support the states that seized it. Land reform in Latin America varied in its details in each country, shaped partly by environmental factors, partly by a legacy from colonialism, and partly by the ideology of the rulers instituting the reforms.

Guatemala

A democratically elected government under Jacob Arbenz in the Central American country of Guatemala began efforts at land reform. Feeling threatened, the United Fruit Company lobbied the U.S. government to remove the Arbenz. In 1954, he was overthrown.

Land Reform in Asia and Africa

Vietnam

During World War II, Japan occupied Vietnam, which France still claimed as a colony. At the end of the war in 1945, Vietnam declared independence from Japanese and French control. Vietnam was an agricultural society. A few people controlled most of the land. Communists vowed to seize land from the large landowners and redistribute it among the peasants. This pledge won them great support among peasants. When Communists took power in the north, they carried out their policies—sometimes violently. In South Vietnam, the government was slow to implement land reform, which was one reason it remained unpopular.

Ethiopia

Other than a short period from 1936 to 1941 when it was under Italian occupation, Ethiopia had remained an independent country, but it suffered problems similar to those of many colonies. During World War II, exiled Ethiopian leader **Haile Selassie** returned to power. He aligned the country with the western powers after the war, and Ethiopia enjoyed economic success based largely on its coffee trade. This led to western-style political and cultural reforms. Selassie was unable to effectively implement land reforms in Ethiopia. By the 1960s, the country was souring on his leadership. Many people saw him as a pawn of U.S. imperialism.

In 1974, a group of military and civilian leaders deposed Selassie. One of the primary figures was **Mengistu Haile Mariam**, an Ethiopian native and major in the military. He ordered the assassination of 60 former regime officials. The new government declared itself socialist and received aid and weapons from the Soviet Union and other communist countries. Famine, failed economic policies, and rebellion marred Mengistu's leadership. By 1991, he had resigned and fled to Zimbabwe.

India

Southern Asia had been under British rule since 1858. That changed in 1947. Mahatma Gandhi had led the independence movement against England since the 1920s, but it wasn't until after World War II that India became independent. India was partitioned in 1947, creating two countries: Pakistan and India. Pakistan was overwhelmingly Muslim, and India was largely Hindu.

Both countries struggled to establish their new relationship and economies. India undertook economic reforms. It instituted land reforms and tried to redistribute some land to the landless, abolish the overwhelming power of

rent collectors, protect land renters, and promote cooperative farming. The results were mixed. However, in Kerala, a series of policies had some success:

- 1960: The state passed land reform, but they were overturned by courts.
- 1963: Tenant won the right to purchase land from landowners.
- 1969: New laws allow tenants to become full owners of land.
- 1974: Laws provide for fixed hours of work and minimum wages.

Despite the popularity of the land reform program, the Indian central government took direct rule of Kerala in order to slow down or reverse the program.

Key Terms by Theme

SOCIETY: Global

Land reform, commune, theocracy

GOVERNMENT: Asia

Mao Zedong, Great Leap Forward, Cultural Revolution, Red Guards, White Revolution

GOVERNMENT: Middle East

Muhammad Reza Pahlavi, Mohammad Mosaddegh, Haile Selassie, Mengistu Haile Mariam

8.5

Topic 8.5: Decolonization after 1900

Essential Question: How did people pursue independence after 1900?

In the 20th century, nationalist groups and leaders challenged colonial rule not only through land reform but also through political negotiation, as in India, and armed struggle, as in Angola. Struggles for independence after World War I and the failure of many independence movements added to anticolonial sentiments during World War II. Empires became politically unacceptable. European powers struggled to hold onto their colonies. Notions of freedom born of World War II rhetoric helped speed up decolonization. That process coincided with the Cold War and the development of the United Nations.

Movements for Autonomy: India and Pakistan

The drive for Indian self-rule began in the 19th century with the foundation of the Indian National Congress. Its leader in 1920 was Mohandas Gandhi. Hindu and Muslim groups, united by their desire to get rid of the British, supported the independence movement in South Asia. The National Congress's tactics included mass civil disobedience, and it remained a powerful governmental force after Indian independence. The **Muslim League**, founded in 1906, advocated a separate nation for Indian Muslims.

Not all Indian leaders agreed with Gandhi's nonviolent, noncooperation movement or his call for unity between Muslims and Hindus. However, they put aside their differences until after World War II. Then leaders again demanded independence.

After the war, Britain grew weaker as India's fighting abilities grew stronger. When Britain failed to follow through on promises for more rights for Indians, Indian people increased their protests for full independence from British rule. The Royal Indian Navy Revolt in 1946 was instrumental in bringing Britain to the realization it could no longer rule India. As a result of economic pressures from India and from its own sluggish postwar recovery, Britain was ready to negotiate independence in South Asia.

Division and Conflict

Muslims feared living in an independent India dominated by Hindus. Distrust between Muslims and Hindus dated back centuries to the 8th century, when Muslims invaded Hindu kingdoms in northern India. Muslims campaigned for an independent Muslim country—Pakistan. India and Pakistan both gained independence in 1947.

Decolonization in Ghana and Algeria

Britain agreed to negotiate independence for its West African colony of the Gold Coast, just as it had for its colonies in South Asia. The Gold Coast combined with the former British Togoland to form Ghana, the first sub-Saharan African country to gain independence in the 20th century. Negotiations led by the United Nations helped bring about Ghana's independence in 1957. Its first president, **Kwame Nkrumah**, took office in 1960.

Ideas from modern nation-states influenced Ghanaian nationalism. Nkrumah emulated nationalistic traditions he learned during his time in the United States and Britain. For example, Nkrumah constructed a national narrative that centered on having a historical past of glory and rich tradition, founding fathers, a currency, a flag, an anthem, museums, and monuments. He was responsible for numerous public works and development projects, such as hydroelectric plants. However, some critics accused him of running the country into debt and allowing widespread corruption—an economic pattern that often happened in later African dictatorships. In

1964, Nkrumah claimed dictatorial powers when the voters agreed to a one-party state, with him as party leader.

Nkrumah strongly advocated Pan-Africanism, a term with multiple meanings. In the 19th century, American and British abolitionists called their plans to return freed men and women to their homes in Africa Pan-Africanism or Africa for Africans. The country of Liberia was founded on this vision. In the second half of the 20th century, for some Africans, the term Pan-Africanism meant a celebration of unity of culture and ideas throughout the continent. These Pan-Africanists rejected intervention by former colonial powers.

In keeping with his vision of Pan-Africanism, Nkrumah founded the **Organization of African Unity (OAU)** in 1963. However, three years later, a military coup overthrew Nkrumah's government and expelled many foreigners from the country. Not until 2000 would Ghana witness a peaceful transfer of civilian power from one elected president to another.

Algeria

In northern Africa, the French colony of Algeria endured far more violence than Ghana before becoming independent. Mounting social, political, and economic crises in Algeria resulted in political protests. The French government responded with restrictive laws and violence.

Many Algerians, driven by feelings of nationalism, campaigned for independence after World War II. The Algerian War for Independence began in 1954, and it involved many groups. Because so many French people lived in Algeria as settlers, the French government considered Algeria a part of France and was adamant that it could not become a separate country. The FLN (National Liberation Front) led the Algerian movement for independence. The FLN sought self-determination through guerrilla techniques against half a million French forces sent to Algeria. While French military casualties were relatively low, hundreds of thousands of Algerians died in the war, often in violent street-by-street battles. French historian Pierre Vidal-Naquet confessed that there were "hundreds of thousands of instances of torture" by the French military in Algeria.

The Algerian conflict caused sharp divisions in France. The French Communist Party, powerful at the time, favored Algerian independence. Violence broke out in cities throughout France. In 1958, French President Charles de Gaulle had a new mandate for expanded presidential power under the constitution of the new Fifth Republic. De Gaulle planned the steps through which Algeria would gain independence. He then went straight to the people of France and Algeria to gain approval of his plan in a referendum, thereby bypassing the French National Assembly.

However, with the coming of independence in 1962, war broke out again in Algeria. Thousands of pro-French Algerians and settlers fled the country. The influx of these refugees into France created housing and employment problems as well as increased anti-immigration sentiment. Violence in Algeria left between 50,000 and 150,000 dead at the hands of FLN and lynch mobs.

The first president of the new Algerian Republic was overthrown in 1965 in a military coup led by his former ally. The National Liberation Front continued in power under different leadership, making Algeria a single-party state for a number of years. The FLN maintained a socialist authoritarian government that did not tolerate dissent. Meanwhile, the government led a drive for modernization of industry and collectivization of agriculture.

Algerian Civil War

In 1991, violence again surfaced in Algeria, this time in reaction to one-party rule. The Islamic Salvation Front won the first round in an election that was then canceled. A bloody Algerian Civil War followed (1991–2002), during which the FLN continued in control. The army chose President Abdelaziz Bouteflika in 1999. In his

second term, he attempted to be more inclusive of insurgents, although suicide bombings continued. In 2011, the military state of emergency, in place since 1992, was finally lifted in response to protests in the wake of major uprisings in nearby states, including Tunisia, Egypt, and Libya.

Comparing Ghana and Algeria

Both Ghana and Algeria experienced growing pains under military rule. The main struggles were between those who favored multiparty states and those who favored single-party socialism. Ghana created a new constitution in 1992, easing the transfer of power between elected governments. One point of national pride was that a Ghanaian leader, Kofi Annan, became UN Secretary General in 1997. In Algeria, by contrast, religious tensions grew worse. As in other countries in North Africa and the Middle East, a growing right-wing Islamist movement that was willing to use violence challenged the power of mainstream Muslims. In 1992, an Islamist assassinated Algeria's president. As in Egypt and Turkey, the military responded by repressing Islamic fundamentalists. In 1997, Algeria banned political parties that were based on religion.

Negotiated Independence in French West Africa

As Britain negotiated independence with its African colonies, France did the same with its colonies in French West Africa. These included Senegal, the Ivory Coast, Niger, Upper Volta, and other territories. France had controlled them since the late 1800s with small military forces. France used indirect rule, which relied on local chiefs, existing governments, and other African leaders to maintain stability.

Over the years, France invested in West Africa, building railroads, advancing agricultural development, and benefitting in trade revenue that grew substantially. But by the mid-1950s, various African political parties (democratic, socialist, and communist) and leaders arose in French West Africa. By 1959, many of the French West African countries had negotiated their independence from France.

Nationalism and Division in Vietnam

World War II interrupted France's long colonial rule in Indochina, but France reoccupied the southern portion of Vietnam when the war ended. A bloody struggle began against the forces of Ho Chi Minh, the communist leader of North Vietnam. He appealed to nationalist feelings to unite the country under a single communist government.

France responded by attempting to reestablish its colonial rule, sparking a Vietnamese war of independence that lasted until 1954. The peace treaty split the country into North and South Vietnam, with elections planned for 1956 that would reunite the country. However, many in South Vietnam, along with the United States, opposed the Communists and feared Ho would win the election. No election took place.

War broke out between the communist North and the South. U.S. military troops supported the South. South Vietnamese who supported the Communists, known as **Viet Cong**, fought a guerrilla war against U.S. troops.

As the Vietnam War worsened, American military involvement and casualties grew. In response, the antiwar movement became more vocal. President Richard Nixon began to withdraw U.S. troops in 1971; the last troops left in 1975. North Vietnam quickly gained control of South Vietnam. It is estimated that the Vietnam War resulted in between one million and two million deaths, including about 58,000 Americans. It also destabilized Southeast Asia. Communists soon won control of Laos and Cambodia, but the spread of communism stopped there.

Beginning in the 1980s, Vietnam introduced some market-based economic reforms. In following years, Vietnam and the United States reestablished trade and diplomatic relations.

Struggles and Compromise in Egypt

Having long been under the sovereignty of the Ottoman Empire, Egypt became a nominally independent kingdom in 1922. However, the British retained some of the same treaty rights there that they had held under their mandate following World War I. A 1936 Anglo-Egyptian treaty allowed more Egyptian autonomy. Still, it also allowed the British to keep soldiers in Egypt to protect the Suez Canal. The British army continued to influence Egyptian internal affairs.

Nasser

Following World War II, Egypt became one of six founding members of the Arab League, which grew to 22 member states. In 1952, General **Gamal Abdel Nasser**, along with Muhammad Naguib, overthrew the king and established the Republic of Egypt. Naguib became its first president; Nasser its second. Nasser was a great proponent of Pan-Arabism, a movement promoting the cultural and political unity of Arab nations. Similar transnational movements would attempt to unite all Africans (Pan-Africanism) and all working people (communism).

Nasser's domestic policies blended Islam and socialism. He instituted land reform, transforming private farms into socialist cooperatives that would maintain the existing irrigation and drainage systems and share profits from crops. He nationalized some industries and businesses, including foreign-owned banks, taking them over and running them as state enterprises. However, Nasser touched off an international crisis when he nationalized the Suez Canal.

The Suez Crisis

Built by Egyptian laborers—thousands of whom died while working on the project—with money from French investment between 1859 and 1869, the Suez Canal had been under lease to the French for 99 years. To the Egyptians, this lease symbolized colonial exploitation, which Nasser pledged to fight. In addition, the British owned interests in the canal, which they administered jointly with the French. In 1956, Nasser seized the canal, and Israel invaded Egypt at the behest of Britain and France. The two European countries then occupied the area around the canal, claiming they were enforcing a UN cease-fire. However, the United States and the Soviet Union opposed British and French actions and used the United Nations to broker a resolution to the Suez Crisis.

The removal of foreign troops was followed by an agreement for the canal to become an international waterway open to traffic of all nations under the sovereignty of Egypt. The UN deployed peacekeepers to the Sinai Peninsula in Egypt. Britain, France, and Israel were not happy with the interference of the United States in the Suez Crisis, but U.S. efforts led to a peaceful compromise. The incident also was an example of a nation maintaining a non-aligned position between the United States and the Soviet Union—the two superpowers in the Cold War.

Independence and Civil War in Nigeria

The western African country of Nigeria, the most populous state on the continent, gained independence from Britain in 1960. The Biafran Civil War began in 1967 when the Igbos, a Westernized, predominantly Christian tribe in the southeastern oil-rich Niger River Delta area, tried to secede from the northern-dominated

government. The Igbos sought autonomy because of targeted attacks against them by the Hausa-Fulani Islamic group in the north. They declared themselves an independent nation called Biafra.

The Igbos' secession movement failed, and Biafra ceased to exist when the war ended, in 1970. Nigeria granted amnesty to a majority of Igbo generals, but civilian government did not return. A series of military coups with generals in command of the government continued until the 1999 election of Olusegun Obasanjo, who presided over a democratic civilian government called the Fourth Republic of Nigeria.

In an effort to prevent tribalism from destroying the country, the government established a federation of 36 states with borders that cut across ethnic and religious lines. However, friction continued between Christian Yoruba, Igbo groups in the south, and Islamic groups in the northern states. The constitution of Nigeria permitted states to vote for a dual legal system of secular law and shariah. Eleven states voted for this option. In an additional effort to discourage ethnic strife, the constitution encouraged intermarriage among the ethnic groups.

Problems remained in the Niger River Delta, which had rich oil deposits. Citizens complained that the national government exploited oil resources without returning wealth to the region. Also, they contended that the oil companies had polluted their lands and rivers. Militants set fire to oil wells and pipelines in protest.

Canada and the “Silent Revolution” in Quebec

Quebec is the largest of Canada's provinces, and its history is deeply rooted in French culture. France's North American colonial territory in the early 1700s spanned from Quebec to the Gulf of Mexico. By the late 1700s, England controlled what was called New France, beginning a cultural and political divide in Quebec. People in New France were mainly Catholic, while the English-speaking parts of Britain's Canadian colony were mainly Protestant.

The Quebecois historically aligned themselves with France rather than England. Over the centuries, efforts to create a separate independent state have flared up—sometimes with violent results. The **Quiet Revolution** of the 1960s involved much political and social change in Quebec, with the Liberal Party gaining power and reforming economic policies that led to further desires for separation from the rest of British-controlled Canada. French Canadian nationalism expanded, and splinter groups adopted extreme tactics, including terrorist bombings that began in 1963. Canadian Prime Minister Pierre Trudeau, a native of Quebec, was able to preserve the country's unity. Later, in 1995, a referendum to make Quebec an independent nation failed by a narrow margin.

Key Terms by Theme

GOVERNMENT: Leaders

Kwame Nkrumah, Charles de Gaulle, Ho Chi Minh, Gamal Abdel Nasser

GOVERNMENT: Structures

One-party state

GOVERNMENT: Wars, Conflicts, and Compromises

Algerian War for Independence, Algerian Civil War, Suez Crisis, Biafran Civil War, Quiet Revolution

SOCIETY: Pro-Independence Organizations

Muslim League, Organization of African Unity (OAU)

SOCIETY: Military-Political Organizations

Viet Cong

8.6

Topic 8.6: Newly Independent States

Essential Question: What political changes led to territorial, demographic, and nationalist developments and the economic shifts that resulted?

As imperialistic powers handed over governmental control to their former colonies, they often created new states. Between 1945 and 2000, the number of independent states in the world more than doubled, from approximately 75 to around 190. The boundaries of the new states often led to conflicts, population displacement, and resettlement. In India, as lamented by Sri Aurobindo, an Indian nationalist and philosopher, the country was partitioned into Hindu India and Muslim Pakistan. Later, Pakistan divided again, creating Bangladesh. In the Middle East, the newly created Israel displaced Palestinian residents.

Newly independent countries often instituted strong policies to promote economic development. At the same time, migrants from the newly independent countries kept alive cultural and economic ties as they migrated to the colonizing countries, usually to the large cities.

Israel's Founding and Its Relationships with Neighbors

The Zionist movement originated in the 1890s from reaction to the Dreyfus Affair. Theodore Herzl, a Hungarian Jewish intellectual and journalist, used the affair as evidence that assimilation of Jews into European society was failing to provide safety and equal opportunity. At the First Zionist Congress in 1897, he urged the creation of a separate Jewish state.

Birth of Israel

Zionists hoped that the new state could be established in Palestine because that was where their ancestors had lived. In modern times, Palestine was part of the Ottoman Empire, and most of its inhabitants were Arabs who practiced Islam. In a new state, Zionists argued, Jews could be free of persecution. In 1917, during World War I, the British government issued the Balfour Declaration, which favored the establishment in Palestine of a “national home” for the Jewish people. However, British Foreign Secretary Arthur James Balfour wrote that “nothing shall be done which may prejudice the civil and religious rights of existing non-Jewish communities in Palestine.”

The situation was complicated because British officer T. E. Lawrence, known as “Lawrence of Arabia,” promised certain Arabs an independent state as well. The British Foreign Office hoped that Arabs would rise up against the Ottoman Empire, which would make it easier to defeat during World War I. The Balfour Declaration promised civil and religious rights to non-Jews in Palestine, but the supporters of the Arabs did not trust the British.

In 1918, after World War I, Britain was given a mandate over former Ottoman lands in the Middle East. Soon Zionists began to immigrate to Palestine from Europe and from other Middle Eastern areas. As immigration increased, the Arabs in the area protested their loss of land and traditional Islamic way of life.

World War II and the deaths of six million Jews in the Holocaust provided another impetus for Jewish immigration. The fate of the European Jews brought worldwide sympathy for the survivors. Britain, trying to hold the line on Jewish immigration in the face of Arab opposition, turned the matter over to the United Nations. As in India, leaders hoped that partition would bring peace and stability. In 1948, after the UN divided Palestine into Jewish and Arab sections, the Jewish section declared itself to be a new country: Israel.

Multiple Wars

War broke out immediately between Israel, which had support from the United States, and the Palestinians, who had support from neighboring Arab countries. Arab forces from Syria, Jordan (then called Transjordan), Lebanon, and Iraq invaded Israel. After several cease-fires, the Israeli army won, and an armed truce was declared. Immediately after the truce, about 400,000 Palestinians became refugees, living in camps near the Israeli border. Three other Israeli-Palestinian wars followed:

- In 1956, Israel, with support from France and Great Britain, invaded Egypt's Sinai Peninsula, in part to liberate the Suez Canal, which the Egyptian government had nationalized under Gamal Abdel Nasser's economic programs. Following international protests, Israel and its allied forces were ordered to withdraw from Egypt.
- In the Six-Day War of 1967, Israel fought on three fronts at once. Israel gained the Gaza Strip from Egypt, the West Bank and East Jerusalem from Jordan, and the Golan Heights from Syria.
- In the Yom Kippur War of 1973, Israel repelled a surprise invasion by Egypt and Syria.

Israeli-Egyptian Peace

After 30 years of conflict between Israel and its Arab neighbors, U.S. President Jimmy Carter mediated the Camp David Accords, a peace agreement between Prime Minister Menachem Begin of Israel and President Anwar Sadat of Egypt. However, the Palestinians and several Arab states rejected the 1979 peace treaty. The **Palestinian Liberation Organization (PLO)** and its longtime leader Yasser Arafat wanted the return of occupied lands and the creation of an independent nation of Palestine.

Ongoing Violence

In the 21st century, the peace process became more complicated when the Palestinians split into two factions. The **Fatah** faction controlled the West Bank. The **Hamas** faction controlled Gaza. Security concerns led the Israeli government to implement tighter border controls on the West Bank and on Gaza. These controls, amounting to economic sanctions, severely restricted normal activity for hundreds of thousands of Palestinians and fomented anger. Israel further angered Palestinians by approving new settlements on lands it had occupied during previous wars, lands Palestinians considered theirs.

Without a peace process, violence continued. Between 2000 and 2014, over 7,000 Palestinian and over 1,000 Israelis were killed. Many countries in the Middle East remained hostile to the United States over its support of Israel.

Cambodia Gains Independence and Survives Wars

After World War II, Vietnam's neighbor Cambodia pressured France to grant it independence in 1953. Cambodia's royal family continued to head the government and tried to maintain its status as a non-aligned nation during the first two decades of the Cold War. However, Cambodia was eventually drawn into the Vietnam War.

Following the Vietnam War, a communist guerrilla organization called the **Khmer Rouge**, under the leadership of Pol Pot, overthrew the right-wing government of Cambodia. Once in power, Pol Pot and the Khmer Rouge imposed a ruthless form of communism, following the Chinese model of "cultural revolution" that targeted intellectuals and dissenters. The slaughter and famine that followed took more than two million lives—about one-quarter of the country's population. Mass graves of victims from the "killing fields" of Cambodia continued to be discovered in the countryside and jungles for decades afterward.

In 1977, Vietnamese troops invaded Cambodia to support opponents of Pol Pot and the Khmer Rouge. At the end of the ensuing war, the Vietnamese took control of the government in Cambodia and helped the country to

regain some stability, even as some fighting continued and hundreds of thousands of refugees fled the country. In 1989, Vietnamese forces completed their withdrawal from Cambodia. A peace agreement reached in 1991 allowed free elections, monitored by the United Nations. Prince Norodom Sihanouk became a constitutional monarch, and the country developed a democratic government with multiple political parties and aspects of a market economy.

India and Pakistan Become Separate Countries

In 1947, the British divided colonial India into two independent countries: a mostly Hindu India and a mostly Muslim Pakistan. India's population was about 10 times larger than Pakistan's. In both countries, women had the right to vote.

The partition of the colony was chaotic, and violence broke out along religious lines. At least 10 million people moved: Hindus and Sikhs fled their homes in Pakistan to resettle in India, and Muslims fled India for Pakistan. In the political turmoil, between 500,000 and one million people died.

After partition, Pakistani-India distrust grew. While India became the world's largest democracy, Pakistan had both elected leaders and authoritarian military rulers. Moderates in both countries confronted powerful conservative religious movements that opposed compromise with the other country.

Kashmir Conflict

One persistent tension between India and Pakistan was over Kashmir, a border region in the mountainous north. At the time of partition, most people in Kashmir were Muslims, but its leader was a Hindu. Therefore, both Pakistan and India claimed Kashmir. At times the rivalry there broke out into armed conflict. The tension between the two countries became more significant after each began developing nuclear weapons. Eventually, India controlled about 45 percent of the Kashmir region, Pakistan controlled about 35 percent, and China controlled about 20 percent.

Women Gain Power in South Asia

In some newly emerging countries, women became heads of state. Often, they replaced their fathers or husbands. In India and Pakistan, women won the right to vote in 1947.

Sri Lanka

The world's first female prime minister was Sirimavo Bandaranaike. She won that position in 1960 in Ceylon (later Sri Lanka). Her husband was assassinated in office in 1959, and Bandaranaike ran for office to fill his seat. She continued her husband's socialist economic policies. But in 1965, with a sagging economy, she was voted out of office. Five years later, she returned to power and instituted much more radical policies, including land reforms, restrictions on free enterprise, and a new constitution that changed the country's name to Sri Lanka. While some of her reforms succeeded, the economy stalled again, and in 1977, she was again voted out of office.

Bandaranaike remained active in Sri Lankan politics. Her children became leaders as well. When her daughter Chandrika became the country's first female president in 1994, she appointed her mother again to the role of prime minister.

India

In 1966, two years after the death of India's first prime minister, Jawaharlal Nehru, his only child, **Indira Gandhi**, became India's leader. (She was not related to Mohandas Gandhi.) She was underestimated at first but proved to be effective, distancing herself in some ways from her father's old-guard advisors and making political and economic moves to strengthen India's economy. War with Pakistan took a toll on the economy, though India won the conflict with the help of military support from the Soviet Union.

Indira Gandhi became a revered leader in India, though further economic strife would undermine her popularity in the ensuing years. High inflation and growing poverty threatened her rule. She declared a national emergency in 1975 and jailed many opposition leaders. Her 20-point economic program proved successful, alleviating inflation, reforming corrupt laws, and increasing national production. But some of her policies were unpopular with the people of India despite the economic gains. In 1977, Gandhi lost in the elections. She returned to power as prime minister in 1980 but was assassinated in 1984.

Pakistan

Pakistan elected **Benazir Bhutto** prime minister in 1988. Her father had also served as prime minister. She was the first elected female leader of a majority Muslim country. Bhutto struggled to improve Pakistan's economy and reduce its poverty. Corruption charges dogged her and her husband. Bhutto won election to two nonconsecutive terms and then went into exile from 1999 until 2007. Shortly after she returned to Pakistan, an assassin killed her.

Tanzania Modernizes

Tanganyika gained its independence from Britain in 1961, later becoming the United Republic of Tanzania. Its first president, **Julius Nyerere**, instituted African socialist political and economic ideas—summarized in the Arusha Declaration of 1967. It was an egalitarian approach based on cooperative agriculture. Literacy campaigns, free education, and collective farming were key components of what Nyerere called *ujamaa* (Swahili for “familyhood”). He also advanced the country's economic independence away from foreign aid. Economic hardships challenged Nyerere's leadership for years, as did conflicts with Uganda and its leader Idi Amin. Though personally popular, Nyerere could not pull Tanzania out of poverty. He resigned the presidency in 1985 but remained an important social leader until his death in 1999.

Emigration from Newer Countries to Older Ones

People from these newly independent countries sometimes moved to the former colonial powers. For example, large numbers of refugees and immigrants from Pakistan, India, and Bangladesh moved to London after the chaos of World War II and other conflicts. London was a **metropole**—a large city of a former colonial ruler. Similarly, Vietnamese, Algerians, and West Africans migrated to Paris and other cities in France, and Filipinos migrated to the United States. Many migrants found jobs in the medical field. Others worked on railroads, in foundries, and in airports. In this way, economic and cultural ties between the colonial power and newly independent countries remained strong.

Key Terms by Theme

GOVERNMENT: The Middle East

Six-Day War, Yom Kippur War, Camp David Accords, Palestinian Liberation Organization (PLO), Fatah, Hamas

GOVERNMENT: Asia

Khmer Rouge, Kashmir, Sirimavo Bandaranaike, Indira Gandhi, Benazir Bhutto

GOVERNMENT: Africa

Julius Nyerere

ENVIRONMENT: Emigration

Metropole

8.7

Topic 8.7: Global Resistance to Established Power Structures

Essential Question: What were differing reactions to existing power structures after 1900?

The conflicts of the 20th century affected newly independent states and long-established ones. Some of the most successful challenges to existing order, such as the one led by Mohandas Gandhi, used nonviolence. Other movements, such as Shining Path in Peru, used violence against civilians to achieve political results. Some leaders, such as Francisco Franco in Spain, used the military to crush resistance. The military-industrial complex that President Eisenhower warned about took hold in other countries, as governments increased arms supplies and traded weapons with one another.

Nonviolent Resistance as a Path to Change

Despite the frequent wars and violent protests of the 20th century, movements around the world also used nonviolence to bring about political change. Three of these movements were particularly large and effective, in part because of their visionary leaders.

Mohandas Gandhi

Topic 7.5 described how Mohandas Gandhi led nonviolent marches, boycotts, and fasts to oppose British colonial rule in India. In 1947, India became independent.

Martin Luther King Jr.

The most prominent of African American civil rights leaders in the United States in the 1950s and 1960s was a Baptist minister, the Reverend **Martin Luther King Jr.** The civil rights movement used various tactics to achieve its goals:

- Court decisions, such as *Brown v. Board of Education of Topeka, Kansas*, that banned forced racial segregation of schools in the United States
- A year-long boycott of public buses in Montgomery, Alabama (1955–1956), which ended segregation in public transit
- Massive marches, such as the 250,000-person March on Washington for Jobs and Freedom in 1963

These efforts provided the foundation for the movement's biggest successes, such as the Civil Rights Act of 1965.

Nelson Mandela

In South Africa, the white-minority government codified a system of racial segregation, called apartheid, into law in the 20th century. Leading the black resistance to apartheid was a socialist lawyer, **Nelson Mandela** (1918–2013). Though early in his life he sometimes supported sabotage and other forms of violence, he was known for leading nonviolent protests. The victory over apartheid is described in Topic 9.5.

Challenges to Soviet Power in Eastern Europe

In the 1950s and 1960s, reformers in Eastern European satellites of the Soviet Union sought to become less dominated by the Soviets. In most cases, the Soviets clamped down hard against dissent.

Poland

In 1956, Polish workers demonstrated against Soviet domination and demanded better living conditions. As a result, a new secretary of the Polish Communist Party, **Wladyslaw Gomulka**, came to power. He decided to pursue an independent domestic policy in Poland but continued to be loyal to the Soviet Union, allowing the continued presence of Soviet troops in Poland. The Soviet-established forced collectivization of farms ended at this time.

Hungary

In that same year, Hungarian protesters convinced the country's political leader **Imre Nagy** to declare Hungary's freedom from Soviet control and demand the withdrawal of Soviet troops from the country. Nagy vowed to support free elections in which non-Communist parties would participate. He announced Hungary's neutrality in the Cold War and the withdrawal from the Warsaw Pact. Soviet leaders responded by invading Hungary, gaining control of Budapest in 1956. The Soviets captured Nagy and executed him. Many Hungarians fled to the West as refugees.

Czechoslovakia

The reform movement in Czechoslovakia reached a peak in the Prague Spring of 1968. **Alexander Dubček**, first secretary of the Communist Party, acceded to the demands of the Czech people by increasing freedom of speech and the press and allowing greater freedom to travel. He also agreed to make the political system more democratic.

As with Hungary, Soviet leaders feared the Prague Spring's independence. Soon the armies of four Warsaw Pact nations crushed it. In 1968, the Soviet Union used the **Brezhnev Doctrine**, named for then-Soviet leader Leonid Brezhnev, to justify its actions. This doctrine stated that the Soviet Union and its allies would intervene if an action by one member threatened other socialist countries.

1968: The Year of Revolt

Events in Czechoslovakia were just one of many upheavals in 1968:

- In Yugoslavia, students marched against authoritarian government.
- In Poland and Northern Ireland, people protested over religious issues.
- In Brazil, marchers demanded improvements in public education and fairer treatment of workers.
- In Japan, students protested both university financial policies and government support for the United States in the war in Vietnam.

In many countries, protests took place on university campuses. Tensions started building up after World War II, when higher education had opened up for more people in Western society and facilities were crowded. As a result, discontent was high among the student population by the 1960s, resulting in a call for university reforms. Student grievances mounted as civil rights, women's rights, workers' rights, and the war in Vietnam commanded attention.

France

In 1968, the student movement reached epic proportions in Paris, France. Hundreds of thousands of students took to the streets, resulting in violence when police forces moved in. In sympathy, some 10 million French workers went on strike. It was the largest general strike in French history. President Charles de Gaulle called new elections in France and was able to remain in office when his party won.

The United States

In the United States, students and others demonstrated for rights for women and African Americans. However, the largest and most heated protests were against the country's involvement in the war in Vietnam. After members of the Ohio National Guard killed four unarmed students during an antiwar demonstration at Kent State University on May 4, 1970, students and faculty at hundreds of U.S. colleges and universities went on strike.

An Age of Terrorism

In the post-Cold War period, large-scale open conflict between sovereign states was rare. Instead, individuals unaffiliated with any government committed terrorist acts in Western Europe, South America, the Islamic world, and the United States that intimidated and murdered civilians.

Conflict in Northern Ireland

Most of Ireland, the portion dominated by Roman Catholics, gained independence from the United Kingdom in 1922. However, Northern Ireland, which was dominated by Protestants, remained part of the United Kingdom. Northern Ireland Catholics suffered discrimination, and many wanted their region to join the rest of the Irish Republic. Northern Ireland Protestants fiercely refused.

The Catholic-Protestant conflict in Northern Ireland became more violent in the 1960s, with Catholics fighting as part of the **Irish Republican Army (IRA)** and Protestants with the Ulster Defence Association. Between 1969 and 1994, some 3,500 people died in the conflict. Some members of the IRA took their independence campaign to England by engaging in acts of terrorism, the use of violence to achieve political ends. These acts included setting off bombs in London and other cities. In 1994, the two sides reached a cease-fire. Later the IRA renounced violence and turned to politics to achieve its goals.

Separatists in Spain

Another group that used terrorist tactics to advance a political agenda was the **Basque Homeland and Freedom (ETA)** organization, founded in 1959, which wanted independence for the Basque region in northern Spain. ETA actions killed more than 800 people and injured many others. In 1973, members of ETA killed the hand-picked successor to longtime dictator Francisco Franco. Over the years, ETA announced several cease-fires. In 2011 it declared an end to violent actions and promised to work within the political system to achieve Basque independence.

Peru's Shining Path

During the 1970s, former philosophy professor **Abimael Guzmán** built a revolutionary organization called **Shining Path** based on the ideas of Mao Zedong and Cambodia's Khmer Rouge. In 1980, the Shining Path began decades of bombings and assassinations in Peru in order to overthrow the existing government and replace it with a communist one. Shining Path's 20 years of terrorism caused an estimated 37,000 deaths. Guzmán was arrested and sentenced to life in prison in 1992, though the Shining Path continued its attacks through the late 1990s. In 2011 one of the group's top leaders admitted defeat and began negotiations with the Peruvian government.

Islamic Terrorism

Several small groups used a fundamentalist interpretation of Islam, one widely condemned by mainstream Muslims, to justify terrorism. Among these groups were the Boko Haram in West Africa, al-Shabaab in East Africa, the Islamic State of Iraq and the Levant (ISIL) in the Middle East, and the Taliban in Afghanistan. Most

victims were Muslims. Some high-profile attacks occurred in European cities such as Madrid, London, and Paris.

One of the deadliest groups was al-Qaeda. Financed by Saudi billionaire Osama bin Laden, al-Qaeda carried out attacks in many countries, including one in the United States on September 11, 2001. In this attack, terrorists killed themselves and more than 3,000 people when they hijacked and crashed planes in New York City, near Washington, D.C., and in rural Pennsylvania. Most of the world, even bitter foes of the United States such as Iran, rallied to support the United States. Focused efforts by the United States and its allies severely weakened al-Qaeda. Bin Laden was killed in a raid on his home in 2011.

Terrorism in the United States

While the September 11 attack was the deadliest act of terrorism in the United States, it was not the only one. Acts of terrorism in the United States come from different sources and groups, including domestic groups, some of which are associated with white-nationalist or extreme right-wing views. One of the largest of these occurred when two anti-government extremists bombed a federal building in Oklahoma City in 1995, killing 168 people. Other attacks targeted Muslims, Jews, and blacks.

Response of Militarized States

States in which military dictators ran the government tended to respond to internal conflicts in ways that made the conflicts even worse. Spain under Franco and Uganda under Idi Amin are two prominent examples.

The Franco Dictatorship in Spain

The dictator Francisco Franco ruled Spain from 1939 to 1975. He had come to power by overthrowing a popularly elected government that included many leftists. Franco's fervent anti-communism made him an ally of the United States. It also led his government to execute, imprison, or send to labor camps hundreds of thousands of political dissenters. However, opposition to his authoritarianism remained. When Franco died, Spain took the opportunity to move toward democracy.

Intensified Conflict in Uganda under Idi Amin

Few countries in the 1970s suffered as much as Uganda, a small country in eastern Africa ruled from 1971 to 1979 by Idi Amin, a military dictator so brutal he was known as the "Butcher of Uganda." Although he was aligned with Western democracies early on, he was later backed by the Soviet Union and East Germany. He declared himself president for life and set policies that worsened ethnic tensions, denied people basic human rights, and undermined economic stability. Amin was unpredictable. He was for a time the chairman of the Organization of African Unity and even a member of the United Nations Commission on Human Rights. But in 1972 he forcefully expelled 60,000 Asians from Uganda, most of whom were of Indian descent, and turned over their businesses to his supporters. He is believed to be responsible for up to 500,000 deaths among targeted ethnic groups during his reign. When he threatened neighboring Tanzania with attack, Ugandan nationalists joined forces with Tanzanian troops and forced Amin into exile.

The Military-Industrial Complex

Conflicts around the world intensified because of fear and economic pressure. Countries that felt threatened, including the United States and the Soviet Union, built strong militaries to defend themselves. These military forces required large factories to build planes, tanks, and other goods. Since many countries lacked facilities to make their own weapons, the international weapons trade expanded greatly.

As the defense industries expanded, so did the number of people who relied on them for jobs. Cutting back on defense spending, then, became very difficult. In 1961, U.S. President Dwight Eisenhower, a highly decorated general in World War II, called this combination of government defense departments and private businesses supplying their demands the **military-industrial complex**. He warned that it could grow powerful enough to threaten the country's democracy.

Key Terms by Theme

GOVERNMENT: Europe

Wladyslaw Gomulka, Imre Nagy, Prague Spring, Alexander Dubček, Brezhnev Doctrine, Irish Republican Army (IRA), Ulster Defence Association, Basque Homeland and Freedom (ETA)

GOVERNMENT: South America

Abimael Guzmán, Shining Path

SOCIETY: Protests

Martin Luther King Jr., Nelson Mandela, Kent State University

Topic 8.8: End of the Cold War

Essential Question: What caused the end of the Cold War?

Power structures continued to change in the 1980s and 1990s. President Ronald Reagan's appeal to Soviet leader Mikhail Gorbachev came two years before the Berlin Wall fell in 1989. Two years after the fall, a coup ousted Gorbachev from power. The Soviet Union collapsed and the Cold War was over. The U.S.-Soviet Union rivalry that had dominated the world stage for nearly five decades ended. Governments in only a few countries, such as China, North Korea, Cuba, and Vietnam, still called themselves communists. Political alliances changed, and economic interactions among nations expanded.

The Final Decades of the Cold War Era

Despite the persistent mistrust between the two countries, diplomatic relations between the United States and the Soviet Union were maintained—albeit inconsistently at times—during the last decades of the conflict. Proxy wars and support of opposing sides in international conflicts remained standard for both nations. These conflicts reinforced the fundamental disagreement between the capitalist United States and the communist Soviet Union. Agreements between the superpowers to limit nuclear weapons played a key role in ending the Cold War. However, the path to a thaw was not always steady.

Détente and a Colder War

After resolving the crises of the 1960s, which included the Bay of Pigs and the Cuban Missile Crisis, the relationship between the superpowers improved in the following decade. This period of time was called **détente**, a relaxation of strained relations between nations.

One symbol of détente was the visit of President Richard Nixon to the Soviet Union in 1972. Nixon and Soviet leader Leonid Brezhnev signed the **Strategic Arms Limitation Treaty (SALT)**, designed to freeze the number of intercontinental ballistic missiles that each power could keep. To play one power against the other, Nixon also visited China that year. It was the first visit by an American president in the existence of communist China.

Détente served both the U.S. and Soviet needs at the time. The Soviet Union faced challenges during the late 1960s and the 1970s.

- Economically, the USSR was in a crisis. It was no longer growing. Central governmental controls prevented farmers and manufacturers from deciding what to grow or make and what to charge for it. Foreign trade was extremely limited.
- Eastern European Soviet bloc countries were bucking for reforms and freedom from Moscow's direct control. The Soviet military violently put down the Prague Spring, a liberation movement in Czechoslovakia.
- Russia faced skirmishes with China along their shared border—a reflection of the troubled relationship between the two communist countries.

The United States also faced difficulties. President Nixon was mired in the Vietnam War, a costly and unpopular conflict. The American economy was suffering as well. The possibility of establishing relations with China would, Nixon knew, open potential new markets to the United States and at the same time press a bit on the strained Soviet-Chinese relationship. Détente could help the United States maintain its containment policy and might ease tensions between the superpowers.

As a result of détente, the United States started to sell excess stores of American grain to the Soviet Union, where drought had created a shortage. This benefitted American farmers, who now had access to a new, large market for goods, and the struggling people of the Soviet Union. However, after the Soviets invaded Afghanistan in 1979, U.S. President Jimmy Carter halted the grain shipments. This action marked the end of détente.

Soviet-Afghan War

The Soviets invaded Afghanistan to prop up that country's communist government against Muslim fighters. Estimates of Afghan civilian deaths vary from 562,000 to two million. Millions of Afghans fled to Pakistan and Iran, and many within the country became homeless. Ultimately, the Soviet army could not conquer the guerrilla groups in the rough terrain of Afghanistan. Soviet legitimacy was undermined and new forms of political participation in Afghanistan developed. As the Soviet Army withdrew in 1989, a civil war continued in Afghanistan. While the collapse of the Soviet Union would not occur until 12 years after the Afghan War began, the war put immense stress on the Soviet Union's centralized economic system and left Soviet leadership vulnerable to reform.

Reagan and Gorbachev

During the presidency of Ronald Reagan (1981–1989), tensions between the Americans and the Soviets increased even further. Reagan referred to the Soviet Union as the “evil empire” and sent military aid, including weapons, to support the Afghans. The Soviet Union resented this overtly militaristic move.

In addition, by the early 1980s, the United States and the Soviet Union had more than 12,000 nuclear missiles, each one pointed at the other side. Not only would the superpowers destroy each other with a nuclear exchange, but the rest of the world would also be destroyed—seven times over.

In light of this growing tension, Reagan declared that the United States would create a missile defense program he called the **Strategic Defense Initiative**, or **SDI**. Dubbed “Star Wars” (after the internationally popular 1977 film) by critics, the system would supposedly destroy any Soviet nuclear missiles that targeted the United States or its allies. Lacking such a system, the Soviets would be unable to keep U.S. missiles from hitting targets in the Soviet Union. The Soviets saw this move as the beginning of an arms race in space. While it was not an immediate threat that required a quick response, it worried liberal and moderate Soviets who wanted reforms. They saw it as a long-term economic concern and one that strengthened the hand of Soviet conservatives. The Soviets objected loudly to Reagan's plan.

The Thaw

The increase in tensions during the 1980s led to other nations believing that they must choose sides between the superpowers. Non-aligned nations hoped they would not experience a nuclear holocaust that the two nations caused.

In this tense atmosphere, Mikhail Gorbachev, a more progressive Communist than previous Soviet leaders, came to power in 1985. He favored **perestroika**, attempts to restructure the Soviet economy to allow elements of free enterprise, and **glasnost**, the policy of opening up Soviet society and the political process by granting greater freedom. Reagan and Gorbachev met three times in two years. The two men liked each other and, despite tough negotiations, created a working relationship that ultimately delivered results.

In 1987, the Soviet Union and the United States agreed on a new nuclear arms treaty. The **Intermediate-Range Nuclear Forces Treaty (INF)** restricted intermediate-range nuclear weapons. Around the world, people could breathe a cautious sigh of relief as the world's two superpowers reduced the risk of nuclear

war. The INF and other U.S.-Soviet agreements quieted some of the more bellicose Cold War supporters in both countries. With less pressure from Soviet conservatives, Gorbachev could more easily implement political and economic reforms in the Soviet Union.

The End of the Soviet Union

One aspect of Gorbachev's reform program was an end to economic support for the Soviet satellites in Eastern Europe. He also implied that the Soviet Army would no longer come to the rescue of communist regimes in Eastern Europe. In effect, economic reform in the Soviet Union provided greater freedom to other communist countries. Once people in these countries got a small taste of freedom, they wanted more. As a result, democratic reform movements swept through Eastern European nations in 1989. The Berlin Wall was torn down. In October 1990, East and West Germany reunited as one country.

The Spread of Reforms

With most of the Eastern European nations caught up in democratic reforms, it was not long before the Soviet Union was also swept into the movement. Lithuania, Georgia, and other Soviet republics began to overthrow their rulers and declare independence. The Warsaw Pact dissolved. Gorbachev's reforms ultimately led to his political downfall and the end of the Soviet Union in December 1991. Among the former Soviet republics that became independent countries, Russia emerged as the strongest. The Cold War had ended.

New Challenges

The decline of a superpower presented opportunities and several challenges. Political alliances changed, and economic interactions among nations expanded. With this new openness, particularly with regard to trade, the world became more interconnected than ever before. This interconnectedness produced greater wealth for some but hardships for others. The post-Cold War world had to grapple with new democracies, vast economic inequality, ethnic conflict and genocide, terrorism, environmental degradation, and global epidemics.

Key Terms by Theme

GOVERNMENT: Global

Ronald Reagan, Mikhail Gorbachev, détente, Strategic Arms Limitation Treaty (SALT), perestroika, glasnost, Intermediate-Range Nuclear Forces Treaty (INF)

TECHNOLOGY: Military

Strategic Defense Initiative (SDI)

Topic 8.9: Causation in the Age of the Cold War and Decolonization

Essential Question: Why and to what extent were the effects of the Cold War similar in the Eastern and Western Hemispheres?

The end of World War II marked the beginning of a new world order as the nations of Western Europe no longer dominated the world stage. The United States and the Soviet Union took over as the superpowers. In Western Europe, however, countries were free from domination by a superpower and retained their political independence and democratic governments. The Marshall Plan had helped them rebuild and achieve a level of economic prosperity that was unknown among the countries of Eastern Europe.

However, during this time, Western European colonial empires began to crumble as anti-imperialist sentiment fueled independence movements in Africa and Asia. Resentment of European and American economic imperialism also rose in Latin American countries, leading to revolutionary movements that aimed to overturn the political and social status quo in these countries. The United States and the Soviet Union regularly supported opposing sides in these clashes, projecting their own differences onto regional conflicts.

The Cold War also influenced economic, social, and cultural aspects of global events, providing further evidence that this conflict had far-reaching effects that affected the latter half of the 20th century.

Challenges to Existing Social Orders

The years following World War II were a time of unprecedented conflict as people and states challenged the established order. How they carried out their challenges, how the existing powers responded, and how the challenges were (or were not) resolved depended in part on the position of the challenging people or states in the geopolitical balance of power.

Toward the end of World War II, a serious ideological and economic rift emerged among the “Big Three” Allied powers—the Soviet Union, the United States, and Great Britain. The United States and Great Britain, along with France (which had recently been liberated from German occupation), occupied the western half of Germany. The Soviets occupied the eastern half. Agreements made at Yalta and Potsdam were supposed to have settled the future status of Western and Eastern European countries affected by the war. However, after the war officially ended, it became apparent that the Soviet Union was not going to relinquish control over the Eastern European territories it occupied during the war. The Soviets viewed these states as a buffer against future aggression from the West. Even though the countries of Eastern Europe were officially independent, the Soviet Union had immense influence over their governments and internal affairs. The so-called Soviet bloc was made up of East Germany and these satellite nations of the USSR. The United States distrusted the motives of the Soviet Union and believed the Soviets were intent on bringing about a global communist revolution.

After China became a communist state in 1949 and the United States recognized it could not free Eastern Europe from Soviet influence, the United States established a policy of containment. The policy used military, economic, and political means to stop the spread of communism outside of the areas where it was currently practiced. Containment drove the direction of U.S. foreign policy throughout the Cold War.

Three Alignments

The Cold War thus caused a division of the world into three alignments. The “First World” was the United States and its allies. The “Second World” was the Soviet Union, the Soviet bloc countries of Eastern Europe, and other communist nations around the world. The third alignment was often called the “Third World” but was

more accurately described as the non-aligned countries that did not have close military or ideological ties with any of the First or Second World countries.

Superpower Rivalries

One result of the superpower rivalry was the division of Europe. The western portion had, for the most part, democratic and free-market societies, while the eastern portion was autocratic and communist. The dividing line ran through Germany, which was divided into the two independent countries of West and East Germany. The capital city of Berlin was similarly divided. The Iron Curtain, as it was termed, reflected the Western democratic view that the Soviet-bloc countries were a threat to the individual freedoms and liberty of the people living on both sides of the border. The Soviets believed, based on their historical perspective, that the Western democracies were intent on invading the Soviet Union. Mistrust on both sides led to a nuclear arms race that was an existential threat to Europe and the world.

The Arms Race

The United States developed an atomic bomb at the end of World War II. It used the bomb to end the conflict with Japan by dropping two of them—one on the city of Hiroshima and the other on Nagasaki. The devastation to the two cities shocked the world. The Soviet Union soon developed its own nuclear weapon, and the nuclear arms race was on. The number of nuclear weapons and the means to use them increased for both states. Relations between the superpowers grew tense, and the fear in Europe, and elsewhere, was that any provocation could lead to nuclear annihilation. Both the United States and the Soviet Union took defensive actions that resulted in Europe becoming what was effectively an armed camp with millions of troops and weapons, both conventional and nuclear, facing off against each other.

During this time, two international military alliances formed. The United States and its allies formed the **North Atlantic Treaty Organization (NATO)**. The Soviet Union and its allies created the Warsaw Pact. Both groups sought to ensure collective security through military cooperation. Part of the “cold” factor in the Cold War is that there never was direct, “hot” military conflict between the two superpowers. But the brinkmanship and proxy battles that characterized this war put most people on Earth on edge whenever the United States and the Soviets appeared poised to launch a nuclear attack.

Hopes for Greater Self-Government

The high point of empires and colonization was World War I. The British, the French, and other Europeans had colonized almost all of Africa, India, and Southeast Asia, and they dominated China. The Turkish Ottoman Empire controlled the Middle East. But the desire for self-government that had fueled colonial rebellions throughout the Americas in the 18th and 19th centuries as well as national independence movements in Europe in the 19th century spread throughout the world in the 20th century. The two world wars crystallized the opposition to the empires. Although most hopes for independence remained unfulfilled after World War I, the war did result in the breakup of two large multiethnic empires, Austria-Hungary and Ottoman Turkey.

World War II, however, accelerated the dismantling of global colonial empires. Between the end of World War II in 1945 and the year 2000, the number of independent states more than doubled, going from around 75 to around 190.

As the Cold War established new alignments among both newer and established states, it extended far beyond its ideological roots and exerted political, economic, social, and cultural influence on nearly all parts of the globe.

Comparing Political Effects of the Cold War

The Cold War affected the Eastern and Western Hemispheres in similar ways, since each was dominated by a superpower and also had former colonies and emerging new nations. However, most countries in the Western Hemisphere had become independent long before the Cold War. The Eastern Hemisphere paid an especially heavy price as a result of the Cold War, since several key proxy conflicts were located in Asia and Africa. Nonetheless, rivalries between the superpowers played out in both hemispheres.

Many transitions to independence were largely peaceful and nonviolent; others involved open armed rebellions. In some cases, these insurgent movements were led by communist groups and supported by the Soviet Union, such as in Vietnam and Angola. As a result, the United States would either support the colonial power against the communist insurgency or would support opposition groups that would establish a non-communist government. Often these Western-backed governments proved to be unpopular with the majority of the people, which only heightened anti-imperialist feelings.

Political Effects in Asia

The Cold War brought armed conflict and played a part in internal revolts and crises in some countries of Asia. The U.S. policy of containment led to wars in Korea and Vietnam. Communist revolutions overtook Cambodia and Laos. The Soviets invaded Afghanistan to prop up the communist government in that country. Anti-communist crackdowns occurred in Indonesia and the Philippines. Communist China had a falling-out with the Soviet Union and began to seek better relations with the United States.

Political Effects in Africa

As with Asia, the Cold War brought conflict and turmoil to Africa. Communist insurrections supported by the Soviet Union were often met by government resistance supported with arms supplied by the United States. Communist governments came to power in Ethiopia and Angola. In the case of Angola's war for independence from Portugal, the Soviet Union and the United States fought a proxy war. The Soviets supported the use of Cuban soldiers and provided arms and military training to help establish a communist-style government in the country. The United States provided arms and supported anti-communist groups.

Political Effects in the Western Hemisphere

Latin America also experienced the results of the Cold War conflict between the superpowers. Communist revolutions were successful in Cuba and Nicaragua. Communist insurrections, sometimes backed by the Soviet Union or Cuba, occurred in El Salvador, Colombia, Peru, and Guatemala. The United States would support the government in power—often a dictatorship made up of military officers or right-wing politicians—to try to stop the spread of communism.

Comparing Economic Effects of the Cold War

The Cold War divided Europe in economics as well as politics. The Western countries, aided by the United States' Marshall Plan, rebuilt their economies after the destruction of World War II with a mixture of free-market principles and state-sponsored economic development. The Eastern bloc nations struggled in a transition away from communism to free-market economies. Developing countries—those in the "Third World"—faced unique challenges.

State Response to Economic Challenges in the West

To promote economic security, many Western European governments created public health systems, built public housing, provided unemployment insurance, and developed state-backed pension plans. The creation of the welfare state, as it became known, was to counteract the attraction of the communist system that promised to provide many of these benefits. As a result, the Western European nations' economies boomed while the Eastern European economies, under a communist system, struggled to recover from the costs and effects of the war.

State Response to Economic Challenges in the Eastern Bloc

The Soviet government quickly transitioned its economy after the war to peacetime endeavors. Yet the military-industrial complex was so large in the Soviet Union that it employed about 20 percent of the workers, many of whom became unemployed during the transition. The Soviet-bloc countries faced a serious economic crisis as the government instituted economic reforms to encourage free-market practices and move away from a state-controlled economy.

However, moving from a state-controlled to a free-market economy proved to be an extremely complex endeavor. Debates swirled about whether to institute reforms gradually or all at once, and party officials resisted the loss of their control over the economy. In the end, reformers have succeeded in removing state controls over prices, and formerly state-owned businesses have been privatized. After a period of decline, the Russian economy is improving.

China made a more gradual transition to a free-market economy and has become a global economic powerhouse.

State Response to Economic Challenges in Developing Countries

Many former colonies still had close economic ties to the countries that had colonized them and remained dependent on the extraction and exporting of natural resources. The perspective of many people in the former colonies was that the industrial countries were using this relationship to exploit and undermine the economies of these developing countries. Getting control of their resources was a top priority of developing nations. Oil-rich Angola, for example, left in disarray after years of civil war, has a government-controlled oil conglomerate that accounts for about 70 percent of government revenue and has helped the nation rebuild and update infrastructure.

Comparing Social and Cultural Effects

The tension and turmoil of the Cold War era created social effects for all sides involved. For example, the proxy wars cost millions of people their lives, especially in Southeast Asia. In the Vietnam war alone, two million soldiers and two million civilians died over 20 years of conflict. Bombs destroyed villages, and chemical defoliants killed anything growing on farmlands. Families were separated and displaced. Many rural villagers left for the city, where they thought they could find safety. Saigon, the capital city, tripled in size as refugees from the countryside flooded in. Most of the fighting took place in South Vietnam, so it sustained the most damage, but North Vietnam was also bombed—especially such infrastructure as railroads and highways.

Social Tensions

The Cold War created suspicions as well. Americans were afraid of communist infiltration, and some people's careers were ruined when they were unjustly accused of being communists. In the Soviet Union, people were afraid to express their beliefs openly if they disagreed with the government. They knew they could be sent away to a political prison camp. People everywhere lived under the threat of a nuclear attack. Some people built bomb shelters where they hoped they could safely weather an atomic attack.

Cultural Effects

With greater personal freedom, and with help from the United States, Western Europeans experienced a cultural rebirth after World War II. Scientific research, music, art, and architecture flourished. Eastern Europe, in contrast, lacked freedom of expression. Because of the Cold War, governments actively blocked the spread of Western culture. The people of Eastern Europe did not see much in the way of cultural achievements beyond those that were government-sponsored or approved.

During the Cold War, many people from former colonies moved to the metropole, furthering the blending of cultures. At the same time, the imperial powers left a legacy of culture in their former colonies, including the languages spoken.

In places where a Cold War superpower had maintained order, such as Afghanistan and Yugoslavia, violent culture clashes occurred when the superpower retreated. In Yugoslavia, for example, which had been stitched together and annexed to Serbia after World War I, ethnic tensions flared as Serbia's ultra-nationalist president, Slobodan Milosevic, pitted one group against another to strengthen his own position after the fall of the Soviet Union left a power vacuum. Wars in the region took tens of thousands of lives and created hundreds of thousands of refugees.

Development of Global Institutions

The end of the Cold War and the growth of globalization has reset the geopolitical framework. The idea of a balance of power has yielded to a more cooperative approach as countries recognize global interdependence. To further cooperation, global organizations such as the United Nations and the World Trade Organization have been established. Others address such transnational issues as environmental degradation and global warming, human rights, and epidemic diseases.

Unit 9

AP World History Modern: Unit 9 Exam

Globalization (c. 1900 – Present)

This exam contains one stimulus-based multiple-choice question set for each of the 9 topics in Unit 9. Seven sets use written stimuli, and two use visual stimuli (with descriptions and source links). Each set includes 4 questions with the correct answer and a brief explanation.

Topic 9.1: Advances in Technology and Exchange after 1900 (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from a 1990s analysis of globalization:

“The development of container shipping, jet aircraft, and the internet has dramatically reduced the cost and time of moving goods, people, and information across the globe. A single container ship can carry thousands of tons of cargo that once required dozens of smaller vessels. These innovations have made truly global supply chains possible.”

Source: Adapted from Thomas Friedman, *The World Is Flat* (2005) and similar analyses of late 20th-century globalization.

Questions

- Based on the passage, which technological development most directly facilitated the growth of global supply chains after 1950? (A) The invention of the steam engine (B) Container shipping and jet aircraft (C) The development of the telegraph (D) The expansion of canal systems **Correct Answer: (B) Container shipping and jet aircraft** *Explanation:* The passage highlights how container ships and jet aircraft drastically lowered transportation costs and time, enabling complex global supply chains.
 - The reduction in the “cost and time of moving goods, people, and information” most directly contributed to which economic change? (A) The decline of all international trade (B) The rise of transnational corporations and global production networks (C) The return to localized, self-sufficient economies (D) The elimination of all trade barriers **Correct Answer: (B) The rise of transnational corporations and global production networks** *Explanation:* Lower transportation costs allowed companies to locate different stages of production in multiple countries, creating global supply chains.
 - Which earlier historical development is most similar to the technological changes described in the passage? (A) The development of the Silk Roads in the classical era (B) The Columbian Exchange after 1492 (C) The Industrial Revolution’s impact on domestic production only (D) The decline of maritime trade in the 18th century **Correct Answer: (B) The Columbian Exchange after 1492** *Explanation:* Both represent periods when new technologies dramatically increased the speed and volume of global exchange of goods and ideas.
 - Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of these technological advances during the period c. 1900–present? (A) They helped create a highly interconnected global economy while also increasing economic interdependence and vulnerability to disruptions (B) They led to the complete isolation of national economies (C) They had no effect on the movement of people or culture (D) They reversed all previous trends toward globalization **Correct Answer: (A) They helped create a highly interconnected global economy while also increasing economic interdependence and vulnerability to disruptions** *Explanation:* Technologies like container shipping and the internet made globalization faster and deeper but also created new risks, such as supply chain disruptions.
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Topic 9.2: Technological Advances and Limitations after 1900 (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from a 2010s critique of digital technology:

“While the internet has connected billions of people, it has also created new forms of inequality. Those without reliable access to high-speed internet or digital devices are increasingly left behind in education, employment, and civic participation. The digital divide has become one of the defining inequalities of the twenty-first century.”

Source: Adapted from various UNDP and World Bank reports on the digital divide (2010s–2020s).

Questions

1. Based on the passage, which limitation of technological advancement is most clearly highlighted? (A) Technology has eliminated all forms of inequality (B) Unequal access to technology has created new social and economic divisions (C) The internet has only benefited wealthy nations (D) Technological progress has slowed dramatically since 2000 **Correct Answer: (B) Unequal access to technology has created new social and economic divisions** *Explanation:* The passage focuses on the “digital divide” as a new source of inequality between those with and without access to technology.
 2. The “digital divide” described in the passage most directly parallels which earlier historical pattern? (A) The equal distribution of industrial technology during the early Industrial Revolution (B) The uneven spread of industrialization between industrialized and non-industrialized regions in the 19th century (C) The complete rejection of all new technologies by developing societies (D) The immediate global equality created by the printing press **Correct Answer: (B) The uneven spread of industrialization between industrialized and non-industrialized regions in the 19th century** *Explanation:* Just as industrialization created a gap between industrialized and non-industrialized regions, digital technology has created a new divide between the digitally connected and unconnected.
 3. Which group has most likely benefited the least from the technological advances described in the passage? (A) Urban professionals in wealthy countries (B) Rural populations in developing countries with limited infrastructure (C) Multinational corporations (D) University students in major cities **Correct Answer: (B) Rural populations in developing countries with limited infrastructure** *Explanation:* The passage emphasizes lack of access to high-speed internet and devices, which disproportionately affects rural and poorer populations.
 4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of technological limitations in the age of globalization? (A) They have created new forms of inequality even as technology has connected much of the world (B) They have completely halted the process of globalization (C) They have only affected wealthy nations (D) They have led to the rejection of all digital technology worldwide **Correct Answer: (A) They have created new forms of inequality even as technology has connected much of the world** *Explanation:* The passage shows that while globalization and technology have advanced, they have also produced new divides.
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Topic 9.3: Global Culture (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from a 2000s analysis of cultural globalization:

“Hollywood films, American television shows, and global music platforms now reach audiences in nearly every country. At the same time, local artists and filmmakers increasingly incorporate global styles while maintaining distinct cultural elements. The result is neither complete cultural homogenization nor total isolation, but a complex process of cultural mixing and adaptation.”

Source: Adapted from analyses of cultural globalization in works such as *Globalization and Culture* by John Tomlinson.

Questions

1. Based on the passage, the spread of American media most directly represents which aspect of cultural globalization? (A) Complete cultural isolation of nations (B) The global influence of Western (particularly American) popular culture (C) The rejection of all foreign cultural products (D) The decline of all forms of mass media **Correct Answer: (B) The global influence of Western (particularly American) popular culture** *Explanation:* The passage highlights the worldwide reach of Hollywood and American television as a key feature of cultural globalization.
 2. The description of local artists “incorporating global styles while maintaining distinct cultural elements” best illustrates which process? (A) Complete cultural homogenization (B) Cultural hybridization or glocalization (C) The total rejection of global influences (D) The decline of all local traditions **Correct Answer: (B) Cultural hybridization or glocalization** *Explanation:* The mixing of global and local elements is often called cultural hybridization or glocalization.
 3. Which earlier historical process is most similar to the cultural changes described in the passage? (A) The spread of Buddhism along the Silk Roads (B) The Columbian Exchange of crops and diseases (C) The isolationist policies of Tokugawa Japan (D) The decline of trade during the early Middle Ages **Correct Answer: (A) The spread of Buddhism along the Silk Roads** *Explanation:* Both involve the movement of ideas and cultural practices across regions, leading to adaptation and blending rather than simple replacement.
 4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of cultural globalization during the period c. 1900–present? (A) It has created both greater cultural interconnectedness and ongoing debates about cultural identity, homogenization, and resistance (B) It has led to the complete disappearance of all distinct local cultures (C) It has had no effect on popular culture or media (D) It has reversed all previous cultural exchanges in history **Correct Answer: (A) It has created both greater cultural interconnectedness and ongoing debates about cultural identity, homogenization, and resistance** *Explanation:* The passage shows both the spread of global culture and the persistence/adaptation of local elements, reflecting ongoing tensions.
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Topic 9.4: Resistance to Globalization (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from a 1999 statement by anti-globalization activists:

“We reject the idea that globalization is inevitable or beneficial for all. Multinational corporations and international financial institutions have concentrated wealth and power in the hands of a few while increasing poverty, environmental destruction, and cultural homogenization. We demand that people, not corporations, control their own economies and cultures.”

Source: Adapted from statements by the anti-globalization movement during the 1999 WTO protests in Seattle and similar movements.

Questions

1. Based on the passage, the primary criticism of globalization by these activists is that it has (A) reduced poverty and inequality worldwide (B) concentrated wealth and power while harming the environment and local cultures (C) strengthened democratic control over economies (D) eliminated all forms of

cultural exchange **Correct Answer: (B) concentrated wealth and power while harming the**

environment and local cultures *Explanation:* The statement explicitly criticizes the concentration of power, environmental damage, and cultural homogenization caused by globalization.

2. The activists' demand that "people, not corporations, control their own economies" most directly reflects which form of resistance to globalization? (A) Complete acceptance of free-market policies (B) Calls for greater democratic control and protection of local economies and cultures (C) The rejection of all international cooperation (D) Support for increased corporate power **Correct Answer: (B) Calls for greater democratic control and protection of local economies and cultures** *Explanation:* The statement prioritizes people over corporations and emphasizes local control, a common theme in anti-globalization movements.
 3. Which earlier historical movement most closely resembles the resistance described in the passage? (A) The Luddite movement against industrialization in early 19th-century Britain (B) The expansion of European colonial empires (C) The growth of multinational corporations in the late 20th century (D) The spread of the internet **Correct Answer: (A) The Luddite movement against industrialization in early 19th-century Britain** *Explanation:* Both represent resistance to rapid economic and technological changes perceived as harmful to workers and local communities.
 4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of resistance movements to globalization during the period c. 1900–present? (A) They have challenged the dominant narrative of globalization as universally beneficial and forced debates about inequality, democracy, and sustainability (B) They have completely halted the process of globalization (C) They have only occurred in wealthy nations (D) They have had no influence on international institutions **Correct Answer: (A) They have challenged the dominant narrative of globalization as universally beneficial and forced debates about inequality, democracy, and sustainability** *Explanation:* Anti-globalization movements have influenced public discourse and sometimes policy regarding trade, labor, and the environment.
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Topic 9.5: Institutions Developing in a Globalized World (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from the United Nations Charter (1945):

"We the peoples of the United Nations determined to save succeeding generations from the scourge of war... and to reaffirm faith in fundamental human rights... have resolved to combine our efforts to accomplish these aims."

Source: Charter of the United Nations, 1945.

Questions

1. Based on the passage, the United Nations was primarily created to (A) promote free trade and economic competition (B) prevent future wars and promote international cooperation and human rights (C) support the expansion of colonial empires (D) replace all national governments with a world government **Correct Answer: (B) prevent future wars and promote international cooperation and human rights** *Explanation:* The Charter explicitly states goals of preventing war, reaffirming human rights, and combining efforts for peace.
2. The creation of institutions like the United Nations after 1945 most directly reflects which response to the crises of the early 20th century? (A) A return to complete national isolationism (B) An attempt to build international cooperation to address global problems (C) The rejection of all forms of international organization (D) The strengthening of European colonial empires **Correct Answer: (B) An attempt to**

build international cooperation to address global problems *Explanation:* The UN was created in response to the failures of the League of Nations and the devastation of two world wars.

3. Which later institution most closely follows the model of international cooperation described in the passage? (A) The World Trade Organization (WTO) (B) The North Atlantic Treaty Organization (NATO) (C) The European Union (EU) (D) All of the above **Correct Answer: (D) All of the above** *Explanation:* The WTO, NATO, and EU are all post-1945 institutions designed to manage global or regional cooperation in trade, security, and economics.
 4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader impact of global institutions like the United Nations during the period c. 1900–present? (A) They have provided forums for international cooperation on issues such as peace, human rights, trade, and development, though with varying degrees of effectiveness (B) They have completely eliminated all international conflict (C) They have had no influence on global governance (D) They have only served the interests of wealthy nations **Correct Answer: (A) They have provided forums for international cooperation on issues such as peace, human rights, trade, and development, though with varying degrees of effectiveness** *Explanation:* Institutions like the UN have played important roles but have also faced criticism regarding effectiveness and power imbalances.
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Topic 9.6: Economic Globalization (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from a 1990s World Bank report:

“Structural adjustment programs have helped many developing countries reduce inflation, open their economies to trade, and attract foreign investment. However, these reforms have also led to cuts in government spending on health, education, and social services, increasing hardship for the poorest populations in the short term.”

Source: Adapted from World Bank reports on structural adjustment programs in the 1980s–1990s.

Questions

1. Based on the passage, structural adjustment programs were primarily designed to (A) increase government spending on social services (B) promote market-oriented reforms, trade liberalization, and reduced government spending (C) protect local industries from foreign competition (D) increase tariffs and close economies to foreign investment **Correct Answer: (B) promote market-oriented reforms, trade liberalization, and reduced government spending** *Explanation:* The passage mentions reducing inflation, opening economies to trade, and attracting foreign investment — classic elements of structural adjustment.
2. The passage’s reference to cuts in “health, education, and social services” highlights which criticism of economic globalization policies? (A) They have only benefited wealthy nations (B) They have often increased short-term hardship for vulnerable populations in developing countries (C) They have eliminated all poverty worldwide (D) They have strengthened government welfare programs **Correct Answer: (B) They have often increased short-term hardship for vulnerable populations in developing countries** *Explanation:* The report acknowledges that reforms led to cuts in social spending, harming the poor in the short term.
3. Which international institutions were most closely associated with implementing the policies described in the passage? (A) The United Nations and the World Health Organization (B) The International Monetary Fund (IMF) and the World Bank (C) The North Atlantic Treaty Organization (NATO) (D) The Association of Southeast Asian Nations (ASEAN) **Correct Answer: (B) The International Monetary**

Fund (IMF) and the World Bank *Explanation:* The IMF and World Bank were the primary institutions promoting structural adjustment programs in developing countries during the 1980s and 1990s.

4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader debate surrounding economic globalization policies during the period c. 1900–present? (A) They have generated significant economic growth in some countries while also increasing inequality and sparking debates about fairness and sustainability (B) They have been universally accepted with no criticism (C) They have only affected wealthy nations (D) They have eliminated all forms of poverty **Correct Answer: (A) They have generated significant economic growth in some countries while also increasing inequality and sparking debates about fairness and sustainability** *Explanation:* Structural adjustment and neoliberal policies produced mixed results, leading to ongoing debates about globalization’s benefits and costs.
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Topic 9.7: Environmental Consequences of Globalization (Visual Stimulus)

Visual Description: A graph titled “Global Carbon Dioxide Emissions, 1900–2020” showing a dramatic upward curve. Emissions were relatively low and stable from 1900 to 1950, then rose sharply after 1950, with the steepest increase occurring after 1990. The graph includes annotations noting the role of industrialization, increased global trade and transportation, and rising energy consumption in developing economies.

Source: Adapted from data by the Global Carbon Project and Our World in Data.

Link to a Similar Resource: [Global CO₂ Emissions Graph – Our World in Data](#)

Questions

- Based on the graph, global carbon dioxide emissions increased most dramatically during which period? (A) 1900–1950 (B) After 1950, with particularly sharp growth after 1990 (C) 1800–1900 (D) Before 1900 **Correct Answer: (B) After 1950, with particularly sharp growth after 1990** *Explanation:* The graph shows a relatively flat line until mid-century, followed by steep increases, especially in recent decades.
- The sharp rise in emissions after 1950 most directly correlates with which development in globalization? (A) The decline of global trade (B) Rapid industrialization, increased global trade and transportation, and rising energy use (C) The end of the Cold War (D) Decreased global population **Correct Answer: (B) Rapid industrialization, increased global trade and transportation, and rising energy use** *Explanation:* The annotations and timing align with post-World War II economic growth, globalization of production, and increased fossil fuel consumption.
- Which region has likely contributed most significantly to the post-1990 increase in emissions, according to the graph’s context? (A) Western Europe only (B) Rapidly industrializing developing economies, particularly in Asia (C) North America exclusively (D) Sub-Saharan Africa **Correct Answer: (B) Rapidly industrializing developing economies, particularly in Asia** *Explanation:* The graph’s context of rising emissions in recent decades aligns with industrialization in countries like China and India.
- Which of the following best illustrates the broader environmental impact of globalization during the period c. 1900–present? (A) It has accelerated environmental degradation, particularly climate change, while also prompting new forms of global environmental cooperation (B) It has had no effect on the environment (C) It has only improved environmental conditions worldwide (D) It has reversed all previous environmental damage **Correct Answer: (A) It has accelerated environmental degradation, particularly climate change, while also prompting new forms of global environmental cooperation** *Explanation:* The graph shows rising emissions, a key environmental consequence of globalization, while international agreements (e.g., Paris Agreement) represent cooperative responses.

Topic 9.8: Causation in the Age of Globalization (Written Stimulus)

Excerpt from a historical analysis:

“Globalization did not emerge suddenly in the late 20th century. It was the result of long-term developments including European colonialism, the Industrial Revolution, advances in transportation and communication, and the collapse of the Soviet Union. Each of these factors built upon previous ones, creating the highly interconnected world of the twenty-first century.”

Source: Adapted from works on the history of globalization, such as *Globalization: A Short History* by Jürgen Osterhammel and Niels P. Petersson.

Questions

1. Based on the passage, which factor is presented as a long-term cause of modern globalization? (A) The sudden invention of the internet in the 1990s (B) European colonialism and the Industrial Revolution (C) The complete isolation of all societies before 1900 (D) The decline of all forms of trade before 1500 **Correct Answer: (B) European colonialism and the Industrial Revolution** *Explanation:* The passage identifies colonialism and industrialization as foundational long-term developments that enabled later globalization.
2. The passage’s emphasis on multiple interconnected causes best illustrates which approach to historical causation? (A) Single-cause explanations (B) Multi-causal and long-term explanations (C) The rejection of all historical causes (D) Focus only on immediate events **Correct Answer: (B) Multi-causal and long-term explanations** *Explanation:* The passage stresses that globalization resulted from several factors building over time rather than one sudden event.
3. Which development most directly built upon the foundations laid by European colonialism and the Industrial Revolution? (A) The decline of global trade networks (B) Advances in transportation, communication, and the integration of global markets (C) The rejection of all Western technologies (D) The return to pre-industrial economies **Correct Answer: (B) Advances in transportation, communication, and the integration of global markets** *Explanation:* Colonialism and industrialization created global connections that were later accelerated by new technologies and market integration.
4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader pattern of causation in globalization during the period c. 1900–present? (A) Globalization resulted from the interaction of long-term economic, technological, and political developments rather than any single cause (B) Globalization was caused solely by events after 1990 (C) Globalization had no historical roots before the 20th century (D) All causes of globalization were purely technological **Correct Answer: (A) Globalization resulted from the interaction of long-term economic, technological, and political developments rather than any single cause** *Explanation:* The passage demonstrates that globalization has deep historical roots involving multiple interacting factors.

Topic 9.9: Continuity and Change in the Age of Globalization (Visual Stimulus)

Visual Description: A timeline titled “Major Developments in Globalization, 1900–Present” with key events marked: 1944 (Bretton Woods Conference), 1945 (United Nations founded), 1989–1991 (Fall of the Berlin Wall and collapse of the Soviet Union), 1995 (World Trade Organization established), 2008 (Global Financial Crisis),

and 2020 (COVID-19 pandemic and supply chain disruptions). The timeline shows both periods of rapid integration and moments of crisis or pushback.

Source: Adapted from timelines in works on globalization history.

Link to a Similar Resource: [Globalization Timeline – Our World in Data or similar educational resources](#)

Questions

1. Based on the timeline, which event most clearly represents a major acceleration of economic globalization? (A) The founding of the United Nations in 1945 (B) The establishment of the World Trade Organization in 1995 (C) The COVID-19 pandemic in 2020 (D) The Bretton Woods Conference in 1944
Correct Answer: (B) The establishment of the World Trade Organization in 1995 *Explanation:* The WTO's creation represented a major institutional step toward global trade liberalization in the post-Cold War era.
2. The inclusion of the 2008 Global Financial Crisis and the 2020 COVID-19 pandemic on the timeline suggests that globalization has experienced (A) steady and uninterrupted growth since 1900 (B) periods of rapid expansion followed by crises that revealed its vulnerabilities (C) complete reversal and return to isolationism (D) no significant challenges since 1945
Correct Answer: (B) periods of rapid expansion followed by crises that revealed its vulnerabilities *Explanation:* Both events are shown as major disruptions that exposed the risks of deep global economic integration.
3. Which earlier period in history shows the most continuity with the pattern of globalization and crisis shown on the timeline? (A) The period of decolonization after 1945 (B) The late 19th century, when global trade expanded rapidly before World War I (C) The early Middle Ages (D) The classical era of the Silk Roads
Correct Answer: (B) The late 19th century, when global trade expanded rapidly before World War I *Explanation:* The late 19th century saw rapid globalization followed by disruption from World War I, similar to the pattern of expansion and crisis in the late 20th/early 21st century.
4. Which of the following best illustrates the broader pattern of continuity and change in globalization during the period c. 1900–present? (A) Globalization has shown both remarkable continuity in the long-term trend toward greater interconnection and significant changes through periods of rapid acceleration and moments of crisis or resistance (B) Globalization has been a completely new phenomenon since 1990 with no historical precedents (C) Globalization has remained completely unchanged since 1900 (D) All periods of globalization have ended in permanent reversal
Correct Answer: (A) Globalization has shown both remarkable continuity in the long-term trend toward greater interconnection and significant changes through periods of rapid acceleration and moments of crisis or resistance *Explanation:* The timeline demonstrates both the long-term trend of increasing global connection and the recurring pattern of expansion followed by disruption.

Topic 9.1: Advances in Technology and Exchange

Essential Question: How has the development of new technology changed the world since 1900?

While the population of the world grew, globalization made the world feel smaller, as did advances in telecommunications technology. Starting in the early 1900s, **radio** brought news, music, and cultural events to a wide range of people. Later in the century, air travel and **shipping containers**, large standard-sized units that could be carried on a truck or train or stacked on ship, promoted the widespread movement of people and goods. Energy technologies, such as the use of oil and nuclear power, made it possible to transport goods faster and more cheaply than ever. The internet, first developed for the U.S. Defense Department during the Cold War, emerged as a regular tool of communication for much of the public by the late 1990s. Knowledge economies, based on developing or sharing information, took root in cities around the world.

Communication and Transportation

Decades before the introduction of the internet, communication technologies were connecting people around the world. Television and radio ads encouraged people to “reach out and touch someone” by making a long-distance phone call. By the 1990s, mobile technologies such as cellphones put the tools of information creation and dissemination into the hands of individuals around the world. Twitter, Facebook, and other social networking sites made the media accessible to anyone anywhere.

The impact of this revolution became apparent quickly. Videos taken on phones of police actions in the United States and other countries led to inquiries into racial profiling and sparked outrage. Social media also played a role in the “Arab Spring,” a series of antigovernment protests that spread from country to country in North Africa and the Middle East in the 2010s as people shared their protest experiences on social media.

While communication technologies put people in virtual touch, transportation advancements move people and goods into actual proximity. Every day, about 2 million people fly on an airplane. Cargo planes transport commercial shipments around the clock. Giant tankers—up to one-quarter mile in length—loaded with thousands of shipping containers ply the seas in increasing numbers, some of them too big to fit through the Panama Canal.

The Green Revolution

In the mid-20th century, the Green Revolution emerged as a possible long-term response to hunger. Scientists developed new varieties of wheat, rice, and other grains that had higher yields and greater resistance to pests, diseases, and drought. The new varieties were first developed by **crossbreeding**—breeding two varieties of a plant to create a hybrid. More recently, scientists have used **genetic engineering**—manipulating a cell or organism to change its basic characteristics. Farmers also used more irrigation, fertilizers, and pesticides. In Brazil and elsewhere, people burned down forests and plowed the land for agriculture. Acreage devoted to crops, especially grains, increased dramatically worldwide.

The Green Revolution solutions were not free of problems. Many small farmers could not afford the new fertilizers or pesticides. For this reason, they were often unable to compete with large landowners. Many small farmers were forced to sell their land, increasing the holdings of large landowners even more. Also, since some of the techniques developed in the Green Revolution involved the use of mechanized equipment, fewer jobs were available for farm laborers. Finally, the heavy applications of chemicals damaged the soil and the environment.

Genetic engineering created its own set of concerns as well. Some argued that a genetic modification designed to give a plant resistance to insects might inadvertently cause a decline in the population of pollinating insects, such as bees. Another problem was the loss of old seed varieties as new genetically engineered plants were adopted.

Energy Technologies

In 1900, coal accounted for about half of the global energy consumed. As extraction, refinement, and transportation technologies allowed for widespread use, petroleum, also known as crude oil, and natural gas joined coal in fueling industrial output and helped increase productivity. Research in the 1930s and 1940s that led to the atomic bomb also led to the first use of nuclear power plants to generate electricity for factories and homes.

Fossil fuels—coal, petroleum, and natural gas—are nonrenewable resources. Once they have been used up, the supply is permanently depleted. Fossil fuels have contributed to air pollution and to the cloak of greenhouse gases, especially carbon dioxide, that allow sunlight through the Earth's atmosphere but block the escape of Earth's heat. Nuclear power, while considered a clean energy, has its own dangers. Accidents at nuclear plants have caused serious problems with leaked radiation, and storing nuclear waste has hazardous consequences.

Technologies continue to be developed to combat the emission of carbon dioxide and other greenhouse gases as well as minimize harm from nuclear power. The building of nuclear power plants declined starting in the 1980s, and nuclear power accounts for only about 5 percent of global energy consumption. Renewable resources, such as wind and solar power, are beginning to supply energy to both industries and homes, but they too represent only 5 percent of global energy output.

Medical Innovations

A number of advances in medicine have had a dramatic effect on the survival and longevity of humans. Medical research and advancement benefit from, and also inspire, new technologies.

Antibiotics

In 1928, Scottish biologist Alexander Fleming was working in his lab in London when he accidentally discovered that a particular fungus produced a substance that killed bacteria. He had discovered penicillin. Penicillin became the first **antibiotic**, a useful agent in curing bacterial infections. During World War II, antibiotics saved the lives of soldiers who would have died in any previous war from a minor wound that became infected. After the war, antibiotics spread to civilian use, where they fought a range of illnesses.

"I would like to sound one warning," Fleming said in a speech as he accepted the Nobel Prize. He pointed out that the extensive use of antibiotics carried a risk. By killing off certain strains of a disease, antibiotics allowed the evolution of strains of the disease unaffected by them. These antibiotic-resistant strains could be untreatable. This prospect raised fears of renewed epidemics of diseases once under control.

Reliable Birth Control

Another groundbreaking medical advance was in **birth control**. In the early 1950s, scientist Gregory Pincus developed a birth control pill, a more reliable method than the barrier methods then in use. Scientists tested the pill on women in the 1950s, and the U.S. government approved it for widespread use in 1960.

As a result of the pill and other forms of birth control, **fertility rates** declined in much of the world. In other words, the average woman began having fewer babies than her mother or grandmother had. Birth control transformed sexual practices and played a part in reshaping gender roles. By 2018, more than 300 million women worldwide were using modern forms of contraception, including the pill.

Vaccines

Vaccines have existed since 1796, but governments and nonprofit organizations did not begin developing and widely distributing **vaccines** to prevent deadly diseases until after 1900. Thanks to vaccines, polio and measles became rare, and smallpox was eradicated by the 1980s. Vaccines are also available to prevent mumps, measles, tetanus, diphtheria, and whooping cough, all potentially serious diseases. As of 2019, a malaria vaccine is in the trial stage.

According to the World Health Organization (WHO), vaccines were preventing as many as 3 million deaths each year in the 21st century. However, the WHO also said that better vaccination coverage would save another 1.5 million people annually. Some people were unable to get vaccinated because they lived in hard-to-reach areas.

Key Terms by Theme

SOCIETY: Communication

Radio, internet

ENVIRONMENT: Ecology

Green Revolution, crossbreeding, genetic engineering

TECHNOLOGY: Travel

Shipping containers

TECHNOLOGY: Medicine

Antibiotic, birth control, fertility rates, vaccine

Topic 9.2: Technological Advancements and Limitations—Disease

Essential Question: How have environmental factors affected human populations since 1900?

As virus specialist Nathan Wolfe pointed out, progress in science and medicine, combined with government-run public health measures, drastically reduced illnesses and deaths from many diseases after 1900. These included **pandemics**, epidemic diseases that spread across national borders. The disease **smallpox**, for example, had plagued the ancient Egyptians and devastated the native population of the Americas and Australia. As recently as the 1960s, it killed millions of people each year. However, the World Health Organization (WHO) conducted a global vaccination campaign to wipe out the disease. In 1979, scientists declared success. Smallpox had been eliminated from the planet, except for the culture kept alive at the Centers for Disease Control in the United States.

Other diseases persisted, especially those related to poverty, including malaria, tuberculosis, and cholera. New epidemics also emerged, such as deadly strains of flu, HIV/AIDS, and Ebola. Other conditions, such as heart disease and Alzheimer's, became more common as people began living longer. Each medical problem spurred even more technological and medical advances to try to combat it.

Disease and Poverty

Even when cures exist, some diseases persist because the conditions of poverty are contributing factors. Poor housing or working conditions, contaminated water, and lack of access to health care are commonplace among populations with low incomes, and they all contribute to the spread of disease.

Malaria

A parasitic disease spread by mosquitoes in tropical areas, **malaria** killed more than 600,000 people each year in the early 21st century. Most of these were young African children. The international non-governmental organization (NGO) Doctors Without Borders treated about 1.7 million people annually. Experts developed preventive approaches, such as distributing mosquito nets treated with insecticide as cover during sleep. However, people can still become infected during waking hours. A vaccine for malaria has been in development for many years, but one that is effective in most cases is still in trials. Nonetheless, progress has been made. In 2019, the World Health Organization certified Algeria and Argentina as malaria-free. The organization cautioned, however, that some types of mosquitoes were becoming resistant to insecticides.

Tuberculosis

Another disease associated with poverty is tuberculosis (TB), an airborne infection that spreads through coughs and sneezes and affects the lungs. Before 1946, no effective drug treatment was available for this deadly disease. Then a cure was developed involving antibiotics and a long period of rest. In countries where TB is common, vaccines are administered to children. In the early 21st century, a strain of tuberculosis resistant to the usual antibiotics appeared. The number of infected patients increased, especially in prisons, where people live in close quarters. The WHO began a worldwide campaign against tuberculosis in the 2010s.

Cholera

A bacterial disease that spreads through contaminated water, cholera causes about 95,000 deaths per year. Like tuberculosis and malaria, cholera affects mainly poor people in developing countries. Methods to counter cholera include boiling or chlorinating drinking water and washing hands. Although cholera vaccines are

available, they do not reduce the need to follow these preventive measures. A severe cholera infection can kill within a few hours, but quickly rehydrating an exposed person can effectively eliminate the risk of death.

Polio

Another disease caused by water contaminated by a virus transmitted in fecal matter, polio once infected 100,000 new people per year. It could result in paralysis and sometimes death. The world cheered when an American researcher, Jonas Salk, announced on April 12, 1955, that an injectable vaccine against polio had proven effective. Six years later, an oral vaccine, developed by Albert Sabin, became available.

Vaccines became the centerpiece of a global public health campaign to eliminate polio. A joint effort by governments, private organizations, and United Nations agencies began in 1988. In less than 30 years, polio was eliminated in all but a few countries. In places where it still exists, such as Pakistan and Afghanistan, war makes administering the vaccine difficult. Political unrest and religious fundamentalism make people fearful of programs advocated by outsiders. Still, the success of the campaign showed that coordinated global efforts could help solve global problems.

Emerging Epidemics

Some diseases have emerged that caused major social disruption. In the fall of 1918, as World War I was drawing to a close, a new fight erupted. The issue of the *Journal of the American Medical Association* published on December 12, 1918, described the battle this way: “Medical science for four and one-half years devoted itself to putting men on the firing line and keeping them there. Now it must turn with its whole might to combating the greatest enemy of all—infectious disease.” In fact, more soldiers died from the flu than from battle. One quarter of all Americans and one-fifth of the world’s population became infected with this particularly virulent strain of the flu, which killed 20 million people worldwide. Its victims tended to be between the ages of 20 and 40. The effects of the flu were so disastrous that longevity in the United States fell by 10 years. More people died from the flu in 1918–1919 than had died in four years of the Bubonic Plague (1347–1351). Like the plague, the flu spread along trade routes and with military troops.

HIV/AIDS

Another disease outbreak causing social disruption occurred between 1981 and 2014. **Acquired Immunodeficiency Syndrome (AIDS)**, which is caused by the **Human Immunodeficiency Virus (HIV)**, killed more than 25 million people around the world. HIV weakens the immune system, so people more easily succumb to other illnesses. The virus is contracted through the exchange of bodily fluids, usually through unprotected sex, blood transfusions, or sharing intravenous needles. Funding for the research on the disease, which was associated in its early days with homosexual men and drug addicts, was difficult to come by, and a high percentage of its first victims died.

By the mid-1990s, however, medical researchers had developed ways to treat the disease but not to cure it. **Antiretroviral drugs** could stop HIV from weakening the immune system, thus allowing a patient to live with the virus for many years. However, the drugs were very expensive, so access to treatment was difficult, particularly for patients in poor countries. Brazil is a notable exception. In 1996 it established a policy of providing free antiretroviral drugs to any person who needed them. Deaths have declined dramatically, and the program has actually saved the government money by lowering the number of hospitalizations, medical leaves, and early retirements.

After 2000, the WHO, the United States government, and private groups increased funding for AIDS prevention and treatment, but the disease remains a serious problem. In 2018, about 40 million people globally were living

with HIV, the majority in developing countries or low-income neighborhoods of developed countries. Each week, more than 600 young women between the ages of 15 and 24 become infected with HIV, and many lack access to healthcare.

Ebola

Another recent and frightening epidemic is Ebola. Discovered in the Congo in 1976, Ebola is a deadly disease caused by a virus that infects the African fruit bat, humans, and other primates. Humans get the virus from exposure to fluids of infected people or animals. The disease causes extensive bleeding, organ failure, and, for the majority of infected people, death. In 2014, a massive outbreak in West Africa caused fear around the world. However, a coordinated, intensive public health effort contained and then ended the outbreak. As with polio, countries demonstrated their ability to work together to confront a danger. The WHO took a leading role in this public health response, issuing emergency warnings and implementing a “road map” for handling the outbreaks.

Diseases Associated with Longevity

Heart Disease

As longevity increases, diseases that typically do not develop until later in life began to assert themselves. **Heart disease**, for example, is associated with lifestyle, genetics, and increased longevity. One of the major discoveries in fighting heart disease was the **heart transplant**, first performed by the South African **Christiaan Barnard** in 1967. **Robert Jarvik** led a team that designed an **artificial heart**, used as a temporary device while the patient waited for a compatible human heart. Other researchers developed less invasive procedures: replacing valves, installing stents in arteries, replacing the vessels leading to the heart, and developing medications to reduce blood conditions that led to heart disease. In the 2000s, people with heart disease lived longer than similarly affected people did in the 1970s.

Alzheimer's Disease

As people lived longer, a form of dementia known as **Alzheimer's disease** that affects elderly and some middle-aged people also became an increasing concern. Alzheimer's patients progressively lose their memory, eventually leading to a stage in which they do not recognize their loved ones. Since the disease undermines bodily functions, it leads to death. Researchers continue to search for a cure.

Key Terms by Theme

ENVIRONMENT: Epidemics

Pandemic, smallpox, malaria, Doctors Without Borders, tuberculosis, cholera, Jonas Salk, Albert Sabin, polio, Acquired Immunodeficiency Syndrome (AIDS), Human Immunodeficiency Virus (HIV), Ebola

SOCIETY: Disease

Heart disease, Alzheimer's disease

TECHNOLOGY: Medical Advances

Antiretroviral drugs, heart transplant, Christiaan Barnard, Robert Jarvik, artificial heart

Topic 9.3: Technology and the Environment

Essential Question: What were the causes and effects of environmental changes from 1900 to the present?

During the 20th and 21st centuries, human agricultural, industrial, and other commercial activity contributed to many environmental changes that led to increased competition for increasingly scarce resources. These problems include:

- **Deforestation**—the loss of Earth's trees as a result of cutting down trees so the land could be used for agriculture
- **Desertification**—the removal of the natural vegetation cover through expansion and intensive use of agricultural lands in arid and semi-arid lands
- A decline in air quality as a result of increased pollutants in the air
- Increased consumption of the world's supply of fresh water

Scientists observed that, along with these changes, Earth was getting warmer. Ban Ki-moon, a South Korean politician and diplomat, and many other world leaders concluded that climate change was a global problem and debated the best ways to approach it through global action.

Causes of Environmental Changes

A number of interconnected factors contributed to the environmental changes that have taken place since 1900.

Population Growth

In 1900, the world population was 1.6 billion. By 1950 it had risen to 2.55 billion, and by 2000 the population was 6.12 billion. All of the billions more people that lived on the planet since 1900 needed to be fed. Growing populations led to a demand for more croplands. This increase in land used for agricultural purposes resulted in deforestation, soil erosion, and smaller habitats for many species of plants and animals.

Growing populations affected not only land resources but also water resources. Overfishing in the oceans has led to the near disappearance of cod. Although fresh water is a renewable resource, growing populations consume increasing amounts of it.

Urbanization

Another cause of environmental change is the increasing size and number of cities. By some estimates, by 2025, 5.1 billion people will live in cities, which will pressure those who grow food to use intensive farming methods that deplete the soil and cause erosion or to clear more forests for agricultural use. City dwellers also produce vast amounts of waste, some of which pollutes the water they depend on.

Globalization and Industrialization

The global reach of industrialization has also affected the environment. As industry spread to developing countries, energy and other natural resources used in manufacturing were in demand, drawing further on the reserves of resources. Workers in industry in these developing countries are creating a new middle class that increases the market for such products as cars that require metals and other resources and that also contribute to pollution.

Effects of Environmental Changes

While humans have always competed for raw materials and natural resources, this competition became more intense as industrialization spread. With an ever-growing population, humans grappled with hunger, environmental damage, and global epidemics.

Resource Depletion

Since the mid-1800s, when petroleum extraction began in earnest and oil pumped energy into the Industrial Revolution, about half of the earth's finite resources of this vital resource have been used up. With the rapidly growing urban and industrial population, some experts predict the remaining half could be used up at a much faster rate, within the next 30 to 40 years. While supplies of coal will last longer, if coal is used to make up for the loss of petroleum, coal reserves could also be depleted in 60 years.

Inequality and Scarce Resources

According to the United Nations, 31 countries are facing water scarcity and more than 1 billion people lack clean, accessible drinking water. As water consumption continues to increase, some corporate interests are depleting, polluting, and exploiting water sources. The World Health Organization predicts that by 2025, half of the world's population will lack clean and safe drinking water.

Water scarcity is also linked to other inequalities. Surveys from 45 developing countries show that women and children bear the primary responsibility for water collection in most households. This is time not spent working at an income-generating job or attending school. A study in Ghana found that a 15-minute reduction in water collection time increases the proportion of girls attending school by 8 percent to 12 percent.

In 2015, world leaders agreed to 17 goals for a better world by 2030. Many of these global goals address the environmental problems the world faced after 1900 that relate to extreme poverty, inequalities and injustice, and climate change.

Changes in the Atmosphere

Factories, automobiles, airplanes, and many other products and processes of industrialization have emitted huge amounts of pollutants, including carbon dioxide and other **greenhouse gases**—those that build up in the atmosphere and let the heat of the sun reach Earth but trap it from escaping Earth. At the same time, some of Earth's natural carbon trapping resources, including forests and ground cover for unused farmlands, are shrinking.

Development of Renewable Energy Sources

Concerned about unsustainable demands for energy through **fossil fuels** (coal, oil, petroleum, and natural gas), companies and nations began to invest in **renewable energy**, energy derived from resources that are continuously replenished, such as wind, solar, tidal, and geothermal power. At first, high costs slowed development of such sources. However, as new techniques and technologies reduced costs, these sources became increasingly attractive options. Renewable energy provides only about 7 percent of the world's energy needs. However, a 2018 study predicted that by 2050, half the world's electricity will come from wind power and solar power.

Increasing Environmental Awareness

In 1968, the “Club of Rome”—an organization of scientists, industrialists, diplomats, and others—formed in Europe to promote solutions to global challenges facing humanity. It called attention to concerns that resource depletion would limit economic growth. In many countries, people joined a Green Party that focused on environmental issues. Some supported the Green Belt Movement to protect wilderness areas from urban growth. By the 21st century, the Green Belt Movement had planted more than 51 million trees in Kenya. The trees help to preserve ecosystems and lessen the effects of greenhouse gases. Planting trees also created employment and improved soil quality.

Debates About Global Warming

Air pollutants and greenhouse gases prompted debates about rising temperatures. Scientists, including those on the United Nations’ Intergovernmental Panel on Climate Change, cited data showing that the emissions of carbon dioxide and other greenhouse gases caused by the burning of fossil fuels were causing **global warming**. This is an increase in the average temperature of the world. Experts advised governments to reduce their countries’ **carbon footprint**—the amount of carbon dioxide that each person produces. Without a reduced carbon footprint, global warming would contribute to catastrophes: more powerful hurricanes, more severe droughts, and rising sea levels that could flood islands and coastal areas. Some activists argued that the term “global warming” was too mild to express the urgency of action. They said that humanity faced a “climate emergency” or “climate crisis.”

Climate-change skeptics, in contrast, questioned whether global warming was happening and whether human activities had any influence on the climate. In addition, some people in the energy industries resisted the interference of government, arguing that market forces would cause consumers to reduce their carbon footprint if that became necessary. In contrast, other leaders of energy companies began planning for a shift to renewable fuel sources.

Most government leaders, however, agree that global warming requires a global response, but countries disagree on how to reduce carbon emissions.

Debate over Reducing Carbon Emissions

Issue	Developed Countries (including the United States and Western Europe)	Developing Countries (including China, India, Russia, and Brazil)
Reason for Reducing or Producing Carbon Dioxide	Developing countries need to reduce their rapidly increasing outputs of carbon dioxide.	Developing countries are trying to provide electricity, cars, and a path out of poverty for their citizens. (Developed countries already did this by using huge amounts of coal and oil.)
Quantity of Carbon Dioxide Produced	In 2007, China passed the United States as the world’s biggest emitter of carbon dioxide.	Developing countries emit far less carbon dioxide per person than developed countries do. Therefore, developed countries must take the lead in restricting their use of fossil fuels.

Kyoto

The first major international agreement to reduce carbon emissions was the **Kyoto Protocol**, signed in 1997. Developed nations in Western Europe, along with the United States, argued that developing countries, such as China, India, Russia, and Brazil, needed to curb their rapidly increasing output of carbon dioxide. However, the United States refused to ratify it, and China and India were not required to agree to the strictest terms of the protocol.

Global Action at Paris

In 2015, 195 countries signed a deal, the **Paris Agreement**, that gave new hope for progress against global warming. Leaders of both the United States and China supported this new deal. However, in 2017, President Donald Trump announced that the United States would withdraw from the Paris Agreement.

Climate Activism

Increasing global temperatures led to calls to action. “You say you love your children above all else, and yet you are stealing their future in front of their very eyes,” 15-year-old climate activist Greta Thunberg raged in a speech at a United Nations climate conference in 2018. Beginning with a solo protest in her native Sweden, Thunberg eventually led a global climate strike with more than 1.6 million participants in more than 125 countries.

Extinction Rebellion, a climate activist group formed in 2018, engaged in civil disobedience in London, blocking a main bridge and key intersections for more than a week, chaining themselves to the headquarters of big companies, and interrupting “business as usual” in other ways. About a thousand people were arrested, but the group succeeded in having Members of Parliament call a citizens’ assembly to discuss ideas for addressing the climate emergency. Many other citizen groups are pressuring lawmakers in many countries to take necessary steps to avert the worst consequences of continued warming predicted in reports from the UN’s Intergovernmental Panel on Climate Change.

A New Age?

What should people call the time period we live in? Traditionally, geologists have called the current period the Holocene epoch. *Holocene* means “entirely recent.” This time period started about 11,700 years ago, at the end of the last significant ice age.

However, some scientists believed humans have left the Holocene. They wanted to call the present time the **Anthropocene**. This term means “new man.” These scientists wanted to change the name because humans now affect almost the entire planet. In 2019, a panel of scientists voted to approve the name. *Anthropocene* reflects the idea that humans are the strongest influence on Earth’s climate and environment—for better and for worse.

Key Terms by Theme

CULTURE: Movements and Organizations

Green Party, Green Belt Movement

ENVIRONMENT: Scientific Studies

Deforestation, desertification, air quality, greenhouse gases, fossil fuels, water scarcity, renewable energy, global warming, carbon footprint, Anthropocene

GOVERNMENT: International Agreements

Kyoto Protocol, Paris Agreement

Topic 9.4: Economics in the Global Age

Essential Question: How did the global economy change and remain the same from 1900 to the present?

Global trade exploded with the end of the Cold War. The new global economy was part of a renewed emphasis on market-oriented policy advocated by leaders such as Ronald Reagan in the United States and Margaret Thatcher in Great Britain. They advocated cutting taxes, regulations, and government assistance to the poor as a way to promote economic growth. As Wheeler pointed out, this was a flawed choice producing greater wealth for many but hardships for others. At the same time, revolutions in information and communications technology led to the growth of knowledge economies in some regions, while industrial production and manufacturing were increasingly situated in Asia and Latin America.

Acceleration of Free-Market Economies

Globalization is interaction among peoples, governments, and companies around the world. The Indian Ocean trade and European imperialism are both examples of globalization. However, the term usually refers to the increased integration of the global economy since the 1970s. The Eastern Bloc nations that had been under Soviet control suddenly could trade freely with capitalist democracies. India and other countries that had been nonaligned during the Cold War relaxed restrictions on trade in the 1990s. This opening up of a country's economy is called **economic liberalization**.

Ronald Reagan and Margaret Thatcher wanted **free markets**, which are economic systems based on supply and demand, with as little government control as possible. While Reagan and Thatcher were strongly nationalistic, corporations used the shift in emphasis to move jobs to countries with lower wages, lower taxes, and fewer regulations. Critics charged that globalization led to labor exploitation and environmental damage.

Economic Liberalization in Chile

In Chile in 1973, Augusto Pinochet took power in a U.S.-backed coup against a democratically elected socialist government led by Salvador Allende. Pinochet ruled from 1973 to 1990. Then a coalition of citizens ousted him because of his violent tactics. Indicted for kidnapping, torture, money laundering, and murder, Pinochet died in 2006 before he could be convicted. "We buried our democracy, and we buried freedom," the Chilean author Isabel Allende said about his rule.

However, during his rule, the Chilean economy took a turn away from state control toward a free-market approach. Among the goals of this approach were privatizing formerly state-run businesses and taming the serious inflation Chile was experiencing. Economists known as the Chicago Boys because they studied under free-market economist Milton Friedman at the University of Chicago helped design Chile's economic reforms. The reforms were unpopular because they did not address poverty and other social concerns, and Pinochet used repression to enact them. Subsequent administrations, however, guided the economy with a balanced approach, using a combination of economic growth as a result of free trade and government programs to significantly reduce poverty.

Chinese Economic Reforms

Economic liberalization reached China as well. In 1981, Deng Xiaoping became the Chinese leader. Under him, the Communist Party backed away from its commitment to economic equality, and more actively promoted economic growth. Deng called his policy "Let some people get rich first." The government took several steps to open up the economy, even as it kept overall control:

- It replaced communes with peasant-leased plots of land where the peasants could grow their own crops and sell part of them in markets. This reform led to agricultural surpluses instead of the famines of the past.
- It allowed factories to produce more products for consumers.
- It encouraged foreign companies to set up factories in special economic zones. Foreign firms were attracted to China because of low wages and lax environmental laws.
- It reopened the Shanghai stock market and allowed private ownership of some businesses.

Some Chinese thought that these economic reforms should be accompanied by political reforms, such as freedom of speech and the press and the end of the Communist Party's monopoly on political power. Political discourse did become somewhat freer than in the past. In 1989, however, a large but peaceful student-led demonstration in Tiananmen Square in Beijing was met by force from the government. Soldiers using guns and tanks broke up the demonstrations, killing hundreds of people.

Economic Change: New Knowledge Economies

In the late 1900s, revolutions in information and communications technology led some countries to undertake a new kind of economy—the **knowledge economy**. A knowledge economy creates, distributes, and uses knowledge and information. Designers, engineers, teachers, and many others have jobs in the knowledge economy. In the United States, the knowledge economy is evident in the vast stretch of technology companies in Silicon Valley in California, where workers use their knowledge to create ways for other people to use theirs through technology, communication, innovation, and collaboration.

Knowledge Economy in Finland

In many cases, knowledge economies have evolved with the explosion of information and communication technology. In knowledge economies, governments and investors put resources into research, education, innovation, and technological infrastructure.

Finland, for example, had been an agrarian economy in the 1950s but followed other European countries in industrializing after World War II. When the Soviet Union collapsed, Finland lost one of its main customers of manufactured goods and faced an economic crisis. In the 1990s, Finland turned a corner by entering the global marketplace, encouraging competition, and establishing the Science and Technology Policy Council to set a direction of economic growth through technology and innovation. Finland experienced great economic growth in this endeavor and led the way in the development of mobile phones. By investing in education and communications technology, Finland was able to build on its success with mobile phones and establish software companies. These industries required highly educated workers, while outsourcing hardware production to countries with lower labor costs.

Japanese Economic Growth

Japan followed a somewhat different path. After World War II, Japan implemented economic policies similar to 18th-century mercantilist policies that were designed to increase exports and decrease imports, as well as policies to boost competitiveness:

- To encourage exports, the government coordinated its finance and labor policies with large corporations and gave them subsidies to help them keep their costs low.
- To discourage imports, the government used high tariffs and other trade restrictions on goods made abroad.
- To prepare its citizens to be productive workers, Japan emphasized rigorous education.

These policies, aided by large investments from the United States and other countries, turned Japan into a manufacturing powerhouse.

However, Japan's impressive growth came at a high cost for its consumers. Low-wage workers producing items for foreign markets often could not afford to buy what they made. For example, Japanese-made cars were more expensive in Japan than they were in the United States. Over time, Japanese unions became strong enough to negotiate higher wages, and international pressure forced Japan to relax its trade restrictions. Japan's economy diversified, and it became a knowledge economy and an international center of banking, finance, and information technology. Although Japan's growth slowed after the 1980s, Japan remained the third-largest economy in the world in 2014, behind only the United States and China.

Closely following Japan's economic model were four states known as the **Asian Tigers**—Hong Kong, Singapore, South Korea, and Taiwan. Like Japan, these states prospered through government-business partnerships, high exports, intense education, and a low-wage workforce. The success of the Asian Tigers and China raised hundreds of millions of people from poverty.

Economic Continuities: Shifting Manufacturing

As the knowledge economy develops in some regions, industrial production and manufacturing in those regions, including in the United States, have declined. Manufacturing plants are increasingly located in Asia and Latin America rather than the United States and Europe. Countries in both Asia and Latin America have become known for their contributions to the textile and apparel industries, though they manufacture many other products. So while it has moved to different regions, manufacturing continues to play a key role in the global economy.

Vietnam and Bangladesh

Importers who once purchased their manufactured goods from China have been finding other options in such Asian countries as Vietnam and Bangladesh, where labor costs tend to be significantly lower than in China (where they are already significantly lower than in the United States and Europe). Both Vietnam and Bangladesh have become known for their exports of clothing. In compounds the size of small villages in some places, garment manufacturers—often funded by foreign investors—churn out the clothes that end up on hangers in stores in developed countries. Clothing accounts for 80 percent of exports from Bangladesh. Phones are the largest export from Vietnam, worth about \$45 billion in 2017, with apparel and electronic goods each bringing in \$25.9 billion.

Workers in both Vietnam and Bangladesh have mounted strikes in recent years, protesting both low wages and poor working conditions. Their pay has increased slightly as a result, but not enough to keep up with rising costs of living.

Manufacturing in Mexico and Honduras

In 1994, the United States, Canada, and Mexico negotiated **NAFTA**, the North American Free Trade Agreement. This agreement encouraged U.S. and Canadian industries to build **maquiladoras** (factories) in Mexico that used low-wage Mexican labor to produce tariff-free goods for foreign export. Many factories hired large numbers of young women and exposed them to harsh working conditions.

Labor unions in the United States complained that NAFTA led to the export of thousands of U.S. jobs to Mexico, where wages and benefits were lower and safety and environmental standards were weaker.

Honduras in Central America, the second largest exporter of textiles in the Americas, has sought to upgrade its manufacturing using principles of sustainability—recycling or treating its waste materials—and fair labor practices, including housing and education plans for workers, through business-government partnerships. As in Vietnam and Bangladesh, considerable business investment comes from enterprises in South Korea and Taiwan.

Transnational Free-Trade Organizations

Several organizations contributed to the growth of the global economy in the decades following World War II. Some countries joined regional organizations such as the European Economic Community, **Mercosur** (in South America), and the **Association of Southeast Asian Nations (ASEAN)**. Many countries signed an international accord, the **General Agreement on Tariffs and Trade (GATT)**, which lifted restrictive barriers to trade. **Protective tariffs**, which are taxes on foreign imports, had been at a world average rate of 40 percent before GATT. By lowering and eliminating many tariffs, the agreement promoted more international trade and helped restore economic prosperity to war-ravaged Europe. By the 1990s, average tariff rates had sunk below 5 percent, easing the movement of goods across national borders and lowering prices for consumers.

In 1995, the **World Trade Organization (WTO)** took over GATT's operations. The WTO made rules that governed more than 90 percent of all international trade. In part because of its power, the organization became controversial. Its meetings were closed to the public, and its board members represented mostly corporate interests. Also, the organization's rules favored trade over consideration of issues of moral concern. For example, through strict application of WTO rules, a member nation that refused to buy clothing made by sweatshop labor could suffer trade sanctions from the organization.

Multinational Corporations

A **multinational corporation** is one that is legally incorporated in one country but that makes or sells goods or services in one or more other countries. The joint-stock companies of the Commercial Revolution, such as the British East India Company and Dutch East India Company, were the earliest examples of multinational corporations. Multinational corporations were also the business means through which imperialist nations made their wealth during the age of imperialism, exploiting the resources and labor of the colonized regions for profit in home countries.

Today's multinational corporations take advantage of both knowledge economies and more traditional manufacturing and industrial economies. They employ leading edge workers in the knowledge economy—software designers, communications specialists, and engineers—and at the same time hire low-wage workers abroad to make their products. They also have a global market in which to sell their goods and services.

To free-market supporters, multinational corporations produce the greatest gains for both developed and developing countries. For example, in the early 1990s, India opened its markets and allowed in more imports. With its highly educated, English-speaking workforce, India became a software and information technology powerhouse, drawing investments from American and European companies that wanted to outsource jobs and lower labor costs. Multinational corporations, such as Microsoft and Google, also invested in the Indian economy. The influx of corporate wealth and foreign goods created a thriving consumer culture among India's middle class, the ranks of which swelled tremendously after 2000. In 2014, the Indian middle class was estimated to be the largest of any country in the world, with more than 350 million people.

The India-based multinational corporation **Mahindra & Mahindra**, which produces cars, farm equipment, military vehicles, and electrical energy, is headquartered in Mumbai, India, but has operations not only

throughout India but also in South Korea, China, Australia, the United States, South Africa, and other African nations. Some multinational corporations are criticized because they lack a strong national identity and therefore do not necessarily adhere to the ethical standards of their home country. They are also criticized for exploiting workers and establishing their operations in such a way that they avoid as many taxes as possible. Mahindra & Mahindra, in contrast, has received awards for its socially responsible corporate practices and is considered one of the most trusted businesses in India.

In contrast, Swiss-based multinational **Nestlé** corporation, the largest food company in the world, has been the subject of many controversies and criticisms, including purchasing cocoa for its chocolate products from suppliers who use child labor and engage in cocoa production on protected lands. It has also faced criticism for its bottled water business for its attitude toward drinking water as a product rather than a human right. At the same time, Nestlé invests in a number of research programs aimed at sustainable agriculture and training for farmers.

Key Terms by Theme

ECONOMY: World Trade

Economic liberalization, free market, Asian Tigers, NAFTA, maquiladora, Mercosur, Association of Southeast Asian Nations (ASEAN), General Agreement on Tariffs and Trade (GATT), protective tariff, World Trade Organization (WTO)

GOVERNMENT: Leaders

Ronald Reagan, Margaret Thatcher, Deng Xiaoping, Augusto Pinochet

SOCIETY: China

Tiananmen Square

ECONOMY: Globalization

Knowledge economy, multinational corporation, Microsoft, Google, Mahindra & Mahindra, Nestlé

9.5

Topic 9.5: Calls for Reform and Responses

Essential Question: How have social categories, roles, and practices changed and stayed the same since 1900?

In the age of global economics, global transportation and communication, and global devastation from war, human rights were, for the first time, also elevated to the level of global discourse, which challenged long-held assumptions about race, class, gender, and religion. Efforts to establish and safeguard human rights opened doors of educational and professional opportunity and political participation for some who had previously been excluded. People sought liberation from the “continuing bondage,” in Nelson Mandela’s terms, that had kept them in poverty. People around the globe also began to protest the inequalities and environmental damage that globalization had created or reinforced.

An Era of Rights

In December of 1948, the United Nations laid the groundwork for an era of rights when it adopted a foundational document, the **Universal Declaration of Human Rights**, asserting basic rights and fundamental freedoms for all human beings. It stated that everyone is entitled to these rights without distinctions based on “race, colour [color], sex, language, religion, political or other opinion, national or social origin, property, birth or other status.”

The UN and Human Rights

Since its creation, the United Nations has promoted **human rights**, basic protections that are common to all people. As part of its humanitarian work, the UN created the **United Nations International Children's Emergency Fund (UNICEF)** in 1946 to provide food for children in Europe who were still suffering more than a year after the end of World War II. In 1948, the UN formalized its position on human rights in the Universal Declaration. Since that time, the UN has investigated abuses of human rights, such as genocide, war crimes, government oppression, and crimes against women.

The **International Court of Justice** is a judicial body set up by the original UN charter. It settles disputes over international law that countries bring to it. Also called the World Court, it has 15 judges, and each must be a citizen of a different country. It often deals with border disputes and treaty violations.

Another main aim of the UN is to protect **refugees**, people who have fled their home countries. In times of war, famine, and natural disasters, people often leave their country and seek refuge in a safe location. Working through sub-agencies such as NGOs (non-governmental organizations) and the agency **UNHCR** (United Nations High Commissioner for Refugees), the UN provides food, medicine, and temporary shelter. Among the earliest refugees the UN helped were Palestinians who fled the disorder when the UN partitioned Palestine to create the state of Israel in 1948.

Global Feminism

On January 21, 2017, the day after Donald Trump’s inauguration as president, the Women’s March on Washington drew about 500,000 demonstrators standing up for women’s rights and other concerns. However, the march drew even more power from the millions more demonstrators who took part in locations on every continent around the globe, from Antarctica to Zagreb, Croatia and from Buenos Aires, Argentina to Mumbai, India. As many as five million people stood together that day representing a global solidarity for women’s rights. That march was the most dramatic sign of **global feminism**, but other landmark events since 1900 had done their part to solidify the movement.

The 1979 **Convention on the Elimination of All Forms of Discrimination Against Women** outlined many rights and protections that are cornerstones of global feminism:

- The right to vote and to hold office
- The right to freely choose a spouse
- The right to access the same education as men
- The right to access family planning resources and birth control

Cultural and Religious Movements

Discourse on rights also became part of cultural and religious movements. For example, the **Négritude Movement**, which took root primarily in French West Africa, emphasized pride in “blackness,” the rejection of French colonial authority, and the right to self-determination. Léopold Sédar Senghor of Senegal wrote poems about the beauty and uniqueness of African culture and is now regarded as one of the 20th century’s most distinguished French writers. (Senghor later served as first president of independent Senegal.) During the 1920s and 1930s, American intellectuals such as W. E. B. Du Bois, Richard Wright, and Langston Hughes wrote movingly about the multiple meanings of “blackness” in the world. What many now refer to as “black pride” of the 1960s had its roots in the Négritude Movement.

Inherent rights became a focus of a religious ideology as well. **Liberation theology**, which combined socialism with Catholicism, spread through Latin America in the 1950s and 1960s. It interpreted the teachings of Jesus to include freeing people from the abuses of economic, political, and social conditions. Part of this liberation included redistributing some wealth from the rich to the poor. In many countries, military dictators persecuted and killed religious workers who embraced liberation theology.

However, advocates of liberation theology had a few notable successes. In Nicaragua, they helped a rebel movement topple a dictator and institute a socialist government. In Venezuela, President Hugo Chávez was deeply influenced by the movement. Then, in 2013, the Roman Catholic Church selected a cardinal from Argentina as pope, the first one from Latin America. The new leader, who took the name **Pope Francis**, reversed the Vatican’s opposition to liberation theology.

Steps toward Gender Equality

During the 20th century, men and women made great strides toward securing some of their rights and participating more fully in professional and political life. In the first part of the century the percentage of women who could read and who attended college increased, and in country after country, women won the right to vote. However, not all the women in a country won the right to vote at the same time. In the United States, for example, white women won the right to vote in national elections in 1920. Native American and African American women did not have full voting rights throughout the country until the Voting Rights Act of 1965. Britain granted women the right to vote in 1918, but at first only women over 30 who met a property qualification could do so. British women did not achieve the same right to vote as men until 1928. In Australia, white women gained some voting rights in 1894, but aboriginal men and women did not gain the right to vote until 1962.

When Women Won the Right to Vote

Country	Year
New Zealand	1893

Azerbaijan	1918
Britain	1918
United States	1920
Brazil	1932
Turkey	1934
Japan	1945
India	1947
Morocco	1963
Switzerland	1971
Kuwait	2005
Saudi Arabia	2015

As of 2018, only the tiny country of Vatican City did not allow women to vote. Whether women are able to exercise their vote is another issue. In Pakistan, women gained the right to vote in 1947. However, in 2013, women cast only 10 percent of votes there.

Steps toward Racial Equality

In the United States, African Americans won major victories against discrimination and segregation. Through the 1964 Civil Rights Act, which outlawed discrimination based on race, color, religion, sex, or national origin, and the 1965 Voting Rights Act, which banned discrimination in voting, the federal government stepped in to protect the rights of all citizens. African Americans also sought equality of education through desegregation of schools.

South Africa's Colonial Legacy

South Africa's system of **apartheid**, instituted in 1948, enforced the segregation of people based on race. Although white South Africans made up only 15 percent of South Africa's population, apartheid reserved good jobs and other privileges for them. So-called **pass laws** required black South Africans to carry identity documents when entering areas set aside for whites, which they often had to do when traveling to their jobs. They were banned from living in certain areas of the country. Mixed marriages were prohibited. Although South Africa had 11 major languages, classes for blacks were taught only in Afrikaans, the language of many of the white South Africans who ruled the nation. These dehumanizing decrees marginalized the 85 percent of South Africans who were black, South Asian, or mixed race.

The white-dominated South African government had its basis in European colonization of Africa in general and the Dutch and British colonization of South Africa in particular. The colonizers pushed the native people off the fertile lands and gave them no say in government. South Africans began to demand equal treatment. "I am not interested in picking up crumbs of compassion," said Desmond Tutu, Anglican Archbishop of Cape Town, South Africa, and human rights activist. "I want the full menu of rights."

Challenges to Apartheid

In 1964, **Nelson Mandela**, a leader of the **African National Congress (ANC)**, was imprisoned for life for agitating against apartheid. The ANC's primary goals were to end white domination and create a multiracial South Africa. Mandela's imprisonment throughout the 1960s, 1970s, and 1980s inspired a global movement to end apartheid. Black protests in South Africa, which were often peaceful, were crushed violently by the government's forces. South Africa's reputation grew worse in the eyes of the global community. Musicians staged concerts calling for Mandela's release from prison, college students urged universities and corporations to divest from South Africa, and many countries voted for strict economic sanctions against the country. The United Nations expelled South Africa in 1974 because of its apartheid.

As South Africa became a **pariah state** (undesirable state) in the 1980s, its leadership began to take notice. Mandela himself began negotiations with the government in 1986 while still in prison. In 1989, F. W. de Klerk became the nation's acting president. He recognized the need for change. Within six months, de Klerk announced Nelson Mandela's release from prison.

Although euphoria was high in the weeks following Mandela's release, apartheid remained the law of the land. Police violence against protesters persisted, which stalled negotiations between Mandela and de Klerk. However, a series of reforms in the 1990s ended apartheid. In 1994, South Africa held its first free elections and rejoined the United Nations. The African National Congress won the majority of the seats in the Parliament. The Government of National Unity was established with ANC members in the majority. On May 10, 1994, Nelson Mandela was sworn in as president, South Africa's first black leader.

Uniting South Africa

Immediately the Government of National Unity set up the **Truth and Reconciliation Commission (TRC)**. Unlike the Nuremberg Trials that sought retribution for crimes against humanity committed by Nazis during World War II, the TRC sought to restore and establish an atmosphere of trust in the new multiracial South Africa. The TRC organized a series of 19 public hearings designed to expose the truth of human rights violations that had occurred during apartheid, while at the same time granting amnesty to members of the apartheid regime who agreed to testify.

Caste Reservation in India

The fight for civil rights was also a global effort as people from different races and social classes began to demand equality. In India, the 1949 Constitution outlawed discrimination against the **Dalits**, also known as untouchables. Pakistan outlawed discrimination against Dalits in 1953. Before then, many people believed that being touched by a Dalit required the person who was touched to undergo a cleansing ritual. People in India and Pakistan continued to discriminate against Dalits until well into the 21st century.

To open doors of opportunity to social groups or castes that had faced historical discrimination, the government of India established the **caste reservation system**. Through this system, the government guaranteed that a certain percentage of government and public sector jobs and enrollment in higher education would be set aside for people whose caste had conferred an underprivileged life.

Human Rights Repression in China

After the economic reforms of the late 1980s and 1990s, China quickly became an economic powerhouse. The economic liberalization, however, was not matched by democratic reforms. The Chinese Communist Party (CCP) ruled the People's Republic with an iron fist. It censored the news industry and controlled what students were taught in primary and secondary schools. Such practices limited freedom of speech and thought. The

CCP also required all nonstate organizations and groups to register with the government. International nongovernmental organizations (NGOs) were not free to operate in China unless they were willing to undergo strict regulation. Opposition political parties did not stand a chance in China's governing system, although some debate was allowed in the legislative process. Overall, however, the governing system was designed to thwart all challenges to the CCP's authority.

Tiananmen Square

Chinese intellectuals and students had a history of protesting against their government based on the May Fourth Movement in 1919. In the spring of 1989, pro-democracy activists organized a public event mourning the death of a sympathetic high official. The protesters demanded a chance to speak with Chinese leaders about freedom of the press and other reforms. After the Chinese government refused to meet with the activists, citizens in more than 400 Chinese cities staged sit-ins, refused to attend classes, and began hunger strikes. Hundreds of thousands of students, professors, and urban workers staged a massive protest in Beijing's Tiananmen Square. After seven weeks of protests, the government declared martial law. It sent troops armed with tanks and assault weapons into Beijing. Citizens responded by setting up barricades to block the troops.

On June 4, 1989, the army arrived in Tiananmen Square and attacked the unarmed protesters. The Chinese government claimed that nobody died in Tiananmen Square that day. No mention of the event was included in school texts, and the government blocked all Web sites that discussed the Tiananmen Square incident and human rights abuses in China. However, estimates by Amnesty International, the International Red Cross, and the *New York Times* indicated that anywhere from several hundred to a few thousand civilians were killed. As Chinese officials continue to describe the Tiananmen event as a western conspiracy, Tiananmen mothers are prohibited from openly mourning family members who died in June 1989. The government still imprisons those who commemorate June 4.

Minority Rights in China

The communist government in China has struggled with the demands of the nation's 55 ethnic minorities. Some prominent examples were calls by Tibetans for more autonomy or independence and the complaints of the Uighur people concerning religious and political discrimination in the northwest province of Xinjiang.

In 2011, some of the Mongolian people in China protested against the high number of Han Chinese who had moved into Inner Mongolia, an autonomous region of northern China, and disrupted their pastoral way of life. The Han are the largest ethnic group in China and worldwide. The Mongolians protested the environmental damage that came with settled agriculture, strip-mining of coal, building of highways, damming of rivers, and overgrazing of land.

Steps toward Environmental Repair

People realized that part of securing their rights in a globalized world is to claim their environmental rights to clean water and air and a sustainable planet with biodiversity. A number of organizations try to identify and achieve goals toward guaranteeing those rights.

Earth Day

Starting in 1970, citizens in the United States designated April 22 each year as **Earth Day**, a day for people to focus on environmental awareness. Organizers hoped to highlight recycling, developing alternative energy, eating locally grown and organic foods, and passing antipollution legislation. Today, about 174 countries observe and participate in Earth Day activities with the Earth Day Network, an environmental advocacy group.

Greenpeace

Founded in 1971 as an organization to advocate for the environment, Greenpeace grew into a multinational agency with offices in more than 55 countries. It battles deforestation, desertification, global warming, the killing of whales, and overfishing. Greenpeace has engaged in lobbying and education, but it became famous for its direct actions, such as confronting whaling boats in the ocean.

Green Belt Movement

In 1977, Kenyan activist **Wangari Maathai** founded the **Green Belt Movement**, a direct response to the environmental degradation resulting from the colonial experience. Women in rural Kenya were reporting that streams were drying up and their food supply was unpredictable. The Green Belt Movement helped women work together to plant trees to improve the soil and collect rainwater. More than that, however, Dr. Maathai and the Green Belt Movement helped women see their capacity for making changes through participation in public life rather than leaving decisions to others.

In 2004, Maathai won the Nobel Prize for Peace, becoming the first African woman to do so. “We are called to assist the Earth to heal her wounds and in the process heal our own,” she said.

Steps toward Economic Fairness

To counterbalance the strictly commercial interests of the powerful World Trade Organization, organizations from around the world combined resources to create the **World Fair Trade Organization (WFTO)** in 1989. Member organizations subscribe to the following 10 principles of fair trade, and the WFTO monitors its members to make sure they follow these principles.

World Fair Trade Organization Principles of Fair Trade

1. Creating Opportunities for Economically Disadvantaged Producers
2. Transparency and Accountability
3. Fair Trading Practices
4. Payment of a Fair Price
5. Ensuring no Child Labor and Forced Labor
6. Commitment to Non Discrimination, Gender Equity and Freedom of Association
7. Ensuring Good Working Conditions
8. Providing Capacity Building
9. Promoting Fair Trade
10. Respect for the Environment

Key Terms by Theme

SOCIETY: Leaders and Thinkers

Nelson Mandela, Negritude, Leopold Senghor, Pope Francis, Liberation Theology, W. E. B. Du Bois, Desmond Tutu, F. W. de Klerk, Wangari Maathai

ENVIRONMENT: Actions

Earth Day, Greenpeace, Green Belt Movement

GOVERNMENT: United Nations

Universal Declaration of Human Rights, United Nations International Children's Emergency Fund (UNICEF), International Court of Justice

GOVERNMENT: Power and Control

Human rights, refugees, Civil Rights Act, Voting Rights Act, apartheid, pass laws, African National Congress (ANC), pariah state, Truth and Reconciliation Commission (TRC), Dalits, caste reservation system, Tiananmen Square

Topic 9.6: Globalized Culture

Essential Question: How has globalization changed culture since 1900?

At the start of the 20th century, political and social developments led to new directions in the arts. Writers, painters, and musicians developed **modernism**, a rejection of tradition in favor of experimentation and uncertainty. World War I, a global depression, and World War II had focused attention on survival. After World War II, however, citizens of wealthier nations began to develop a **consumer culture**—one in which people tended to focus more on what they bought and owned than on where they lived, what they did for a living, or what they believed. As trade restrictions loosened and new technology became more widely available, people worldwide began sampling arts, popular culture, and ideas from faraway countries. However, few could predict the global connectedness made possible by social media, nor its power to do both good and ill.

Political, Social, and Artistic Changes

Change was everywhere at the start of the 20th century. In just about every main field of human endeavor, new perspectives and discoveries were redefining the way people thought about their social and physical environments. Key political changes also helped shape society.

Political Changes

At the beginning of the 20th century, imperialism was creating sometimes fierce competition among nations. Two world wars raised the conflict to the level of deadly force, although allies standing together developed a good working relationship and understanding of one another. The Cold War divided much of the world into camps, stressing differences rather than commonalities. After the Cold War, however, both economic and cultural barriers fell, bringing countries closer together. In some key ways, collaboration gradually replaced competition as nations formed cooperative regional organizations such as the European Union and NAFTA as well as global associations such as the United Nations for conflict resolution and the World Trade Organization to regulate international trade.

Social Changes

Along with these changes came social changes. International organizations and collaboration brought people of different cultures into closer contact with one another, just as international exchanges had done in the past. Rights movements—civil rights and women’s rights especially—helped bring formerly marginalized voices into the mainstream conversation.

People were also questioning long-held beliefs about humans and their environments. Albert Einstein (1879–1955) and other scientists upended people’s understanding of physical reality. Sigmund Freud (1856–1939) probed the invisible inner workings of the human psyche. Jean-Paul Sartre (1905–1980) philosophized that nothing had meaning. Technological developments in communication, transportation, and medical and other scientific knowledge brought change after change—from horses to cars, from telegraph to radio, from antibiotics to vaccines.

Artistic Changes

These changes were reflected in the visual arts, literature, and music of the time. Cubism, a style Picasso used in his famous painting “Guernica,” challenged traditional perspective in the visual arts. Stream-of-consciousness writing by such authors as Marcel Proust (1871–1922) and James Joyce (1882–1941) rebelled against traditional narrative forms, and atonal music such as that composed by Arnold

Schoenberg (1874–1951) explored musical expression outside of familiar tonalities, to name just a few examples. Many scholars suggest these expressions were a response to the mechanized, urbanized society widespread in the early 1900s.

An especially vibrant expression of 20th century perspectives was the Harlem Renaissance, a “rebirth” of African American culture as it sought to distance itself from the stereotyped portrayal of African Americans in literature and onstage. During the Harlem Renaissance, writers, poets, musicians, and social activists made Harlem a thriving center of energy for black artistic expression. Jazz emerged and became an international language.

Global Consumer and Popular Culture

In the 1920s, **popular culture**—the culture of everyday people rather than the educated elite—expressed itself through new media: radio and motion pictures. Radio, movies, and later television created a culture shared throughout a nation, and eventually throughout the world. Radio provided a variety of programs, from easy-going comedies to music hours featuring the latest in big band entertainment, and during World War II it played a vital role in national defense in most industrialized nations. Movies provided relief from the anxieties and pressures of the Great Depression while reflecting it in its themes. Charlie Chaplin’s “Little Tramp” character of silent movies epitomized the down and out.

Radio and television also ushered in the consumer culture that characterized much of the developed world after World War II. The “free” programming reaching into the homes of millions of people carried with it commercials for the products of sponsors. Industry turned from wartime production to the manufacture of consumer products, and people around the world were eager to buy. In the 1990s, the internet connected people around the globe.

In the early 21st century, the United States remained the world’s most influential culture. Through **Americanization**, people the world over learned more about the United States than Americans learned about the rest of the world. This dominance of the United States created resentment among those who felt that American popular culture diluted their unique cultural identity. In the early 21st century, many people around the world considered American consumer culture to be **throwaway culture**. They objected to the waste and pollution that was part of the focus on newer, cheaper, more disposable products.

English Spreads and Changes

Through the influence of the British Empire and through American movies, corporations, and scientific research, English became a second language in much of the world. In the early 21st century, about 300 million people in China were learning English—which was about the same as the population of the United States.

Many English-speaking corporations moved their call centers to India and the Philippines, where there were large numbers of fluent English speakers who would work for relatively low wages. As more people from other countries learned English, they spoke it in new ways. For example, Indian English included the word *prepone*, which meant the opposite of *postpone*.

Global Brands and Commerce

As multinational corporations advertised and distributed their products, **global brands** such as Apple, Nike, and Rolex emerged. A company called Interbrand names the top global companies each year based on financial performance, ability to influence consumer choice, and ability to command a premium price. The 2018 winners included Toyota, which sells more cars than any other brand; tech giants Apple, Google, Amazon,

Microsoft, and Facebook; and the company that famously announced its desire to “buy the world a Coke” in its 1971 multicultural commercial, Coca-Cola.

Online commerce makes shopping a global affair as well. Sites such as Amazon (in more than 17 countries) and Alibaba (mostly in Asia) make a massive selection of items available. The online auction site eBay operates in 30 different countries. Although their platform is international, these online retailers must pay a variety of sales taxes according to the laws of each country or state in which they sell products.

Global Influences on Popular Culture

Although the United States is still the dominant culture internationally, influences from other cultures have been welcomed in the United States and elsewhere. For example, Indian musicals made in **Bollywood**, the popular name given to the film industry in Bombay (Mumbai), enjoy popularity worldwide. Bollywood itself is a blend of film styles. India makes more films than any other country.

A style of Japanese hand-drawn animation known as **anime** became hugely influential. In 2016, 60 percent of the world’s animated TV shows were based on anime. Anime was introduced to American culture in the 1980s through the movie *Akira*. Television shows in the late 1990s, such as *Pokémon* and *Dragon Ball*, brought anime into the American mainstream.

Reggae music from Jamaica is global in both its origins and its popularity. It emerged in the 1960s, blending New Orleans jazz and rhythm and blues styles with mento, itself a fusion of African rhythms and European elements. It is associated with the Rastafari religion which promotes Pan-Africanism, the connectedness of all Africans whether they live in Africa or in the diaspora. It often blended with musical traditions of other countries as its popularity became global in the 1970s through the music of Bob Marley.

Another style of music that fused a variety of traditions and became a global hit was the Korean music nicknamed **K-pop**. Its artists, who sang in a mixture of Korean and English, became global stars in the early 21st century. Their popularity has also boosted the popularity of other South Korean exports. In fact they are considered so valuable that the government has invested in K-Pop concerts and tours. Internet-based **streaming video** sites such as YouTube and Vimeo helped popularize K-Pop and other musical styles with a global audience.

Social Media and Censorship

Facebook, Twitter, Snapchat, and other forms of **social media** changed communication. They can inspire but also manipulate, as attested to by Malala Yousafzai, the Pakistani activist and the youngest Nobel Prize laureate. People debated their power for good or ill.

In some countries, such as China, the government banned social media from outside the country. However, China allowed its own forms of social media, including WeChat, Weibo, and YuKu. The government censored any criticism of the Communist Party that appeared on these platforms.

Global Culture in Sports

The globalization of popular culture included sports as well. The establishment of the modern **Olympic Games** in 1896 reflected an early sense of internationalism. In 2016, the Olympics in Rio de Janeiro, Brazil, attracted about 3.6 billion viewers worldwide.

Soccer emerged as the most popular sport in the world, in part because it required so little equipment that it could be played almost anywhere. The **World Cup** soccer competition rivaled the Olympics as a global event.

Basketball also became a global game, and players such as Michael Jordan and LeBron James became internationally known. In 2014, the National Basketball Association (NBA) included players from 30 countries or territories. In 2017, reporters from 35 countries covered the NBA Finals. In 2018, 27 percent of major league baseball players were foreign-born, from 21 different countries.

As sports became more popular globally, they also became more available to women. Some Muslim female athletes—including fencers, weightlifters, beach volleyball players, hockey players, and figure skaters—competed while wearing hijab, known in English as a headscarf. They adapted athletic wear so they could compete while following traditional Muslim practices regarding female modesty in clothing. Hajar Abulfazi, a soccer player from Afghanistan, explained that she wore the hijab to “show the next generation and their parents how Afghan women and girls can maintain respect for religion and culture while pursuing sports achievements.”

Global Culture and Religion

Globalization promoted new religious developments. In the 1970s, former Beatles band member George Harrison released a song containing the words of a Hindu mantra, or sacred utterance. This launched the popularity of the **Hari Krishna** movement, which was based on traditional Hindu scriptures. It quickly gained popularity in the United States and Europe. In what some called **New Age** religions, forms of Buddhism, shamanism, Sufism, and other religious traditions were revived and adapted for a largely Western audience.

In China in the 1990s, **Falun Gong**, a movement based on Buddhist and Daoist traditions, gained popularity. Although the communist government allowed the movement at first, Chinese authorities began to restrict it in 1999. The suppression prompted international protests against the Chinese regime for human rights abuses.

In the early 21st century, most people around the world identified with some form of religion. However, an increasing number of younger people in many countries identified as **nonbelievers**. They were not necessarily atheists (people who do not believe in any god) or agnostics (people who believe that it may not be possible to know if God exists). Most were simply not affiliated with any religious institution.

Key Terms by Theme

SOCIETY: Belief Systems

Hari Krishna, New Age, Falun Gong, nonbelievers

CULTURE: Arts

Consumer culture, modernism, popular culture, Bollywood, anime, reggae, K-pop

TECHNOLOGY: Commerce and Entertainment

Global brand, streaming video, online commerce, social media

CULTURE: Sports

Olympic Games, World Cup, National Basketball Association (NBA)

SOCIETY: Influences

Americanization, Malala Yousafzai, throwaway culture

9.7

Topic 9.7: Resistance to Globalization

Essential Question: What were the various responses to globalization from 1900 to the present?

While globalization of culture has in many ways raised awareness and appreciation of cultural diversity, the economics of globalization have led to serious concerns. Resistance to globalization has come from non-governmental and governmental sources. A network of opponents to economic globalization promotes equal distribution of economic resources, challenging the lopsided economy described above by author Bill Bryson. Participants contend that corporations and global financial institutions, such as the International Monetary Fund (IMF) and the World Trade Organization (WTO) work to maximize profit and sacrifice safety and labor conditions, environmental conservation needs, and national independence.

Some countries, such as North Korea, have resisted economic and cultural globalization. Others, such as Saudi Arabia and China, have resisted cultural globalization, particularly through controlling the internet. These countries want goods and money to flow freely among nations, but they are more restrictive of how people and ideas cross borders.

The Roots of Globalization and Anti-Globalization

Globalization affected the relationships among and within nations. After World War II, several organizations contributed to the growth of a global economy. The General Agreement on Tariffs and Trade (GATT), the European Economic Union, Mercosur (in South America), and the Association of Southeast Asian Nations (ASEAN) all formed between 1947 and the early 1990s. These organizations were meant to help economies and expand prosperity. Falling tariff rates eased the movement of goods across national borders.

In 1995, the World Trade Organization (WTO) took over GATT's operations. The WTO makes rules for more than 90 percent of international trade. The rules and its closed board meetings led people to believe that the WTO did not care for their welfare.

The “Battle of Seattle”

In 1999, protests erupted at a WTO conference in Seattle. The WTO had planned a round of trade negotiations for the new millennium. Then more than 40,000 protesters arrived. Special interest groups, including labor unions, family farmers, student groups, and environmentalists shut down the WTO's meeting and drew global attention to the issues of the new global economy. Anti-WTO demonstrations took place in dozens of other countries as well.

Many people consider the Seattle protests to be the beginning of the anti-globalization movement. They were also one of the first social movements to be coordinated through the internet. However, the WTO itself remained powerful. China joined in 2001, increasing the group's territorial and economic reach.

Why Resist Globalization?

Why did people protest globalization when it made goods and services more freely available? Opponents had different reasons. Many of them centered on the idea that consumers who buy products and services with a few clicks often have no idea who creates those products and services and what the short-term and long-term costs really are. A series of scandals in different parts of the world showed some of the hazards of globalization. Working conditions are especially problematic.

- Much of the chocolate that consumers bought in the early 21st century had its origins in **child labor** in West Africa. The largest chocolate companies missed deadlines in 2005, 2008, and 2010 to make sure their suppliers did not use child laborers. In 2015, the U.S. Department of Labor estimated that more than 2 million children took part in dangerous labor in the cocoa-growing regions of the world.
- Working conditions in Western nations could also be harsh. In 2019, employees of Amazon's warehouses described such intense pressure to fulfill orders that workers risked being fired if they took a bathroom break. At the time, Amazon employed more than 600,000 people and another 100,000 at holiday time, though not all of them worked in warehouses.
- In 2013, the collapse of the Rana Plaza factory, an eight-story building in Dhaka, Bangladesh, shocked the world. More than 1,000 people died and another 2,500 suffered injuries. Most of the dead and injured were female garment workers who made clothing for Western companies. Muhammad Yunus, a Bangladeshi who won the Nobel Prize for Peace, called the disaster "a symbol of our failure as a nation." He suggested that companies worldwide set an international minimum wage.

Environmental Damage

Critics of globalization pointed out that the fuel involved in shipping products vast distances increased the amount of greenhouse gases in the environment, thus worsening the climate emergency. Also, in the early 21st century, Brazil cut down thousands of square miles of rainforest each year to make way for cattle farms. The meat was one of the country's most valuable exports.

Proponents of globalization argue that it can help the environment. They point out that Costa Rica and other nations have developed ecotourism industries that make profits while showing off the country's natural wonders.

Threats to National Sovereignty

Many liberal groups believe that globalization often harms children, workers, and the environment. However, many conservative groups also distrust globalization.

In 2016, 52 percent of British voters agreed to leave the European Union, an international political and economic organization of 28 countries. This British exit was nicknamed **Brexit**. Britain was a founding member of the EU in 1993, but conservative British politicians argued that the EU interfered with Britain's right to govern itself. Many Brexit proponents contended that the EU required Britain to accept too many immigrants.

Negotiations to leave the EU broke down when British prime minister Theresa May was unable to craft a deal that was acceptable to her own political party, let alone to the other 27 nations in the EU. May resigned in 2019. Brexit critics believed that leaving the EU would be economically disastrous for Britain, an island nation that depended on imports.

Economic Resistance

Critics of globalization believe that international agreements and institutions can destroy small local businesses. Large corporations could use the International Monetary Fund (IMF) and the WTO to achieve their goals, but local individuals and businesses could not. For example, many small businesses and individuals could not cross state lines or national borders. They could not extract the natural resources they needed or use the wide variety of labor sources that big corporations and transnational businesses used. In an attempt to combat globalization, some businesses, especially restaurants, have insisted on providing their customers locally grown or made products.

Globalization critics also distrusted the World Bank, an international organization affiliated with the United Nations. The bank's mission is to improve the economic development of member states. In 1988, about 20,000 people protested meetings of the IMF and the World Bank in West Berlin. Protesters insisted that these agencies favored richer nations over poorer ones. In 2001 and 2002, anti-IMF and anti-World Bank protests took place in 23 countries, including many of the world's poorest nations. In 2014, the World Bank made reforms to its structure and governance, but critics maintained that the world's richest nations controlled the bank.

What Measures Do Anti-Globalists Favor?

The anti-globalization movement has grown into a social movement as well. Its followers tend to focus on these issues:

- **Human rights**, which are basic freedoms that every person has, such as freedom from slavery and freedom to express opinions
- **Fair trade**, which is a system that ensures the person who provided the good or service receives a reasonable payment for it
- **Sustainable development**, which means business ventures that allow people and companies to make a profit without preventing future generations from meeting their own needs
- **Debt relief or debt restructuring** so that countries that owe huge sums to the IMF do not have to risk economic breakdown

Anti-Globalization and Social Media

Anti-globalization activists have used the internet to perpetuate and spread their ideas in nearly every country on Earth. However, access to global communication through social media outlets has met resistance in some countries. In 2009, more than 1,000 rioters clashed with police in the city of Urumqi, China. The unrest resulted from tensions between members of the Han ethnicity and members of the **Uighur** ethnicity, most of whom are Muslim. Chinese authorities blamed the riots on the growth of social unrest based on Twitter and Facebook and banned both platforms. The government introduced a new platform called **Weibo** as a substitute. It could stream incoming posts while tracking and blocking "sensitive" content. Weibo has become a vehicle of negotiation between the Chinese government and its citizens.

In some other countries, governments allow social media platforms but influence or control their content. For example, critics contend that Saudi Arabian officials use Twitter and Facebook to harass and intimidate citizens. "If the same tools we joined for our liberation are being used to oppress us and undermine us, and used to spread fake news and hate, I'm out of these platforms," explained **Manal al-Sharif**, a women's rights activist.

In some parts of the world, resistance to participating in an interconnected society persists. The coming together of economies and cultures threatens some people's and governments' sense of autonomy and identity.

Key Terms by Theme

SOCIETY: Leaders and Thinkers

Muhammad Yunus, Theresa May, Manal al-Sharif

SOCIETY: Issues and Problems

Child labor, Rana Plaza factory

GOVERNMENT: Politics

Brexit, Uighur

TECHNOLOGY: E-Commerce and Social Media

Amazon, Weibo

9.8

Topic 9.8: Institutions Developing in a Globalized World

Essential Question: How did globalization change international interactions between states after 1900?

In an era of increasing globalization, people formed international organizations to promote useful working relationships among nations. Dean Acheson, a U.S. secretary of state, described how the mission of the United Nations (UN) fit with this goal of maintaining world peace and making international cooperation easier. Working through agencies such as the IMF (International Monetary Fund) and the World Bank, the UN provides technical advice and loans to developing nations. Other international organizations and treaties, such as the World Trade Organization (WTO) and the General Agreement on Tariffs and Trade (GATT), promote free trade worldwide. However, the United Nations was born of the devastation of world wars and preventing conflict was its primary goal.

The United Nations: A Structure for Peace

Despite ideological differences, the Allies shared a commitment to preventing conflicts from escalating into war. In 1943, representatives of the United States, Great Britain, the Soviet Union, and China discussed the idea of the United Nations. The UN was born on October 24, 1945, a day still honored as United Nations Day. At its founding, there were 51 member states. By 2019, that number had grown to 193.

League of Nations vs. United Nations

Countries had tried to create a similar international organization previously. In 1920, at the end of World War I, the Allied powers created the League of Nations. Its purpose was to resolve international disputes and prevent another world war. However, the United States never joined the League. Some Americans believed that doing so would undercut U.S. authority. The League disbanded after it failed to prevent World War II. Countries hoped that a new, more powerful organization would help keep the peace. This time around, all the major powers realized they would need to belong for the organization to have any chance of success.

Assemblies of the United Nations

Within the UN, six main bodies implement its work.

- The **General Assembly** is the only UN body in which all members have representation. It decides important questions on peace and security, admission of new members, and budget. To make a decision, a two-thirds majority of those present and voting must agree. Each member nation has one vote.
- The **Security Council** acts on issues the General Assembly debates. It may even use military force against a country accused of violating UN principles. The Security Council has five permanent members, the leading Allies of World War II: the United States, France, Great Britain, Russia, and China. It elects 10 other members on a rotating basis. Each permanent member has veto power in the Security Council. Granting veto power to these five nations was controversial in 1945. Other nations resented giving them so much power. Conflicts among these five often prevented the UN from taking action to confront problems.
- The **Secretariat** is the UN's administrative arm. The secretary general leads and influences the entire organization. He or she usually comes from a small, neutral nation so one of the more powerful countries cannot have an outsized influence on what the UN does. All five permanent members of the Security Council must approve the secretary general's selection. Staffers of the Secretariat must take an oath of loyalty to the UN and are not allowed to receive instructions from their home countries.

- The **International Court of Justice** settles disputes countries bring to it about international law. The court has no power to enforce its decisions, but the Security Council may make recommendations or take action in response to a judgment. Most countries obey the court's decisions.
- The **Economic and Social Council** is the largest and most complex part of the UN. It directs economic, social, humanitarian, and cultural activities. In the early 21st century, the council promoted green energy and looked for ways to raise people's wages in poorer countries.
- The **Trusteeship Council** supervised the governments of trust territories, including land that is now Israel, Papua New Guinea, and Nauru. The council's mission was to help those areas become self-governing and independent. The last trust territory, Palau, became independent in 1994. Since then, the council has suspended its operations. Some people have suggested that the council should become trustees of the seafloor or of outer space.

The UN and Human Rights

One of the goals of the United Nations was the promotion of human rights. The UN adopted the **Universal Declaration of Human Rights** in 1948. It included several basic rights and freedoms:

- Freedom from slavery, torture, and degrading punishment
- Equality before the law
- The right to a nationality
- The right to own property, either individually or with others
- Freedom of thought, conscience, religion, opinion, and expression
- Equal pay for equal work
- The right to rest and to enjoy paid holidays
- Equal rights for children born within and outside of marriage
- The right to adequate food, clothing, shelter, health care, and education

The declaration was a milestone achievement. Individuals from different countries, cultures, and legal traditions came together to draft a document that set standards for all governments and all people. People have translated the declaration into more than 500 languages. Since 1948, the UN has investigated abuses of human rights, such as genocide, war crimes, government oppression, and crimes against women.

Keeping the Peace

Since the end of World War II, the United Nations has been well known for its **peacekeeping** actions. Of primary importance is prevention through diplomacy. The UN sends special envoys to help resolve problems peacefully, mindful that it was formed to prevent "the scourge of war."

The organization has also frequently sent peacekeeping forces, consisting of civilians, police, and troops from member countries, to try to ease tensions in trouble spots. The first peacekeeping mission was related to the 1948 Arab-Israeli conflict in Palestine. After that, UN peacekeepers served in the Congo, Lebanon, East Timor, and the Balkans.

Expansion in the 1990s

In 1988, the UN had only five active peacekeeping operations. By 1993, it had 28. Individual countries supplied soldiers to form UN peacekeeping forces. They came from dozens of countries—including Canada, Venezuela, Ukraine, Egypt, and Bangladesh. The soldiers were usually lightly armed and instructed to return fire only if attacked.

In the 1990s, the United Nations sent peacekeeping missions to hotspots in Africa, Central America, the Caribbean, and Southeast Asia. In Africa, UN troops kept peace while Namibia changed from a South African colony to an independent state. Peacekeeping troops helped end devastating civil wars in Mozambique, El Salvador, and Cambodia. In Haiti, they maintained peace while a democratic government replaced a military dictatorship.

Some efforts failed. In 1994, UN peacekeepers could not prevent massacres in Rwanda. In 1995, UN forces withdrew from Somalia while a civil war raged there. The struggle to bring order to Bosnia in the former Yugoslavia took years and had mixed results. As a UN officer in Bosnia observed, “It’s much easier to come in and keep peace when there’s some peace around.”

Challenges for Peacekeeping Missions

One problem faced by UN peacekeepers has been their slow response. By the time countries agree on the UN mission and send forces, the war might have grown and become hard to control. A second problem happens when people expect the peacekeeping troops to stop the fighting instead of simply monitoring a truce, running free elections, and providing supplies to civilian populations. By 2019, the United Nations was involved in fewer but larger peacekeeping missions. The number of missions had dropped to 15, but the number of troops involved had increased.

Year	Number of UN Peacekeepers Deployed
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2000	30,000
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2007	80,000
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2014	95,000
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2019	102,000
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Other UN Priorities

In addition to assemblies and peacekeeping, the UN has other missions.

Protecting Refugees

The UN also protects refugees. In times of war, famine, and natural disasters, people often flee their country and seek refuge in a safer location. Working through partners such as NGOs (non-governmental organizations) and the agency of UNHCR (United Nations High Commissioner for Refugees), the UN provides food, medicine, and temporary shelter. Among the earliest refugees the UN helped were Palestinians who fled the disorder following the UN partition of Palestine to create the state of Israel in 1948. In 2019, the UN helped refugees who fled Venezuela and Myanmar.

Feeding the Hungry

In 1961, the UN established its **World Food Program (WFP)** to provide food aid. Its first missions were in Iran, Thailand, and Algeria in 1962. Since its founding, the WFP has fed more than 1.4 billion people, many of whom were affected by natural disasters or political unrest.

Supporting Education, Science, and Culture

Fighting in World War II destroyed schools, libraries, and museums in many European countries. In 1945, the UN created the **United Nations Educational, Scientific, and Cultural Organization (UNESCO)**. After repairing war damage, UNESCO began to focus on developing literacy, extending free education, and protecting cultural and environmental sites by designating them World Heritage Sites. The United Kingdom, Singapore, Israel, and the United States have all left UNESCO in disputes over politics and priorities. Although the UK and Singapore rejoined the organization, as of 2019 the United States had not.

Other UN Missions

The UN also created the World Health Organization, which improves human health by controlling epidemics and providing vaccines. The **United Nations Children's Fund (UNICEF)** was created to help children after World War II. After that, the fund provided aid to children in the developing world and at disaster sites. The UN program **Human Rights Watch (HRW)** has monitored human rights abuses in 100 countries. HRW uses the Universal Declaration of Human Rights as its guide and advocates for policies that prevent abuses.

The Global Goals

In 2015, the UN General Assembly set 17 goals to accomplish by 2030. These included wiping out hunger and poverty, achieving gender equality, ensuring clean water and sanitation for all, and fighting climate change. On this project, the UN worked with NGOs, including the Bill and Melinda Gates Foundation.

International Financial NGOs

Several NGOs have worked closely with the United Nations on economic issues. Each NGO was independent and caused controversy.

The World Bank

Created in 1944, the **World Bank** fought poverty by providing loans to countries. It first focused on dams and roads. Later it expanded its mission to social projects, such as education and disease prevention. Critics charged that the World Bank often ignored how its projects damaged the environment and local culture. For example, a dam might permanently flood many farms. A highway might promote growth, but the resulting profits might all go to investors overseas rather than people living in the region.

The International Monetary Fund (IMF)

Created in 1945, the IMF was designed to help a country's economy by promoting stable currency exchange rates. It focused on making short-term loans and providing economic advice to countries. Some economists argued that conditions on IMF loans failed to take into account each country's individual needs. Large, wealthy nations influenced the IMF. It acted on their behalf, critics insisted, even while it claimed to help developing nations.

The IMF and the World Bank worked together to create Pathways for Peace in 2018. This report described how countries could work together to prevent violent conflicts.

NGOs Separate from the UN

Although the UN is well funded and powerful, other NGOs also help maintain world peace and improve communication among countries during a time of globalization. For example, the **International Peace Bureau** was founded in 1891 and won the Nobel Prize for Peace in 1910. It began working for nuclear disarmament in

the 1980s. It also lobbied governments to reduce military spending. By 2019, it had 300 member organizations in 70 countries.

Key Terms by Theme

GOVERNMENT: Parts of the United Nations

General Assembly, Security Council, Secretariat, secretary-general, Economic and Social Council, Trusteeship Council

ECONOMICS: International Organizations

World Bank, International Monetary Fund (IMF)

SOCIETY: International Cooperation

Universal Declaration of Human Rights, peacekeeping action, World Food Program (WFP), United Nations Educational, Scientific, and Cultural Organization (UNESCO), Human Rights Watch, International Peace Bureau

Topic 9.9: Continuity and Change in a Globalized World

Essential Question: How did science, technology, politics, justice, transportation, communication, and the environment change and stay the same after 1900?

One perspective shared by many scholars is that the 20th and 21st centuries were periods of unprecedented change. One factor in bringing about this transformation was the pace of discovery in science and the number of technological achievements made since the turn of the 20th century. These scientific and technological advancements led to changes in society, politics, economics, culture, and the environment. While many outcomes of these advancements were positive, they also included some unintended consequences that had negative impacts. Responses to these outcomes were varied.

Advances in Science and Technology

People made significant advances in understanding the universe and the natural world. These included:

The Origin of the Universe

Several scientific theories tried to determine how the universe began. One of the best-known and best-supported theories was the *Big Bang*. This theory, that the universe started with one single cosmic event, led to a better understanding of the universe as well as atomic and subatomic science.

Wave Science

Discoveries extended human knowledge and use of radio, light, sound, and microwaves. These breakthroughs led to improvements in radio and cellular communications as well as faster internet service.

Medical Science

Experts made discoveries about germs, viruses, diseases, and the human body. These discoveries led to cures or vaccines for common diseases such as polio, tuberculosis, and tetanus. Experts pioneered new treatments for chronic diseases such as cancer and arthritis. The discovery of antibiotics, such as penicillin, helped people recover from or prevent infections. Reliable methods of birth control allowed women to control the size of their families. These and other medical advancements meant that people could live longer and better lives.

Energy Technologies

Inventors and entrepreneurs made advancements in extracting and producing oil. Nuclear power became a significant source of energy. Renewable energy sources, including wind, solar, and thermal energy, became much cheaper to produce. In 2018, the International Renewable Energy Agency predicted that renewable energy sources would be consistently cheaper than fossil fuels by 2020. The increase in sources of power led to increased productivity, greater production of material goods, and faster transportation.

Communication Technologies

In the 20th century, radio and television technology was further developed and telephone coverage increased so that most people eventually had a telephone in their homes. Internet communication and cell phones then replaced the older systems of communication. As a result, the amount and extent of mass communications increased, as did the global transfer of information.

Transportation Technologies

Airplanes were invented in the first years of the 20th century. Later, jet airplanes closed the distance between regions of the world. Shipping technology improved, with faster and larger ships carrying prefabricated shipping containers. These ships and planes could transport more goods farther and faster than ever before. Improved transportation technology resulted in the expansion of the global trade network and interactions among cultures.

Agricultural Technologies

Scientists produced genetically modified crops that were more resistant to drought and disease and had higher yields. The most significant effect of these advances, known as the Green Revolution, was higher population growth rates, especially within developing countries. Another effect was the decline in biodiversity, as these genetically modified crops began to be cultivated at the expense of local crop types.

Changes in a Globalized World

Partly as a result of the advances in science and technology, the world experienced a number of significant changes to societies, economies, politics, cultures, and the environment.

Social Changes

During this period, the world's population grew faster than at any previous time in history. The increase in population meant increasing challenges to existing social orders. The greatest growth rate in population occurred in developing countries, while developed countries saw a slowing of their population growth. In the developing countries, the population growth rate was largest in the lower socioeconomic classes. Improvements in communication and transportation made it easier for people to migrate from less developed countries to more developed ones. That led to a "brain drain" in some countries as more highly educated and skilled people left their home countries to find jobs elsewhere.

Girls and women in this era began to experience an increase in socioeconomic status, especially in the more developed countries. Women in these societies began to enter careers traditionally reserved for men. Their right to vote in elections was finally legalized, and in some cases women held the highest political offices in their nations. Because birth control allowed women to make choices, fertility declined in developed countries. Some women chose to put off having children until later in life or decided to not have children at all. In some countries, though, women saw little improvement in their status as societies resisted the change that was happening elsewhere.

Economic Changes

The trend toward economic globalization that started in the 19th century intensified during the 20th and 21st centuries. More developed nations continued to exploit less developed areas of the world, harvesting their raw materials and using the less developed areas as markets for finished goods. However, significant changes to the world economic order took place. While the West, and especially the United States, was still a dominant economic force in the world economy, its superiority was being challenged by new sources of economic strength. Governments in Japan, Hong Kong, South Korea, Taiwan, and Singapore began policies that led to economic growth. These policies started the trend of Asian economies, which relied on inexpensive labor and high-quality manufacturing, competing against the Western economies to make consumer goods and high-tech products. Because of the modernization policies established after the death of Mao Zedong, which relaxed government control, China eventually became the second-largest economy in the world after the United States.

and a major exporter of goods to the rest of the world. India became an economic powerhouse by developing a labor force that specialized in software development and engineering.

Economic Policy Initiatives

Program	Goal	Results
Soviet Union: Lenin's New Economic Policy (1921–1928)	Increase farm production and ease the transition to a communist economy	Peasants could own land. Small businesses were allowed. The Soviet economy began to recover from the Russian Civil War.
Soviet Union: Stalin's First Five-Year Plan (1928–1932)	Rapidly industrialize the Soviet economy	Industrial output grew. Farms were collectivized instead of having individual owners. Massive famines occurred.
China: Mao Zedong's Great Leap Forward (1958–1960)	Rapidly industrialize the Chinese economy	Peasants on collective farms were forced to produce steel using crude furnaces. Massive famines occurred.
China: Deng Xiaoping's Four Modernizations (1970s)	Attract foreign investment and move toward a market-oriented economy	China opened its economy to foreign producers. Industrial output increased, and China's economy grew rapidly.
United States: Roosevelt's New Deal (1933–1941)	Stimulate the economy and provide jobs during the Great Depression	The government hired millions to work on infrastructure projects, enacted Social Security, and regulated investments and banks.
United States: Reagan's Economic Recovery Tax Act (1981)	Stimulate the economy out of recession with supply-side economics	The economy came out of recession. Stock market and income inequality rose.
Great Britain: Expansion of the Welfare State (1945–1951)	Reduce income instability and inequality and provide a social safety net	The government provided citizens with health care, pensions, free education, and help for the poor. It also created huge bureaucracies.
Great Britain: Thatcher's Privatization of Industry (1980s)	Stimulate the British economy and reduce inflation	The economy grew and inflation was reduced, but unemployment rose to record levels.

Political Changes

Mass protest movements helped bring about political and social change. Demonstrations in India showed how to effectively use nonviolent resistance and win social and political change. Activists championed civil rights in the United States, Northern Ireland, Canada, and other countries. Anti-war protests erupted in the United States and Western Europe. Women's rights movements emerged in the Western democracies and spread across the globe. Protests against the system of apartheid brought an end to racial segregation in South Africa.

Democracy movements led to political protests and revolutions in North Africa and the Middle East called the “Arab Spring.”

Governments were sometimes slow to respond to these calls for change. In some cases, they persecuted, imprisoned, or attacked the protesters.

During this time period, governments also began to play a larger role in managing or regulating their nations’ economies. This increased government intervention in the economy was a change from the free-market, or *laissez-faire*, economics practiced in the previous era.

Cultural Changes

Once information (and people) could quickly spread across the globe, the pace of cultural interactions and exchanges intensified. People all over the world consumed Western culture, particularly aspects that originated in the United States, in the form of movies, television shows, and music. Fashion styles that appeared in one area of the world quickly were imitated and adopted in other regions. A consumer culture spread.

One significant change in the process of cultural exchanges from the previous era was that these exchanges were often a two-way street. For instance, while global audiences watched Hollywood movies, cuisine from China, Japan, India, and Latin America often found its way to the plates of Americans and Europeans. Music and art from East Asia found a loyal fan base in the United States. The Internet helped increase the rate and scope of these transfers, and advances in cellular technology made even the most remote areas on Earth accessible to these cultural exchanges.

Environmental Changes

In the 20th and 21st centuries, humans attempted to overcome the challenges of their environment in many new ways. With jet airplanes, travel between points on the globe was measured in hours rather than in days, months, or years. New technologies in petroleum extraction meant that sources of energy were cheaper and more abundant than previously imagined. The Space Age broke the terrestrial limits placed on humans by their environment, and space exploration became possible.

However, although humans overcame some challenges, they also harmed the environment. Airborne pollution increased as factories, automobiles, and homes got their power from carbon-based fuels. Water pollution also increased as people and companies dumped waste in rivers, lakes, and oceans. Debates about the sources and causes of climate change developed as average temperatures around the globe increased, polar ice caps began to melt, and more intense and catastrophic weather events occurred.